

A Grammar of Standard Classical Arabic

The Authors

2026-10-07

Work in progress

© 2023 Author Names
All rights reserved.

This work may not be distributed or modified, without written permission from the copyright holder.

This book is typeset with KOMA-Script and Lua^AT_EX (via Quarto and pandoc) in the Charis, Vazirmatn, Kitab, and Amiri typefaces.

Work in progress

<https://adamiturabi.github.io/arabic-tutorial-book/>

Contents

Preface	5
I. Basics	9
1. Introduction	11
1.1. History of Arabic	12
1.2. What defines SCA	13
1.3. MSA	14
1.4. Spoken SCA	14
1.5. Scope of this book	15
1.6. Organization of this book	16
1.7. Composing in SCA	16
1.8. How to study from this book	16
1.9. Interpreting the Qur'ān	17
2. The Arabic script	21
2.1. The Arabic alphabet	21
2.2. Alternative order of letters	22
2.3. Writing Arabic words	22
2.4. Vowels and pronunciation marks.	27
2.5. Connecting hamzah	31
2.6. Pronouncing the end of a sentence	31
2.7. The Qur'ānic script	32
3. The noun	35
3.1. Introduction	35
3.2. Definiteness	35
3.3. Case	38
3.4. Grammatical gender	38
3.5. Exercises	44
4. The nounal sentence	45
4.1. Introduction	45
4.2. Forming nounal sentences	45
4.3. Matching the gender between the subject and the info	46
4.4. Detached pronouns	48
4.5. A definite noun as the info	51
4.6. An indefinite noun as the subject	52
4.7. <i>wa</i> - “and”, <i>fa</i> - “so”/“and then”, and <i>aw</i> “or”	52

5. The prepositions	55
5.1. Introduction	55
5.2. True prepositions	55
5.3. Pseudo-prepositions	58
5.4. Attached pronouns	59
5.5. Translating prepositions	61
5.6. Sentences and phrases with prepositions	61
5.7. Sentences with an indefinite subject	62
5.8. Prepositions with multiple nouns/pronouns	62
5.9. To have something	63
6. The māḍī verb	65
6.1. Introduction	65
6.2. Tense and aspect	66
6.3. Arabic word roots	67
6.4. The form 1 māḍī verb	67
6.5. Verbal sentences	68
6.6. Verbs with doees	69
6.7. Verbs with doer pronouns	71
6.8. Verbs with doee pronouns	74
6.9. Multiple verbs for one doer	76
6.10. Order of words in a sentence	77
6.11. Negating māḍī verbs	79
6.12. The particle <i>قَدْ qad</i>	79
6.13. Separating doee pronouns from the verb	79
6.14. TODO	80
7. The attribute	81
7.1. Introduction	81
7.2. Adjectives in English	81
7.3. Terminology: the <i>attribute</i> and the <i>attributee</i>	82
7.4. Adjectival nouns in English	82
7.5. Adjectival nouns in Arabic and genderizability	83
7.6. The attribute and the attributee in attributee-attribute phrases	84
7.7. The Adjectival noun as the info of a sentence	86
7.8. Adjectival nouns used without a described noun	87
7.9. Adjectival nouns re-used as common nouns	87
7.10. Common-nouns used as attributes in a noun-phrase	88
7.11. Multiple adjectival nouns describing the same noun	89
7.12. A prepositional phrase separating the attribute from the attributee	89
8. The semi-flexible noun	91
8.1. Introduction	91
8.2. Feminine markers	92
8.3. Categories of semi-flexible nouns	93
9. The dual	97
9.1. Introduction	97

9.2.	Forming the dual	97
9.3.	Dual attributes and attributees in descriptive noun-phrases . . .	99
9.4.	Duals in nounal sentences	100
9.5.	Detached dual pronouns	100
9.6.	Attached dual pronouns	101
9.7.	Verbs with dual doers	103
10.	The sound plural	105
10.1.	Introduction	105
10.2.	The <i>ūn</i> sound plural	106
10.3.	The <i>āt</i> sound plural	107
10.4.	Conditions for forming the sound plural	110
10.5.	Detached plural pronouns	113
10.6.	Attached plural pronouns	114
10.7.	Verbs with plural doers	116
11.	The broken plural	123
11.1.	Introduction	123
11.2.	Review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns	124
11.3.	Patterns of the broken plural	125
11.4.	Co-existence of multiple broken plurals	139
11.5.	Co-existence of sound and broken plurals	141
11.6.	Usage of plurals	143
12.	Weak and doubled roots	147
12.1.	Introduction	147
12.2.	The weak middle-letter verb	147
12.3.	The weak final-letter verb	151
12.4.	The doubled verb	153
12.5.	كَانَ	153
13.	Annexation	155
13.1.	Introduction	155
13.2.	Forming the annexation	155
13.3.	Case of the annexed noun and annexed-to noun	156
13.4.	Definiteness of the annexation	156
13.5.	Broken plurals and <i>āt</i> sound plurals in annexations	158
13.6.	Attributes in an annexation	158
13.7.	Semi-flexible nouns in an annexation	160
13.8.	Annexations with more than two nouns	161
13.9.	Pronouns as annexed-to nouns	162
13.10.	Duals and <i>ūn</i> sound plurals in annexations	164
13.11.	Annexations with “and”	166
13.12.	Annexation to a sentence	167
13.13.	Usage of the annexation	168
14.	The numbers	169
14.1.	Introduction	169

14.2.	The number one	169
14.3.	The number two	169
14.4.	The numbers from three to ten	170
15.	Some irregular nouns	173
15.1.	Introduction	173
15.2.	The five nouns	173
15.3.	Other irregular nouns	178
16.	The proper noun	183
16.1.	Introduction	183
16.2.	Definiteness of proper nouns	184
16.3.	Meanings of names	184
16.4.	Flexibility of proper nouns	185
16.5.	The name فُلَان	189
16.6.	Irregular spelling of the name عَمْرُو ʿamr	189
16.7.	The Replacement	190
16.8.	Annexed names	190
16.9.	Names beginning with أَلْ	193
16.10.	Place names	194
16.11.	Names of tribes	194
16.12.	Titles	195
16.13.	Nicknames	197
16.14.	The affiliate adjectival noun	197
16.15.	Complete full names	198
17.	Calling out	199
17.1.	Introduction	199
17.2.	Calling out to specific persons	199
17.3.	Calling out to unspecified persons	202
17.4.	Omitting يَا yā	202
17.5.	Shortening the attached pronoun يَ ī “my”	203
17.6.	Calling out to Allāh by name	203
18.	The pointing nouns	205
18.1.	Introduction	205
18.2.	The pointing nouns in Arabic	205
18.3.	Definiteness of pointing nouns	206
18.4.	Pointing noun for plurals of non-intelligent beings	207
18.5.	The pointing noun phrase	207
18.6.	Pointing nouns as subjects	214
18.7.	Pointing nouns as other parts of speech	216
19.	The u-case muḍāriʿ verb	217
19.1.	Introduction	217
19.2.	Pattern for form 1	217
19.3.	Vowel-mark on the middle root letter	217
19.4.	Verb case	218

19.5. With doer nouns	219
19.6. With the direct doee	219
19.7. With doer pronouns	220
19.8. Future	221
19.9. Negation	221
19.10. With قَدْ	222
20. The maṣḍar	223
20.1. Introduction	223
20.2. Patterns of the maṣḍar for form 1 verbs	224
20.3. Usage of the maṣḍar	225
20.4. Multiple maṣḍars for the same verb	226
21. Some nouns derived from the verb	227
21.1. Introduction	227
22. The a-case muḍāriʿ verb	229
22.1. Introduction	229
22.2. Forming the a-case muḍāriʿ verb	229
22.3. After أَنْ 'an	231
22.4. After لِ li	233
22.5. After كَيْ kay	234
22.6. After حَتَّى ḥattā	234
22.7. After لَنْ lan	237
22.8. After إِذَنْ 'idhan	237
22.9. After وَ, ف, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ	237
23. The ø-case muḍāriʿ verb	239
23.1. Introduction	239
23.2. Forming the ø-case muḍāriʿ verb	239
23.3. With لِ for indirect commands	241
23.4. With لَا for prohibitions	241
23.5. With لَمْ for “did not”	242
23.6. With لَمْآ for “did not yet”	242
23.7. Other uses of the ø-case muḍāriʿ verb	242
23.8. The verb of command	243
24. The passive verb	247
24.1. Introduction	247
24.2. Forming the passive verb	247
24.3. The deputy doer	248
24.4. Impersonal use	249
24.5. Cases of the passive muḍāriʿ verb	251
24.6. Usage of the passive verb	252
25. Additional forms of the verb	255
25.1. Introduction	255
25.2. The form 2 verb فَعَّلَ يُفَعِّلُ	255

25.3. The form 3 verb فَاعِلٌ يُفَاعِلُ	256
---	-----

II. Advanced 257

26. The Arabic grammatical tradition	259
26.1. History of the Arabic grammatical tradition	259
26.2. Attested usage	260
26.3. Analogy and grammatical reason	263
26.4. Anomalous usage	265
26.5. The balance between analogy and attested usage	266
26.6. Classical Arabic dialects and SCA	266
26.7. Taqdīr	270
26.8. Difference of opinion between the grammarians	278
26.9. Utilizing grammatical models	279
26.10. Understanding grammar rules	281
27. Sentence and government theory	283
27.1. Introduction	283
27.2. The theory of government	285
27.3. Some common governees	285
27.4. The two indispensable elements of a sentence	286
27.5. Foundational government	287
27.6. Dispensable elements	288
27.7. Refining the definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence	289
27.8. Identifying the indispensable elements in a nounal sentence	290
27.9. The compound sentence	292
27.10. Other complete sentences in place of nouns	296
27.11. A foreign element separating a governor from its governee	298
27.12. The state-of-affairs pronoun	298
27.13. Deletion	300
27.14. positional case	301
28. The doer participle as a verb-like governor	303
28.1. Introduction	303
28.2. The doer participle as a verb-like governor	303
28.3. The doer participle as the governor of a latent doer pronoun	305
28.4. The doer participle as the governor of a direct doee	306
28.5. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a direct doee	309
28.6. The doer participle as the governor of an overt doer pronoun	312
28.7. The sababi info	313
28.8. The sababi attribute	315
28.9. The doer participle as the governor of a non-sababi overt doer	317
28.10. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a doer	317
28.11. Superficial annexation	319
28.12. The doer participle with a pronoun as its direct doee	323
28.13. The doee participle as a verb-like governor	324

28.14. The static adjectival noun as a verb-like governor	324
28.15. The doer of a deverbal noun that fulfils the role of the info . . .	325
28.16. The maşdar as a verb-like governor	327
29. The maşdar	329
29.1. Introduction	329
29.2. The maşdar as a verb-like governor in an annexation	329
29.3. The tanwined maşdar as a verb-like governor	333
29.4. The maşdar prefixed by ال as a verb-like governor	333
29.5. The maşdar as a verb-like governor compared to the doer participle	334
29.6. The maşdar governing an indirect doee	334
29.7. The maşdar governing a direct doee with a strengthening-ل . . .	335
29.8. An intervening word in the annexation	335
29.9. The mîmi maşdar	335
29.10. The manufactured maşdar	335
29.11. The one-time noun	335
29.12. The noun of manner	335
29.13. The entity noun→maşdar crossover	335
29.14. The maşdar→entity noun crossover	336
29.15. The maşdar→adjectival noun crossover	338
29.16. The maşdar used figuratively to describe a concrete entity noun	339
30. The pertinence of the preposition	341
30.1. Pertinence vs government	341
30.2. Prepositions not needing a pertinentee	342
30.3. Valid pertinentees of the preposition	342
30.4. Multiple prepositions pertinent to the same pertinentee	344
30.5. A meaningful connection between the preposition and its perti- nentee	345
30.6. The intransitive verb with a preposition: the indirect doee . . .	346
30.7. General existence	347
30.8. General existence as the info of a sentence	348
30.9. Other taqdîred pertinentees besides general existence	348
30.10. The prepositional phrase as a attribute	349
30.11. The word-order for different categories of attributes	350
30.12. The prepositional phrase in other functions	350
30.13. Word order of the preposition and its pertinentee	351
31. The verb كَانَ	353
31.1. Introduction	353
31.2. كَانَ as a deficient verb	353
31.3. A كَانَ sentence as a nounal sentence and a verbal sentence . . .	354
31.4. Conjugation table for كَانَ	354
31.5. Word order of كَانَ, its subject, and its info	355
31.6. Negation of كَانَ	358
31.7. A pronoun as the info of كَانَ	358
31.8. A separating-pronoun between the subject and info of كَانَ . . .	359
31.9. A maşdari 'an as the subject or info of كَانَ	359

31.10. A complete sentence as the info of كَان	360
31.11. A state-of-affairs pronoun as the subject of كَان	361
31.12. كَان with a sababi info	361
31.13. كَان with a prepositional or adverbial info	362
31.14. كَان as a sufficient verb	362
31.15. Significations of the māḍī verb كَان	363
31.16. Significations of the u-case muḍārie verb يَكُونُ	365
31.17. Significance of the a-case muḍārie verb يَكُونُ	366
31.18. The ø-case muḍārie verb يَكُنْ	367
31.19. The verb of command كُنْ	368
31.20. The māḍī verb كَان combined with a muḍārie verb	369
31.21. The māḍī verb كَان combined with a māḍī verb	373
31.22. The muḍārie verb يَكُونُ combined with a māḍī verb	374
31.23. The verb of command كُنْ combined with a muḍārie verb	375
31.24. كَان with the ل of denial	375
31.25. كَان with the ل of deserving	375
31.26. FINI	376
31.27. TODO:	376
32. إِنَّ and its sisters	377
32.1. Introduction	377
32.2. إِنَّ <i>inna</i>	378
32.3. إِنَّ <i>anna</i>	379
32.4. كَأَنَّ <i>ka'anna</i>	384
32.5. لَكِنَّ <i>lākinna</i>	384
32.6. لَيْتَ <i>layta</i>	385
32.7. لَعَلَّ <i>laealla</i>	385
32.8. A prepositional/adverbial phrase as the info of إِنَّ and its sisters	387
32.9. A complete sentence as the info of إِنَّ and its sisters	387
32.10. Word order of the subject and the info with إِنَّ and its sisters	388
32.11. A state-of-affairs pronoun as the subject of إِنَّ and its sisters	390
32.12. إِنَّ with a ل of beginning	390
32.13. When to use إِنَّ vs أَنَّ	393
32.14. A conjunction following إِنَّ and its sisters	397
32.15. The lightened إِنَّ	398
32.16. The lightened أَنَّ	399
32.17. The lightened كَأَنَّ	404
32.18. The lightened لَكِنَّ	404
32.19. أَيْمًا and إِنَّمَّا	405
32.20. FINI	405
33. Significance of the doer participle	407
33.1. Introduction	407
33.2. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun	408
33.3. The doer participle used to indicate a future event	414
33.4. The doer participle used to indicate a hypothetical event	416
33.5. Interchangeability of the muḍārie verb and the doer participle	418

33.6.	The doer participle without جِئ used with a past significance . . .	418
33.7.	The doer participle prefixed with اِئ	419
33.8.	The doer participle→entity noun crossover	420
33.9.	Eligibility to be described with the doer participle	426
33.10.	Verbs for which the doer participle is rarely used	428
33.11.	Further reading	430
34.	The static adjectival noun	431
34.1.	Introduction	431
34.2.	The forms of the static adjectival noun	431
34.3.	The static adjectival noun as the governor of a latent doer pronoun	434
34.4.	The static adjectival noun as the governor of a sababi overt doer	434
34.5.	The static adjectival noun in a superficial annexation	435
34.6.	The static adjectival noun with a tamyiz	437
34.7.	The word order of the static adjectival noun and its a-case governee	438
34.8.	Uncommon constructions of the static adjectival noun	439
34.9.	Superficial annexation to an annexation	439
34.10.	Significance of the static adjectival noun	440
34.11.	The doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover	441
34.12.	The entity noun→static adjectival noun crossover	446
34.13.	The lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	447
34.14.	Definiteness of a static adjectival noun in a superficial annexation	449
34.15.	Further reading	450
35.	The adverb of time and the adverb of place	451
35.1.	Introduction	451
35.2.	Determining when a noun is an adverb of time or place	451
35.3.	The adverb of time	452
35.4.	The adverb of place	453
35.5.	The deputy adverb of time and place	458
35.6.	Using prepositions instead of adverbs of time and place	459
35.7.	Using مِنْ before some adverbs	461
35.8.	قَبْل and its sisters	462
35.9.	Similarity between adverbs of time/place and prepositions	464
35.10.	The governor of the adverb of time and place	464
35.11.	A adverb of time/place as a direct doee	467
35.12.	Multiple adverbs of place with a single verb	468
35.13.	Some commonly used adverbs of time and place	469
35.14.	TODO	473
36.	The absolute doee	475
36.1.	Introduction	475
36.2.	The reinforcing absolute doee	476
36.3.	The qualifying absolute doee	476
36.4.	The deputy to the maşdar as an absolute doee	478
36.5.	The absolute doee with a deleted governing verb	482
36.6.	The absolute doee as a deputy of the deleted governing verb	483
36.7.	Differentiating the absolute doee from the other a-case doees	487

36.8. Candidates for governing the absolute doee	489
37. The ḥāl	491
37.1. Introduction	491
37.2. Matching the ḥāl to the person of ḥāl	491
37.3. The governor of the ḥāl	492
37.4. Valid persons of ḥāl	493
37.5. The ḥāl after verbs like رَأَى and وَجَدَ	495
37.6. Multiple ḥāls or persons of ḥāl	496
37.7. Definiteness of the ḥāl	498
37.8. Definiteness of the person of ḥāl	498
37.9. The order of the ḥāl, the person of ḥāl and the governor	499
37.10. Transitory and permanent meanings for the ḥāl	502
37.11. Difference in meaning between the ḥāl and the attribute	503
37.12. An primitive noun as the ḥāl	504
37.13. A maṣḍar as the ḥāl	505
37.14. A sentence as the ḥāl	506
37.15. The 9 of ḥāl and its rules	508
37.16. Purposes of the 9 of ḥāl	515
37.17. A quasi-sentence as the ḥāl	516
37.18. Interpreting a sentence as a ḥāl vs. a attribute	519
37.19. Multiple ḥāls when one or more is a sentence or quasi-sentence	520
37.20. Suppressing the governor of the ḥāl	521
37.21. TODO topics	521
38. The connected nouns	523
38.1. Introduction	523
38.2. The specific connected nouns	524
38.3. The refer-back pronoun	526
38.4. The general connected nouns مَنْ and مَا	528
38.5. Deleting the refer-back pronoun	533
38.6. The general connected noun أَيُّ	535
38.7. Separating the connecting sentence from the connected noun	537
38.8. Deleting the connected noun and/or the connecting sentence	537
38.9. Sentences without connected nouns	538
38.10. Tense of the connecting sentence	540
39. The question sentence	541
39.1. Introduction	541
39.2. هَلْ and أَ	541
39.3. Sentence word order	547
39.4. مَنْ and مَا	548
39.5. أَيُّ	552
39.6. The question sentence within another sentence	555
39.7. Usage of question nouns in quoting and standalone	555
39.8. Differentiating question-devices from their other functions	555

40. ظَنَّ and its sisters	559
40.1. Introduction	559
41. The conditional sentence	561
41.1. Introduction	561
41.2. The إِنْ conditional sentence	562
41.3. The إِذَا conditional sentence	573
41.4. Other conditional-devices	578
41.5. Using فَتَلَّ vs يَقْتُلُ	586
41.6. The tense of the conditional sentence	588
41.7. فَ as a condition-response-link	594
41.8. Alternate condition-response-links	601
41.9. The لَوْ conditional sentence	602
41.10. Deletion in the conditional sentence	613
41.11. A condition-core beginning with a noun	617
41.12. The request-response	620
41.13. The conditional sentence within a larger sentence	623
41.14. The condition combined with an oath	628
41.15. Multiple verbs in the condition or condition-response	633
41.16. A conditional sentence interrupted by another conditional sentence	635
41.17. Further reading	636
 III. Backmatter	 637
Glossary of terms	639
References	641
Acknowledgements	657
 Appendices	 659
A. Rules for writing hamzah	659
A.1. Seats of hamzah	659
A.2. Rules for determining the seat of hamzah	660
A.3. With prefixes and suffixes	664
A.4. Tanwin on final hamzah	666
A.5. Variants	667
A.6. Why so complicated?	668
A.7. Typographical limitations	669
B. Usage and style	671
B.1. Existential sentences	671
B.2. Pronoun of separation after question nouns	677
B.3. «What happened to ...»	678

B.4.	«About»	678
B.5.	«What about ...»	679
B.6.	To make someone do something	680
B.7.	To leave a place	680
B.8.	To bring something	681
B.9.	To take someone/something somewhere	682
B.10.	«I was going to do something»	682
B.11.	To try to do something	682
B.12.	Further reading	683
C.	Vocabulary and reading	685
C.1.	Reading practice	685
C.2.	Vocabulary retention	685
D.	Narrations, quotes and humor	687
D.1.	Narrations	687
D.2.	Quotes	689
D.3.	Humor	691
E.	Modifying SCA to sound like a vernacular dialect	693

Preface

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

بِسْمِ اللَّهِ الرَّحْمَنِ الرَّحِيمِ

The primary texts of Islām (the Qur’ān and the Ḥadīth) are in Arabic. So too is much of its scholarly literature. However, there are many Muslims for whom Arabic is not a native language, yet who are familiar enough with English to study textbooks written in this language. The goal of this book is to help them learn Arabic so that, together with a study of the appropriate expository texts, they can start to understand the primary texts in their original language. We hope that this will, if Allāh wills, make them more connected to the primary texts and their teachings. Furthermore, they can be empowered to study the vast body of Arabic Islāmic literature.

Regarding the title of this book: the Arabic grammarians were describing the Arabic language of the time of the Prophet ﷺ and his companions. They were doing this by drawing upon a corpus that included transmitted texts and the dialectal speech of informants. We term the language of this corpus to be *Classical Arabic*, because of its considerable volume and its agreed upon significance and eloquence. In the process of the grammarians’ sifting through and describing the dialectal variation of Classical Arabic, a standard variety emerged and gained prevalence. Thenceforth, virtually all composed texts attempted to conform to the grammar of this standard. And it is the grammar of this *Standard Classical Arabic* (SCA) that is the subject of this work.

The term *Classical Arabic* has been used by others to refer to the later (non-native) use of what we call SCA. They may then refer to the language of the grammarians’ corpus as pre-classical Arabic or Old Arabic. Our choice of terminology is based on the contention that SCA is but a variety of Classical Arabic, even if it was standardized toward the end or after the native era of Classical Arabic, and used by non-native Classical Arabic speakers.

SCA, as a standard, is not precisely defined in its entirety. There is a core, which is more or less converged upon, but there are also fringe dialectal, and rare variations that are occasionally used in some texts. We cover some of these variations in this book, depending on how likely we deem the learner to come across them.

We also include in this book post-classical vocabulary, even though it is not, strictly speaking, SCA. This is because one of our goals is to enable the

reader to engage with Islāmic texts. However, we stop short of dealing with Modern Standard Arabic (MSA). This is because the preponderance of its modern vocabulary would detract from the main focus of this book. And also because Western grammar works which focus on MSA tend to use modern texts as a corpus to re-describe and re-codify its grammar. Which is fine, as a methodology, because their goal is to understand the meaning of MSA texts. If we were to include MSA, as thus defined, in this book, then we would have to explain the conflicts between it and SCA. Which is something we are not ready, or equipped, to deal with.

Part I of this book is a learning or teaching grammar, as opposed to being strictly a reference grammar. Therefore, whenever we were able to, we have tried to explain topics, and give examples, in a manner that assumes an understanding of only preceding content. Part II delves into more detail on topics covered only inductively in part I, and also treats other, more theoretical topics.

We have also aimed to make this a self-instruction textbook so that a diligent student should, if Allāh wills, be able to study it independently. The target learner is someone who has not been exposed to grammatical terminology beyond a grade school level. While terminology is necessary for a rigorous non-immersive learning of language, we have tried to steer away from Latin-based terms like *accusative*, *jussive*, etc. Such terms, when first encountered by an uninitiated learner, may deter him from proceeding further. So we have in some places translated the meaning of Arabic grammar terms to English. In other places, we have used established English grammar terms where the terms are basic enough. We have even, in places, invented terms where we deemed appropriate. We have also used some grammatical terminology from Arabic directly, usually in cases where our target learner may have already been exposed to them from Qurʾān recitation rules, or where the term is complex enough that creating a term specifically in English wouldn't make it any simpler. The drawback to this non-standard approach, however, is that the student may not be able to immediately relate the terminology he has learned in this book to established terminology in other grammar textbooks. To remedy this to some extent, we provide a glossary which maps the grammatical terminology used in this book to other, established, Latin-based and Arabic-based counterparts.

Because this is an instructional textbook, we have generally avoided quoting verbatim when drawing material from cited sources. But we haven't shied away from sticking close to the cited text when we felt we could not better its expression or organization for our purposes. Citations are absent for basic topics, and also where we were not able to find an exact reference for some point that we are trying to make. In any event, any errors that remain in this book are our own.

Transcription and translation format

- Transcription is in *italics*. Word-initial sukūn and connecting-hamzah are transcribed using a hyphen.
- Translation is enclosed in guillemets (« »). Names in the translation are

not italicized. For Arabic names in translations and within running English text:

- The definite article always starts with a «a», is not capitalized, is followed by a hyphen, and is not assimilated for “sun-letters.”
- Word final *ī*-of-affiliation is transliterated with «ī» instead of «iyy».
- Word-initial hamzah is not transliterated.

For example:

- (1) رَضِيّ الدِّينِ الْأَسْتَرَابَادِيّ
raḍiyyu -ddīni -l'astarābādhiyyu
 «Raḍiyy al-Dīn al-Astarābādhi»

Miscellaneous

- This book is produced using the Quarto authoring and publishing framework and set in the Charis, Vazirmatn, Kitab, and Amiri typefaces.
- Unless otherwise indicated, translations from the Qurʾān are by Ṣaḥeeḥ International™, sourced from quran.com.
- Unless otherwise indicated, the numbering of cited Ḥadīth is that used by sunnah.com and hadithunlocked.com.
- The page numbers for citations may vary across different editions and publishers. We have attempted to specify the editions that we are using in the references.

THE AUTHORS

Work in progress

Part I.

Basics

Work in progress

Work in progress

Chapter 1.

Introduction

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

All praises are due to Allāh. We praise Him, seek His help, and ask for His forgiveness. We seek refuge in Allāh from the evil in our souls and from our sinful deeds. Whomever Allāh guides, no one can mislead. Whomever Allāh leads astray, no one can guide. I bear witness that there is no one worthy of worship except Allāh. I also bear witness that Muḥammad is His servant and messenger.

May the peace and blessings of Allāh be upon the Prophet Muḥammad, his family, his companions, and those who followed them with good conduct.

Know—may Allāh have mercy on you—that there is a proper approach to studying Arabic, or indeed any branch of Islamic studies. And that is to study it in order to benefit by it. This is by believing that Allāh is our Lord, that He is deserving of our worship and submission to Him, and that He sent down the Qurʾān and the Sunnah to his beloved messenger, the Prophet Muḥammad ﷺ, that explain for us the way we should worship Him.

So by studying Arabic, and other branches of Islāmic studies, we wish to get a better understanding of who our Lord is, and what is required of us in order to get closer to Him.

Furthermore, one should recognize and be thankful that He favored this nation with scholars who proficiently transmitted the Qurʾān, the Ḥadīth, and the language of the the Qurʾān and Ḥadīth, to us. Such that any sincere servant who studies the Qurʾān and the authentic Ḥadīth, as they have both reached us, as they were understood by the pious generations, and with the correct understanding of the Arabic language, can recognize that they are the truth, and can appreciate the beauty and remarkable consistency of their teachings. And even any minor portion that we may not comprehend every minute detail of, either with regard to its content or its transmission, due our limited understanding, and our limited window into history, does not affect the truth of what has been transmitted to us, and in no way detracts from our having sufficient clear evidence to submit to Allāh and worship Him in the manner in which He has prescribed for us.

We ask Allāh that He guide us to be in the company of those who received His message, believed in it, and followed it, inclining toward truth. And we

seek refuge in Allāh from being among those who received His message clearly and sufficiently, but rejected it.

1.1. History of Arabic

Allāh, may He be glorified and exalted, revealed the Qurʾān, some fourteen and a half centuries ago, to the Prophet Muḥammad, may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him. The language of the Qurʾān is the Arabic language, as it was understood by the Arabs at that time. The sayings and actions of the Prophet, may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him, in the form of the Ḥadīth were recorded by his companions also in this Arabic language. Also, composed in this Arabic language, was a vast body of poetry that the Arabs would consider eloquent and worth transmitting. We will call the Arabic of this pre-Islāmic and early Islāmic era as Classical Arabic. The Classical Arabic language consisted of multiple dialects that were spoken by the different tribes and in the different regions of the Arabian peninsula.

All languages change naturally over time. For example, English has changed to such a degree that the Old English language spoken 1400 years ago would be unintelligible to us today. So too did the Classical Arabic dialects begin to change. But when this began to happen, scholars took on the responsibility of preserving the language of the revelation.¹ They did this by recording a corpus of authentic Classical Arabic texts, and then analyzing it to derive grammatical rules, in addition to producing dictionaries and compendia. In the process of preserving Classical Arabic, one particular variety became standardized and gained prevalence as a literary language amongst the dialects of Classical Arabic.² We will call this variety *Standard Classical Arabic* (SCA).

SCA became the language of religious scholarship, science, and literature in the Islāmic world. As scholars developed new branches of religious and secular sciences, new terms and meanings were added (which are termed post-classical). A few words were also borrowed from foreign languages and Arabicized, as needed by the different scientific disciplines. Even Classical Arabic itself had a few Arabicized foreign borrowings from neighboring languages.

While SCA was used for literary purposes, the vernacular language that was spoken by Arabs in their day-to-day lives continued to evolve naturally over time and in the different regions where Arabic was spoken. And so, there began to exist two very distinct types of Arabic: the preserved SCA which is taught by formal education and which is primarily a written language, and the vernacular Arabic dialects which Arabs learn as their mother tongue and which are primarily only spoken and not written.

In modern times, many new words and meanings were added to SCA, often via translation from Western languages, to keep up with technological advancements and modern media. This modern development of SCA is called Modern Standard Arabic (MSA).

¹ 4/21–22 تحقيق الكلام في المسائل الثلاث ضمن آثار المعلمي

² See also Versteegh, *The Arabic language*, chapter 5: “The development of Classical Arabic,” p. 60; Al-Sharkawi, *History and development of the Arabic language*, chapter 14: “The functional load of Classical Arabic,” p. 218

Figure 1.1 presents a simplified view the historical development of the different varieties of Arabic.

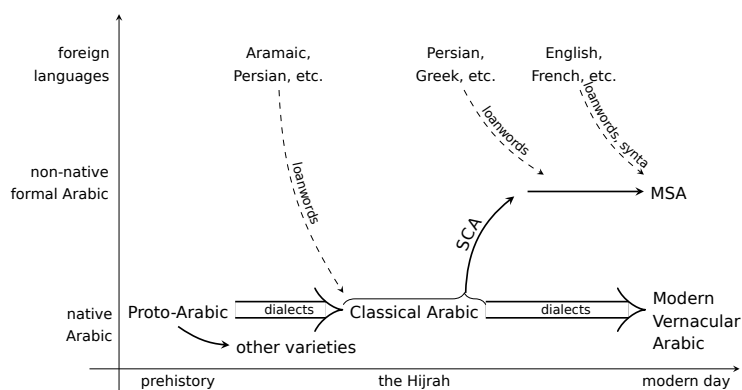


Figure 1.1.: A simplified view of the historical development of the different varieties of Arabic.

In Figure 1.1, the depiction of SCA emanating towards the end of the Classical Arabic period does not imply that only later stages of Classical Arabic contributed to SCA. Rather, it only implies that that is when SCA emerged as the standard literary language for non-native Classical Arabic users. In fact, the source material for SCA includes not only the speech of contemporary native Classical Arabic speakers, but also transmitted texts from throughout the Classical Arabic period, even texts from before the time of the Prophet ﷺ.

Nor does the diagram intend to imply that only SCA was preserved amongst all the dialects of Classical Arabic. SCA is the variety of Classical Arabic which became a standard that continued to be used later. But the scholars of the Arabic language made notes regarding the other dialects of Classical Arabic as well.

1.2. What defines SCA

It may be appropriate to say a few words about what defines SCA proper. When the scholars of Arabic first began studying Classical Arabic, the regular, day-to-day, speech of many people had already begun to diverge from Classical Arabic. So the scholars would seek out and record samples of only authentic Classical Arabic speech and texts. Their criterion for what constituted an authentic sample was that it be *native* Classical Arabic speech. What we mean by “native Classical Arabic” is the language produced by persons immersed from early childhood in an environment where they would hear (native) Classical Arabic from people around them in their day-to-day lives, such that they learned to speak it naturally, without discernable change.³

³See also مقالات فيصل المنصور in علة رفض الاحتجاج بكبار الشعراء والكتاب الذين جاءوا بعد زمن الفصحى 93-95

By the time SCA was emerging as a standard for literary output, native Classical Arabic was on the decline. Most literary output produced in SCA was then a non-native attempt to conform to the standard. So, even though proficiency in SCA was generally pretty high, books written in SCA are not themselves, generally, definitive of SCA.

1.3. MSA

As we have mentioned earlier, SCA when produced today will tend to have a lot of modern vocabulary, and will generally be referred to as MSA. MSA is used today as the language of published literature and formally produced news media.

MSA, in theory, still attempts to conform to the grammar of SCA. In practice, however, MSA is influenced considerably by European languages. This is because much written material, like books and news articles was, and is, translated from European languages. This translation, along with adding vocabulary, has also influenced the syntax and style of the MSA which you are likely to find printed today.⁴ That is not to say that all MSA produced today has deviated from the syntax and style of SCA. Persons who have been more exposed to classical books are more likely to stay closer to SCA. In any case, as we have mentioned earlier, all Arabic produced today, that attempts to conform to SCA, is merely that: an attempt to conform to SCA, and not definitive of SCA.

As a new learner, this exactitude is largely academic. Excepting the Qur'ān, which is inimitable, you may feel free to emulate the writing of good writers of SCA.

1.4. Spoken SCA

As we have mentioned above, SCA is primarily a written language. As a spoken language, SCA is, today, heard almost only in religious and formal settings.

We will learn in this book, if Allāh wills, that there are very exact rules for properly pronouncing and pausing in SCA. Practically, however, most native Arabic speakers today rarely adhere to these rules exactly in extemporaneous speech. Furthermore, depending on the situation, speakers may sometimes casually mix in their vernacular dialect within their SCA speech. In terms of usage, Classical Arabic had many idiomatic expressions that were used in everyday speech. But because spoken SCA is relegated to formal settings today, many of those expressions are now deemed archaic and are largely unused. In fact, a strict adherence to all SCA grammar, usage, and pronunciation/pausing rules in informal spoken settings may, today, come across as pretentious or overly formal.⁵

⁴See العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي; Alfraidi, *Conditional sentences in Modern Written Arabic* 17–21;

⁵Hallberg, *Case endings in Spoken Standard Arabic* 54–55. see also p. 86

Our advice to the learner who wishes to speak his newly learned Arabic is to learn to be comfortable with the different spheres and sociolinguistic norms of Arabic. Consider the following real-world setting:

A scholar may be giving a lecture, in Arabic, on one of the Islāmic branches of knowledge. It may even be a lecture on SCA grammar. In the beginning of the lecture, the scholar will praise Allāh and ask Allāh to confer blessing upon and grant peace to the Prophet ﷺ. This will be done using exact SCA grammar and pronunciation/pausing rules.

The scholar will then begin the instructional part of his lecture. The language of this instruction will still typically be SCA. But adherence to pronunciation and pausing rules may be considerably relaxed. The scholar's speech may be closer to exact SCA rules when giving formal instruction, and then more relaxed when elaborating on some particular point. When quoting an āyah from the Qur'ān, strict SCA would be employed, even if not reciting the āyah. The scholar's fluency in spoken SCA is also a factor in how close his extemporaneous formal speech is to SCA. Because, like anyone born after the classical era, he is not a native speaker of Classical Arabic. And his proficiency in speaking exact SCA fluently does not detract, if Allāh wills, from his eminence and knowledge of his domain. Within the lecture, the scholar may even dip in and out of his vernacular dialect, often when interacting with a questioner from the audience.

Once the lecture is concluded, the scholar and his students may engage in an informal session. The conversation in this session will almost entirely be in vernacular dialect(s).

If you find yourself in such a society, it is advisable to conform to its norms. As a non-native Arabic speaker, you won't be expected to speak a vernacular dialect. So your speaking SCA in an informal setting is excused. But aim for a natural and easy flowing speech, even at the cost of grammatical correctness.

You can even try to convert your SCA speech to sound more like the modern vernacular dialects. (Appendix E gives some tips on how to do so.) In fact, it may not be a bad idea to supplement your learning of SCA with some knowledge of a vernacular dialect, not least to understand the native speech of the Arabs today.

1.5. Scope of this book

In this book, we will study the grammar of SCA. If Allāh wills, this will help you to begin to understand Islāmic texts.

Know that our primary goal is to learn how to *understand* SCA texts, and not necessarily how to *speak* Arabic, especially for modern day-to-day circumstances. The grammar rules that we present will be aligned with this goal.

If your goal is to learn how to speak MSA, then this book may still be of help because the core language and the grammar are essentially the same. However, you may prefer to study from a resource that focuses on the modern language.

Except for the marginal treatment in Appendix E, this book does not deal with the modern vernacular dialects that are spoken in the Arab world today.

1.6. Organization of this book

We will start, if Allāh wills, with the Arabic script and present, in each chapter, a new concept of Arabic grammar, together with examples. Though there is none right now, we also plan to give, if Allāh wills, a vocabulary list and exercises for each chapter.

We have generally tried to organize content coherently for convenient reference during learning. Sometimes, this can mean that on encountering a new topic, we present it in more detail than is strictly necessary for learning at that stage. Although identifying such material may not be easy for the learner, you may feel free to skim over such material and refer back to it later, as needed.

Some of the sentences we present, both as examples and as chapter exercises, because of their contrived nature, may seem of dubious usefulness to a learner wanting to learn practical usage. Also, when translating “made-up” examples, we usually steer toward a literal, word-for-word, translation rather than a natural one. This is in order to illustrate the function of each word, and to show a correspondence between the words in the Arabic sentence and the English translation. This comes at the expense of an English translation that will often sound awkward and even, at times, ungrammatical. We proffer the excuse that our aim in this book is to teach Arabic, not how to translate Arabic into English.

We request the reader’s patience and indulgence in these and other matters.

1.7. Composing in SCA

We mentioned above that we will often translate our examples from Arabic into English in a word-for-word manner. And this is for extenuating reasons.

The learner should be aware that this is no excuse for composing speech in SCA based on a word-for-word translation from English. Nor is there often a one-to-one mapping from English words to Arabic words. SCA may use, for the same English word, one word in one context, and another word or expression in another context. In summary, SCA has its own usage and style that must be adhered to when composing in it. Indeed word-for-word and one-to-one translations are the cause of many of the problems in MSA that we discussed in Section 1.3 above. In Appendix B we discuss the usage and style of SCA vis-à-vis common pitfalls that a learner coming from English may encounter.

1.8. How to study from this book

Keep pen and paper in hand when studying. Write some of the examples as you are studying and try to understand how the example is relevant to the topic. In answering the exercises, we strongly recommend that you memorize the vocabulary in full and write down the answers with pen on paper. We strongly recommend that you avoid the tendency to answer the exercises only orally or mentally without writing them down, or look up the answers from the answer key before attempting to write the answer yourself, or look up words in the

vocabulary list without memorizing them, or proceed to the next chapter before memorizing the vocabulary and going through the exercises. You may also find yourself having to go back a few chapters every once in a while and revising the concepts therein. This is very normal and not a cause for any concern. It may also prove beneficial to re-do the exercises of that chapter when doing so.

Know that while Arabic grammar requires effort to master to a proficient degree, the real barrier to reading and understanding Arabic texts by oneself is vocabulary. Arabic is a very rich language and knowledge of a few thousand words is needed before the student can begin to read texts independently. In fact, we would not be too far off to say that grammar, at this stage, is only a tool to help you make sense of the vocabulary that you are acquiring. So strive to achieve a balance between learning grammar and acquiring vocabulary. In appendix @ref(vocabulary-and-reading), we suggest companion reading material, dictionaries, and techniques on acquiring and retaining vocabulary.

1.9. Interpreting the Qurʾān

Know that the language of the Qurʾān is Classical Arabic, as we have defined it. And not, strictly speaking, SCA, which is what we will teach.

Nevertheless, as you proceed in your Arabic studies, you may begin to form an understanding of the meanings of some of the āyahs of the Qurʾān. Pondering over the āyahs of the Qurʾān, to understand it, obtain guidance from it, and act upon it is one of the foremost goals of the Qurʾān.⁶ Know, however, that forming this understanding should be done with a proper methodology: one that is based on sound and confirmed knowledge.⁷ Interpreting the Qurʾān is one of the branches of Islāmic knowledge known as *tafsīr*. There are proper sources for tafsīr. They are:

1. The Qurʾān. The Qurʾān itself is a source of tafsīr. What is stated in a concise fashion in one place may be elaborated upon at another place.⁸
2. The Sunnah of the Prophet ﷺ. The Sunnah (via the Ḥadīth) is the second most important source of tafsīr. Allāh tasked the Prophet ﷺ with explaining the Qurʾān and gave him ﷺ the necessary knowledge in order for him ﷺ to do so.⁹
3. The understanding of the Companions of the Prophet ﷺ. The Companions had an excellent command of the Arabic language and lived through many of the events that the Qurʾān refers to. Furthermore, if a meaning of an āyah was not clear to them, they had access to the Prophet ﷺ and would ask him ﷺ about its meaning.¹⁰
4. The Arabic language.¹¹ One needs to have sound knowledge of the Arabic language of the time of the Prophet ﷺ to be able to interpret the Qurʾān

⁶Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 96 citing الفوزان

⁷Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 187

⁸Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 205 citing الزركشي

⁹Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 212–213 citing الألباني

¹⁰Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 224ff

¹¹Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 235ff

linguistically. However, one cannot rely solely on the Arabic language for tafsīr.¹² There are many instances where the Companions, who possessed knowledge of the Arabic language, did not understand the intent of an āyah and it was necessary for the Prophet ﷺ to explain the Qurʾān to them.¹³

The specialist in the science of tafsīr is able to use the above sources, and his educated reasoning, to comment on the meaning of āyahs.¹⁴

There are grave dangers to speaking about the Qurʾān without sound knowledge. If one makes a statement regarding the meaning of an āyah of the Qurʾān, then he is actually making a statement on behalf of Allāh.¹⁵ So he better be sure that he is making that statement based on sound knowledge. Because speaking about Allāh without knowledge is a most great sin. This is because it involves and includes ascribing something falsely to Allāh.¹⁶

Here is an example of an āyah where it is conceivable that someone may make an incorrect interpretation, if he did not interpret according to a proper methodology:

- (1) إِنَّ الَّذِينَ ءَامَنُوا وَالَّذِينَ هَادُوا وَالصَّابِئِينَ مَن ءَامَنَ بِاللَّهِ وَالْيَوْمِ الْآخِرِ وَعَمِلَ صَالِحًا فَلَهُمْ أَجْرُهُمْ عِنْدَ رَبِّهِمْ وَلَا خَوْفٌ عَلَيْهِمْ وَلَا هُمْ يَحْزَنُونَ [سورة البقرة 2:62]

Translation by Şaḥeeḥ International™:

«Indeed, those who believed and those who were Jews or Christians or Sabeans [before Prophet Muḥammad (ﷺ)] - those [among them] who believed in Allāh and the Last Day and did righteousness - will have their reward with their Lord, and no fear will there be concerning them, nor will they grieve.»

Footnote by the same translator:

After the coming of Prophet Muḥammad (ﷺ) no religion other than Islām is acceptable to Allāh, as stated in 3:85.

The āyah referred to in the footnote is:

- (2) سورة آل عمران [وَمَن يَتَّبِعْ غَيْرَ الْإِسْلَامِ دِينًا فَلَن يُقْبَلَ مِنْهُ وَهُوَ فِي الْآخِرَةِ مِنَ الْخَاسِرِينَ 3:85]

«And whoever desires other than Islām as religion - never will it be accepted from him, and he, in the Hereafter, will be among the losers.»

Ibn Kathīr, in his tafsīr of this āyah, cites a report narrated from the Companion of the Prophet ﷺ Ibn ʿAbbās regarding āyah سورة البقرة 2:62, that Allāh revealed after it سورة آل عمران 3:85.

Ibn Kathīr then says (paraphrasing):

¹²Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 241

¹³Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 213ff

¹⁴Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 244–245

¹⁵Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 194

¹⁶Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 197 citing ابن القيم

This statement by Ibn ‘Abbās indicates that Allāh does not accept any deed or work from anyone, unless it conforms to the Law of Muḥammad ﷺ that is, after Allāh sent Muḥammad ﷺ. Before that, every person who followed the guidance of his own Prophet was on the correct path, following the correct guidance and was saved.¹⁷

From the tafsīr of this āyah, we see how one āyah is explained using another āyah. And we also see the role of the Companions in tafsīr.

The tafsīr of Ibn Kathīr is available, abridged, in English translation:

- Al-Mubarakpuri, *Tafsīr ibn Kathīr* (abridged, English translation), Darussalam, 2nd edition, 2003

Arabic abridged editions also exist:

- عمدة التفسير عن الحافظ ابن كثير لأحمد شاكر
- المصباح المنير في تهذيب تفسير ابن كثير للمباركفوري

These are beneficial, if Allāh wills, not only for their tafsīr, but also as good companion reading material for the student of Arabic.

¹⁷Al-Mubarakpuri, *Tafsīr ibn Kathīr* (abridged, English translation), Darussalam, 2nd edition, 2003
1/249

Work in progress

Chapter 2.

The Arabic script

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

2.1. The Arabic alphabet

The alphabet consists of both consonants and vowels. In the English word “banana”, “a” is a vowel, and “b” and “n” are called consonants. The Arabic alphabet traditionally has 28 letters, shown in the table below.

No.	Arabic letter	Transcription	Name
1	ا	<i>ā</i>	أَلِف alif
2	ب	<i>b</i>	بَاء bāʾ
3	ت	<i>t</i>	تَاء tāʾ
4	ث	<i>th</i>	ثَاء thāʾ
5	ج	<i>j</i>	جِيم jīm
6	ح	<i>ḥ</i>	حَاء ḥāʾ
7	خ	<i>kh</i>	خَاء khāʾ
8	د	<i>d</i>	دَال dāl
9	ذ	<i>dh</i>	ذَال dhāl
10	ر	<i>r</i>	رَاء rāʾ
11	ز	<i>z</i>	زَاء zāʾ
12	س	<i>s</i>	سِين sīn
13	ش	<i>sh</i>	شِين shīn
14	ص	<i>ṣ</i>	صَاد ṣād
15	ض	<i>ḍ</i>	ضَاد ḍād
16	ط	<i>t</i>	طَاء ṭāʾ
17	ظ	<i>ḍh</i>	ظَاء ḍhāʾ
18	ع	<i>ʿ</i>	عَيْن ʿayn
19	غ	<i>gh</i>	غَيْن ghayn
20	ف	<i>f</i>	فَاء fāʾ

No.	Arabic letter	Transcription	Name
21	ق	<i>q</i>	قَاف qāf
22	ك	<i>k</i>	كَاف kāf
23	ل	<i>l</i>	لَام lām
24	م	<i>m</i>	مِيم mīm
25	ن	<i>n</i>	نُون nūn
26	ه	<i>h</i>	هَاء hāʾ
27	و	<i>w/ū</i>	وَإِو wāw
28	ي	<i>y/ī</i>	يَاء yāʾ

We make no attempt to describe the sounds of each letter. Those are best learned with a Qurʾān teacher. Online videos may also help in this regard.

Note that the letters و (wāw) and ي (yāʾ) are both vowels and consonants. But that alif (alif) is only a vowel. The consonant corresponding to alif is ء *hamzah*. Although ء ought to be considered a letter in its own right, it was originally only pronounced and not written. So it is not traditionally considered part of the 28-letter script. Instead it is added as a diacritic on top of the basic script.

No.	Arabic letter	Transcription	Name
—	ء	ʾ	هَمْزَة hamzah

2.2. Alternative order of letters

The above order of the letters in alphabetical sequence is currently used today. There is an alternative order that was more used in the past (from right to left):

ا ب ج د ه و ز ح ط ي ك ل م ن س ع ف ص ق ر ش ت ث خ ذ ظ غ

This alternative order is discussed more in appendix @ref(abjad-order). (TODO: add appendix for أبجد order, discuss its use in lists and numerical value.)

2.3. Writing Arabic words

2.3.1. Letters in different positions

Arabic is written right-to-left, unlike English and most other languages which are written left-to-right. When writing, the letters in a word are generally joined to each other, except for six out of the 28 letters, which join only to the letter preceding them but not to the letter following them. These six partially-joining letters are و, ز, ح, ط, ي, and ك.

When joining the letters, letters are modified in order to join to the preceding and following letter. The fully-joining letters can be in four positions:

1. by itself (isolated),

2. in the beginning of a group of joined letters,
3. in the middle of a group of joined letters,
4. in the end of a group of joined letters.

As we just mentioned, six of the letters (ا، د، ذ، ر، ز، و) don't join to the following letter. So these letters can only occur only in the end of a group of joined letters, or isolated by themselves.

In this book we will show a "Simplified Arabic" writing style where, in each of the four positions, the letter maintains its basic shape and is usually only slightly modified to join to the previous and following letter with horizontal lines.

To explain the method of modifying the letters when joining them, we will take ب as an example and start with the isolated form:

Isolated form: ب

To modify this into the end form, we simply join a horizontal line to the right of the letter:

End form: بـ

To get the middle form, we take the end form بـ and cut off its tail which is at its left, and replace it with a horizontal line. We also move the dot slightly to get:

Middle form: بـ

And finally, to get the beginning form, we take the middle form بـ and remove the horizontal line at the right:

Beginning form: بـ

Now most of the letters follow this common technique but a few of them are modified a little further in each form. These, more complicated, letters are ع، غ، ه، ي and you can study them and the rest of the letters in the table below:

No.	Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
1	ا	ا	none	none
2	ب	بـ	بـ	بـ
3	ت	تـ	تـ	تـ
4	ث	ثـ	ثـ	ثـ
5	ج	جـ	جـ	جـ
6	ح	حـ	حـ	حـ
7	خ	خـ	خـ	خـ
8	د	د	none	none
9	ذ	ذ	none	none
10	ر	ر	none	none
11	ز	ز	none	none
12	س	سـ	سـ	سـ
13	ش	شـ	شـ	شـ
14	ص	صـ	صـ	صـ
15	ض	ضـ	ضـ	ضـ
16	ط	ط	ط	ط
17	ظ	ظ	ظ	ظ

No.	Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
18	ع	ع	ع	ع
19	غ	غ	غ	غ
20	ف	ف	ف	ف
21	ق	ق	ق	ق
22	ك	ك	ك	ك
23	ل	ل	ل	ل
24	م	م	م	م
25	ن	ن	ن	ن
26	ه	ه	ه	ه
27	و	و	none	none
28	ي	ي	ي	ي

You can see that each letter maintains a basic shape and is modified for each of the four positions.

2.3.2. Joining the different forms to make a word

Notice that when we modified the isolated form to get to the beginning, middle, and end forms, we added a horizontal line to each or both sides. It is this horizontal line which joins to the horizontal line of the neighboring letter.

As an example, we would like to join the following letters (starting from the right): م-ع-ش-ر into one word. The first letter is م so we modify it to its beginning form م. The next two letters are converted to their middle forms ع, ش. And the last letter ر is converted to its end form ر. Then we join the horizontal lines together and get معشر. Usually, when we join letters like this we shorten the horizontal lines so you will generally see the word like this معشر.

In this example, we needed the beginning, middle, and end forms of the letters. Isolated forms are used in a word when there is a partially-joining letter present that won't join to the following letter. The letter after a partially-joining letter will be in its beginning form even though it is in the middle of a word. But if it too is a partially-joining letter, or it is the last letter in the word then it will take its isolated form.

Let's take a look at some examples where a group of disjoint letters are joined to form a word:

Disjoint	Joined
ذ-ل-ك	ذلك
ا-ح-م-د	احمد
ر-س-و-ل	رسول
و-ز-ي-ر	وزير
ر-ا-ز-ق	رازق

Notice that in the last example, all the letters were in the isolated form.

2.3.2.1. Simplified and traditional typography

We have just shown how letters join to each other with a horizontal line in a “simplified” Arabic typeface. “Traditional” Arabic typefaces are a little more complex than simplified Arabic: some letters join almost vertically instead of horizontally. But when you get familiar with the simplified Arabic type, if Allāh wills it will not be too difficult for you to read traditional Arabic types as well.

Here are some comparisons of letters joining to each other in simplified Arabic and traditional Arabic types.

Disjoint	Joined (simplified)	Joined (traditional)
ت-م-ر	تمر	تمر
ا-ل-ح-ج-ج	الحجج	الحجج
ا-ل-م-ا-س	الماس	الماس
ل-م-ح-ة	لمحة	لمحة
س-ح-ر	سحر	سحر
ب-ح-ي-ر-ة	بحيرة	بحيرة
ف-ي	في	في
ب-ت-ث-ب-ي-ت-ت-ي-ن	بتثيبتين	بتثيبتين

2.3.3. ة (closed tāʾ)

ة is a special letter which is merged from two letters of the alphabet. It is a ت but it is written as a ه with two dots above it. ة is pronounced exactly as a ت, except when it is at the end of a sentence in which case it is pronounced as a ه (as we’ll explain later, if Allāh wills). ة occurs only at the end of a word so it has only an end form and an isolated form (used when the letter before it is a partially-joining letter).

Examples:

- فاطمة
- شجرة
- فتاة

We call ة *closed tāʾ* because it appears as if have taken ت and pressed it until it closed on itself. In contrast, ت is called *open tāʾ* when needed to differentiate it from ة.

2.3.4. Writing hamzah

We have mentioned that hamzah was a later addition to the Arabic alphabet and originally it was only sounded and not written. Hamzah can be written in a number of different ways:

1. “Seated” above (or below) a vowel letter: Hamzah can be written above the vowel letters thus: أ و ئ. When written over ي, the ي (according to

modern convention) will not have any dots, thus: **ئ، هـ، ع**. It may also be written under an alif thus: **إ**. Examples: **إِن، فَنَّة، سَوَّلَكَ، أفعال**.

2. “Unseated” after a letter. This has two sub cases:

- Standalone, after a partially-joining letter or at the end of a word.
Examples: **عَبء، تَوَعَم، تَسَاءَل**.
- Inline, in the middle of a word after a fully-joining letter. In this case hamzah is written above the horizontal line that joins the letters.
Examples: **بَرِيئِينَ، شَيْئًا، خَطِيئَةً**.

In all cases it is pronounced the same. There are actually a set of fairly complicated rules that determine which of the above ways to choose when writing hamzah. We present these rules in Appendix A. We recommend that for now, you memorize the spelling of each word that we present that contains a hamzah. When you are sufficiently advanced, and curious enough, you may refer to Appendix A to learn the full set of rules.

2.3.5. Disambiguating letters that look similar

Some letters are very similar to each other and only differ in their dots or other slight differences. You should take care to distinguish between these letters. We will describe their similarities and differences here.

The letters **ب، ت، ث** differ only in their dots and are otherwise identical in all positions. **ن** and **ي** are similar in initial and middle positions to **ب، ت، ث** but differ from them and from each other in isolated and final positions. Compare all five in the table below:

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
ب	ـب	ـبـ	بـ
ت	ـت	ـتـ	تـ
ث	ـث	ـثـ	ثـ
ن	ـن	ـنـ	نـ
ي	ـي	ـيـ	يـ

These groups of letters differ too, only in their dots:

- **خ، ح، ج**
- **ذ** and **د**
- **ز** and **ر**
- **ش** and **س**
- **ض** and **ص**
- **ظ** and **ط**
- **غ** and **ع**

The letters **ق** and **ف** are similar in the initial and middle positions except for the dots. But in the isolated and final positions, the tail of **ق** goes lower than that of **ف**.

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
ف	فـ	فـ	فـ
ق	قـ	قـ	قـ

Be careful also not to confuse غ and ف in their middle forms. The loop for ف is round where it is triangular and flat-topped for غ (as it is for ع). Compare their middle forms in the table below:

Isolated	Middle
غ	غـ
ف	فـ

The letters alif ا and lām ل could also be confused for each other. Their forms are shown here again for easy comparison:

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
ا	اـ	none	none
ل	لـ	لـ	لـ

2.3.6. Joining alif after lām

When the letter alif follows lām we would expect them to be joined like this ل+ا → لا. But actually, they are joined in a special way

لا → لا

When the combination occurs at the end of a group of joined letters, it will appear thus:

لا

Examples:

- ألا
- الإيمان
- الصلاة

2.4. Vowels and pronunciation marks.

2.4.1. Short Vowels

Arabic has six vowels. There are three short vowels which don't have letters in the alphabet. Instead they are shown with pronunciation marks:

1. *a* as the first vowel in English “manipulate”, written with an fatḥah َ which is a small diagonal line above the letter like ما *ma*.
2. *i* as in English “bit”, written with an kasrah ِ which is a small diagonal line under the letter like بي *bi*.

3. *u* as in English “put”, written with an ḍammah ُ which is like a tiny و wāw above the letter like فُ *fu*.

Examples of words with short vowels:

- فَتَحَ *fataḥa*
- عَمِلَ *ʿamila*
- قَتَلَ *qatila*

2.4.2. Long Vowels

There are also three long vowels which are part of the alphabet:

1. *ā* generally written with an unmarked alif ا and with the preceding letter having an fatḥah. Example مَ *mā*. This vowel is mostly pronounced like the vowel in English “man”. If however, it comes after these letters ق, خ, ر, ص, ض, ط, ظ, غ, it is pronounced like English “awe”.
2. *ī* like in English “meek” written with an unmarked ي *yāʾ* with the preceding letter having an kasrah. Example في *fī*.
3. *ū* like in English “moon” written with an unmarked و *wāw* with the preceding letter having an ḍammah. Example دُو *dū*.

Examples of words with long and short vowels:

- هَارُونَ *hārūnu*
- كَذَا *kadhā*
- سَرَادِيبَ *sarādība*

2.4.2.1. *ā* vowel written with a small alif

Sometimes the *ā* vowel is written as a small alif ِ, called a “dagger alif”, instead of a regular alif ا. This is done only for a few commonly used words. Here are some examples:

- هَادِثًا *hādḥā*
- دَهَالِكًا *dḥālīka*

2.4.2.2. *ā* vowel written with a *yāʾ*

In some other words, the *ā* vowel is written with a *yāʾ* instead of an alif ا. When this happens, we will write the *yāʾ* without its dots and write a dagger alif ِ above it, like this يِ. Here are some examples:

- عَلِي *ʿalā*
- رَمَى *ramā*

2.4.3. Zero-vowel written with a sukūn

As we have seen above if an Arabic letter has a vowel after it it will take one of the three pronunciation marks: َ, ِ, ُ. If, however, there is no vowel after the letter we will put a zero-vowel sukūn on it ْ. This mark can generally only occur if there is a short vowel before the letter. Examples:

- كَمْ *kam*
- مُنْذُ *mundhu*
- مِنْهُمْ *minhum*
- مِنْهَا *minhā*

2.4.4. Semi-vowels

Arabic has two short semi-vowels:

1. *aw* like in English “show”. This is written with a wāw with a sukūn on it and a short *a* vowel before it. Example لَوْ *law*.
2. *ay* like in English “bait”. This is written with a yā’ with a sukūn on it and a short *a* vowel before it. Example كَيْ *kay*. Examples with short semi-vowels:

- وَيْحَكَ *wayhaka*
- غَيْرُهُ *ghayruhu*
- قَوْلُهُ *qawluhu*

It also has two long semi-vowels:

1. *āw* like in English “cow”. This is written with a wāw with a sukūn on it and a long *ā* vowel before it. Example وَاوْ *wāw*.
2. *āy* like in English “bye”. This is written with a yā’ with a sukūn on it and a long *ā* vowel before it. Example شَايْ *shāy*.

These long semi-vowels are rare and may only occur at the end of a sentence.

2.4.5. Doubled letters

A word may contain “doubled” letters. This is when the same letter occurs, one after the other; the first letter has a sukūn, and the second letter has a vowel. For example, in the word قَتَّلَ *qattala*, the letter ت is doubled. When this occurs, we actually only write the letter once and put a “shaddah” ّ on it, like so: قَتَّلَ *qattala*. When pronouncing this word, stop at and stress the doubled letter *qattala* and make sure it does not sound like the undoubled letter in قَتَلَ *qatala*. Examples with doubled letters:

- كَبَّرَ *kabbara*
- حَدَّدَ *hadduhu*
- فَعَّالَ *faʿʿāla*

- سَكِّينُ *sikkīnu*. Note that the kasrah is below the shaddah but above the letter ك. This is the most common way to write this, although having the kasrah below the letter is also sometimes done as well. (In this case, the shaddah will still be above the letter.)
- سَفُّودٌ *saffūdu*
- ضَالِّينَ *dāllīna*
- مُزْزَمِّلُ *muzzammilu*

2.4.6. Tanwīn

In the next chapter, we will learn, if Allāh wills, that nouns in Arabic are sometimes pronounced with an extra ن sound at their end. This is called *tanwīn*. Tanwīn is indicated in writing, not by adding a the letter ن at the end of the word, but by writing the final vowel mark twice, thus:

1. ٌ *un*, for example كِتَابٌ *kitābun*.
2. ِ *an*, for example شَجَرَةٌ *shajaratun*.
3. ٍ *in*, for example بَيْتٍ *baytin*.

The tanwined fat-ḥah ُ has specific spelling rules: Generally, we will generally add a silent alif after it, for example سَالِمٌ becomes سَالِمًا *sālīman*. This is done for all words except:

1. If the word ends with a ۀ. In this case we don't add the silent alif. For example, غَاضِبَةٌ becomes غَاضِبَةً *ghāḍibatun*.
2. If the word ends with a ā vowel, whether written with an alif ا or as a yā' with dagger alif ي. In this case, the *an* mark is put on the letter before the alif ا or yā' ي and the final vowel letter becomes silent and is not pronounced. For example, مُصْطَفًى becomes مُصْطَفًى *muṣṭafan*, عَصَا becomes عَصَا *ʿaṣān*.
3. If the word ends with a hamzah. In this case, we might or might not write a silent alif, depending on the following rules:
 - a. If there is an alif before an unseated hamzah اء, then we don't add a silent alif. For example دَاء becomes دَاء *dāʿan*, not دَاءِ.
 - b. Otherwise, we add a silent alif after the hamzah. However, this may affect the writing of the hamzah, for example مُبْتَدَأٌ becomes مُبْتَدَأًا *mubtadaʿan*. This is discussed further in appendix @ref(hamzarules).

Here are some examples of tanwined words:

- سَعْدٌ *saʿdun*
- دَرَبٌ *darban*
- قَاضٍ *qāḍin*
- سَاعَةٌ *saʿatan*
- دُعَاءٌ *duʿāʿan*

- اِمْرَءًا *imra'an*
- شَيْئًا *shay'an*
- سُوءًا *sū'an*
- غَنَنٌ *ghabanun*

2.5. Connecting hamzah

Some words in arabic begin with a sukūn. When this occurs a connecting hamzah ʾ (written as a tiny *ح* on an alif) is put before it. If this word comes in the beginning of the sentence the connecting alif is pronounced as a hamzah. Otherwise this connecting hamzah is not pronounced and the word is connected to the final vowel of the previous word in pronunciation. In this tutorial we will transcribe the connecting hamzah with a hyphen “-”. Examples of connecting hamzah:

(1) اِفْتَحِ الْبَابَ
ʾiftaḥi -lbāba

(2) اُنْظُرْ
ʾunḏhur

If the previous word does not end with a vowel, then a helper vowel is added. The most common helper vowel is ِ. Example:

(2) زَيْدُ الْكَرِيمِ
zayduni -lkarīmu

When one word ends in a long vowel and the next word begins with a connecting hamzah, the long vowel becomes a short vowel in pronunciation, but in writing the long vowel's letter is retained. For example:

(3) اَخَذَ مِنَّا الْكِتَابَ
ʾakhadha minna -lkitāba

(4) ذُو الْقَرْنَيْنِ
ḏhu -lqarnayni

(5) فِي الْبَيْتِ
fī -lbayti

2.6. Pronouncing the end of a sentence

When a word is at the end of a sentence and it ends with a long vowel, then the final long vowel is pronounced normally. However, when a word at the end of a sentence does not end with a long vowel, then the final letter's pronunciation mark is pronounced as a sukūn when vocalizing the sentence. If the final letter is a *ه* then it is pronounced as a *ه* *hā'* with a sukūn.

This change in pronunciation is only vocal, it does not affect how we write the pronunciation mark. Here we give some examples of words pronounced if they were at the end of a sentence:

- (4) فَتَحْ
fatḥ
- (5) عُقْبَةُ
euqbah
- (6) وَالذَّائِي
wālīdāy
- (7) وَالذَّيَّ
wālīdayy

If however, the final letter's pronunciation mark is a *an* mark then it is pronounced as a long-ā vowel. The only exception is if the final letter were ځ, in which case it is then pronounced as a hā' with a sukūn ْ. Here are examples of words with *an* marks pronounced as if they were at the end of a sentence.

- (5) مَفْعُولًا
mafeūlā
- (6) سَاجِدًا
sājīdā
- (7) مَرْفُوعَةً
marfūṣah

Note that the above exception is only for ځ. If a hamzah with an *an* mark occurs at the end of a word, then it too will be pronounced as if it had a long-ā vowel after it. Such is the case, whether or not a silent alif is written after the hamzah. Examples:

- مُبْتَدَأًا is pronounced *mubtada'ā*
- دُعَاءٌ is pronounced *dueā'ā*

Similarly, if the word has a final yā' that represents the long-ā vowel, and the letter before has an *an* mark, it is pronounced with the long-ā vowel at the end of the sentence. For example:

- مُصْطَفًى is pronounced *muṣṭafā*

2.7. The Qur'ānic script

The Arabic script that you will find in the muṣḥaf (a volume of the Qur'ān) is slightly different than what is used in (non-Qur'ānic) SCA. We will describe some of the more common differences below:

One difference is that $\tilde{a}$ is used in SCA as a replacement for $\bar{a}$. Whereas, in the Qur'ānic script $\tilde{a}$ denotes an elongated long $\bar{a}$ vowel without a hamzah. The following table gives some examples:

SCA script	Qur'ānic script
الأخيرة <i>al'ākhiratu</i>	الْآخِرَةُ [سورة البقرة 2:94]
الضَّالِّينَ <i>aḍḍāllina</i>	الضَّالِّينَ [سورة الفاتحة 1:7]

Another minor difference is that word-final ي is written without its dots in Qur'ānic script. (By the, this is also found as a regional variance in the SCA script.) For example:

SCA script	Qur'ānic script
إِنِّي <i>'innī</i>	إِنِّي [سورة طه 20:94]

There can also be regional differences in the pronunciation marks used in the Qur'ānic script. For example, in muṣḥafs that are used in the Indian subcontinent الْآخِرَةُ is the conventional spelling.

Besides the above differences that have to do with the diacritical marks, some words, and combinations of words, may also be spelled differently. For example:

SCA script	Qur'ānic script
اَلصَّلَاةَ <i>aṣṣalāta</i>	الصَّلَاةَ [سورة البقرة 2:3]
اَلسَّمَاوَاتِ <i>assamāwāti</i>	السَّمَوَاتِ [سورة البقرة 2:33]
يا -bna 'umma <i>ya -bna 'umma</i>	يَا بَنِي آدَمَ [سورة طه 20:94]

The reasons for this are out of the scope of this book.

There are other minor differences as well between Qur'ānic script and SCA script. They mainly deal with pronunciation and punctuation.

Work in progress

Chapter 3.

The noun

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

3.1. Introduction

A noun is a kind of word that is the name of something or someone.
Here are some examples of common nouns in Arabic:

Arabic word	Transcription	Definition
رَجُلٌ	<i>rajul</i>	man
كِتَابٌ	<i>kitāb</i>	book
بَيْتٌ	<i>bayt</i>	house
شَجَرَةٌ	<i>shajarah</i>	tree
صَبْرٌ	<i>ṣabr</i>	patience
وَقْتُ	<i>waqt</i>	time
طَعَامٌ	<i>ṭaʿām</i>	food
ابْنٌ	<i>ʾibn</i>	son

Note that the final letter in each word, above, does not have a vowel mark. This is because, the final vowel mark is actually variable, as we shall see later in this chapter.

When we discuss nouns outside of sentences we shall pronounce the *ə* as a *h*. Therefore, شَجَرَةٌ *tree*, in isolation, is pronounced *shajarah*, not *shajarat*.

Some nouns begin with a connecting hamzah, for example: ابْنٌ *ibn son*. When in the beginning of a sentence, the connecting hamzah will be pronounced with an kasrah ِ.

3.2. Definiteness

When talking about nouns it is necessary to introduce a topic called *definiteness*.

A noun is *definite* when the person or thing it refers to is known. For example, if you say, *the man arrived*, then the usage of the word “the” before “man” tells us that the man is known to us. Therefore the noun “man” is definite in this sentence.

Conversely, if we had said *a man arrived* then the use of “a” before “man” tells us that the man is unknown to us. Therefore “man” is indefinite in this sentence.

“The” is called the *definite article* and “a” is called the *indefinite article*.

3.2.1. Definite nouns in Arabic

The definite article in Arabic is **الْ** *’al*. It corresponds to the English definite article “the”. In order to make a noun definite, we attach **الْ** *’al* to its beginning.

For example, the definite noun “the book” in Arabic is **الْكِتَابُ** *’alkitāb*.

الْ *’al* begins with a connecting hamzah; the hamzah will be pronounced only in the beginning of a sentence. And when it occurs in the beginning of a sentence, the hamzah is pronounced with a **اَ** a-mark.

3.2.1.1. Sun letters and moon letters

The noun “man” in Arabic is **رَجُلٌ** *rajul*. To make this noun definite, we add **الْ** *’al* to the beginning of the word. But instead of becoming **الرَّجُلُ** *’alrajul* the word becomes **الرَّجُلُ** *’arrajul*. The **ل** in **الرَّجُلُ** becomes silent and the **ر** gets doubled. This happens because the first letter **ر** in the word **رَجُلٌ** *rajul* is from a group of letters called “sun letters”. For all nouns beginning with sun letters, when **الْ** *’al* is put in the beginning, the **ل** in **الْ** becomes silent and the sun letter becomes doubled.

The rest of the letters in the alphabet are called “moon letters” and for words that begin with moon letters, the **ل** in **الْ** does not become silent and the moon letter does not become doubled. For example, **كِتَابٌ** *kitāb* “book” becomes **الْكِتَابُ** *’alkitāb* “the book”.

The sun letters are **ن ل ظ ط ض ص ش س ز د ذ**.

The moon letters are **ء ب ج ح خ ع غ ف ق ك م ه و ي**.

The names “sun letters” and “moon letters” were given because of the Arabic words for “sun” and “moon” respectively. “The sun” in Arabic is **الشَّمْسُ** *ash-shams* which begins with **ش** which causes the **ل** in **الْ** to be silent. “The moon” is **القَمَرُ** *alqamar* which begins with **ق** which does not cause the **ل** in **الْ** to be silent. Thus **ش** represents the sun letters and **ق** represents the moon letters.

Here are some examples of words that begin with sun letters:

Noun	Definite noun
رَجُلٌ <i>rajul</i> « man »	الرَّجُلُ <i>’arrajul</i> « the man »
تَاجِرٌ <i>tājir</i> « trader »	التَّاجِرُ <i>’attājir</i> « the trader »
لُعْبَةٌ <i>luebah</i> « toy »	اللُّعْبَةُ <i>’alluebah</i> « the toy »

3.2.1.2. The definite article ال 'al with nouns with an initial connecting hamzah

If the definite article ال 'al is with prefixed to nouns that have an initial connecting hamzah, then the ج shall no longer have an sukūn ْ. Instead it shall have an kasrah ِ. Example:

- (1) أَلْبَن
 'ali-bn
 « the son »

3.2.2. Indefinite nouns in Arabic

Arabic has no indefinite article corresponding to the English indefinite article “a”. In order to make a noun indefinite in Arabic, it is simply written or pronounced without the definite article ال 'al. For example, كِتَاب *kitāb* “a book”.

3.2.3. Differences in definiteness between Arabic and English

The articles “a” and “the” are types of words called *determiners*. Besides “a” and “the”, English has other determiners like “some”, “this”, “that”, etc. that can make a noun definite or indefinite. For example:

- (2) « This man gave that boy some food. »

In the above sentence “man” and “boy” are definite, and “food” is indefinite.

English can also have definite or indefinite nouns without determiners. The definiteness of the noun is then determined by the meaning of the sentence. Consider, for example, the sentence:

- (3) « Time is valuable. »

Here, we are not talking about some indefinite amount of time, but rather the general concept of time, which is known to us. Therefore, the noun “time” here is definite.

Consider now the sentence:

- (4) « We don't have to leave just yet; we have time. »

Here, “time” has an indefinite meaning “[some] time”.

As opposed to this complicated situation in English, Arabic uses only the definite article ال 'al to make common nouns definite. So when translating sentences from English to Arabic, you must first determine whether the noun is definite or not in English, and then use ال 'al when the noun is definite.

Examples:

- (5) « This man gave that boy some food. »

- “man”: definite; Arabic: الرَّجُلُ *arrajul*
- “boy”: definite; Arabic: الْغُلَامُ *alghulām*
- “food”: indefinite; Arabic: طَعَامٌ *ṭaʿām*

(6) «Time is valuable.»

- “time”: definite; Arabic: الْوَقْتُ *alwaqt*

(7) «We don’t have to leave just yet; we have time.»

- “time”: indefinite; Arabic: وَقْتُ *waqt*

3.3. Case

Nouns in Arabic have a property called *case*. The case of a noun is dependent on the function of the noun in a sentence. The case of a noun is indicated by the noun’s ending. There are three states that a noun can be in. They are:

1. the u-case. By default, it is indicated, by a dammah on the final letter of the noun.
2. the a-case. By default, it is indicated, by a fat-ḥah on the final letter of the noun.
3. the i-case. By default, it is indicated, by a kasrah on the final letter of the noun.

When a noun is indefinite, then, for most nouns, it is also tanwined. Here, for example, is the noun كِتَابٌ *kitāb* “book” in its three states:

case	Indefinite “a book”	Definite “the book”
u-case	كِتَابٌ <i>kitābun</i>	الْكِتَابُ <i>alkitābu</i>
a-case	كِتَابًا <i>kitāban</i>	الْكِتَابَا <i>alkitāba</i>
i-case	كِتَابٍ <i>kitābin</i>	الْكِتَابِي <i>alkitābi</i>

The u-case is a noun’s normal case, and there needs to be a reason to take the noun out of this case into another case. We will begin to use case more in the next chapter if Allāh wills, where we learn how to form sentences.

3.4. Grammatical gender

Some nouns designate animate beings like “man”, “woman”, “boy”, “girl”, “dog”, “cow”, etc. Other nouns designate inanimate objects like “book”, “house”, “hand”, “tree”, “city”, “food”.

In dealing with the grammatical genders of such nouns, English uses three genders:

1. The masculine gender. This is used for nouns that designate male human beings and also some male animals. The pronouns used for the masculine gender are “he”, “him”, and “his”.
2. The feminine gender. This is used for nouns that designate female human beings, and also some female animals. The pronouns used for the feminine gender are “she” and “her”.
3. The neutral gender. This is used for nouns that designate inanimate objects and animals in general. The pronoun used for the neutral gender is “it”.

In Arabic, there are only two grammatical genders: the masculine gender and the feminine gender. All nouns in Arabic are either masculine or feminine in gender. Nouns that designate male human beings are assigned the masculine grammatical gender. And nouns that designate female human beings are assigned the feminine grammatical gender. Nouns that designate animals sometimes conform to the gender of the animal. Other times, they have a fixed gender. As for nouns that designate inanimate objects, these, too, are assigned a gender. For example, كتاب *kitāb* “book” in Arabic is masculine. And شجرة *shajarah* “tree” in Arabic is feminine. We shall discuss this in more detail below.

3.4.1. Nouns that designate animate beings.

In Arabic, in terms of their form, nouns that designate animate beings are in three categories:

1. There are separate but matching nouns for the male and female animate beings.
2. There are separate and unrelated nouns for the male and female animate beings.
3. The same noun is used for both sexes.

We will discuss each of these categories below.

3.4.1.1. Matching nouns for male and female animate beings

In Arabic for some nouns that designate animate beings, the nouns for both sexes match each other. Here are some examples:

Primitive nouns

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
ابن <i>ibn</i>	masc.	son
ابنة <i>ibnah</i>	fem.	daughter
طفل <i>tifl</i>	masc.	child
طفلة <i>tiflah</i>	fem.	(female) child
إنسان <i>insān</i>	masc.	human being
إنسانة <i>insānah</i>	fem.	(female) human being
حر <i>hurr</i>	masc.	free man

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
حُرَّة <i>hurrah</i>	fem.	free woman
كَلْب <i>kalb</i>	masc.	(male) dog
كَلْبَة <i>kalbah</i>	fem.	(female) dog
حِر <i>hirr</i>	masc.	(male) cat
حِرَّة <i>hirrah</i>	fem.	(female) cat

Derived nouns

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
مُعَلِّم <i>mueallim</i>	masc.	(male) teacher
مُعَلِّمَة <i>mueallimah</i>	fem.	(female) teacher
طَالِب <i>tālib</i>	masc.	(male) student
طَالِبَة <i>tālibah</i>	fem.	(female) student
صَاحِب <i>ṣāhib</i>	masc.	(male) companion
صَاحِبَة <i>ṣāhibah</i>	fem.	(female) companion
صَدِيق <i>ṣadiq</i>	masc.	(male) friend
صَدِيقَة <i>ṣadiqah</i>	fem.	(female) friend

In each of the words in the table above, the feminine noun is basically the same as the masculine noun but with the addition of a *ḍ* at the end. For example, *طِفْل* *ṭifl* is masculine, and its feminine is *طِفْلَة* *ṭiflah* (fem.).

As a matter of fact, the *ḍ* is called a feminine marker for singular nouns. There are a couple of other, less common, feminine markers besides *ḍ* that we will learn them later, if Allāh wills.

Note that the vowel-mark before the *ḍ* is always an *fatḥah*.

Note also that we have divided the nouns above into two categories:

- i. Primitive nouns
- ii. Derived nouns

Primitive nouns have a primitive meaning, without a primarily adjectival or verbal quality in the meaning, for example “human” “cat”, etc. For derived nouns, their meaning is derived from an adjectival or verbal quality. For example, a “teacher” is someone who teaches. A “friend” is someone who is friendly. And so on.

For derived nouns, the formation of the feminine noun by adding a feminine marker (like *ḍ*) to the masculine noun is normal and expected. Whereas, for primitive nouns, the fact that the feminine and masculine nouns match each other and differ only by the feminine marker *ḍ* is something that, although somewhat common, is more of a coincidence.

Another noteworthy point is that, for many primitive nouns, sometimes only one of the masculine/feminine pair may be used to refer to beings of either sex. What we mean by this is that, for example, *كَلْب* *kalb*, while remaining a masculine noun, can be used to refer to both a male dog and a female dog,

especially if the animal's physical gender is not obvious or particularly important. And كَلْبَةٌ *kalbah* (fem.) “a female dog” is typically only used when it is needed to specify the gender of the animal. Conversely, هِرَّةٌ *hirrah* “a (female) cat” may be used to refer to cat of either physical gender, especially if it is not obvious whether it is a male or female cat.

This preference of the noun of one gender to refer to beings of either physical gender is case-by-case. For example, طِفْلٌ *ṭifl* (masc.) is commonly used to say “a child”, regardless of whether the child is a boy or a girl. But طِفْلَةٌ *ṭiflah*, although not uncommon, is used specifically for “a female child”.

As another example, the word إِنْسَانَةٌ *insānah* (fem.) “a female human being” is rarely used at all. Instead, the word إِنْسَانٌ *insān*, while remaining a masculine noun, is almost always used to refer to “a human being” in general, regardless of actual gender.

On the other hand, ابْنٌ *ibn* “son” and ابْنَةٌ *ibnah* “daughter” are only ever used for their respective gender. So ابْنٌ *ibn* (masc.) “a son” is not used to mean “a daughter”. And ابْنَةٌ *ibnah* (fem.) “a daughter” is not used to mean “a son”.

As for derived nouns, they are typically only ever used for their respective gender. So, for example, مُعَلِّمٌ *mu'allim* (masc.) is only used for “a (male) teacher”. And مُعَلِّمَةٌ *mu'allimah* (fem.) is only used for “a (female) teacher”.

3.4.1.2. Unrelated nouns for male and female animate beings

For other nouns that designate animate beings, the nouns for the male and female sexes are completely unrelated. Here are some examples:

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
أَبٌ <i>ab</i>	masc.	father
أُمٌّ <i>umm</i>	fem.	mother
غُلَامٌ <i>ghulām</i>	masc.	boy
جَارِيَةٌ <i>jāriyah</i>	fem.	girl
عَبْدٌ <i>abd</i>	masc.	male slave
أَمَةٌ <i>amah</i>	fem.	female slave
أَسَدٌ <i>asad</i>	masc.	lion
لَبْوَةٌ <i>labwah</i>	fem.	lioness
ثَوْرٌ <i>thawr</i>	masc.	bull
بَقَرَةٌ <i>baqarah</i>	fem.	cow

Even in these nouns you can see that the feminine noun usually ends with a ة feminine marker. There are only a few commonly used feminine nouns that don't end with a feminine marker like ة. أُمٌّ *umm* “mother” is one of these exceptions.

3.4.1.3. Using the same noun for both sexes

There are other nouns for animate beings where the same word is used for both sexes. The word itself will still be either grammatically masculine or feminine. Here are some examples:

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
شَخْصٌ <i>shakhṣ</i>	masc.	person
نَفْسٌ <i>nafs</i>	fem.	self
عَدُوٌّ <i>ʿaduww</i>	masc.	enemy
حَيَوَانٌ <i>ḥayawān</i>	masc.	animal
طَائِرٌ <i>ṭāʾir</i>	masc.	bird
قِرْدٌ <i>qird</i>	masc.	monkey
حَمَامَةٌ <i>ḥamāmah</i>	fem.	dove
نَمْلَةٌ <i>namlah</i>	fem.	ant

So, for example, قِرْدٌ *qird* “monkey” is grammatically masculine but it will be used for both a male and a female monkey. Similarly, شَخْصٌ *shakhṣ* is a masculine noun meaning “person”. While remaining grammatically masculine, it can be used to refer to persons of male or female persons. While, نَفْسٌ *nafs* is a feminine noun meaning “self”. While remaining grammatically feminine, it can be used to refer to persons of male or female selves

Note also that نَفْسٌ *nafs* “self” is a feminine noun but it does not end in a ة. It is one of the small number of feminine nouns that don’t have a female marker, like أُمٌّ *umm* (fem.) “mother”.

3.4.2. Nouns that designate inanimate objects

As mentioned earlier, nouns that designate inanimate objects are assigned a fixed grammatical gender. There is usually no discernable reason why some are assigned a masculine gender while others are assigned a feminine gender.

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
كِتَابٌ <i>kitāb</i>	masc.	book
بَيْتٌ <i>bayt</i>	masc.	house
قَلَمٌ <i>qalam</i>	masc.	pen
طَعَامٌ <i>ṭaʿām</i>	masc.	food
مَاءٌ <i>māʾ</i>	masc.	water
مَدْرَسَةٌ <i>madrasah</i>	fem.	school
مَدِينَةٌ <i>madīnah</i>	fem.	city
غُرْفَةٌ <i>ghurfah</i>	fem.	room
شَجَرَةٌ <i>shajarah</i>	fem.	tree
شَمْسٌ <i>shams</i>	fem.	sun
قَمَرٌ <i>qamar</i>	masc.	moon
عِلْمٌ <i>ʿilm</i>	masc.	knowledge

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
قُوَّة <i>quwwah</i>	fem.	strength
حَيَاة <i>hayāh</i>	fem.	life
مَوْت <i>mawt</i>	masc.	death

In these nouns as well, we note that feminine nouns usually end with the feminine marker ة. But here too, we find another exception: شَمْس *shams* “sun” which is feminine but does not end with a feminine marker. These exceptions are not very many and, if Allāh wills, we will not find it hard to memorize them.

There is a sub-group of nouns that designate inanimate objects, but can also be used to refer to animate beings. Here are a couple of examples:

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
رَهْبَنَة <i>rahinah</i>	fem.	pledge
عَضْو <i>ʿuḍw</i>	masc.	member

رَهْبَنَة *rahinah* is a feminine noun meaning “pledge”. For inanimate objects it refers to something that is held as a security or a collateral. With its animate meaning, it is used to refer to a human hostage.

Similarly, عَضْو *ʿuḍw* is a masculine noun meaning “member”. For inanimate objects it refers to a limb which is the member of a body. With its animate meaning it refers to a person who is a member of a professional organization.

Just like we saw for the nouns in section @using-the-same-noun-for-both-sexes, such nouns adhere to their fixed grammatical gender when used for either male or female persons.¹

3.4.3. Nouns with mismarked gender

We saw that there are some nouns that are feminine, but do not end with with a feminine marker like ة. These were:

- اُمّ *umm* (fem.) “mother”
- نَفْس *nafs* (fem.) “self”
- شَمْس *shams* (fem.) “sun”

There are a few more nouns that are like this. One special category among them is body parts. Many prominent body parts that come in pairs or more, are grammatically feminine, whether or not they end with a feminine marker like ة. Here are some examples:

- يَد *yad* (fem.) “hand” (sometimes “an arm”)
- عَيْن *ʿayn* (fem.) “eye”
- أُذُن *uḍhun* (fem.) “ear”
- قَدَم *qadam* (fem.) “foot”

¹ 401–410 مجموع مقالات فيصل المنصور in عضو أم عضوة؟ ومساائل أخر

- رِجْل *rijl* (fem.) “leg” (sometimes “foot”)
- إِبْهَام *’ibhām* (fem.) “thumb”
- إِصْبَع *’iṣbaʿ* (fem.) “finger, toe”
- سِنَّ *sinn* (fem.) “tooth”
- رُكْبَة *rukbaḥ* (fem.) “knee”

There are exceptions, however. The following body parts come in pairs yet are masculine.

- مَنْخَر *mankhar* (masc.) “nostril”
- مِرْفَق *mirfaq* (masc.) “elbow”

There are other such exceptions as well.

Body parts that don’t come in pairs are typically more regular in their gender: they are feminine if they end in a feminine marker like *ʾ*, and masculine if they don’t. Examples:

- رَأْس *ra’s* (masc.) “head”
- أَنْف *’anf* (masc.) “nose”
- بَطْن *batn* (masc.) “belly”
- لِحْيَة *lihyah* (fem.) “beard”

Conversely, nouns that end with a feminine marker like *ʾ*, yet are masculine are very rare. Some of the more common of them are:

- خَلِيفَة *khalīfah* (masc.) “caliph”
- عَالِمَة *ʿallāmah* (masc.) “great scholar”
- دَاعِيَة *dāʿiyah* (masc.) “great preacher”

There are also a few words which can be optionally assigned a masculine or feminine gender. Among these are:

- سُوق *sūq* (masc. or fem.) “market”
- طَرِيق *ṭarīq* (masc. or fem.) “path”

A good dictionary should mention the gender of all these exceptional words. In addition, in appendix @ref(unmarked-fem-nouns) as well, we have a compiled a list of feminine nouns that don’t end with a feminine marker. (TODO: get from Hava: pg. xi (fem) and xii (admitting either gender).)

3.5. Exercises

In the following English sentences, determine whether the underlined nouns will be translated with definite or indefinite nouns in Arabic.

Chapter 4.

The nounal sentence

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

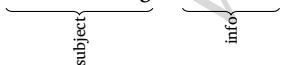
4.1. Introduction

In this chapter we will learn about a class of sentences called *nounal sentences*. Nounal sentences consist of two parts:

- i. The *subject*. This is the topic of the sentence.
- ii. The *info*. This gives us some information about the subject.

4.2. Forming nounal sentences

Here is a nounal sentence:
“The building is a house.”


subject info

The subject of the sentence is “the building”. This means that the sentence is about “the building”.

The info is “a house”. This means that the info that the sentence is giving us about the subject is that it is “a house”.

Let’s try to form this sentence in Arabic.

First we assemble the individual parts:

- i. “The building” in Arabic is **الْبَيْتَاءُ** ‘*albinā*’ (masc.).
- ii. “A house” is **بَيْتٌ** *bayt* (masc.).

Next we put them both in the u-case. For nounal sentences, both the subject and the info shall be in the u-case. Remember that the u-case is formed by putting a tanwined ḍammah ُ at the end of an indefinite noun, and a ḍammah ٌ at the end of a definite noun. Here are the two nouns in the u-case:

- i. الْبَيْتُ *'albinā'u* (masc.) “the building” (u-case)
- ii. بَيْتٌ *baytun* (masc.) “a house” (u-case)

In order to form this sentence in Arabic, we put the subject first and then the info. So we get:

$\left. \begin{array}{c} \text{info} \\ \text{بَيْتٌ} \end{array} \right\} \left. \begin{array}{c} \text{subject} \\ \text{الْبَيْتُ} \end{array} \right\}$

'albaytu binā'.

“The building is a house.”

But wait! Where is the Arabic word for “is”? It turns out that Arabic does not usually express any word for “is”. Instead, the meaning of this word is implied.

Also, note that the final vowel mark at the end of the sentence is written but not pronounced. So we will write بَيْتٌ but say *bayt*, not *baytun*. This is in accordance with what we learned in section @ref(pronouncing-the-end-of-a-sentence).

Now let's try reversing this sentence, and try making the sentence:

“The house is a building.”

We follow the same procedure by assembling the individual parts of the sentence and putting them in the u-case:

- i. The subject: الْبَيْتُ *'albaytu* (masc.) “the house” (u-case)
- ii. The info: بَيْتٌ *binā'un* (masc.) “a building” (u-case)

And then we put them together, first the subject and then the info:

الْبَيْتُ بَيْتٌ

'albaytu binā'.

“The house is a building.”

and there we have our sentence.

4.3. Matching the gender between the subject and the info

In the sentences above, both the subject and the info were masculine nouns. Now let's try forming a sentence where the subject and the info have different genders. Let's try saying:

“The building is a school.”

- i. The subject: الْبَيْتُ *'albinā'u* (masc.) “the building” (u-case)
- ii. The info: مَدْرَسَةٌ *madrasatun* (fem.) “a school” (u-case)

In the same manner as before, we form the sentence by first writing the subject and then the info:

$\text{الْبَيْتُ مَدْرَسَةٌ}$

'albinā'u mādrasah.

“The building is a school.”

We can also reverse this sentence:

الْمَدْرَسَةُ بِنَاءٌ.

ʾalmadrasatu bināʾ.

“The school is a building.”

So we see that it is quite normal to have a sentence where the gender of the subject does not match the gender of the info. This is because the nouns we have dealt with so far denote inanimate entities. If either the subject or the info denote animate beings, then in this case the subject and the info often do match each other in gender. For example, let's try to form the sentence:

“The mother is a teacher.”

Here are the individual words that we will use to form the sentence:

- i. The subject: “the mother”: الْأُمُّ ʾalʾummu (fem.) (u-case).
- ii. The info: “a teacher”. We have two words for “a teacher” in Arabic:
 - مُعَلِّمٌ muʿallim (masc.) “a (male) teacher”
 - مُعَلِّمَةٌ muʿallimah (fem.) “a (female) teacher”.

Obviously, مُعَلِّمَةٌ muʿallimah would apply here so we put it in the u-case:

مُعَلِّمَةٌ muʿallimatun (u-case).

Now we can assemble the sentence:

الْأُمُّ مُعَلِّمَةٌ.

ʾalʾummu muʿallimah.

“The mother is a teacher_f.”

In the reverse sentence “The teacher is a mother”, we again use the feminine noun مُعَلِّمَةٌ muʿallimah (fem.) “a (female) teacher”, which is now the subject of the sentence, to match the feminine noun in the info الْأُمُّ ʾalumm (fem.) “a mother”. So we get:

الْمُعَلِّمَةُ أُمٌّ.

ʾalmuʿallimatu ʾumm.

“The teacher_f is a mother.”

Here is another example:

الرَّجُلُ أَبٌ.

ʾarrujulu ʾab.

“The man is a father.”

Now, let's try a sentence where we are still dealing with animate beings but the nouns mismatches in grammatical gender.

الْأُمُّ شَخْصٌ.

ʾalʾummu shakhṣ.

“The mother is a person.”

الشَّخْصُ مُعَلِّمَةٌ.

ʾashshakhṣu muʿallimah.

“The person is a (female) teacher.”

الْمُعَلِّمَةُ شَخْصٌ.

ʾalmuʿallimatu shakhṣ.

“The (female) teacher is a person.”

In the above examples, the grammatical genders mismatch between the subject and the info. But this is because we are matching with the physical gender of the person represented by the masculine noun *شَخْصٌ shakhṣ* “a person”, not its grammatical gender.

The same effect is seen when using the word *حَيَوَان hayawān* which is a masculine noun meaning “an animal”. It can be applied to both male and female animals. So we can say:

الْحَيَوَانُ هِرٌّ.

‘alhayawānu hirr.

“The animal is a (male) cat.”

and

الْحَيَوَانُ هِرَّةٌ.

‘alhayawānu hirrah.

“The animal is a (female) cat.”

4.4. Detached pronouns

Pronouns, in Arabic, are special nouns that can be used in place of other nouns when it is known who is being referred to. This means that they can replace definite nouns only. Pronouns in English include words like “he”, “she”, “it”, “you”, “I”, etc.

In order to explain the usage of pronouns, we will first show a sentence with a noun subject:

“The man is a teacher.”

Now we can replace the definite subject noun “the man” with the pronoun “he”:

“He is a teacher.”

In Arabic there are a few different kinds of pronouns. Here we will learn *detached pronouns*. They are called detached pronouns because they are detached from other words. There are another set of pronouns called *attached pronouns* that we will learn later, if Allāh wills.

4.4.1. Participants

When talking about pronouns, it is beneficial to make use of a concept of grammar called *participants*.

In any kind of speech there are there can be up to three types of *participants* involved. A participant may be singular, i.e. consist of one individual, or plural, i.e., consist of more than one individual.

The three participants in speech are:

1. The *speaker-participant*. This is the participant who is speaking. When the speaker-participant refers to himself or herself (or themselves if plural) in English, then he/she/they use the pronouns “I”, “me”, “we”, and “us”.
2. The *addressee-participant*. This is the participant whom the speaker-participant is directly speaking to. When the speaker-participant refers to the addressee-participant in English, he uses the “you” pronoun.

3. The *absentee-participant*. This is the participant who is not being directly spoken to. Their only participation in the speech is that they are being referred to. When the speaker-participant refers to the absentee-participant in English, he uses the pronouns “he”, “him”, “she”, “her”, “it”, “they”, and “them”.

In this chapter we will learn the Arabic pronouns for the singular participants.

4.4.2. Detached pronouns for the singular absentee-participant

Here are the Arabic detached pronouns for the singular absentee-participant:

- singular masculine absentee-participant: هُوَ *huwa* “he”.
- singular feminine absentee-participant: هِيَ *hiya* “she”.

Here are some examples of pair of sentences, each first with a noun, and then with a pronoun in place of the noun:

- الرَّجُلُ مُعَلِّمٌ.
ʾarrajulu muʿallim.
“The man is a teacher_m.”

هُوَ مُعَلِّمٌ.
huwa muʿallim.
“He is a (male) teacher_m.”

- الْجَارِيَةُ طَالِبَةٌ.
ʾaljāriyatu ṭalibah.
“The girl is a student_f.”

- هِيَ طَالِبَةٌ.
hiya ṭalibah.
“She is a student_f.”

- الْبَيْتُ بِنَاءٌ.
ʾalbaytu bināʾ.
“The house is a building.”

هُوَ بِنَاءٌ.
huwa bināʾ.
“It is a building.”

Note that Arabic uses the pronoun هُوَ *huwa* “he” to refer to the inanimate object “the house”. This is because, as we know, all nouns in Arabic are either masculine or feminine. In translating the sentence to English we will employ the neutral pronoun “it” to make the sentence sound natural.

- الْبِنَاءُ مَدْرَسَةٌ.
ʾalbināʾu madrasah.
“The building is a school.”

هُوَ مَدْرَسَةٌ. *huwa madrasah.*

or

هِيَ مَدْرَسَةٌ. *hiya madrasah.*

“It is a school.”

Note that either هُوَ *huwa* “he” or هِيَ *hiya* “she” can be used in the above sentence because the gender of the subject الْبِنَاءُ *albinā* (masc.) “the building” mismatches the gender of the info مَدْرَسَةٌ *madrasah* (fem.) “a school.”.

In such cases where the genders of the subject and the info do not match, then, generally speaking, the pronoun for either gender could be employed with the following guideline:

Prefer to match the gender of the subject pronoun with the gender of the info, unless the noun being replaced with a pronoun is an animate being, in which case prefer to use the gender of the animate being.

So in the above sentence we will prefer to use هِيَ مَدْرَسَةٌ. *hiya madrasah.* because the info مَدْرَسَةٌ *madrasatun* “a school” is feminine.

- Here is an example with an animate being as the subject:

الْجَارِيَةُ إِنْسَانٌ.
aljāriyatu insān.

“The girl is a human.”

هِيَ إِنْسَانٌ.
hiya insān.

“She is a human.”

Here, if we replace the noun الْجَارِيَةُ *aljāriyah* “the girl” with a pronoun, we will prefer to use هِيَ *hiya* “she”, because the girl is an animate being, even though the info إِنْسَانٌ *insānun* “a human” is masculine.

4.4.3. Detached pronouns for the singular addressee-participant and speaker-participant

Here are the pronouns for the singular addressee-participant and speaker-participant:

- singular masculine addressee-participant: أَنْتَ *anta* “you_m”.
- singular feminine addressee-participant: أَنْتِ *anti* “you_f”.
- singular speaker-participant: أَنَا *ana* “I”.

Note that the addressee-participant pronoun “you” has separate pronouns for the masculine and the feminine while the speaker-participant pronoun “I” has the same pronoun for both genders. Examples with these pronouns:

- أَنْتَ مُعَلِّمٌ.
anta mueallim.

“You_m are a teacher_m.”

- أَنْتِ مُعَلِّمَةٌ.
'anti muɛallimah.
“You_f are a teacher_f.”
- أَنَا مُعَلِّمٌ.
'ana muɛallim.
“I am a teacher_m.”
- أَنَا مُعَلِّمَةٌ.
'ana muɛallimah.
“I am a teacher_f.”

4.4.4. Definiteness of pronouns

We stated, and saw, that pronouns can replace definite nouns. This means that pronouns themselves are definite nouns (even though they are not prefixed by ال 'al “the”).

This fact will be useful in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

4.4.5. Rigidity of pronouns

Remember in section @ref(flexibility-of-nouns), we talked about the flexibility of nouns. We said that nouns whose endings change with the noun's case are called flexible nouns. Most nouns fall into this category.

Pronouns, however, are nouns whose endings don't change with their case. Therefore they fall into the category of *rigid* nouns.

4.5. A definite noun as the info

In all the examples so far, the info has been an indefinite noun: “a building”, “a teacher”, “a cat”, etc. It is also possible for the info to be a definite noun:

الرَّجُلُ الْمُعَلِّمُ.
'arrajulu -lmuɛallim.
“The man is the teacher_m.”

The above sentence, although correct, is ambiguous. It can also be interpreted as a noun-phrase, meaning “the teacher-man”, instead of the complete sentence “The man is the teacher_m.” Therefore, in order to disambiguate and make it clear that we mean the complete sentence, a *disambiguating pronoun* is usually (but not always) inserted between the subject and the info. Disambiguating pronouns are detached pronouns that match the subject of the sentence in gender. With a disambiguating pronoun, the sentence above becomes:

الرَّجُلُ هُوَ الْمُعَلِّمُ.
'arrajulu huwa -lmuɛallim.
“The man is the teacher_m.”

The disambiguating pronoun here is **هُوَ** *huwa* and is not translated. Here are some more examples of sentences with definite infos and disambiguating pronouns.

الْبَيْتُ هُوَ الْبِنَاءُ.

ʿalbaytu -lbināʿu.

“The house is the building.”

الْحَيَوَانُ هِيَ الْهَيَّةُ.

ʿalḥayawānu hiya -lhirratu.

“The animal is the cat.”

4.6. An indefinite noun as the subject

In all the sentences we have seen so far, the subject has always been a definite noun. This is usually the case. A subject needs a certain amount of *weight* in order to be the first word in a sentence. And being definite gives it this needed weight. That is: “the man” is grammatically *heavier* than “a man”. So it is easier to start a sentence with “the man”.

So can we even have a sentence that has an indefinite subject? For example:

- A house is a building.
- A man is the teacher.

Yes, it is possible, but sentences where the subject is an indefinite noun are not as straightforward to express in Arabic. We will explore some ways of expressing them later if Allāh wills.

4.7. **وَ** *wa*- “and”, **فَ** *fa*- “so”/“and then”, and **أَوْ** *ʾaw* “or”

4.7.1. **وَ** *wa*- “and”

Arabic uses the particle **وَ** *wa* to mean “and”. Being a one-letter particle, it is joined to the word after it without any space between it and the next word.

وَمَدْرَسَةٌ

wamadrasatun

“and a school”

وَ *wa* meaning “and” does not change the case of the noun following it. Examples:

الْبِنَاءُ مَسْجِدٌ وَمَدْرَسَةٌ.

ʿalbināʿu masjidun wamadrasah.

“The building is a mosque and a school.”

If there are more than two words, then in English, only the final word usually has “and” and the rest are separated by commas in writing. In Arabic, however, each must have **وَ** and commas are not typically used.

اَلْبِنَاءُ مَسْجِدٌ وَمَدْرَسَةٌ وَمَكْتَبَةٌ.
 ‘albinā’u baytun wamadrasatun wamaktabah

“The building is a mosque, a school, and a library.”

We can also use ۙ to begin and connect sentences. The following example is technically two sentences, both beginning with ۙ:

وَالرَّجُلُ إِنْسَانٌ وَالْكَلْبُ حَيَوَانٌ
 warrujulu ‘inṣānun wa-lkalbu ḥayawānun

“And the man is a human and the dog is an animal.”

Unlike as in English, this is not considered poor style. When translating such sentences to English, the first ۙ is often left out, thus: “The man is a human and the dog is an animal.”

4.7.2. ۚ fa- “so”/“and then”

The word ۚ fa- “so”/“and then” is comparable to ۙ wa- “and”. ۚ fa- “so”/“and then” gives a meaning of ordering, consequence, and subsequence that is missing in ۙ wa- “and”. For example,

اَلْبِنَاءُ مَسْجِدٌ فَمَدْرَسَةٌ فَمَكْتَبَةٌ.
 ‘albinā’u baytun famadrasatun famaktabah

“The building is a mosque, and then a school, and then a library.”

ۚ fa- “so”/“and then”, too, is used to begin and connect sentences. Example,

فَالرَّجُلُ إِنْسَانٌ وَالْكَلْبُ حَيَوَانٌ
 farrujulu ‘inṣānun wa-lkalbu ḥayawānun

“So the man is a human and the dog is an animal.”

Work in progress

Chapter 5.

The prepositions

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

5.1. Introduction

Prepositions are words like “in”, “on”, “from”, etc. They are placed directly before a noun, for example: “in a house”. The preposition “in” is placed directly before the noun “a house”.

In Arabic prepositions, when placed before a noun, put it in the i-case. For example the preposition في *fī* means “in”. We can put it before the noun بَيْت *bayt* “a house”:

فِي بَيْتٍ

fī baytin

“in a house”

Note how the noun بَيْت *baytin* “a house” is in the i-case because of the preposition في *fī* “in” before it. The i-case is indicated by the tanwīned kasrah ِ on the final letter of بَيْت.

Arabic has two types of prepositions: *true* prepositions and *pseudo*-prepositions.

5.2. True prepositions

True prepositions are *particles*. Particles are a class of words, like nouns and verbs. Particles don’t have the properties of nouns. Thus, they cannot be definite or indefinite. They cannot be preceded by ال *al* nor may they be tanwīned. And they don’t have case (u-case, a-case, i-case).

Here is a list of the more common true prepositions:

Preposition	Meaning
بِ <i>bi</i>	with, by, next to

Preposition	Meaning
لِ <i>li</i>	for, to
فِي <i>fi</i>	in
عَلَى <i>ʿalā</i>	on
إِلَى <i>ʾilā</i>	to, toward
مِنْ <i>min</i>	from
عَنْ <i>ʿan</i>	from, about
كَ <i>ka</i>	like

Notes:

- Prepositions that are a single letter (like بِ *bi*, لِ *li*, كَ *ka*) are joined to the following noun in writing. Example:

بِقَلَمٍ
biqalamin
“with a pen”

لِرَجُلٍ
lirajulin
“for a man”

كَابْنٍ
ka-bnin
“like a son”

- When a single letter preposition comes before a definite noun with اَلْ *al*, the preposition is generally joined to the alif in the اَلْ *al*. The alif is now not pronounced (because as we know it has a connecting hamzah). Example:

بِالْقَلَمِ
bi-lqalami
“with the pen”

If the noun begins with a connecting hamzah then the لِ in اَلْ gets an kasrah ِ instead of its usual sukūn ْ. We described this in section @ref(the-definite-article-with-nouns-with-an-initial-connecting-hamzah). Example:

كَالْأَبْنِ
ka-li-bni
“like the son”

- The only exception is the preposition لِ *li*. When joined to a definite noun with اَلْ *al*, the alif in اَلْ is dropped and we write the two *lāms* together. Example:

لِلرَّجُلِ
li-rrajuli
“for the man”

لِلْجَارِيَةِ
li-ljāriyati
 “for the girl”

لِلْأَبْنِ
li-li-bni
 “for the son”

However, in this case, if the noun too starts with a *lām*, then we drop the entire *ألْ al* (in writing, not in meaning). This is to avoid having three *lāms* joined to each other. Example:

لِللُّعْبَةِ
ʾalluebatu
 “the toy”

becomes

لِللُّعْبَةِ
li-lluebati
 “for the toy”

not

× لِللُّعْبَةِ

This is also true for the phrase:

لِلَّهِ
lillāhi
 “for Allāh”

which is formed from *ل + إِلَّه*

- The prepositions *عَلَى ʿalā* “on” and *إِلَى ʾilā* “to” have a long-*ā* vowel at the end but it is written with a dotless *yāʾ* *ي* instead of an alif. (We have already learned that some words are written this way in section @ref(a-vowel-written-with-a-ya).)
- Prepositions that are composed of multiple letters are not joined to the following noun. Example:

إِلَى مَدْرَسَةٍ
ʾilā madrasatin
 “to a school”

- If a preposition ends with a long vowel, then, as usual, it get shortened to a short vowel when it is followed by a word which begins with a connecting hamzah. Examples:

فِي الْبَيْتِ
fi -lbayti
 “in the house”

إِلَى ابْنِ
ʾila -bnin
 “to a son”

- If a preposition ends with a sukūn ْ and it is followed by a word that begins with a connecting hamzah, then the sukūn is changed to a short vowel according to the following rules:

- The ending of the preposition عَنْ *ean* gets an kasrah and becomes عَنِ *eani*. Examples:

عَنِ الرَّجُلِ
eani -rrajuli
“from the man”

عَنِ ابْنِ
eani -bnin
“from the son”

- The ending of the preposition مِنْ *min* gets an fatḥah if followed by the ال *al* of a definite noun. Otherwise it gets an kasrah if followed by any other connecting hamzah. Examples:

مِنَ الرَّجُلِ
mina -rrajuli
“from the man”

مِنَ ابْنِ
mini -bnin
“from a son”

5.3. Pseudo-prepositions

Pseudo-prepositions are actually nouns but they are used as prepositions. The above rules of writing and pronunciation apply to them as well.

Here is a list of some common pseudo-prepositions:

Preposition	Transcription	Meaning
عِنْدَ	<i>einda</i>	at
لَدَى	<i>ladā</i>	at
لَدُنْ	<i>ladun</i>	at
مَعَ	<i>maea</i>	together with
بَيْنَ	<i>bayna</i>	between, among

There are three different prepositions above that we have translated as “at”. لَدُنْ is relatively rarer compared to the others. Otherwise, they are largely interchangeable but there are some differences in meaning that we will explain later, if Allāh wills.

Here are some examples using pseudo-prepositions:

مَعَ الْغُلَامِ
maea -lghulāmi
“with the boy”

عِنْدَ الْبَيْتِ
inda -lbayti
 “at the house”
 لَدَى الْبَابِ
lada -lbābi
 “at the door”
 بَيْنَ النَّاسِ
bayna -nnāsi
 “among the people”

5.4. Attached pronouns

We have already learned detached pronouns هُوَ, هِيَ, and أَنَا in section @ref(detached-pronouns). Detached pronouns are the equivalent of “he”, “she”, and “I”, etc. They are used in place of nouns that are in the u-case.

Now we will learn about *attached pronouns*. Attached pronouns are, more or less, the equivalent of “him”, “her”, and “me”, etc. They are used in place of nouns that are in the a-case and the i-case. One place where attached pronouns are used is when they replace the noun directly following a preposition.

The singular attached pronouns are listed below. The detached pronouns are included as well for easy comparison.

Participant	Detached pronoun	Attached pronoun
Masc. absentee	هُوَ <i>huwa</i> “him”	هُ - <i>hu</i> “him”
Fem. absentee	هِيَ <i>hiya</i> “her”	هَا - <i>hā</i> “her”
Masc. addressee	أَنْتَ <i>anta</i> “you _{1,m} ”	كَ - <i>ka</i> “you _{1,m} ”
Fem. addressee	أَنْتِ <i>anti</i> “you _{1,f} ”	كِ - <i>ki</i> “you _{1,f} ”
Speaker	أَنَا <i>ana</i> “I”	يَ “me”

5.4.1. Attached pronouns with prepositions

As mentioned above, one place the attached pronouns are used are after prepositions. Here are some notes regarding how they attach to prepositions:

- Generally, these pronouns attach to the last letter of the preposition before it. Examples:
 - مِنْكَ *minka* “from you”
 - مَعَهُ *maʿahu* “with him”
 - عَنْهَا *ʿanhā* “from her”
- The ا *ā* ending of prepositions become اِيَّ -*ay* when attaching an attached pronoun. Examples:
 - إِلَيْهَا *ilayhā* “to her”

- عَلَيْكَ *ʿalayka* “on you_m”

3. The pronoun هُ *-hu* “him” becomes هِ *hi* when it is preceded by the vowels اِ -i, يِ -ī, or the semi-vowel اَيِ -ay. So we get

- بِهِ *bihi* “with him”
- فِيهِ *fīhi* “in him”
- إِلَيْهِ *ʾilayhi* “to him”

4. The attached pronoun for the speaker deserves special attention. The pronoun itself is the letter يِ. But it has two variants:

- يِ -ī
- يَا -iya

Generally, both of these variants cause the final letter of the word before them, if a consonant, to have an kasrah ِ, regardless of the whether or not that letter originally had an kasrah. Examples:

- لِي *lī* and لِيَا *liya* “for me”
- بِي *bī* and بِيَا *biya* “with/by me”
- مَعِي *maʿī* and مَعِيَا *maʿiya* “together with me”
- عِنْدِي *ʿindi* and عِنْدِيَا *ʿindiya* “at me”

Between these two, variants, يِ -ī is more commonly used generally, except in the cases described in the next point, below:

5. For any word that ends with a long vowel (-ā, -ī, or -ū) or a semi-vowel (-ay or -aw), the variant يِ -ī for the speaker attached pronoun is not used. Instead, only the variant يَا -ya may be used with such words.

Prepositions that fall under this category are فِي *fī*, عَلَى *ʿalā*, إِلَى *ʾilā*, and لَدَى *ladā*. Furthermore, the -ā ending in these will become اَيِ *ay* instead when attaching the pronoun.

In addition, the pronoun يَا -ya will not cause the final letter of word before it to have an kasrah because it does that only to consonants, not to vowels or semivowels.

So we get:

- يِ + فِي = فِيَّ *fīya* “in me”
- يِ + إِلَيَّ = إِلَيَّ *ʾilayya* “to me”
- يِ + عَلَيَّ = عَلَيَّ *ʿalayya* “on me”
- يِ + لَدَيَّ = لَدَيَّ *ladayya* “at me”.

6. The preposition كَ *ka* “like” is not used with any attached pronoun. So, for example, we don’t say:

- × كَهْ *kah* for “like him.”

Instead, we will learn another method to express this meaning in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

7. The word “between”, because of its meaning, is typically used with two or more individuals. For example, “between us”, “between you and him”, etc. In Arabic, when the pseudo-preposition بَيْنَ *bayna* is used with a singular attached pronoun, it is repeated. For example,

- بَيْنِي وَبَيْنَكَ *bayni wabaynaka* “between me and you”

5.5. Translating prepositions

For each preposition that we have listed above, we have also given its meaning. For example,

- فِي *fī* “in”
- بِ *bi* “with”, “by”, “next to”

These meanings are not always fixed. And there is some degree of overlap in meanings as well. For example, in order to say “in the city” we will usually say فِي الْمَدِينَةِ *fī l-madinati* but sometimes we can also say بِالْمَدِينَةِ *bi l-madinati* with the same meaning. As you keep learning, practicing, and reading Arabic, you will learn how to choose which preposition to use, if Allah wills.

Similarly, sometimes we have two or more prepositions with almost the same meaning. For example,

- مِنْ *min* “from”
- عَنْ *ʿan* “from”, “about”

Knowing when to use one or the other will also take practice.

5.6. Sentences and phrases with prepositions

We have seen how a noun can be used after a preposition to get a prepositional phrase, for example:

فِي الْبَيْتِ
fī l-bayti
“in the house”

We can put an indefinite noun in front of this structure:

رَجُلٌ فِي الْبَيْتِ
rajulun fī l-bayti
“a man in the house”

This is a phrase and not a complete sentence. Note that the preposition فِي *fī* “in” only puts the noun after it (الْبَيْتِ *albayti* “the house”) in the i-case. It has no effect on the case of the noun before it (رَجُلٌ *rajulun* “a man”). In this case, it is in the u-case.

Instead of an indefinite noun, we can also put a definite noun in front of the prepositional phrase. Now the resulting structure can, in general, have two meanings: (i) a complete sentence, and (ii) an incomplete sentence. For example,

الرَّجُلُ فِي الْبَيْتِ

’arrujulu fi -lbayti

(i) “The man is in the house.”

(ii) “The man in the house”

Usually, it will be clear from the context which of the two meanings is valid. For example, the second meaning, “The man in the house”, can be part of a complete sentence:

الرَّجُلُ فِي الْبَيْتِ مُعَلِّمٌ.

’arrujulu fi -lbayti muallim.

“The man in the house is a teacher_m.”

5.7. Sentences with an indefinite subject

We said, in section @ref(an-indefinite-noun-as-the-subject), that the subject of a sentence is usually a definite noun. Now, we shall explore one way of allowing a sentence with an indefinite subject.

We have seen that if an indefinite noun is placed in front of a prepositional phrase, we get an incomplete sentence. For example,

رَجُلٌ فِي الْبَيْتِ

rajulun fi -lbayti

“a man in the house”

Now we will see how to make the complete sentence (with an indefinite subject):

“A man is in the house.”

In order to express this sentence, we put the prepositional phrase first, and place the indefinite subject after it:

فِي الْبَيْتِ رَجُلٌ.

fi -lbayti rajul.

“In the house is a man.” = “A man is in the house.”

In English, it may sometimes be more convenient to translate this type of sentence using the expression “there is”:

“There is a man in the house.”

5.8. Prepositions with multiple nouns/pronouns

In English, we can use a preposition with multiple nouns separated by “and”, thus:

“The boy went to the school and the house.”

A similar meaning can be achieved by repeating the preposition before each noun:

“The boy went to the school and to the house.”

In Arabic as well, if there are multiple nouns associated with a preposition then you may choose to repeat the preposition or not. Examples:

إِلَى الْمَدْرَسَةِ وَإِلَى الْبَيْتِ
 'ila -l bayti walmadrasati
 “to the school to and the house”

إِلَى الْمَدْرَسَةِ وَالْبَيْتِ
 'ila -l bayti walmadrasati
 “to the school and the house”

Note that when you don't repeat the preposition, the second noun is still in the i-case.

In English, you have a similar option when you use pronouns instead of nouns. All of the following should be acceptable:

“to the boy and me”
 “to the boy and to me”
 “to him and me”
 “to him and to me”

In Arabic, however, if one or more pronouns is used then the prepositions must be repeated. Examples:

إِلَيَّ وَإِلَى الْغُلَامِ
 'ilayya wa'ila -lghulāmi
 “to me and to the boy”

إِلَيَّ وَإِلَيْهِ
 'ilayya wa'ilayhi
 “to me and to him”

5.9. To have something

English uses the verb “have” or “has” to express that someone Arabic does not have a verb for “have” or “has”. In order to express sentences like

“I have a book.”
 “The boy has a father.”

Arabic uses prepositions like

- لِ li “for”
- عِنْدَ einda “at”
- لَدَى ladā “at”
- مَعَ ma'a “together with”

Here are some examples:

لِلْغُلَامِ أَبٌ.
 li -lghulāmi 'ab.
 “The boy has a father.” (literally: “For the boy is a father.”)
 عِنْدَ الرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
 einda -rrajuli kitāb.
 “The man has a book.” (literally: “At the man is a book.”)
 مَعَ الْجَارِيَةِ لُعْبَةٌ.
 ma'a -ljāriyati luebah.
 “The girl has a toy.” (literally: “With the girl is a toy.”)

Here are some notes that can help you choose which preposition to use to express “has” or “have”:

- *li* “for” is used to express personal relationships, like “I have a friend”, “I have a son”, etc. It is also used when you wish to imply that you own the object. For example, the sentence

لِلرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
li -rrajuli kitāb.

implies that the man owns a book. But it is possible that he has lent it to someone else so he does not actually have it on his person or at his house, etc.

- *inda* “at” is used to express that the person has the object in his possession, but not necessarily that he has it with him right now. For example the sentence

عِنْدَ الرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
inda -rrajuli kitāb.

implies that the man has a book in his possession. But it is possible that it may not be with him right now. It may be at his house or elsewhere.

- *lādā* “at” is used to express that the person has the object in his possession and that he has it with him right now. For example the sentence

لَدَى الرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
lada -rrajuli kitāb.

implies that the man has a book in his possession and that he has it with him right now.

- *maʿa* “together with” is used to express that the person has the object with him right now. But it doesn’t necessarily imply ownership. For example, the sentence

مَعَ الرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
maʿa -rrajuli kitāb.

means that the man has a book with him right now. But it is possible that he does not own it and that someone else has lent it to him.

There is some degree of overlap in meaning and you will get a feeling of which preposition is more appropriate in which circumstance as you progress in your learning, if Allah wills. For now, if you find that the object can be used with all of these prepositions, you might go with *inda* as it is the more commonly used.

Chapter 6.

The māḍī verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Glossary of terms used in this chapter

Verb	الفِعْل
Māḍī verb	الفِعْلُ الْمَاضِي
Muḍārie verb	الفِعْلُ الْمُضَارِع
Verbal sentence	الْجُمْلَةُ الْفِعْلِيَّة
Past tense	الْمَاضِي / الْمُضَيَّ
Present tense	الْحَال
Future tense	الْاِسْتِقْبَال
Doer	الْفَاعِل
Direct doer	الْمَفْعُولُ بِهِ
Latent doer	الْفَاعِلُ الْمُسْتَتِر

6.1. Introduction

Verbs are action words. In terms of their form, Arabic has two main kinds of verbs:

1. The *māḍī* verb.
2. The *muḍārie* verb.

Here is the māḍī-muḍārie verb pair for the Arabic equivalent of the English verb « to go »:

Māḍī	Muḍārie
ذَهَبَ	يَذْهَبُ

A māḍī and muḍāriʿ form pair exists for (almost) all verbs. In this chapter we will study the māḍī form of the verb.

6.2. Tense and aspect

You may be wondering why the same verb in Arabic will have both a māḍī form and a muḍāriʿ form. In order to explain this we will give a short introduction to the concepts of *tense* and *aspect*.

Tense is a concept that tells us the time reference in which the action of a verb was done. Here are some examples of tense in English:

Example	Tense
«He went.»	past tense
«He goes.»	present tense
«He will go.»	future tense

Aspect is a concept that expresses how the action of a verb flows over time. A *perfect* aspect expresses that the action of a verb was completed, e.g.

(1) «He will have eaten.»

Example (24) above shows a perfect aspect combined with a future tense.

An *imperfect* aspect expresses that the action of a verb is not completed, e.g.

(2) «He was eating.»

Example (25) above shows an imperfect aspect combined with the past tense. Further distinctions can be made:

A *habitual* aspect indicates that an action is done repetitively but not necessarily continuously. For example:

(3) «He smokes.»

Progressive and *continuous* aspects express that a verbal action is, was, or will be, in progress and on-going, e.g.

(4) «He is reading.»

In Arabic, the māḍī form verb is typically used to express the perfect aspect. And the muḍāriʿ verb is typically used to express the imperfect aspect.¹

But we would like to keep our terminology for these verb forms separate from any tense or aspect that a sentence using them may signify.² That is why we are calling them māḍī and muḍāriʿ, instead of *perfect* and *imperfect*, respectively.

By the way, māḍī literally means *past* in Arabic. And it is very often used for the past tense. But when we use it terminologically to denote the verb form, then we don't intend by it to mean the past tense per se. (See Chapter 41, for example, where the māḍī verb is used very commonly in a future tense.)

¹Al-Dobaian, "A syntactic analysis of Arabic tense and aspect"

²Weigelt, "The particle *la-* in Classical Arabic"

6.3. Arabic word roots

We take this opportunity to learn about Arabic roots. Native Arabic words, both nouns and verbs, are generally derived from roots. Most roots are comprised of three letters. A smaller number are comprised of four or more letters.

Words are derived from their roots according to patterns. In traditional Arabic grammar studies, the root *فعل* is used as a paradigm for three-letter roots to showcase word and meaning patterns.

So for example, the word *بَيْت bayt* “a house” is derived from the root *بيت*. Using the paradigm root *فعل*, we can see that the pattern of the word *بَيْت bayt* is *فَعْل fael*. The *أمر amr* “a matter” is derived from the root *امر*. Its pattern is also *فَعْل fael*.

Similarly, the word *مَكْتَب maktab* “a library” is derived from the root *كتب*. And *مَلْعَب maleab* “a playground” is derived from the root *لعب*. Using the paradigm root *فعل*, we can see that the pattern of both these words is *مَفْعَل mafeal*. Here, the letter *م m* is an extraneous letter added to form the words and is not part of their roots.

Not only nouns, but verbs, too, are derived from roots. All verbs are derived from their roots in a fixed set of patterns called *forms* which are numbered 1 onward. For example, the *māḍī* form 2 verb pattern is *فَعَّل faʿala* and the *māḍī* form 3 verb pattern is *فَاعَل faʿala*. There are approximately 9-10 forms that are in common usage. In addition, there are a few higher order forms (11 onward) that are less common. In this chapter will study the *māḍī* form 1 verb only.

6.4. The form 1 *māḍī* verb

Here are some examples of *māḍī* form 1 verbs in Arabic:

Root	Māḍī form 1 verb	Meaning
فعل	فَعَلَ <i>faʿala</i>	«to do»
ذهب	ذَهَبَ <i>dhahaba</i>	«to go»
كتب	كَتَبَ <i>kataba</i>	«to write»
قرأ	قَرَأَ <i>qaraʿa</i>	«to read»
جلس	جَلَسَ <i>jalasa</i>	«to sit»
سأل	سَأَلَ <i>saʿala</i>	«to question»
سكت	سَكَتَ <i>sakata</i>	«to be quiet»
جعل	جَعَلَ <i>jaʿala</i>	«to make»
علم	عَلِمَ <i>ʿalima</i>	«to know»
عمل	عَمِلَ <i>ʿamila</i>	«to work»
كبر	كَبُرَ <i>kabura</i>	«to grow»

Note that *فعل*, in addition to being used as a paradigm root, also has a verb in its own right: *فَعَلَ faʿala* «to do».

Note, also, that the *māḍī* form 1 verb consists only of the three letters of the root. The first and the final letter always have an *fatḥah* while the middle letter's

vowel is variable. It may have an fatḥah, kasrah, or an ḍammah, depending on the verb. Using the paradigm root *فعل*, we can say that the form 1 verb occurs in the patterns *فَعَلَ*, *فَعِلَ*, and *فَعُلَ*.

A good dictionary will tell us the middle vowel mark of a particular verb. However, as a trend, the fatḥah is the most common for the middle vowel mark, followed by the kasrah, while the ḍammah is the least common.

Interestingly, there can exist multiple verbs from the same root, each with its own distinct meaning, that differ only in the vowel mark on the middle letter. An example of two such verbs is:

- *حَسَبَ ḥasaba* “to calculate”
- *حَسِبَ ḥasiba* “to deem”

You can see above how the verb *كَتَبَ kataba* «to write» is derived from the root *كتب*. We have already, by the way, learned another word derived from this root: the noun *كِتَاب kitāb* “a book”, which is on the pattern *فِعَال fiʿāl*. Note how both the verb and the noun derived from this root have a meaning that is common and has to do with writing or of something written. In a similar manner, you will often see that words derived from the same root generally share some common meaning, although this common meaning may not always be obvious or straightforward.

6.5. Verbal sentences

We have already learned of nounal sentences. Here we will learn of a new type of sentence called a *verbal sentence*. A verbal sentence is one that begins with a verb.

When a verb is in a sentence, it requires a doer. The doer is a noun which represents the person who does the action of the verb. For example, in the sentence “The boy went.”, the noun “the boy” is the doer of the verb.

6.5.1. Verbs with a masculine doer noun

Consider this sentence that has the simple past tense:

- (5) «The boy went.»

In order to express a simple past tense sentence in Arabic, we will use the māḍī verb, thus:

- (6) *ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ*
dhahaba -lghulāmu
 «The boy went.»

ذَهَبَ dhahaba went is the verb and *الْغُلَامُ alghulāmu* “the boy” is the doer. Note how the doer is in the u-case. Also note that in English the doer comes before the verb whereas in Arabic the doer comes after the verb in sentence word order. We can state this as a rule of Arabic grammar:

In Arabic, every verb in a sentence shall have a doer noun. The doer noun shall be in the u-case and shall come after the verb in sentence word order.

In the above example the doer noun was definite, but a doer may be indefinite too. Example:

ذَهَبَ رَجُلٌ إِلَى السُّوقِ.

dhahaba rajulun ʾila -ssūq.

“A man went to the market.”

In the above sentence, the doer noun رَجُلٌ *rajulun* is indefinite.

6.5.2. Verbs with a feminine doer noun

Now consider the sentence:

“A girl went.”

In order to express this sentence in Arabic, we will say:

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ.

dhahabat jāriyah.

“A girl went.”

Note that we have modified the verb by adding on the letter ت at the end. This ت is used when the doer is a feminine noun. It is called the ت of femininity.

If the word following the noun begins with a connecting hamzah then we add a helper vowel to the ت and it becomes تِ. Examples:

جَلَسَتْ الْهَرَّةُ عَلَى الْكُرْسِيِّ.

jalasati -lhirratu ʿala -lkursiyyi.

“The cat_f sat on the chair.”

لَعِبَتْ الطِّفْلَةُ فِي الْبَيْتِ.

laʿibati -ṭiṭflatu fi -lbayt.

“The child_f played in the house.”

6.6. Verbs with does

6.6.1. The direct doee

Consider the sentence:

“The man wrote a book.”

In this sentence, “wrote” is the verb, “the man” is the doer, and “a book” is what we shall call the *doee*. In fact, it is what we shall call a *direct doee* because the verb directly takes the doee without an intervening preposition. A doee is the noun to whom the action of the verb is done.

In Arabic, we will express the sentence “The man wrote a book.” by saying:

كَتَبَ الرَّجُلُ كِتَابًا.

kataba -rrajulu kitābā.

“The man wrote a book.”

Note how in Arabic the doee كِتَابًا *kitāban* “a book” is in the a-case. This is because, in Arabic, verbs shall cause a direct doee to be in the a-case. This is true whether the direct doee is definite or indefinite. Here is another example:

سَأَلَتِ الْأُمُّ الْجَارِيَةَ.
sa'alati -l'ummu -ljāriyah.

"The mother questioned the girl."

Note again how الْجَارِيَةُ *aljāriyata* "the girl" is in the a-case because it is a direct doee.

6.6.2. Multiple direct doees

Some verbs can take more than one direct doee. In this case, all direct doees shall be in the a-case. For example,

جَعَلَ اللَّهُ الرَّجُلَ مُسْلِمًا.
ja'ala -llāhu -rrajula muslimā.

"Allāh made the man a Muslim."

In this sentence both الرَّجُلَ *arrajula* "the man" and مُسْلِمًا *musliman* "a Muslim" are direct doees of the verb جَعَلَ *ja'ala* and therefore both are placed in the a-case.

6.6.3. The indirect doee

Instead of, or in addition to, direct doees, some verbs take an *indirect doee*. An indirect doee is one before which there is a preposition. For example, in English we might say:

"The man looked at the moon."

In this sentence, "the moon" is an indirect doee because it is preceded by the preposition "at". Similarly, in Arabic, we will say:

نَظَرَ الرَّجُلُ إِلَى الْقَمَرِ.
naḍhara -rrajulu 'ila -lqamar.

"The man looked at the moon."

In this sentence الْقَمَرِ *alqamari* "the moon" is an indirect doee of the verb نَظَرَ *naḍhara* "looked" because it is preceded by the preposition إِلَى *'ilā* "to". The preposition, as usual, causes the word after it (the indirect doee الْقَمَرِ *alqamari*) to be in the i-case, as opposed to the a-case of the direct doee.

Note also, that the verb "looked" in English used the preposition "at" whereas the Arabic verb نَظَرَ *naḍhara* used the preposition إِلَى *'ilā* "to" for the same meaning. This is very common and you should not expect Arabic to use exact counterparts of the prepositions used in English. In fact, everytime you learn a new verb, you should also learn the prepositions that go with it.

It is also possible for the same verb to take different prepositions with possibly different meanings. So, for example, we can say:

نَظَرَ الرَّجُلُ فِي الْأَمْرِ.
naḍhara -rrajulu fi -l'amri.

"The man looked into the matter."

It may also be possible for the same verb to take a direct doee. So we could also say:

نَظَرَ الرَّجُلُ الْمَكْتُوبَ فِي الْكِتَابِ.

naḍhara -rrajulu -lmaktūba fi -lkitābi.

“The man viewed what was written in the book.”

A good dictionary will tell us which prepositions are used with indirect does with a given verb and also whether it takes a direct doer.

Some verbs take a direct doer and another indirect doer, both at the same time. For example,

سَأَلَ الْعَلَامُ الْمُعَلِّمَةَ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

sa'ala -lghulāmu -lmueallimata ʿan ʿamr.

“The boy asked the teacher_f about a matter.”

الْمُعَلِّمَةُ *almueallimata* “the teacher_f” is the direct doer, and therefore it is in the a-case. أَمْرٍ *ʿamrin* “a matter” is an indirect doer, and so it is in the i-case. The preposition عَنْ *ʿan* is translated, here, as “about”.

It is also possible that an English verb may take a direct doer, while the corresponding Arabic verb may only take an indirect doer. The reverse is also quite possible. For example,

عَفَرَ اللَّهُ لِلْمُسْلِمِ.

ghafara -llāhu lilmuslimi.

“Allāh forgave the Muslim.”

The verb “forgave” in English takes a direct doer for the person who is forgiven. In Arabic, however, the corresponding verb عَفَرَ *ghafara* “forgave” takes the forgiven person as an indirect doer, using the preposition لِ *li*.

6.7. Verbs with doer pronouns

We have learned that a pronoun is a special kind of noun that can be used to replace a definite noun. And we have already learned two category of pronouns in Arabic:

- i. Detached pronouns, like هُوَ, هِيَ, etc.
- ii. Attached pronouns, like هَا, هُنَا, etc.

Now we would like to replace the doer noun of a verb with a pronoun. For example, instead of saying:

“The man went.”

we would like to say:

“He went.”

For this we will have to learn a third category of pronoun pronouns called *doer pronouns* for māḍī verbs. doer pronouns are of two types: (i) expressed and (ii) implied.

Here we list the singular doer pronouns in Arabic.

Singular participant	doer pronoun
Masc. absentee (“he”)	implied
Fem. absentee (“she”)	implied

Singular participant	doer pronoun
Masc. addressee (“you _{1,m} ”)	تَ -ta
Fem. addressee (“you _{1,f} ”)	تِ -ti
Speaker (“I”)	تُ -tu

We will now give an explanation of the above doer pronouns.

6.7.1. doer pronouns for the singular absentee-participant (“he”/“she”)

The doer pronouns of the absentee-participant are the equivalent of “he” and “she”. For example, let’s try to replace the doer-noun “the man” in the sentence: “The man went.”

ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلُ.
dhahaba -rrajul.

“The man went.”

When we replace the doer noun الرَّجُلُ ‘*arrajul*’ “the man” with the doer pronoun “he”, we get:

ذَهَبَ.
dhahab.

“[He] went.”

As you can see, all we did was omit the doer-noun الرَّجُلُ ‘*arrajul*’, and we didn’t add any word to replace it as the doer pronoun. This is because the doer pronoun for “he” is implied and automatically comes into place when we omit the doer noun.

The doer pronoun for “she” is similarly implied. For example, if we replace the doer noun in the sentence:

قَرَأَتِ الْغَارِيَةُ كِتَابًا.
qara’ati -lġāriyatu kitābā.

“The girl read a book.”

we get:

قَرَأَتْ كِتَابًا.
qara’at kitābā.

“[She] read a book.”

6.7.1.1. Explanation of implied pronouns

Why do we have to go to all the trouble of saying that the doer-pronouns of the singular absentee-participants “he” and “she” are implied? Why can’t we simply say that there are no doer-pronouns for the singular absentee-participants?

The reason is that we need to be able to state, as a rule of grammar, that every verb needs to have its own doer, whether expressed or implied. Later, if Allāh wills, when we study verbs with dual and plural doers we will see that this will make a difference in the formation of the verb.

6.7.2. Doer pronouns for the singular addressee (“you₁”) and speaker (“I”) participants

It is only the doer pronouns for the singular absentee participant that are implied for māḍī verbs. The doer pronouns for the singular addressee and speaker participants are expressed. The expressed doer pronouns are attached to the verb.

Here we show how the expressed doer pronouns are attached to the verb using the root paradigm فَعَلَ. The middle root letter (ع) has an fatḥah َ here but this vowel will vary for other verbs.

Singular participant	Doer pronoun	Doer pronoun with verb
Addressee “you _{1,m} ”	تَ -ta	فَعَلْتَ faʿalta
Addressee “you _{1,f} ”	تِ -ti	فَعَلْتِ faʿalti
Speaker “I”	تُ -tu	فَعَلْتُ faʿaltu

Note also how the expressed singular doer pronouns modify the verb by replacing the fatḥah َ on its final letter by a sukūn ْ.

Furthermore, note how the doer pronoun for the addressed person “you” is differentiated for masculine and feminine doers whereas the doer pronoun for the speaking person “I” is the same for both genders.

Here are some examples of sentences with expressed doer pronouns:

كَتَبْتَ كِتَابًا.

katabta kitābā.

“You_m wrote a book.”

ذَهَبْتُ.

dhahabt.

“I went.”

The above sentence ends with the doer pronoun, so the vowel-mark on the doer pronoun is not pronounced (*dhahabt*). So, how would we know which doer pronoun it is? That is, does the sentence say “I went.” or “You_m went.” or “You_f went.”? The answer is that the sentence by itself is ambiguous and context would tell us which of the three options is intended.

Take care to note that the singular doer pronouns modify the final letter of the basic verb, whereas the تِ of femininity does not. So make sure you see the difference in the following two sentences:

قَرَأْتَ الْكِتَابَ.

qaraʿti -lkitāb.

“You_f read the book.”

قَرَأَتِ الْكِتَابَ.

qaraʿati -lkitāb.

“She read the book.”

6.7.3. Assimilation of the doer pronoun

If the final letter of the root of a verb is ت, then it gets assimilated with the ت which is the doer pronoun and only one ت, representing both, is written. Consider the verb:

سَكَتَ سَكَّتْ *sakata* “became quiet”

When we add a expressed doer pronoun to this verb, we get:

سَكَّتُ

sakattu

“I became quiet”

سَكَّتَ

sakatta

“You_{1,m} became quiet”

سَكَّتِ

sakatti

“You_{1,f} became quiet”

Assimilation is treated in more detail in chapter/appendix TODO.

6.8. Verbs with doee pronouns

TODO: add long vowel for *hū/hī* for singular masculine

Just like doer nouns may be replaced with doer pronouns, so, too, may doee nouns be replaced with *doee pronouns*. Doee pronouns are also attached to the end of the verb but they don't modify the vowel on the final letter of the verb. The doee pronouns are the same attached pronouns that are also used with prepositions:

Singular participant	Doee pronoun
Masc. absentee	هُ - <i>hu</i> “him”
Fem. absentee	هَا - <i>hā</i> “her”
Masc. addressee	كَ - <i>ka</i> “you _{1,m} ”
Fem. addressee	كِ - <i>ki</i> “you _{1,f} ”
Speaker	يَ “me”

Here are some notes regarding their usage:

- Doee pronouns shall always be attached to the verb. So if there is a doer noun then it shall be placed after the attached doee pronoun. For example:

سَأَلَهُ الْغُلَامُ.

sa'alahu -lghulām.

“The boy asked him.”

- If however, the doer is also a pronoun, then it shall be attached first to the verb and then the doee pronoun shall be attached to the doer pronoun. For example,

سَأَلْتُكَ.

sa'altuk.

"I asked you_f."

- If the doer pronoun is implied, then the doee pronoun shall be attached to the verb again directly with only a possible ة of femininity intervening. For example:

سَأَلَهَا.

sa'alahā.

"He asked her."

سَأَلْتُكَ.

sa'altuk.

"She asked you_m."

- If the doee pronoun هـ -hu "him" is preceded by the vowels i, ī, or ay then it shall instead become هـ hi with no change in meaning. (We've already learned this rule.) For example,

سَأَلْتَهُ.

sa'altih

"You_f asked him."

- An intervening ن is always used between the verb and the speaker-participant doee pronoun variants يَ -ī and يَ -iya. Remember that these pronouns force any consonant before it to have a kasrah ِ. Therefore, the combination will be written as نِي -nī and نِي -niya respectively. For example:

سَأَلَنِي رَجُلٌ.

sa'alani rajul.

"A man asked me."

سَأَلَنِي الرَّجُلُ.

sa'alaniya -rrajul.

"The man asked me."

If there is an expressed doer pronoun, the intervening ن shall come after it so that the ن is always connected to the doee pronoun. For example,

سَأَلْتَنِي.

sa'altani

"You_m asked me."

By the way, we have already seen this intervening ن before when it was used with some prepositions, e.g. مِنِّي *minni*, عَنِّي *ʿanni*, and لَدُنِّي *ladunni*

The variant يَ -ī is, in general, more commonly used. However, when the noun following it begins with a connecting hamzah then the variant يَ -ya is preferred. That is why we used the variant يَ -ya when it was followed by a connecting hamzah (سَأَلَنِي الرَّجُلُ), and the variant يَ -ī when it was not followed by a connecting hamzah (سَأَلَنِي رَجُلٌ). But this

preference is not mandatory. So it is allowed for يَ -ī to be used when followed by a connecting hamzah. When this happens, the long vowel -ī will be shortened to -i in connecting it to the next word, although the يَ is retained in writing. For example,

سَأَلَنِي الرَّجُلُ.
sa'alani -rrajul.

“The man asked me.”

6.9. Multiple verbs for one doer

In this section we will use the verbs:

Root	Māḍī form 1 verb	Meaning
دخل	دَخَلَ <i>dakhala</i>	“entered”
خرج	خَرَجَ <i>kharaja</i>	“exited”
أكل	أَكَلَ <i>'akala</i>	“ate”
شرب	شَرِبَ <i>shariba</i>	“drank”

Consider, now, the sentence:

“I entered the room, ate, drank, and exited.”

The doer in this sentence is the pronoun “I”. This same doer is doing the action of multiple verbs: “entered”, “ate”, “drank”, and “exited”. When we try to express this sentence in Arabic we must remember that every verb shall have its own doer, and that the doer shall occur after it in sentence word order. So we will say:

دَخَلْتُ الْغُرْفَةَ فَأَكَلْتُ فَشَرِبْتُ فَخَرَجْتُ.

dakhaltu -lghurfata fa'akaltu fasharibtu fakharajt.

“I entered the room and then I ate and then I drank and then I exited.”

Note also, that we need to replace the commas by connecting particles like و *wa-* “and”, or ف *fa-* “so”/“and then”, etc. We chose ف *fa-* which implies consequence or subsequence between the individual events.

Let's now try this sentence with a doer noun instead of a doer pronoun:

“The girl entered the room, ate, drank, and exited.”

Here is our translation:

دَخَلَتِ الْجَارِيَةُ الْغُرْفَةَ فَأَكَلَتْ فَشَرِبَتْ فَخَرَجَتْ.

dakhalati -ljariyatu -lghurfata fa'akalat fasharibat fakharajat.

“The girl entered the room and then she ate and then she drank and then she exited.”

Each verb again has its own doer, which is coming after the verb in sentence word order. The doer of the first verb دَخَلَ *dakhala* “entered” is the noun الْجَارِيَةُ *'aljariyatu* “the girl”. The subsequent verbs all have doers too but they are the implied doer pronouns for the singular feminine absentee participant. That is why we don't write them. Note also that every verb has the ث of femininity attached to it to indicate its singular feminine absentee doer.

6.10. Order of words in a sentence

6.10.1. Changing the order of words for emphasis

In Arabic, the doer always follows the verb. So the normal order of a sentence is verb-doe-doe. For example,

كَتَبَ الرَّجُلُ كِتَابًا.

kataba -rrajulu kitābā.

“The man wrote a book.”

However, we will often come across sentences like:

الرَّجُلُ كَتَبَ كِتَابًا.

’arrajulu kataba kitābā.

It may appear as if الرَّجُلُ *arrajulu* is the doer and it is coming before the verb كَتَبَ *kataba*. But actually, this is not the case. As a matter of fact, this sentence is basically a nounal sentence.

Here كَتَبَ كِتَابًا *arrajulu* “the man” is the subject of the sentence, and كَتَبَ كِتَابًا *kataba kitāban* “he wrote a book”, itself a verbal sentence with an implied doer pronoun, is the info about the subject. So the translation of the sentence is technically:

“The man, he wrote a book.”

However, this can be an awkward translation so we will usually translate it as “The man wrote a book.”

The question arises: if both sentences above have the same translation, then why would we say الرَّجُلُ كَتَبَ كِتَابًا *’arrajulu kataba kitāban* instead of the more normal كَتَبَ الرَّجُلُ كِتَابًا *kataba -rrajulu kitāban*? The answer is that this change in the sentence’s word order is done in order to give more emphasis to the doer, as if to say:

“The man wrote a book.”

So in Arabic, the order of words is generally more flexible than in English and this is often used to give emphasis to certain words.

6.10.2. Verbs pull definite nouns towards them

When a verb has a doer noun and a doee noun, the normal order of words in a sentence is: verb, doer noun, doee noun. For example,

كَتَبَ الرَّجُلُ الْكِتَابَ.

kataba -rrajulu -lkitāba.

“The man wrote the book.”

There is a tendency, in Arabic, for verbs to *pull* definite nouns towards them. This means that if there are any indefinite nouns, they have a tendency to get pushed father away. So, for example, if a verb’s doer is an indefinite noun and the doee is a definite noun, the doee will often (but not always) precede the doer. For example,

كَتَبَ الْكِتَابَ رَجُلٌ.

kataba -lkitāba rajul.

“A man wrote the book.”

The vowel-marks at the end of the nouns, and context, will tell us which is the doer and which is the doee. In this particular example, it was optional, and not mandatory to make the definite doee precede the doer in sentence word order. So we could have also said, instead:

كَتَبَ رَجُلٌ الْكِتَابَ.

kataba rajuluni -lkitāb.

“A man wrote the book.”

Now let’s take a look at sentences with pronouns. Remember that pronouns are a category of nouns, and also (from section @ref(definiteness-of-pronouns)) that they are definite nouns. In fact they are stronger in definiteness than words that are made definite using ال. This because if when we say “The man wrote the book.” instead of “A man wrote the book.”, we assume that everyone knows which man we are referring to. Now if we replace “the man” with the pronoun “he”: “He wrote the book.”, then this assumption becomes stronger. “He” is, in a sense, more definite than “the man.”.

So now, when the direct doee noun الْكِتَابَ *’alkitāba* “the book” is replaced with the pronoun “it”, the doee pronoun must be attached to the verb, and then the doer noun follows the doee pronoun:

كَتَبَهُ الرَّجُلُ.

katabahu -rrajulu.

“The man wrote it.”

This can be seen as a mandatory case of the verb pulling the definite noun toward it.

Now, consider a sentence with an indirect doee. Again, the normal order of words in a sentence is verb, doer noun, preposition, doee noun. For example,

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى الْمَدْرَسَةِ.

dhahaba -lghulāmu ’ila -lmadrasah.

“The boy went to the school.”

Now, if we replace the indirect doee noun الْمَدْرَسَةِ *’almdrasati* “the school” with the pronoun “it”, the indirect doee pronoun هَا *-hā* “it” is attached, not to the verb, but to the preposition إِلَى *’ilā* thus: إِلَيْهَا *’ilayhā* “to it”. So it possible to preserve the original order of words in the sentence:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَيْهَا.

dhahaba -lghulāmu ’ilayhā.

“The boy went to it.”

While the above sentence is correct, it is in fact more common to place the preposition and doee pronoun إِلَيْهَا *’ilayhā* “to it” right after the verb, and before the doer noun, thus:

ذَهَبَ إِلَيْهَا الْغُلَامُ.

dhahaba ’ilayha -lghulāmu.

“The boy went to it.”

This is because the pronoun هَا *-hā* “it” is stronger in definiteness than الْغُلَامُ *’alghulām* “the boy”. So the verb has a stronger pull towards it.

This ordering of words due to the attractive pull of the verb is largely learned by experience. The more you read Arabic, the better feel you will get for it, if Allāh wills.

6.11. Negating māḍī verbs

In order to negate a māḍī verb, the particle **مَا** *mā* is placed before it. This gives the meaning of the action of the verb did not get, or has not got, done. So for example:

مَا ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلُ.

mā dhahaba -rrajulu.

“The man did not go.” or,

“The man has not gone.”

6.12. The particle قَدْ *qad*

The particle **قَدْ** *qad*, when placed before a māḍī verb emphasizes that the action of the verb has already or definitely occurred.

قَدْ ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلُ.

qad dhahaba -rrajulu.

“The man has already gone.” or,

“The man did go.”

6.13. Separating doee pronouns from the verb

FIXME: move to imperfect verb chapter

We have mentioned that doee pronouns are attached to the verb. Sometimes there is a need to separate the doee pronoun from the verb. When separating the doee pronoun from the verb, it is instead attached to the prefix **إِيَّ** *ʾiyyā*. So then we get the following doee pronouns:

Person	Doe pronoun
Absent person (masc.) “him”	إِيَّاهُ <i>ʾiyyāhu</i>
Absent person (fem.) “her”	إِيَّاهَا <i>ʾiyyāhā</i>
Addressed person (masc.) “you _{masc.} ”	إِيَّاكَ <i>ʾiyyāka</i>
Addressed person (fem.) “you _{fem.} ”	إِيَّاكِ <i>ʾiyyāki</i>
Speaking person (masc. and fem.) “me”	إِيَّايَ <i>ʾiyyāya</i>

Note that for the speaking person “me”, there is no intervening **ن** between the prefix **إِيَّ** *ʾiyyā* and the doee pronoun. Note also that only **يَ** *-ya* is allowed to be attached to the prefix **إِيَّ** *ʾiyyā*. This is because **يَ** *-i* is not permitted to be used with words that end in a long vowel (*-ā*, *-ī*, or *-ū*) or a semi-vowel (*-ay* or *-aw*). And the prefix **إِيَّ** *ʾiyyā* ends with the long-vowel *ā*.

But we may ask why is there a need to separate the doee pronoun from the verb? This can occur for a couple of reasons:

- If there are multiple doee pronouns, only one of them can be attached to the verb. Example,

صَرَبَتْني وَإِيَّاهُ.
 ḍarabatnī wa 'iyyāhu.
 “She hit me and him.”

- ii. If the doer is placed before the verb for emphasis. Example,

إِيَّاي صَرَبَتْ.
 'iyyāya ḍarabat.
 “She hit *me*.”

6.14. TODO

1. Multiple verb doers: Copy over from sound plurals and rework.
2. جواز تأنيث الفعل ووجوبه

Work in progress

Chapter 7.

The attribute

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

7.1. Introduction

So far we have studied common nouns like رَجُل *rajul* “a man” and بَيْت *bayt* “a house”.

In this chapter we will study *adjectival nouns*. Adjectival nouns are a class of nouns that don’t denote objects. Rather they describe some quality of an object.

7.2. Adjectives in English

In English we usually use adjectives to describe nouns. For example, the word “big” is an adjective. It can be used in a couple of different ways:

1. It can be used to describe a noun in an attributee-attribute phrase. For example:

“a big car”

2. The adjective “big” can also be used as the info of a sentence, describing the subject noun. For example:

“The car is big.”

But the adjective “big” cannot be used by itself as a noun, for example, as the subject of a sentence. So we can’t say:

× “The big is fast.”

We would have to say something like:

“The big car is fast.”

instead.

7.3. Terminology: the *attribute* and the *attributee*

We take this opportunity to introduce some grammatical terminology. The attributee-attribute phrase “a big car” consists of two parts:

- i. The adjective “big”. It is describing the car. We will call it the *attribute* in the noun-phrase.
- ii. The common noun “a car”: It is being described by the attribute. We will call it the *attributee*.

a big car
 { {
 attribute attributee

We will reserve this terminology of *attribute* and *attributee* only for the noun and adjective in an attributee-attribute phrase. So we won't use this terminology for the sentence: “The car is big.”

Instead, here we will continue to use the existing terminology of *subject* and *info*. The definite noun “the car” is the subject of this sentence, and the adjective “big” is the info.

The car is big.
 { {
 subject info

7.4. Adjectival nouns in English

Consider the English word “antique”. It is what we will call a *adjectival noun*.

It can be used just like an adjective to describe a noun as part of a noun-phrase. For example:

“The antique table is expensive.”

In the above sentence the adjective “antique” is a attribute and is describing the noun “table”.

It can also be used as the info of a sentence, just like an adjective. For example:

“The table is antique.”

But what makes it different from an normal adjective is that it can also be used by itself as a noun. For example:

“The antique is expensive.”

Here “the antique” could refer to any entity that can be described by the quality of being old and valuable. The adjectival noun does not require any other noun in this sentence and can stand on its own as the subject of the sentence.

Adjectival nouns are rare in English. Instead, adjectives are usually used when we want to describe a noun.

7.5. Adjectival nouns in Arabic and genderizability

Arabic does not have adjectives. It only has adjectival nouns.

The word صَغِير *ṣaġhīr* is an example of an indefinite adjectival noun in Arabic. It describes the quality of being “small” or “little”. It can be used to denote any person, animal, or things that can be described as being small. Technically we could translate it as “a little one_m” or “a small one_m”.

Being a noun صَغِير *ṣaġhīr*, like all other nouns in Arabic, will have a grammatical gender. Since it does not end with a feminine marker like ة, we can state that صَغِير *ṣaġhīr* is a masculine noun.

Adjectival nouns, typically, are genderizable. This means that we can feminize صَغِير *ṣaġhīr* (masc.) to get the feminine noun. We will feminize صَغِير *ṣaġhīr* (masc.) with the feminine marker ة to get the feminine adjectival noun صَغِيرَة *ṣaġhīrah* (fem.) “a little one_f”.

Generally, the dictionary will typically only supply the masculine adjectival noun. And we are expected to know how to feminize it to get the feminine adjectival noun.

As opposed to adjectival nouns, common nouns are not genderizable. So, for example, if we know that the noun غُلَام *ġulām* “a boy” exists, we cannot assume that we can feminize it, by using the feminine marker ة, for example, getting: × غُلَامَة *ġulāmah*. This would be a misguided attempt to obtain the meaning for “a girl” in Standard Arabic. Instead, we have to look up the Arabic word for “a girl” in the dictionary separately, and we find that it is جَارِيَة *jāriyah*.

Many times times, a masculine/feminine common noun pair will exist, that differ only by the feminine marker ة. For example:

- اِبْن *ibn* “a son” and اِبْنَة *ibnah* “a daughter”.
- مُعَلِّم *muʿallim* “a teacher_m” and مُعَلِّمَة *muʿallimah* “a teacher_f”

This does not indicate that the common noun is genderizable. Rather, when the common noun masc./fem. pair has a meaning that is derived from a verb or an adjective (like مُعَلِّم/مُعَلِّمَة), then the masculine/feminine pair are co-derived as separate non-genderizable words. We will discuss this in more detail in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

And when the common noun masc./fem. pair has a primitive (non-verbal and non-adjectival) meaning, (like اِبْن/اِبْنَة), then this is only a coincidence. We alluded to this in section @ref(related-nouns-for-male-and-female-animate-beings).

7.5.1. Examples of Arabic adjectival nouns

Here are some examples of Arabic adjectival nouns that we will use in this chapter.

Arabic adjectival noun	Meaning
كَبِير <i>kabīr</i>	a big one
صَغِير <i>ṣaghīr</i>	a small one
طَيِّب <i>ṭayyib</i>	a good one
قَدِيم <i>qadīm</i>	an old one
جَدِيد <i>jadid</i>	a new one
طَوِيل <i>ṭawīl</i>	a long/tall one
وَاسِع <i>wāsiʿ</i>	a wide one
عَرَبِيّ <i>ʿarabiyy</i>	an Arab
مَشْهُور <i>mash-hūr</i>	a famous one

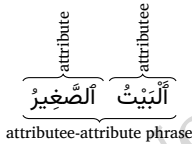
7.6. The attribute and the attributee in attributee-attribute phrases

Let's learn how attributee-attribute phrases are formed in Arabic.

We learned in section @ref(terminology-the-attribute-and-the-attributee) above that attributee-attribute phrases consist of a attribute and a attributee.

In English attributee-attribute phrases, like “the small house”, the adjective attribute (“small”) comes before the attributee (“house”). Also, only one definite article (“the”) is used before the entire noun-phrase.

Here is the equivalent Arabic attributee-attribute phrase:



“the small house”

(literally: “the small-one house”)

Note the following:

- The adjectival noun attribute الصَّغِير *aṣṣaghīr* “the small one_m” comes after the attributee اَلْبَيْت *albayt* “the house”.
- Both the adjectival noun attribute الصَّغِير *aṣṣaghīr* “the small one_m” and the attributee اَلْبَيْت *albayt* “the house” get the definite article اَلْ “the”.
- The adjectival noun attribute الصَّغِير *aṣṣaghīr* “the small one_m” is genderized to match the attributee اَلْبَيْت *albayt* “the house” in gender.
- The adjectival noun attribute الصَّغِير *aṣṣaghīr* “the small one_m” matches the attributee اَلْبَيْت *albayt* “the house” in case. In this example, they were both in the u-case but we will see examples in the other cases as well.
- The word-for-word equivalence of the above attributee-attribute phrase is “the small-one house” but we will usually give the more natural translation: “the small house”

Let's try another example: let's try to translate the sentence: "The little girl took a new book from the good mother."

Here is the sentence in Arabic:

أَخَذَتِ الْجَارِيَةُ الصَّغِيرَةُ كِتَابًا جَدِيدًا مِنَ الْأُمِّ الطَّيِّبَةِ.

'akḥadḥati -l-jāriyatu -ṣṣagḥīratu kitāban jadīdan mina -l'ummi -ṭṭayyibah.

"The little girl took a new book from the good mother."

This sentence has three attributee-attribute phrases. We will analyze each one individually:

- i. الْجَارِيَةُ الصَّغِيرَةُ
'al-jāriyatu -ṣṣagḥīratu
"the little girl"

In this phrase the definite feminine noun الْجَارِيَةُ 'al-jāriyatu is the doer of the verb أَخَذَ 'akḥadḥa "took". Therefore it is in the u-case. It is also the attributee in the attributee-attribute phrase. Its attribute الصَّغِيرَةُ 'aṣṣagḥīratu follows the attributee and is made to match the attributee in case (u-case), gender (feminine), and definiteness (definite).

- ii. كِتَابًا جَدِيدًا
kitāban jadīdan
"a new book"

In this phrase the indefinite masculine noun كِتَابًا kitāban is the direct doer of the verb أَخَذَ 'akḥadḥa "took". Therefore it is in the a-case. It is also the attributee in the attributee-attribute phrase. Its attribute جَدِيدًا jadīdan follows the attributee and is made to match the attributee in case (a-case), gender (masculine), and definiteness (indefinite).

- iii. الْأُمُّ الطَّيِّبَةُ
'al'ummi -ṭṭayyibati
"the good mother"

In this phrase the definite feminine noun الْأُمُّ 'al'ummi is following the preposition مِنَ min "from". Therefore it is in the i-case. It is also the attributee in the attributee-attribute phrase. Its attribute الطَّيِّبَةُ 'aṭṭayyibati follows the attributee and is made to match the attributee in case (i-case), gender (feminine), and definiteness (definite).

Note carefully that the attribute matches the attributee in gender, not necessarily in having the same ة ending. The feminine adjectival noun attribute الطَّيِّبَةُ 'aṭṭayyibah is still formed using the feminine marker ة, despite the feminine attributee الْأُمُّ not having the ة feminine marker.

Sometimes, a common noun of one gender is used to refer to persons of either gender. For example:

- the noun شَخْصٌ shakhṣ is itself a masculine noun but it may be used to refer to both male and female persons.

If such a noun is a attributee, then we will prefer to match the attribute to the grammatical gender of the noun, not the physical gender of the person it is referring to. For example:

الْجَارِيَةُ شَخْصٌ طَيِّبٌ.
'alġāriyatu shakhṣun ṭayyib.
"The girl is a good person."

See how we preferred to use the masculine adjectival noun طَيِّبٌ ṭayyib instead of using the feminine طَيِّبَةٌ ṭayyibah. But the feminine adjectival noun طَيِّبَةٌ ṭayyibah would also have been acceptable.¹

7.7. The Adjectival noun as the info of a sentence

7.7.1. Indefinite adjectival noun

Let's see how to use Arabic adjectival nouns as the info of a sentence.

$$\begin{array}{c} \text{info} \\ \text{subject} \end{array}$$
 صَغِيرٌ الْبَيْتُ

"The house is small."
(literally: "The house is a small-one.")

In the above sentence, the indefinite adjectival noun صَغِيرٌ ṣaghīr "a small one" is used as the info of a sentence. Its indefiniteness and u-case is indicated by the tanwīned ḍammah ُ on its end.

When an adjectival noun is the info of a sentence, then it shall be genderized to match the gender of the subject noun. The subject noun in this case (الْبَيْتُ) is masculine. Therefore, the masculine adjectival noun (صَغِيرٌ) is chosen.

Technically, the translation of this sentence is "The house is a small one." However, because Arabic has only adjectival nouns and not adjectives, it is how we can express the English sentence "The house is small." Therefore we can also translate it into English as such.

Now let's try a sentence with a feminine subject:

الْجَارِيَةُ صَغِيرَةٌ.
'alġāriyatu ṣaghīrah

"The girl is a little one." = "The girl is little."

In the above example the subject (الْجَارِيَةُ "the girl") was feminine. Therefore, we feminized the masculine adjectival noun صَغِيرٌ ṣaghīr with the feminine marker ة to get the feminine adjectival noun صَغِيرَةٌ ṣaghīrah "a little one_f" and used the feminine adjectival noun in the sentence.

7.7.2. Definite adjectival noun

Let's see if a definite adjectival noun can be used in the info. For example, we would like to say "The old tree is the big one."

¹See the example ثَلَاثُ شُجُورٍ كَاعِبَانِ وَمُعْصِرٌ in النحو لابن السراج 3/476

The subject of the sentence is الشَّجَرَةُ الْقَدِيمَةُ *‘ashshajaratu -lqadimuiatu* “the old tree”. And the info is الْكَبِيرَةُ *‘alkabīratu* “the big one”. When we put the two together we get:

الشَّجَرَةُ الْقَدِيمَةُ الْكَبِيرَةُ
‘ashshajaratu -lqadimatu -lkabīratu

The problem is that the above could also be interpreted as one phrase “the big old tree”, and not as the complete sentence “The old tree is the big one.” This is the same problem that we highlighted in section @ref(chap-smp-sent-sec-def-info).

The solution, too, is the same. We insert a detached pronoun, that matches the gender of the subject, between the subject and the info. So in order to get our intended meaning, we will say:

الشَّجَرَةُ الْقَدِيمَةُ هِيَ الْكَبِيرَةُ.
‘ashshajaratu -lqadimatu hiya -lkabīratu.
“The old tree is the big one.”

7.8. Adjectival nouns used without a described noun

We have mentioned that adjectival nouns are just like other nouns that we have learned so far, in that they have gender, case, and definiteness. Can we then use an adjectival noun by itself and not when it is describing another noun?

The answer is yes, we can. So for example, you can say:

شَرَبَ الصَّغِيرُ حَلِيبًا.
shariba -ṣṣaghiru ḥalibā.

“The little one drank some milk.”

The above is a correct sentence. But, by itself, it is not very clear. What do we mean by “the little one”? Is it a little boy, or a little cat, or something else? So, context would be needed to know what exactly is being denoted by the adjectival noun when it is used by itself independently.

Here is the same sentence again, but this time with some clarifying context.

حَمَلَتِ الْأُمُّ الصَّغِيرَ. وَشَرَبَ الصَّغِيرُ حَلِيبًا.
ḥamalati -l‘ummu -ṣṣaghiru. wa-shariba -ṣṣaghiru ḥalibā.

“The mother carried the little one. And the little one drank some milk.”

So now we can tell that what is meant by الصَّغِيرُ *‘aṣṣaghir* “the little one” here is “the baby”.

7.9. Adjectival nouns re-used as common nouns

Sometimes, an adjectival noun, through much usage, acquires the meaning of a common noun. It then gets listed with this meaning in the dictionary. We actually just saw an example above. The adjectival noun صَغِيرٌ *ṣaghir* “a little one” is commonly used to mean “a baby”. Of course, context would be needed

to know whether, in a particular sentence, it has its common noun meaning: “a baby”, or its general adjectival noun meaning: “a little one”.

The opposite of صَغِير *ṣaġhīr* “a little one” is كَبِير *kabīr* “a big one”. It too has acquired the common noun meaning of “an elder person”. Here is an example of its usage:

قَدِمَ الْكَبِيرُ وَوَعِظَ الْغُلَامَ.

qadima -lkabīru wawaeḍḥa -lghulāma.

“The elder arrived and admonished the boy.”

When an adjectival noun gets re-used as a common noun, it loses its genderizability. For example, the feminine adjectival noun حَسَنَةٌ *ḥasanah* (fem.) “a good one” is re-used as a common noun meaning “a good deed”. So we can use it in a sentence:

الصِّيَامُ حَسَنَةٌ.

ʾaṣṣiyāmu ḥasanah.

“Fasting is a good deed.”

The subject in this sentence is the masculine noun الصِّيَام *ʾaṣṣiyām* “fasting”. And the info is the feminine noun حَسَنَةٌ *ḥasanah* “a good deed”. Note that the info does not match the subject in gender. This is because it lost its genderizability since it is no longer acting as an adjectival noun “a good one_f”, but rather as the common noun “a good deed”.

What if we have the sentence:

الصَّدَقَةُ حَسَنَةٌ.

ʾaṣṣadaqatu ḥasanah.

The feminine gender of the subject الصَّدَقَةُ *ʾaṣṣadaqah* “charity” now matches the gender of the info حَسَنَةٌ *ḥasanah*. So now, technically, the info could be the adjectival noun, meaning “a good one_f”. So the sentence could mean:

“Charity is good.”

Or the info could be the common noun, meaning “a good deed”. Then the sentence would mean:

“Charity is a good deed.”

Context would be needed to tell us which meaning is intended.

7.10. Common-nouns used as attributes in a noun-phrase

Usually, adjectival nouns are used as the attribute in an attributee-attribute phrase. However, we also often find a common noun used as a attribute. For example,

هُوَ رَجُلٌ مُعَلِّمٌ.

huwa rajulun muḥallim.

“He is a teacher_m man.”

= “He is a man who is a teacher_m.”

This is discussed in more detail in section (static adjectival noun: entity noun crossover).

7.11. Multiple adjectival nouns describing the same noun

In English we can have a noun described by multiple adjectives separated by commas and the word “and”. For example, “The building is big, tall, and wide.” In Arabic we will separate the multiple adjectival nouns with *wa-* “and”:

الْبِنَاءُ كَبِيرٌ وَطَوِيلٌ وَوَاسِعٌ.
‘albinā’u kabīrun waṭawīlun wawāsi’un
 “The building is big and tall and wide.”

In an English attributee-attribute phrase, multiple attributes may describe the same attributee, without being separated by the word “and”. For example, “The man is a famous Arab writer.” In Arabic, we can do the same, except the attributees will be in the reverse order:

الرَّجُلُ كَاتِبٌ عَرَبِيٌّ مَشْهُورٌ.
‘arrujulu kātibun ‘arabiyyun mash-hūr.
 “The man is a famous Arab writer.”

7.12. A prepositional phrase separating the attribute from the attributee

Consider the phrase:

كِتَابٌ مِنَ الْمَكْتَبَةِ
kitābun mina -lmaktabati
 “a book from the library”

If we want to add a adjectival noun as to describe “the book”, we may add it either before or after the prepositional phrase attribute. Here are both examples as complete sentences:

قَرَأَ كِتَابًا صَغِيرًا مِنَ الْمَكْتَبَةِ.
qara’a kitāban ṣaġhīran mina -lmaktabati.
 AND

قَرَأَ كِتَابًا مِنَ الْمَكْتَبَةِ صَغِيرًا.
qara’a kitāban mina -lmaktabati ṣaġhīran.
 “a small book from the library”

The first option is usually chosen as a matter of preference but the second option is legitimate too.

Work in progress

Chapter 8.

The semi-flexible noun

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

8.1. Introduction

Nouns are of two main categories of nouns, with regard to their endings in the different noun cases:

1. Rigid nouns.
2. Flexible nouns. These are further sub-divided into:
 - i. Fully-flexible nouns.
 - ii. Semi-flexible nouns.

So far we have been mostly studying fully-flexible nouns. In this chapter we will learn about semi-flexible nouns.

Here is an example of the kind of nouns we have learned so far:

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	رَجُلٌ	الرَّجُلُ
a-case	رَجُلًا	الرَّجُلَ
i-case	رَجُلٍ	الرَّجُلِ

As you can see, the noun is tanwined when it is indefinite, and also, the vowel mark on the last letter changes for each case that the noun is in. These kinds of nouns are called *fully-flexible* nouns. They are by far the most common type of noun.

There are some nouns, however, that are *semi-flexible*. Here is an example of a semi-flexible noun, ضَحْرَاءُ *ṣaḥrā'* "a desert":

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	صَحْرَاءُ	الصَّحْرَاءُ
a-case	صَحْرَاءَ	الصَّحْرَاءَ
i-case	صَحْرَاءِ	الصَّحْرَاءِ

As you can see, when صَحْرَاءُ *ṣaḥrāʾ* is indefinite, it is not tanwined. Also, when it is indefinite and in the i-case, the vowel mark on its final letter is not ِ, as you might expect but ِ. And so the noun looks identical in the a-case and i-case when it is indefinite.

When it is definite, however, it looks just like fully-flexible nouns.

So there are two differences between fully-flexible and semi-flexible nouns:

1. When indefinite, a semi-flexible noun is not tanwined.
2. When indefinite and in the i-case, a semi-flexible noun's final letter does not have an kasrah. Instead it shall have an fatḥah, just like when it is in the a-case.

The other category of nouns are *rigid* nouns. Rigid nouns don't change their endings due to their case. They are much fewer in number compared to flexible nouns. Pronouns are an example of rigid nouns.

8.2. Feminine markers

Before we discuss semi-flexible nouns in more detail, we will discuss feminine markers. We already know of one feminine marker: the *ḍ*. When a singular noun ends with *ḍ*, then that is an indication, with very few exceptions, that it is a feminine noun. Examples are:

Root	Feminine noun	Masculine noun from same root (if any)
جري	جَارِيَّةٌ “a girl _f ”	–
علم	عَالِمَةٌ “a scholar _f ”	عَالِمٌ “a scholar _m ”
كلب	كَلْبَةٌ “a dog _f ”	كَلْبٌ “a dog _m ”
شجر	شَجَرَةٌ “a tree”	–
صغر	صَغِيرَةٌ <i>adj.</i> “small _f ”	صَغِيرٌ <i>adj.</i> “small _m ”

As you can see, the feminine marker *ḍ* is never part of the noun's root. It is thus considered *extrinsic* to the root. Also, sometimes, but not always, the feminine noun is formed by adding the feminine marker *ḍ* to the end of a masculine noun.

It is also important to note that *ḍ* is only a feminine marker for singular nouns. When we learn plurals, if Allāh wills, we will see that *ḍ* is used frequently with masculine plurals.

Now we will learn of two more feminine markers: *اء* and *ى*.

Here are some examples of nouns that end with these two feminine markers:

Root	Feminine noun	Masculine noun (if any)
صحر	صَحْرَاءُ “a desert”	–
حمر	حَمْرَاءُ <i>adj.</i> “red _f ”	أَحْمَرُ <i>adj.</i> “red _m ”
ذكر	ذِكْرَى “a remembrance”	–
غضب	غَضَبِي <i>adj.</i> “very angry _f ”	غَضَبَانُ <i>adj.</i> “very angry _m ”

When extrinsic to the word’s root, ء and ي are feminine markers, just like ة. However, one important difference from ة is that sometimes ء and ي may not be extrinsic to the word’s root. In this case, they will not be feminine markers, and the noun will regularly be a masculine noun. Examples:

Root	Noun	Pattern using paradigm فَعَل
هدي	أَلْهَدَى (masc.) “the guidance”	أَلْفَعَلَ
خبء	خِبَاءَ (masc.) “a tent”	فِغَالَ

These cases will become more clear, if Allāh wills, when we study weak roots (roots that contain a weak letter like ي, و, ء).

Otherwise, when extrinsic to the word’s root, ء, and ي are consistently feminine markers, just like ة.

Also, just like ة, ء and ي are only feminine markers for singular nouns. We will see, if Allāh wills, that they are used frequently with masculine plurals.

By the way, another difference from ة is that when ء and ي are feminine markers, and a masculine counterpart exists, then the feminine noun is not formed by simply adding the feminine marker to the end of the masculine noun. The masculine and feminine nouns are different internally as well. For example, the feminine noun حَمْرَاءُ *adj.* “red_f” is not formed simply by adding the feminine marker ء to the end of the masculine noun أَحْمَرُ *adj.* “red_m”.

We will discuss this in more detail below.

8.3. Categories of semi-flexible nouns

We now return to our discussion of semi-flexible nouns. Semi-flexible nouns, in terms of their formation, fall under different categories. We will discuss them below.

When discussing semi-flexible nouns in isolation we will add the numeral 2 as a superscript to their ending, thus: ²صَحْرَاءُ ṣaḥrā². This is to indicate their semi-flexibility.

8.3.1. Nouns that end with an extrinsic ء

If a noun ends with an ء, which is extrinsic to the word’s root, then it shall be a semi-flexible noun.

We have already seen an example of such a noun above: ²صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾ* “a desert”. The root of this noun is صحر. You can see that the ending ء is not part of the root. Therefore it is a semi-flexible noun.

Furthermore, we have also learned that this ء, which is extrinsic to the word’s root, is a feminine marker for singular nouns, just like ِ, except that ِ does not generally make a noun semi-flexible.

Here is an example sentence with this noun:

ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلُ إِلَى صَحْرَاءٍ وَاسِعَةٍ.
dḥahaba -rrajulu ʾilā ṣaḥrāʾa wāsiʿah.
 “The man went to a wide desert.”

Note that the vowel mark on the final letter of صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa* is َ, not ِ, even though it is indefinite and in the i-case (because it is preceded by the preposition إِلَى *ʾilā* “to”). This is because it is a semi-flexible noun.

²صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa* in this sentence is also a attributee, whose attribute is وَاسِعَةٍ *wāsiʿatin* “wide”. The final vowel mark َ on the attributee صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa* has no effect on the final vowel mark on the attribute وَاسِعَةٍ *wāsiʿatin* “wide”. All that matters in this regard is the case of the attributee.

Note, also, that the attribute وَاسِعَةٍ is feminine to match the gender of the attributee ²صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa*.

Note, as well, that the attribute وَاسِعَةٍ is tanwined as it is indefinite and fully-flexible. The inability of its attributee ²صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa* to be tanwined (because of its semi-flexibility) does not affect the attribute.

Also, beware, as we’ve already mentioned, that there are some words where the ء ending may be part of the word’s root, for example خَبَاءَ *khibāʾ* “a tent” from the root خبء on the pattern خَبَاءَ. Such words will be fully flexible. Also, for the same reason, ء in this word is not a feminine marker, and the word is masculine.

8.3.2. Nouns that end with an extrinsic ى

If a noun ends with an ى which is extrinsic to the word’s root, then it shall be a semi-flexible noun.

We’ve already seen an example of such a word: ²ذِكْرَى *dhikrāʾ* “a remembrance”. The root of this word is ذكر and it is on the pattern فُعْلَى.

We’ve also learned that, similar to ء, this ى, which is extrinsic to the word’s root, is a feminine marker for singular nouns.

Since ²ذِكْرَى *dhikrāʾ* already ends with the vowel-mark ِ, the last letter won’t have any additional vowel markers and therefore the word will appear the same in all cases:

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	ذِكْرَى	الذِّكْرَى
a-case	ذِكْرَى	الذِّكْرَى
i-case	ذِكْرَى	الذِّكْرَى

Therefore, the case of such nouns cannot be determined by the vowel mark on their final letter, and has to be deduced otherwise by their function in the sentence. Nevertheless, these nouns are still included in the category of semi-flexible nouns, and not rigid nouns. This is because rigid nouns are closed set consisting only of pronouns and other similar words.

Here is an example of this word in a sentence:

الْكِتَابُ ذِكْرِي جَمِيلَةٌ.

'alkitābu dhikrā jamilah.

"The book is a beautiful remembrance."

Note, again how the attribute جَمِيلَةٌ *jamilah* is feminine and in the u-case, in order to match the gender and case of the attributee ذِكْرِي *dhikrā*².

Beware also that, just like in the case of اء, there are some words where ي may be part of the word's root, e.g. اَلْهُدَى 'alhudā "the guidance" whose root is هدى. Because here the ي in اَلْهُدَى is part of the word's root, therefore it shall not be a semi-flexible noun. So, when it is indefinite, it will be tanwined: هُدًى *hudan* "a guidance". Also, for the same reason, ي in this word is not a feminine marker, and the word is masculine.

8.3.3. Nouns on the pattern أَفْعَلْ

If a noun is on the pattern أَفْعَلْ *'afeal* then it shall be a semi-flexible noun. By the way, there is no feminine marker on such words, so they will be masculine by default.

Most colors and many physical characteristics fall into this pattern. Colors and physical characteristics are adjectival nouns. The masculine noun for such adjectival nouns is on the pattern أَفْعَلْ *'afeal*. And the feminine adjectival noun is on the pattern فَعْلَاء *fa'elā*² (which is itself a semi-flexible noun pattern because of the extrinsic اء ending). Here are some examples of such adjectival nouns:

Root	Masc. Noun	Fem. noun	Meaning
حمر	أَحْمَرٌ ²	حَمْرَاءُ ²	red
سود	أَسْوَدٌ ²	سَوْدَاءُ ²	black
بيض	أَبْيَضٌ ²	بَيْضَاءُ ²	white
عرج	أَعْرَجٌ ²	عَرْجَاءُ ²	lame
حور	أَحْوَرٌ ²	حَوْرَاءُ ²	beautiful eyed
بكم	أَبْكَمٌ ²	بَكْمَاءُ ²	mute

Example:

لَبَسَ الرَّجُلُ قَمِيصًا أَبْيَضَ.

labisa -rrajulu qamiṣan 'abyaḍ.

"The man wore a white shirt."

8.3.4. Adjectival nouns that end with an extrinsic ان {Adjectival noun-an-diptote}

The letters ان may be an extrinsic ending for nouns. This ending is not a feminine marker so the noun would typically be masculine. This ending may cause the noun to be semi-flexible.

This category is more complicated than the previous ones. The following conditions must be satisfied for a word that ends with ان to be a semi-flexible noun:

1. The noun must be a adjectival noun on the pattern فَعْلَان. So the common noun ثُعْبَان *thuebān* “a serpent” of the root ثَعِيَ is a common noun and therefore, not a semi-flexible noun.
2. The ان must be extrinsic to the word’s root. So جَبَان *jabānun* “cowardly”, an adjectival noun of the root جَبِن, is not a semi-flexible noun.
3. The feminine of the adjectival noun shall not be formed by adding ة to the masculine noun. So نَدَمَان *nadmān* “regretful”, an adjectival noun from the root نَدِم, is not a semi-flexible noun, because its feminine is نَدْمَانَةٌ *nadmānah*.

It is rare that this last condition fails. Most adjectival nouns that end with an extrinsic ان are of the pattern فَعْلَان *faelān* and their feminine is of the pattern فَعْلَى *faelā* (which is itself a semi-flexible noun pattern). These adjectival nouns typically have an emphatic meaning. The following are examples of semi-flexible adjectival nouns that fall into this category:

Root	Masc. Noun	Fem. noun	Meaning
غَضِبَ	غَضِبَانٌ ²	غَضِبَى ²	very angry
عَطَشَ	عَطَشَانٌ ²	عَطَشَى ²	very thirsty
جَوَعَ	جَوَعَانٌ ²	جَوَعَى ²	very hungry

8.3.5. Nouns of the patterns فَعَاْفِ and فَعَاْفِ

Nouns that are of the patterns فَعَاْفِ and فَعَاْفِ are also semi-flexible nouns. Here each letter ف could be any letter of the alphabet.

Here are some examples of these nouns:

- مَسَاجِدٌ² *masājīd*² “mosques”
- مَفَاتِيحٌ² *mafātīḥ*² “keys”

These patterns are only used for plurals and we will study them in more detail in chapter @ref(broken-plurals) , if Allāh wills.

Chapter 9.

The dual

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

9.1. Introduction

For any number greater than one, English uses the plural. For example, the plural of “house” is “houses”. So in English we will say:

“two houses”

Arabic, on the other hand, uses the plural only for nouns in number three and higher. For nouns that are two in number Arabic uses the *dual*.

Since English does not have a dual, we will sometimes indicate it using the the subscript 2, thus: “houses₂”, to mean “two houses”.

9.2. Forming the dual

The dual is formed by appending the dual suffix اَنِ -*āni* when the noun is in the u-case and اَيْنِ -*ayni* when the noun is in the a-case or i-case. Definite nouns, which have اَلْ in their beginning are dualized the same way.

For example, when we dualize بَيْت *bayt* “a house” in order to say “houses₂”, we get:

Cases	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	بَيْتَان <i>baytāni</i>	اَلْبَيْتَان <i>albaytāni</i>
a-case and i-case	بَيْتَيْنِ <i>baytayni</i>	اَلْبَيْتَيْنِ <i>albaytayni</i>

Note that indefinite duals are not tanwīned. The only difference between definite and indefinite duals is the definite article اَلْ “the”.

Here are examples of duals in sentences:

- u-case:

اَلْكِتَابَانِ فِي الْحَقِيْبَةِ.
 'alkitābāni fi -lḥaqībah.
 "The books₂ are in the bag."

- a-case:

قَرَأَ الْغُلَامُ كِتَابَيْنِ.
 qara'a -lghulāmu kitābayn.
 "The boy read two books."

- i-case:

غَضِبَتْ أُمُّ عَلَى الْجَارِيَّتَيْنِ.
 ghaḍibati -l'ummu ʿala -ljāriyatayn.
 "The mother became angry at the girls₂." ### Nouns ending in ة

If a noun ends with a ة, then it is converted to a ت before appending the dual suffix. For example, dualizing شَجَرَة *shajarah* "a tree", we get "trees₂":

Cases	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	شَجَرَتَانِ <i>shajaratāni</i>	الشَّجَرَتَانِ <i>ashshajaratāni</i>
a-case and i-case	شَجَرَاتَيْنِ <i>shajaratayni</i>	الشَّجَرَاتَيْنِ <i>ashshajaratayni</i>

Example:

الشَّجَرَتَانِ فِي الْحَدِيقَةِ.
 'ashsharatāni fi -lḥadiqah.
 "The trees₂ are in the garden."

If a feminine noun does end with a ة then it will simply be appended with اَنِ -āni and اَيْنِ -ayni. For example, dualizing أُمُّ *umm* "a mother" in order to get "mothers₂", we get:

- u-case: اُمَّانِ *ummāni*
- a-case and i-case: اُمَّيْنِ *ummayni*

There are some nouns that end with an alif before the ة, like فَتَاة *fatāh* "a young woman". We will learn how to dualize these nouns later, if Allāh wills.

9.2.1. Nouns ending with ء

If a noun ends with the feminine marker ء which is extrinsic to the word's root then the ء shall be replaced with a و when forming the dual. Examples:

Root	Singular	Dual (u-case)	Dual (a-case and i-case)
صحر	صَحْرَاءُ <i>ṣaḥrāʾ</i> “a desert”	صَحْرَاوَانِ <i>ṣaḥrāwāni</i>	صَحْرَاوَيْنِ <i>ṣaḥrāwayni</i>
حمر	حَمْرَاءُ <i>ḥamrāʾ</i> “red _f ”	حَمْرَاوَانِ <i>ḥamrāwāni</i>	حَمْرَاوَيْنِ <i>ḥamrāwayni</i>

There are other words where the ء in the ء ending originates from the word's root. Example:

- فُجَالٌ خِبَاءُ خَبْءٍ (masc.) “a tent”, pattern: فُجَالٌ

We will learn how to form duals of these words in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

9.2.2. Nouns ending with ى

If a noun ends with ى which is extrinsic to the word's root then the ى shall be changed to ا when adding the dual suffixes. Examples:

Root	Singular	Dual (u-case)	Dual (a-case and i-case)
غضب	غَضَبٌ <i>ghaḍbā</i> “very angry _f ”	غَضَبَيَانِ <i>ghaḍbayāni</i>	غَضَبَيَيْنِ <i>ghaḍbayayni</i>
ذكر	ذِكْرٌ <i>dhikrā</i> “a remembrance”	ذِكْرَيَانِ <i>dhikrayāni</i>	ذِكْرَيَيْنِ <i>dhikrayayni</i>

Just like in the case of ء, there are some words where ى is not extrinsic to the word's root. Example:

- أَلْهُدَى هَدًى (masc.) “the guidance”, pattern: أَلْفَعْلٌ

We will learn how to form duals of these words in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

9.3. Dual attributes and attributees in descriptive noun-phrases

We learned that when an adjectival noun is a attribute in an descriptive noun-phrase, then it matches the attributee in definiteness, case, and gender. For example:

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى الْمَدِينَةِ الْقَدِيمَةِ.
dhahabtu ʾila l-madīnati l-qadimah.
 “I went to the old city.”

To this we add that the attribute shall also match the attributee in number. So if the attributee is a dual then the adjectival noun attribute shall be dualized to match it. Examples:

الْأُمَّانُ الطَّيِّبَتَانِ فِي الْبَيْتِ.

ʾalʾummāni -ṭṭayyibatāni fi -lbayt.

“The good mothers₂ are in the house.”

قَرَأَ الْعَلَامُ كِتَابَيْنِ ثَقِيلَيْنِ قَدِيمَيْنِ.

qaraʾa -lghulāmu kitābayni ṭhaqīlatayni qadīmatayn.

“The boy read two old heavy books.”

9.4. Duals in nounal sentences

In nounal sentences, if the subject is a dual, and the info is a adjectival noun, then the info will typically match the subject in being a dual. For example:

الْأُمَّانُ كَرِيمَتَانِ.

ʾalʾummāni karīmatān.

“The mothers₂ are generous.”

الْكِتَابَانِ الْكَبِيرَانِ ثَقِيلَانِ.

alkitābāni -lkabīrāni ṭhaqīlān.

“The big books₂ are heavy.”

Such is usually also the case even when the info is a common noun, not an adjectival noun. For example,

الرُّجُلَانِ مُعَلِّمَانِ.

ʾarrujulāni muʿallimān.

“The men₂ are teachers_{m,2}.”

Sometimes, however, the subject and info may not match in number because of the meaning of the sentence. For example,

الْوَسَادَتَانِ سَرِيرٌ.

ʾalwisadatāni sarīr.

“The two cushions are a bed.”

In the above example, the info does not match the subject in both number, and, as it happens, in gender.

9.5. Detached dual pronouns

We have already learned the detached pronouns that are used in place of singular nouns. They are repeated here:

Singular participant	Detached pronoun
Masc. absentee	هُوَ <i>huwa</i> “he”
Fem. absentee	هِيَ <i>hiya</i> “she”
Masc. addressee	أَنْتَ <i>anta</i> “you _{m,1} ”
Fem. addressee	أَنْتِ <i>anti</i> “you _{f,1} ”

Singular participant	Detached pronoun
Speaker	أَنَا <i>ʾana</i> “I”

Now we will learn the detached pronouns for the dual participants:

Dual participant	Detached pronoun
Absentee	هُمَا <i>humā</i> “they ₂ ”
Addressee	أَنْتُمَا <i>ʾantumā</i> “you ₂ ”
Speaker	–

Note that the dual detached pronouns are the same for both genders. Also, there is no detached pronoun for the dual speaker-participant. If the speaker-participant consists of two individuals then we will use the plural pronoun, which we will learn in the next chapter, if Allāh wills.

Here are some examples of their use:

هُمَا الرَّجُلَانِ.

humā -rrajulān.

“They₂ are the men₂.”

هُمَا مُعَلِّمَتَانِ كَرِيمَتَانِ.

humā muʿallimatāni karīmatāni.

“They₂ are noble teachers_f.”

قَالَتِ الْأُمُّ لِلْجَارِيَتَيْنِ أَنْتُمَا قَرِيبَتَانِ مِنِّي.

qālātī -lʾummu liljāriyatayni ʾantumā qarībatāni minnī.

“The mother said to the girls₂, ‘You₂ are near me.’”

In the last example, the feminine adjectival noun قَرِيبَتَانِ *qarībatāni* is used because it is referring to the feminine noun الْجَارِيَتَيْنِ *aljāriyatayni* “the girls₂”.

9.6. Attached dual pronouns

We have also already learned the attached pronouns for the singular participant. They too are repeated here:

Singular participant	Attached pronoun
Masc. absentee	هُ - <i>hu</i> “him”
Fem. absentee	هَا - <i>hā</i> “her”
Masc. addressee	كَ - <i>ka</i> “you _{m,1} ”
Fem. addressee	كِ - <i>ki</i> “you _{f,1} ”
Speaker	ي “me”

Now we will learn the attached pronouns for the dual participant:

Dual participant	Attached pronoun
Absentee	هُمَا - <i>humā</i> “them ₂ ”
Addressee	كُما - <i>kumā</i> “you ₂ ”
Speaker	—

Note the following points about them:

- Like the dual detached pronouns, the dual attached pronouns are the same for both genders. Also, there is no attached pronoun for the dual speaker-participant. Again, the plural pronoun will be used in this case.
- The dual absentee-participant detached and attached pronouns (“they₂”/“them₂”) are the same هُمَا -*humā*.
- Just like the absentee-participant singular masculine attached pronoun *hu* “him”, the dual absentee-participant attached pronoun “them₂” هُمَا -*humā* becomes هِمَا -*himā* when preceded by the vowels *-i*, *-ī*, or the semi-vowel *-ay*. Examples:
 - بِهِمَا *bihimā* “with them₂”
 - فِيهِمَا *fīhimā* “in them₂”
 - إِلَيْهِمَا *‘ilayhimā* “to them₂”
- The preposition *li* “for” becomes *la* when followed by the dual attached pronouns:
 - لَهُمَا *lahumā* “for them₂”
 - لَكُمَا *lakumā* “for you₂”
- As expected, the long *ā* vowel at the ends of the dual attached pronouns becomes a short *a* vowel when followed by a connecting hamzah *ʾ*. Example:
 - ذَهَبَ إِلَيْكُمَا الرَّجُلُ. *dhahaba ‘ilaykuma -rrajulu.*
“The man went toward you₂.”

9.6.1. Attached pronouns for the direct doee

The dual attached pronouns that we have just learned are also for the direct doee Examples:

سَأَلَهُمَا الرَّجُلُ.
sa’alahuma -rrajulu.
“The man asked them₂.”

سَأَلْتُكُمَا.
sa’altukumā
“I asked you₂.”

سَأَلَتْكُمَا.
sa’alatkumā.
“She asked you₂.”

9.7. Verbs with dual doers

9.7.1. Dual nouns for the doer

We learned that the māḍī verb for a masculine doer is on the pattern فَعَلَ. And when the doer is feminine, the ت of femininity is attached to the verb thus: فَعَلَتْ. We have used these verbs with singular doer nouns. The doer noun always comes after the verb and shall be in the u-case. Examples:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ.
dhahaba -lghulāmu.
 “The boy went.”

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ.
dhahabat jāriyatun
 “A girl went.”

These same verbs are used when the doer noun is a dual. Examples:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامَانِ.
dhahaba -lghulāmāni.
 “The boys₂ went.”

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ.
dhahabat jāriyatāni.
 “Two girls went.”

9.7.2. Dual pronouns for the doer

We have already learned the singular doer pronouns:

Singular participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Masc. absentee	invisible	“he”	فَعَلَ <i>faʿala</i>
Fem. absentee	invisible	“she”	فَعَلَتْ <i>faʿalat</i>
Masc. addressee	ت - <i>ta</i>	“you _{m,2} ”	فَعَلْتَ <i>faʿalta</i>
Fem. addressee	تِ - <i>ti</i>	“you _{f,2} ”	فَعَلْتِ <i>faʿalti</i>
Speaker	تُ - <i>tu</i>	“I”	فَعَلْتُ <i>faʿaltu</i>

Now we will learn the dual doer pronouns:

Dual participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee	اَ - <i>ā</i>	“them ₂ ”	masc.: فَعَلَا <i>faʿalā</i> , fem: فَعَلَاتَا <i>faʿalatā</i>
Addressee	تُمَا - <i>tumā</i>	“you ₂ ”	فَعَلْتُمَا <i>faʿaltumā</i>
Speaker	–	“us ₂ ”	–

Note the following regarding the dual doer pronouns:

The dual doer pronouns are the same for both genders.

However, when the absentee-participant doer pronoun (لَا -ā) is used for a feminine doer, it is attached to the verb with an intervening ت of femininity thus: فَعَلَتَا *faʿalatā* “they_{f,2} did” Here are some examples of the dual doer pronouns:

سَأَلْتُمَانَا

saʿaltumānā

“You₂ asked us”

سَأَلْتَاكُمَا

saʿalatākumā

“They_{f,2} asked you₂”

سَأَلَاهُمَا

saʿalāhumā

“They_{m,2} asked them₂”

9.7.3. Sentence word order with dual doers

As we’ve mentioned, the doer, whether a noun or a pronoun, always comes after the verb. Here are a couple of examples of verbal sentences with dual doers:

ذَهَبَا إِلَى بَيْتٍ.

dhahabā ʾilā baytin.

“They₂ went to a house.”

ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلَانِ إِلَى بَيْتٍ.

dhahabā -rrujalāni ʾilā baytin.

“The men₂ went to a house.”

The above verbal sentence can be rearranged to be a nounal sentence. This gives more emphasis to the subject. In this case, the verb shall follow the subject and will need a doer pronoun after it.

الرَّجُلَانِ ذَهَبَا إِلَى بَيْتٍ.

ʾarrajulāni dhahabā ʾilā baytin.

“The men₂, they₂ went to a house.”

= “*The men₂* went to a house.”

If there are multiple verbs associated with the same doer in a verbal sentence, the doer noun will follow the first verb and the rest of the verbs will have doer pronouns. For example:

أَكَلَ الرَّجُلَانِ وَشَرِبَا وَذَهَبَا.

ʾakala -rrajulāni washaribā wadhahabā.

“The men₂ ate and they₂ drank and they₂ went.”

= “The men₂ ate and drank and went.”

The above verbal sentence can be rearranged to be a nounal sentence. In that case, all the verbs shall have doer pronouns. The sentence will have the same translation as above, except for an emphasis on the subject of the sentence.

الرَّجُلَانِ أَكَلَا وَشَرِبَا وَذَهَبَا.

ʾarrajulāni ʾakalā washaribā wadhahabā.

“The men₂, they₂ ate and they₂ drank and they₂ went.”

= “*The men₂* ate and drank and went.”

Chapter 10.

The sound plural

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

10.1. Introduction

Arabic uses the plural for nouns in number three and higher. The formation and use of plurals in Arabic can be somewhat complicated. One of these complications is that, in using plurals, Arabic distinguishes between intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings. Intelligent beings are those living beings that are endowed with reason like humans, angels, and jinn. Non-intelligent beings include animals, inanimate objects, abstract concepts, etc.

As a further complication, there is sometimes more than one way to use plurals. In this chapter we will explain the most common usages to keep things as simple as possible.

Arabic has two categories of plurals:

1. The *sound plural*: English regularly forms the plural by adding the plural ending “s” to the end of a singular noun. For example:

Singular	Plural
book	books
house	houses
boy	boys
girl	girls

Arabic also forms some plurals by adding plural endings to the singular noun. This kind of plural is called a *sound plural* because the singular noun is kept more or less sound (intact) when adding the plural ending.

Arabic has two types of sound plurals:

- i. The *ūn* sound plural.

ii. The *āt* sound plural.

We will describe each of these in this chapter.

2. The *broken plural*: When forming this plural the singular noun is not kept intact. We will learn about this plural in the next chapter, if Allāh wills.

10.2. The *ūn* sound plural

The *ūn* sound plural is formed by adding the ending *ُونَ* -*ūna* to the singular noun when it is in the u-case, and *ِينَ* -*ina* when the noun is in the a-case or i-case. For convenience, we will call it the “*ūn* sound plural” instead of the “-*ūna*/-*ina* plural”.

Here is the *ūn* sound plural of *مُعَلِّمٌ* *muʿallim* “a teacher_m”:

Case	Indefinite <i>ūn</i> plural “teachers _m ”	Definite <i>ūn</i> plural “the teachers _m ”
u-case	مُعَلِّمُونَ <i>muʿallimūna</i>	اَلْمُعَلِّمُونَ <i>ʾalmuʿallimūna</i>
a-case and i-case	مُعَلِّمِينَ <i>muʿallimīna</i>	اَلْمُعَلِّمِينَ <i>ʾalmuʿallimīna</i>

Note that, just like for duals, the indefinite *ūn* sound plural is not tanwined. The only difference between the definite and indefinite *ūn* sound plural is the definite article اَلْ “the”.

The duals of *مُعَلِّمٌ* *muʿallim* “a teacher_m” are included here for comparison:

Case	Indefinite <i>ūn</i> sound plural “teachers _{m,2} ”	Definite <i>ūn</i> sound plural “the teachers _{m,2} ”
u-case	مُعَلِّمَانِ <i>muʿallimāni</i>	اَلْمُعَلِّمَانِ <i>ʾalmuʿallimāni</i>
a-case and i-case	مُعَلِّمَيْنِ <i>muʿallimayni</i>	اَلْمُعَلِّمَيْنِ <i>ʾalmuʿallimayni</i>

Here are some examples of the *ūn* sound plural in sentences:

- u-case:

اَلْمُعَلِّمُونَ فِي الْمَدْرَسَةِ.
ʾalmuʿallimūna fi -lmaḍrasah
“The teachers are in the school.”

- a-case:

سَأَلَ الْغُلَامُ مُعَلِّمِينَ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.
saʿala -lghulāmu muʿallimīna ʿan ʾamr.
“The boy asked some teachers about a matter.”

- i-case:

طَلَبَ الْغُلَامُ مِنَ الْمُعَلِّمِينَ عِلْمًا.
ṭalaba -lghulāmu mina -lmuʿallimīna ʿilmā.
“The boy sought some knowledge from the teachers.”

10.2.1. Applicability of the *ūn* sound plural

Except for very few exceptions, the *ūn* sound plural is used only for male intelligent beings.

The few exceptions of common nouns that denote non-male intelligent beings, yet have an *ūn* sound plural include:

- *عَالَمٌ* *ʿālam* “a world” forms the *ūn* plural *عَالَمُونَ* *ʿālamūna* “worlds”.
- *أَرْضٌ* *ʾarḍ* (fem.) “a land”, “an earth” forms the *ūn* plural *أَرْضُونَ* *ʾarḍūna* “lands”, “earths”.
- *أَهْلٌ* *ʾahl* “a family” forms the *ūn* plural *أَهْلُونَ* *ʾahlūna* “families”.

10.3. The *āt* sound plural

The *āt* sound plural is formed by adding the ending *ات* *āt* to the indefinite singular noun.

Here is the *āt* sound plural of *حَيَوَانٌ* *ḥayawān* “an animal”:

Case	Indefinite <i>ūn</i> plural “animals”	Definite <i>ūn</i> plural “the animals”
u-case	حَيَوَانَاتٌ <i>ḥayawānātun</i>	الْحَيَوَانَاتُ <i>ʾalḥayawānātu</i>
a-case and i-case	حَيَوَانَاتٍ <i>ḥayawānātīn</i>	الْحَيَوَانَاتِ <i>ʾalḥayawānātī</i>

Note that:

- Unlike the *ūn* sound plural, the *āt* sound plural is tanwīned when indefinite. Also, just like for singular nouns, the final vowel on the plural ending *ات* *āt* indicates the case of the plural.
- The *āt* sound plural does not take the fatḥah َ and the tanwīned fatḥah ً. Instead the kasrah ِ and the tanwīned kasrah ٍ are used to indicate both the a-case and the i-case.

Case	the animal	the animals
u-case	الْحَيَوَانُ <i>ʾalḥayawānu</i>	الْحَيَوَانَاتُ <i>ʾalḥayawānātu</i>
a-case	الْحَيَوَانِ <i>ʾalḥayawāna</i>	الْحَيَوَانَاتِ <i>ʾalḥayawānātī</i>
i-case	الْحَيَوَانِي <i>ʾalḥayawāni</i>	الْحَيَوَانَاتِ <i>ʾalḥayawānātī</i>

10.3.1. Nouns ending in *ö*

If a noun ends with a *ö*, then it is removed before appending the *āt* sound plural ending. Here, for example, is the *āt* sound plural of *مُعَلِّمَةٌ* *muʿallimah* “a teacher_f”:

Case	Indefinite <i>ūn</i> plural “teachers _f ”	Definite <i>ūn</i> plural “the teachers _f ”
u-case	مُعَلِّمَاتٌ <i>muʿallimātun</i>	اَلْمُعَلِّمَاتُ <i>ʾalmuʿallimātu</i>
a-case and i-case	مُعَلِّمَاتٍ <i>muʿallimātin</i>	اَلْمُعَلِّمَاتِ <i>ʾalmuʿallimāti</i>

Here are some examples of the *āt* sound plural in sentences:

- u-case:

فِي الْمَدْرَسَةِ مُعَلِّمَاتٌ .
fī -lmaḍrasati muʿallimāt.
 “In the school are teachers.”

- a-case:

نَصَرَ اللَّهُ الْمُسْلِمِينَ.
naṣara -llāhu -lmuṣlimīn.
 “Allāh aided the Muslims.

- i-case:

نَظَرَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى الْحَيَوَانَاتِ.
naḍhara -lghulāmu ʾila -lḥayawānāt.
 “The boy looked at the animals.”

There are some nouns that end with an alif before the ة, like فَتَاة *fatāh* “a young woman”. We will learn how to pluralize these nouns later, if Allāh wills.

10.3.2. Nouns ending with ء

Consistent with what we learned for duals in section @ref(duals-of-extrinsic-alif-mamduda), if a noun ends with the feminine marker ء which is extrinsic to the word’s root then the ء shall be replaced with a و when forming the *āt* sound plural. Example:

Root	Singular	<i>āt</i> sound plural
صحر	صَحْرَاءُ <i>ṣaḥrāʾ</i> ² “a desert”	صَحْرَاوَاتٍ <i>ṣaḥrāwāt</i>

10.3.3. Nouns ending with ي

Consistent with what we learned for duals in section @ref(duals-of-extrinsic-alif-maqsura), If a noun ends with ي which is extrinsic to the word’s root then the ي shall be changed to a ي when forming the *āt* sound plural. Examples:

Root	Singular	āt sound plural
ذكر	ذِكْرٌ ² <i>dhikrā</i> “a remembrance”	ذِكْرِيَّاتٍ <i>dhikrayāt</i>

10.3.4. Common nouns of the patterns فُعْلَةٌ/فُعْل, فُعْلَةٌ/فُعْل, and فُعْلَةٌ/فُعْل

Common nouns of the patterns فُعْلَةٌ/فُعْل, فُعْلَةٌ/فُعْل, and فُعْلَةٌ/فُعْل are treated specially when forming their āt sound plural.

If a common noun is of these patterns and the middle root letter is not و or ي, and the middle and final root letters are not the same, then the word is modified internally when forming the āt sound plural.

There are two separate rules to consider:

1. If a common noun is of the pattern فُعْل *fael* or فُعْلَةٌ *faelah*, then the sukūn on the middle letter shall be converted to an fat-ḥah َ when forming the āt sound plural. For example:

- نَحْلَةٌ *naḥlah* “a bee” becomes نَحْلَاتٍ *naḥlāt* “bees”, not × نَحْلَاتٍ *naḥlāt*.
- ضَرْبَةٌ *ḍarbah* “a strike” becomes ضَرْبَاتٍ *ḍarabāt* “strikes”, not × ضَرْبَاتٍ *ḍarbat*.
- صَفْحَةٌ *ṣafḥah* “a page” becomes صَفْحَاتٍ *ṣafḥāt* “pages”, not × صَفْحَاتٍ *ṣafḥāt*.

If the middle root letter is و or ي, or the middle and final root letters are the same then this modification is not done. For example,

- جَوْزَةٌ *jawzah* “a walnut” becomes جَوَزَاتٍ *jawzāt*.
- حَجَّةٌ *hajjah* “a pilgrimage” becomes حَجَّاتٍ *hajjāt*.

2. If a common noun is of the pattern فُعْل *fiel*, فُعْلَةٌ *fielah*, فُعْلٌ *fuel*, or فُعْلَةٌ *fuelah* then the sukūn on the middle letter can, optionally, either:

- i. be retained,
- ii. be converted to an fat-ḥah, or
- iii. be converted to the vowel mark on the first letter.

For example:

- ظُلْمَةٌ *ḍhulmah* “a darkness” can become, optionally, either ظُلُمَاتٍ *ḍhulmāt* or ظُلُمَاتٍ *ḍhulamāt*, or ظُلُمَاتٍ *ḍhulumāt* “darknesses”.
- كِسْرَةٌ *kisrah* “a piece” can become, optionally, either كِسْرَاتٍ *kisrāt* or كِسْرَاتٍ *kisarāt*, or كِسْرَاتٍ *kisrāt* “pieces”.

Note that this rule of changing the vowel mark is only true for common nouns. Adjectival nouns on these patterns will retain the sukūn when forming the āt sound plural. So صَعْبٌ *ṣaeb* and صَعْبَةٌ *ṣaebah* “a difficult one” become only صَعْبَاتٍ *ṣaebāt*, not × صَعْبَاتٍ *ṣaebāt*.

10.3.5. Applicability of the *āt* sound plural

We had mentioned that the *ūn* sound plural is used, with very few exceptions, only for male intelligent beings. Conversely, the *āt* is used for both female intelligent beings, and for non-intelligent beings (both masculine and feminine) like animals, inanimate objects, and abstract concepts. Rarely, it is also used for male intelligent beings.

10.4. Conditions for forming the sound plural

Many times, a noun can form both an *ūn* sound plural and an *āt* sound plural. However, there are many nouns that can form only one of the two sound plurals. And many nouns don't form either sound plural; they only form broken plurals. (We will learn about broken plurals in the next chapter, if Allāh wills.) There are even nouns that can form both sound and broken plurals.

Here we will learn some of the conditions which a noun needs to satisfy in order for it to form the sound plurals.

10.4.1. Conditions for the *ūn* sound plural

The *ūn* sound plural is used, with very few exceptions, only for nouns that denote male intelligent beings. These guidelines will help you determine which nouns form the *ūn* sound plural.

We will treat common nouns and adjectival nouns separately.

10.4.1.1. Common nouns

With very few exceptions (some of which we saw in section @ref(applicability-of-the-un-sound-plural)), common nouns denoting male intelligent beings are disqualified from forming the *ūn* sound plural if their feminine counterpart is not formed by adding a *ə* to the masculine noun. So, غُلَام *ghulām* “a boy” is disqualified from forming a *ūn* sound plural because its feminine counterpart is جَارِيَة *jāriyah* “a girl”, not × غُلَامَة *ghulāmah*.

Even if a common noun denotes a male intelligent being and its female counterpart is formed by adding a *ə*, further conditions are imposed that can restrict its having a *ūn* sound plural. We will explain these restrictions below:

We learned in section @ref(related-nouns-for-male-and-female-animate-beings) that, in terms of their meaning, nouns that denote animate beings are of two kinds:

- i. Nouns that have a primitive meaning. That is, their meaning is not derived from a verbal or adjectival meaning. Examples (for male intelligent beings whose feminine is formed by adding *ə* to the masculine noun):

Arabic word	Definition
ابْن <i>ibn</i>	a son

Arabic word	Definition
طِفْل <i>ṭifl</i>	a child
إِنْسَان <i>ʾinsān</i>	a human being
حُرٌّ <i>ḥurr</i>	a free man

Such nouns, in general, won't be expected to form *ūn* sound plurals, unless the *ūn* sound plural is explicitly allowed in their dictionary definition.

- ii. Nouns that have a meaning that is derived from a verbal or adjectival meaning. Examples (for male intelligent beings whose feminine is formed by adding *ə* to the masculine noun):

Word	Definition	<i>ūn</i> plural
مُعَلِّم <i>muʿallim</i>	a teacher _m	مُعَلِّمُونَ
مُسْلِم <i>muslim</i>	a Muslim _m (one who submits)	مُسْلِمُونَ
كَافِر <i>kāfir</i>	a disbeliever _m	كَافِرُونَ
لَاعِب <i>lāʿib</i>	a player _m	لَاعِبُونَ

Such nouns, in general, can be expected to form *ūn* sound plurals.

The above definition of primitive and derived nouns, as we have explained it, is somewhat imprecise. For example, the word حُرٌّ *ḥurr* (masc.) “a free man” seems to have a meaning that is derived from the adjective “free” and it forms its feminine by adding *ə* to it thus: حُرَّة *ḥurrah* (fem.) “a free woman”. Yet it is considered a primitive noun, and thus does not form an *ūn* sound plural.

Once you become more familiar with Arabic word patterns, distinguishing between primitive and derived nouns will become clearer, if Allāh wills.

10.4.1.2. Adjectival nouns

If an adjectival noun forms its feminine by adding the feminine marker *ə* to the masculine noun, then we may assume that it forms the *ūn* sound plural.

Most adjectival nouns satisfy this condition. For example, consider the adjectival noun:

- كَبِير *kabīr* (masc.) “a big one”

It forms its feminine by adding a *ə* to the masculine noun, thus:

- كَبِيرَةٌ *kabīrah* (fem.) “a big one”

The above condition is satisfied; therefore, كَبِير *kabīr* (masc.) “a big one” forms the *ūn* sound plural كَبِيرُونَ *kabīrūna* “big ones”.

By the way, it is only the masculine adjectival noun that will form the *ūn* sound plural. Nouns with a *ə* are not allowed to form the *ūn* sound plural.

We have come across two patterns on adjectival nouns that don't form their feminine by adding *ə* to masculine noun. These are:

- i. ²فَعْلَان *faʿlān*², whose feminine is on the pattern ²فَعْلَاء *faʿlā*². Example: ²غَضَبَان *ghaḍbān*² (masc.) “very angry” whose feminine is ²غَضَبِي *ghaḍbā*².
- ii. ²أَفْعَل *ʾafʿal*², whose feminine is on the pattern ²فَعْلَاء *faʿlā*². Example: ²أَحْمَر *aḥmar*² (masc.) “red”, whose feminine is ²حَمْرَاء *ḥamrā*².

Because the above two patterns don’t form their feminine by adding *ə* to the masculine noun, therefore the masculine nouns don’t form the *ūn* sound plural. We will see in chapter @broken_plurals, if Allāh wills, that they form broken plurals instead.

10.4.2. Conditions for the *āt* sound plural

Just like the *ūn* plural, there are conditions that should be fulfilled in order for a noun to form an *āt* plural. We provide the following guidelines to help you determine if a noun can form an *āt* plural.

10.4.2.1. Nouns that end with a feminine marker

Generally, all nouns that end with a feminine marker like *ة*, *اء*, and *ِي* are able to form an *āt* plural. Examples are:

Singular	<i>āt</i> sound plural
حَسَنَة <i>ḥasanah</i> adj. “a good one _f ”	حَسَنَات <i>ḥasanāt</i>
حَسَنَة <i>ḥasanah</i> (common noun) “a good deed”	حَسَنَات <i>ḥasanāt</i>
صَدِيقَة <i>ṣadiqah</i> “a friend _f ”	صَدِيقَات <i>ṣadiqāt</i>
² صَحْرَاء <i>ṣaḥrā</i> ² “a desert”	صَحْرَاوَات <i>ṣaḥrāwāt</i>
² ذِكْرِي <i>dḥikrā</i> ² “a remembrance”	ذِكْرِيَات <i>dḥikrayāt</i>

The following are exceptions to this general rule, and don’t form *āt* sound plurals:

- Adjectival nouns of the pattern ²فَعْلَاء which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern ²أَفْعَل. For example, ²حَمْرَاء *ḥamrā* “red_f”.
- Adjectival nouns of the pattern ²فَعْلِي which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern ²فَعْلَان. For example, ²غَضَبِي *ghaḍbā* “very angry_f”.
- The following exceptional nouns:
 - اُمَّة *ummah* “a nation”
 - اُمَة *amah* “a female slave”
 - شَفَة *shafah* “a lip”

There are a few more such nouns, some of which we will introduce later.

All these exceptional nouns form broken plurals instead of the *āt* sound plural.

10.4.2.2. Nouns that don't end with a feminine marker

Common nouns

Common nouns that don't end with a feminine marker will form the *āt* plural only if they don't have a broken plural listed in the dictionary. Furthermore, it is preferred if the noun have five or more letters.

- حَيَوَان *ḥayawān* “an animal” forms the *āt* plural حَيَوَانَات *ḥayawānāt* “animals”.
- حَمَّام *ḥammām* forms the *āt* plural حَمَّامَات *ḥammāmāt* “bathrooms”. (The doubled م counts as two letters.)

Masculine adjectival nouns

Masculine adjectival nouns are permitted to form an *āt* sound plural, but only when they are applied to non-intelligent beings.

For example, if the masculine adjectival noun صَعْب *ṣaʿb* “a difficult one” is applied to “books”, which is the plural of the masculine noun كِتَاب *kitāb* “a book”, then the masculine adjectival noun صَعْب *ṣaʿb* is permitted to form the *āt* plural صَعَبَات *ṣaʿbāt* “difficult ones”.

By the way, note that both the masculine adjectival noun صَعْب *ṣaʿb*, and its feminine صَعْبَة *ṣaʿbah* form the same *āt* sound plural صَعَبَات *ṣaʿbāt*.

10.5. Detached plural pronouns

We have already learned the detached pronouns for singular and dual nouns. They are repeated here:

Participant	Detached pronoun
Absentee sing. masc.	هُوَ <i>huwa</i> “he”
Absentee sing. fem.	هِيَ <i>hiya</i> “she”
Absentee dual	هُمَا <i>humā</i> “they ₂ ”
Addressee sing. masc.	أَنْتَ <i>ʾanta</i> “you _{1,m} ”
Addressee sing. fem.	أَنْتِ <i>ʾanti</i> “you _{1,f} ”
Addressee dual	أَنْتُمَا <i>ʾantumā</i> “you ₂ ”
Speaker sing.	أَنَا <i>ʾana</i> “I”
Speaker dual	—

Now we will learn the detached pronouns for the plural participants:

Participant	Detached pronoun
Absentee pl. masc.	هُمْ <i>hum</i> “they _{3,m} ”
Absentee pl. fem.	هُنَّ <i>hunna</i> “they _{3,f} ”
Addressee pl. masc.	أَنْتُمْ <i>ʾantum</i> “you _{3,m} ”

Participant	Detached pronoun
Addressee pl. fem.	أَنْتُنَّ ^ʾ antunna “you _{3,f} ”
Speaker pl.	نَحْنُ naḥnu “we”

Note that the plural detached pronoun for the speaker participant نَحْنُ *naḥnu* “we” are the same for both genders.

Also, remember that there is no detached pronoun for the dual speaker-participant. So, if the speaker-participant consists of two individuals then we will use the plural pronoun.

Here are some examples of their use:

هُمْ مُسْلِمُونَ.

hum muslimūn.

“They_{3,m} are men₃.”

هُنَّ مُعَلِّمَاتٌ.

hum muʿallimāt.

“They_{3,f} are teachers_f.”

أَنْتُمْ لَاعِبُونَ.

^ʾantum lāʿibūn.

“You_{3,m} are players_{3,m}.”

أَنْتُنَّ صَدِيقَاتٌ.

^ʾantunna ṣadiqāt.

“You_{3,f} are friends_{3,f}.”

نَحْنُ رَجُلَانِ فَقِيرَانِ.

naḥnu rajulāni faqīrān.

“We_{2,m} are poor men₂.” (Note the plural pronoun subject with a dual noun in the info.)

نَحْنُ مُسْلِمَاتٌ.

naḥnu muslimāt.

“We_{3,f} are Muslims_{3,f}.”

10.6. Attached plural pronouns

We have also already learned the attached pronouns for the singular and dual participants. They too are repeated here:

Participant	Attached pronoun
Absentee sing. masc.	هُ -hu “him”
Absentee sing. fem.	هَا -hā “her”
Absentee dual	هُمَا -humā “them ₂ ”
Addressee sing. masc.	كَ -ka “you _{m,1} ”
Addressee sing. fem.	كِ -ki “you _{f,1} ”
Addressee dual	كُما -kumā “you ₂ ”
Speaker sing.	ي “me”

Participant	Attached pronoun
Speaker dual	–

Now we will learn the attached pronouns for the plural participant:

Participant	Attached pronoun
Absentee pl. masc.	هُمْ - <i>hum</i> “them _{3,m} ”
Absentee pl. fem.	هُنَّ - <i>hunna</i> “them _{3,f} ”
Addressee pl. masc.	كُم - <i>kum</i> “you _{3,m} ”
Addressee pl. fem.	كُنَّ - <i>kunna</i> “you _{3,f} ”
Speaker pl	نَا - <i>nā</i> “us”

Note the following points about them:

- The plural absentee-participant detached and attached pronouns (“they_{3,m}”/“them_{3,m}”) are the same:
 - masculine: هُمْ -*hum*.
 - feminine: هُنَّ -*hunna*.
- Just like هُ hu “him” and هُمَا -*humā* “them₂”, the plural absentee-participant attached pronouns هُمْ -*hum* “them_{3,m}” and هُنَّ -*hunna* “them_{3,f}” become هِمَا -*himā* and هِنَّا -*hinna* respectively, when preceded by the vowels اَ -i, يَ -ī, or the semi-vowel اِ -ay. Examples:
 - بِهِم *bihimā* “with them_{3,m}”
 - فِيهِنَّ *fihinna* “in them_{3,f}”
 - إِلَيْهِمْ *ilayhim* “to them_{3,m}”
- The final sukūn on the م in the masculine plural pronouns (هُمْ *hum*, أَنْتُمْ *ʾantum*, and كُمْ -*kum*) becomes a ḍammah (هُم *humu*, أَنْتُمْ *ʾantumū*, and كُمْ *kumu* respectively) when followed by a connecting hamzah. Examples:
 - هُمُ الْمُعَلِّمُونَ. *humu -lmueallimūn*.
“They_{pl. masc.} are the (male) teachers.”
 - ذَهَبَ إِلَيْكُمُ الرَّجُلُ. *d̥hahaba ʾilaykumu -rrajul*.
“The man went to you_{3,m}.”
 - أَنْتُمُ الْمُسْلِمُونَ. *ʾantumū -lmuslimūn*. “You_{3,m} are the Muslims_{3,m}.”
- When the speaker plural attached pronoun نَا is attached to a word that ends with a ن with a sukūn, there is only one ن written and it is doubled with a shaddah ّ on it. So we get:
 - نَا + مِنْ = مِنَّا *minnā*

- نَا + عَنَّ = عَنَّā *εannā*
- نَا + لَدُنَّ = لَدُنَّā *ladunnā*

- The preposition لِ *li* “for” becomes لِ *la* when followed by the plural attached pronouns:

- لَهُمْ *lahum* “for them_{3,m}”
- لَهُنَّ *lahunna* “for them_{3,f}”
- لَكُمْ *lakum* “for you_{3,m}”
- لَكُنَّ *lakunna* “for you_{3,f}”
- لَنَا *lanā* “for us”

10.6.1. Plural direct doee pronouns

The plural attached pronouns that we have just learned are also used as direct doee pronouns. Examples:

سَأَلَهُمُ الرَّجُلُ.

sa'alahumu -rrajul.

“The man asked them_{3,m}.”

سَأَلْتُكُمْ.

sa'altukum

“I asked you_{3,m}.”

سَأَلْتُكِ.

sa'alatukun.

“She asked you_{3,f}.”

سَأَلَنَا.

sa'alānā.

“They_{2,m} asked us.”

سَأَلْتَاهُ.

sa'alatāh.

“They_{3,m} asked him.”

10.7. Verbs with plural doers

10.7.1. Plural nouns for the doer

We learned that the māḍī verb for a masculine doer is on the pattern فَعَلَ. And when the doer is feminine, the ت of femininity is attached to the verb thus: فَعَلَتْ. We have used these verbs with singular and dual doer nouns. The doer noun always comes after the verb and shall be in the u-case. Examples:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ.

dhahaba -lghulamū.

“The boy went.”

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ.

dhahabat jāriyatun

“A girl went.”

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامَانِ.
dhahaba -lghulāmāni.

“The boys₂ went.”

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ.
dhahabat jāriyatāni.

“Two girls went.”

These same verbs are used when the doer noun is a plural. Examples:

ذَهَبَ الْمُعَلِّمُونَ.
dhahaba -lmueallimūn.

“The teacher_{3,m} went.”

ذَهَبَتْ مُعَلِّمَاتٌ.
dhahabat mueallimāt.

“Teachers_{3,f} went.”

10.7.2. Plural pronouns for the doer

We have already learned the singular and dual doer pronouns. They are repeated here:

Participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee sing. masc.	invisible	“he”	فَعَلَ <i>faʿala</i>
Absentee sing. fem.	invisible	“she”	فَعَلَتْ <i>faʿalat</i>
Absentee dual	اَ -ā	“them ₂ ”	masc.: فَعَلَا <i>faʿalā</i> , fem: فَعَلَتَا <i>faʿalatā</i>
Addressee sing. masc.	تَ -ta	“you _{m,2} ”	فَعَلْتَ <i>faʿalta</i>
Addressee sing. fem.	تِ -ti	“you _{f,2} ”	فَعَلْتِ <i>faʿalti</i>
Addressee dual	تُمَا -tumā	“you ₂ ”	فَعَلْتُمَا <i>faʿaltumā</i>
Speaker sing.	تُ -tu	“I”	فَعَلْتُ <i>faʿaltu</i>
Speaker dual	–	“us ₂ ”	–

Now we will learn the plural doer pronouns:

plural participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee pl. masc.	و	“they _{3,m} ”	فَعَلُوا <i>faʿalū</i>
Absentee pl. fem.	نَ -na	“they _{3,f} ”	فَعَلْنَ <i>faʿalna</i>

plural participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Addressee pl. masc.	تُمْ - <i>tum</i>	“you _{m,3} ”	فَعَلْتُمْ <i>faʿaltum</i>
Addressee pl. fem.	تُنَّ - <i>tunna</i>	“you _{f,3} ”	فَعَلْتُنَّ <i>faʿaltunna</i>
Speaker pl.	نَا - <i>nā</i>	“we”	فَعَلْنَا <i>faʿalnā</i>

Note the following regarding the plural doer pronouns:

- The ث of femininity does not attach to the absentee plural feminine doer pronoun نَ -*na* “they_{3,f}” فَعَلْنَ. Example:

– ذَهَبْنَ *d̤ahabna* “they_{3,f} went”

This is different from the behavior of the absentee dual doer pronoun لَ -*ā* “them_{2,f}” which, for a feminine doer, does attach to the ث of femininity. Example:

– ذَهَبَتَا *d̤ahabatā* “they_{2,f} went”

- The final sukūn on the م in the masculine plural doer pronoun تُمْ -*tum* becomes a ḍammah تُم -*tumu* when followed by a connecting hamzah. Examples:

– أَكَلْتُمْ خُبْزًا.
'akaltum k̤hubzā.
“You_{3,m} ate some bread.”

– أَكَلْتُمُ الْخُبْزَ.
'akaltumu -lk̤hubz.
“You_{3,m} ate the bread.”

- The absentee plural masculine verb doer pronoun “they_{3,m}” و *ū* is written with a silent alif after it which is written only and not pronounced. This alif is dropped when a direct doee pronoun is attached. For example:

– صَرَبُوا الرَّجُلَ.
ḍarabu -rrajul.
“They_{3,m} hit the man.”

– صَرَبُوهُ.
ḍarabūh.
“They_{3,m} hit him.”

- The plural masculine verb doer pronoun for the addressed person “you_{3,m}” تُمْ -*tum* becomes تُمُو *tumū* when a direct doee pronoun is attached. For example:

– صَرَبْتُمُ الرَّجُلَ.
ḍarabtumu -rrajul.
“You_{3,m} hit the man.”

صَرَبْتُمُوهُ. -
ḍarabtumūh.
 “You_{pl. masc.} hit him.”

- The plural speaking participant doer pronoun *ū -nā* is the same as the plural speaking participant attached pronoun *ū -nā*. But you can tell them apart because the doer pronoun, when attached to the verb, causes the final letter of the verb to have a sukūn. Consider the following two sentences:

سَأَلْنَا.
sa'alnā.
 “We asked.”

سَأَلْنَا.
sa'alanā.
 “He asked us.”

10.7.3. Sentence word order with plural doers

As we've mentioned, the doer, whether a noun or a pronoun, always comes after the verb. Here are a couple of examples of verbal sentences with plural doers:

ذَهَبَ الْمُعَلِّمُونَ إِلَى مَدْرَسَةٍ.
ḍahaba -lmu'allimūna 'ilā madrasah.
 “The teachers_{3,m} went to a school.”

ذَهَبُوا إِلَى مَدْرَسَةٍ.
ḍahabā 'ilā madrasah.
 “They_{3,m} went to a school.”

لَعَبَتِ الصَّدِيقَاتُ فِي الْبَيْتِ.
la'ibati -ṣṣadiqātu fi -lbayt.
 “The friends_{3,f} played in the house.”

لَعَبْنَ فِي الْبَيْتِ.
la'ibna fi -lbayt.
 “They_{3,f} played in the house.”

The above verbal sentences with plural doers can be rearranged to be a nounal sentences. This gives more emphasis to the subject. In this case, the verb shall follow the subject and will need a doer pronoun after it.

الْمُعَلِّمُونَ ذَهَبُوا إِلَى مَدْرَسَةٍ.
'almue'allimūna ḍahabū 'ilā madrasah.
 “The teachers_{3,m}, they_{3,m} went to a school.” = “The teachers_{3,m} went to a school.”

الصَّدِيقَاتُ لَعَبْنَ فِي الْبَيْتِ.
'aṣṣadiqātu la'ibna fi -lbayt.
 “The friends_{3,f}, they_{3,f} played in the house.” = “The friends_{3,f} played in the house.”

If there are multiple verbs associated with the same doer in a verbal sentence, the doer noun will follow the first verb and the rest of the verbs will have doer pronouns. For example:

أَكَلُوا اللَّاعِبُونَ وَشَرِبُوا وَذَهَبُوا.
 'akala -llāeibūna wa^hsharibū wad^hahabū.

"The players_{3,m} ate and they_{3,m} drank and they_{3,m} went."
 = "The players_{3,m} ate and drank and went."

The above verbal sentence can be rearranged to be a nounal sentence. In that case, all the verbs shall have doer pronouns. The sentence will have the same translation as above, except for an emphasis on the subject of the sentence.

أَكَلُوا اللَّاعِبُونَ أَكَلُوا وَشَرِبُوا وَذَهَبُوا.
 'allāeibūna 'akalū wa^hsharibū wad^hahabū.

"The players_{3,m}, they_{3,m} ate and they_{3,m} drank and they_{3,m} went."
 = "The players_{3,m} ate and drank and went."

Similarly,

أَكَلَتِ اللَّاعِبَاتُ وَشَرِبْنَ وَذَهَبْنَ.
 'akalati -llāeibātu wa^hsharibna wad^hahabn.

"The players_{3,f} ate and they_{3,f} drank and they_{3,f} went."
 and

أَكَلَتِ اللَّاعِبَاتُ أَكَلْنَ وَشَرِبْنَ وَذَهَبْنَ.
 'allāeibātu 'akalna wa^hsharibna wad^hahabn.

"The players_{3,f}, they_{3,f} ate and they_{3,f} drank and they_{3,f} went."
 = "The players_{3,f} ate and drank and went."

10.7.4. Verbs with multiple doers mentioned individually

If there are multiple doers of a verb, and each is mentioned individually, then there is often more than one way to handle them. Here we will give the more common usage.

If the verb is followed by multiple doers, only the first is the true doer with respect to modifying the verb according to its gender and number. Examples:

ذَهَبَتِ الْأُمُّ وَالْعَلَامُ.
 d^hahabati -l'ummu wa-lghulāmu.

"The mother and the boy went."

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ وَالْأُمُّ.
 d^hahaba -lghulāmu wa -l'ummu.

"The boy and the mother went."

If the doers consist of different persons (speaking person, addressed person, and absent person), then they are placed in order of strength: The speaking person is stronger than the addressed person, who is stronger than the absent person. The verb doer pronoun of the first (true) doer is then used. Example:

ذَهَبْتُ أَنَا وَأَنْتَ وَهُوَ.
 d^hahabtu 'ana wa'anta wahuwa.

"I, you, and he went."

Note how the speaking person detached pronoun أَنَا 'ana is used in addition to the doer pronoun تَ -tu in order to add وَ wa "and" to it.

If the sentence is a nounal sentence, and the verb is in the info, then the doer pronoun corresponding to the number of the subject is used. Examples:

أَنْتَ وَهُوَ ذَهَبْتُمَا.

ʾanta wahuwa dhahabtumā.
“You_{1,m} and he, you₂ went.”

أَنَا وَمُحَمَّدٌ ذَهَبْنَا.

ʾana wamuḥammadun dhahabnā.
“I and Muḥammad, we went.”

الْأُمُّ وَالْجَارِيَةُ ذَهَبَتَا.

ʾalʾummu wa-ljāriyatu dhahabatā.
“The mother and the girl went.”

الْأُمُّ وَالْجَارِيَتَانِ ذَهَبْنَ.

ʾalʾummu wa-ljāriyatāni dhahabna.
“The mother and the two girls, they_{3,f} went.”

If the doers consist of both male and female persons, then the verb will have the masculine doer prenoun corresponding to the number of the doers. Example:

الْأُمُّ وَالْجَارِيَةُ وَالْعَلَامُ ذَهَبُوا.

ʾalʾummu wa-ljāriyatu wa-lghulāmu dhahabū.
“The mother, the girl, and the boy, they_{3,m} went.”

Work in progress

Work in progress

Chapter 11.

The broken plural

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

11.1. Introduction

In the previous chapter we introduced sound plurals, which are formed by appending suffixes to the singular noun. The singular noun in these plurals remains, more or less, intact when forming these plurals. The sound plurals correspond to English regular plurals which are formed by appending “s” to the singular noun. However, English has some plurals that are not formed by adding the plural ending “s”. Here are some examples,

Singular	Plural
man	men
woman	women
child	children
mouse	mice

In these plurals, the singular noun is altered to form the plural.

Arabic also forms such plurals. They are called *broken* plurals because the singular noun is not kept intact but its structure is, in most cases, altered, or “broken-up” when forming the plural.

While English only forms such plurals for a handful of nouns, Arabic forms broken plurals for many nouns.

11.2. Review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns

Before we begin our discussion about broken plurals, we will do a quick review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns. This will, if Allāh wills, facilitate the explanation of broken plurals.

Most words in Arabic are formed from three letter roots. We use the paradigm root فعل to show word patterns. For example, the noun رَجُل *rajul* “a man” is formed from the root رَجَل on the pattern فَعْل *faʿul*.

Most nouns in Arabic are *fully-flexible*. This means that, when indefinite, they are tanwined and the indefinite i-case is shown by a tanwined kasrah ِ at the end of the noun. For example, رَجُل *rajul* “a man” and بَيْت *bayt* “a house” are fully-flexible nouns. So, you can see, below, that they are tanwined, and the indefinite i-case is indicated by a tanwined kasrah ِ:

ذَهَبَ رَجُلٌ إِلَى بَيْتٍ.
d̥hahaba rajulun ʾilā bayt.
 “A man went to a house.”

Some nouns are *semi-flexible*. This means that they are not tanwined, and also, the indefinite i-case is indicated by an fat-ḥah َ. Examples of such nouns are:

- غَضَبٌ *ghaḍbā*² *adj.* (fem.) “a very angry one” from the root غَضَب
- صَحْرَاءُ *ṣaḥrāʾ*² (fem.) “a desert” from the root صَحَر

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ غَضَبٌ إِلَى صَحْرَاءٍ.
d̥hahabat jāriyatun ghaḍbā ʾilā ṣaḥrāʾ.
 “A very angry girl went to a desert.”

When definite, semi-flexible nouns are identical to fully-flexible nouns:

ذَهَبَتِ الْجَارِيَةُ الْغَضَبُ إِلَى الصَّحْرَاءِ.
d̥hahabati-ljāriyatu-lghaḍbā ʾilā-ṣṣaḥrāʾ.
 “The very angry girl went to the desert.”

All nouns that have the endings ء and ِ, that are extrinsic to the word’s root, are semi-flexible. ء and ِ are also feminine markers for singular nouns, just like ِ. (Except that ِ does not, in general, make a noun semi-flexible.)

It is important to note that ِ, ء, and ِ are only feminine markers for singular nouns. We will see that they are also endings for broken plural nouns and, in that case, they are not feminine markers. However, ء and ِ, when endings for broken plural nouns, will make the broken plural nouns semi-flexible, just as they do for singular nouns.

Nouns that are of the patterns فَعَاْفِيف and فَعَاْفِيف are also semi-flexible nouns. Here each letter ف could be any letter of the alphabet. These are patterns for broken plurals, as we will see very soon. We had mentioned this in section @ref(fafafif-diptote).

This concludes our short review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns. We will use these concepts in our discussion of broken plurals.

11.3. Patterns of the broken plural

Broken plurals occur in specific patterns, which we will show using the paradigm **فعل** for three-letter roots. Arabic also has (comparatively fewer) four-letter roots and we will show patterns for broken plurals of four-letter roots using the paradigm root **فعلل**. We will also use the letter **ف**, when needed, to indicate any letter of the alphabet.

We now give all but the rarest broken plural patterns below.

1. **فُعَل** *fu'el*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صُورَة	صُور	a picture	دَوْلَة	دُول	a dy-nasty/state
أُمَّة	أُمَم	a nation	رُكْبَة	رُكَب	a knee

2. **فُعُل** *fu'el*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَحْمَر ²	حُمَر	red _m	أَعْمَى ²	عُمَى	blind _m
حَمْرَاء ²	حُمَر	red _f	عَمِيَاء ²	عُمَى	blind _f
أَحْوَر ²	حُور	a beautiful eyed one _m	أَصَمَّ ²	صُم	deaf _m
خَوْرَاء ²	حُور	a beautiful eyed one _f	صَمَاء ²	صُم	deaf _f
أَسْوَد ²	سُود	black _m	أَبْكَم ²	بُكَم	mute _m
سَوْدَاء ²	سُود	black _f	بَكَمَاء ²	بُكَم	mute _f
أَبْيَض ²	بَيْض	white _m	نَاقَة	نُوق	a camel _f
بَيْضَاء ²	بَيْض	white _f			

3. **فُعُل** *fu'el*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
كِتَاب	كُتُب	a book	رَسُول	رُسُل	a messenger
جِدَار	جُدُر	a wall	سَفِينَة	سُفُن	a ship

4. **فُعَل** *fu'el*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
قِطْعة	قِطَاع	a piece	سِيرة	سِيار	a course of life
هَرَّة	هَرَر	a cat _f			

5. **فِعال** *fi'āl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رَجُل	رِجال	a man	حَسَن	حِسان	adj. a good one _m
اِمْرَأة	نِساء	a woman	حَسَنَة	حِسان	adj. a good one _f
اُنْثى ²	اِنِاث	a female	صَعْب	صِغاب	adj. a difficult one _m
عَبْد	عِبَاد	a slave _m	صَعْبَة	صِغاب	adj. a difficult one _f
اَمَة	اِماء	a slave _f	صَغِير	صِغار	adj. a small one _m
جَبَل	جِبال	a mountain	صَغِيرَة	صِغار	adj. a small one _f
ثُوب	ثِياب	a garment	كَبِير	كِبَار	adj. a big one _m
رِيح	رِياح	a wind	كَبِيرَة	كِبَار	adj. a big one _f
مَرَّة	مِرار	an occasion	صَعِيف	ضِغاف	adj. a weak one _m
بَحْر	بِخار	a sea	صَعِيفَة	ضِغاف	adj. a weak one _f
عَمُود	عِماد	a pillar	كَرِيم	كِرَام	adj. a generous one _m
رَوْضَة	رِياض	a garden	غَضَبان ²	غِصاب	adj. a very angry _m

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رُمَح	رِمَاح	a spear	غَضَبِي ²	غِضَاب	adj. a very angry _f

6. فُعُول *fuʿūl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَمْر	أُمُور	a matter	جُنُوش	جُنُوش	an army
بَيْت	بُيُوت	a house	قَلْب	قُلُوب	a heart
حَق	حُقُوق	a truth, a right	رَأْس	رُؤُوس	a head
مَلِك	مُلُوك	a king	شَهْر	شُهُور	a month
سَيْف	سُيُوف	a sword	نَفْس	نُفُوس	a self
شَيْخ	شُيُوخ	an old man	عَيْن	عُيُون	a (water) spring
شَاهِد	شُهُود	a witness			

7. فُعَل *fuʿal*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رَاكِع	رُكَّع	one who bowes _m	غَائِب	غُئِب	absent
رَاكِعَة	رُكَّع	one who bowes _f			

8. فُعَال *fuʿʿāl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
قَارِئ	قُرَّاء	a reader _m	كَافِر	كُفَّار	a disbeliever _m
تَاجِر	تُجَّار	a trader _m	جَاهِل	جُهَّال	an ignorant one _m
عَامِل	عُمَّال	a worker _m			

9. فَعَلَة *faʿalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
سَاحِر	سَحَرَة	a magician _m	قَاتِل	قَتَلَة	a killer _m
عَامِل	عَمَلَة	a labourer _m	سَيِّد	سَادَة	a chief _m

10. **فُعَلَة** *fuʿalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
قَاضٍ	قُضَاة	a judge _m	رَاقٍ	رُؤَاة	a narrator _m

11. **فِعَلَة** *fiʿalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
دُبٌّ	دِبَبَة	a bear	قِرْدٌ	قِرَدَة	a monkey
هَرٌّ	هِرَرَة	a cat _m			

12. **فُعَلَة** *fiʿlah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَخٌ	إِخْوَة	a brother	فَتًى	فُتَيَة	a young man

13. **أَفْعُل** *ʾafeul*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رَجُلٌ	أَرْجُلٌ	a leg	شَهْرٌ	أَشْهُرٌ	a month
نَفْسٌ	أَنْفُسٌ	a self	عَيْنٌ	أَعْيُنٌ	an eye

14. **أَفْعَال** *ʾafeāl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
بَابٌ	أَبْوَابٌ	a door	مَيِّتٌ	أَمْوَاتٌ	dead
قَلَمٌ	أَقْلَامٌ	a pen	شَيْءٌ	أَشْيَاءٌ ²	a thing
قَدَمٌ	أَقْدَامٌ	a foot	إِسْمٌ	أَسْمَاءٌ	a name

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَاحِب	أَصْحَاب	a companion _m	يَوْم	أَيَّام	a day
شَرِيف	أَشْرَاف	a noble one _m	عَدُو	أَعْدَاء	an enemy
طِفْل	أَطْفَال	a child	عَيْن	أَعْيَان	an eminent person
بُيْر	آبَار	a (water) well			

15. أَفْعَلَة *afeilah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
لِسَان	أَلْسِنَة	a tongue	طَعَام	أَطْعَمَة	a food
إِمَام	أَيِّمَة	a leader _m	إِلَه	آلِهَة	a god

16. فَوَاعِل *fawā'il*². (Semi-flexible because of فَعَّاف pattern.) Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَاحِبَة	صَوَاحِب ²	a companion _f	عَامِل	عَوَامِل ²	a factor
جَارِيَة	جَوَارِي ²	a girl	شَاهِد	شَوَاهِد ²	a corroborating evidence
أَمْر	أَوَامِر ²	a command	خَاتَم	خَوَاتِم ²	a ring (jewelry)
نَادِرَة	نَوَادِر ²	a joke, a witticism	فَارِس	فَوَارِس ²	a horseman

17. فَعَائِل *fae'ail*². (Semi-flexible because of فَعَّاف pattern.) Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
حُرَة	حَزَائِر ²	a free woman	جَزِيرَة	جَزَائِر ²	an island
صَرَة	صَرَائِر ²	a co-wife	رِسَالَة	رِسَائِل ²	a message
حَدِيقَة	حَدَائِق ²	a garden	حَاجَة	حَوَائِج ²	a need
حَقِيبَة	حَقَائِب ²	a bag	دَلِيل	دَلَائِل ²	an evidence

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
كَبِيرَةٌ	كَبَائِرٌ ²	a major sin	خَلِيفَةٌ	خَلَائِفٌ ²	a successor
كَرِيمَةٌ	كَرَائِمٌ ²	a generous one _f			

18. **فُعْلَانٌ** *fuʿlān*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
غُلَامٌ	غُلَمَانٌ	a boy	ثَوْرٌ	ثَوْرَانٌ	a bull
جَارٌ	جِيرَانٌ	a neighbor	عُرَابٌ	عُرَبَانٌ	a crow
أَخٌ	إِخْوَانٌ	a brother	فَأْرٌ	فُئْرَانٌ	a mouse

19. **فُعْلَانٌ** *fuʿlān*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
بَلَدٌ	بُلْدَانٌ	a country	شُجَاعٌ	شُجَعَانٌ	a brave one
جِدَارٌ	جُدْرَانٌ	a wall	شَبَابٌ	شُبَّانٌ	a young man

20. **فُعْلَاءٌ** *fuʿalāʾ*². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَمِيرٌ	أُمَرَاءٌ ²	a commander _m	خَلِيفَةٌ	خُلَفَاءٌ ²	a caliph
فَقِيرٌ	فُقَرَاءٌ ²	a poor one _m	عَالِمٌ	عُلَمَاءٌ ²	a scholar _m
بَخِيلٌ	بُخَلَاءٌ ²	a miser _m	شَاعِرٌ	شُعَرَاءٌ ²	a poet _m
ضَعِيفٌ	ضُعَفَاءٌ ²	a weak one _m			

21. **أَفْعِلَاءٌ** *afʿilāʾ*². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
نَبِيٍّ	أَنْبِيَاءٌ ²	a prophet _m	شَدِيدٍ	أَشَدَّاءُ ²	a forceful one _m
صَدِيقٍ	أَصْدِقَاءُ ²	a friend _m	قَوِيٍّ	أَقْوَبَاءُ ²	a strong one _m
غَنِيٍّ	أَغْنِيَاءُ ²	a rich one _m	شَقِيٍّ	أَشَقِيَاءُ ²	a wretched one _m

22. ²فَعْلَى *faelā*². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
مَرِيضٍ	مَرَضَى ²	a sick one _m	جَرِيحٍ	جَرَحَى ²	a wounded person
أَسِيرٍ	أَسْرَى ²	a captive			

23. ²فَعَالِي *faeālī*². (Semi-flexible because of ²فَعَالِف pattern.) Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
لَيْلَةٍ	لَيَالٍ ²	a night	أَرْضٍ	أَرَاظٍ ²	a land, an earth
أَهْلٍ	أَهَالٍ ²	a family			

24. ²فَعَالَى *faeālā*². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَحْرَاءُ ²	صَحَارَى ²	a desert	فَتْوَى ²	فَتَاوَى ²	a formal legal opinion
يَتِيمٍ ²	يَتَامَى ²	an orphan	هَدْيَةٍ ²	هَدَايَا ²	a gift

25. ²فَعِيل *faeīl* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
عَبْدٍ	عَبِيدٍ	a slave _m	حِمَارٍ	حَمِيرٍ	a donkey _m

26. **فُعُولَة** *fu'ūlah* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
بُعْل	بُعُولَة	a husband			

27. **فِعَالَة** *fi'ālah* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
حَجَر	حِجَارَة	a stone			

28. **فَعَل** *fa'al* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
حَلَقَة	حَلَق	a circular ring			

29. **فَعْل** *fa'el* (very rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَاحِب	صَحْب	a companion			

30. **فَفَافٍ** *fafāfi*². Includes the sub-patterns:

- **فُعَالِل** *fa'ālil*²
- **أَفَاعِل** *afā'il*²
- **تَفَاعِل** *tafā'il*²
- **مَفَاعِل** *mafā'il*²

Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
ثُعْلَب	ثُعَالِب	a fox	تَجْرِبَة	تَجَارِب	an experience
عَنْكَبُوت	عَنَاقِب	a spider	مَسْجِد	مَسَاجِد	a mosque
دِرْهَم	دَرَاهِم	a dirham	مَعَانٍ	مَعْنَى	a meaning
جَوْهَر	جَوَاهِر	a gem	مَحَالّ	مَحَلَّة	a locality
إِصْبَع	أَصَابِع	a finger	مَعِيشَة	مَعَايِش	a means of subsistence

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أُثْمَلَة	أَثْمَلٌ ²	a finger tip			

31. ²فَفَافِيف *fafāfif*². Includes the sub-patterns:

- ²فَعَالِيل *faʿālil*²
- ²أَفَاعِيل *ʾafāʿiil*²
- ²تَفَاعِيل *tafāʿiil*²
- ²مَفَاعِيل *mafāʿiil*²
- ²يَفَاعِيل *yafāʿiil*²
- ²فَوَاعِيل *fawāʿiil*²

Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
سُلْطَان	سَلَاطِين ²	a sultan	إِعْصَار	أَعْصِير ²	a whirlwind
شَيْطَان	شَيَاطِين ²	a devil	تَّوَارِيخ	تَوَارِيخ ²	a history
سَكِّين	سَكَكِين ²	a knife	تَصَوِير	تَصَاوِير ²	a picture
دِينَار	دَنَانِير ²	a dinār	مِفْتَاح	مَفَاتِيح ²	a key
مُسْكِين	مَسَاكِين ²	a needy person	مَلْعُون	مَلَاعِين ²	an accursed one _m
كُرْسِي	كَرَاسِي ²	a chair	يَنْبُوع	يَنَابِيع ²	a (water) spring
أُمِّيَّة	أَمَانِي ²	a wish	جَامُوس	جَوَامِيس ²	a buffalo

32. ²فَعَالِلَة *faʿālilah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أُسْتَاذ	أُسَاتِذَة ²	a professor	مَلَك	مَلَائِكَة ²	an angel
فَيْلَسُوف	فَلَاسِغَة ²	a philosopher	جَبَّار	جَبَابِرَة ²	a tyrant

Note the following from the above broken plural patterns and examples:

- Both common nouns and adjectival nouns form broken plurals.
- There are comparatively fewer broken plurals for female intelligent beings than for male intelligent beings. We will expand on this in a subsequent section.

- Some patterns of the broken plural are also patterns singular nouns. For example, the pattern فَعَال *fiʿāl* has both singular nouns, like كِتَاب *kitāb* “a book” and broken plurals, like رِجَال *rijāl* “men”
- The broken plural patterns فُعْلَان *fuʿlān* and فُعْلَان *fuʿlān* are fully-flexible nouns. Although they end with the ان ending which is extrinsic to the root, they are not semi-flexible nouns. Only singular adjectival nouns that end with an extrinsic ان on the pattern فُعْلَان, and that also fulfil the other conditions listed in section @ref(adjectival noun-an-diptote), are semi-flexible.
- There is often a correlation between the pattern of a singular noun and the pattern of its plural.

Sometimes this correlation is very strong:

- All singular nouns of the patterns ²أَفْعَل *ʾafʿal*² and ²فَعْلَاء *faʿlā*² that denote colors and physical characteristics, have broken plurals on the pattern فُعْل *fuʿl*. Example:

Singular	Plural
² أَحْمَر, ² حَمْرَاء “red”	حُمُر
² أَبْكَم, ² بَكْمَاء “mute”	بُكْم

- Singular nouns that have four or more consonant letters (excluding ة) regularly form their broken plurals on the patterns ²فَقَافٍ and ²فَقَافِيْف. The pattern ²فَقَافِيْف is used when there is an intermediate long vowel between the consonants. Examples:

Singular	Plural
إِصْبَع “a finger”	² أَصْبَاع
مِفْتَاح “a key”	² مِفْتَاحِيْج

- Singular nouns of the patterns فِعْلَة *fiʿlah* and فُعْلَة *fuʿlah* regularly form their broken plurals on the pattern فِعَال *fiʿāl* and فُعَال *fuʿāl* respectively. Examples:

Singular	Plural
قِطْعَة “a piece”	قِطَع
رُكْبَة “a knee”	رُكَب

Other times, this correlation is more like a tendency:

- Singular nouns on the pattern فَاعِيْلَة *faēilah* tend to form broken plurals on the pattern ² فَاعَائِل *faēā'il*². Examples:

Singular	Plural
حَدِيْقَة “a garden”	² حَدَائِقُ
حَقِيْبَة “a bag”	² حَقَائِبُ

- Singular nouns on the pattern فَاعِل *fā'il*, that denote male intelligent beings, tend to form broken plurals on the pattern فُعَل *fue'al*, فُعَال *fueāl*, and فُعَلَة *faēalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural
غَائِب “absent”	غُيِّبُ
قَارِئ “a reader _m ”	قُرَّاء
قَاتِل “a killer _m ”	قَتَلَة

- Singular nouns on the pattern فَاعِل *fā'il* and فَاعِيْلَة *fā'ilah*, that don't denote male intelligent beings, tend to form broken plurals on the pattern فَوَاعِل *fawā'il*. Examples:

Singular	Plural
صَاحِبَة “a companion _f ”	² صَوَاجِبُ
عَامِل “a factor”	² عَوَامِلُ

فَارِس *fāris* “a horseman” with the plural ² فَوَارِس is one of a number of exceptions.

- Some words have roots that have the same letter repeated in the root. These are called *doubled roots*.

- For example:

Root	Word	Pattern
دَبَّ	دُبَّ “a bear”	فُعَل
حَلَّ	مَحَلَّة “a locality”	مَفْعَلَة
أَمَّ	إِمَام “a leader”	فِعَال
حَقَّ	حَقَّ “a truth, a right”	فُعَل
هَرَّ	هَرَّ “a cat _m ”	فُعَل

We will discuss doubled roots in detail in chapter @ref(doubled-roots). For now we will mention the following:

- The repeated letter in the word root may get doubled or separated in the word's pattern. Frequently, the repeated letter may be doubled in the singular, and separated in the plural. Examples:

Singular	Plural
حَقٌّ “a truth, a right”	حُقُوق
دَبٌّ “a bear”	دَبَبَةٌ
هَرٌّ “a cat _m ”	هَرَرَةٌ

The reverse also occurs, where the repeated letter may be separated in the singular, and doubled in the plural. Examples:

Singular	Plural
إِمَامٌ “a leader _m ”	أَئِمَّةٌ

- The doubled letter may modify the basic word pattern somewhat. For example:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
شَدَّ	أَفْعَلَاءُ ²	أَشْدَدَاءُ ² ×	أَشْدَاءُ ²
حَلَّ	مَفَاعِلُ ²	مَخَالِلُ ² ×	مَخَالُ ²
صَمَّ	أَفْعَلُ ²	أَصَمَمُ ² ×	أَصَمُّ ²

- We have previously learned that the endings ة, لاء, and ئى that are extrinsic to the word's root are feminine markers for singular nouns. These extrinsic endings also occur for broken plurals but there, they are *not* feminine markers.

In fact, in a sort of role reversal, the endings ة in a broken plural tends to indicate that the singular is a masculine noun. And the لاء ending is only for broken plurals of male intelligent beings. Examples:

Singular	Plural
لِسَانٌ “a tongue”	أَلْسِنَةٌ
هَرٌّ “a cat _m ”	هَرَرَةٌ
أَمِيرٌ “a commander _m ”	أُمَرَاءُ
صَدِيقٌ “a friend _m ”	أَصْدِقَاءُ

- There often exist multiple broken plurals for the same singular noun. Many times, in fact, a singular noun may have a sound plural in addition to one or more broken plurals. Examples:

Singular	Plural
شَهْرٌ	شُهُورٌ, أَشْهُرٌ
عَيْنٌ	أَعْيَانٌ, عُيُونٌ, أَعْيَيْنٌ
عَامِلٌ	عُمَالٌ, عَمَلَةٌ, عَوَامِلٌ ² , عَامِلُونَ

We will discuss how to manage these multiple plurals in a subsequent section.

- Occasionally, multiple singular nouns will share the same broken plural. Examples:

Singular	Plural
مَكْتَبٌ “an office”	مَكَاتِبٌ ²
مَكْتَبَةٌ “a library”	مَكَاتِبٌ ²

Context will then tell us which of two meanings is intended.

- The letters ء, ا, و, and ي are considered *weak* letters. Words that one or more these weak letters in their roots are called *defective* words. We will discuss defective words more completely in later chapters, if Allāh wills. For now, we will note the following:

- Weak letters often get interchanged with one another when going from a singular to a plural. Examples:

Root	Singular	Plural
أَرَخَ	تَأْرِخٌ	نَوَارِخٌ ²
نَوَقَ	نَاقَةٌ	نُوقٌ
ثَوَرَ	ثَوْرٌ	ثِيَرَانٌ

- Weak letters can affect surrounding vowels. For example:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
بَيَضَ	فُعْلٌ	× بُيِضٌ	بَيْضٌ

- The weak letter ي, when followed by the ى ending, usually modifies (in writing) it to an ا *alif* instead. The pronunciation is the same. For example:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
هدي	فَعَالِنٌ ²	هَذَايِنٌ ² ×	هَذَايَا ²

- A ي at the end of a word, in some cases, gets omitted and replaced by a tanwined kasrah ِ on the preceding letter. This happens even when the ي is extrinsic to the root, and even if the word is semi-flexible (and thus would not normally be tanwined). Examples:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
قضي	فَاعِلٌ	قَاضِي ×	قَاضٍ
جري	فَوَاعِلٌ ²	جَوَارِي ² ×	جَوَارٍ ²
ليل	فَعَالِي ²	لَيَالِي ² ×	لَيَالٍ ²

- Weak letters can also get omitted in the singular and resurface in the plural. Examples:

Root	Singular	Plural
أخو	أَخٌ	إِخْوَةٌ, إِخْوَانٌ
أمو	أَمَةٌ	إِمَاءٌ

- If there are more than four consonant letters in a word, then only four of them are selected to form the broken plural. For example:

Singular	Plural
عَنْكَبُوتٌ “a spider”	عَنَّاكِبٌ ²

- Some words have individual irregularities as well and we will discuss them below:

- The word اِمْرَأَةٌ and its plural نِسَاءٌ are both irregular and we will discuss them separately in chapter @ref(irregular-nouns).
- The broken plural أَشْيَاءٌ² ‘ashyā’ (of the singular noun شَيْءٌ shay’ “a thing”) is irregular in that it is semi-flexible. Otherwise its pattern أَفْعَالٌ ‘afeāl is regularly fully-flexible.
- The broken plural of the singular noun مَلَكٌ malak “an angel” is مَلَائِكَةٌ malā’ikah. It is on the pattern فَعَالِلَةٌ faeālilah. But it is unusual in that the plural has an extra letter ء that is missing in the singular. This is because the singular has a lesser-used variant: مَلَأَكٌ mal’ak that is used to form the plural.

- The broken plural of the singular noun دِينَار “a dīnār” is دَنَانِير². It is on the pattern فُعَالِيل². It is irregular in that there are two ن’s in the plural whereas the singular only has one.
- The root of بئر biʾr “a (water) well” is بَآر. The pattern of its broken plural is أَفْعَال. Based on its root letters, its plural on this pattern ought regularly to have been أَبَّار ‘ab’ār. And this plural exists but is not very commonly used. Instead, in forming the plural, the root letters ب and أ get swapped irregularly, and the more commonly used plural is actually أَبَار ‘ābār.

There are other words as well with similar irregularities.

11.4. Co-existence of multiple broken plurals

We noted that there are often multiple broken plurals for the same singular noun. Many singular nouns even have a sound plural in addition to one or more broken plurals. Here are some examples.

Singular	Meanings	Plural
جِدَار	a wall	جُدْرَان, جُدُر
شَهْر	a month	شُهُور, أَشْهُر
صَعِيف	a weak one _m	صُعَفَاء ² , ضِعَاف
أَمْر	a matter; a command	أَوَامِر ² , أُمُور
عَيْن	an eye; a (water) spring; an eminent person	أَعْيَان, عَيْون, أَعْيُن
عَامِل	a worker; a labourer; a factor	عَمَلَة, عَوَامِل ² , عَامِلُونَ عُمَال

We will deal with the co-existence of sound and broken plurals in the next section. In this section, we will explain the existence of multiple broken plurals, and when one of them is preferred or required to be used over the other. Basically, there could be a few things going on:

1. Sometimes it is more or less optional which of the multiple broken plurals to use. For example, the singular noun جِدَار has two broken plurals: جُدُر, جُدْرَان. Either could be used, more or less, interchangeably.
2. Sometimes, the usage of one of the plurals may be restricted. For example, صُعَفَاء and ضِعَاف are both broken plurals of the masculine adjectival noun صَعِيف “a weak one_m”. For male intelligent beings, like “weak men”, either of the two plurals could be used. But remember that broken plurals that end with an extrinsic ء ending may only be used for male intelligent beings. So the plural صُعَفَاء may only be used for male intelligent beings like “men” or “boys”, and not for masculine nouns that denote non-intelligent beings like “lions” or “pens”, etc.

Interestingly, ضَعْف is also shared as the broken plural for the feminine adjectival noun صَعِيْفَةٌ “a weak one_f”. So it can be used for plurals of feminine nouns, both for female intelligent beings like “women” and “girls”, and for feminine nouns that denote non-intelligent beings like “trees”.

3. Other times, the singular has multiple distinct meanings, and each of these distinct meanings is associated with its own broken plural(s). Here are some examples:

- The word أَمْر ¹amr has two distinct meanings, each with its own plural:
 - i. “a matter”. This has the broken plural أُمُور ¹umūr.
 - ii. “a command”. This has the broken plural أَوَامِر ²awāmīr².
- The word عَيْن ¹ayn has multiple distinct meanings. There are three main meanings, and they share the broken plural with each other in the following way:
 - i. “an eye”. This meaning primarily uses the plural أَعْيُن ¹ʾaʿyun but it may also use the plural عُيُون ²ʿuyūn, and rarely also the plural أَعْيَان ¹ʾaʿyān.
 - ii. “a (water) spring”. This meaning primarily uses the plural عُيُون ²ʿuyūn but it may also use the plural أَعْيُن ¹ʾaʿyun, and rarely also the plural أَعْيَان ¹ʾaʿyān.
 - iii. “an eminent person”. This meaning only uses the plural أَعْيَان ¹ʾaʿyān.
- The word عَامِل ¹ʿāmil has the following meanings and plurals:
 - i. “a worker_m”. Generally, this has the plural عُمَّال ¹ʿummāl.
 - ii. “a labourer_m”. This uses the plural عَمَلَةٌ ¹ʿamalāh.
 - iii. “a factor”. This uses the plural عَوَامِل ²ʿawāmīl².

4. Arabic has what are known as *plurals of fewness*. These are specific patterns that may (sometimes, but not always) be used when the persons or things denoted by the plural are only a few (ten or less) and not many. These patterns are:

- i. فِغْلَةٌ ¹fiʿlah
- ii. أَفْعُل ¹ʾafʿul
- iii. أَفْعَال ¹ʾafʿāl
- iv. أَفْعِلَاه ¹ʾafʿilāh

For example:

- i. شَهْر ¹shahr “a month”, plurals: أَشْهُر, أَشْهُور. The plural أَشْهُر ¹ʾashhur could be used when the number of months are only a few (ten or less), and the plural أَشْهُور ²ʾashhur could be used when the number of months are large.

- ii. The plurals أَغْيَان and عُيُون of the word عَيْن could also possibly be used similarly in this manner for both meanings: “an eye” and “a (water) spring”. (But not for the meaning “an eminent person” which only uses the plural أَعْيَان).

Of course, this distinction only applies when the singular noun has additional plurals, not just one from the above four patterns. If a noun has only one of the about four plural patterns then it may be used indiscriminately and will not indicate any limitation in number.

11.5. Co-existence of sound and broken plurals

Some nouns have both sound and broken plurals for more or less the same meaning. Here are some examples:

Singular	Meaning	Sound plural	Broken plural
قَاتِل	a killer	قَاتِلُونَ	قَتَلَة
كَافِر	a disbeliever	كَافِرُونَ	كُفَّار
كَبِير	a big one _m	كَبِيرُونَ	كِبَار
كَبِيرَة	a big one _f	كَبِيرَات	كِبَار
صَغِير	a small one _m	صَغِيرُونَ	صِغَار
صَغِيرَة	a small one _f	صَغِيرَات	صِغَار
رَاكِع	one who bows _m	رَاكِعُونَ	رُكَّع
رَاكِعَة	one who bows _f	رَاكِعَات	رُكَّع
صَاحِبَة	a companion _f	صَاحِبَات	صَوَاحِب ²
جَارِيَة	a girl	جَارِيَات	جَوَار ²
حَدِيقَة	a garden	حَدِيقَات	حَدَائِق ²

We will treat the *ūn* and *āt* sound plurals separately.

11.5.1. *ūn* plurals and broken plurals

Remember from chapter @ref(sound-plurals) that *ūn* plurals are, with very few exceptions, only used for male intelligent beings.

If a singular noun has both an *ūn* sound plural and one or more broken plurals, then the use of the broken plural is generally preferred. The sound plural is then, generally, reserved for certain verbal usages. (We will study these in later chapters, if Allāh wills.)

So, for example, قَتَلَة is preferred over قَاتِلُونَ generally for the meaning: “killers”.

11.5.2. *āt* plurals and broken plurals

āt plurals are used for both female intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings. We will discuss each of these separately.

11.5.2.1. Female intelligent beings

Remember from section @ref(conditions-for-the-at-plural) that, generally, all nouns that end with feminine markers (ة, اء, and ى) can form the *āt* sound plural.

There are some nouns that are excepted from this statement. These nouns only have broken plurals and don't form sound plurals. For female intelligent beings, these nouns are:

- Adjectival nouns of the pattern ²فَعْلَاء which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern ²أَفْعَل. For example, حوراء حور *hawrā'* “a beautiful eyed one_f” uses the broken plural حُور *hūr*
- Adjectival nouns of the pattern ²فَعْلَى which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern ²فَعْلَان. For example, غَضَبَى غضب *ghaḍbā* “very angry_f” uses the broken plural غَضَاب *ghidāb*.
- The following exceptional nouns:
 - نِسَاء “a woman”, broken plural: نِسَاء
 - أَمَةٌ “a slave_f”, broken plural: إِمَاء
 - أُمَّة “a nation”, broken plural: أُمَم

In the case of these nouns we have no choice but to use the broken plural.

For other nouns that denote female intelligent beings, the use of the *āt* sound plural is preferred over any broken plurals that the noun may have.

So, for example, the use of the *āt* sound plural صَغِيرَات is preferred over the broken plural صِغَار for the adjectival noun صَغِيرَة “a small one_f”. However, both are permitted.

The following are excepted from this general statement:

- أَنْثَى “a female”, plural: إِنَاث. The *āt* sound plural is almost unused for this word.
- Broken plurals of the patterns:
 - ²فَوَاعِل *fawā'il*²
 - ²فَعَائِل *fa'ā'il*²

These broken plural patterns are, in fact, predominantly used for female intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings, and only rarely for male intelligent beings. So the broken plural ²جَوَار “girls” may be used freely as the plural of جَارِيَة “a girl” and is not preferred over جَارِيَات. Similarly, صَوَاجِب may freely be used as the plural of صَاحِبَة.

Only a few nouns denoting male intelligent beings have broken plurals on these patterns, like:

- فَوَارس “a horseman”, plural: ²فَوَارِس
- خَلَائِف “a successor”, plural: ²خَلَائِف

In conclusion, with the general preference of using the *āt* sound plural over the broken plural for female intelligent beings, you will find that نِسَاء *nisā'* “women” is the only widely found broken plural for female intelligent beings in normal usage.

11.5.2.2. Non-intelligent beings

For non-intelligent beings, the broken plural is preferred for use over *āt* sound plurals.

So, for example, حَدَائِقُ *ḥadā'iq*² is preferred over حَدِيقَات *ḥadiqāt* as the plural of حَدِيقَة *ḥadiqa*, though both are correct.

11.6. Usage of plurals

The treatment of plurals in sentences is quite complicated. Here we will give a simplified explanation that should suffice for basic usage, until we give a fuller treatment in (TODO: give chapter reference).

We will discuss the plurals of intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings separately.

11.6.1. Plurals of intelligent beings in descriptive noun-phrases

Consistent with what we have learned so far, when the attributee in a noun-phrase is plural, then the attribute comes after it, and matches it in case, definiteness, gender, and number.

Either or both of the attribute and the attributee may be sound plurals or broken plurals.

Here are some examples:

لَعِبَ الطِّفْلُ الصَّغِيرُ مَعَ الْغُلَمَانِ الْكِبَارِ.
laʿiba -ṭṭiflu -ṣṣaghīru maʿa -lghilmāni -lkibār.
 “The small child played with the big boys.”

أَخَذَ التِّلْمِيذُ الْعِلْمَ عَنِ الْمُعَلِّمِينَ الْكَرَامِ.
ʾakhadha -ttilmidhu -leilma ʿani -lmueallimīna -lkirām.
 “The pupil took knowledge from the noble teachers.”

لِلْجَارِيَةِ صَوَاحِبٌ طَيِّبَاتٌ.
liljāriyati ṣawāhibu ṭayyibāt.
 “The girl has good companions_f.”

فِي السُّوقِ نَجَّارٌ صَادِقُونَ.
fi -ssūqi tujjārūn ṣadiqūn.
 “In the market are honest traders.”

خَدَمَ الرَّجُلُ الصَّالِحُ الْغَنِيُّ الْفُقَرَاءَ الضَّعَافَ مِنَ الْيَتَامَى الصَّغَارِ.
khadama -rrajulu -ṣṣālīhu -lghaniyyu -lfuqarāʾa -ḍḍiʿāfa mina -lyatāmā -ṣṣighār.
 “The rich righteous man served the weak poor ones from the little orphans.”

11.6.2. Plurals of intelligent beings in nounal sentences

If the subject of a sentence is a plural denoting intelligent beings then the info typically matches it in being a plural. This is especially the case if the info is an adjectival noun. For example:

الْعِلْمَانُ أَطْفَالٌ طَيِّبُونَ.
'alghilmānu 'atfālun ṭayyibūn.
"The boys are good children."

الرِّجَالُ أَغْنِيَاءُ.
'arrijālu 'aghniyā'.
"The men are rich."

الْمُعَلِّمَاتُ عَالِمَاتُ.
'almuecallimātu eālīmāt,
"The teachers_f are scholars_f."

Sometimes the info may not match the subject in plurality because of the meaning of the sentence. For example:

الْمُسْلِمُونَ أُمَّةٌ.
'almuslimūna 'ummah.
"The Muslims are a nation."
الْجِيرَانُ الطَّيِّبُونَ نِعْمَةٌ مِنَ اللَّهِ.
'aljirānu -ṭṭayyibūna niematun mina -llāh.
"Good neighbors are a blessing from Allah."

The use of detached pronouns is consistent with what we learned in section @ref(detached-plural-pronouns). Examples:

أَنْتُنَّ نِسَاءٌ كَرِيمَاتُ.
'antunna nisā'un karīmāt.
"You_{3,f} are generous women."
أَنْتُمْ شُبَّانٌ شُجْعَانُ.
'antum shubbānun shujeānun
"You_{m,3} are courageous young men."

الشَّيَاطِينُ هُمُ الْمَلَأَيْنُ.
'ashshayāṭīnu humu -lmalāēin.
"The devils are the accursed ones."

هُنَّ نِسَاءٌ غَنِيَّاتُ.
hunna nisā'un ghaniyyāt.
"They_{3,f} are rich women."

نَحْنُ غِلْمَانٌ أَصْدِقَاءُ.
naḥnu ghilmānun 'aṣḍiqā'.
"We are boys who are friends."

11.6.3. Plurals of intelligent beings with verbs

We have already studied verbs with sound plurals in section (ref). The same discussion applies to broken plurals as well. Here are a couple of examples:

- قَرَأَتِ النِّسَاءُ وَكَتَبْنَ.
qara'ati -nnisā'u wakatabn.
 "The women read and wrote."
 اَلْغُلَمَانُ لَعِبُوا بِكَرَّةٍ حَمْرَاءَ.
alghilmānu la'ibū bikuratin ḥamrā'.
 "The boys, they played with a red ball."
 طَبَخَتِ النِّسَاءُ طَعَامًا لِلرِّجَالِ فَأَكَلُوهُ وَشَكَرُوهُمْ.
ṭabakhati -nnisā'u ṭaeāman lirrijāli fa'akalūhu washakarūhunn.
 "The women prepared some food for the men, so they_{3,m} ate it and they_{3,m} thanked them_{3,f}.
 ظَلَمَ الْجَبَابِرَةُ الْمَسَاكِينَ وَقَتَلُوهُمْ.
ḍhalama -ljabābiratu -lmasākina waqatalūhum.
 "The tyrants wronged the needy ones_{3,m} and killed them_{3,m}."

11.6.4. Usage of plurals of non-intelligent beings

We now turn our attention to plurals of non-intelligent beings. The treatment of plurals of non-intelligent beings is very different from everything we have learned so far. In this basic, simplified, explanation: regardless of the grammatical or physical gender of the singular noun, plurals of non-intelligent beings are treated, for the purposes of matching adjectival nouns and pronouns, as grammatically feminine singular.

So, for example, the noun بَيْت *bayt* denotes the inanimate object "a house". Its plural is بُيُوت. This plural is treated as a feminine singular noun. This is despite the fact that the singular noun بَيْت *bayt* "a house" is grammatically masculine. See how the بُيُوت *buyūt* is used in the examples below:

- اَلْبُيُوتُ كَبِيرَةٌ.
 "The houses are big."
 سَكَنُوا فِي بُيُوتٍ صَغِيرَةٍ.
 "They_{3,m} lived in small houses."
 سَقَطَتِ اَلْبُيُوتُ.
 "The houses fell."
 اَلْبُيُوتُ سَقَطَتْ.
 "The houses, they fell."
 هِيَ بُيُوتٌ لِفُقَرَاءَ.
 "They are houses for the poor."

Plurals of inanimate objects and animals (both male and female) are treated the same way. It doesn't matter what the grammatical or physical gender of the singular is or whether it has a sound or broken plural. Examples:

- هِيَ ثِيْرَانٌ وَحْشَةٌ.
 "They are wild bulls."
 اَلْهَرَزَةُ شَرَبَتِ اَلْخَلِيْبَ.
 "The cats_m, they drank the milk."
 اَلْهَرَزُ شَرَبَتِ اَلْخَلِيْبَ.
 "The cats_f, they drank the milk."

أَلْسُفُنْ طَوِيلَةٌ.

“The ships are tall.”

فِي الصُّنْدُوقِ أَشْيَاءٌ عَجِيبَةٌ.

“In the box are wonderful things.”

(Note how أَشْيَاءٌ² is indefinite but is not tanwined. This is because it is irregularly semi-flexible.)

By the way, this rule only applies to adjectival nouns in the attributee or the info. A common noun in the attribute or info will continue match the attributee or subject in gender and number.

For example, if you say:

الْأَفْعَالُ الصَّالِحَةُ هِيَ الْحَسَنَةُ.

“The righteous acts are the good ones.”

then حَسَنَةٌ may only be the feminine adjectival noun “a good one”.

If instead you want to use حَسَنَةٌ with its common noun meaning of “a good deed”, then you have to use the plural:

الْأَفْعَالُ الصَّالِحَةُ هِيَ الْحَسَنَاتُ.

“The acts are the good deeds.”

The plural هِيَ may continue to be used instead of هُنَّ, although the latter is also valid:

الْأَفْعَالُ الصَّالِحَةُ هُنَّ الْحَسَنَاتُ.

“The acts are the good deeds.”

Similarly, if an adjectival noun connoting a non-intelligent being is used not as an attribute or an info in a sentence, then it should be pluralized to indicate plurality.

الْحَيَوَانَاتُ صَغِيرَةٌ وَكَبِيرَةٌ. الْكَبِيرَاتُ وَخَشَةٌ.

“The animals are big and small. The big ones are wild.”

In the second sentence above, we could not have said (for the same meaning):

× الْحَيَوَانَاتُ صَغِيرَةٌ وَكَبِيرَةٌ. الْكَبِيرَةُ وَخَشَةٌ.

It is important to note that treating non-intelligent beings as grammatically feminine is only for the plural. Singular and dual nouns for non-intelligent beings are treated according to the gender of singular noun, as we have learned in previous chapters. So, for example,

الْبَيْتُ كَبِيرٌ.

“The house is big.”

not

× الْبَيْتُ كَبِيرَةٌ.

أَكَلَ الْأَسَدَانِ الظَّبْيَ.

“The lions₂ ate the gazelle.”

not

× أَكَلَتِ الْأَسَدَانِ الظَّبْيَ.

Chapter 12.

Weak and doubled roots

12.1. Introduction

The letters alif/hamzah (إِ), و, and ي are considered weak letters. When any of these letters are part of the root of a verb, then that verb is called a *weak verb*. When weak verbs are conjugated for different doers, then the weak letters can modify the appearance of the conjugated verb in different ways.

Of the weak letters, hamzah is the strongest (in pronunciation, though it is weak in writing). And it will usually (though not always) retain its pronunciation when a verb with hamzah in its root is conjugated. So we will treat it separately at the end.

12.2. The weak middle-letter verb

12.2.1. و as the weak middle-letter

Consider the root قول with the meaning «to say».

When we form the māḍī verb from roots with و as the middle root letter, we usually assume a fatḥah on the middle root letter.

Therefore, we would expect the verb for the doer «he» to be قَوْل qawala.¹ Instead, however, the sequence قَوْ qawa is modified to قَا qā, and we will actually say:

- (1) قَالَ
qāla
«He said»

Similarly, when we conjugate for the doer «she», we would expect to say قَوْلَتْ qawalat, but we actually say:

- (2) قَالَتْ qālat
«She said»

Continuing on, when we conjugate for the doer «I», we would expect to say قَوْلْتُ qawaltu. In this case, we don't convert قَوْ qawa to قَا qā because then we would end up with قَالْتُ qāltu. But a long vowel followed by a sukūn is

¹ 31/7 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين

disallowed phonologically in Arabic (except when pausing at the end of an utterance). So we cannot say × قَالْتُ *qāltu*.

Instead, we eliminate the middle letter altogether, and place a dammah on the ق because it is the closest vowel to the original root letter و. So we say:

- (3) قُلْتُ
qultu
« I said »

Similarly we will say

- (4) قُلْتَ
qulta
« You_{sing.m.} said »

- (5) قُلْتِ
qulti
« You_{sing.f.} said »

Moving on to the duals, for strong verbs we simply add an alif to ذَهَبَ « he went » to get ذَهَبَا « they_{du.m.} went ». And from ذَهَبَتْ « she went » we get ذَهَبَتَا « they_{du.f.} went ».

We will do the same thing to قَالَ and قَالَتْ respectively. So we get:

- (5) قَالَا
qālā
« They_{du.m.} said »

- (6) قَالَتَا
qālatā
« They_{du.f.} said »

For « you_{du.} said », we use قُلْتُ « I said » as our starting point and replace the doer pronoun تِ « I » with نُمَا « you_{du.} ». So we say

- (6) قُلْتُمَا
qultumā
« You_{du.} said »

Now let's move on to the plurals. For strong verbs we modify ذَهَبَ « he went » by adding the doer pronoun هُوَا « they_{pl.m.} » and we get ذَهَبُوا « they_{pl.m.} went ». We will do the same thing to قَالَ « he said » to get:

- (7) قَالُوا
qālū
« They_{pl.m.} said »

For _{pl.f.} they, there is a sukūn on the final root letter (e.g. ذَهَبْنَ « they_{pl.f.} went »). So now we use the pattern قُلْتُ I said]{.ar}, and replace the doer pronoun تِ « I » with ۡ « they_{pl.f.} ». So we will say:

- (8) قُلْنَ
qulna
 « They_{pl.f.} said »

Similarly, for « you_{pl.m.} » we will say:

- (9) قُلْتُمْ
qultum
 « You_{pl.m.} said »

and for « you_{pl.f.} » we will say:

- (10) قُلْتُنَّ
qultunna
 « You_{pl.f.} said »

Lastly, for « we », we will do the same thing and say:

- (11) قُلْنَا *qulnā*
 « We said »

Here is the complete verb conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
« He said »	قَالَ
« She said »	قَالَتْ
« You _{sing.m.} said »	قُلْتَ
« You _{sing.f.} said »	قُلْتِ
« I said »	قُلْتُ
« They _{du.m.} said »	قَالَا
« They _{du.f.} said »	قَالَتَا
« You _{du.} said »	قُلْتُمَا
« They _{pl.m.} said »	قَالُوا
« They _{pl.f.} said »	قُلْنَ
« You _{pl.m.} said »	قُلْتُمْ
« You _{pl.f.} said »	قُلْتُنَّ
« We said »	قُلْنَا

And here are some examples of similar verbs in sentences:

12.2.2. Kasrah on the middle 9 letter

Most verbs that have 9 as the middle root letter behave as above, with an original fatḥah on the 9 becoming an alif:

- (12) قَالَ → قَوْلٌ
qawala → *qāla*
 «He said»

And when the و is eliminated, it is replaced with a dammah on the first root letter:

- (13) قُلْتُ → قَوْلْتُ
qawaltu → *qultu*
 «I said»

A few verbs, however, take a kasrah on the middle و. For example, the root خوف «to fear». In this case, the و still becomes an alif:

- (14) خَافَ → خَوْفٌ
khawifa → *khāfa*
 «He feared»

But when the و is eliminated, it is replaced with a kasrah on the first root letter:

- (15) خَفْتُ → خَوْفْتُ
khawiftu → *khiftu*
 «He feared»

Here is the complete conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
«He feared»	خَافَ
«She feared»	خَافَتْ
«You _{sing.m.} feared»	خَفْتَ
«You _{sing.f.} feared»	خَفْتِ
«I feared»	خَفْتُ
«They _{du.m.} feared»	خَافَا
«They _{du.f.} feared»	خَافَتَا
«You _{du.} feared»	خَفْتُمَا
«They _{pl.m.} feared»	خَافُوا
«They _{pl.f.} feared»	خَفْنَ
«You _{pl.m.} feared»	خَفْتُمْ
«You _{pl.f.} feared»	خَفْتُنَّ
«We feared»	خَفْنَا

The verb نَامَ «to sleep» from the root نوم behaves similarly.

Here are some examples of these verbs in sentences:

(TODO) See [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعشيمين 31/7ff] for handling ambiguity in passive.

12.2.3. ي as the weak middle-letter

When ي is the weak middle-letter, as in the verb root بيع «to sell», then we follow pretty much the same procedure as for قَالَ. So:

- (16) بَاعَ → بَاعَ
bayæa → *bāæa*
 «He sold»

But when the ي is eliminated, it is replaced with a kasrah on the first root letter, because the kasrah is the closer vowel to ي.

- (17) بَاعْتُ → بَاعْتُ
bayætu → *bīætu*
 «I sold»

Here is the complete verb conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
«He sold»	بَاعَ
«She sold»	بَاعَتْ
«You _{sing.m.} sold»	بَاعْتَ
«You _{sing.f.} sold»	بَاعْتِ
«I sold»	بَاعْتُ
«They _{du.m.} sold»	بَاعُوا
«They _{du.f.} sold»	بَاعْنَ
«You _{du.} sold»	بَاعْتُمَا
«They _{pl.m.} sold»	بَاعُوا
«They _{pl.f.} sold»	بَاعْنَ
«You _{pl.m.} sold»	بَاعْتُمْ
«You _{pl.f.} sold»	بَاعْنِ
«We sold»	بَاعْنَا

12.3. The weak final-letter verb

12.3.1. و as the weak final-letter

Consider the verb root دعو «to call».

When we form the māḍī verb from roots with و as the middle root letter, we usually assume a fatḥah on the middle root letter.

Therefore, we would expect the verb for the doer «he» to be دَعَوْ *daæawa*. Instead, however, the sequence دَعَوْ *æawa* is modified to دَعَا *æā*, and we will actually say:

- (18) دَعَا
daæā
 «He called»

Similarly, when we conjugate for the doer «she», we would expect to say دَعَوْتُ *daʿawat*, but we actually say:

- (19) دَعَتْ *daʿat*
«She called»

Continuing on, there is no modification of the root 9 when we conjugate for the doer «I».

- (20) دَعَوْتُ
daʿawtu
«I called»

Similarly we will say:

- (21) دَعَوْتَ
daʿawta
«You_{sing.m.} called»

- (22) دَعَوْتِ
daʿawti
«You_{sing.f.} called»

Moving on to the duals, we add back the 9 to the verb when we add on the alif for the «they_{du.m.}». So we get:

- (22) دَعَا
daʿawā
«They_{du.m.} called»

For «they_{du.m.}», we simply add an alif to دَعَتْ «she called», and we get:

- (23) دَعَا
daʿatā
«They_{du.f.} called»

For «you_{du.} called», there is again no modification of the root 9. So we say:

- (24) دَعَوْتُمَا
daʿawtumā
«You_{du.} called»

Now let's move on to the plurals. For «they_{pl.m.}», we need to add a 9, but because there is already a 9 in the root, we don't add another one. Instead we put a sukūn on it to get:

- (25) دَعَوْا
daʿaw
«They_{pl.m.} called»

When دَعَوْا is to be connected to a following connecting-hamzah, then we will put a ḍammah on the 9. For example:

(26) دَعَوْا الرَّجُلَ

daεawu -rrajula« They_{pl.m.} called the man. »For _{pl.f.} they, there is again no modification of the root و. So we say:

(27) دَعَوْنَ

daεawna« They_{pl.f.} called »Similarly, for « you_{pl.m.} » we will say:

(28) دَعَوْتُمْ

daεawtum« You_{pl.m.} called »and for « you_{pl.f.} » we will say:

(29) دَعَوْتُنَّ

daεawtunna« You_{pl.f.} called »

Lastly, for « we », we will do the same thing and say:

(30) دَعَوْنَا *daεawnā*

« We called »

Here is the complete verb conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
« He said »	دَعَا
« She said »	دَعَتْ
« You _{sing.m.} said »	دَعَوْتُ
« You _{sing.f.} said »	دَعَوْتَ
« I said »	دَعَوْتُ
« They _{du.m.} said »	دَعَوْا
« They _{du.f.} said »	دَعَتَا
« You _{du.} said »	دَعَوْتُمَا
« They _{pl.m.} said »	دَعَوْا
« They _{pl.f.} said »	دَعَوْنَ
« You _{pl.m.} said »	دَعَوْتُمْ
« You _{pl.f.} said »	دَعَوْتُنَّ
« We said »	دَعَوْنَا

And here are some examples of similar verbs in sentences:

12.4. The doubled verb

12.5. كَانَ

Work in progress

Chapter 13.

Annexation

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

13.1. Introduction

Consider the following expression:

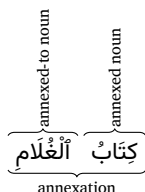
“the boy’s book”

This expression establishes a relation of *belonging* between the two nouns: (i) “the boy”, and (ii) “the book”. It says that the book *belongs* to the boy.

Arabic expresses this meaning using a construction called *annexation*. In this chapter we will learn about this construction.

13.2. Forming the annexation

We use the term *annexation* in Arabic grammar when a new *annexed noun* is annexed to a *annexed-to noun* by being placed right before it. Here is an example of an annexation:



“the boy’s book”

The annexation construction consists of two nouns:

1. The *annexed noun*: This is the first noun in the annexation.
2. The *annexed-to noun*: This is the second noun in the annexation.

The annexed noun كِتَاب is annexed to, and belongs to, the annexed-to noun الْغُلَامُ.

13.3. Case of the annexed noun and annexed-to noun

The annexed-to noun in an annexation is always in the i-case. The annexed noun may be in any case, depending on its function in the sentence. For example,

كِتَابُ الْغُلَامِ ثَقِيلٌ.

“The boy’s book is heavy.”

(The annexed noun is in the u-case.)

أَخَذَتِ الْجَارِيَةُ كِتَابَ الْغُلَامِ.

“The girl took the boy’s book.”

(The annexed noun is in the a-case.)

كَتَبَ الْمُعَلِّمُ فِي كِتَابِ الْغُلَامِ.

“The teacher_m wrote in the boy’s book.”

(The annexed noun is in the i-case.)

13.4. Definiteness of the annexation

Consider again the annexation expression we have been using so far:

كِتَابُ الْغُلَامِ

“the boy’s book”

The annexed-to noun الْغُلَامُ is definite because it is prefixed by اَلْ “the”. Therefore we have translated it as “the boy”. The annexed noun كِتَاب is not made definite by اَلْ. Nor is it made indefinite by tanwin. Rather, its definiteness is determined by the annexed-to noun. Because the annexed-to noun الْغُلَامُ is definite, therefore the annexed noun كِتَاب is also definite. The entire annexation is definite.

Consider now the case when the annexed-to noun is indefinite.

كِتَابُ غُلَامٍ

“a boy’s book”

In the above example, the annexed-to noun غُلَامٍ is indefinite because it is tanwined and because it does not prefixed by اَلْ. Therefore we have translated it as “a boy”. The annexed noun كِتَاب is neither tanwined, nor does it have اَلْ. Its definiteness is, again, determined by the annexed-to noun. Because the annexed-to noun غُلَامٍ is indefinite, therefore the annexed noun كِتَاب is also indefinite. The entire annexation is indefinite.

We will see soon, if Allāh wills, why the definiteness of the annexed noun is important.

Here are some examples of definite and indefinite annexations.

لَبَسَ الْطِفْلُ قَمِيصَ رَجُلٍ.

“The child wore a man’s shirt.”

أَخَذَ أَمِيرُ الْجَيْشِ رَايَةَ الْمَلِكِ وَرَفَعَهَا.
 “The army’s commander took *the* king’s flag and raised it.”
 جَلَسَ الرَّجُلُ فِي ظِلِّ شَجَرَةٍ.
 “The man sat in *a* tree’s shade.”

13.4.1. Translating the annexation using “of”

So far we have been using the English “s” to translate the Arabic annexation. Examples:

بَيْتُ رَجُلٍ
 “a man’s house”

بَيْتُ الرَّجُلِ
 “the man’s house”

Instead of using “s” we may use “of” as well. For example:

بَيْتُ رَجُلٍ
 “a/the house of a man”

بَيْتُ الرَّجُلِ
 “a/the house of the man”

Note that the annexed noun “house” may be prefixed with either “a” or “the”. This will depend on what is more natural in English. Often time both will fit. Here are some examples:

لَبَسَ الْطِفْلُ قَمِيصَ رَجُلٍ.
 “The child wore a/the shirt of a man.”

أَخَذَ أَمِيرُ الْجَيْشِ رَايَةَ الْمَلِكِ وَرَفَعَهَا.
 “The commander of the army took *the* flag of the king and raised it.”

جَلَسَ الرَّجُلُ فِي ظِلِّ شَجَرَةٍ.
 “The man sat in *the* shade of a tree.”

فَتَحَ اللَّصُّ شُبَّاكَ الْبَيْتِ وَدَخَلَ الْبَيْتَ.
 “The thief opened *a/the* window of the house and entered the house.”

It is important to understand that translating the annexed noun into English with “a” or “the” is purely for the reason of obtaining a natural translation. This does not affect whether or not the annexed noun is grammatically considered definite in Arabic.

As we mentioned earlier, the definiteness of the annexed noun in Arabic depends only on the definiteness of the annexed-to noun. If the annexed-to noun is definite then the annexed noun shall be considered definite as well. And if the annexed-to noun is indefinite then the annexed noun shall be considered indefinite as well.

The need to maintain this distinction will become apparent in the next section.

If the annexed-to noun is definite, and it is desired to make the annexed noun grammatically indefinite, then it is necessary to break the annexation, and use a prepositional phrase instead, usually with the preposition لِ, which, here, will mean “of”. Example:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى بَيْتِ الرَّجُلِ.
 “The boy went to a house of the man.”

فَتَحَ اللَّصُّ شُبَّاكَ مِنَ الْبَيْتِ وَدَخَلَ الْبَيْتَ.
 “The thief opened a window of the house and entered the house.”

13.5. Broken plurals and *āt* sound plurals in annexations

There is no special rules for broken plurals and *āt* sound plurals in annexations. They behave just like singular nouns. Remember only that *āt* plurals end with ِ and ٍ in the a-case. Here are some examples:

حَيَوَانَاتُ الْغَابَةِ وَحَشَّةٌ.

“The animals of the forest are wild.”

قَرَأَتْ طَالِبَاتُ الْمَدْرَسَةِ صَفَحَاتِ الْكُتُبِ

“The school’s students_f read the pages of the books.”

فِي الْخِزَانَةِ أَقْلَامٌ مُعَلَّمَاتٍ.

“In the cupboard are teachers’_f pens.

Contrary to broken plurals and *āt* plurals, duals and *ūn* sound plurals behave differently in annexations. We will deal with them in section @ref(duals-and-sound-un-plurals-in-annexations)

13.6. Attributes in an annexation

13.6.1. Describing the annexed-to noun

Consider the following expression:

كِتَابُ الْجَارِيَةِ

“the girl’s book”

Now say that we want to form an descriptive noun-phrase “the small girl’s book”. Basically, we want to describe the annexed-to noun الْجَارِيَةِ “the girl” with the adjectival noun صَغِير “a small one”. Here is how we will express this in Arabic:

كِتَابُ الْجَارِيَةِ الصَّغِيرَةِ

“the small girl’s book”

In the manner we are already familiar with, we place the attribute صَغِير “a small one” after the attributee الْجَارِيَةِ “the girl” and match the attribute with the attributee in definiteness, case, gender and number (singular, dual, or plural).

Similarly, if we had an indefinite annexation, we would get:

كِتَابٌ جَارِيَةٍ صَغِيرَةٍ

“a small girl’s book”

Here are some more examples:

لَعَبَتْ الْجَارِيَةُ فِي حَدِيقَةِ الْبَيْتِ الْكَبِيرِ.

“The girl played in the garden of the big house.”

قَرَأَ الْعُلَامُ سُورَةَ الْقُرْآنِ الْكَرِيمِ.

“The boy read the sūrah of the Noble Qur’ān.”

جَلَسَ الرَّجُلُ فِي ظِلِّ شَجَرَةٍ عَرِيضَةٍ وَسَبِغَةٍ.

“The man sat in the shade of a wide broad tree.”

13.6.2. Describing the annexed noun

Consider, again, the same annexation:

كِتَابُ الْجَارِيَةِ
“the girl’s book”

Say, now, that we want to describe the annexed noun كِتَاب “book” with the adjectival noun صَغِير “a small one”. Normally, nothing can come between the annexed noun and the annexed-to noun in an annexation. So, the attribute needs to be placed, again, after the annexed-to noun. However, this time it will match the annexed noun, not the annexed-to noun, in case, definiteness, gender, and number. So we get:

كِتَابُ الْجَارِيَةِ الصَّغِيرِ
“the girl’s small book”

Note how the attribute الصَّغِير matches the annexed noun كِتَاب in case and gender. Note also how the attribute is definite with an اَلْ. This is because it is matching the annexed noun كِتَاب in definiteness. The annexed noun كِتَاب is definite, not with اَلْ, but rather because of the definite annexed-to noun الْجَارِيَةِ “the girl”. We’ve already learned this rule in section @ref(definiteness-of-the-annexation) above.

Similarly, if we describe the annexed noun كِتَاب in an indefinite annexation, we get:

كِتَابٌ جَارِيَةٍ صَغِيرٍ
“a girl’s small book”

This time the attribute صَغِير is indefinite with a tanwined dammah ُ. This is because the annexed noun كِتَاب is indefinite. It is indefinite because annexed-to noun جَارِيَةٍ “a girl” is indefinite.

Now, you might be foreseeing a problem. What if the annexed noun and the annexed-to noun have the same gender, and the annexed noun too is in the i-case? For example, in the sentence:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى بَيْتِ الرَّجُلِ الْكَبِيرِ.
“The boy went to the big/old man’s house.”

or

“The boy went to the man’s big house.”

How do we know whether the attribute كَبِير is meant to describe the annexed noun بَيْت or the annexed-to noun الرَّجُل? The annexed noun بَيْت and the annexed-to noun الرَّجُل are both masculine, singular, definite, and in the i-case.

The answer is that in such cases, context will have to be clear to tell us which of the two meanings is intended. If the context makes it clear then there is no harm in using such a sentence for either of the two meanings.

Also, sometimes, the meaning of the attribute is such that it will likely apply to only one of the two nouns. For example,

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى بَيْتِ الرَّجُلِ الْكَرِيمِ.
“The boy went to a noble/generous man’s house.”

In the sentence above the attribute كَرِيم “noble/generous” is likely to apply to a man, and not to a house.

If, however, the context is not clear, and the meaning of the attribute can apply to both the annexed noun and the annexed-to noun, then the attribute is

likely to apply to the annexed-to noun and not to the annexed noun. So then, this interpretation is more likely:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى بَيْتِ الرَّجُلِ الْكَبِيرِ.

“The boy went to the big/old man’s house.”

In order to apply a attribute to the annexed noun in such a case, it is better to break the annexation and form a prepositional phrase instead, usually with the preposition *لِ*, which, here, will mean “of”. Example:

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى الْبَيْتِ الْكَبِيرِ لِلرَّجُلِ .

“The boy went to the big house of the man.”

Here are some more examples:

لَعِبَتِ الْجَارِيَةُ بِكُرَّةِ الْغُلَامِ الْحُمْرَاءِ.

“The girl played with the boy’s red ball.”

(Note that *حُمْرَاءِ* feminine to match *كُرَّةِ*.)

سَقَطَتْ وَرَقَةُ الشَّجَرَةِ الْخَضْرَاءِ عَلَى مَاءِ النَّعْرِ الْعَرِيضِ.

“The green leaf of the tree fell on the water of the broad river.”

(Note that *خَضْرَاءِ* is in the u-case to match *وَرَقَةُ*)

حَمَلَ الْغُلَامُ حَقِيْبَةَ الْمَدْرَسَةِ الثَّقِيْلَةِ.

“The boy carried the heavy school-bag.”

(literally: the heavy bag of the school).

كَتَبَ الرَّجُلُ عَلَى صَفْحَةٍ كِتَابٍ بَيْضَاءِ.

“The man wrote on the white page of a book.”

(Note that *بَيْضَاءِ* is feminine to match *صَفْحَةٍ*. However, also note that it has an a-mark َ in the i-case because it is semi-flexible.)

13.7. Semi-flexible nouns in an annexation

Remember that semi-flexible nouns are not tanwined and that when indefinite, their i-case is indicated by an *fat-hah* َ. But when definite with *أل* then they behave just like fully-flexible nouns. Example of the semi-flexible noun *صَحْرَاءُ* “a desert”:

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	صَحْرَاءُ	الصَّحْرَاءُ
a-case	صَحْرَاءَ	الصَّحْرَاءَ
i-case	صَحْرَاءِ	الصَّحْرَاءِ

We will now see how semi-flexible nouns behave in an annexation.

13.7.1. A semi-flexible noun as the annexed-to noun

Here are examples of the semi-flexible noun *صَحْرَاءُ* “a desert” as the annexed-to noun in an annexation:

الْقَرْيَةُ فِي وَسْطِ الصَّحْرَاءِ.

“The village is in the middle of the desert.”

شَرِبَ الْأَعْرَابِيُّ مَاءً مِنْ بئرٍ صَحْرَاءَ.

“The bedouin drank some water from a desert’s well.”

As you can see, when $صَحْرَاءَ^2$ is definite, then its i-case is indicate by an kasrah ِ, just like fully-flexible nouns. However, when it is indefinite, then its i-case is indicate by an fat-ḥah َ.

This is consistent with the general behavior of semi-flexible nouns that we are familiar with.

13.7.2. A semi-flexible noun as the annexed noun

Contrary from expected behavior, a semi-flexible annexed noun, even when indefinite, takes an kasrah ِ in the i-case instead of an fat-ḥah َ. Example,

قَدِمَ الْأَعْرَابِيُّ مِنْ صَحْرَاءَ أَرْضٍ بَعِيدَةٍ.

“The bedouin came from the desert of a far land.”

In the above example, $صَحْرَاءَ^2$ “a desert” is indefinite because it is the annexed noun to an indefinite annexed-to noun $أَرْضٍ$ “a land”. It is in the i-case because it is preceded by the preposition مِنْ “from”. Nevertheless, it takes an kasrah مِنْ $صَحْرَاءَ$, not an fat-ḥah, which would be incorrect: × مِنْ $صَحْرَاءَ$ $أَرْضٍ$.

13.8. Annexations with more than two nouns

So far we have seen annexations with two nouns. Annexations may be arbitrarily long. Here is an example of a noun-chain with more than two nouns:

$\underbrace{\text{مِفْتَاحُ}}_{a_1} \underbrace{\text{بَابِ}}_{b_1} \underbrace{\text{الْبَيْتِ}}_{b_2}$
 $a_1 \quad b_1 \quad b_2$

“the house’s door’s key”

The above annexation consists of three nouns. It may be divided into two sub-annexations:

- i. $\text{مِفْتَاحُ} \text{بَابِ}$ “door’s key”. Its annexed noun a_1 is مِفْتَاحُ and its annexed-to noun b_1 is بَابِ .
- ii. $\text{بَابِ} \text{الْبَيْتِ}$ “the house’s door”. Its annexed noun a_2 is بَابِ and its annexed-to noun b_2 is الْبَيْتِ .

The noun بَابِ “door” is common to both sub-annexations. It is the annexed-to noun of the first sub-annexation $\text{مِفْتَاحُ} \text{بَابِ}$ “door’s key”. At the same time, it is also the annexed noun of the second sub-annexation $\text{بَابِ} \text{الْبَيْتِ}$ “the house’s door”.

Only the final annexed-to noun may have ألْ or be tanwined. If the final annexed-to noun has ألْ (as above) then all the nouns in the annexation are definite.

And if the final annexed-to noun is indefinite, as in the example below, then all the nouns in the annexation are indefinite.

مِفْتَاحُ بَابِ بَيْتٍ

“a house’s door’s key”

All the nouns except the first annexed noun must be in the i-case. Consistent with section @ref(a-semi-flexible-noun-as-the-annexe-noun) if a semi-flexible noun is any of the annexed nouns and is in the i-case, then its i-case is indicated by an fatḥah َ. Example:

مِنْ بَيْتٍ صَخْرَاءَ أَرْضٍ

“from the well of the desert of a land”

13.9. Pronouns as annexed-to nouns

Consider the expression:

“his book”

This expression is very similar to the annexation:

كِتَابُ الْغُلَامِ

“the boy’s book”

The difference is that we would like to replace the annexed-to noun الْغُلَامِ “the boy” with the pronoun “his”. For this we use the attached pronoun هُ. When we place this pronoun as the annexed-to noun, we get:

كِتَابُهُ

“his book”

This annexation follows the same rules as the other annexations we have been studying so far:

- The annexed noun may be in any case, depending on its function in the sentence.
- The annexed-to noun is in the i-case. But because the annexed-to noun is a pronoun, and pronouns are rigid nouns (see section @ref(rigidity-of-pronouns)) that don’t change their ending based on their case, therefore it’s i-case will not be apparent.

Here are some examples of this annexation used in sentences:

كِتَابُهُ ثَقِيلٌ.

“His book is heavy”

فَرَأَى الرَّجُلُ كِتَابَهُ.

“The man read his book.”

كَتَبَ الْمُعَلِّمُ فِي كِتَابِهِ.

“The teacher_m wrote in his book.”

If the annexed noun ends with ة then it is converted to a ت when annexing it to an attached pronoun. For example:

ذَهَبُوا إِلَى مَدْرَسَتِهِمْ.

“They went to their school.”

Here are some more examples of annexing to the different attached pronouns:

دَخَلْتُ بَيْتَكَ.

“You_{1,m} entered your_{1,m} house.”

أَكَلْنَا طَعَامَهُمَا.

“They_{2,f} ate their₂ food.”

قَدِمْتُ إِلَى مَدِينَتِكُمْ
“I have arrived to your_{3,m} city.”

هُوَ إِمَامٌ مَسْجِدِنَا.
“He is the ‘Imām of our mosque.”

If the annexed noun is semi-flexible then it gets a ِ in the i-case, as we’ve already learned. Example with the semi-flexible broken plural حَدَائِقُ² “gardens”.

لَعِبْنَ فِي حَدَائِقِهِمْ.
“They_{3,f} played in their_{3,f} gardens.”

If an annexed noun ends with ى then it gets converted to an alif when annexing it to an attached pronoun. Example with فَتَاوَى² “legal opinions”:

كَتَبَ تَلَامِذُهُ الشَّيْخَ فَتَاوَاهُ فِي كُتُبِهِمْ.
“The pupils of the religious scholar wrote down his legal opinions in their books.”

For the singular speaker-participant there are two variants for the attached pronoun:

- i. -ī يـ
- ii. -ya يـ

The first (يـ -ī) is more commonly used. Example:

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابِي
“I read my book.”

أَقْلَامِي قَصِيرَةٌ.
“My pens are short.”

If, however, the annexed noun ends in a long vowel or a semi-vowel then (يـ -ī) is disallowed and only (يـ -ya) shall be used. Example with the semi-flexible broken plural هَدَايَا² “gifts”:

أَعْجَبَتْهُمْ هَدَايَايَ.
“My gifts pleased them.”

13.9.1. Attributes with annexations to pronouns

Consider the annexation:

كِتَابُهُ
“his book”

The annexed noun is كِتَاب and the annexed-to noun is the pronoun هـ. We would like add a attribute to this expression. Remember from section @ref(definiteness-of-pronouns) that pronouns are definite nouns. That makes the annexed noun كِتَاب also definite. Therefore, any attribute for this annexation will need to be definite too.

Here is a new rule: Pronouns may not be attributees. That is: they are not allowed to have attributes. Even in English you may say:

“The good boy went.”

but you can’t say:

× “The good *he* went.”

So, any attributes for the annexation must necessarily only describe the annexed noun, not the pronoun which is the annexed-to noun. Example:

كِتَابُهُ الْأَحْمَرُ

“his red book”

Here are some more examples:

كَتَبْتُ بِقَلَمِي الْأَسْوَدِ

“I wrote with my black pen.”

حَمَلَ غُلَامَانُ الْقَرْيَةَ حَقَائِبَهُمُ الثَّقِيلَةَ إِلَى مَدْرَسَتِهِمُ الْبَعِيدَةِ.

“The village boys carried their heavy bags to their distant school.”
(literally: the village’s boys.)

13.10. Duals and *ūn* sound plurals in annexations

We have already dealt with broken plurals and *āt* sound plurals in annexations in section @ref(broken-plurals-and-at-sound-plurals-in-annexations).

In this section we will deal with duals and *ūn* sound plurals in annexations.

13.10.1. Duals and *ūn* sound plurals as annexed-to nouns

As annexed-to noun, duals and *ūn* sound plurals behave no differently than other nouns. Being annexed-to nouns they will be in the i-case and this shall be indicated by:

- i. اَيْنِ -*ayni* for duals
- ii. اَيْنِ -*ina* for *ūn* sound plurals

Here are some examples:

لَجِئَ الْمَظْلُومُونَ الضُّعَفَاءُ فِي بِلَادِ الْمُسْلِمِينَ الْأَمْنَةِ.

“The weak wronged ones took refuge in the secure lands of the Muslims.”

أُخْتُ الْعَلَامَيْنِ الطَّوِيلَيْنِ صَغِيرَةٌ.

“The tall boys’₂ sister is little.”

هِيَ طَالِبَةٌ مُعَلِّمَتَيْنِ كَرِيمَتَيْنِ.

“She is the student_f of noble teachers_{2,f}.”

13.10.2. Duals and *ūn* sound plurals as annexed nouns

When duals and *ūn* sound plurals are annexed nouns, then their final ن is treated as a sort of tanwīn and is, therefore, deleted before annexing them to a annexed-to noun. For example:

بَيْتَا الرَّجُلِ

“the man’s houses₂,”

not

× بَيْتَانِ الرَّجُلِ

Note, also, that because the annexed-to noun الرَّجُلُ begins with a connecting hamzah إ, therefore the long vowel *ā* at the end of بَيْتَا is pronounced as a short vowel *a*, thus:

bayta -rrajuli

not

× baytā -rrajuli

If the dual annexed noun were in the i-case then the final ي gets an kasrah

○□ if there is following connecting hamzah. Example:

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابِي الرَّجُلِ.

qara'tu kitābayi -rrajul

"I read the man's books₂."

Here are some more examples including ūn sound plurals:

مُعَلِّمُو الْأَعْلَامِ كَرَامٌ.

mu'eallimu -lghulāmi kirām.

"The boy's teachers₃ are noble."

(Note that there is no silent alif after مُعَلِّمُو as there is after a verb with a plural absentee-participant doer pronoun, e.g. لَعِبُوا "they_{3,m} played")

لَعِبَ ابْنَا الرَّجُلِ مَعَ لَاعِبِي مَدِينَتِهِمْ.

laeiba -bna -rrajuli ma'a lāeibi madīnatihim.

"The man's sons₂ played with the players of their city."

13.10.2.1. Annexing duals and ūn sound plurals to pronouns

Duals and ūn sound plurals can be annexed to attached pronouns, and in this case too, they will lose their final ن. Examples:

مُعَلِّمُونَا طَيِّبُونَ.

"Our teachers_{3,m} are good."

لَعَبَتْ الْجَارِيَةُ مَعَ صَدِيقَتَيْهَا

"The girl played with her friends_{2,f}."

بَيْتَايَ كَبِيرَانِ.

"My houses₂ are big."

(Note that only the ي variant is allowed to be used because of بَيْتَا ending with a long vowel.)

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابِيَّ

(Note how قَرَأْتُ كِتَابِي + ي becomes كِتَابِيَّ.)

There are also two special cases in this category and we will examine them below:

Annexing an ūn sound plural to the singular speaker participant pronoun

When an ūn sound plural is annexed to the singular speaker participant pronoun, then again, only the ي variant can be used. However, in addition, the expression will appear the same regardless of the case of the annexed noun. So for all cases (u-case, a-case, and i-case), we will get:

مُعَلِّمِيَّ

We don't say × مُعَلِّمُوِي for the u-case. Examples:

مُعَلِّمِيَّ كَرَامٌ.

“My teachers_{3,m} are noble.”

(u-case)

سَأَلْتُ مُعَلِّمِي

“I asked my teachers_{3,m}.”

(a-case)

أَخَذْتُ كِتَابًا مِنْ مُعَلِّمِي

“I took a book from my teachers_{3,m}.”

(i-case)

Annexing an dual noun to a dual pronoun

When a dual noun is to be annexed to a dual pronoun, then the dual annexed noun is often converted to a plural. For example, instead of saying

نَظَرْتُ إِلَى رَأْسَيْهِمَا “I looked at their₂ heads₂.”

it is in fact, more common, to say

نَظَرْتُ إِلَى رُؤُوسِهِمَا “I looked at their₂ heads₃.”

Although the former is also correct. This is because the annexation of a dual to a dual is considered burdensome upon the tongue to utter, and so the plural is preferred.

13.11. Annexations with “and”

13.11.1. Multiple annexed nouns and one annexed-to noun

In English we can have an expression like “the pen and the book of the boy” = “the boy’s pen and book”. In this sentence there are two annexed nouns and one annexed-to noun.

In order to express this in Arabic, we will say:

قَلَمُ الْغُلَامِ وَكِتَابُهُ

qalamu -lghulamī wakitābuhu

“the boy’s pen and his book” = “the boy’s pen and book”

Note that the annexation is not broken by the insertion of *wa* “and”. Rather a second annexation is used and the two are separated by *wa* “and”. This is the preferred way of expressing such expressions.

There is another, less preferred way of expressing this. And this is by breaking the first annexation and inserting *wa* “and”:

قَلَمٌ وَكِتَابُ الْغُلَامِ

qalamu wakitābu -lghulamī

“the boy’s pen and book”

This second method is not considered as eloquent. Some even consider it incorrect. So we advise you to use the first method whenever possible.

13.11.1.1. With pronouns

If the annexed-to noun in the first annexation is replaced with a pronoun then only the first method is allowed. For example,

قَلَمُهُ وَكِتَابُهُ
qalamuhu wakitābuhu
 “his pen and his book”

13.11.2. One annexed noun and multiple annexed-to nouns

We can also have expressions like “the house of the boy and the girl”. In this sentence there is one annexed noun and two annexed-to nouns.

To express this in Arabic we will say:

بَيْتُ الْغُلَامِ وَالْجَارِيَةِ
baytu -lghulāmi wa-ljāriyati
 “the house of the boy and the girl”

Note that both الْغُلَامِ *alghulāmi* and الْجَارِيَةِ *aljāriyati* are in the i-case because they are both annexed-to nouns in the annexation.

13.11.2.1. With pronouns

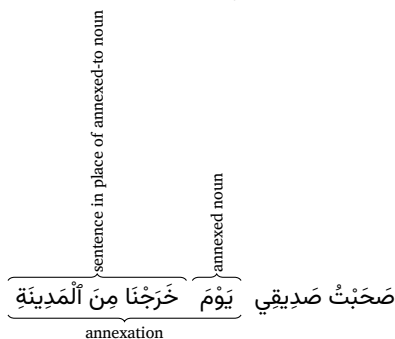
If one or both of the annexed-to nouns in the annexation is replaced with a pronoun then the first noun must be repeated. For example,

بَيْتُ الْغُلَامِ وَبَيْتُهَا
 “the boy’s house and her house”

بَيْتُهُ وَبَيْتُهَا
baytuhu wabaytuhā
 “his house and her house”

13.12. Annexation to a sentence

So far we have studied the annexation of an annexed noun to a annexed-to noun. It is also possible to have an annexation where the annexed-to noun is replaced by a sentence or a clause. For example,



“I accompanied my friend the day we left the city.”

The word يَوْمَ is the annexed noun and is used as an adverb or time. The entire sentence "صَحَبْتُ صَدِيقِي" occupies the place of the annexed-to noun. We

will study the adverb of time in chapter (give ref), if Allāh wills, where such annexations are common.

Annexation to a sentence also occurs besides adverbs.¹ For another example, see section (ref to idaafah to a **أَنْ يَفْعَلَ**).

13.13. Usage of the annexation

13.13.1. Primarily belonging

13.13.2. نحو، مثل، شبه

Don't become definite when annexed to pronoun

13.13.3. نفس “self”

صَرَبَا أَنْفُسَهُمَا
قَالَتْ لِي نَفْسِي

13.13.4. annexation of material

خَاتَمٌ ذَهَبٌ
خَاتَمٌ ذَهَبٌ
خَاتَمٌ مِنْ ذَهَبٍ

13.13.5. مَدِينَةُ دِمَشْقَ

13.13.6. مجرد ترفيه

¹https://ar.wikipedia.org/wiki/إليه/مضافا_إليه_الواقعة_مضافا_إليه

Chapter 14.

The numbers

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

14.1. Introduction

Arabic numbers are complicated and we will treat them more fully in chapter (give ref), if Allāh wills. For now, we will give a short preview of the numbers from one to ten.

14.2. The number one

The word for the number “one” is **وَاحِدٌ** *wāḥid*. It is an adjectival noun and can be used as a attribute. For example,

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابًا وَاحِدًا.

“I read one book.”

As usual, when the described noun is feminine, then the attribute too **وَاحِدَةٌ** is feminized:

أَكَلْتُ تَمْرَةً وَاحِدَةً.

“I ate one date.”

Often, as in English, using the number **وَاحِدٌ** “one” is optional. For example,

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابًا.

“I read a book.”

14.3. The number two

The number for “one” **وَاحِدٌ** is a singular noun. Correspondingly, the number for “two” **اِثْنَانِ** *ithnāni* is a dual noun. It too can be used as attribute. For example,

دَخَلَ رَجُلَانِ اِثْنَانِ.

dakhala rajulāni -ithnān

“Two men entered.”

In the the a-case and i-case, it becomes اِثْنَيْنِ *ithnayni*. For example,

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابَيْنِ اِثْنَيْنِ.
qara'tu kitābayni -ithnayn

"I read two books."

When feminized it becomes اِثْنَتَانِ *ithnatāni*. For example,

دَخَلَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ اِثْنَتَانِ وَأَكَلَتَا تَمْرَتَيْنِ اِثْنَتَيْنِ.
dakhala jāriyatāni -ithnatāni wa'akalatā tamratayni -ithnatayn.

"Two girls entered and ate two dates."

As with وَاَحَدٌ "one", the use of the number two is optional because its meaning is inherent in the dual. For example,

دَخَلَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ وَأَكَلَتَا تَمْرَتَيْنِ.
dakhala jāriyatāni wa'akalatā tamratayn.

"Two girls entered and ate two dates."

14.4. The numbers from three to ten

We saw that the number وَاَحَدٌ "one" is a singular noun, and that the number اِثْنَانِ *ithnāni* "two" is a dual noun.

So it should come as no surprise that the numbers three to ten are treated as plural nouns. (We say *treated as plurals* because they're not technically plurals. For example, they don't conform to the broken plural patterns. But let's not worry about that for now.)

Now, remember that ة is a feminine marker for singular nouns, but not for plural nouns. In fact, recall that there is almost a role reversal for ة in plural nouns, where it tends to occur for plurals of masculine nouns, and is missing for plurals of feminine nouns. For example, the plural of هَرَّةٌ "a male cat" is هَرَرَةٌ, and the plural of هِرَّةٌ "a female cat" is هَرَرٌ. We will now see this role reversal of ة in the numbers three to ten. When a number from 3–10 is used for a masculine noun then it shall have ة and when it is used for a feminine noun then it shall not have ة. Here then are the numbers from 3–10:

Number	Masculine	Feminine
three	ثَلَاثَةٌ	ثَلَاث
four	أَرْبَعَةٌ	أَرْبَع
five	خَمْسَةٌ	خَمْس
six	سِتَّةٌ	سِت
seven	سَبْعَةٌ	سَبْع
eight	ثَمَانِيَةٌ	ثَمَانِي
nine	تِسْعَةٌ	تِسْع
ten	عَشْرَةٌ	عَشْر

The number 10 is irregular in that the masculine number has a fat-ḥah on the عَشْرَةٌ (*ʿasharah*). Whereas the feminine number has a sukūn on the عَشْر (*ʿashr*).

Consistent with the numbers 1 and 2, the numbers from 3–10 may be used as attributes. But they are more often used as annexed nouns. As mentioned earlier, we will treat numbers more fully later, if Allāh wills. But here are some examples for now:

لِلْمَرْأَةِ ثَلَاثَةُ أَبْنَاءٍ وَأَرْبَعُ بَنَاتٍ.

lilmaraʿati thalāthatu ʾabnāʾin waʿarbaʿu banāt.

“The woman has three sons and four daughters.”

وَضَعْتُ عَشْرَةَ أَقْلَامٍ فِي عَشْرِ حَقِيبَاتٍ.

waḍaʿtu ʿasharata ʾaqlāmin fī ʿashri ḥaqibāt.

“I put ten pens in ten bags.”

The feminine number ثَمَانِي “eight” has a final weak letter ي. As we will learn in chapter (give ref), this final letter cannot take a kasrah or a ḍammah. For example,

أَكَلَتْ ثَمَانِي هِرَّةٍ ثَمَانِي كِسْرَاتٍ مِنَ اللَّحْمِ فِي ثَمَانِي سَاعَاتٍ.

ʾakalat thamāni hirarin thamāniya kisarātīn mina -llaḥmi fī thamāni sāʿāt.

“Eight cats_f ate eight pieces of meat in eight hours.”

Work in progress

Chapter 15.

Some irregular nouns

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

15.1. Introduction

There are some nouns in Arabic which are *irregular* and behave a little differently than other *regular* nouns. In this chapter we will study these irregular nouns.

15.2. The five nouns

There are five nouns in Arabic which are irregular in the same basic way. Collectively, they are called “the five nouns”. They behave a little differently from regular nouns in how they indicate their case.

15.2.1. أَبٌ *ab*, أَخٌ *akh*, and حَمٌّ *ham*

The first three nouns that we will talk about are:

- i. أَبٌ *ab* “a father” (root: أبو)
- ii. أَخٌ *akh* “a brother” (root: أخو)
- iii. حَمٌّ *ham* “a father-in-law” (root: حمو)

The final root letter of all three of these nouns is و. However, irregularly, it is omitted in most formations of the word. It does resurface in some cases as we will describe below.

Without the final root letter و, these nouns indicate their case like regular nouns. Here are some examples:

لِلجَارِيَةِ أَبٌ كَبِيرٌ وَأَخٌ صَغِيرٌ.
liljāriyati 'abun kabīrun wa'akhun ṣaḡhīr
“The girl has an old father and a young brother.”

صَرَبَ الْغُلَامُ أَخَا لَهُ.

ḍaraba -lghulāmu 'akhan lahu.

"The boy beat a brother of his."

الْحَمُّ وَالْأَبُ فِي بَيْتِ الْأَخ.

'alhamu wal'abu fi bayti -l'akh.

"The father-in-law and the father are in the brother's house."

Where the nouns behave irregularly is when they are an annexed noun in an annexation. Then instead of indicating their case with ُ, ِ, and ٍ, they indicate their case using the long vowels و, ا, and ي instead. Here are some examples:

هُوَ أَخُو الْجَارِيَةِ.

huwa 'akhu -ljāriyah

"He is the girl's brother."

سَأَلْتُ أَبَا صَدِيقِي عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

sa'altu 'abā ṣadiqī ʿan 'amr.

"I asked my friend's father about a matter."

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ خَمِي الرَّجُلِ.

dhahabtu 'ilā bayti ḥami -rrajul.

"I went to the man's father-in-law's house."

When these nouns are annexed to attached pronouns, then in most cases they will behave as above. So, for example,

أَبُوهُ

'abūhu

"his father" (u-case).

أَخَانَا

'akhānā

"our brother" (a-case).

However, if the attached pronoun is ي (for the singular speaker participant), then in that case, the attached pronoun ي attaches to the annexed noun directly, without any intervening long vowel:

أَخِي

'akhi

"my brother" (u-case, a-case, and i-case).

أَبِي

'abi

"my father" (u-case, a-case, and i-case).

خَمِي

ḥami

"my father-in-law" (u-case, a-case, and i-case).

Here are some more examples in sentences:

أَخُوهُ طَوِيلٌ وَأَخُوهَا قَصِيرٌ وَأَخِي كَبِيرٌ.

'akhūhu ṭawilun wa'akhūhā qaṣīrun wa'akhi kabir.

"His brother is tall and her brother is short and my brother is big."

سَأَلَ أَخَاهُمْ وَأَخَانَا.

sa'altu 'akhāhum wa'akhānā.

"I asked their_{m,3+} brother and our brother."

شَكَرَ أَخِي أَبِي.

shakara 'akhi 'abi.

"My brother thanked my father."

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ أَخِيهِنَّ.

dhahabtu 'ilā bayti 'akhihinn.

"I went to their_{f,3+} brother's house."

The above irregular behavior of these three nouns is only when they are annexed nouns. When they happen to be annexed-to nouns in annexations, then they again they behave like regular nouns and their case is indicated by the short vowel marks ُ, ِ, َ, when definite, and by tanwīn ٌ, ٍ, and ً, when indefinite. . Examples:

بَيْتُ الْأَخِ كَبِيرٌ.

baytu -l'akhi kabir.

"The brother's house is big."

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ أَخٍ.

dhahabtu 'ilā bayti 'akh.

"I went to a brother's house."

When these nouns form their duals and plurals, then the final root letter و is resurfaces. In forming the broken plural, the final root letter و, being a weak letter, sometimes converts to a ء. The following table shows their duals and plurals.

Word	Dual (u-case)	Dual (a-case and i-case)	Plural
أَب 'ab	أَبَوَانِ 'abawāni	أَبَوَيْنِ 'abawayni	آبَاءٌ 'ābā'
أَخ 'akh	أَخَوَانِ 'akhawāni	أَخَوَيْنِ 'akhawayni	إِخْوَانٌ 'ikhwah, 'ikhwān
حَم ham	حَمَوَانِ hamawāni	حَمَوَيْنِ hamawayni	أَحْمَاءٌ 'ahmā'

One special note regarding the dual أَبَوَانِ/أَبَوَيْنِ: in addition to meaning "two fathers", they can also mean "both parents", i.e., "a father and a mother". Here are examples of these words in sentences:

ذَهَبَ الْأَخَوَانِ إِلَى الْمَسْجِدِ.

dhahaba -l'akhawāni fi -l-masjidi.

"The brothers₂ went to the mosque."

سَأَلْتُ أَخَوَيَّ عَنْ أَمْرٍ

sa'altu 'akhawayya 'an 'amrin.

"I asked my brothers₂ about a matter."

شَكَرْتُ لِأَبَوَيْهِ

shakartu li'abayhi.

"I thanked his parents."

15.2.2. ذُو *dhū* and ذَات *dhāt*

The fourth irregular noun from “the five nouns” is the masculine noun ذُو *dhū* and its feminine counterpart ذَات *dhāt*. The words ذُو *dhū* and ذَات *dhāt* mean “owner of” or “possessor of”.

So, for example, ذُو *dhū* -*lmāl* means “possessor_m of wealth” or “wealthy person_m”. The singular, dual, and plural of ذُو *dhū* in all three cases is shown in the table below:

Case	Singular	Dual	Plural
u-case	ذُو <i>dhū</i>	ذَوَا <i>dhawā</i>	ذُؤُو <i>dhawū</i>
a-case	ذَا <i>dhā</i>	ذَوَيْ <i>dhaway</i>	ذَوِي <i>dhawī</i>
i-case	ذِي <i>dhī</i>	same as a-case	same as a-case

The noun ذُو *dhū* and its duals and plurals are only ever used as annexed nouns in annexations. Furthermore, they may not be annexed to pronouns. Here are some examples:

الرَّجُلُ ذُو *dhū* -*lmāl*.
ʾarrujulu dhū -lmāl.

“The man is the possessor of wealth.” = “This man is wealthy.”

The word ذَات *dhāt* is the feminine of ذُو *dhū*. When used as an annexed noun, its cases, duals, and plurals are as in the table below:

Case	Singular	Dual	Plural
u-case	ذَات <i>dhātu</i>	ذَوَاتَا <i>dhawātā</i>	ذَوَاتُ <i>dhawātu</i>
a-case	ذَات <i>dhāta</i>	ذَوَاتِي <i>dhawātay</i>	ذَوَاتِ <i>dhawāti</i>
i-case	ذَات <i>dhāti</i>	same as a-case	same as a-case

Examples:

هَذِهِ الشَّجَرَةُ ذَات *dhāt* ثَمَرٍ كَثِيرٍ.
hādhihi -shshajaratu dhātu thamarin kathīrin.

“This tree is the possessor of much fruit.” = “This tree is very fruitful.”

As opposed to ذُو *dhū* which is only an annexed noun, ذَات *dhāt* may be used a noun in its own right. In this case it means “personality” or “essence”. This usage is often found in theological or philosophical works. And, as such, unlike ذُو *dhū* which can’t be annexed to attached pronouns, ذَات *dhāt* can be annexed to attached pronouns. Examples:

15.2.3. فَم *fam*

The fifth of “the five nouns” is فَم *fam* “a mouth”. It is the most irregular of “the five nouns”.

In some ways, the word فَم *fam* is regular. It is only irregular when it is a singular annexed noun. Let's first see its regular behavior.

عَلَى الْوَجْهِ فَمٌ وَفِي الْقَمِّ لِسَانٌ.
εala -lwājhi fāmun wafi -lfami lisān

"On the face is a mouth, and in the mounth is a tongue."

It is a annexed-to noun in an annexation regularly:

نَطَقَ لِسَانُ الْقَمِّ.
naṭaqa lisānu -lfam.

"The mouth's tongue articulated [speech]."

It forms duals regularly, which are used in annexations regularly

فَمَا النَّهْرَيْنِ كَبِيرَانِ.
fama -nnahrayni kabirāni.

"The mouths₂ of the rivers₂ are big."

Let's now see its irregular behavior.

When فَم is a singular annexed noun, then it is usual for it to follow the example of the rest of the five nouns.

Here is how it will appear as a singular annexed noun in the three cases:

u-case	a-case	i-case
فُو <i>fū</i>	فَا <i>fā</i>	فِي <i>fi</i>

Examples of usage:

فُو النَّهْرِ كَبِيرٌ.
fu -nnahri kabir.

"The mouth of the river is big."

فُوهَا جَمِيلٌ.
fūhā jamil.

"Her mouth is beautiful."

فَتَحَ فَاؤُهُ.
fataḥa fāh.

"He opened his mouth."

جَعَلَتِ الْأُمُّ لُقْمَةً طَعَامٍ فِي فِي ابْنَتِهَا.
jaʿalati -lʾummu luqmata ṭaʿāmin fi fi -bnatihā.

"The mother put a morsel of food in her daughter's mouth."

When the attached pronoun for the speaking person ي is attached to فُو *fū*, فَ *fā*, or فِي *fi* the combination is always فَيَّ *fiyya* in all three cases. Examples:

فِيَّ مَفْتُوحٌ.
fiyya maftūh.

"My mouth is open."

فَتَحْتُ فِيَّ.
fataḥtu fiyy.

"I opened my mouth."

أَكَلْتُ بِفِيَّ.
ʾakaltu bifīyy.

"I ate with my mouth."

In addition to the above irregular behavior, it is permissible, but less common, to treat فَم regularly as an annexed noun in an annexation. So it is permissible to also say:

فَمُ النَّهْرِ كَبِيرٌ.

famu -nnahri kabīr.

“The river’s mouth is big.”

فَمِي مَفْتُوحٌ.

famī maftūhūn.

“My mouth is open.”

فَمُهَا جَمِيلٌ.

famuhā jamilūn.

“Her mouth is beautiful.”

فَتَحَ فَمُهُ.

fataha famahu.

“He opened his mouth.”

جَعَلَتْ أَلَامٌ لُقْمَةً طَعَامٍ فِي فَمِ ابْنَتِهَا.

ja'alati -l'ummu luqmata ṭaeāmin fī fami -bnatihā.

“The mother put a morsel of food in her daughter’s mouth.”

The other irregularity of فَم *fam* “a mouth” is that its broken plural is أَفْوَاهٌ *ʾafwāh*.

Note that the letter م has not been used to form the broken plural, and instead a و, and a ه are used to form it.

15.3. Other irregular nouns

There are more nouns that have irregularity in their own ways. We will discuss them below.

15.3.1. أُولُو *ʾulū* and أُولَات *ʾulāt*

أُولُو *ʾulū* (first syllable has a short vowel with a silent و) means “people_m of”. It is only used as a masculine plural annexed noun, similar in meaning to دَوُو *dhawū* which we discussed in section @ref(zu) above. There is no singular or dual of this noun.

Here is its form in the different cases:

u-case	a-and i-case
أُولُو <i>ʾulū</i>	أُولِي <i>ʾulī</i>

Example:

لِأُولِي الْأَرْحَامِ حُقُوقٌ.

liʾulī -lʾarḥāmī ḥuqūq.

“The people of the wombs (i.e. blood relatives) have rights.”

The feminine counterpart of *أُولُو* *ʾulū* is *أُولَات* *ʾulāt* “women of”. The first syllable again has a short vowel with a silent و.

u-case	a-and i-case
<i>أُولَاتُ</i> <i>ʾulātu</i>	<i>أُولَاتٍ</i> <i>ʾulāti</i>

لَأُولَاتِ الْخَمَلِ حُقُوقٌ عَلَى بُعُولَتِهِنَّ.
liʾulāti -lḥamli ḥuqūq ʿalā buʿūlatihinn.

“The women of pregnancy (i.e. pregnant women) have rights upon their husbands.”

15.3.2. *أُم* *ʾumm*

The noun *أُم* *ʾumm* “a mother” forms two *āt* sound plural variants:

i. *أُمّهَات* *ʾummahāt*

ii. *أُمّات* *ʾummāt*

The first variant *أُمّهَات* *ʾummahāt* is more commonly used. Example:

أُمَاهَاتُ الْغُلَمَانِ طَيِّبَاتُ.
ʾummahātu -lghilmāni ṭayyibāt.

“The boys’ mothers are good.”

15.3.3. *سَنَة* *sanah*

The noun *سَنَة* *sanah* “a year” forms both an *āt* sound plural and an *ūn* sound plural. (Remember from section @ref(applicability-of-the-un-sound-plural) that a few nouns that don’t denote male intelligent beings have *ūn* sound plurals.)

In both plurals, the singular noun is modified irregularly.

Singular	<i>āt</i> sound plural	<i>ūn</i> sound plural (u-case)	<i>ūn</i> sound plural (a-case and i-case)
<i>سَنَة</i> <i>sanah</i>	<i>سَنَوَات</i> <i>sanawāt</i>	<i>سِنُونُ</i> <i>sinūna</i>	<i>سِنِينَ</i> <i>sinīna</i>

Either of the two plurals may be used interchangeably. Here are some examples:

15.3.4. *مَاء* *māʾ*

مَاء *māʾ* “a water” forms its broken plural irregularly: *مِيَاه* *miyāh* “waters”.

15.3.5. شَفَاةٌ *shafah*

شَفَاةٌ *shafah* “a lip” forms its broken plural irregularly: شِفَاهٌ *shifāh* “lips”.

Also, despite ending in the feminine marker ة, it does not form an *āt* sound plural.

15.3.6. ابْنٌ *ibn*, ابْنَةٌ *ibnah*, and بِنْتُ *bint*

The noun ابْنٌ *ibn* “a son” is from the root بنو. It has two feminine counterparts:

i. ابْنَةٌ *ibnah*

ii. بِنْتُ *bint*

which mean “a daughter”.

ابْنٌ *ibn* “a son” forms both a broken plural and an *ūn* sound plural.

Its broken plural is أَبْنَاءٌ *abnā* “sons”.

In forming the *ūn* sound plural, the singular noun is modified irregularly:

Singular	<i>ūn</i> sound plural (u-case)	<i>ūn</i> sound plural (a-case and i-case)
ابْنٌ <i>ibn</i>	بَنُونَ <i>banūna</i>	بَنِينَ <i>banīna</i>

The feminine ابْنَةٌ and بِنْتُ “a daughter” form the irregular *āt* sound plural بَنَاتٌ *banāt* “daughters”. Note that بَنَاتٌ *banāt* is not a broken plural from the root بنت. Therefore, it obeys the rules of *āt* sound plurals and does not end with َ or ِ in the a-case.

Here are some examples using these nouns:

15.3.7. نَاسٌ *nās*, and أَنَاسٌ *unās*

نَاسٌ *nās* and أَنَاسٌ *unās* are from the root أنس. They both mean “a people”.

When indefinite, only أَنَاسٌ *unās* tends to be used, and نَاسٌ *nās* tends to be unused.

When definite, only أَلْنَّاسُ *annās* tends to be used, and أَلْأَنَاسُ *al'unās* is unused.

Here are some examples using these nouns:

15.3.8. The nouns إِمْرَأَةٌ and إِمْرَأٌ

The nouns إِمْرَأٌ *imra'* (masc.) “a man, a person” and إِمْرَأَةٌ *imra'ah* (fem.) “a woman” are quite irregular.

Firstly, إِمْرَأَةٌ *imra'ah* “a woman” is, from the perspective, of its meaning, the feminine counterpart of رَجُلٌ *rajul* “a man (male human being)”.

إِمْرَأٌ *imra'*, on the other hand, only means “a man” in a general sense. For example, in the sentence “A man is only as good as his word.” It can also be translated as “a person”.

Secondly, اِمْرًا 'imra' "a man, a person" has no plural. اُنَاسٌ/اُنَاسُ "a people" and قَوْمٌ "a population" may be used when a plural is required.

اِمْرَأَةً 'imra'ah "a woman" irregularly forms the broken plurals نِسَاءٌ *nisā'* and نِسْوَةٌ *niswah* "women". The former (نِسَاءٌ *nisā'*) is more commonly used.

Like شَفَّةٌ *shafah* it also, despite ending in the feminine marker ة, does not form an *āt* sound plural.

Thirdly, both nouns are very irregular in how they become definite nouns with اَلْ. When اَلْ is prefixed to these nouns to make them definite, they lose the initial connecting hamzah and change their internal vowels. This table shows what we mean:

Case	Definite of اِمْرًا 'imra'	Definite of اِمْرَأَةً 'imra'ah
u-case	اَلْمَرْءُ 'almar'u	اَلْمَرْأَةُ 'almar'atu
a-case	اَلْمَرْءَ 'almar'a	اَلْمَرْأَةَ 'almar'ata
i-case	اَلْمَرْءِ 'almar'i	اَلْمَرْأَةِ 'almar'ati

The masculine noun اِمْرًا 'imra' has an additional irregularity. When it is indefinite, it irregularly indicates its case, not only on its final letter ء, but also on the letter before it ر.

It is also permissible for it to behave regularly by indicating its case on its final letter only, but this is not as commonly used.

This table shows what we mean:

Case	Regular indefinite (less common)	Irregular indefinite (more common)
u-case	اِمْرًا 'imra'un	اِمْرُؤٌ 'imru'un
a-case	اِمْرَةً 'imra'an	اِمْرَةً 'imra'an
i-case	اِمْرًا 'imra'in	اِمْرِي 'imri'in

Here are some examples of these nouns:

Work in progress

Chapter 16.

The proper noun

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

16.1. Introduction

Proper nouns are also known as names. Here are some examples of Arabic names:

Men's names	Women's names
مُحَمَّد	عَائِشَة ²
سَعِيد	فَاطِمَة ²
الْحَسَن	حَفْصَة ²
النُّعْمَان	سُمَيَّة ²
طَلْحَة ²	جَمِيلَة ²
أَسَامَة ²	زَيْنَب ²
عُثْمَان ²	مَرْيَم ²
عُمَر ²	سُعَاد ²
إِبْرَاهِيم ²	أَسْمَاء ²
عَبْدُ اللَّهِ	لَيْلَى ²
أَبُو بَكْر	أُمُّ حَبِيبَة ²

Place names	Misc. names
مَكَّة ²	رَمَضَان ²
دِمَشْق ²	أُحُد
مِصْر ²	النَّيْل
الْقَاهِرَة	الْفَاتِحَة
الْهِنْد	الْجُمُعَة

Note the following points from the list above:

- Although some names begin with اَلْ, most don't.
- Many names are semi-flexible (indicated by ٢٠).
- Some names consist of more than a single word, like عَبْدُ اللَّهِ Eabd Allāh

We will explain these and more details regarding proper nouns in this chapter.

16.2. Definiteness of proper nouns

Proper nouns differ from common nouns and adjectival nouns in a couple of important ways:

- All proper nouns, even if they don't begin with اَلْ, are definite.
- A proper noun which does not begin with اَلْ, and which is fully-flexible, shall be tanwined, despite being definite.

The above points are exemplified in the following sentence:

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ مُحَمَّدٍ الْكَرِيمِ وَزَيْنَبَ الطَّيِّبَةِ.

d̥hahabtu 'ilā bayti muḥammadini -lkarīmi wazaynaba -ṭṭayyibah.

"I went to the house of the noble Muḥammad and the good Zaynab."

Note the above from the above example:

- مُحَمَّد is fully-flexible so it has a tanwined kasrah ِ in the i-case.
- زَيْنَب is semi-flexible so it is not tanwined, and instead has an fat-ḥah َ in the i-case.
- The proper nouns مُحَمَّد and زَيْنَب are attributees in descriptive noun phrases.
- Their attributes (الْكَرِيم and الطَّيِّبَةِ, respectively) have اَلْ to match the definiteness of the definite proper noun attributees. Furthermore, they both end with ِ because they match the i-case of their attributees.

16.3. Meanings of names

Many names are re-used from common nouns and adjectival nouns with positive meanings. Examples:

- مُحَمَّد Muḥammad "a highly praised one_m"
- سَعِيد Sa'īd "a happy (fortunate) one_m"
- الْحَسَن al-Ḥasan "the good one_m"
- طَلْحَة Ṭalḥah "an acacia (tree)"
- جَمِيلَة Jamīlah "a beautiful one_f"

It is possible for these names to sometimes (technically) cause a sentence to have an ambiguous meaning. For example,

جَلَسَ الْحَسَنُ مَعَ سَعِيدٍ.

jalsa -lhasanu ma'a sa'īd

“al-Ḥasan sat with Saʿīd.”

or

“The good one_m sat with a happy (fortunate) one_m.”

Context would tell us whether the proper noun or the common/adjectival noun meaning is intended.

Note however the following sentence:

ذَهَبَتْ جَمِيلَةٌ إِلَى الْبَيْتِ.

dhahabat jamilatu ʿila -lbayt.

This sentence can only be understood to use جَمِيلَةٌ with its proper noun meaning:

“Jamilah went to the house.”

This is because جَمِيلَةٌ is semi-flexible as a proper noun and fully-flexible as an adjectival noun or common noun. If جَمِيلَةٌ were intended to be used with its adjectival noun or common noun meaning then it would have a tanwīn dammah ٌ and the sentence would be:

ذَهَبَتْ جَمِيلَةٌ إِلَى الْبَيْتِ.

dhahabat jamilatun ʿila -lbayt.

“A beautiful one_f went to the house.”

We will learn why جَمِيلَةٌ is semi-flexible as a proper noun in section @ref(proper-nouns-ending-with-looped-ta) below.

16.4. Flexibility of proper nouns

In this section we will discuss the flexibility of proper nouns. For now, we will deal only with proper nouns that do not begin with أَلْ. In terms of their flexibility, proper nouns consist of two types:

- i. Fully-flexible proper nouns.
- ii. Semi-flexible proper nouns.

We will treat each of them below.

16.4.1. Fully-flexible proper nouns

For names that don't begin with أَلْ, the default assumption is that they are fully-flexible, unless they fall into one of the categories of semi-flexible nouns (which we will study soon).

Examples of fully-flexible names are:

مُحَمَّدٌ	Muḥammad	مُعَاذٌ	Muʿādh
نُوحٌ	Nūh	سَعْدٌ	Saʿd
شُعَيْبٌ	Shuʿayb	عَمَّارٌ	ʿammār
عَلِيٌّ	ʿAlī	حَسَّانٌ	Ḥassān
زَيْدٌ	Zayd	سَعِيدٌ	Saʿīd
أَنَسٌ	Anas	أُحُدٌ	Uḥud (a mountain)

These are all masculine names.

Examples of sentences with fully-flexible proper nouns:

زَيْدٌ غُلَامٌ طَيِّبٌ.

zaydun ḡhulāmun ṭayyib

“Zayd is a good boy.”

شَكَرَ أَنَسٌ عَلِيًّا.

shakara 'anasun ʿaliyyā.

“Anas thanked ʿAlī.”

لَبِيسَ سَعِيدٌ قَمِيصَ نُوحٍ الْأَخْضَرَ.

labisa saʿīdun qamiṣa nūḥini -lʾakhḡar.

“Saʿīd wore Nūḥ’s green shirt.”

16.4.2. Semi-flexible proper nouns

The rules for the semi-flexibility of proper nouns are a little different from the rules for the semi-flexibility of common nouns and adjectival nouns that we learned in chapter @ref(semi-flexible-nouns). Proper nouns shall be semi-flexible if they fall under one of the categories below. Note that the categories are not mutually exclusive. That is: some semi-flexible proper nouns will fall into more than one category.

16.4.2.1. Names ending with ة

All names ending with ة shall be semi-flexible. This rule is specific to proper nouns. We have already seen that common nouns and adjectival nouns that end with ة are fully-flexible.

Most such proper nouns are feminine names. Examples:

خَدِيجَةٌ ²	Khadijah	مَيْمُونَةٌ ²	Maymūnah
فَاطِمَةٌ ²	Faṭimah	صَفِيَّةٌ ²	Ṣafiyyah
عَائِشَةُ ²	ʿĀʾishah	خَوْلَةٌ ²	Khawlah
سُمَيَّةٌ ²	Sumayyah	جَمِيلَةٌ ²	Jamilah
حَفْصَةٌ ²	Ḥafṣah	آسِيَّةٌ ²	Āsiyah

However, some masculine names may end with ة too:

حَمْزَةٌ ²	Ḥamzah	مُعَاوِيَةٌ ²	Muʿāwiyah
أُسَامَةٌ ²	Usamah	عِكْرِمَةٌ ²	ʿIkrimah
طَلْحَةٌ ²	Ṭalḡah	عُبَادَةٌ ²	ʿUḡādah

Example:

طَلْحَةُ الطَّوِيلُ بَعْلُ جَمِيلَةَ الْكَرِيمَةِ.

“The tall Ṭalḡah is the husband of the generous Jamilah.”

16.4.2.2. Names ending with an extrinsic ء or ئ

Similar to common nouns and adjectival nouns, all names ending with an extrinsic ء or ئ shall be semi-flexible. These are usually feminine names. Examples:

أَسْمَاءٌ ²	Asmāʾ	لَيْلَى ²	Laylā
دَرْدَاءٌ ²	Dardāʾ	سَلْمَى ²	Salmā

Examples in sentences:

ذَهَبَتْ سَلْمَى إِلَى بَيْتِ أَسْمَاءَ.

“Salmā went to Asmā’s house.”

Sentence word order is usually pretty flexible. For stylistic reasons, it is permissible for a direct object to precede the doer. For example,

سَأَلَتْ دَرْدَاءُ أَسْمَاءَ.

“Asmā asked Dardā”

But because words that end with ئ never display any case, then for these words the sentence word order becomes more rigid. So the following sentence:

سَأَلَتْ لَيْلَى سَلْمَى.

would usually only mean “Laylā asked Salmā.”

16.4.2.3. Names ending with an extrinsic ان

All names ending with an extrinsic ان will be semi-flexible.

This is somewhat different from the rule we learnt for common noun and adjectival nouns in section @ref(adjectival noun-an-diptote). There only adjectival nouns of the pattern فَعْلَان and whose feminine was not formed by adding ة to it were considered semi-flexible nouns.

Examples:

عُثْمَانٌ ²	ʿUthmān	رَمَضَانٌ ²	Ramaḍān
سُفْيَانٌ ²	Sufyān	شُعْبَانٌ ²	Shaʿbān

Example:

جَلَسَ عُثْمَانُ مَعَ سُفْيَانَ فِي رَمَضَانَ.

“ʿUthmān sat with Sufyān in Ramaḍān.”

16.4.2.4. Names on the pattern أَفْعَل

All names on the pattern أَفْعَل shall be semi-flexible. Examples:

أَحْمَدٌ ²	Aḥmad	أَسْعَدٌ ²	Asead
-----------------------	-------	-----------------------	-------

16.4.2.5. Names of the pattern فُعَل

Names of the pattern فُعَل shall be semi-flexible. Examples:

عُمَرُ ²	ʿumar	مُصَرُّ ²	Muḍar
---------------------	-------	----------------------	-------

16.4.2.6. Names that are originally verbs

Names that are originally verbs are semi-flexible. Examples:

- يَزِيدُ² Yazīd “He increases”
- يَعْيشُ² Yaʿīsh “He lives”

Their origin as verbs will be apparent when we study muḍariʿ verbs.

16.4.2.7. Names of foreign origin

Names of foreign origin are generally semi-flexible. These include the names of angels, many of the previous prophets and messengers, and other persons. Examples:

جَبْرِيلُ ²	Jibrīl	زَكَرِيَّا ²	Zakariyyā
إِبْرَاهِيمُ ²	Ibrāhīm	يَحْيَى ²	Yahyā
إِسْمَاعِيلُ ²	Ismāʿīl	هَاجِرُ ²	Hājar
إِسْحَاقُ ²	Is-ḥāq	مَرْيَمُ ²	Maryam
يَعْقُوبُ ²	Yaʿqūb	يَأْجُوجُ ²	Yaʿjūj
يُوسُفُ ²	Yūsuf	مَأْجُوجُ ²	Maʿjūj
يُونُسُ ²	Yūnus	إِبْلِيسُ ²	Iblīs
إِدْرِيسُ ²	Idrīs	فِرْعَوْنُ ²	Pharoah
أَيُّوبُ ²	Ayyūb	هَرَقْلُ ²	Heraclius
مُوسَى ²	Mūsā	كِسْرَى ²	Chosroes
عِيسَى ²	ʿīsā	قَيْصَرُ ²	Caesar

Note that فِرْعَوْنُ² “Pharoah” as قَيْصَرُ² “Caesar”, despite being titles, are treated as proper names.

The only exception to this rule is a masculine name of foreign origin that comprises of only three letters, and whose middle letter has an sukūn. Such a name will be fully-flexible. Example:

- نُوحٌ³ Nūḥ

16.4.2.8. Feminine names

All feminine names, regardless of their origin, or their ending, shall be semi-flexible. We have already given examples of semi-flexible feminine names that end with ة, اء, and ى, so we will provide other examples here:

² زَيْنَب	Zaynab	² مَرْيَم	Maryam
² شُعَاد	Suʿād	² هَاجِر	Hājar

The only exception to this rule is a feminine name of native Arabic origin, that comprises of only three letters, and whose middle letter has an sukūn. Such a name is permitted to be optionally fully-flexible or semi-flexible. Examples:

- هِنْد Hind
- دَعْدَ Daʿd

Example of usage:

ذَهَبْتُ هِنْدٌ إِلَى بَيْتِ دَعْدٍ.

or

ذَهَبْتُ هِنْدٌ إِلَى بَيْتِ دَعْدٍ.

“Hind went to Daʿd’s house.

16.5. The name فُلَان

The fully-flexible name فُلَان is used as a place-holder name in casual conversations. It may be translated into English as “so-and-so”. For example,

ظَلَمَ الرَّجُلُ فُلَانًا وَعَدَرَ بِفُلَانٍ. “The man wronged so-and-so and he acted treacherously with so-and-so.”

For females, the name ²فُلَانَة is used.

صَدَقَتْ فُلَانَةٌ.

“So-and-so_f told the truth.”

16.6. Irregular spelling of the name عَمْرُو ʿamr

Irregularly, the fully-flexible name ʿamr is written with a unpronounced و at its end: عَمْرُو when in the u-case and i-case. In the a-case, the و is not added.

Name	u-case	a-case	i-case
ʿamr	عَمْرُو ʿamrun	عَمْرًا ʿamran	عَمْرٍو ʿamrin

Some have mentioned that this و was added in the spelling in order to distinguish it from the name ²عُمَرُ ʿumar, when written without vowel marks. Or it could be the remnant of an older (pre-Islāmic) practice of appending a final و to personal names.¹

¹Al-Jallad, “One wāw to rule them all: The origins and fate of wawation in Arabic and its orthography”

16.7. The Replacement

Before we proceed with our discussion on proper nouns, we will take a short digression to discuss a grammatical concept called the *replacement*. We will only give a short preview here and will treat it fully in chapter @ref(the-replacement-chapter).

A *replacement* is a word that follows another word, the *replacee*, and replaces it from the perspective of the grammar of the sentence. The replacement is put in the same case as the replacee. Here is an example of a sentence with a replacement and a replacee:

أَخَذَ الْغُلَامُ شَيْئًا كِتَابًا.

replacement
replacee

“The boy took something: a book”

In the above sentence, the word كِتَابًا “a book” is the replacement of شَيْئًا “something”. Therefore, it is put in the same a-case.

The replacement is frequently used with proper nouns. For example,

ذَهَبَ الْغُلَامُ إِلَى بَيْتِ عَمِّهِ عَلِيٍّ.

“The boy went to his uncle Eali’s house.”

In this sentence, the name عَلِيٍّ Eali is the replacement of the replacee عَمِّ “uncle”. Note, again, that the replacement comes after the replacee and matches it in case. However, the replacement does not need to come directly after the replacee. We can see that there is the pronoun ه “his” between them.

Here is another example:

سَأَلَ الطَّالِبُ مُعَاذُ الْمُعَلِّمِ سَعْدًا.

“The student Muʿādh asked the teacher Saʿd.”

16.8. Annexed names

So far we have only dealt with proper nouns that are single words. There are some proper nouns that may be formed from two words that are in an annexation. These belong to different categories:

16.8.1. “Slave of” names

Some names are formed by annexing the noun عَبْد *ʿabd* “a slave” to one of the names of Allāh. The most common of these names are:

- عَبْدُ اللَّهِ ʿabd Allāh “the Slave of Allāh”
- عَبْدُ الرَّحْمَنِ ʿabd al-Raḥmān “the Slave of the Most Merciful”

As usual, the annexed-to noun shall always be in the i-case. And the case of the annexed noun عَبْد is variable, depending on it’s function in the sentence. Example:

عَبْدُ اللَّهِ هُوَ أَخُو عَبْدِ الرَّحْمَنِ. “ʿabd Allāh is the brother of ʿabd al-Raḥmān.”

16.8.2. “Parent of” names

It is common to call a man, not by his own given name, but rather by calling him the father of one of his children, usually his first born son. For example, if a man named أَحْمَد “Aḥmad” had a son named زَيْد “Zayd”, he may be called أَبُو زَيْد Abū Zayd “Zayd’s father”. Example of usage in a sentence:

دَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ أَبِي زَيْدٍ.

“I went to Abū Zayd’s house.”

(Note how زَيْد has a tanwined kasrah ِ in the i-case because it is fully-flexible.)

While using the name of first-born son is more common, a daughter’s name could be used as well. Example,

سَأَلْتُ أَبَا رُقَيْيَةَ سُؤَالَ.

“I asked Abū Ruqayyah a question.”

(Note how رُقَيْيَةَ has an fatḥah َ in the i-case because it is semi-flexible.)

Women, too, are similarly called as the mother of one of their children. For example, the wife of the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him) ² أُمُّ حَبِيبَةَ Umm Ḥabībah was called thus because she had a daughter named حَبِيبَةَ ² from a previous marriage.

By the way, a person need not literally be a father or a mother to be called in such a way. These names may be applied as nicknames.

For example, the Companion of the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him) was called أَبُو هُرَيْرَةَ ² Abū Hurayrah because it is reported that he used to have a pet kitten (هُرَيْرَةَ). Here is an example of this name in a sentence.

أَبُو هُرَيْرَةَ صَحَابِيٌّ جَلِيلٌ.

“Abū Hurayrah is a great Companion.”

(Note how هُرَيْرَةَ is now considered a semi-flexible proper noun even though it may originally have been derived from the common noun “a kitten”).

Similarly, the Companion أَبُو بَكْرٍ Abū Bakr is not known to have a son named بَكْرٍ.

It is often the case that a “parent of” name overtakes the actual given name of person in popularity, and becomes the person’s name for all intents and purposes. Such is indeed the case for the Companions أَبُو بَكْرٍ Abū Bakr and أَبُو هُرَيْرَةَ ² Abū Hurayrah.

16.8.3. “Son of” names

In a manner similar to “parent of” names, a person may be referred to as the son of his parent. For example, the Companion عُمَرُ ² ʿUmar had a son named عَبْدُ اللَّهِ ʿabd Allāh. He is commonly known as ابْنُ عُمَرَ ² Ibn ʿUmar “ʿUmar’s son”.

Attributing a son to his father is most common. But attributing him to a mother or other ancestor is also possible.

Examples:

- the Companion عَمَّار was affectionately called ²ابْنُ سُمَيَّةِ Ibn Sumayyah “Sumayyah’s son” by the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him). His mother Sumayyah was an early martyr in Islām.
- the famous scholar كَثِيرُ بْنُ كَثِيرٍ Ibn Kathīr is referred to by his grandfather’s name كَثِيرٍ Kathīr.
- a human being is called ²ابْنُ آدَمَ based on his being a descendent of the first man, the Prophet Adam.

16.8.3.1. Full names

The full name of a person is formed by putting his given name first, and then his “son of” name after it as a replacement. Here is an example of a full name:

زَيْدُ بْنُ عَلِيٍّ

Zayd the son of ʿAlī

Note some peculiarities of the full name:

- The name زَيْد “Zayd” has lost its tanwīn.
- The word بْنُ “son” is not written with its initial connecting hamzah ʾ.

These peculiarities are only when forming a full name in this manner. Consider for example the following sentence:

زَيْدُ بْنُ عَلِيٍّ.

“Zayd is the son of ʿAlī.”

In the above example, the name زَيْد is tanwīned and ابْن is written with its connecting hamzah ʾ. Therefore this is not an expression of the full name in a replacee-replacement format. Rather, ابْنُ أَحْمَدَ here is the info of the sentence.

For women, the word بِنْتُ is used instead of ابْن.

Example:

قَرَأَتْ الْمُعَلِّمَةُ كِتَابَ الطَّالِبَةِ زَيْنَبِ بِنْتِ أَحْمَدَ.

“The teacher read the book of the student Zaynab the daughter of Aḥmad.”

The names of multiple forefathers may be strung together in this way separated by ابْن. For example:

إِسْمُ نَبِيِّنَا مُحَمَّدُ بْنُ عَبْدِ اللَّهِ بْنِ عَبْدِ الْمُطَّلِبِ.

“Our prophet’s name is Muḥammad the son of ʿabd Allāh the son of ʿabd al-Muṭṭalib.”

(Note that the second ابْن is in the i-case to match the case of the annexed noun عَبْدُ in عَبْدُ اللَّهِ.)

We will deal with complete full names in section @ref(complete-full-names) below.

16.8.4. Other annexed names

Other words besides عَبْد and ابْن may be used in annexed names too. Here are some examples:

- ذُو الْقَرْنَيْنِ Dhu l-Qarnayn “He of the two horns”

- مَدِينَةُ النَّبِيِّ *madīnatu -nnabiyyi* “The City of the Prophet”, frequently reduced to simply اَلْمَدِينَةُ “al-Madīnah”.

Context is used to infer whether by اَلْمَدِينَةُ is meant “al-Madīnah” or “the city”.

- اَمْرُؤُ الْقَيْسِ Imru’ al-Qays “The man of al-Qays”, a pre-Islāmic poet.

16.9. Names beginning with اَلْ

Most names do not begin with اَلْ. Some, however, do begin with اَلْ. Examples:

اَلْحَسَنُ	al-Ḥasan	اَلزُّبَيْرُ	al-Zubayr
اَلْحُسَيْنُ	al-Ḥusayn	اَلنُّعْمَانُ	al-Nuʿmān
اَلْعَبَّاسُ	al-ʿabbās	اَلْحَارِثُ	al-Ḥārith

If a proper noun begins with اَلْ then the question of its flexibility is mostly irrelevant. This is because noun beginning with اَلْ display their case fully, regardless of whether or not they are semi-flexible without the اَلْ. Examples:

اَلْحَسَنُ حَفِيدُ رَسُولِ اَللّٰهِ صَلَّى اَللّٰهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ.
 “al-Ḥasan is the grandson of the messenger of Allāh (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him).”
 (u-case displayed with ُ.)

سَأَلَ اَلرَّجُلُ اَلنُّعْمَانَ عَنْ اَمْرٍ.
 “The man asked al-Nuʿmān about a matter.”
 (a-case displayed with ِ.)

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ اَلنُّعْمَانِ.
 “I went to al-Nuʿmān’s house.”
 (i-case displayed with ِ.)

Names that begin with اَلْ can sometimes lose their initial اَلْ. Sometimes, this is systematic, as we will learn in section @ref(calling-names-with-al). Other times, it’s hard to tell why.

Conversely, names that don’t begin with اَلْ can sometimes gain it.

Examples:

- The name of the daughter of the Companion اَبُو اَلدَّرْدَاءِ Abu l-Dardāʾ is actually دَرْدَاءٌ² Dardāʾ, not اَلدَّرْدَاءُ.
- The son of the uncle of the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him) اَلْعَبَّاسُ al-ʿabbās is called اِبْنُ عَبَّاسٍ Ibn ʿabbās, not اِبْنُ اَلْعَبَّاسِ.

However, the son of اَلزُّبَيْرُ al-Zubayr is called اِبْنُ اَلزُّبَيْرِ Ibn al-Zubayr with the اَلْ.

16.10. Place names

Place names are generally feminine. Because of their feminine gender, those not beginning with **أَلْ** will be semi-flexible according to section @ref(feminine-names) above.

Examples of place names are:

² مَكَّة	Makkah	اَلْمَدِينَة	al-Madīnah
² دِمَشْق	Damascus	اَلْقَاهِرَة	Cairo
² بَغْدَاد	Baghdād	اَلْهِنْد	India
² مِصْر	Egypt	اَلصِّين	China
² فَارِس	Persia	اَلرُّوم	Rome
² تَبُوك	Tabūk	اَلْبَصْرَة	Baṣrah

Example of use:

ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلُ إِلَى مَكَّةَ اَلْمُكْرَمَةِ وَاَلْمَدِينَةِ اَلْمُنَوَّرَةِ.

“The man went to the ennobled Makkah and the illuminated al-Madīnah.”

While most place names are feminine, a few are masculine. Among these are:

اَلْيَمَن	Yemen	اَلشَّام	the Levant
اَلْعِرَاق	Iraq		

16.11. Names of tribes

Here are examples of names of tribes:

قُرَيْش	Quraysh	اَلْأَوْس	al-Aws
بَنُو تَمِيم	Banū Tamīm	اَلْخَزْرَج	al-Khazraj
² هَوَازِن	Hawāzin	بَنُو إِسْرَائِيل ²	Banū Isrāʾīl

Tribes are usually called by the name of their progenitor. For example, ²إِسْرَائِيل Isrāʾīl is a name of the Prophet ²يَعْقُوب Yaeqūb. The *ūn* sound plural ²بَنُونَ “sons/children” is annexed to the name ²إِسْرَائِيل Isrāʾīl to get the name of the tribe ²بَنُو إِسْرَائِيل Banū Isrāʾīl “the children of Isrāʾīl”. In the a-case and i-case, this becomes ²بَنِي إِسْرَائِيل Banī Isrāʾīl.

Not all tribe names have ²بَنُونَ “sons” annexed to them, but many do. And often it is optional to keep or drop the annexed ²بَنُونَ. Examples:

- قُرَيْش Quraysh usually does not have ²بَنُونَ annexed to it.
- ²بَنُو تَمِيم Banū Tamīm may optionally drop the annexed ²بَنُونَ and be called simply تَمِيم Tamīm.

16.11.1. Flexibility of tribe names

The flexibility of tribe names depends on the name. Here are some examples:

- ²إِسْرَائِيل Isrā'il is a name of foreign origin and is therefore semi-flexible.
Example:
بَعَثَ اللَّهُ مُوسَىٰ إِلَىٰ بَنِي إِسْرَائِيلَ.
“Allāh sent Mūsā to the children of Isrā'il.”
- قُرَيْشٌ Quraysh and تَمِيمٌ Tamīm are native Arabic masculine names and are therefore fully-flexible. Example:
قُرَيْشٌ وَبَنُو تَمِيمٍ قَبِيلَتَانِ.
“Quraysh and Banū Tamīm are tribes₂.”
- ²هَوَازِن Hawāzin is on the semi-flexible noun pattern ²فَعَاْف and is therefore semi-flexible.

16.11.2. Gender of tribe names

Tribe names are unusual in that they are treated as both singular feminine and plural masculine. If the tribe name is the doer of a verb then it is usually treated as singular feminine. Otherwise, for example, if it comes before the verb, then the plural masculine pronouns are used for it.

Example:

سَكَنَتْ قُرَيْشٌ مَكَّةَ وَعَبَدُوا الْأَصْنَامَ.
“Quraysh dwelled in Makkah and they worshipped idols.”

16.12. Titles

Titles are common nouns that denote a rank or position of a person. Titles in English include: Doctor, Mister, and King. For example:

- King David
- Mr. Smith
- Dr. Adams

Here are some examples of titles in Arabic:

النَّبِيُّ	Prophet	الإِمَامُ	Imām
الْمَلِكُ	King	الشَّيْخُ	Shaykh
الْأَمِيرُ	Commander	الْحَافِظُ	Hāfiḍh
الْقَاضِي	Judge	الْأُسْتَاذُ	Professor

Some Arabic titles are left untranslated in English like

- الإِمَامُ Imām (a leader)

- الشَّيْخُ Shaykh (a venerable man)
- الْحَافِظُ Ḥāfiḍh (one who has memorized, and preserved religious texts)

16.12.1. Titles as replacees

Titles are usually placed in front a proper noun and made definite with الَّ to match the proper noun. For example,

سَأَلَ رَجُلٌ الْإِمَامَ مَالِكًا عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

“A man asked Imām Mālik about a matter.”

In the above sentence, the title الْإِمَامُ Imām is a replacee and the name مَالِكًا Mālik is the replacement.

Some titles are formed from annexations. Examples:

خَلِيفَةُ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ	the Successor of the Messenger of Allāh	سَيْفُ اللَّهِ	the Sword of Allāh
أَمِيرُ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ	the Commander of the Believers	عِمَادُ الدِّينِ	the Pillar of the Faith
أُمُّ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ	the Mother of the Believers	صَلَاحُ الدِّينِ	the Righteousness of the Faith

Example:

أُمُّ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ عَائِشَةُ هِيَ ابْنَةُ خَلِيفَةِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ أَبِي بَكْرٍ.

“The Mother of the Believers ʿĀʾishah is the daughter of the Successor of the Messenger of Allāh Abū Bakr.”

16.12.2. Titles in annexations

Some prominent inanimate objects, like mountains, rivers, and cities, may have titles. For example:

- Mount Everest
- the river Nile
- the city of Damascus

In Arabic, the titles for these objects usually don’t occur as replacees as they do for persons. Rather, the title is annexed to the proper noun in an annexation. Examples:

جَبَلُ أُحُدٍ	Mount Uḥud	مَدِينَةُ دِمَشْقَ	the city of Damascus
نَهْرُ النَّيْلِ	the river Nile	شَهْرُ رَمَضَانَ	the month of Ramaḍān
يَوْمُ الْجُمُعَةِ	the day of Friday	سُورَةُ الْفَاتِحَةِ	the Sūrah of al-Fātiḥah

Example:

قَرَأَتِ الْجَارِيَةُ سُورَةَ الْفَاتِحَةِ فِي شَهْرِ رَمَضَانَ.
 “The girl read the Sūrah of al-Fātiḥah in the month of Ramaḍān.”

16.13. Nicknames

Nicknames are often given to people. They are usually descriptive of some physical quality or character trait of the person. For example, the Companion Abū Bakr was given the nickname الصَّدِيقُ “the steadfast affirmer of the truth”.

Nicknames usually come after a person’s name as a replacement.

أَبُو بَكْرٍ الصَّدِيقُ هُوَ خَلِيفَةُ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ.
 “Abū Bakr the steadfast affirmer of the truth is the successor of the messenger of Allāh.”

قَرَأَ سُلَيْمَانُ الْأَعْمَشُ الْقُرْآنَ.
 “Sulaymān the weak-sighted read the Qur’ān.”

16.14. The affiliate adjectival noun

The affiliate adjectival noun is a kind of adjectival noun that indicates an affiliation.

Here are some examples of affiliate adjectival nouns:

عِرَاقِيّ	an Iraqi	قُرَشِيّ	a Qurayshite
مَكِّيّ	a Makkan	تَمِيمِيّ	a Tamīmian
دِمَشْقِيّ	a Damascan	إِسْرَائِيلِيّ	an Isrā’īlite
شَافِعِيّ	a Shāfi‘ite	حَنَفِيّ	a Ḥanafī
مَالِكِيّ	a Mālikī	حَنْبَلِيّ	a Ḥanbalī

Note the following about affiliate adjectival nouns:

- Generally, the ending يّ -īyy is suffixed to a noun to create an affiliate adjectival noun.
- The ة ending is removed before adding the يّ -īyy suffix.
- Sometimes there are other internal changes to the word before this suffix is added. For example,

– قُرَيْشٍ becomes قُرَشِيّ

- The affiliate adjectival noun may be formed from any of the names of a person. (Usually, one of the more distinctive names is chosen.) For example:

– A follower of the school of thought of أَبِي حَنِيفَةَ Imām Abū Ḥanīfah is called حَنَفِيّ “a Ḥanafī”.

- A follower of the school of thought of حَنْبَلُ بْنُ أَحْمَدَ Imām Aḥmad ibn Ḥanbal is called حَنْبَلِيّ “a Ḥanbali”.

We will treat adjectival nouns more fully in chapter @ref(the-affiliate-adjective-chapter).

Affiliate adjectival nouns frequently occur with proper nouns. They come after the proper noun as a replacement, and are made definite by اَلْ to match the proper noun in definiteness. Examples:

أَبْنُ كَثِيرٍ الدَّمَشْقِيُّ مُفَسِّرٌ وَمُؤَرِّخٌ.

“Ibn Kathīr the Damascan is an exegete and a historian.”

16.15. Complete full names

We have already studied how a basic full name is formed in section @ref(full-names). Here, we will expand on that topic.

The complete full name of a person is formed by placing some or all of his different names in a particular order. Each name in the order is a replacement of one of the names before it. Generally, the order is:

- i. Titles
- ii. “Father of” name
- iii. Given name
- iv. “Son of” names
- v. Affiliate names

The nickname’s position is variable.

Here are some examples of full names in varying degrees of completeness:

عَائِشَةُ هِيَ ابْنَةُ خَلِيفَةِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ أَبِي بَكْرٍ الصَّدِيقِ.

“ʿĀʾishah is the daughter of the Successor of the Messenger of Allāh, Abū Bakr, the steadfast affirmer of the truth.”

قَتَلَ أَبُو لُؤْلُؤَةَ الْمَجُوسِيُّ أَمِيرَ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ أَبَا حَفْصٍ عُمَرَ بْنَ الْخَطَّابِ.

“Abū Lu’lu’ah, the Magian killed the Commander of the Believers, Abū Ḥaḥṣ, ʿUmar the son of al-Khaṭṭāb.”

الْحَافِظُ الْمُؤَرِّخُ الْمُفَسِّرُ عِمَادُ الدِّينِ أَبُو الْفِذَاءِ إِسْمَاعِيلُ بْنُ عُمَرَ بْنِ كَثِيرٍ الْقُرَشِيُّ الدَّمَشْقِيُّ الشَّافِعِيُّ

“The Ḥāfiḍh, the historian, the exegete, the Pillar of the Faith, the father of al-Fidāʾ, Ismāʾīl the son of ʿUmar the son of Kathīr, the Qurayshite, the Damascan, the Shāfiʿite”

(Note how the second بْنُ is in the i-case because it is a replacement of عُمَرُ which is in the i-case because it is an annexed-to noun of the first بْنُ.)

Chapter 17.

Calling out

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

17.1. Introduction

When calling out to someone in Arabic, the particle *yā* is usually prefixed to the person's name. For example,

اَلْسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا زَيْنَبُ.
'*assalāmu ʿalaykum yā zaynabu.*
“Peace be upon you, O Zaynab.”

There are different rules regarding the case endings of the noun following *yā* and we will describe them in the following sections.

17.2. Calling out to specific persons

17.2.1. Using single word personal names

When a specific person is called out to, and the name used to call him consists of a single word, then that word shall be in the u-case. The sentence above is an example of this rule where the name زَيْنَبُ *zaynabu* “Zaynab” is in the u-case.

If the word would be tanwined, then the tanwīn is dropped. So, for example, the name زَيْدٌ *zaydu* “Zayd” usually is tanwined. But when used for being called out to, the tanwīn is dropped and it becomes:

اَلْسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا زَيْدُ.
'*assalāmu ʿalaykum yā zaydu.*
“Peace be upon you, O Zayd.”

17.2.2. Using single word indefinite common nouns

The examples above show the person being called out to using a personal name. Instead of a personal name, a common noun can also be used with the same rule. Examples:

اَلْسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا غُلَامُ.
'assalāmu ḗalaykum yā ghulāmu.
"Peace be upon you, O you boy."

اَلْسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا جَارِيَّةً.
'assalāmu ḗalaykum yā jāriyatī.
"Peace be upon you, O you girl."

In English, we have shown that a specific person is being called using the word "you", e.g., "O you boy". Duals and plurals are also allowed, again with the same rule:

يَا رِجَالُ، قَدْ حَدَثَ أَمْرٌ.
yā rijālu qad ḥadatha 'amrun.
"O you men, a matter has occurred."

Note how the word رِجَالُ *rijālu* "men" is not tanwined because the word is used to call out to the specific persons.

Similarly,

يَا لَاعِبَانِ بَدَأْتُمَا اَللَّعِبَ وَمَا فَعَلْتُمَا اَلْعَمَلَ.
yā lā'ibāni bada'tuma -llā'iba wamā fa'altuma -l'eamal.
"O you players₂, you have started playing and you have not done the work."

17.2.3. Using single word definite common nouns

When using a common noun to call out to a person, especially if the common noun is a title, it is often desired to make the common noun definite with اَلْ. In this case, the particle يَا *yā* is modified to أَيُّهَا *'ayyuhā*, or sometimes يَا أَيُّهَا *yā 'ayyuhā*. Examples:

يَا أَيُّهَا اَلْأَسْتَاذُ، قَدْ فَعَلْتُ اَلْوَاجِبَ.
yā 'ayyuha -l'ustādhu, qad fa'altu -lwājiba
"O you the Professor, I have done the obligatory [work]."

أَنَا سَقِيمٌ أَيُّهَا اَلطَّبِيبُ.
'ana saqimūn, 'ayyuha -ṭṭabibū.
"I am ill, O you the Doctor."

If the person being called out to is feminine, then أَيُّهَا *'ayyuhā* is modified to أَيُّهَا *'ayyatuhā*. For example:

أَيُّهَا اَلْمُعَلِّمَةُ، هَذَا كِتَابِي.
'ayyatuha -lmueallimatu, hādḥā kitābi.
"O you the teacher_f, this is my book."

17.2.4. Using multiple words

The above discussion pertains to calling out to the addressed person with a single word. Often times a person's name may consist of multiple words. For example:

- عَبْدُ اللَّهِ
ʿabdu -llāhi
“ʿabd Allāh”
- أَبُو بَكْرٍ
ʾabū bakrīn
“Abū Bakr”
- صَلَاحُ الدِّينِ
ṣalāḥu -ddīni
“Salāḥ ad-Dīn”

In this case, then instead of the u-case, the word is put into the a-case. Furthermore, the tanwīn, if any, is preserved. Examples:

مَا عَرَفْتُ ذَٰلِكَ الرَّجُلَ، يَا عَبْدُ اللَّهِ.
mā ʿaraftu dhālika -rrajula, yā ʿabdu -llāhi.
“I have not recognized that man, O ʿabd Allāh.”

يَا أَبَا بَكْرٍ، أَنْتَ رَجُلٌ كَرِيمٌ.
yā ʾabā bakrīn, ʾanta rajulun karimun
“O Abū Bakr, You are a noble man.”

يَا صَلَاحُ الدِّينِ، صَبَرْتَ فَتَصْرَكَ اللَّهُ.
yā ṣalāḥa -ddīni, ṣabarta fanaṣaraka -llāhu.
“O Salāḥ ad-Dīn, you were patient so Allāh gave you victory.”

If, instead of a personal name, a noun phrase consisting of multiple words is used to call out to a person, then in this case as well, the first noun shall be in the a-case. Examples:

يَا أَمِيرَ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ، قَدْ حَضَرَ الْقَوْمُ.
yā ʾamīra -lmuʾminīna, qad ḥaḍara -lqawmu.
“O Commander of the Believers, the people are present.”

يَا ابْنَ أَخِي، قَدْ سَقَطَ قَلَمُكَ عَلَى الْأَرْضِ.
ya -bna ʾakḥī, qad saqaṭa qalamuka.
“O my nephew, your pen has fallen on the ground.”

يَا تَلَامِيذَ الْمَدْرَسَةِ، اَلْعِلْمُ أَمَانَةٌ.
yā talāmīdha -lmaḍrasati, -leilmu ʾamānatun.
“O pupils of the school, knowledge is a trust.”

When multiple words are used to call out to a person, the second word in the noun-chain may be a pronoun. Here too, the first noun shall be in the a-case. Examples:

يَا أَبَانَا
yā ʾabānā
“O our father”

17.3. Calling out to unspecified persons

All the discussion so far has pertained to calling out to specific persons. So for example, when you say,

يَا مُسْلِمُ، نَصْرُ اللَّهِ قَرِيبٌ.
yā muslimu, naṣru -llāhi qarībun.

“O you Muslim, the victory of Allāh is near.”

then you are addressing a specific Muslim, who is perhaps in front of you.

If an unspecified person or persons are being called out, then the word used to call out is put into the a-case. Furthermore, the tanwīn, if any, is preserved. So if you want to address any unspecified Muslim, you will say:

يَا مُسْلِمًا، نَصْرُ اللَّهِ قَرِيبٌ.
yā musliman, naṣru -llāhi qarībun.

“O [any] Muslim, the victory of Allāh is near.”

If multiple words are used, whether or not the person called out to is specific or unspecified, then too the first noun is put in the a-case.

يَا لَاعِبِي لُعْبٍ، الْوَقْتُ ثَمِينٌ.
yā lāʿibī lueabini, -lwaqtu ṭhamīnun.

“O [any] players of games, time is precious.”

17.4. Omitting يَا yā

When calling out to someone, it is permissible to omit the يَا yā, especially when the person being called is very near. So, instead of saying,

يَا زَيْدُ، سُؤْالُكَ جَيِّدٌ.
yā zaydu, suʾāluka jayyidun.

“O Zayd, your question is excellent.”

it is permissible to say:

زَيْدُ، سُؤْالُكَ جَيِّدٌ.
zaydu, suʾāluka jayyidun.

“Zayd, your question is excellent.”

Note that even when يَا yā is omitted the name زَيْدُ zaydu “Zayd” is in the u-case without any tanwīn.

This usage is especially common when supplicating to Allāh with the word رَبِّ rabbun “lord”, to emphasize the closeness of Allāh to the supplicator. For example,

رَبَّنَا لَكَ الْحَمْدُ.
rabbānā laka -lḥamdu.

“Our Lord, for you is [all] praise.”

17.5. Shortening the attached pronoun يَ ī “my”

When calling someone with the pronoun “my”, for example “O my people”, it is common to shorten the attached pronoun يَ ī “my” to an kasrah ِ. So while the following is permissible,

يَا قَوْمِي
yā qawmī

“O my people”

it is more common to say:

يَا قَوْمِ
yā qawmī

“O my people”

This usage is especially common when supplicating to Allāh with the phrase رَبِّ rabbi “my Lord”.

17.6. Calling out to Allāh by name

When calling out to Allāh by name, it is permissible to prefix the name Allāh with يَا. So we can say:

يَا اَللّٰهُ
yā ‘allāhu
“O Allāh”

Note that the word اَللّٰهُ ‘allāhu now has a regular hamzah ا instead of a connecting hamzah ٱ.

However, instead of saying يَا اَللّٰهُ yā ‘allāhu for “O Allāh”, it is in fact more common to use a special word:

اَللّٰهُمَّ
‘allāhumma
“O Allāh”

Examples:

اَللّٰهُمَّ اَنْتَ السَّلَامُ وَمِنْكَ السَّلَامُ.
‘allāhumma ‘anta -ssalāmu waminka -ssalāmu.

“O Allāh, You are Peace and from You is peace.”

اَللّٰهُمَّ اَنْتَ الصَّاحِبُ فِي السَّفَرِ.
‘allāhumma ‘anta -ṣṣāhibu fi -ssafari.

“O Allāh, You are the companion in the journey.”

Work in progress

Chapter 18.

The pointing nouns

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

18.1. Introduction

Consider the following expression:

this book
└──┬──┘
pointing noun pointed-to noun

The word “this” is what we will call a *pointing noun*. We call it this because we can imagine standing next to a book and pointing to it and saying “this book”.

The word “book” here is similarly called the *pointed-to noun*. It refers to the object being pointed to.

18.2. The pointing nouns in Arabic

There are two types of pointing nouns:

- i. Near pointing nouns: “this-one” (singular) and “these-ones” (dual and plural).
- ii. Far pointing nouns: “that-one” (singular) and “those-ones” (dual and plural).

The following are the pointing nouns in Arabic:

Participant	Case	Near pointing noun		Far pointing noun	
sing. masc.	all	هَذَا	this one _m	ذَلِكَ	that one _m
sing. fem.	all	هَذِهِ	this one _f	تِلْكَ	that one _f
dual masc.	u	هَذَانِ	these ones _{2,m}	ذَئِكَ	those ones _{2,m}
dual masc.	a,i	هَذَيْنِ	these ones _{2,m}	ذَيْنِكَ	those ones _{2,m}
dual fem.	u	هَاتَانِ	these ones _{2,f}	تَانِكَ	those ones _{2,f}
dual fem.	a,i	هَاتَيْنِ	these ones _{2,f}	تَيْنِكَ	those ones _{2,f}
plural	all	هَؤُلَاءِ	these ones ₃	أُولَئِكَ	those ones ₃

Note the following:

- Many of the pointing nouns contain small alif َ. For most of them, this is how they must be written. It would be incorrect to write هَذَا *hādḥā* as هَادَا.
- All the near pointing nouns begin with a ه. And all the far pointing nouns end with ك.
- The و in أُولَئِكَ *ulā'ika* is silent and not pronounced. That is, the first syllable has a short vowel *u*, not the long vowel *ū*.
- Most of the pointing nouns are rigid nouns. That is: their endings are not modified for their case.

The dual pointing nouns, however, are flexible nouns, for example: هَذَانِ (u-case) / هَذَيْنِ *hādḥayni* (a-case and i-case).

- The pointing nouns for the plural are the same for both masculine and feminine genders.

18.3. Definiteness of pointing nouns

The pointing nouns share some similarities with pronouns هُوَ، هِيَ، etc. Just like pronouns, pointing nouns, too, are definite nouns even though they don't have أل.

Remember, however, from section @ref(attributes-with-annexations-to-pronouns), that pronouns may not be attributees. Pointing nouns are different from pronouns in this regard. It is allowed to describe a pointing noun with a attribute in a noun phrase.

Both these facts will prove useful in the next section.

18.4. Pointing noun for plurals of non-intelligent beings

Consistent with how we have been dealing with the so far, , we can choose between the following pointing nouns for the plurals of non-intelligent beings:

	Near point- ing noun	Far pointing noun			
sing. fem.	all	هَذِهِ	this one _f	تِلْكَ	that one _f
plural	all	هَؤُلَاءِ	these ones ₃	أُولَئِكَ	those ones ₃

The singular feminine pointing noun is usually preferred, unless the plural pointing noun is needed to indicate that there is more than one. We will be giving examples throughout this chapter.

18.5. The pointing noun phrase

Remember from chapter @ref(adjectival nouns-and-descriptive-noun-phrases) that a descriptive noun-phrase consists of a attribute and a attributee. The attribute follows the attribute and matches it in definiteness, case, gender, and number.

Here is an example of a descriptive noun-phrase in a sentence.



“I read the small books.”

We will now see how this same descriptive noun-phrase can be used with pointing nouns.

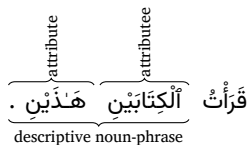
18.5.1. Pointing to a single noun

We will first deal with nouns that are single words, like الْكِتَابَيْنِ above. In section @ref(pointing-to-an-annexation) below, we will deal with nouns that are part of an annexation, like كِتَابِي الرَّجُلِ.

18.5.1.1. The pointed-to noun noun is definite with اَلْ

Just like an adjectival noun, a pointing noun can be a attribute in a noun-phrase. But remember from section @ref(definiteness-of-pointing nouns) above that

pointing nouns are definite. So, if a pointing noun is a attribute in a noun-phrase, the attributee has to be definite too. Example:



“I read these books.”

(literally: “I read the these-ones books.”)

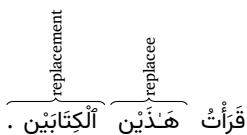
In the above example, the pointed-to noun *الْكِتَابَيْنِ* is the attributee in a descriptive noun-phrase. It is definite, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

The pointing noun *هَذَيْنِ* is its attribute. It follows the attributee and matches it being dual, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

As a special case, when the pointed-to noun has *أَلْ* (as in this case: *الْكِتَابَيْنِ*), then the order of the pointing noun and the pointed-to noun is permitted to be reversed.

The pointing noun is then a replacee (see section @ref(the-replacement)), and the pointed-to noun is its replacement.

Example:



“I read these books.”

(literally: “I read the books: these-ones.”)

In the above example, the pointing noun *هَذَيْنِ* is a replacee. It is definite, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

The pointed-to noun *الْكِتَابَيْنِ* is its replacement. It follows the replacee and matches it being dual, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

As a matter of fact, even though both orders are permitted, this reverse order of placing the pointing noun first and following it with the pointed-to noun is more common.

Here are some more examples of pointing noun phrases when the pointed-to noun is definite with *أَلْ*:

هَذَا الرَّجُلُ الْكَرِيمُ إِمَامٌ.

الرَّجُلُ الْكَرِيمُ هَذَا إِمَامٌ.

“This noble man is an imām.”

18.5.1.2. The pointed-to noun noun is a proper noun

Remember that proper nouns are definite nouns, even though they usually don't begin with *أَلْ*. For example:

زَيْد	Zayd	الْحَارِث	al-Hārith
زَيْنَب ²	Zaynab	قُرَيْش	Quraysh

Such names may also be part of a pointing noun phrase. If they don't begin with *أل* then only the [pointed-to noun noun first, then pointing noun] order is permitted. Example:

زَيْدٌ هَذَا أَخُو زَيْنَبَ تِلْكَ.

“This Zayd is that Zaynab's brother.”

قُرَيْشٌ هَؤُلَاءِ سَكَنُوا بِمَكَّةَ.

“These Quraysh dwelled in Makkah.”

If the name begins with *أل* then both orders are permitted.

هَذَا الْحَارِثُ

الْحَارِثُ هَذَا

“this al-Hārith”

18.5.2. Pointing to an annexation

Consider the following expression:

“the man's book”

We can apply the pointing noun “this” to either “the book” or to “the man” in a pointing noun phrase. So we have two options:

i. “the book of this man”

ii. “this book of the man”

Similarly, consider the following expression:

“Zayd's book”

We can, again, apply the pointing noun “this” to either “the book” or to “Zayd”:

i. “the book of this Zayd”

ii. “this book of Zayd”

In this section we will learn how to construct these pointing noun phrases in Arabic. Arabic uses annexations to express the above meanings. So we will discuss annexations like:

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ

“the book of the man”

and

كِتَابُ زَيْدٍ

“the book of Zayd”

Note that both the above annexations are definite because their annexed-to nouns are definite.

Indefinite annexations like كِتَابُ رَجُلٍ “a man's book” cannot be used in pointing noun phrases.

18.5.2.1. The definite annexed-to noun begins with اَنَّ

We will first consider annexations where the definite annexed-to noun begins with اَنَّ, like:

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ
“the book of the man”

18.5.2.1.1. Pointing to the annexed-to noun

We would like to express the phrase:

“the book of this man”

In order to point to the annexed-to noun اَلرَّجُلِ “the man” with the pointing noun هَـذَا “this-one_m”, we can put the pointing noun either before or after the annexed-to noun, thus:

كِتَابُ هَـذَا اَلرَّجُلِ
كِتَابُ اَلرَّجُلِ هَـذَا
“the book of this man”

Both these pointing noun phrases give the same meaning: “the book of this man”. However, the first phrase كِتَابُ هَـذَا اَلرَّجُلِ is preferred, consistent with what we learned in section @ref(phrase-single-pointed-to-noun-with-al), above.

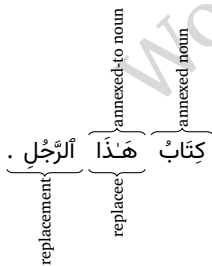
The second phrase كِتَابُ اَلرَّجُلِ هَـذَا, although correct, would only rarely be used with this meaning. (In fact, it has another meaning: “this book of the man” which we will learn in section @ref(pointing-to-the-annexe-noun), below.)

Here is how these phrases could be used in complete sentences:

كِتَابُ هَـذَا اَلرَّجُلِ جَدِيدٌ.
كِتَابُ اَلرَّجُلِ هَـذَا جَدِيدٌ.
“The book of this man is new.”

Before we give more examples, let’s analyze these phrases in detail.

Consider the first pointing noun phrase:



“the book of this man”
(literally: “the book of this-one: the man”)

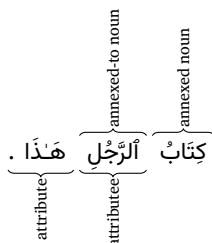
As you can see the pointing noun هَـذَا has taken the place of اَلرَّجُلِ as the annexed-to noun in the annexation. In addition to being the annexed-to noun, هَـذَا is also a replacee, whose replacement is اَلرَّجُلِ. The literal, word-for-word, translation of this phrase is:

“the book of this-one: the man”

The more natural translation is:

“the book of this man”

Consider, now, the second pointing noun phrase:



“the book of this man”

(literally: “the book of the this-one man”)

الرَّجُلِ, here, keeps its place as the annexed-to noun in the annexation. In addition to being the annexed-to noun, الرَّجُلِ is also a attributee, whose attribute is the pointing noun هَذَا. The literal, word-for-word, translation of this phrase is:

“the book of the this-one man”

The more natural translation is:

“the book of this man”

18.5.2.1.2. Pointing to the annexed noun

Consider, again, the annexation:

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ
“the book of the man”

We have already discussed how to point to the annexed-to noun الرَّجُلِ in a pointing noun phrase. Now, we would like to point to the annexed noun كِتَابُ in a pointing noun phrase.

In other words, we would like to express the meaning:

“this book of the man”

The way to express this in Arabic is

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ هَذَا
“this book of the man”

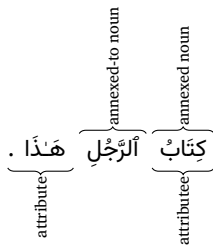
But wait! Didn’t we see in section @ref(pointing-to-the-base-noun) above that this expression has the meaning “the book of this man”?

It turns out that this expression supports both meanings.

But it will generally only be used for the meaning: “this book of the man”

In order to express “the book of this man” we will typically use the expression كِتَابُ هَذَا الرَّجُلِ.

Let’s analyze the expression كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ هَذَا “this book of the man” in detail:



“this book of the man”

(literally: “the this-one book of the man”)

كِتَابُ, here, is both an annexed noun and an attributee. Its attribute is the pointing noun هَذَا. The literal, word-for-word, translation of this phrase is:

“the this-one book of the man”

The more natural translation is:

“this book of the man”

Here is this pointing noun phrase in a complete sentence:

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ هَذَا أَخْضَرُ.

“This book of the man is green.”

Ambiguity of this phrase

A quick note about the ambiguity of this expression:

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلِ هَذَا

“this book of the man” (usual)

“the book of this man” (rare)

The ambiguity of whether the pointing noun هَذَا points to the annexed noun كِتَابُ or the annexed-to noun الرَّجُلِ only exists because the annexed noun and the annexed-to noun match each other in gender and number: singular masculine. If the annexed noun and the annexed-to noun were different in gender and number, then there would be no ambiguity. Examples:

كِتَابَا الرَّجُلِ هَذَانِ

“these books₂ of the man”

كِتَابُ الرَّجُلَيْنِ هَذَا

“this book of the men₂”

كِتَابُ الْمَرْأَةِ هَذَا

“this book of the woman”

كِتَابُ الْمَرْأَةِ هَذِهِ

“the book of this woman”

Here are some more examples of pointing to annexed nouns:

18.5.2.1.3. The annexed-to noun is a proper noun beginning with اَلْ

Consider the annexation:

كِتَابُ الزُّبَيْرِ

“the book of al-Zubayr”

We can apply the preceding discussion of pointing to the annexed noun and annexed-to noun to this annexation as well. So we get:

كِتَابُ هَذَا الرَّبِيِّ

“the book of this al-Zubayr”

كِتَابُ الرَّبِيِّ هَذَا

“this book of al-Zubayr” (usual)

“the book of this al-Zubayr” (rare)

18.5.2.2. The definite annexed-to noun does not begin with أَلْ

Consider, now, that the annexed-to noun is definite but does not begin with أَلْ. There are two such types of nouns that we will discuss:

- i. Proper nouns not beginning with أَلْ
- ii. Pronouns

18.5.2.2.1. The annexed-to noun is a proper noun not beginning with أَلْ

We will first deal with proper nouns that don’t begin with أَلْ. Consider the annexation:

كِتَابُ زَيْدٍ

“the book of Zayd”

Because the annexed-to noun زَيْدٍ does not begin with أَلْ, any pointing nouns can come only after the entire annexation, thus:

كِتَابُ زَيْدٍ هَذَا

In theory, this supports two meanings:

- i. “this book of Zayd”
- ii. “the book of this Zayd”

In practice, however, the first meaning (“this book of Zayd”) is much more likely. Pointing to a proper noun in a pointing noun phrase (“the book of this Zayd”) is uncommon, generally.

18.5.2.2.2. The annexed-to noun is a pronoun

We have learned, in section @ref(definiteness-of-pronouns), that pronouns are always definite, despite not beginning with أَلْ.

We have also learned, in section @ref(pronouns-as-base-nouns), that a pronoun may be a annexed-to noun in an annexation. Example:

كِتَابُهُ

“his book”

Neither the annexed noun كِتَاب, nor the attached pronoun هُ begin with أَلْ. So if we want to add the pointing noun هَذَا to this annexation to form a pointing noun phrase, then we have to place it at the end, after the annexation, thus:

كِتَابُهُ هَذَا

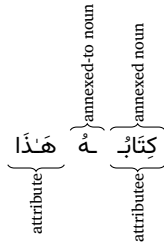
The pointing noun هَذَا, here, is a attributee. But what is its attribute?

We have also learned, in section @ref(attributes-with-annexations-to-pronouns) that pronouns may not be attributees in a descriptive noun phrase.

So, we are left with only one option: the annexed noun كِتَاب is the desceibee. And the meaning of the phrase is:

كِتَابُهُ هَذَا

“this book of his”



“this book of his”

Here are some more examples:

18.6. Pointing nouns as subjects

Besides their use in pointing noun phrases, pointing nouns are very often used as the subject of a sentence. For example:

هَذَا رَجُلٌ .

“This is a man.”

(literally: “This-one is a man.”)

The pointing noun is (usually) made to match the info in number and gender. Examples:

هَاتَانِ جَارِيَتَانِ .

“These are girls₂.”

أُولَئِكَ مُعَلِّمُونَ .

“Those are teachers.”

هَؤُلَاءِ أَقْلَامٌ .

“These are pens.”

تِلْكَ بُيُوتٌ .

“Those are houses.”

هَذَانِ صَغِيرَانِ .

“These are small ones₂.”

The info may be a single word (as above) or more complex (as below):

ذَلِكَ أَمِيرُ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ .

“That is the commander of the believers.”

أُولَئِكَ أَكَلْنَ الطَّعَامَ..
 “Those-ones ate_{3,f} the food.”

هَذَا ثَوْبُ رَجُلٍ..
 “This is a man’s garment.”

هَذِهِ كُتُبُهُ..
 “These are his books.”

هَذَانِ بَيْتَانِ كَبِيرَانِ..
 “These are big houses₂.”

If the info is a noun that begins with *أل* then it may be placed after the pointing noun subject in the same manner:

هَذَا الرَّجُلُ .
 info subject

“This is the man.”
 (literally: “This-one is the man.”)

While the this is permitted and correct, it may be sometimes confused with for the pointing noun phrase “this man”. So, in the same way that we learned in section @ref(chap-smp-sent-sec-def-info), we insert a detached pronoun between the subject and the info, thus:

هَذَا هُوَ الرَّجُلُ..
 “This is the man.”

Here are some more examples:

هَاتَانِ هُمَا الْجَارِيَتَانِ..
 “These are the girls₂.”

أُولَئِكَ هُمُ الْمُعَلِّمُونَ..
 “Those are the teachers.”

هَؤُلَاءِ هُنَّ الْأَقْلَامُ..
 “These are the pens.”

تِلْكَ هِيَ الْبُيُوتُ..
 “Those are the houses.”

هَذَانِ هُمُ الصَّغِيرَانِ..
 “These are the small ones₂.”

18.6.1. Mismatched pointing noun subject

When the pointing noun is a subject we usually match its number and gender with the number and gender of the info, as we have been doing so far. However, when the pointing noun subject refers to a noun in a previous sentence, then we may prefer to match to the previous noun than to the the following info. Example:

بَلَغَنَا خَبَرُ الْمَطَرِ عَلَى الْجِبَالِ. ذَلِكَ بُشْرَى لِلزَّرْعِ..
 “The news of the rain on the mountains has reached us. That is a good tiding for the sowers.”

Note that the second sentence's subject and info mismatch:

ذَلِكَ بُشْرَى

"That is a good tiding."

The info بُشْرَى "a good tiding" is a feminine noun but the subject ذَلِكَ is masculine. This is because ذَلِكَ is actually referring to خَبْر in the previous sentence which is a masculine noun.

18.7. Pointing nouns as other parts of speech

Besides their use in pointing noun phrases and as subjects, pointing nouns may be used as other parts of speech as well, typically where one would expect pronouns. Here are some examples:

أَخَذْتُ الْكِتَابَيْنِ مِنَ الْمَكْتَبَةِ. قَرَأْتُ هَذَا وَمَا قَرَأْتُ ذَلِكَ.

"I took the books₂ from the library. I read this one and I didn't read that one."

شَغَلَنِي الْعَمَلُ الصَّعْبُ وَمَا فَرَغْتُ مِنْ ذَلِكَ.

"The difficult work occupied me and I did not get done with that."

Chapter 19.

The u-case muḍārie verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

19.1. Introduction

So far, we have used the māḍī verb. Now we will start studying the *muḍārie* verb. The *muḍārie* verb has three cases, like nouns. Two of its cases match the cases of the nouns: the u-case and the a-case. Its third case is the $\emptyset$ -case. In this chapter we will study the u-case *muḍārie* verb.

19.2. Pattern for form 1

Using the root paradigm فَعَلَ, we have already seen that māḍī verbs for form 1 occur in the patterns فَعَلْ *faʿala*, فَعِلْ *faʿila*, and فَعُلْ *faʿula*. The patterns for form 1 *muḍārie* verbs are يَفْعَلْ *yafʿalu*, يَفْعِلْ *yafʿilu*, and يَفْعُلْ *yafʿulu*.

Note that the *muḍārie* verb forms add an extraneous يَ *ya-* to the beginning of the verb. This extra letter can change, as we will see soon, to the letters تَ *ta-*, نَ *na*, or اَ *a-* depending on the doer.

19.3. Vowel-mark on the middle root letter

We have seen that vowel on the middle root letter in a māḍī verb can vary depending on the verb. So we can have,

- كَتَبَ *kataba* “he wrote”
- عَمِلَ *ʿamila* “he worked”
- كَبُرَ *kabura* “he became big”

Similarly, the vowel on the middle letter in an *muḍārie* verb can also vary depending on the verb. Generally, this will need to be looked up in a dictionary and memorized. But there are the following rules which limit the variation:

1. If the māḍī verb has an fat-ḥah on the middle letter, the muḍāriʿ verb's middle letter can have either an fat-ḥah, kasrah, or an ḍammah, depending on the verb. For example,
 - كَتَبَ يَكْتُبُ *kataba yaktubu* “he wrote, he writes”
 - ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ *dhahaba yadh-habu* “he went, he goes”
 - كَشَفَ يَكْشِفُ *kashafa yakshifu* “he uncovered, he uncovers”
2. If the māḍī verb has an kasrah on the middle letter, the muḍāriʿ verb's middle letter will usually have an fat-ḥah. Rarely, for a few verbs, it may be an kasrah instead. For example,
 - عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ *ʿamila yaʿmalu* “he worked, he works”
 - حَسِبَ يَحْسِبُ *ḥasiba yaḥsibu* “he deemed, he deems”
3. If the māḍī verb has an ḍammah on the middle letter, the muḍāriʿ verb's middle letter shall have a ḍammah. For example,
 - كَبُرَ يَكْبُرُ *kabura yakburu* “he grew big, he grows big”

It is possible for some muḍāriʿ verbs to have more than option for the vowel mark on the middle letter. Both variants give the same meaning for the verb. For example, the māḍī verb حَسِبَ *ḥasiba* “he deemed” has as its incomplete-verb both يَحْسِبُ *yaḥsibu* and يَحْسَبُ *yaḥsabu*.

19.4. Verb case

As you know, nouns in Arabic have a case that is determined by the function of the noun in the sentence. For example, consider the following sentence:

سَأَلَ الْغُلَامُ الرَّجُلَ عَنْ شَيْءٍ.

sa'ala -lghulāmu -rrajula ʿan shay'in.

“The boy asked the man about something.”

In the above sentence, الْغُلَامُ *alghulāmu* is the doer of the verb so it is in the u-case and this is indicated by the ḍammah on its final letter. الرَّجُلُ *arrajula* is the direct doee of the verb so it is in the a-case and this is indicated by the fat-ḥah on its final letter. شَيْءٍ *shay'in* is directly preceded by a preposition so it is in the i-case and this is indicated by the tanwined kasrah ِ on its final letter. The ending of the māḍī verb سَأَلَ is not determined based on the function of the verb in the sentence, and therefore, it does not have any case. (Its ending can change depending on whether a pronoun is attached to it but this is not related to the function of the verb in the sentence and does not represent any case.)

As opposed to māḍī verbs, which don't have any case, muḍāriʿ verbs do have a case which is determined by the function of the verb in a sentence. Similar to nouns, the case of an muḍāriʿ verb is indicated by the vowel mark or suffix at the end of the verb.

Muḍāriʿ verbs have three cases, just like nouns. These cases are called:

- i. The u-case

- ii. The a-case
- iii. The $\emptyset$ -case

Two of the cases have their names in common with nouns: the u-case and the a-case. The $\emptyset$ -case is named differently.

The *ḍammah* on the final letter of *يَفْعَلُ* *yafʿalu* indicates that it is in the u-case. We will study only the u-case of *muḍāriʿ* verbs in this chapter. And we will study the a-case and $\emptyset$ -case in later chapters if Allāh wills.

19.5. With doer nouns

As with *māḍī* verbs, doer nouns are placed after the verb in sentence word order. However, the gender of the doer noun affects the beginning of the *muḍāriʿ* verb. If the doer noun is masculine, then the *muḍāriʿ* verb shall begin with *يَ ya-*. And if the doer noun is feminine, then the *muḍāriʿ* verb shall begin with *تَ ta-*. Examples:

يَكْتُبُ الْغُلَامُ فِي كِتَابِهِ.
yaktubu -lghulāmu fi kitābihi
 “The boy writes in his book.”

يَعْمَلُ الرَّجُلَانِ فِي الْمَدِينَةِ.
yaʿmalu -rrajulāni fi -lmadīnati.
 “The men_{dual.} work in the city.”

تَكْتُبُ الْجَارِيَةُ فِي كِتَابِهَا.
taktubu -ljarīyatu fi kitābihā.
 “The girl writes in her book.”

تَعْمَلُ النِّسَاءُ فِي بُيُوتِهِنَّ.
taʿmalu -nnisāʾu fi buyūtihinna.
 “The women work in their houses.”

19.6. With the direct doee

The direct doee (either as a noun or a pronoun) with *muḍāriʿ* verbs work exactly as with *māḍī* verbs.

يَسْأَلُ الْغُلَامُ الرَّجُلَ سُؤَالَ.
yasʿalu -lghulāmu -rrajula suʿālan.
 “The boy asks the man a question.”

يَسْأَلُهَا الْغُلَامُ سُؤَالَ.
yasʿaluha -lghulāmu suʿālan.
 “The boy asks her a question.”

19.7. With doer pronouns

When we studied māḍī verbs, we saw that doer pronouns are either visible or invisible. Visible doer pronouns are added to the end of the verb, modifying the end of the verb in the process.

The doer pronouns for muḍārie verbs are different from the doer pronouns for māḍī verbs. Muḍārie verbs' doer pronouns are also added to the end of the verb, but in addition to modifying the end of the verb, they modify the beginning of the verb as well. Furthermore, additional letters may be added after the doer pronoun to indicate the case of the verb.

We'll show what all this means in the table below of verbs with doer pronouns. Māḍī verbs are included as well so that you can contrast them with their muḍārie counterparts.

Person	Māḍī doer pronoun	Māḍī verb with doer pronoun	Muḍārie verb doer pronoun	Muḍārie verb with doer pronoun in the u-case
he	<i>invisible</i>	فَعَلَ faʿala	<i>invisible</i>	يَفْعَلُ yafʿalu
she	<i>invisible</i>	فَعَلَتْ faʿalat	<i>invisible</i>	تَفْعَلُ tafʿalu
you _{1,m}	تَ -ta	فَعَلْتَ faʿalta	<i>invisible</i>	تَفْعَلُ tafʿalu
you _{1,f}	تِ -ti	فَعَلْتِ faʿalti	يَ -ī	تَفْعَلِينَ tafʿalīna
I	أَ tu	فَعَلْتُ faʿaltu	<i>invisible</i>	أَفْعَلُ ʾafʿalu
they _{2,m}	أَ -ā	فَعَلُوا faʿalū	أَ -ā	يَفْعَلَانِ yafʿalāni
they _{2,f}	أَ -ā	فَعَلْنَ faʿalatā	أَ -ā	تَفْعَلَانِ tafʿalāni
you ₂	أَ -tumā	فَعَلْتُمَا faʿaltumā	أَ -ā	تَفْعَلَانِ tafʿalāni
they _{3+,m}	وَ -ū	فَعَلُوا faʿalū	وَ -ū	يَفْعَلُونَ yafʿalūna
they _{3+,f}	نَ -na	فَعَلْنَ faʿalna	نَ -na	يَفْعَلْنَ yafʿalna
you _{3+,m}	أَ -tumā	فَعَلْتُمْ faʿaltum	وَ -ū	تَفْعَلُونَ tafʿalūna
you _{3+,f}	نَ -tunna	فَعَلْتُنَّ faʿaltunna	نَ na	تَفْعَلْنَ tafʿalna
we	أَ nā	فَعَلْنَا faʿalnā	<i>invisible</i>	نَفْعَلُ nafʿalu

Note the following:

- The verb يَفْعَلُ is used both for “she” and “you_{2m}” doers. Only context will be able to help us differentiate between the two.
- In muḍārie verbs which have invisible doer pronouns, the u-case of the verb is indicated by the ḍammah ُ on the final letter of the verb.
- For muḍārie verbs that have أَ, وَ, or يَ as the doer pronoun, the u-case is indicated by an extraneous ن added to the end of the verb.
- And for the remaining muḍārie verbs whose doer pronoun is نَ, there is no indication of the case of the verb.

Here are some examples of the usage of the doer pronouns:

Remember that in Arabic, each verb must have its own doer, so when there are multiple verbs associated with the same doer, the first verb can be used with

the doer noun and the rest with doer pronouns. This is the same behavior as with māḍī verbs. For example:

يَجْلِسُ الرِّجَالُ وَيَأْكُلُونَ وَيَشْرَبُونَ.
yajlisu -rrijālu wa ya'kulūna wa yashrabūna.
 “The men sit and (they) eat and (they) drink.”

19.8. Future

The muḍārie verb is used to express both the present (habitual and progressive) and future tenses. Sometimes all meanings are meant in the same expression. And if only one of the meanings is intended, context can be sufficient to determine which is intended. So, for example,

يَذْهَبُ الرَّجُلُ
yadh-habu -rrajulu.

can mean, either one, or even all, of:

“The man goes.” or
 “The man is going.” or
 “The man will go.”

Arabic does provide a mechanism for specifying that the use of an muḍārie verb is solely to intend a future action. This is by means of the particles *sa-* and *sawfa* that can be placed before the verb. They provide a meaning of “will” or “will soon”. *sa-*, being a single letter particle, is attached to the verb.

For example,
 سَيَذْهَبُ الرَّجُلُ
sayadh-habu -rrajulu.

and

سَوْفَ يَذْهَبُ الرَّجُلُ
sawfa yadh-habu -rrajulu.

“The man will go.” or
 “Soon the man will go.”

The difference in usage of *sa-* and *sawfa* can be thought of as one of emphasis. *sawfa* is more emphatic than *sa-*. This emphasis can translate to more definiteness in the action or even that the action is farther in the future.

19.9. Negation

19.9.1. Negation using *mā*

As with māḍī verbs, muḍārie verbs too can be negated by placing the particle *mā* before them. This negates the meaning of the verb usually for the present tense. For example,

مَا يَذْهَبُ الرَّجُلُ
mā yadh-habu -rrajulu.

“The man does not go.” or,
 “The man is not going.”

19.9.2. Negation using لَا *lā* {U-case-verb-negation-la}

In addition to مَا *mā*, muḍāriʿ verbs can be negated using لَا *lā* in the same manner. In addition to negating the meaning of the verb for the present tense, it can also negate the meaning for the future tense.

لَا يَذْهَبُ الرَّجُلُ
lā yadh-habu -rrajulu.

“The man does not go.” or,
 “The man is not going.” or,
 “The man will not go.”

The particles سَ *sa-* and سَوْفَ *sawfa* may not be combined with مَا *mā* and لَا *lā* when negating verbs.

19.10. With قَدْ *qad*

TODO

When negating a muḍāriʿ verb preceded by قَدْ *qad* there is some question about whether قَدْ *qad* is retained or dropped, but the stronger opinion seems to be that it may be kept, as proven by the following verse of poetry:

وَقَدْ لَا تَعْدَمُ الْحَسَنَاءُ دَافًا
 “And [it] may be [that] the beautiful female does not lack a defect.”
 (دَافٌ *dāf* means “defect”).

Chapter 20.

The maṣḍar

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

20.1. Introduction

Every verb has a set of *verbal-nouns* derived from it that, despite being nouns, have a verbal meaning to them. One of these verbal-nouns is the *maṣḍar*, that we shall study in this chapter.

Consider the following form 1 verb:

Root	Māḍī verb	Muḍārie verb (u-case)	Maṣḍar
ذهب	ذَهَبَ “he went”	يَذْهَبُ “he goes”	ذَهَابٌ “going”

The maṣḍar associated with this verb is ذَهَابٌ *d̥hahāb*. It denotes “the action of going”, or simply “going”. In this section we shall learn how this and other verbal-nouns are used.

Before we proceed, we present a new method to present a verb and its meaning in this book. We will often give a new verb in the format:

ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ ذَهَابًا “to go”

The māḍī verb for the singular masculine absentee participant “he”, the corresponding muḍārie verb, and their maṣḍar are given together, in sequence. The maṣḍar is given in the a-case, because of a usage that we shall learn in a later chapter, if Allāh wills. This is how verb definitions are traditionally found in Arabic dictionaries. And the English meaning is given using the dictionary definition, in this case, the phrase: “to go”.

20.2. Patterns of the maṣḍar for form 1 verbs

The patterns of the maṣḍar for form 1 verbs are very variable. It is best to learn the maṣḍar when you learn a new verb. Having said that, there are some general trends which may be useful to keep in mind:

1. If the verb takes a direct doer, then the māḍī verb must necessarily be of the pattern فَعَلَ *faʿala* or فَعِلَ *faʿila* (because māḍī verbs of the pattern فُعِلَ *fuʿila* never take a direct doer). In this case:
 - a. The maṣḍar for many verbs, in general, tends to be فَعَلَ *faʿl*. Examples:
 - فَتَحَ يَفْتَحُ فَتْحًا “to open (هـ s.th.)”
 - أَخَذَ يَأْخُذُ أَخْذًا “to take (هـ s.th.)”
 - حَمِدَ يَحْمَدُ حَمْدًا “to praise (هـ s.o.)”
 2. If the verb does not take a direct doer, then:
 - a. If the māḍī verb is of the pattern فَعِلَ *faʿila*, then:
 - i. If the meaning of the verb does not fall under the cases ii., iii., and iv. (below), then the maṣḍar tends to be, in general, of the pattern فَعَلَ *faʿal*. Examples:
 - تَعَبَ يَتْعَبُ تَعَبًا “to become tired”
 - جَزَعَ يَجْزَعُ جَزَعًا “to be impatient”
 - أَسِفَ يَأْسِفُ أَسْفًا “to be sorrowful”
 - ii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes being a color, then the maṣḍar is usually of the pattern فُعِلَ *fuʿilah*. Examples:
 - خَضِرَ يَخْضَرُ خَضَرَةً “to be green”
 - سَمِرَ يَسْمَرُ سُمْرَةً “to be brown”
 - iii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes some work or effort, then the maṣḍar tends to be of the pattern فُعُولَ *fuʿūl*. Example:
 - قَدِمَ يَقْدِمُ قُدُومًا “to arrive”
 - iv. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes some static quality, then the maṣḍar tends to be of the pattern فُعُولَةٌ *fuʿūlah*. Example:
 - يَبَسَ يَبْئَسُ يَبْؤَسَةً “to be dry”
 - b. If the māḍī verb is of the pattern فَعَلَ *faʿala*, then:
 - i. If the meaning of the verb does not fall under the cases ii., iii., and iv. (below), then the maṣḍar tends to be, in general, of the pattern فُعُولَ *fuʿūl*. Examples:
 - قَعَدَ يَقْعُدُ قُعُودًا “to sit, stay back”
 - سَجَدَ يَسْجُدُ سُجُودًا “to prostrate down”
 - خَضَعَ يَخْضَعُ خُضُوعًا “to be humble”
 - ii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes an ailment, then the maṣḍar is usually of the pattern فُعَالَ *fuʿāl*. Examples:
 - سَعَلَ يَسْغَلُ سُعَالٌ “to cough”

- iii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes travelling, then the maṣḍar is usually of the pattern فَعِيل faʿīl. Examples:
 - رَحَلَ يَرْحُلُ رَحِيلاً “to depart”
- iv. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes a sound, then the maṣḍar is usually of the pattern فَعِيل faʿīl or فُعَال fuʿāl, or both. Examples:
 - صَرَخَ يَصْرُخُ صَرِيحًا وَصَرَاحًا “to scream”
3. If the verb denotes a craft or a profession or a rank, then the maṣḍar is often of the pattern فُعَالَة fuʿālāh. Examples:
 - تَجَرَ يَتَجَرُّ تِجَارَةً “to trade”
 - أَمَرَ يَأْمُرُ إِمَارَةً “to be a commander”
4. If the māḍī verb is of the pattern فَعَلَ faʿula, then the maṣḍar tends to be of the pattern فُعُولَة fuʿūlah or فَعَالَة faʿālāh. Examples:
 - صَعَبَ يَصْعَبُ صُعُوبَةً “to be difficult”
 - شَجَعَ يَشْجَعُ شَجَاعَةً “to be brave”

As mentioned earlier, these are only general trends and there are many verbs that have maṣḍars which don't fall under the above rules.

20.3. Usage of the maṣḍar

The maṣḍar has properties of a noun, like case and definiteness. But it gives the meaning of a verb. For example, consider the verb أَكَلَ يَأْكُلُ أَكْلًا “to eat”. We can use its maṣḍar in a sentence like this:

فَرَّغَ زَيْدٌ مِنَ الْأَكْلِ.
faragha zaydun mina -l'akli.
 “Zayd got done with eating.”

Note how the maṣḍar الْأَكْلُ 'al'akli gives the meaning of the action of the verb “eating”. But since it is a noun, it obeys the rules for nouns, like being in the i-case when preceded by the preposition مِنْ *min*.

Another point worth noting is that we have made it definite by saying الْأَكْلُ 'al'akli instead of saying أَكْلٌ 'aklin for the meaning of “eating”. This is because, as we explained in section @ref(usage-of-definite-and-indefinite-nouns), the definite noun is usually used in Arabic to give a general meaning, where in English we would not use “the”. This may be a good time to re-read that section.

Having said that, the indefinite maṣḍar may be used too, and this will give the meaning of “a certain”, or “a specific”. For example, with the verb عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ عَمَلًا “to work”, we can say:

فَرَّغَ مِنْ عَمَلٍ صَعْبٍ.
faragha min 'amalin ṣaʿbin.
 “He got done with a [certain] difficult work.”

20.4. Multiple maṣḍars for the same verb

It is possible, and fairly common, for verbs to have more than one maṣḍar. Usually, each of the maṣḍars has its own meaning, distinct from each other.

For example, the verb **حَمَلَ** *yaḥmil* means “to carry (هـ s.th.)” Here is an example of its maṣḍar in a sentence:

تَعَبَ زَيْدٌ مِنْ حَمَلِهِ لِلْكِتَابِ الثَّقِيلَةِ.
taʿiba zaydun min ḥamlīhi lilkutubi -ththaqīlati.

“Zayd became tired from his carrying the heavy books.”

There exists another meaning for this verb with its own maṣḍar: **حَمَلَ** *yaḥmil* which means “to launch an attack (عَلَى on s.o.)” Here is an example of its maṣḍar in a sentence:

دَهِشَ الْقَوْمُ مِنْ حَمَلَةِ الْعَدُوِّ عَلَيْهِمْ.
dahisha -lqawmu min ḥamlati -laduwwi ʿalayhim.

“The people were astonished at the attack launched by the enemy on them.”

Sometimes the meaning between the multiple maṣḍars is only slight. Consider, for example, the verb **جَهَلَ** *yajhul* “to not know, or to be ignorant (هـ of s.th.)”

It has two maṣḍars: **جَهْلٌ** *jahl* and **جَهَالَةٌ** *jahālah* which have meanings that are close to each other.

جَهْلٌ *jahl* is the more simple maṣḍar used for not knowing something. For example,

مَا فَعَلَ زَيْدٌ الْوَاجِبَ لِجَهْلِهِ إِيَّاهُ.
mā faʿala zaydunī -lwājiba lijahlihi ʿiyyāhu.

“Zayd did not do the obligatory [work] because of his not knowing it.”

جَهَالَةٌ *jahālah* has the more abstract meaning of “ignorance”. For example, نَفَرَ الْمُسْلِمُ مِنْ جَهَالَةِ الْمُشْرِكِينَ.

nafara -lmuslimu min jahālati -lmushrikina.

“The Muslim was repulsed by the ignorance of the pagans.”

As a general rule of thumb, the fewer letters in a maṣḍar, the simpler its meaning. And maṣḍars of the pattern **فَعَالَةٌ** *faʿālah* tend to have an abstract meaning.

Chapter 21.

Some nouns derived from the verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Or change title to “The deverbal nouns”?

21.1. Introduction

TODO

Introduce the seven مشتقات [from النحو الوافي 3/181]:

1. اسم الفاعل
2. اسم المفعول
3. الصفة المشبهة
4. أفعل التفضيل
5. اسم الزمان
6. اسم المكان
7. اسم الآلة

Maybe also the following, or move to maṣḍar chapter because they are not مشتقات:

1. اسم المرة
2. اسم الهيئة

Only briefly introduce their governing a doer and direct doee, if applicable. Will be covered in detail in later chapter if Allāh wills.

Work in progress

Chapter 22.

The a-case muḍāriʿ verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

22.1. Introduction

In chapter @ref(u-case-muḍāriʿ-verbs) we mentioned that muḍāriʿ verbs have three cases (like nouns). These cases are called:

- i. The u-case
- ii. The a-case
- iii. The ø-case

We introduced the u-case muḍāriʿ verb in chapter @ref(u-case-muḍāriʿ-verbs). In this chapter we will study the a-case muḍāriʿ verb.

The u-case muḍāriʿ verb makes a plain statement. The a-case muḍāriʿ verb implies a wish or purpose. The a-case muḍāriʿ verb is used after the following articles:

- أَنْ *ʾan*
- لَنْ *lan*
- لِ *li*
- كَيْ *kay*
- حَتَّى *hattā*
- إِذَنْ *ʾidhan*

We will go over these cases in this chapter.

22.2. Forming the a-case muḍāriʿ verb

Here is the u-case muḍāriʿ verb for the singular masculine absentee participant doer “he”:

يَفْعَلُ
yafʿalu
“he does”

Note that, because it is in the u-case, the its final letter ends with a ḍammah ُ. In order to form the a-case muḍāriʿ verb, we change the ḍammah into a fatḥah َ, thus:

يَفْعَلَا
yafʿala

This is done for all participants whose doer pronoun is invisible and u-case verb ends with a ḍammah ُ.

For participants whose doer pronoun is followed by an extra ن in the u-case verb, this final ن is dropped in order to form the a-case muḍāriʿ verb. So, for example, the u-case muḍāriʿ verb:

يَفْعَلَانِ
yafʿalāni
“they_{2,m} do”

becomes, for the a-case:

يَفْعَلَا
yafʿalā

Here is the complete table of the a-case muḍāriʿ verb for all doer participants.

Participant	Muḍāriʿ verb doer pronoun	u-case muḍāriʿ verb	a-case muḍāriʿ verb
he	<i>invisible</i>	يَفْعَلُ	يَفْعَلُ
she	<i>invisible</i>	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلُ
you _{1m}	<i>invisible</i>	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلُ
you _{1f}	ي	تَفْعَلِينَ	تَفْعَلِي
I	<i>invisible</i>	أَفْعَلُ	أَفْعَلُ
they _{2m}	ا	يَفْعَلَانِ	يَفْعَلَا
they _{2f}	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
you ₂	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
they _{3m}	9	يَفْعَلُونَ	يَفْعَلُوا
they _{3f}	نَ	يَفْعَلْنَ	يَفْعَلْنَ (same)
you _{3m}	9	تَفْعَلُونَ	تَفْعَلُوا
you _{3f}	نَ	تَفْعَلْنَ	تَفْعَلْنَ (same)
we	<i>invisible</i>	نَفْعَلُ	نَفْعَلُ

Take note the following:

- The u-case and a-case verbs are the same for the feminine plural absentee and addressee participants:
 - يَفْعَلْنَ (they_{3f})
 - تَفْعَلْنَ (you_{3f})
- The a-case verbs for the masculine plural absentee and addressee participants have a final silent alif:

- يَفْعَلُوا (they_{3m})
- تَفْعَلُوا (you_{3m})

22.3. After اَنَّ 'an

اَنَّ 'an “that” is the main article which causes the following muḍāriʿ verb to be in the a-case. The other articles that we listed in the introduction are all either derived from اَنَّ or include its meaning implicitly without expressing it.

22.3.1. Basic usage of اَنَّ 'an with the a-case muḍāriʿ verb

اَنَّ often follows verbs that have a meaning of wishing or hoping. For example,

أَمَلَ الطَّالِبُ أَنْ يَنْجَحَ.
'amala -ṭṭālibu 'an yanjaḥ.

“The student hoped that he succeed.”

لَا can be used to negate the following a-case muḍāriʿ verb. لَا combines with اَنَّ and assimilates with it to form أَلَّا 'allā “that not”. For example,

أَمَرَ الْأَبُ الْابْنَ أَلَّا يَكْسَلَ.
'amara -l'abu li-bna 'allā yaksal.

“The father ordered the son that he not be lazy.”

Other than this لَا, اَنَّ must directly precede the following a-case muḍāriʿ verb and must not be separated from it.

22.3.2. Grammatical equivalence of اَنَّ clause with a maṣḍar

In grammatical theory, اَنَّ and the following verb form a clause that is equivalent in meaning to the maṣḍar of the verb. So in the example, أَمَلَ الطَّالِبُ أَنْ يَنْجَحَ, the اَنَّ clause is أَنْ يَنْجَحَ. It is equivalent to the maṣḍar النِّجَاح. So the sentence is grammatically equivalent to

أَمَلَ الطَّالِبُ النِّجَاحَ.
'amala -ṭṭālibu -nnajāḥ.

“The student hoped [for] success.”

This grammatical equivalence of the اَنَّ clause with a noun allows the اَنَّ clause to take the place of a noun in various positions in a sentence. So, in the above example, the اَنَّ clause is in place of the direct doer of the verb أَمَلَ:

أَمَلَ الطَّالِبُ أَنْ يَنْجَحَ.
direct doer

“The student hoped that he succeed.”

We show other examples below where the اَنَّ clause occurs in place of other noun positions.

As the subject:

أَنْ تَنْجَحَ هُوَ الْمَقْصِدُ .
subject

“That you succeed is the purpose.”

which is grammatically equivalent to: نَجَاخَكَ هُوَ الْمَقْصِدُ.

As the info:

أَلْمَقْصِدُ أَنْ تَنْجَحَ .
info

“The purpose is that you succeed.”

which is grammatically equivalent to: أَلْمَقْصِدُ نَجَاخَكَ.

As a doer noun:

يَحْزُنُنِي أَنْ يَذْهَبَ .
doer

“That he [should] go saddens me.”

which is grammatically equivalent to: يَحْزُنُنِي ذَهَابُهُ.

In the i-case the annexed-to noun in an annexation:

سَكَتَتْ مِنْ خَشْيَةِ أَنْ يَغْضَبَ عَلَيْهَا .
i-case annexed-to noun

“She stayed quiet from fear of that he be angry at her.”

which is grammatically equivalent to: سَكَتَتْ مِنْ خَشْيَةِ غَضَبِهِ عَلَيْهَا.

In the i-case after a preposition:

رَغِبَ الْغُلَامُ فِي أَنْ يَأْكُلَ الطَّعَامَ .
i-case after preposition

“The boy desired that he eat the food.”

which is grammatically equivalent to: رَغِبَ الْغُلَامُ فِي أَكْلِ الطَّعَامِ.

22.3.3. Option to drop the preposition before أَنْ

In the above example the verb يَرْغِبُ takes an indirect doer after the preposition فِي. In such cases, where the أَنْ clause occurs after a preposition, it is common to drop the preposition as long as there is not resulting confusion in meaning. So, we can also say (without the preposition فِي) for the same meaning:

رَغِبَ الْغُلَامُ أَنْ يَأْكُلَ الطَّعَامَ.

“The boy desired that he eat the food.”

22.3.4. أَنْ meaning “lest”

Occasionally, أَنْ is used with the meaning “lest”. For example:

قَتَلْتُ السَّعْبَانَ أَنْ يَقْتُلْنِي.

“I killed the serpent lest it kill me.”

22.3.5. أَنْ with the māḍī verb

أَنْ may also occur before a māḍī verb. Example:

بَلَغَنِي أَنْ رَجَعْتَ.

“That you have returned has reached me.”

22.3.6. Other types of أَنْ

There are other types of أَنْ in the Arabic language. They all have the basic meaning “that”. But they are used in different grammatical ways.

The أَنْ we have learned here is called the *maṣḍari* أَنْ because of the equivalence of its clause with a maṣḍar.

There is also another type of أَنْ called the *lightened* أَنْ that we will learn in section @ref(lightened-an).

There is also the *explanatory* أَنْ and the *extra* أَنْ that we will cover in chapter @ref(types-of-an).

22.4. After ل li

22.4.1. The ل of purpose

The article أَنْ may be attached to the preposition ل li thus: لِأَنْ *liʾan* to give the purpose of the following verb. This ل may be translated as “so that”. For example:

أَكَلَ لِأَنْ يَشْبَعَ.

“He ate so that he be sated.”

When ل is thus used, أَنْ is optionally allowed to be dropped while its meaning is retained. ل is then attached to the verb. So we can say, for the same meaning:

أَكَلَ لِيَشْبَعَ.

“He ate so that he be sated.”

But when using لَا to negate the verb, then أَنْ must be expressed, and the combination of ل, أَنْ, and لَا is written as لِئَلَّا *liʾallā*. For example,

شَرِبَ الْمَاءَ لِئَلَّا يَعْطَشَ.

“He drank the water so that he not be thirsty.”

By the way, the grammatical equivalence of أَنْ and a following a-case muḍārie verb with a maṣḍar applies also to when ل is used before (either an expressed or an implied) أَنْ. So, for example, if we have a sentence:

قَرَأَ الْكِتَابَ لِيَعْلَمَ مَفْهُومَهُ.

or

قَرَأَ الْكِتَابَ لِأَنْ يَعْلَمَ مَفْهُومَهُ.

“He read the book so that he know its meaning.”

Then, grammatically, أَنْ and what follows it may be expressed with the maṣḍar عَلِمَ thus:

قَرَأَ الْكِتَابَ لِعِلْمٍ مَفْهُومِهِ.

“He read the book for the knowledge of its meaning.”

22.4.2. The ل of denial

There is a specific ل, called the ل of denial, which is used with a-case muḍārie verbs and the verb كَان that we will discuss in section (TODO in كَان chapter).

22.5. After كَي kay

كَي kay is a preposition similar to ل in meaning. It may be translated as “in order that”, or also as “so that”. It is also used before the a-case muḍārie verb. The difference from ل is that, when ل is used with the a-case muḍārie verb, expressing or dropping the أَنْ was optional. But with كَي, dropping the أَنْ is mandatory, while its meaning is retained. For example:

أَكَلَ كَي يَشْبَعَ.

“He ate in order that he be sated.”

لَا is used, as usual, to negate the verb and is attached to كَي thus: كَيْلَا kaylā.

Example:

شَرَبَ الْمَاءَ كَيْلَا يَعْطَشَ.

“He drank the water in order that he not be thirsty.”

The preposition ل may be combined with كَي thus: لِكَي likay, for more or less the same meaning. For example:

أَكَلَ لِكَي يَشْبَعَ.

“He ate in order that he be sated.”

With لَا the whole combination is written as لِكَيْلَا likaylā. أَنْ must again be not be expressed.

Example:

شَرَبَ الْمَاءَ لِكَيْلَا يَعْطَشَ.

“He drank the water in order that he not be thirsty.”

By the way, كَي and a following a-case muḍārie verb are not *directly* replaced by a maṣdar. So, for example, if we have a sentence:

قَرَأَ الْكِتَابَ كَي يَعْلَمَ مَفْهُومَهُ.

“He read the book in order that he know its meaning.”

Then ل is to be used in place of كَي if we wish to replace it and what follows with the maṣdar عِلْم thus:

قَرَأَ الْكِتَابَ لِعِلْمٍ مَفْهُومِهِ.

“He read the book for the knowledge of its meaning.”

22.6. After حَتَّى hattā

حَتَّى hattā is a particle that can be used in multiple ways. Its basic meaning is “until” or “to the point of” or “even” where it indicates an extreme limit.

Before we discuss its use with a verb following it, we will take a short digression to discuss its use with a following noun.

22.6.1. حَتَّى ḥattā with a following noun

Consider the following sentence:

أَكَلْتُ السَّمَكَةَ حَتَّى رَأْسِهَا.

“I ate the fish until its head.”

حَتَّى “until”, here, is used as a preposition. Therefore, رَأْس is in the i-case, as the noun following a preposition. The meaning of the sentence is that the fish was eaten all the way to its head. (Whether the head itself was eaten or not is ambiguous. The sentence itself admits both meanings.)

Consider now a variant of this sentence:

أَكَلْتُ السَّمَكَةَ حَتَّى رَأْسِهَا.

“I ate the fish, even its head.”

رَأْس, here, is in the a-case because it is a direct doer of the verb أَكَل “ate”. The particle حَتَّى “even”, here, is only a connector between the direct doers in much the same way as وَ “and”. (أَكَلْتُ السَّمَكَةَ وَرَأْسِهَا. “I ate the fish and its head.”)

Consider now yet another variant of this sentence:

أَكَلْتُ السَّمَكَةَ. حَتَّى رَأْسِهَا [أَكَلْتُهَا].

“I ate the fish. Even its head [I ate].”

Now رَأْس is in the u-case because it is actually the subject of a new sentence, whose info is (an either expressed or implied) أَكَلْتُهَا “I ate it”. حَتَّى, here, serves as an introductory particle to the second subject and does not affect the case of the following noun.

22.6.2. حَتَّى ḥattā with a following verb

Just as حَتَّى is used for different purposes with a following noun, so too is it used with different purposes with a verb following it.

22.6.2.1. حَتَّى with a following a-case muḍāriʿ verb

When حَتَّى is used with an expectation or purpose of a future action of the verb following it, then the verb following it is an a-case muḍāriʿ verb. This is done in the following two scenarios:

1. When حَتَّى is used to indicate an extreme point at which the action of the following verb would occur, or is meant to occur. Here, حَتَّى may be translated as “to the point of” and the verb following it is translated using “-ing”. For example,

قَرَأْتُ الْقُرْآنَ حَتَّى أَخْتِمَهُ.

“I read the Qurʾān to the point of finishing it.”

يَعْصِبُ حَتَّى يَهْرَبُوا مِنْهُ.

“He becomes angry to the point of their fleeing from him.”

غَضِبَ حَتَّى لَا يَمْلِكَ نَفْسَهُ.

“He became angry to the point of not controlling himself.”

It is noteworthy that the use of حَتَّى, here, implies only that the following action is meant to occur, or is at the point of being expected to occur. It doesn't actually state that the action will actually occur, for something may prevent it from occurring in reality.¹

Note, also, that لَا is not attached to حَتَّى in حَتَّى لَا.

Also, similar to the case of كَيْ, there is an assumed (but mandatorily unexpressed) اَنْ which is the real cause of the following muḍāriʿ verb being in the a-case. In fact, حَتَّى, here, can be considered synonymous to اِنْ “to [the point] that”. So the above examples can be considered similar in meaning to:

قَرَأْتُ الْقُرْآنَ اِلَى اَنْ اُخْنِمَهُ.

يَغْضَبُ اِلَى اَنْ يَهْرُبُوا مِنْهُ.

غَضِبَ اِلَى اَلَّا يَمْلِكَ نَفْسَهُ.

2. When حَتَّى is used with the meaning “to such a purpose that”. This is a similar meaning to كَيْ “in order that”. For example,

اَذْهَبُ اِلَيْهِ حَتَّى يَأْمُرَنِي بِشَيْءٍ.

“I go to him to such a purpose that he order me [to do] something.”

وَعَطَّ اَلْأَبُ اِبْنَهُ حَتَّى يَصْلَحَ.

“The father admonished his son to such a purpose that he be righteous.”

Again, there is an assumed (but mandatorily unexpressed) اَنْ which is the real cause of the following muḍāriʿ verb being in the a-case.

Sometimes, the sentence itself may admit both of the above meanings. For example:

يَأْكُلُ حَتَّى يَشْبَعَ.

“He eats to the point of being full.”

and/or

“He eats to the purpose that he be full.”

Context would be needed to determine which meaning or whether both meanings are intended.

22.6.2.2. حَتَّى with no effect on the following verb

If حَتَّى is not used with any expectation or purpose of a future action of the verb following it, then it has no effect on this verb. (It goes without saying that an implicit اَنْ is not assumed with حَتَّى in this case.)

The verb following حَتَّى in this case may even be a māḍī verb. For example:

¹Sadan, *The subjunctive mood in Arabic grammatical thought* 201

أَكَلْتُ الطَّعَامَ حَتَّى شَبِعْتُ.

“I ate the food until I became full.”

When used with a following muḍāriʿ verb, the verb is put in the u-case and the meaning is that the action of the verb *before* حَتَّى was done to such an extent that it caused the action of the verb *following* حَتَّى to definitely occur. The action before حَتَّى must necessarily be a past action, and the action following حَتَّى must necessarily be a present (not a future) action. For example,

أَكَلْتُ الطَّعَامَ حَتَّى أَشْبَعُ.

“I ate the food to such an extent that I am (being) full.”

غَضِبَ حَتَّى يَهْرَبُونَ مِنْهُ.

“He became so angry that they are fleeing from him.”

غَضِبَ حَتَّى لَا يَمْلِكُ نَفْسَهُ.

“He became so angry that he is not controlling himself.”

Compare these examples with the corresponding ones in the previous subsection that have an a-case muḍāriʿ verb.

22.7. After لَنْ lan

لَا and أَنْ are combined to form لَنْ lan with the meaning “shall not”. لَنْ is used with the a-case muḍāriʿ verb to emphatically negate the future.

لَنْ تَذْهَبَ.

“You_{1m} shall not go.”

22.8. After إِذَنْ idhan

TODO

22.9. After وَ, فَ, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ

22.9.1. As connectors

If the connectors وَ, فَ, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ occur after an a-case muḍāriʿ verb, then a second a-case muḍāriʿ verb (that doesn't have its own أَنْ, etc.) may be either in the a-case or the u-case. For example,

(أَسْمَعُ in a-case) أَرْغَبُ أَنْ أَخْضُرَ الْمَجْلِسَ وَأَسْمَعُ.

“I desire that I attend the session and [that] I listen.”

or

(أَسْمَعُ in u-case) أَرْغَبُ أَنْ أَخْضُرَ الْمَجْلِسَ وَأَسْمَعُ.

“I desire that I attend the session and I will listen.”

22.9.2. With special meanings

وَ, فَ, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ also cause the following muḍāriʿ verb to be in the a-case in their

own right, not simply as connectors. This is discussed in more detail in chapter TODO.

Work in progress

Chapter 23.

The ø-case muḍāriʿ verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

23.1. Introduction

In chapter @ref(u-case-muḍāriʿ-verbs) we mentioned that muḍāriʿ verbs have three cases (like nouns). These cases are called:

- i. The u-case
- ii. The a-case
- iii. The ø-case

We have already studied the u-case of muḍāriʿ verbs in chapter @ref(u-case-muḍāriʿ-verbs). And we will defer the study of a-case of muḍāriʿ verbs to chapter @ref(a-case-muḍāriʿ-verbs). In this chapter we will study the ø-case muḍāriʿ verb.

We will also study the *verb of command* which is very similar to the ø-case muḍāriʿ verb.

23.2. Forming the ø-case muḍāriʿ verb

Here is the u-case muḍāriʿ verb for the singular masculine absentee participant doer “he”:

يَفْعَلُ
yafʿalu
“he does”

Note that, because it is in the u-case, the its final letter ends with a ḍammah ُ. In order to form the ø-case muḍāriʿ verb, we change the ḍammah into a sukūn ْ, thus:

يَفْعَلْ
yafʿal

This is done for all participants whose doer pronoun is invisible and u-case verb ends with a ḍammah ُ.

For participants whose doer pronoun is followed by an extra ن in the u-case verb, this final ن is dropped in order to form the $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb. So, for example, the u-case muḍāriʿ verb:

يَفْعَلَانِ
yafʿalāni

“they_{2,m} do”

becomes, for the $\emptyset$ -case:

يَفْعَلَا
yafʿalā

Here is the complete table of the $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb for all doer participants.

Participant	Muḍāriʿ verb doer pronoun	u-case muḍāriʿ verb	$\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb
he	<i>invisible</i>	يَفْعَلُ	يَفْعَلُ
she	<i>invisible</i>	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلُ
you _{1,m}	<i>invisible</i>	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلُ
you _{1,f}	ي	تَفْعَلِينَ	تَفْعَلِي
I	<i>invisible</i>	أَفْعَلُ	أَفْعَلُ
they _{2,m}	ا	يَفْعَلَانِ	يَفْعَلَا
they _{2,f}	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
you ₂	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
they _{3+,m}	9	يَفْعَلُونَ	يَفْعَلُوا
they _{3+,f}	نَ	يَفْعَلْنَ	يَفْعَلْنَ (same)
you _{3+,m}	9	تَفْعَلُونَ	تَفْعَلُوا
you _{3+,f}	نَ	تَفْعَلْنَ	تَفْعَلْنَ (same)
we	<i>invisible</i>	نَفْعَلُ	نَفْعَلُ

Take note the following:

- The u-case and $\emptyset$ -case verbs are the same for the feminine plural absentee and addressee participants:
 - يَفْعَلْنَ (they_{3+,f})
 - تَفْعَلْنَ (you_{3+,f})
- The u-case and $\emptyset$ -case verbs for the masculine plural absentee and addressee participants have a final silent alif:
 - يَفْعَلُوا (they_{3+,m})
 - تَفْعَلُوا (you_{3+,m})
- When the $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb ends with a sukūn ْ, and the next word begins with a connecting hamzah ا then the sukūn ْ is converted to an kasrah ِ. For example:
 - يَفْعَلُ + الرَّجُلُ = يَفْعَلِ الرَّجُلُ

23.3. With *ل* for indirect commands

The particle *ل* when connected to the front of a *muḍāriʿ* verb causes it to be in the *ø*-case and gives it the meaning of an indirect command. In English this can be translated using “should” or “let”:

لِيَذْهَبِ الرَّجُلُ

“The man should go!”

or

“Let the man go!”

(“Let” is being used here as a command for the man, not for the addressee of this speech.)

لِنَذْهَبِ!

“Let’s go!”

The indirect command is only rarely used for the addressee participant.¹

So an example like the following is permissible but rare:

لَتَجْلِسْ

“You should sit!”

Instead, the verb of command is more commonly used which we will study in section @ref(verb-of-command) later in this chapter.

The particles *فَ* “so” and *وَ* “and” are frequently used before this *ل*. The *ل* then loses its *kasrah* and gets a *sukūn*. Examples:

فَلْنَأْكُلْ طَعَامَنَا وَلِنَشْرَبْ شَرَابَنَا.

“So let us eat our food and drink our drink!”

وَلِيَجْلِسُوا عَلَى الْأَرْضِ.

“And they should sit on the ground!”

Finally, the *ل* before a *ø*-case *muḍāriʿ* verb for the indirect command is mandatory. But it may be dropped by poetic license.²

23.4. With *لَا* for prohibitions

The word *لَا* when in front of a *ø*-case *muḍāriʿ* verb gives the meaning of a prohibition. In English this can be translated using “Don’t”.

For example,

لَا تَكْتُبُوا

“Don’t write_{3,m}!”

يَا زَيْدُ، لَا تَدْخُلِ الْبَيْتَ!

“Don’t_{1,m} enter the house!”

The particles *فَ* “so” and *وَ* “and” may be used before this *لَا*. Example:

فَلَا تَأْكُلْ وَلَا تَشْرَبِ!

“So don’t eat_{1,m} and don’t drink_{1,m}!”

Such prohibitions are generally for the addressee participant. However, rarely, they may be issued for the absentee participant as well. Example:

¹ سورة يونس for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان 4/291–293. See also references to شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 10:58 and other tafsirs for the reading فبذلك فلتفرحوا

² 4/291–292 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

لَا يَمْنَعُ زَيْدًا الدُّخُولَ.

“Let him not prevent Zayd from entering!”

By the way, لَا does not force a verb to be in the u-case $\emptyset$ -case. We have already seen in section @ref(u-case-verb-negation-la) that لَا can be used to negate a u-case muḍāriʿ verb for the present and future tense. Example:

لَا يَذْهَبُ الرَّجُلُ

lā yadh-habu -rrajulu.

“The man does not go.” or,

“The man is not going.” or,

“The man will not go.”

23.5. With لَمْ for “did not”

The particle لَمْ when in front of an muḍāriʿ verb causes it to be in the $\emptyset$ -case and gives it the meaning of negating the past tense. In English this can be translated using “did not”. For example,

لَمْ يَذْهَبِ الرَّجُلُ.

“The man did not go.”

We have already learned in section @ref(negating-māḍi-verbs) that the māḍi verb is negated using the particle مَا. For example:

مَا ذَهَبَ الرَّجُلُ.

mā dhahaba -rrajulu.

“The man did not go.”

or,

“The man has not gone.”

Both لَمْ and مَا are used commonly to negate the past tense. مَا has a more emphatic meaning than لَمْ.

Here are some more examples:

23.6. With لَمَّا for “did not yet”

The word لَمَّا when in front of a $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb gives the meaning “did not yet”. For example,

لَمَّا يَذْهَبُ زَيْدٌ.

“Zayd did not go yet.”

23.7. Other uses of the $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb

The $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb is also used for *consequential actions* and in *conditional statements*. We will deal with these in chapters @ref(the-consequential-action) and @ref(conditional-statements) respectively

23.8. The verb of command

In order to give a direct command to an addressee, Arabic uses the verb of command. The verb of command is very similar to the $\emptyset$ -case *muḍāriʿ* verb. The verb of command is only available for the addressee participant.

23.8.1. Forming the verb of command

Here is the verb of command for the addressee participants:

Participant	Verb of command
you _{1,m}	أَفْعَلْ
you _{1,f}	أَفْعَلِيْ
you ₂	أَفْعَلَا
you _{3+,m}	أَفْعَلُوا
you _{3+,f}	أَفْعَلْنَ

In order to form the verb of command, we remove the initial ت from the addressee participant verb. The verb then begins with an sukūn so we place a connecting hamzah in front of it.

When the verb of command occurs in the beginning of a sentence, then the vowel mark for the connecting hamzah is selected according to the following criteria:

- i. When the middle root letter of the verb of command has an ḍammah ُ, then the connecting hamzah gets an ḍammah too. Examples:

Verb	Verb of command for “he”
نَظَرَ يَنْظُرُ نَظْرًا	اُنْظُرْ “Look!”
قَتَلَ يَقْتُلُ قَتْلًا	اُقْتُلْ “Kill!”
مَكَثَ يَمْكُثُ مَكُوثًا	اُمْكُثْ “Stay!”

- ii. Otherwise, when the middle root letter of the verb of command has an fatḥah َ or an kasrah ِ, then the connecting hamzah gets an kasrah ِ. Examples:

Verb	Verb of command for “he”
عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ عَمَلًا	اَعْمَلْ “Work!”
ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ ذَهَابًا	اِذْهَبْ “Go!”
جَلَسَ يَجْلِسُ جُلُوسًا	اِجْلِسْ “Sit!”

Here are some examples of using the verb of command:

The verb of command is not used to issue negative commands, like “Don’t go!”. Instead, the $\emptyset$ -case verb is used with لَا as described in section @ref(la-of-prohibition) above.

لَا تَذْهَبْ

“Don’t go!”

23.8.2. The verb of command for roots begin with hamzah

Appendix A details the rules for spelling words that contain hamzah generally. In addition to those rules, the verb of command for roots that begin with hamzah warrant additional discussion.

Consider the following form 1 verbs and their verbs of command for the singular masculine addressee doer “he”:

Root	Verb	Verb of command
أَمَلَ	أَمَلَ يَأْمُلُ أَمَلًا “to hope”	أَوْمُلْ
أَذِنَ	أَذِنَ يَأْذِنُ أَذْنًا “to permit”	أَنْذَنْ

Here are examples of these verbs of commands in the middle of a sentence:

يَا أُمِّي أَتَذْنِي لِي أَلْعَبُ!

yā ‘ummi -ḍāḥanī li -llacib!

“O my mother, permit me to play!”

يَا زَيْدُ أَوْمِلْ الْخَيْرَ!

yā zaydu -ḥmulī -lkḥayr!

“O Zayd, hope for good!”

When these verbs of command occur in the beginning of the sentence, then there would be two hamzahs occurring next to each other which is not permitted. So the second hamzah is pronounced as a long vowel, though it may still be written as a hamzah. Examples:

أَوْمِلْ الْخَيْرَ يَا زَيْدُ!

‘ūmul

not

× uḥmul

أَتَذْنِي لِي أَلْعَبُ يَا أُمِّي!

ḍāḥanī

not

× ḍāḥanī

As a further complication, when the verb of command is preceded by وَ “and” or فَ “so” then the connecting *hamza* is not written and the hamzah of the first root letter is written seated on an alif. Examples:

وَأَوْمِلْ

waḥmul

“And hope!”

فَإِذَنْ
fa'dhan
“So permit!”

23.8.3. Irregular verbs of command

In addition to the rules states above there are four verbs of command (all containing hamzah) that are irregular. We will discuss them below:

23.8.3.1. The verbs أَكَلَ , أَخَذَ , and أَمَرَ

The verbs of command for the following three verbs are irregular:

Root	Verb	Verb of command
أكل	أَكَلَ يَأْكُلُ أَكْلًا “to eat”	كُلْ
أخذ	أَخَذَ يَأْخُذُ أَخْذًا “to take”	خُذْ
أمر	أَمَرَ يَأْمُرُ أَمْرًا “to order”	مُرْ

As you can see, the initial hamzah has been completely deleted for the verbs of command. However, of these verbs, the verb of command for أَمَرَ يَأْمُرُ أَمْرًا is permitted to retain its initial hamzah when preceded by وَ “and” or فَ “so”. Then, it becomes

وَأْمُرْ wa'mur

and

فَأْمُرْ fa'mur

This retaining of the initial hamzah is not done for the other two verbs.

Here are some examples of these verbs of command:

23.8.3.2. The verb سَأَلَ

The verb سَأَلَ يَسْأَلُ سُؤَالًا “to question” forms its verb of command both regularly, and irregularly:

- i. Regular: اسْأَلْ is'al
- ii. Irregular: سَلْ sal

If the verb of command is preceded by وَ “and” or فَ “so”, then the regular verb of command اسْأَلْ is'al is often preferred.

Otherwise, the irregular verb of command سَلْ sal is often preferred.

Examples of usage:

Work in progress

Chapter 24.

The passive verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

24.1. Introduction

Consider the sentence:

شَرِبَ زَيْدٌ الْمَاءَ.
shariba zayduni -lmā'.
“Zayd drank the water.”

In this sentence, زَيْدٌ “Zayd” is the doer of the verb شَرِبَ “drank”. This construction of the verb, which we have been using so far, is called the *active verb* construction, because the doer of the verb, in this case “Zayd” is known. Now consider the following sentence:

شُرِبَ الْمَاءُ.
shuriba -lmā'.
“The water was drunk.”

In this sentence, the doer of the verb, i.e. the person who is doing the action of the verb “to drink”, is not mentioned. From the sentence itself it is unknown who the doer is. This construction of the verb is called the *passive verb* construction.

24.2. Forming the passive verb

So far we have been studying form 1 verbs, which use only the three root letters. As we know, the vowel on the middle root letter is variable for active verbs, for example:

- شَرِبَ يَشْرِبُ “to drink”.
- فَتَحَ يَفْتَحُ “to open”
- كَبُرَ يَكْبُرُ “to become big”
- etc.

The pattern of passive verb for form 1 verbs is always:

فُعِلَ يُفْعَلُ

fueila yufʿalu

This is regardless of the vowel on the middle root letter in the active verb. If there is more than one verb from the same root, with different middle root letter vowels for the active verb, then they will share the same passive verb. For example, the active verbs: حَسِبَ يَحْسِبُ “to reckon” and حَسِبَ يَحْسِبُ “to deem” share the same passive verb: حُسِبَ يُحْسَبُ.

The same doer pronouns are used for the passive verb as for the active verb. And the passive muḍārie verb has the same three cases as the active muḍārie verb. For example:

- فُعِلُوا *fueilū* “they_{3m}” (māḍī)
- تَفْعَلَانِ *tufʿalāni* “you₂” or “they_{2f}” (u-case muḍārie)
- أُفْعِلَ *ʾufʿala* “I” (a-case muḍārie)
- etc.

The complete table showing the doer pronouns is given in appendix @ref(verb-tables).

24.3. The deputy doer

Consider again this sentence with an passive verb construction:

شَرِبَ الْمَاءُ .
deputy doer

“The water was drunk.”

Note that the noun الْمَاءُ *almāʾu* “the water” is in the u-case. This is because, in the absence of the doer, the direct doee of the active verb (الْمَاءُ) is deputized to take doer’s place in the u-case. It is then known as the *deputy doer*.

The doer pronouns for the passive verb shall therefore match the gender and number of the deputy doer. Here are some examples:

شُكِّرَتِ الْأُمّهَاتُ وَمُدِحْنَ.
shukirati -lummahātu wamudiḥn.

“The mothers were thanked and praised.”

أَنْتُمَا تُغَبَّانِ وَتُخَدَعَانِ.
ʾantumā tugḥbanāni watukḥdaeān.

“You₂ are being cheated and deceived.”

مَا قُطِعَتِ الشَّجَرَةُ.
mā quṭiʿati -shshajarah.

“The tree was not cut.”

24.3.1. The deputy doer for multiple direct doees

Some verbs, in the active construction, take multiple direct doee. These verbs can be classified into two classes:

- a. Verbs that cause the first direct doer to be affected by, or asked for, the second direct doer. Examples:

مَلَأَ الْغُلَامُ الدَّلْوَ مَاءً.

“The boy filled the bucket (with) water.”

مَنَعَ الْمَرَضُ الرَّجُلَ الْعَمَلَ.

“Sickness prevented the man (from) work.”

سَأَلَ الْفَقِيرُ الْغَنِيَّ دِرْهَمًا.

“The poor [man] asked the rich [man] (for) a dirham.”

- b. Verbs that signify an action of the heart or of intention, like thinking, deeming, making, etc. Examples:

حَسِبْتُ زَيْدًا صَدِيقًا.

“I deemed Zayd [to be] a friend”

وَجَدَتِ الطَّالِبَةُ الْأُسْتَاذَةَ حَلِيمَةً.

“The student_f found the professor_f [to be] forbearing.”

جَعَلَ اللَّهُ الْمَاءَ بَرَكَهً.

“Allāh has made the water a blessing.”

When such verbs are converted to the passive verb construction, then one, and only one, direct doer shall be chosen to be the deputy doer. It is generally preferred to make the first direct doer the deputy-doer, and leave the second direct doer, as is, in the a-case. Here are the same sentences in the passive construction:

مُلِئَتِ الدَّلْوُ مَاءً. (دَلْوٌ “bucket” is feminine.)

“The bucket was filled (with) water.”

مُنِعَ الرَّجُلُ الْعَمَلِ.

“The man was prevented (from) work.”

سُئِلَ الْغَنِيُّ دِرْهَمًا.

“The rich [man] was asked for a dirham.”

حُسِبَ زَيْدٌ صَدِيقًا.

“Zayd was deemed [to be] a friend”

وُجِدَتِ الْأُسْتَاذَةُ حَلِيمَةً.

“The professor_f was found [to be] forbearing.”

جُعِلَ الْمَاءُ بَرَكَهً.

“Water has been made a blessing.”

24.4. Impersonal use

TODO: add examples from Wright p. 268

When verbs are used without a direct doer, then their passive construction gives in an impersonal meaning. There are a few such usages that we will explain in the following subsections.

24.4.1. With prepositional phrases

Some verbs take no direct doees, but are used with prepositional phrases. For example,

جَلَسَ النَّاسُ عَلَى الْأَرْضِ.

“The people sat upon the ground.”

Other verbs, which can take a direct doee, may be used without one, and again with a prepositional phrase instead. For example:

كَتَبَ الْكَاتِبُ بِالْقَلَمِ.

“The scribe wrote with the pen.”

When such sentences are converted to the passive verb construction then the prepositional phrase may be taken as the deputy doer. However, the preposition causes the noun following it to remain in the i-case. So the deputy doer is not indicated by an apparent *ḍammah* (or by the other indicators of the u-case). The verb then appears to be in the singular masculine, with its deputy doer following it. For example:

جُلِسَ عَلَى الْأَرْضِ .
deputy doer

“The ground was sat upon.”

كُتِبَ بِالْقَلَمِ.

“The pen was written with.”

24.4.2. With adverbs of time or place

Other verbs don't take a direct doee but may be used with an adverb of time or place in the a-case. (We will study adverbs of time and place in chapter @ref(adverbs-of-time-and-place), if Allāh wills.) Here is an example:

سَهَرَتِ الْأُمُّ لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ .

a-case adverb of time

“The mother stayed up the Night of Power.”

When this sentence is converted to an passive construction then the adverb of time or place can be taken as the deputy doer in the u-case:

سَهَرَتْ لَيْلَةُ الْقَدْرِ.

“The Night of Power was stayed up [in].”

Note the u-case of لَيْلَةُ *laylatu* as the deputy doer.

24.4.3. With the maṣḍar

The maṣḍar, because it is the action being done may be considered a kind of direct doee. (We will study the use of the maṣḍar as a doee in chapter @ref(absolute-doe), if Allāh wills.) For example:

فَهَمَ الشَّيْخُ فَهْمًا عَمِيقًا.

“The old man understood, a deep understanding.”

When such sentences are converted to the passive verb construction, then the maṣḍar may be taken as the deputy doer in the u-case.

فُهِمَ فَهْمٌ عَمِيقٌ.

“A deep understanding was understood.”

24.4.4. Requirement of specialization

When a prepositional phrase, or an adverb of time or place, or a maṣḍar is to be used as a deputy doer in an passive verb construction, then it is required that they be specialized in meaning, and not used in a general sense. So for example, if we have the sentence:

سَهَرَتِ الْأُمُّ لَيْلَةً.

“The mother stayed up a night.”

then because of the non-specialized meaning of لَيْلَةً, such a sentence is typically not suitable for being converted to a passive verb construction.

24.4.5. Choosing the deputy doer

If a sentence is to be converted to an passive verb construction and it has more than one of the following:

- a direct doer
- a specialized prepositional phrase
- a specialized adverb of time or place
- a specialized maṣḍar

Then only one shall be chosen as the deputy doer. If a direct doer exists, then it is typically chosen. If a direct doer does not exist, then the one desired to be emphasized may be chosen as the deputy doer. For example:

سُهِرَ فِي الْمَسْجِدِ لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ.

“The mosque was stayed up in [on] the Night of Power.”

In the above sentence the prepositional phrase فِي الْمَسْجِدِ was chosen as the deputy doer, and the adverb of time لَيْلَةَ remains, as is, in the a-case.

24.5. Cases of the passive muḍāriʿ verb

The passive muḍāriʿ verb has three cases, just like the active muḍāriʿ verb: the u-case, the a-case, and the ø-case. The three cases are used in the same circumstances, and with the same rules that we have already learned.

So the u-case verb is used for making plain statements:

تُذَكَّرُ قِصَّةُ الْمَلِكِ فِي كُتُبِ التَّأْرِيخِ.

“The story of the king is mentioned in the books of history.”

لَا تُرْفَعُ الْأَصْوَاتُ فِي الْمَكْتَبَةِ.

“Voices are not raised in the library.”

The a-case verb is used for expressing wish or purpose:

يَأْمَلُ الْمُسْلِمُونَ أَنْ يُغْفَرَ لَهُمْ.

“The Muslims hope that they be forgiven.”

(Note that يُعْفَر has a singular masculine deputy doer because there is no direct doer.)

لَنْ تُسْمَعَ.

“You₂ shall not be heard.”

دُفِعَ الْبَابُ حَتَّى يُفْتَحَ.

“The door was pushed for the result that it open.”

Similarly, the $\emptyset$ -case verb is used in the following cases:

- With لَمْ “was not”:

لَمْ يُؤْذَنْ لِي أَنْ أَدْخُلَ.

“It was not permitted for me that I enter.”

- With لَمَّا “not yet”

لَمَّا بُكِّتَ كِتَابٌ فِي هَذَا الْمَوْضِعِ.

“A book has not yet been written in this subject.”

- With ل for indirect commands¹:

لِيُسْمَعَ صَوْتُهُ!

“Let his voice be heard!”

There is no verb of command for passive verbs. So while indirect commands are typically not used for the addressee participant for active verbs (see section @ref(indirect-commands)), they are the only way to issue commands for the addressee participant in the passive verb construction:

لِتَنْصُرُوا!

“Let you_{3m} be aided!”

24.6. Usage of the passive verb

There are cases where it is permissible to use of the passive verb construction, and cases where it is *not* permissible to use of the passive verb construction. We will explain them below:

24.6.1. Permissible use of the passive verb

There can be a number of reasons why a speaker is forced to, or chooses to, use the passive verb construction. Among these reasons are:

- a. When the doer is actually unknown to the speaker. This is the classic use-case, as indicated by the name *passive verb*. (But, as we shall see below, it is not the only use case.) So, if we say:

كُسِرَتِ الزُّجَاجَةُ.

“The glass was broken.”

then, it may be that we don’t know who broke the glass, and that is why we are expressing it in the passive verb construction.

¹ 4/291 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

- b. When the doer is known to the speaker, but he does not wish to make him known to others. So the same sentence above *كُسِرَتِ الزُّجَاجَةُ* could be used when the speaker knows that it was actually *زَيْدٌ* “Zayd”, for example, who broke the glass, but the speaker does not wish that others find out that it was Zayd. This itself could be for any reason, for example: the speaker fears Zayd, for fears for Zayd, etc.
- c. When the speaker wishes to draw attention to the act itself rather than the doer of the act. So we might say:

مُنِعْنَا الدُّخُولَ.

“We have been prevented from entering.”

when we wish to focus on the act of our having been prevented, rather than who prevented us.

- d. For stylistic reasons, when it is obvious and known who the doer is. For example:

خُلِقَ الْإِنْسَانُ مِنْ عَجَلٍ

“Man was created of haste [i.e., impatience].” (Qur’ān 21:37. Trans. Saheeh International)

In the above ’āyah it is known and obvious that Allāh created man.

- e. In order to glorify the doer. So we might the passive verb construction to say:

خُلِقَ الْخِنْزِيرُ.

“The pig was created.”

This could be to distance Allāh from being mentioned next to the name of a particularly dirty animal.

- f. When the doer is not mentioned due to contempt for him. For example:

قُتِلَ أَمِيرُ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ عُمَرُ.

“The Commander of the believers, Umar, was killed.”

In this sentence we chose not to name the killer due to contempt for him.

These reasons are not mutually exclusive, and sometimes the passive verb construction is used for a combination of them.

24.6.2. Impermissible use of the passive verb

The passive verb may not be used when the doer is mentioned with the verb. This is different from English which can use the word “by” to indicate the doer in a passive voice construction, as in: “The book was written by Zayd.”. Such a sentence, in Arabic can only be expressed with the active verb construction:

كَتَبَ زَيْدٌ الْكِتَابَ.

kataba zayduni -lkitāb.

“Zayd wrote the book.”

It may seem like this rule is broken in sentences like:

قُتِلَ بِالسَّيْفِ.

qutila bi-ssayf.

“He was killed by the sword.”

But such is not the case. The active verb construction would be something like:

قَتَلَهُ فُلَانٌ بِالسَّيْفِ.

qatalahu fulānun bi-ssayf.

“So-and-so killed him with the sword.”

As you can see, فُلَانٌ “so-and-so” is actually the doer, and السَّيْفُ “the sword” is merely a prepositional phrase indicating the instrument used in the act.

Work in progress

Chapter 25.

Additional forms of the verb

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

25.1. Introduction

So far we have been studying the form 1 verb (فَعَلَ يَفْعُلُ). The form 1 verb is the basic form of the verb. It consists of only the three root letters for the stateless verb.

In this chapter we will learn additional forms of the verb. These forms add extra letters to three root letters. There are about 15 or so additional forms of the verb. But only 10 or so are in common usage.

Learning these additional forms may seem tedious but we advise you to persevere because additional forms of the verb are used very commonly.

The form 1 verb has variability in the middle (ع) letter, which can have either an fat-ḥah, kasrah, or ḍammah. It also has variability in the pattern its maṣḍar. The additional forms have almost no variability of this kind. So, in one sense, the additional forms of the verb are easier than the form 1 verb.

25.1.1. Topics to cover

- usage of the maṣḍar of one form for another form
- افتعل with the meaning of تفاعل and nuances in the meaning
- avoid using [□□] with form 6, unless as maṣḍar. (Actually added it to Usage and Style chapter in appendix but reference it here.)

25.2. The form 2 verb فَعَّلَ يُفَعِّلُ

The form 2 verb doubles the middle ع letter. The vowel mark on the middle letter does not vary. Here are some examples of form 2 verbs:

Root	Verb	Meaning
علم	عَلَّمَ يَعْلَمُ	to teach
قتل	قَتَلَ يُقَتِّلُ	to massacre
كبر	كَبَّرَ يُكَبِّرُ	to magnify, say اللَّهُ أَكْبَرُ

25.2.1. Meaning patterns

The form 2 verb can denote a strengthening of the meaning. For example,

- كَسَرَ “to break (هـ s.th.)”; كَسَّسَ “to smash (هـ s.th.)”
- قَتَلَ “to kill (هـ s.o.)”; قَتَّلَ “to massacre (هـ s.o.)”

Often it denotes a causative meaning. For example,

- طَهَّرَ “to be pure”, طَهَّرَ “to purify (هـ، هـ s.o., s.th.)”
- عَلِمَ “to know (هـ s.th.)”, عَلَّمَ “to teach (ب هـ or هـ s.o. s.th.)”

Note that in such cases, if the form 1 verb is intransitive (e.g. طَهَّرَ) then it becomes transitive in form 2 (طَهَّرَ). And if it is transitive in form 1 (e.g. عَلِمَ), then it becomes doubly transitive in form 2 (عَلَّمَ).

25.3. The form 3 verb فَاعِلٌ يُفَاعِلُ

The basic meaning pattern for the form 3 verb is to express or emphasize the relation of the action to someone else.

Sometimes, as an extension of the basic meaning, it expresses vying with someone in the action of the verb. For example:

- قَتَلَ “to kill (هـ s.o.)”, قَاتَلَ “to fight (هـ s.o., with s.o., or against s.o.)”, i.e., “to vie with another to kill him”.
- سَبَقَ “to precede (هـ، هـ s.o., s.th.)”, سَابَقَ “to race (هـ s.o.)”, i.e., “to vie with another to precede him”.

Part II.

Advanced

Work in progress

Work in progress

Chapter 26.

The Arabic grammatical tradition

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Glossary of terms used in this chapter

Analogy	القياس
Anomalous usage	الشاذ
Attested usage	السماع
Grammatical reason	العلّة
Taqdīr	التقدير

26.1. History of the Arabic grammatical tradition

During the time of the Prophet ﷺ, the Arabs spoke Classical Arabic natively.

After the time of the Prophet ﷺ, during the Rāshidūn caliphate (11–41 AH), the borders of the Islāmic state had expanded beyond the Arabian peninsula. This brought upon an increased intermingling between Arab and non-Arab populations, especially in the towns and urban centers.

There are reports that, during this time, there was an increased occurrence of grammatical and pronunciation errors in spoken Arabic, especially by non-Arabs and the newer generation.¹

The reports also claim, that in order to safeguard the Qurʾān from being read incorrectly, efforts began to preserve Classical Arabic. This outline of events is traditionally credited as the inception of the Arabic grammatical tradition, and of the profession of the grammarian. Another reason that may have propelled grammatical activity may have been a desire to understand how to correctly produce speech modeled on Classical Arabic.²

¹ 7ff من تاريخ النحو العربي لسعيد الأفغاني

² See also Carter, “Arabic grammar” 120

It is difficult to establish the authenticity of many of the reports which list specific individuals and incidents that purportedly launched Arabic grammar as a discipline.³ So we are not certain who would qualify to be the very first grammarians, nor are we certain of the extent of their grammatical discourse. We do know that the early grammarians of the first and early second centuries AH, were definitely able to distinguish between correct and incorrect language.⁴ But their terminology and grammatical analysis were presumably rudimentary.⁵

However, in the latter half of the second century AH, Arabic grammar had already developed, from these primitive beginnings, into a highly developed system of linguistic analysis.⁶

Initially, in the second century AH, grammatical activity was centered mainly in two places: the cities of al-Baṣrah and al-Kūfah, in Iraq.⁷ By middle of the third century AH, these Baṣran and Kūfan schools had eventually moved to the Abbasid capital Baḡhdād. After the fourth century AH, the grammarians were more geographically widespread, with many famous later grammarians operating out of Egypt, Syria, Persia, and al-Andalus (Islāmic Spain).

Figure 26.1 depicts a (year of death) timeline and geographical distribution of some of the more well-known Arabic grammarians.

26.2. Attested usage

In order to develop a grammatical framework for Classical Arabic, the grammarians first needed a collection of authentic Classical Arabic texts. The grammarians used, as their source material for this collection, a corpus of Classical Arabic texts, which we will term *attested usage*. The body of attested usage can be categorized into⁹:

1. Transmitted texts. These include:
 - a. Authorized readings of the Qurʾān
 - b. Poetry of the pre-Islāmic and early Islāmic poets
 - c. A collection of the sayings and proverbs of the Arabs
 - d. the Ḥadīth
2. Elicited speech

We will discuss these categories below:

³Carter, “Arabic grammar” 119

⁴Carter, *Sibawayhi’s principles* 5–6

⁵Baalbaki, Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition* xv; من تاريخ النحو العربي لسعيد الأفعاني 29–30, footnote 2

⁶Baalbaki, Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition* xiii

⁷See also Carter, “Arabic grammar” 126–127

⁸Adapted from Andreas Hallberg’s figure (and TikZ code) [andreasmallberg.github.io/timeline-of-arab-grammarians], and from Ovamir Anjum’s presentation “Revival, rejuvenation & reform in Islam” [youtu.be/cZ6RoRMF-kI].

⁹from Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta’lil* 16

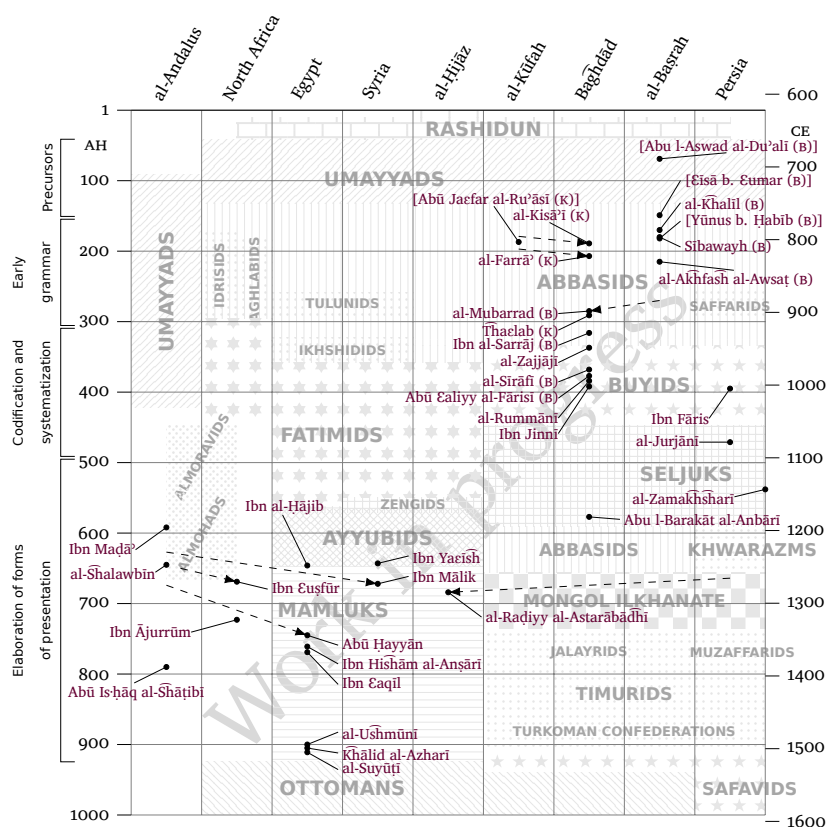


Figure 26.1.: A (year of death) timeline and geographical distribution of the more well-known Arabic grammarians.⁸ (B) and (K) indicate an affiliation with the Baṣran and Kūfan schools, respectively. Brackets indicate putative proto-grammarians. Some professional relocations are indicated using dashed arrows.

The Qur'ān

The Qur'ān was transmitted by the Prophet ﷺ to his Companions. When the territories under the Islāmic caliphate expanded, many of the Companions were sent or relocated to the different areas under Muslim rule, and there, they began teaching the Qur'ān to their students from the Tābi'īn. Those students taught it to the next generation and so on and so forth. The text of the Qur'ān was thus available to the grammarians and used by them as a primary linguistic source.¹⁰

Poetry

From pre-Islāmic times into the Islāmic era, Classical Arabic poetry was composed and transmitted orally, from region to region, and from generation to generation. The grammarians used this transmitted poetry as their second major source of transmitted data.¹¹

Some native Arabic dialects were beginning to diverge from Classical Arabic in the first and second century AH. Because of this, the grammarians were more discerning in whether they would accept the poetry of a later poet. Generally they would only accept the poetry of a later poet if his language was determined to be uninfluenced by the newer developments in the native dialects. The grammarians generally have a cut-off date somewhere in the middle of the second century AH. Poetry composed after this cut-off date is typically not accepted as a valid source of Classical Arabic.¹²

Sayings and proverbs of the Arabs

A small portion of prose material, consisting of sayings and proverbs of the Arabs, is also generally accepted as a source of Classical Arabic data.¹³

The Ḥadīth

The Ḥadīth of the Prophet ﷺ were transmitted by his Companions to their students from the Tābi'īn, who then transmitted them to their students from the next generation, and so on. Theoretically, the Ḥadīth texts should be considered a valid source of Classical Arabic. However, as a trend, the grammarians were reluctant to consider the transmitted Ḥadīth texts as part of attested usage. This is because they feared that some of the narrators in the chains of transmission of ḥadīth may have narrated their ḥadīth by meaning, rather than verbatim text. And if the narrator was himself not a native Classical Arabic speaker, then the grammarians could not be certain that the ḥadīth that reached them was correct Classical Arabic. They did not have this view regarding the Qur'ān and poetry because the Qur'ān and poetry required that they be transmitted verbatim.

¹⁰Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'līl* 18–19, القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 7

¹¹Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'līl* 19

¹²القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 8

¹³Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'līl* 16, القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 7–8

This policy of the grammarians has received some criticism, with some researchers deeming that they were unnecessarily exclusive, and that if the transmitters of a ḥadīth are deemed competent, then the ḥadīth should be admitted into attested usage. In this sense, Ḥadīth texts should be considered at least as acceptable as poetry, since the possibility of variation in transmission is applicable to both. In any case, we note that if the grammarians erred then it was on the side of caution.¹⁴

Elicited speech

In addition to the transmitted texts mentioned above, the grammarians also used, as part of their source data, samples of speech that they obtained themselves by meeting and talking to native Classical Arabic speaking *informants*. Such informants continued to exist, in pockets, into the second and third centuries AH. In general, the speech of the bedouin Arabs was considered purer and more free from errors than that of the urban population. The grammarians would seek out such informants, listen to their ordinary speech in natural settings, and also ask them questions, the answers to which would betray insight into the grammatical issues that they were investigating.¹⁵

Exclusion of the grammarians' writings from attested usage

The grammarians were scholars of Classical Arabic. Yet, generally speaking, they were not native speakers of Classical Arabic. So even though they were knowledgeable in analyzing Classical Arabic, they had not learned it natively. So their writings are not considered attested usage.¹⁶ Excepted are examples that the grammarians made up and adduced to explain a particular grammatical issue.¹⁷ Those are admitted into attested usage, though subject to critique by other grammarians.¹⁸

26.3. Analogy and grammatical reason

Once the source material from attested usage was available to the grammarians, they set about analyzing it in order to develop a grammatical framework. The process of developing a grammatical framework is based on *analogy* and *grammatical reason*.

¹⁴For more discussion on the grammarians' view of ḥadīth as a grammatical source, see Sadan, "Sibawayhi's and later grammarians' usage of ḥadīth as a grammatical tool"; Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'lil* 16–17, الاستشهاد 7–8؛ القياس النحوي لـخالد حسين أبو عمشة، 6/1/168ff بالحديث في اللغة لمحمد الخضر حسين

¹⁵Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'lil* 22–24

¹⁶36–37 القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين

¹⁷Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'lil* 16

¹⁸Here is an example:

... ولم يذكره [سبويه] إلا في نفس عبارته قال «وذلك عجبت من ضرب زيد عمرًا»، وليس في لفظه ما يدل على أنه محكي عن العرب، فيحتمل أن يكون ذلك رأيًا منه، بل هو ظاهر كلامه وقياس منه [11/75] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان

Analogy is the process of observing a pattern in attested usage, determining a grammatical reason for the pattern, and expounding a grammatical rule that states that whenever the grammatical reason is found, then the pattern is to be expected.¹⁹

Let's explain what we mean.

Let's say, hypothetically, a grammarian goes through the data in attested usage, and comes across sentences like:

- (1) جَاءَ الرَّجُلُ
«The man came.»
- (2) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا
«Zayd beat ʿAmr.»
- (3) يَدْخُلُ الْبَيْتَ رَجُلٌ
«A man enters the house.»
- (4) لَنْ يَضِيعَ الْعَمَلُ الصَّالِحُ
«The good deed shall not go waste.»
- (5) لَمْ تَذْهَبْ هِنْدُ
«Hind did not go.»

When the grammarian studies these sentences he notes that they are all verbal sentences consisting of (at least) a verb and its doer. He also observes a pattern. And that is that the doer of the verb is always in the u-case. Now, he comes up with a grammatical rule that states that whenever there is a verbal sentence (this is our grammatical reason), then the doer of the verb is to be in the u-case.

This rule is made for the benefit of the student who has not gone through the data in attested usage. Let's say that a student is reading a text and comes across a sentence:

- (2) ضَرَبَ عَمْرًا زَيْدٌ
«Zayd beat ʿAmr.»

The student determines that this is a verbal sentence. Being a verbal sentence is the grammatical reason that makes the above analogy-based rule applicable. Now the student observes that ضَرَبَ is the verb, and following it are two nouns: عَمْرًا in the a-case, and زَيْدٌ in the u-case. Applying the rule, he determines that the person who did the beating is Zayd, not ʿAmr. This will give him a correct understanding of the text.²⁰

Furthermore, if the student wishes to construct his own verbal sentence, attempting to conform to SCA, then he knows that he will have to put the verb's doer in the u-case.

¹⁹ 4-5 القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة

²⁰ 1/90, cited by Carter, "Arabic grammar" 132

26.4. Anomalous usage

Sometimes a pattern occurs often enough in attested usage that a rule is built upon it using analogy. However, occurrences contrary to the pattern are also found in attested usage. This usage which is contrary to analogy is called *anomalous usage*.

Let's take a look at an example of anomalous usage. When the second letter of a root is *و*, then its stem-10 māḍī verb is regularly formed by transforming the *و* into an alif. This is done according to analogy. For example:

Root	stem-10 māḍī verb
قوم	اسْتَقَامَ «to be steadfast»
عوذ	اسْتَعَاذَ «to seek refuge»
نور	اسْتَنَارَ «to seek light»

In anomalous usage, a few roots whose middle letters are *و*, usually form their stem-10 māḍī verbs by keeping the *و*. For example:

Root	stem-10 māḍī verb
حوذ	اسْتَحَوَذَ «to gain mastery, overcome»
صوب	اسْتَصُوبَ «to consider (هـ s.th) to be right»

By the way, اسْتَحَاذَ and اسْتَصَابَ are also found in attested usage, albeit less frequently.

The general principle, when dealing with anomalous usage, is that it should be limited to what is found in attested usage, and not be extended by analogy.

So the rule for forming stem-10 māḍī verb for roots that have *و* as the middle letter, is that the verbs should be formed generally by transforming the *و* into an alif, like اسْتَقَامَ and اسْتَعَاذَ. But for the few verbs that fall into anomalous usage, we should prefer to keep the *و*, thus: اسْتَحَوَذَ and اسْتَصُوبَ. The forms اسْتَحَاذَ and اسْتَصَابَ are permissible but less preferred.²¹

The grammarians have not always agreed over how to deal with different anomalous usages. As an example, when an adjectival noun is on the pattern أَفْعَل, like أَبْيَضُ «white» and أَسْوَدُ «black», then a comparative noun for it on the same pattern أَفْعَل is regularly not found to be used in attested usage. So أَبْيَضُ is not usually found in attested usage to mean «more white». However, this meaning is found as anomalous usage, as in the verse of poetry:

- (3) القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد] جَارِيَةٌ فِي دِرْعِهَا الْفَضْفَاضِ ~ أَبْيَضُ مِنْ أُخْتِ بَنِي إِبَاضِ
 [42] الخضر حسين
 «A girl in her full long shirt ~ whiter than a [woman of the tribe] of Banū Ibād»

²¹ 40 القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين

Some grammarians were of the opinion, that because of the usage of أَبْيَضَ in the above verse to mean «whiter», this can be extended by analogy generally. So whenever an adjectival noun is on the pattern أَفْعَل, a comparative noun can also be formed for it on the same pattern. Other grammarians were more conservative and did not extend this usage by analogy.²²

26.5. The balance between analogy and attested usage

The ultimate authority for what is correct Classical Arabic is attested usage. Analogy-based rules are a means to understand SCA correctly, and a guide to form sentences that attempt to conform to SCA.

Analogy is a speculative process on the part of the grammarians.²³ As such, it is subjective, and rules derived from analogy may need to be revised and refined in order to sufficiently explain the language. Natural language, however, is very complex and analogy-based rules, even if continually revised and refined, can perhaps never capture its full complexity.

Because of this, attested usage, in general, should not be rejected on the basis of analogy. And an analogy, even if it were sound, should not be applied if it leads to something that is contrary to attested usage.²⁴

26.6. Classical Arabic dialects and SCA

Classical Arabic consisted of multiple dialects that were spoken by the various tribes of the Arabs in the different regions of the Arabian peninsula. Even within a dialect, there were often multiple ways of choosing and forming words and expressions. When the grammarians described the Arabic of attested usage, they would typically list many of the linguistic variations found within and across the different dialects of Classical Arabic. When Standard Classical Arabic (SCA) emerged as literary standard, it converged to using only a small subset out of the many variations allowed in Classical Arabic.

We will discuss below a few examples out of the many variations of Classical Arabic, and the selections which became standardized in SCA²⁵:

Pluralizing the verb with a plural doer

The grammarians discuss a dialectal feature where a verb is pluralized even when it has an overt plural doer noun. So speakers of this dialect would say:

(4) ضَرَبُونِي قَوْمُكَ [كتاب سيبويه 2/40]
«Your people beat me.»

²² 42 القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين

²³ Baalbaki, "Teaching Arabic at university level" 86

²⁴ 204 cited by Baalbaki, "The book in the grammatical tradition" 130

²⁵ See also van Putten, "When did faṣiḥ become qabiḥ? Rehabilitating classical phonological and morphological features"

instead of the more normative:

(5) صَرَبْنِي قَوْمَكَ

The dialectal feature used in example (70) is graded by the grammarians as rare.²⁶ It did not make its way into SCA. Instead, the more common usage in example (71) became the standard.

Elision of the hamzah

Hamzah was considered by the grammarians to be an original root letter. So for example, it is an original root letter in رَأْس *ra's* “head”. However, the preferred pronunciation of native Classical Arabic speakers in some regions was to elide or approximate it in favor of a vowel, or the letters و or ي, depending on the surrounding vowels.²⁷ So they would say رَاس *rās* instead of رَأْس *ra's*.²⁸ This variant pronunciation was not generally adopted in SCA, which retains the full pronunciation of hamzah for most words.

Matching in the far pointing nouns to the gender and number of the persons being spoken to

Classical Arabic had a feature, where the end ك in a far pointing noun could optionally be feminized, dualized, or pluralized, to match the number and gender of the persons being spoken to.²⁹ For example:

(6) وَنَادَاهُمَا رَبُّهُمَا أَلَمْ أَنْهَكُمَا عَنْ تِلْكَ الشَّجَرَةِ وَأَقُلْ لَكُمَا إِنَّ الشَّيْطَانَ لَكُمَا عَدُوٌّ

[سورة الأعراف: 22] مُبَيَّنٌّ

«And their Lord called to them, “Did I not forbid you from **that** tree and tell you that Satan is to you a clear enemy?”»

This feature tends to not be used in SCA.

Variations in the pointing nouns

Classical Arabic had a large variety of pointing nouns. For example, “*that_{if}*” was expressed using both تِلْكَ *tilka* and تِيكَ *tika*. SCA uses only تِلْكَ *tilka*. Here is an example:

(7) إِنَّمَا يَدْخُلُ عَلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ ثُمَّ يَقُولُ كَيْفَ تَيْكُمُ ثُمَّ يَنْصَرِفُ

[صحيح البخاري: 4750]

«The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ would only enter upon me, greet, then say, “How is **that** [lady]?” Then he would leave.»

Similarly, Classical Arabic expressed “*there*” using both هُنَاكَ and هُنَالِكَ. In SCA, only هُنَاكَ tends to be used, whereas هُنَالِكَ is hardly ever used.

²⁶ 2/40 كتاب سيبويه

²⁷ 3/541ff كتاب سيبويه

²⁸ 3/543 كتاب سيبويه

²⁹ 1/99 معاني النحو

The imālah

For some words that have a final *ى*, and also for some long *ā* vowels in the middle of a word, some tribes would pronounce the vowel as *ē*, not *ā*. This vowel sound is known as *imālah*.

Here are a couple of words with *imālah* and with the SCA pronunciation:

Word	SCA pronunciation	pronunciation with imālah
حُبْلَى ³⁰	<i>ḥublā</i>	<i>ḥublē</i>
مَسَاجِد ³¹	<i>masājīd</i>	<i>masējīd</i>

The *imālah* can be heard in the Qur'ānic reading of Ḥaḥṣ ʿan Eāṣim in this āyah:

- (8) وَقَالَ ارْكَبُوا فِيهَا بِسْمِ اللَّهِ مَجْرَاهَا وَمُرْسَاهَا إِنَّ رَبِّي لَغَفُورٌ رَحِيمٌ [11:41 سورة هود]
 «And [Noah] said, “Embark therein; in the name of Allāh [are] its course and its anchorage. Indeed, my Lord is Forgiving and Merciful.”»

The *imālah* is not used in SCA.

The vowel on the attached pronouns هـ/هما/هم

We have learned that when the attached pronouns هـ/هما/هم are preceded by a kasrah, long-*ī*, or *ay*, then, in SCA, the هـ gets a kasrah instead of a ḍammah. For example: به *bihi*, عَلَيْهِمَا *ʿalayhimā*, فِيهِمْ *fīhim*. In Classical Arabic, the dominant pronunciation in some regions was to retain the ḍammah on the هـ regardless of the preceding vowel. So, for example, they would say بِهِ *bihū*.³² This variant can be heard in the Qur'ānic reading of Ḥaḥṣ ʿan Eāṣim in this āyah:

- (9) وَمَنْ أَوْفَىٰ بِمَا عَاهَدَ عَلَيْهِ اللَّهُ فَمِئْتَةٌ أَجْرًا عَظِيمًا [48:10 سورة الفتح]
 «And he who fulfills that which he has promised Allāh - He will give him a great reward.»

فَهُوَ, وَهِيَ, etc.

When the conjunction وَ or فَ is attached to the pronouns هُوَ and هِيَ then Classical Arabic would optionally pronounce them as فَهُوَ *fahwa* (instead of فَهُوَ *fahuwa*), وَهِيَ *wahya* (instead of وَهِيَ *wahiya*), etc.³³ For example:

³⁰ 4/120 كتاب سيبويه

³¹ 4/117 كتاب سيبويه

³² 4/195 كتاب سيبويه

³³ 5/312 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

- (10) عَنْ أَبِي هُرَيْرَةَ، أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ ذَكَرَ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ فَقَالَ فِيهِ سَاعَةٌ لَا
صَحِيحُ الْبَخَارِيِّ [بُؤَافِقُهَا عَبْدٌ مُسْلِمٌ، وَهُوَ قَائِمٌ يُصَلِّي، يَسْأَلُ اللَّهَ تَعَالَى شَيْئًا إِلَّا أَعْطَاهُ إِياهُ
:935]

« On the authority of Abū Hurayrah, Allāh's Messenger ﷺ mentioned the day of Friday and said, "There is an hour on Friday in which no Muslim servant stands praying and asks Allāh for something except that He will grant it to him." »

SCA does not typically use this option.

أَرَقَّ instead of أَهْرَقَ and هَرَقَ

In Classical Arabic the stem-4 verb أَرَقَّ يُرِيقُ « to pour, spill » had variants: هَرَقَ أَهْرَقَ and يُهْرِيقُ. For example:

- (11) [5739: سنن النسائي] فَإِنْ أَصْبَحَ مِنْهُ شَيْءٌ أَهْرَقَهُ
« If anything was left of it the following morning he poured it out. »

These variants are not used in SCA.

The u-case-ن of the muḍāriʿ verb

There are five muḍāriʿ verbs for which the u-case is indicate using a ن. They are:

- i. يَفْعَلُونَ « they_{3m} »
- ii. تَفْعَلُونَ « you_{3m} »
- iii. يَفْعَلَانِ « they_{2m} »
- iv. تَفْعَلَانِ « they_{2f}/you₂ »
- v. تَفْعَلِينَ « you_{1f} »

In Classical Arabic, the ن could occasionally be dropped, even for the u-case.³⁴ For example:

- (12) [2688: جامع الترمذي] وَالَّذِي نَفْسِي بِيَدِهِ لَا تَدْخُلُوا الْجَنَّةَ حَتَّى تُؤْمِنُوا وَلَا تُؤْمِنُوا حَتَّى تَحَابُّوا
« By the One in Whose Hand is my soul! You will not enter Paradise until you believe, and you will not believe until you love one another. »

The ن is not dropped in SCA for the u-case.

In addition, when these verbs have a speaker-participant pronoun as its direct doer, then Classical Arabic had three acceptable forms³⁵:

- i. يَفْعَلُونِي yafealūnani
- ii. يَفْعَلُونَنِي yafealūnni
- iii. يَفْعَلُونِي yafealūni

³⁴ 1/210 شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك

³⁵ 1/51–53 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك

Option (ii) can be heard in the Qurʾānic reading of Ḥaṣṣ ʿan ʿĀṣim in this āyah:

- (13) قُلْ أَغْيَرَ اللَّهِ تَأْمُرُونِي أَعْبُدُ أَيُّهَا الْجَاهِلُونَ [سورة الزمر: 39:64]
 « Say, [O Muḥammad], “Is it other than Allāh that you order me to worship, O ignorant ones?” »

SCA uses only option (i).

Summary

Classical Arabic possessed a wide and dynamic range of linguistic features during the period when it was still spoken as a native language.

SCA, by contrast, emerged later as a codified literary variety, after Classical Arabic had largely ceased to function as a mother tongue. As a result, SCA draws on only a portion of the variation that once characterized Classical Arabic. For each linguistic feature, the portion selected by SCA often, but not always,³⁶ corresponds to what the grammarians identified as the base or archetypal form, from which other variations would branch out. Alternative forms and patterns, once fully natural and widely used, fell into disuse as SCA became crystallized.

By the way, some of the features discussed above, like the elision of the hamzah, the imālah, and variation in the pointing nouns (amongst others), are heard to this day in some of the modern vernacular dialects. This is hardly surprising since they are the product of natural evolution from the Classical Arabic dialects.

It must be stressed that the variations found in attested usage are, generally, all valid Classical Arabic. One cannot take the selection that is used in SCA and, on its basis, pronounce judgement on a non-conforming feature that is found in attested usage.

26.7. Taqdīr

When the grammarians were analyzing attested usage, they observed that there is an underlying harmony and order in the Classical Arabic language,³⁷ such that it could be described with a set of coherent and comprehensive basic principles. But these principles often will not describe surface speech directly. *Surface speech* is defined as the actual utterance that is spoken by the speaker and heard by the listener. This is because surface speech, even when not anomalous usage, has too much variation and complexity to be wrangled into a minimalist framework of grammatical principles directly. Oftentimes, two surface speech utterances can differ in their apparent form. But there would seem to be a common grammatical principle at work that directs the structure of both surface speech utterances.

³⁶See also Pat-El, “Digging up archaic features: ‘Neo-Arabic’ and Comparative Semitic in the quest for Proto Arabic.”

³⁷Baalbaki, “Some aspects of harmony and hierarchy in Sibawayhi’s grammatical analysis” 7ff

In order to describe the language using a minimal set of grammatical principles, the grammarians theorized a *taqdīr*, i.e. a reckoned imaginary representation, of the surface speech.³⁸ This *taqdīr* would exist only in the mind of the speaker,³⁹ under the level of surface speech. The links between inter-related linguistic phenomena would be more evident in the *taqdīr* than in surface speech. The *taqdīr* would be simpler in its structure, and have less variation, than surface speech. It would thus be more amenable to being described by a set of basic principles.

So, the *taqdīr* of surface speech is not actually uttered. But supposing it allows us to build a framework that captures surface speech more fully than would have been practical, had we not supposed it.

In grammatical discourse, in addition to using *taqdīr* as a noun to mean the underlying representation of surface speech, *taqdīr* is also used verbally to signify the grammarian's analytical activity of coming up with a suitable *taqdīr* representation of surface speech.

We will further explain *taqdīr* by going through some examples in the section below:

26.7.1. Examples of *taqdīr*

26.7.1.1. The *taqdīr* of latent doer pronouns

Let's say that a hypothetical grammarian goes through some data in attested usage, and he finds surface speech samples like the following:

(14) قَرَأَ زَيْدٌ
«Zayd read.»

(15) رَجَعَتْ هِنْدٌ
«Hind returned.»

(16) يَذْهَبُ الرِّجَالُ
«The men go.»

The grammarian asks his native Classical Arabic speaking informant what the informant understands by the above samples. The informant tells the grammarian that he understands each one as having a complete meaning: a meaning that expresses an action (signified by the first word), and the doer of that action, (signified by the second word).

Because each sample has a complete meaning, the grammarian determines that each sample is a complete sentence. He classifies the first word in each sentence as a verb, and the second word as a noun. Based on the abundance of sentences like the above, the grammarian formulates a principle, which is that

³⁸*Taqdīr* literally means «estimation» or «valuation». The Arabic grammatical tradition's *taqdīr* has parallels in the Western linguistic tradition, like *deep structure*, and *ghost* and *null* segments. We are not re-using those terms because they may have baggage that would not reconcile with the Arabic grammatical tradition's concept of *taqdīr*. See, for example, Versteegh, "The notion of underlying levels" 287ff.

³⁹Levin, "The theory of al-*taqdīr* and its terminology." 142–143

a verbal sentence needs two parts to be a complete sentence: a verb, followed by its doer (noun).

The grammarian then continues going through attested usage and finds surface speech samples like the following:

- (15) تَصَدَّقْنَ
«They_f gave charity.»
- (16) عَمِلْتُ
«I worked.»
- (17) تَكْتُبَانِ
«You₂ are writing.»
- (18) ذَهَبُوا
«They went.»

Consulting his informant, he finds that these also are complete sentences in their meaning. The informant tells him that the doer of each action is now a person who is not named, but who is known to the informant. So the grammarian classifies the doers as *pronouns*.

The grammarian also notices that the end of each verb is modified and extra sounds (expressed by letters in the script) are added after it. For example: عَمِلْتُ = عَمِلَ + تْ. Based on these observations, the grammarian devises a way, by which these sentences can still be molded to fit into his above stated principle. This is by considering the extra sounds/letters at the end of the verbs (for example, تْ in عَمِلْتُ) to be the doer pronouns. Now the sentences can be considered to have two parts: a verb followed by its doer. So far so good.

But now the grammarian comes across surface speech samples like the following:

- (16) ذَهَبَ
«He went.»
- (17) رَجَعَتْ
«She returned.»
- (18) أَعْمَلُ
«I work.»
- (19) نَتَصَدَّقُ
«We give charity.»

These samples pose a problem for our grammarian. Because his informant tells him that he still understands these samples, in context, to have a complete meaning. The doer of each action is again a person who is not named but who is known to the informant.

So, evidently, samples (87) through (90) are complete sentences with pronoun doers, just like samples (83) through (86). But the problem is that there are no apparent extra sounds/letters after the verbs which can be considered the doer.

Some of the verbs in these sentences, like in examples (89) and (90), have extra sounds, but they are before the verb. But some verbs, like in example (87), don't even have that. Example (88) *رَجَعْتُ* does have an extra *ت* after the verb, but that letter is kept when there is an overt doer noun, like in example (81) *رَجَعْتُ هُنْدٌ* above. So the *ت* doesn't seem like it can be the doer. So what is the grammarian to do?

In order to keep the principle consistent, the grammarian taqdīrs *latent* doers for these sentences. For example (87) above, the latent doer is taqdīred as [*هُوَ*], thus:

- (17) *ذَهَبَ [هُوَ]*
«He went.»

Now the sentence has two parts: the verb *ذَهَبَ*, followed by its doer, the taqdīred [*هُوَ*]. Thus it is compliant with the above stated principle that the grammarian developed for verbal sentences.

Here are the other examples with their taqdīred doers:

- (18) *رَجَعْتُ [هِيَ]*
«She returned.»

- (19) *أَعْمَلُ [أَنَا]*
«I work.»

- (20) *نَتَصَدَّقُ [نَحْنُ]*
«We give charity.»

In this way, a grammarian was able to formulate an analogy-based grammatical principle based on observation of attested usage and theorization of a taqdīr.

26.7.1.2. The taqdīr of *أَنَّ* before a-case muḍāriʿ verbs

We present another example of where taqdīr is useful for coming up with grammatical principles. In chapter (ref), we studied how a a-case muḍāriʿ verb can occur after the particle *لِ*. For example:

- (19) *دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْجَحَ*
«I studied for the reason [that] I may succeed.»

The particle *لِ* here signifies the meaning «for the reason».

The grammarians theorized that between the *لِ* and the a-case muḍāriʿ *أَنْجَحَ*, there existed a taqdīred *أَنَّ*, thus:

- (20) *دَرَسْتُ لِأَنَّ [أَنْجَحَ]*
«I studied for the reason [that] I may succeed.»

And it was this *أَنَّ* that actually caused the muḍāriʿ verb to be in the a-case. This taqdīr allowed them to reduce the definition of *لِ* to a preposition that only

precedes nouns. And it granted to أَنْ the (more-or-less) sole privilege of causing a muḍāriʿ verb to be in the a-case.⁴⁰

The taqdīr of أَنْ between لَ and a following a-case muḍāriʿ verb is also supported by the fact that the surface speech can actually have an أَنْ in that position, for the same meaning. So we can actually also say:

(21) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْ أَتَجَحَّ

«I studied for the reason that I may succeed.»

As for the restriction of لَ to a preposition that only precedes nouns, then this can be seen when we apply a second level of taqdīr: and that is to interpret (a surface or taqdīred) أَنْ and the following a-case muḍāriʿ verb as a maṣdar construction. So the taqdīr of (97) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْ أَتَجَحَّ is:

(22) دَرَسْتُ لِنَجَاحِي

«I studied for the reason of my success.»

(i.e. «in order to achieve success».)

In the taqdīr in example (98), we can see how لَ is a preposition before the i-case noun نَجَاح.

We will see more examples of taqdīr for the a-case muḍāriʿ verb in chapter (ref), if Allāh wills.

26.7.1.3. The taqdīr of a warning statement

إِيَّاكَ وَالشَّرَّ

TODO. Get from شرح ابن عثيمين 59/4

26.7.1.4. taqdīred case-endings

As we know, the vowel at the end of nouns and verbs that end with weak letters can be affected by those weak letters.

So, for example, we will say:

(23) يَقْضِي قَاضٍ

«A judge decrees.»

In (99) above, يَقْضِي is a u-case muḍāriʿ verb. But it is not able to have a ḍammah at its end because of its weak root letter ي. So we will say that its u-case is indicated by a *taqdīred* ḍammah at its end. قَاضٍ is a doer in the u-case. It too is not able to have a ḍammah at its end because of its weak root letter ي. So, again, we will say that its u-case is indicated by a *taqdīred* ḍammah at its end.

⁴⁰Baalbaki, “Bāb al-fā” 186–189

26.7.2. Some notes regarding taqdīr

26.7.2.1. The taqdīr is not actually uttered

One point to note, regarding taqdīr, is that the taqdīr representation of a surface speech is often not actually correct as surface speech.⁴¹

If we take the taqdīr in (91) *ذَهَبَ [هُوَ]* as an example, then what we mean is that we don't actually say (in surface speech) *ذَهَبَ هُوَ* when we intend to mean «He went». The surface speech (87) *ذَهَبَ* is the only correct way to express this intended meaning. The representation *ذَهَبَ [هُوَ]* is only a *taqdīr* of the surface speech *ذَهَبَ* that elucidates the grammar of the sentence.

Sometimes, however, a taqdīr representation is actually correct as surface speech, for more-or-less the same, or a similar meaning. This can be, for example, when the taqdīr restores a word or expression which is implied and was optionally deleted. For example, we saw that the taqdīred *أَنْ* in example (95) *دَرَسْتُ لِأَنَّجَحَ* can actually be expressed in surface speech, thus:

- (24) *دَرَسْتُ لِأَنَّ أَنْجَحَ*
«I studied for the reason that I may succeed.»

By the way, coincidentally, *ذَهَبَ هُوَ* is actually a correct sentence in its own right, but it has a different meaning than the intended *ذَهَبَ* «He went». It uses the pronoun *هُوَ* as an *emphatic follower* (see chapter (ref)).

26.7.2.2. The literal representation used in the taqdīr may not be real

Another point is that the grammarians' representation of the taqdīr may not necessarily be real.

In the example of latent doer pronouns, the taqdīred doers, (*[هُوَ]*, *[هِيَ]*, *[أَنَا]*, and *[نَحْنُ]* in examples (91) through (94) above) are not “real” representations of the latent doer pronouns. They are only written as such because, for his analysis, the grammarian needs some words to represent the latent doer pronouns in the taqdīr. And because there are no real words to denote the latent doer pronouns, the grammarian borrows the words that denote the detached pronouns to do so.

As it happens, the taqdīred latent pronouns are theorized to be (invisible/in-audible) *attached* pronouns,⁴² just like the overt doer pronouns *أَنَا* «I», *هِيَ* «we», *نَحْنُ* «they_{3f}», etc. taqdīring the latent doer pronouns as attached pronouns has benefits that keeps the grammatical framework coherent across different grammatical topics. We will see one such benefit in chapter (ref), when we discuss the emphatic follower.

26.7.2.3. Taqdīr may be required to correctly interpret a text

Consider the following āyah from the Qur'ān:

⁴¹Baalbaki, “Bāb al-fā” 190; Versteegh, “The notion of underlying levels” 278

⁴²تمهيد ز-ط، الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

- (25) وَجَاءُوا عَلَى قَمِيصِهِ بِدَمٍ كَذِبٍ قَالَ بَلْ سَوَّلَتْ لَكُمْ أَنْفُسُكُمْ أَمْرًا فَصَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ وَاللَّهُ

[12:18 سورة يوسف] الْمُسْتَعَانُ عَلَى مَا تَصِفُونَ

«And they brought upon his shirt false blood. [Jacob] said, “Rather, your souls have enticed you to something, so patience is most fitting. And Allāh is the one sought for help against that which you describe.”»

The part *صَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ* has been analyzed as being able to bear multiple interpretations, all requiring *taqdīr*. One analysis is that *صَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ* is a subject whose info is deleted. The *taqdīr* for this analysis is:

- (26) [12:18 سورة يوسف for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي] *صَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ أَمَلٌ*
«A beautiful patience is exemplary.»

The second analysis is that *صَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ* is a info whose subject is deleted. The *taqdīr* for this analysis is:

- (27) [12:18 سورة يوسف for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي] *أَمْرِي صَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ*
«My affair is a beautiful patience.»

A third analysis is that *صَبِرْ جَمِيلٌ* is used as a deputy to a verb (see section (maf3ool mutlaq)) in a command to oneself. The *taqdīr* for this analysis is:

- (28) [12:18 سورة يوسف for تفسير ابن عاشور] *اَصْبِرْ صَبْرًا جَمِيلًا*
«Be patient [with] a beautiful patience!»

26.7.2.4. *Taqdīr* can be used to interpret anomalous usage

Grammarians also sometimes used *taqdīr* as a tool to make anomalous usage fit coherently into their grammatical framework.⁴³ For example, if we consider the line of poetry that we discussed in Section 26.4 above:

- (29) القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد] *جَارِيَةٌ فِي دِرْعِهَا الْفَضْفَاضِ ~ أَبْيَضُ مِنْ أُخْتِ بَنِي إِبَادٍ*
[42 الخضر حسين]
«A girl in her full long shirt ~ whiter than a [woman of the tribe] of Banū Ibād»

أَبْيَضُ when taken to mean «whiter» is anomalous usage, as we have mentioned. One attempt to make it fit into the grammarians' analogy-based rules is by interpreting *أَبْيَضُ* not as a comparative noun, but as an adjectival noun synonymous to *مُبَيَّضُ* «white». An implied noun *جَسَدُ* «body» is also inserted.⁴⁴ Such that the *taqdīr* is:

- (30) [1/123 الإنصاف للأنباري] *فِي دِرْعِهَا جَسَدٌ مُبَيَّضٌ مِنْ أُخْتِ بَنِي إِبَادٍ*
«... in her shirt is a white body from [a woman of the tribe] of Banū Ibād»

⁴³ 42 القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين

⁴⁴ 1/123 الإنصاف للأنباري

Needless to say, this is pretty convoluted taqdīr. Some grammarians would prefer to let such anomalous usage be, and they wouldn't attempt to force such complicated taqdīr to make the anomalous usage fit into their analogy-based grammatical system.⁴⁵

26.7.2.5. There can be multiple levels and types of taqdīr

In order to fit a surface speech into analogy, there can be multiple levels of taqdīr done. As an example, we saw in Section 26.7.1.2 above that in example (95) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْجَحَ, first an أَنْ was taqdīred between ل and the a-case muḍārie thus: (96) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنَّ أَنْجَحَ.

And then a further level of taqdīr was done, where أَنْ and the following a-case muḍārie verb was reinterpreted as a maṣdar construction: (98) دَرَسْتُ لِنَجَاحِي.

Sometimes a taqdīr is used to explain irregular sounds, or a meaning which can only be arrived at by assuming an underlying interpretation.⁴⁶

However, all types and layers of taqdīr are used to explain surface speech according to a grammatical framework that can not address all aspects of surface speech directly.

26.7.3. Benefits and risks of taqdīr

Taqdīr is an analytic tool that allows the grammarian to discover and reconstruct a theorized structure that underlies surface speech.⁴⁷ This theorized underlying structure is more basic than the surface structure, and more easily described with a set of rules.⁴⁸ Without taqdīr, the set of rules, which the grammarian would have to formulate, would increase greatly to capture all the different variations in surface speech. Furthermore, the rules would be disparate, and would not readily indicate the links between related linguistic phenomena. Those links are more obvious in the taqdīr.

Having said that, taqdīr is essentially a speculative exercise which is done by the grammarian. Because the taqdīr, by its very definition, does not manifest in surface speech, the grammarian can only theorize its existence and formulation. As such, taqdīr entails risks because it is based on the grammarian's subjective reasoning.⁴⁹

Therefore, the grammarian does, or should, attempt to validate his taqdīr approach, to whatever degree possible. One way to do this is by basing the taqdīr on the meaning that a native speaker understands from the surface speech, like our hypothetical grammarian did for latent doer pronouns in Section 26.7.1.1 above.

Another way is to attempt to find traces of the taqdīr in the surface speech, as was done in Section 26.7.1.2 above, for the taqdīr of أَنْ between ل and a following a-case muḍārie verb.

⁴⁵ 42 القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين

⁴⁶ Versteegh, "The notion of underlying levels" 283ff

⁴⁷ Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā" 188

⁴⁸ Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā" 190

⁴⁹ Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā" 190

At the very least, any taqdīr should be subservient to, and not contradict, the intended meaning of the surface speech.⁵⁰

26.8. Difference of opinion between the grammarians

The grammarians sometimes differed with one another regarding the extraction of analogy-based rules from attested usage. We have seen a couple of examples of their differences in the sections above. These differences often, though not always, occur along grammatical school lines, with the Kūfans purportedly⁵¹ holding one opinion, and the Baṣrans another.⁵² Sometimes, the difference is more in terminology than anything else. For example, the Baṣrans in their definition of the *doer*, mandated that the doer can only occur after the verb in word order. The Kūfans on the other hand allowed the doer to occur before the verb. However, both schools allowed sentences like:

- (31) زَيْدٌ جَاءَ
«Zayd came.»

It's just that the Kūfans would analyze زَيْدٌ as a doer, whereas the Baṣrans would analyze it as a subject.⁵³

Some more differences between the two schools are that the Kūfans are regarded as more lax in forming analogy-based rules based on anomalous usage.⁵⁴ Whereas the Baṣrans liked to keep their rules more taut, attempting to interpret rare and anomalous usages through taqdīr⁵⁵ so that most everything aligned with a minimal set of basic grammatical principles. Both, however, as a general rule, accepted the anomalous usage as valid attested usage. The Kūfans are also thought to be more grounded in that they tried to stay closer to surface speech, rather than venturing into too much taqdīr.

Generally speaking, the Baṣrans formed their terminology and opinions with a view to building a comprehensive and coherent grammatical framework.. And it is their terminology and opinions that became the standard with later grammarians. Nevertheless, the Kūfan view is often brought in as a reality check against what may sometimes be deemed to be excessive rule strictness and taqdīr on the part of the Baṣrans.⁵⁶

⁵⁰See also Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā" 188

⁵¹Carter, "Arabic grammar" 126

⁵²See Baalbaki, Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition*, §"The Baṣran/Kufan divide", pp. xxxix–xlii

⁵³معاني النحو 2/45

⁵⁴التذليل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/75

⁵⁵القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 41–42

⁵⁶See also Carter, "Arabic grammar" 126–127

26.9. Utilizing grammatical models

The Arabic grammarians developed a theoretical framework (model) useful for the purpose of describing Classical Arabic.

We should understand that a model is probably not going to be able to characterize every single aspect of natural speech completely. Nevertheless, a good model is indispensable because it helps systematize language and make it amenable to analysis. Importantly, it also helps guide non-native users of a language to interpret the meaning of a text correctly. There is a famous aphorism which may be of some relevance here:

All models are wrong, but some are useful.⁵⁷

The term “wrong” in the above quotation is a bit harsh. In fact, we should be careful to not run away with the above aphorism to the point that it leads us to think that what we perceive as reality is only a model and so there is no reality.

Commenting on the āyah:

(32) [51:23 سورة الذاريات] فَوَرَبِّ السَّمَاءِ وَالْأَرْضِ إِنَّهُ لَحَقُّ مِثْلِ مَا أَنْتُمْ تَنْطِقُونَ

«Then by the Lord of the heaven and earth, indeed, it is truth - just as [sure as] it is that you are speaking.»

Ibn al-Qayyim says:

There is also [found] in a ḥadīth: سَنَّ أَبِي إِنْ هَذَا لَحَقُّ كَمَا أَنَّكَ هَا هُنَا [4294: داود] «Indeed this is true just as [sure as] it is that you are here».

So [Allāh], may He be glorified, likened the reality of what He informed about with the reality of human speech and its existence. Any one of us knows, by necessity, that he speaks. His speech does not need evidence of its existence. Nor does any doubt preoccupy him regarding [the fact] that he speaks. Thus, what Allāh has informed about, regarding [His] oneness, the [Prophet Muḥammad ﷺ's] prophethood, the resurrection, and His names and attributes, is [all] true and actual, in and of itself, in a manner which is similar to the actuality of your speech and its existence. This is the kind of thing that people recognize in their parlance. Someone may say, “This is true like the sun.” A poet [too] has eloquently dealt with this [theme] by saying:

وليس يصح في الأذهان شيء ~ إذا احتاج النهار إلى دليل
«And not a thing would [remain] sound in the minds, if the day [itself] required evidence [of its existence].»⁵⁸

Coming back to the phrase *all models are wrong*, it is perhaps better (though admittedly not as catchy) to say that models are attempts at abstract representations of reality, within bounds. And when designed well, and applied judiciously,

⁵⁷“All models are wrong” in Wikipedia

⁵⁸سورة الذاريات for تفسير ابن القيم

models can provide valuable insight into the real phenomena that are being investigated.⁵⁹

Here is an example where the theoretical framework developed in the Arabic grammatical tradition does not accurately model actual speech that is outside the bounds of the model. The standard model developed by the grammarians states the following rules regarding the relationship between a verb and its doer:

1. A verb must have a doer.
2. A verb cannot have more than one doer (element).
3. The doer of a verb must follow it in sentence word order.
4. When the verb has a pronoun doer, and it has extra sounds/letters after the verb, some of those are considered the doer, like alif for the dual and 9 for plural, of the absentee participant.

This model is sufficient to analyze sentences like example (80) قَرَأَ زَيْدٌ «Zayd read» and (through taqdīr) example (87) ذَهَبَ «He went». But it is not able to accurately model dialectal usage outside its bounds. Like example (70) صَرَّبُونِي قَوْمُكَ «Your people beat me». This is because the verb صَرَّبَ has a doer noun قَوْم «people» after it. But it also has the letter 9 which is normally considered a doer pronoun for «they». This results in two doer elements which is not permissible. Therefore, in order to accommodate this dialectal usage, a slightly different model would be needed.

By the way, the theoretical framework developed within the Arabic grammatical tradition is not necessarily the only way to model the Arabic language. Also, different models may be developed for different purposes, depending on the issues that researchers may be investigating. For example, there has been much research in linguistics in Western academia since the 20th century CE, resulting in the development of models within the Western linguistic tradition. Then there are *large language models (LLMs)*, developed using artificial intelligence, whose typical purpose is for machines to generate human-like language.⁶⁰ Some researchers have tried fitting these newer models to the Arabic language.⁶¹

Having said that, we also don't mean to imply a free-for-all, anything-goes plurality for the validity of different models. A researcher must take pains to validate his model to whatever degree possible (see, for example, Section 26.7.3 above). And if two different models give contradictory (but not necessarily different) outputs for the same inputs and bounds, then at least one of them is inaccurate or invalid for that particular case.

Our goal is to teach the student SCA, and to enable him to be able to venture into Islāmic works written in SCA. For this purpose, we find the standard model⁶² (including taqdīr) developed within the Arabic grammatical tradition suitable and more-or-less sufficient. But we should realize its scope and limitations, and try not to get too bogged down in theoretical ideals.

⁵⁹“All models are wrong” in *Wikipedia*

⁶⁰“Large language model” in *Wikipedia*

⁶¹Aliane, “Contribution to a modern reading of Sibawayhi” 11; See, for example, Owens, “Structure, class and dependency: Modern linguistic theory and the Arabic grammatical tradition”

⁶²typified by, let's say, ألفية ابن مالك

26.10. Understanding grammar rules

The Arabic grammatical tradition provides rules for Arabic grammar. Strictly speaking, these rules should be understood, not as rules for how the learner should speak Arabic, but as rules for how the learner can analyze, and thereby understand, Arabic.

Let's explain this difference by an example. Let's say that we give a rule that a sentence needs two elements to be a complete sentence: either a verb and its doer, or a subject and its info. For example:

- (33) زَيْدٌ جَاءَ
«Zayd came.»

Now consider the following question-answer sequence:

- (34) مَنْ جَاءَ --- زَيْدٌ
«—Who came? —Zayd.»

The answer in example (110) is a single word زَيْدٌ. Yet it is a complete sentence. This is by assuming an implied verbal sentence جَاءَ after زَيْدٌ, thus:

- (35) زَيْدٌ [جَاءَ]
«Zayd came.»

This gives the sentence two elements and makes it consistent with the rule. Notably, the rule still stands and is needed for the correct understanding of the text. Also, if we take only the rule we have given, we wouldn't know that we could drop one of the elements of a sentence when forming a sentence of our own.

Similar to the above scenario, we will often see the grammarians expounding a grammar rule that a particular type of expression is constructed in a certain way. Only to then find examples in surface speech, which may not even be anomalous usage, that seem to contradict the rule. The grammarians then attempt to mold the apparently nonconforming example according to their rule by taqdiring deleted elements. Their goal is to show that the rule still stands and determines how the expression is to be analyzed and interpreted.⁶³

So, in summary, rules will tell us how to analyze and understand texts. And each rule, individually, is not necessarily dictating to us how we should be forming our own sentences in surface speech.

⁶³Here is an example:

ولا يتقدم نعت المصدر على معموله فلا يقال عرفت سوقك العنيف الإبل، لأن معمول المصدر منه بمنزلة الصلة من الموصول، فلا يتقدم نعت المصدر على معموله، كما لا يتقدم نعت الموصول على صلته، فإن ورد ما يوهم خلاف ذلك قدر فعل بعد النعت يتعلق به المعمول المتأخر. فمن ذلك قول الحطيئة:
أَرْمَعْتُ يَأْسًا مُبِينًا مِنْ نَوَالِكُمْ ~ وَلَنْ تَرَى طَارِدًا لِلْحُرِّ كَالْيَأْسِ
فالمبتدأ إلى فهم سامع هذا البيت تعليق من نوالكم بياسا، وهو غير جائز كما ذكرت، بل يتعلق بيئست مضمرا [3/108-109 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]

Work in progress

Chapter 27.

Sentence and government theory

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

27.1. Introduction

In this chapter, we will study the Arabic grammatical model for constructing sentences. We will first define some linguistic terms.

27.1.1. Truth-evaluability

Statements are classified into two types:

- i. a truth-evaluable statement
- ii. a non-truth-evaluable statement

A *truth-evaluable* statement is one that can be judged to be true or false. In other words it is falsifiable. For example, if we have a statement:

- (1) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
« Zayd is standing. »

The above statement may be judged to have a truth value. If zayd is actually standing, then the statement is true. And if zayd is not standing, then the statement is false.

A *non-truth-evaluable* statement, on the other hand, does not have a truth value. Here are some examples of non-truth-evaluable statements:

- (2) اُضْرِبْ زَيْدًا
« Beat Zayd! »
- (3) لَا تَفْعَلْ
« Don't do [it]! »

(4) يَا زَيْدُ
« O Zayd »

(5) مَنْ هُوَ
« Who is he? »

27.1.2. Syntax, semantics, pragmatics, and stylistics

Syntax and semantics

Semantics is the study of the meanings of words. And *syntax* is the study of how words combine to form phrases and sentences. Syntax deals with the grammatical relationships between the words in a sentence. For example, consider the adjectival noun كَبِير. Semantically, it gives the meaning of something being big. When it is in a linguistic environment, like a phrase or a sentence, then its syntactical role is determined by the grammatical relationships it has with other words in the sentence.

Consider the following sentence:

(3) الْبَيْتُ كَبِيرٌ
« The house is big »

In the above sentence, كَبِير is *syntactically* a info.

Now consider the following sentence:

(4) دَخَلَ بَيْتًا كَبِيرًا
« He entered a big house. »

Now the same noun كَبِير is syntactically a attribute. In both examples, كَبِير has the same semantic signification.

Pragmatics

Pragmatics is the study of what sentences mean in a specific context or situation.

Stylistics

In order to express a meaning, there will often be a normal way to choose words or construct a sentence's structure. If, for some effect (rhetorical, persuasive, literary, etc.), the speaker chooses to deviate from this norm, then he is doing so for stylistic reasons.¹

¹Hickey, L, "Stylistics, Pragmatics, and Pragmastylistics"

27.2. The theory of government

A sentence in Arabic is constituted from elements. An element can be a noun, a verb, or a particle. Of these elements, some have the quality of case. These are called *caseful* elements. The caseful elements are nouns and muḍāriʿ verbs. A noun may be either in the u-case, a-case, or i-case. And a muḍāriʿ verb may be either in the u-case, a-case, or ø-case.

The theory of government states that a caseful element in a sentence is *governed* in a particular case by a *governor*.

For example:

- (5) فِي الدَّارِ
«in the house»

In the above example, the preposition فِي causes the noun الدَّارِ to be in the i-case. So we say that the *governor* فِي *governs* الدَّارِ (the *governee*) in the i-case.

27.3. Some common governees

Let's look at some common governor-governee relationships. We will make use of the following example:

- (6) قَرَأَ الْغُلَامُ الطَّوِيلُ كِتَابَ الْجَارِيَةِ فِي الدَّارِ الْكَبِيرَةِ

The i-case noun

A noun in the i-case is governed by a preceding preposition or annexed noun. We have already seen that the i-case noun الدَّارِ is governed by the preceding preposition فِي. We also see that the i-case annexed-to noun الْجَارِيَةِ is governed by the annexed noun كِتَابَ.

The doer

The doer of a verb is governed by its preceding verb. In our example the verb قَرَأَ governs its doer الْغُلَامُ in the u-case.

The direct doee

The direct doee is also governed by its verb. In our example the verb قَرَأَ governs its direct doee كِتَابَ in the a-case.

The attribute

A attribute is governed by governor of its attributee. In our example, the attribute الطَّوِيلُ is governed in the u-case by قَرَأَ, which is the governor of its attributee الْغُلَامُ. Similarly, the attribute الْكَبِيرَةِ is governed in the i-case by the preposition فِي because فِي also governs its attributee الدَّارِ.

Ungoverned elements

Not every element in a sentence is governed by a governor. For example, the māḍī verb فَرَّ has no case, and thus, no governor.

Here is a diagram depicting the above governor-governee relationships:

DIAGRAM

27.4. The two indispensable elements of a sentence

In the Arabic grammatical tradition, a sentence can be modeled as analogous to the structure of a simple *lean-to* building. Figure 27.1 depicts this model. This structure requires two *indispensable* elements in order to be structurally complete.² These two indispensable elements are:

- i. The leaned-against element
- ii. The leaning element

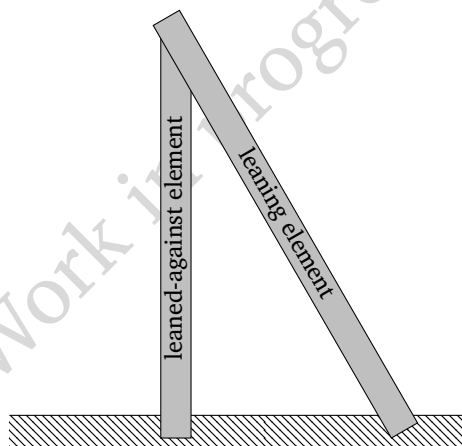


Figure 27.1.: A lean-to building as the model for an Arabic sentence.

The leaned-against element is the primary indispensable element. It represents whom the sentence is about, i.e. its topic. The leaning element rests against the leaned-against element. It expresses some property about the leaned-against element that completes the meaning of the sentence.³

Once the two indispensable elements are in place, the sentence is structurally complete. Other *dispensable* elements (see section (ref) below) may be added in addition to the indispensable elements to add meaning to the sentence, but they are not required to make the sentence structurally complete.

²Wright 2/250ff; الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي 13ff

³See also Talmon, "Musnad, musnad ilayhi and the early history of Arabic grammar: A reconsideration"

Let's look at the indispensable elements for the two types of Arabic sentences:

27.4.1. The indispensable elements of a nounal sentence

In a nounal sentence the subject is the leaned-against element and the info is the leaning element. Consider the following nounal sentence:

- (7) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

DIAGRAM

Example (121) above is a nounal sentence. The subject زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element. It is the topic of the sentence. The info قَائِمٌ is the leaning element. It is a comment on the topic, giving us some information about زَيْدٌ.

27.4.2. The indispensable elements of a verbal sentence

In a verbal sentence the verb is the leaning element and its doer is the leaned-against element. Consider the following verbal sentence:

- (8) قَامَ زَيْدٌ

DIAGRAM

Example (122) above is a verbal sentence. The doer زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element. It is the topic of the sentence. And the verb قَامَ is the leaning element. It is a comment on the topic.

27.5. Foundational government

In order to build a sentence from the indispensable elements, a sentence needs *foundational government*.⁴

Foundational government is any and all government prior to, and until, the first governed indispensable element. Foundational government may be of different types:

One of the two indispensable elements is the foundational government

In some sentences, the initial governor may be one of the two indispensable elements. In example (122) above, the verb قَامَ governs its doer زَيْدٌ. The māḍī verb قَامَ has no case and thus needs no governor. So it is, itself, the foundational government.

DIAGRAM

⁴See Owens, *The foundations of grammar* §2.3.6.1, 54

Another (non-indispensable) element is the foundational government

The initial governor may be internal to the sentence but not one of the two indispensable elements.

Here are some examples:

- (9) لَمْ يَضْرِبِ الرَّجُلُ عِلَامَ زَيْدٍ [Owens, *The foundations of grammar* §2.2.3, 41]
«The man did not beat Zayd's slave.»

DIAGRAM

- (10) إِنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

DIAGRAM

The abstract foundational government

Very commonly, the foundational government is not an actual word, but only an abstract concept. When there is one or more careful indispensable elements in a sentence with no overt (i.e. observable) governor, then this necessitates bringing in a *abstract* foundational government.⁵ For example:

- (11) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ [Peled, *Sentence types* 87]
«Zayd is setting out.»

The abstract foundational government governs both the leaned-against element (the subject زَيْدٌ), and the leaning element (the info مُنْطَلِقٌ) in the u-case.

- (12) يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ
«Zayd stands»

The abstract foundational government governs the leaning element (the mudāriʿ verb يَقُومُ) in the u-case. And, as usual, the verb يَقُومُ governs its doer زَيْدٌ (the leaned-against element) in the u-case.

27.6. Dispensable elements

A dispensable element is any careful element in a sentence, following the foundational government (in government hierarchy), that is not either of the two indispensable elements. The source of government for a dispensable element must be, directly or indirectly, one of the indispensable elements.

We know from section (ref) above, that in a nominal sentence the indispensable elements are the subject and the info. And that in a verbal sentence the indispensable elements are the verb and its doer. So all other elements besides these two, and elements that constitute the foundational government, are dispensable elements. Here is an (incomplete) list of some common dispensable elements:

⁵Owens, *The foundations of grammar* 55; Peled, *Sentence types* 87–88

- the attribute
- the direct doer (usually)
- the absolute doer (see chapter (ref))
- the adverb of time and the adverb of place (see chapter (ref))
- the adverb of reason (see chapter (ref))
- the accompanying doer (see chapter (ref))
- the ḥāl (see chapter (ref))
- the tamyīz (see chapter (ref))

By the way, when we say *dispensable*, we mean that an element is dispensable in the sense that it is not required to make the sentence structurally complete. We don't mean that it is superfluous in terms of its meaning. In fact, a dispensable element may be essential for the correct meaning of the sentence. For example, consider the āyah:

- (13) وَمَا خَلَقْنَا السَّمَاءَ وَالْأَرْضَ وَمَا بَيْنَهُمَا لَاعِبِينَ [سورة الأنبياء 21:16 cited by معاني النحو 1/14]
 «And We did not create the heaven and earth and that between them in play.»

لَاعِبِينَ is a ḥāl (see in chapter (ref)), which is a dispensable element. If we remove it from the sentence, then the sentence will be structurally complete but it will have a grossly incorrect meaning.

27.7. Refining the definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence

We know that there are two basic types of Arabic sentences:

- The nounal sentence
- The verbal sentence

Previously we had said that a nounal sentence is one that begins with a noun. And a verbal sentence is one that begins with a verb. We will now refine these definitions, from the perspective of sentence completion:

A *nounal sentence* is one whose indispensable elements are two nouns: a subject (as the leaned-against element) and an info (as the leaning element). And a *verbal sentence* is one whose indispensable elements are a verb (as the leaning element) and its doer (as the leaned-against element).

Consider, for example, the following sentence:

- (14) بَلْ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
 «Rather Zayd is standing.»

The first word in the sentence above is بَلْ. It is a particle and not an indispensable element. Removing it from the sentence, we see that the remaining indispensable elements are two nouns: زَيْدٌ (the subject) and قَائِمٌ (as the info). So the sentence is a nounal sentence.

Let's take a look at another example:

- (15) زَيْدًا رَأَيْتُ [Peled, *Sentence types* 28]
« [It was] Zayd I saw. »

The first word in the sentence is زَيْدًا. It is a direct doee. We learned in section (ref) above that a direct doee is not usually a indispensable element. Rather, it is usually a dispensable element. Stripping the sentence of this dispensable element, we are left with رَأَيْتُ « I saw ». This is a verbal sentence. The verb رَأَى is the leaning element and its doer, the pronoun تُو, is the leaned-against element.

Traditional definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence

The above re-definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence are from the perspective of sentence completion. There is no problem if we continue to use the original definitions in other spheres (as for example in Section 41.6.3). But we will still refine the traditional definitions to say:

A *nounal sentence* is one whose first *indispensable* element is a noun. And a *verbal sentence* is one whose first *indispensable* element is a verb.

27.8. Identifying the indispensable elements in a nounal sentence

It can sometimes be complicated to tell which of the two indispensable elements in a nounal sentence is the leaned-against element and which is the leaning element. We will discuss several cases below:

27.8.1. When there is an overt foundational government

When there is an overt foundational government, like إِنَّ, كَانَ, etc., then it is usually easy to tell which is the leaned-against element and which is the leaning element. For example:

- (16) فَإِنَّ حَسْبَكَ اللَّهُ [سورة الأنفال 8:62]
« then sufficient for you is Allāh »

In example (130) above, حَسْبُ is in the a-case as the subject and the word اللَّهُ is in the u-case as the info. This tells us that حَسْبُ is the leaned-against element and the word اللَّهُ is the leaning element.

27.8.2. One indispensable element is definite and the other indispensable element is indefinite

When one indispensable element is definite and the other indispensable element is indefinite, then it is usually the case that the definite element is the leaned-

against element (as the subject) and the indefinite element is the leaning element (as the info).

In terms of pragmatics, the leaned-against element and the leaning element represent 'given' and 'new' information. That is, the listener knows who the leaned-against element is and can identify him or it. So the leaned-against element is a 'given' to the listener. And the speaker is providing 'new' information about the leaned-against element to the listener. The definite element represents the 'given' information, which the listener already knows. And the indefinite element represents 'new' information.

Let's take a look at an example:

- (17) تَمِيمِي أَنَا [Peled, *Sentence types* 121]
« A Tamimite I am. »

The pronoun أَنَا is definite. Therefore it is the leaned-against element (as the subject). And the word تَمِيمِي is indefinite. Therefore it is the leaning element (as the info). Example (131) is an inverted order sentence where the info is fronted and the subject is placed after it.

In special cases, some grammarians hold that it is possible to have an indefinite subject and a definite info.⁶ One special case is when a question noun is the subject. (Question nouns are considered indefinite.) For example:

- (18) حَاشِيَةُ الصَّبَانِ عَلَى شَرْحِ الْأَشْمُونِيِّ لِأَلْفِيَةِ ابْنِ مَالِكٍ [1/231]
« How much is your wealth? »

- (19) أَيُّ لَيْلَةٍ لَيْلَةُ الْقَدْرِ [3513: جامع الترمذي]
« Which night is the night of Decree »

Another special case is when the subject is an indefinite comparative noun in sentences like:

- (19) حَاشِيَةُ الصَّبَانِ عَلَى شَرْحِ الْأَشْمُونِيِّ لِأَلْفِيَةِ ابْنِ مَالِكٍ [1/231]
« Better than you is Zayd »

In the above sentence, خَيْرٌ is considered the subject of the sentence.

27.8.3. Both indispensable elements are definite

When both indispensable elements are definite, then typically the first is the subject and the second is the info. For example:

- (20) الدِّينُ النَّصِيحَةُ [55a: صحيح مسلم]
« The Religion is sincerity. »

⁶<https://alababmisr.com/%D8%B3%D8%A4%D8%A7%D9%84-%D9%87%D9%84-%D9%8A%D8%AC%D9%88%D8%B2-%D8%A3%D9%86-%D9%8A%D8%A3%D8%AA%D9%8A-%D8%A7%D9%84%D9%85%D8%A8%D8%AA%D8%AF%D8%A3-%D9%86%D9%83%D8%B1%D8%A9-%D9%88%D8%A7%D9%84%D8%AE/>

However, if it is known from context that one of the two elements is the 'given' information and the other is the 'new' information, then the given information will be the subject and the new information will be the info, regardless of word-order.⁷

For example, consider a situation where one wishes to say, "Abū Yūsuf is [like] Abū Ḥanīfah." (Imām Abū Yūsuf was the foremost student of Imām Abū Ḥanīfah.) The normal way to express this sentence is:

- (21) 1/233] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [أَبُو يُوسُفَ أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ
«Abū Yūsuf is [like] Abū Ḥanīfah.»

DIAGRAM

However, if it is pragmatically known that the topic of the sentence is أَبُو يُوسُفَ, then it is 'given' that أَبُو يُوسُفَ is the leaned-against element (as the subject). Similarly, it is known that likening him to أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ is the 'new' information. Therefore, أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ is the leaning element (as the info). In this case, the sentence order can be flexible, and the info can be fronted (stylistically), for the same meaning, thus:

- (22) أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ أَبُو يُوسُفَ
«[Like] Abū Ḥanīfah, Abū Yūsuf is.»

DIAGRAM

27.8.4. Both indispensable elements are indefinite

When both indispensable elements are indefinite then, again, the first is likely to be the subject and the second to be the info. Examples:

- (23) 1/232] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [أَفْضَلُ مِنْ زَيْدٍ أَفْضَلُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو
«[The person] better than Zayd is better than ʿamr.»

- (24) 42:40] سورة الشورى [وَجَزَاءُ سَيِّئَةٍ سَيِّئَةٌ مِثْلُهَا^ط
«And the retribution for an evil act is an evil one like it»

27.9. The compound sentence

In a nounal sentence, the info is, by default, a single noun. See example (112) again:

- (24) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

In example (112), قَائِمٌ is a single word and it is the info. This is what we may call a *simple* nounal sentence.

In contrast, in a *compound* nounal sentence, the info is itself a complete sentence. For example:

⁷ 1/168 معاني النحو; 1/233 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

- (25) زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd – he stands »

In example (140) above, زَيْدٌ is the subject and يَقُومُ is the info. But يَقُومُ is not a single word here. It is in fact a complete sentence. This is because, as we know, a verb *must* be followed by its doer. And if there is no overt doer, then a latent doer pronoun is implicated. So يَقُومُ is a verbal sentence with the meaning « he stands ».

Here is example of a compound nounal sentence, whose info is also a nounal sentence:

- (26) زَيْدٌ أَبُوهُ قَائِمٌ [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/26]
« Zayd – his father is standing. »

(FIXME: MOVE THIS TO KAANA CHAPTER):

Compound sentences are very common with كَانَ. Remember from section (ref) above that كَانَ is a deficient verb, and thus needs a info to grammatically the sentence. This info may be a single word, like:

- (27) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا
« Zayd was standing. »

Or the info of كَانَ may be a complete sentence:

- (28) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd used to stand. »

(END FIXME)

The info of a compound nounal sentence is typically a truth-evaluable sentence. But it need not be so. A non-truth-evaluable sentence is also valid as a info⁸ For example:

- (29) زَيْدٌ أَضْرَبْتُهُ [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/27]
« Zayd – hit him! »
(i.e. « Hit Zayd! »)

27.9.1. The government of the compound nounal sentence sentence

The info of a compound nounal sentence is a complete sentence. Therefore, it has its own independent internal government for all elements within it (including its own foundational government). But the *entire* info is governed, albeit not markedly, by a governor in the outer sentence. For example, consider the following compound nounal sentence:

- (30) زَيْدٌ لَمْ يَضْرِبْ عَمْرًا
« Zayd – he did not hit ʿAmr »

⁸ 4/27 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان; 1/347 شرح جمل الزجاجي لابن عصفور

In example (145) above, *لَمْ يَضْرِبْ عَمْرًا* is a complete sentence that is the info of the outer sentence. This inner sentence has its own internal government, starting with its foundational government *لَمْ*. The foundational government *لَمْ* governs the verb *يَضْرِبْ* in the $\emptyset$ -case. And the verb *يَضْرِبْ* governs an implicated latent doer pronoun (*هُوَ*) in the u-case, and the direct doee *عَمْرًا* in the a-case.

We will say that the inner sentence *لَمْ يَضْرِبْ عَمْرًا* is a positional u-case noun as the info of the outer sentence.

The government of this compound sentence is illustrated in the diagram below:

DIAGRAM

27.9.2. Invalid inner sentences

Some sentences are not valid as inner sentences:

- A sentence beginning with *لَنْ*, *حَتَّى*, or *بَلْ* is not valid.⁹
- A vocative sentence is not valid.¹⁰ So, we cannot say, for example:

(31) *التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان* [زيد يا أخاه] ×
 “Zayd – O his brother.”

27.9.3. The link between the inner and outer sentence

It is usually necessary for there to be a link between the inner sentence, and the subject of the outer sentence. This link is typically supplied by a pronoun. Let's look at some examples:

(32) *المقتصد للرجاني* [زَيْدٌ قَامَ أَبُوهُ]
 «Zayd – his father stood up.»

DIAGRAM

In example (147) above, the link is the pronoun *هُوَ* in *abuuhu*.

(33) *المقتصد للرجاني* [زَيْدٌ قَامَ]
 «Zayd – he stood up.»

DIAGRAM

In example (148) above, the link is the implied singular masculine pronoun that is the doer of *قَامَ*.

Generally, if there is no such link between the inner sentence and the subject of the outer sentence, then the compound sentence is invalid.[†] [Peled, *Sentence types* 94 citing *المقتصد للرجاني*; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] So we cannot say, for example:

(34) *شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل* [Peled, *Sentence types* 94 citing *المقتصد للرجاني*] [Zayd قَامَ عَمْرٌ] ×
 «Zayd – Emr stood up»

⁹ *التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان* 4/28

¹⁰ *التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان* 4/28

A pointing noun as the link

Instead of a pronoun, an pointing noun may serve as the link. For example:

- (35) [1/204 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية cited by سورة الأعراف 7:26] وَلِبَاسُ التَّقْوَىٰ ذَٰلِكَ خَيْرٌ
«But the clothing of righteousness - that is best.»

A repeated subject as the link

The subject of the outer sentence may be repeated in the inner sentence, and this is sufficient as the link. For example:

- (36) [1/204 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية cited by سورة الحاقة 69:1-2] مَا الْحَاقَّةُ الْحَاقَّةُ
«The Inevitable Reality - What is the Inevitable Reality?»

No need for the link

In cases where the info of the outer sentence is more general than its subject a link is not needed. For example:

- (37) [1/204 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, Wright 2/256D] زَيْدٌ نَعْمَ الرَّجُلُ
«Zayd – an excellent man»

The link is also not needed when the subject of the outer sentence and its info are perfectly identical in meaning. For example:

- (38) [1/204 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, Wright 2/256D] نَطْقِي اللَّهَ حَسْبِي
«My utterance is “Allāh is sufficient for me.”»

- (39) [1/204 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, Wright 2/256D] قَوْلِي لَا إِلَهَ إِلَّا اللَّهُ
«My saying is “There is no god but Allāh.”»

An implied link

The link, even when technically required, is sometimes omitted. But it remains implied. This is in cases in which the sense is perfectly clear without it.¹¹ For example:

- (39) [1/238 شرح الرضي على الكافية; 1/278 المقتصد للجرجاني; Wright 2/256C] أَلَسَّمْنُ مَنَوَانَ بِدِرْهَمٍ
«The ghee is (at the rate of) two manās for a dirham.»

In the example above, the sentence with the link restored is أَلَسَّمْنُ مَنَوَانَ مِنْهُ بِدِرْهَمٍ «two manās of it for a dirham.»

¹¹Wright 2/256B

27.10. Other complete sentences in place of nouns

It is not only the info which can be replaced with a complete sentence. Other grammatical categories are also, by default, a single noun, but which can be replaced with complete sentences. We will discuss some of these categories below, and treat other categories in their respective chapters (like the *ḥāl*, the condition-response, and verbs of perception).

27.10.1. The direct doee as a complete sentence

A sentence which is direct speech occurs in the place of a direct doee. For example:

- (40) 1/23 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب [سورة مريم 19:30 cited by] قَالَ إِنِّي عَبْدُ اللَّهِ
« [Jesus] said, “Indeed, I am the servant of Allāh.»

In the example above, the sentence *إِنِّي عَبْدُ اللَّهِ* is in place of the a-case direct doee of *قَالَ*.

A complete sentence can also occur as a direct doee with verbs of perception. Examples:

- (41) 1/24 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب [ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا يَقْرَأُ]
«I believed Zayd [to be] reading.»

In the example above, the verbal sentence *يَقْرَأُ* is in place of the a-case direct doee of *ظَنَنْتُ*. We will learn more about this category in chapter (ref), if Allāh wills.

27.10.2. The attribute as a complete sentence

The attribute is, in principle, a single noun.

However, an sentence entire sentence may occur in place of the single noun. For example, instead of saying *مَرَزْتُ بِرَجُلٍ قَائِمٍ*, we can replace the single word attribute *قَائِمٍ* with the sentence *يَقُومُ*, thus:

- (42) 308 الإيضاح للفارسي [مَرَزْتُ بِرَجُلٍ يَقُومُ]
«I passed by a man [that] stands.»
(literally: «I passed by a ‘he stands’ man.»)

Note that the *muḍāriʿ* verb *يَقُومُ* is in the u-case. This is because *يَقُومُ* is a complete sentence (with an implied doer pronoun). So it has its own internal government that is not affected by any element in the outer sentence. Thus, the case of the attributee *رَجُلٍ* has no effect on any case within the sentence-attribute. However, the entire sentence attribute is *in place* of a i-case noun as the attribute of *رَجُلٍ*.

Substituting a single-noun attribute with its corresponding *muḍāriʿ* verb is the most basic form of the sentence-attribute. However, more complex sentence-attributes may also be formed. For example:

- (43) *وَاتَّقُوا يَوْمًا تُرْجَعُونَ فِيهِ إِلَى اللَّهِ* [3/276 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكِ لابن هشام 2:281 سورة البقرة] «And fear a Day when you will be returned to Allāh.»

In example (159) above, the sentence *تُرْجَعُونَ فِيهِ إِلَى اللَّهِ* is a attribute of *يَوْمًا*.

There are three conditions that must be met in order for a sentence to occur as a attribute⁶: [3/275–278 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكِ لابن هشام]

1. The attributee must be indefinite, either in wording or in meaning.
2. The sentence-attribute must contain a link that links back to the attributee.
3. The sentence-attribute should be truth-evaluable.

Let's discuss each of these conditions.

Indefiniteness of the attributee

We already saw an example of an indefinite (in wording) attributee in example (159) above. Here is an example of a attributee which is definite in wording, but indefinite in meaning:

- (44) *وَلَقَدْ أَمَرْتُ عَلَى اللَّئِيمِ بِسُبْنِي* [3/276 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكِ لابن هشام] «And indeed I pass by the ignoble [person that] insults me»

In example (160) the attributee *اللَّئِيمِ* is referring to a general person, and is therefore indefinite in meaning.

A link that links back to the attributee

In example (159), the link, which links back to the attributee *يَوْمًا*, is the pronoun *هـ* in *فِيهِ*.

Sometimes the link is not explicit, but is implied. For example:

- (45) *وَاتَّقُوا يَوْمًا لَا تَجْزِي نَفْسٌ عَنْ نَفْسٍ شَيْئًا* [3/277 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكِ لابن هشام 2:123 سورة البقرة] «And fear a Day when no soul will suffice for another soul at all»

The implied link is the pronoun *هـ* in an implied *فِيهِ*, i.e. *لَا تَجْزِي فِيهِ*.

The sentence-attribute should be truth-evaluable

The following sentence is impermissible because the attribute *اَضْرَبَهُ* is a non-truth-evaluable sentence.

- (46) *مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ اَضْرَبَهُ* × [3/278 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكِ لابن هشام] «I passed by a man – hit him»

27.10.3. The annexed-to noun in an annexation as a complete sentence

The annexed-to noun in an annexation may be a complete sentence instead of a single noun. For example:

- (47) شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب [5:119 سورة المائدة] هَذَا يَوْمٌ يَنْفَعُ الصَّادِقِينَ صِدْقُهُمْ
1/28
« This is the Day when the truthful will benefit from their truthfulness. »

In example (163) above the entire sentence *يَنْفَعُ الصَّادِقِينَ صِدْقُهُمْ* is the annexed-to noun to the annexed noun *يَوْمٌ*. As with sentence-infos and sentence-attributes, the sentence-annexed-to noun has its own internal government. And the sentence-annexed-to noun is *in place* of an i-case noun.

Here is another example:

- (48) 1/29 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب [40:16 سورة غافر] يَوْمٌ هُمْ بَرْزُونَ
« The Day they come forth »

27.11. A foreign element separating a governor from its governee

A foreign element, with respect to a particular governor, is one that is not *directly* governed by the governor. In most cases, a foreign element should not come between (and thus separate) a governor from its governee(s). For example, consider the following sentence:

- (49) [66 الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي] عَلِمْتُ مُحَمَّدًا يُؤَلِّفُ كِتَابًا
« I knew Muḥammad [to be] writing a book. »

In the example above the verbal sentence *يُؤَلِّفُ كِتَابًا* is in place of the second direct doer of *عَلِمْتُ*. The noun *كِتَابًا* is governed directly by the verb *يُؤَلِّفُ*. So *يُؤَلِّفُ كِتَابًا* is a foreign element for the verb *عَلِمْتُ*. Therefore, *كِتَابًا* should not come between the governor *عَلِمْتُ* and its governee *مُحَمَّدًا*. So the following sentence would be impermissible:

- (50) [66 الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي] عَلِمْتُ كِتَابًا مُحَمَّدًا يُؤَلِّفُ ×

27.12. The state-of-affairs pronoun

Usually, for pronouns, the pronoun's referent is a single noun that occurs before it. For example, if we say

- (51) زَيْدٌ هُوَ مُنْطَلِقٌ
« Zayd is setting out. »

Then the pronoun **هُوَ** refers to the noun **زَيْدٌ** which occurs before it.

There is a special pronoun, called the *state-of-affairs pronoun* (**ضَمِيرُ الشَّأْنِ**) that behaves differently from other pronouns. It is used to begin compound nominal sentences. Here is an example of a sentence with a state-of-affairs pronoun:

(52) **هُوَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ** [1/57] معاني النحو

« [The state of affairs] is: Zayd is setting out. »

The pronoun **هُوَ** in example (52) above is the state-of-affairs pronoun. It is the subject of the outer sentence. Its info is the inner sentence **زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ**. What the state-of-affairs pronoun is referring to is explained by the entire sentence **زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ** that occurs after it.

The state-of-affairs pronoun is typically used for statements that are momentous. Consider, for example, a situation where one hears some hubbub, and wonders, « What is the state of affairs that is causing this hubbub?¹² » The answer to this question is:

(53) **هُوَ الْأَمِيرُ مُقْبِلٌ** [2/464] شرح الرضي على الكافية

« It is: the commander is approaching. »

(the pronoun “it” is referring to “the state of affairs”).

In English, one might hear this sort of sentence expressed as: « *The thing is*: the commander is approaching. » Usually though, this pronoun is left untranslated. So example (53) may simply be translated as « The commander is approaching. »

Here are some rules and guidelines regarding the state-of-affairs pronoun:

The gender of the state-of-affairs pronoun

If the subject of the following sentence is masculine, then the state-of-affairs pronoun is generally the masculine pronoun **هُوَ**. And if the subject of the following sentence is feminine, then the state-of-affairs pronoun is generally the feminine pronoun **هِيَ**. Examples:

(54) **هُوَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ** [745] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

« [The state of affairs] is: Zayd is standing. »

(55) **هِيَ هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ** [745] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

« [The state of affairs] is: Hind is standing. »

Sometimes, however, the gender of the state-of-affairs pronoun can mismatch the gender of the following subject. For example:

(55) **هِيَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ** [745] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

« [The state of affairs] is: Zayd is standing. »

(56) **هُوَ هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ** [745-756] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

« [The state of affairs] is: Hind is standing. »

¹² 2/464 شرح الرضي على الكافية

The state-of-affairs pronoun is always a singular pronoun

The state-of-affairs pronoun is always a singular pronoun, regardless of whether the subject of the following subject is singular, dual, or plural.¹³

- (56) هُوَ الزَّيْدَانِ قَائِمَانِ
« [The state of affairs] is: the two Zayds are standing. »
- (57) هِيَ الْهِنْدَاتُ قَائِمَاتُ
« [The state of affairs] is: the Hinds are standing. »

The state-of-affairs pronoun is always a pronoun for the absentee person

Even if the subject of the inner sentence is a pronoun for the speaker or addressee persons, the state-of-affairs pronoun is always a pronoun of for the absentee person. For example:

- (57) هُوَ أَنَا زَيْدٌ [1/59 معاني النحو]
« [The fact] is: I am Zayd. »

The sentence أَنَا أَنَا زَيْدٌ is possible, but in this case the pronoun أَنَا is not a state-of-affairs pronoun. Rather it is repeated for emphasis.¹⁴

The state-of-affairs pronouns هُوَ and هِيَ only introduce nounal sentences

The state-of-affairs pronouns هُوَ and هِيَ only introduce nounal sentences.¹⁵ This can be seen in the examples above.

We will see, in sections (kaana) and (inna), that the state-of-affairs pronoun can also be used with كَانَ and إِنَّ (and its sisters). In these cases, the state-of-affairs pronoun may introduce verbal sentences. For example:

- (58) فَإِنَّهَا لَا تَعْمَى الْأَبْصَرُ [2/467 شرح الرضي على الكافية 22:46 سورة الحج]
« For indeed, it is not eyes that are blinded »

27.13. Deletion

Al-Liheibi, *Aspects of sentence analysis in the Arabic linguistic tradition* Chapter 5

In Arabic, a part of a sentence may be deleted. There are three types of deletion:

- i. Mandatory deletion
- ii. Regular deletion

¹³ 1/59 معاني النحو

¹⁴ 1/59 معاني النحو

¹⁵ 2/467 شرح الرضي على الكافية

iii. Optional deletion

Lines are blurred. حتى أن is shaadh.

General rule: optional deletion only allowed when listener can reconstruct the deleted elements.

27.14. positional case

في محل رفع/نصب/جزم
TODO

Work in progress

Work in progress

Chapter 28.

The doer participle as a verb-like governor

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

28.1. Introduction

The verb is the basic, and strongest, governor of a doer or doee. Deverbal nouns, because they are derived from the verb, can also govern in a verb-like manner. In this chapter we will discuss the rules of how such nouns may act as verb-like governors.

28.2. The doer participle as a verb-like governor

The doer participle is the closest of the deverbal nouns to the verb, and thus the strongest of the deverbal nouns in its capacity to act as a verb-like governor.

Consider the following sentence:

- (1) زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
«Zayd – he stands»

As we know from chapter (ref), this is a compound sentence. زَيْدٌ is the subject of an outer sentence. The info of the outer sentence is the inner sentence يَقُومُ.

Instead of using the muḍāriʿ verb يَقُومُ, we can use its doer participle قَائِمٌ, thus:

- (2) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing»

As you can see, we have translated the muḍāriʿ verb يَقُومُ as «stands» and the doer participle قَائِمٌ as «standing». We will discuss the difference in meaning

between the *muḍāriʿ* verb and the doer participle in more detail in chapter (ref), if Allāh wills. For now, we will focus on the grammar of the two sentences.

There is one notable similarity between the grammar of examples (178) and (179), and one notable difference:

The similarity

The *muḍāriʿ* verb *يَقُومُ*, and the doer participle *قَائِمٌ* both govern a latent doer pronoun, implicated as *هُوَ* [هو].

The difference

The *muḍāriʿ* verb *يَقُومُ* and its latent doer pronoun *هُوَ* are complementary indispensable elements that constitute a complete sentence. The latent doer pronoun *هُوَ* is the leaned-against element and the *muḍāriʿ* verb *يَقُومُ* is the leaning element. The sentence formed by the *muḍāriʿ* verb *يَقُومُ* and its latent doer pronoun *هُوَ* is in place of a u-case noun as the info of the subject (زَيْدٌ) of the outer sentence.

On the other hand, and the doer participle *قَائِمٌ* and its latent doer pronoun *هُوَ* are *not* complementary indispensable elements. Rather, *قَائِمٌ* (as the leaning element) and *زَيْدٌ* (as the leaned-against element) are complementary indispensable elements. This is a simple sentence, not a compound sentence. The latent doer pronoun *هُوَ* is not the indispensable element of any sentence. But, despite being dispensable from the perspective of sentence completion, the latent doer pronoun is an essential governee of the doer participle.

Let's take a look at another example:

- (3) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا قَائِمًا
«I saw a standing man.»

The indispensable elements of this sentence are *رَأَيْتُ*: the verb *رَأَى* and its doer pronoun *تُ*. The entire phrase *رَجُلًا قَائِمًا* has only dispensable elements. *قَائِمًا* is a attribute of *رَجُلًا*, governed by the verb *رَأَى*. The doer participle *قَائِمًا* has a latent doer pronoun *هُوَ* that refers back to *رَجُلًا*. But because *قَائِمًا* is a (dispensable) element of an existing sentence (whose indispensable elements are *رَأَيْتُ*), therefore it cannot be the indispensable leaning element of a new sentence with its latent doer pronoun *هُوَ*.

So, as you can see, whenever the doer participle has a latent doer pronoun, that doer pronoun is not the leaned-against element of any sentence. This is because the doer participle, as a single element, is already a member of an existing sentence.

In contrast, a verb always forms a sentence (as the leaning element) with its doer (as the leaned-against element). If we replace the doer participle *قَائِمًا* with the verb *يَقُومُ* thus:

- (4) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا يَقُومُ

then *يَقُومُ* is a complete sentence with the verb and its latent doer pronoun as indispensable elements. This complete sentence is the attribute of *رَجُلًا*.

28.3. The doer participle as the governor of a latent doer pronoun

Let us look into the latent doer pronoun of the doer participle in more detail. It makes sense for a verb to have a doer but how can a noun have a doer? The reason is that the doer participle, because of its closeness to the verb, can act like one. When acting with verbal force, it can govern a doer. It can also, as we will see soon, if Allāh wills, govern a direct doee.

The doer of the doer participle is, by default, a latent pronoun. And it refers back to a referent that occurs before it. In example (179) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ the doer of the doer participle قَائِمٌ is the latent pronoun [هُوَ]. And the referent of this doer pronoun is the subject زَيْدٌ.

DIAGRAM

Let's see another example:

- (5) صَاخَ الرَّجُلُ الْقَائِمُ
«The standing man shouted.»

then الرَّجُلُ governs a latent doer pronoun [هُوَ], that refers back to الْقَائِمُ.

The fact that the doer participle has a latent doer pronoun is, in fact, the reason why a doer participle in the info will match the subject in gender.¹

For example, if we say:

- (6) هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ
«Hind is standing.»

then the feminine marker ة is added to the doer participle قَائِمٌ only because it has to match the feminine gender of the latent doer pronoun [هِيَ] that occurs with, and is governed by, the doer participle. (The latent doer pronoun [هِيَ] refers back to هِنْدُ.)

When the referent of the latent doer pronoun changes for number or gender, then the latent doer pronoun will change to match it. For example:

- (7) الرَّيْذَانُ قَائِمَانِ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك] 1/291
«The two Zayds are standing.»

- (8) الرَّيْذُونَ قَائِمُونَ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك] 1/291
«The Zayds are standing.»

In example (184) above, the latent doer pronoun of قَائِمَانِ is implicated as هُمَا.

And in example (185) the latent doer pronoun of قَائِمُونَ is implicated as هُمْ.

As a point of technicality, the alif in the dual suffix of قَائِمَانِ and the و in the plural suffix of قَائِمُونَ, are not themselves the doer pronouns.² Rather, the doer pronouns for the doer participles above are latent.

This is different than for verbs. In the verbs يَقُومَانِ and يَقُومُونَ, the alif in ان and the و in وْنَ are, themselves, considered the doer pronouns. And these pronouns are *overt*, not latent.

¹Non-agreement of Mubtada and Khabar

²haazimi 30/5 <https://shamela.ws/book/36130/531>

28.4. The doer participle as the governor of a direct doee

We have seen that the doer participle, when acting with verbal force, governs a doer. In a similar manner, the doer participle for transitive verbs can, optionally, govern a direct doee. In order to introduce this behavior, we use again, as our starting point, the u-case *muḍāriʿ* verb. Consider the following example:

- (8) زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ عَمْرًا
«Zayd beats Amr»

Example (186) above is parsed as follows:

- زَيْدٌ is a subject.
- يَضْرِبُ is a *muḍāriʿ* verb in the u-case. It governs a latent pronoun (implicated as هُوَ) in the u-case as its doer. The latent doer pronoun هُوَ refers back to its referent: the subject زَيْدٌ.
- عَمْرًا is a direct doee, governed in the a-case by the verb يَضْرِبُ.
- يَضْرِبُ عَمْرًا is an inner sentence which is in place of a u-case noun as the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.

Instead of using the verb يَضْرِبُ in example (186) above we may instead use its doer participle ضَارِبٌ, thus:

- (9) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا
«Zayd is beating Amr»

Example (187) is parsed as follows:

- زَيْدٌ is a subject.
- ضَارِبٌ is the info of the subject زَيْدٌ. It governs a latent pronoun (implicated as هُوَ) in the u-case as its doer. The latent doer pronoun هُوَ refers back to the subject زَيْدٌ.
- عَمْرًا is a direct doee, governed in the a-case by the doer participle ضَارِبٌ.

As you can see, the doer participle ضَارِبٌ can govern a direct doee just like the verb يَضْرِبُ.

However, while a transitive verb can govern a direct doee unconditionally, a doer participle can only govern a direct doee if certain conditions are satisfied. We will discuss these conditions in section (ref) below.

By the way, we again highlight the difference in the doer of the verb يَضْرِبُ vs the doer of the doer participle ضَارِبٌ: The verb يَضْرِبُ and its doer are complementary indispensable pairs that constitute a complete sentence. Whereas, the doer participle ضَارِبٌ does not form a new sentence with its doer.

28.4.1. A doer participle defined by آل as the governor of a direct doee

Example (187) shows the government of a direct doee by an doer participle that is not defined by آل. In a similar manner, an doer participle that is defined by آل, can also govern a direct doee. For example:

- (10) [4/84 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] هَذَا الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا
« This [person] is the beater of Zayd. »

By the way, you may be wondering what is the difference between the sentence in example (188) هَذَا الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا above, and if we had used an annexation thus:

- (11) هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدٍ « This [person] is the beater of Zayd. »

This is touched upon in section (ma3aani_ism_faa3il).

28.4.2. Word order of the direct doee and its governing doer participle

As with verbs, the direct doee usually follows its governing doer participle (as in the examples above). But when an doer participle is not prefixed by ال, then its direct doee is allowed to precede it. So we can say:

- (12) [1/259 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] هذا زيدا ضارب
« This [person] is beating Zayd. »

While the direct doee is permitted to precede its governing doer participle (as above), it is very common, in such a case, for a strengthening-ل to be used with an indirect doee instead, thus:

- (13) هذا لزيدٍ ضارب
« This [person], to Zayd, is beating. »

- (14) [Fischer 113] لِلضَّيْفِ مُكْرَمٌ
« to the guest, is honoring »
(i.e. « honoring the guest »)

The strengthening-ل is discussed in more detail in section (later chapter).³

Also, the freedom for the governee of a doer participle to precede it is only given to the doer participle not prefixed by ال. When an doer participle is prefixed by ال, then its direct doee is not allowed to precede it.⁴ So we cannot say:

- (14) × هذا زيدا الضارب

We would have to say instead

- (15) هذا الضارب زيدا ✓

TODO: Fronting the direct doee is not permitted for static adjectival noun. See link in example above. Add to section on static adjectival noun

³See also Wright 2/69CD, Fischer §203 Note 2 p. 113 (who consider this strengthening-ل obligatory), and النحو الوافي 2/475–476 (who doesn't consider it obligatory).

⁴النحو الوافي 3/263

28.4.3. A dual or plural doer participle as the governor of a direct doee

A dual or plural doer participle may govern a direct doee just like the singular. So we can say:

- (16) 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] هذان ضاربان زيدًا
« These two [persons] are beating Zayd. »
- (17) 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] هم ضاربون زيدًا
« These [persons] are beating Zayd. »
- (18) 1/439 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] الهندات ضاربات عمرا
« The Hinds are beating ʿamr. »

Doer participles defined by *أل* are again also permitted:

- (17) 2/40 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] هذان الضاربان زيدا
« These two are the beaters of Zayd. »
- (18) 2/40 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] هؤلاء الضاربون الرجل
« These are the beaters of the man. »
- (19) 2/40 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] 4:162 سورة النساء] وَالْمُقِيمِينَ الصَّلَاةَ وَالْمُؤْتُونَ الزَّكَاةَ
« And the establishers of prayer [especially] and the givers of zakāh »

For plurals, the sound plurals are more worthy of being used as verb-like governors⁵ as in the examples above. However, broken plurals are permitted as well. So we can say:

- (18) 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الزيدون ضاربًا عمرا
« The Zayds are beating ʿamr. »
- (19) 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الهندات ضاربًا عمرا
« The Hinds are beating ʿamr. »

Flexible word order is again permitted for the dual and the plural as it was for the singular:

- (19) 1/439 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] الزيدان عمرا ضاربان
« The two Zayds are beating ʿamr. »
- (20) 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الزيدون عمرا ضاربًا
« The Zayds are beating ʿamr. »
- (21) 1/439 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] الهندات عمرا ضاربات
« The Hinds are beating ʿamr. »
- (22) 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الهندات عمرا ضاربًا
« The Hinds are beating ʿamr. »

⁵ 4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

28.5. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a direct doee

As we mentioned above, there are conditions that must be satisfied in order for an doer participle to be able to govern a direct doee in this manner. The conditions are different for when the doer participle is defined by *أل*, and when it is not defined by *أل*. We will discuss each of these cases separately below:

28.5.1. When the doer participle is not defined by *أل*

When the doer participle is not defined by *أل*, then two conditions must be satisfied:

1. The verbal aspect of the doer participle must be imperfect. That is, it must indicate an ongoing (whether present or past) or future action. Examples:

- present ongoing:

(20) [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] هذا ضارب زيداً الآن

«This [person] is beating Zayd now.»

- past ongoing:

(21) [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] كان زيد ضارباً عمراً

«Zayd was beating ʿamr.»

(22) [18:18 سورة الكهف cited by شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/106] وَكَلْبُهُمْ بَاسِطٌ ذِرَاعَيْهِ بِالْوَصِيدِ

«while their dog stretched his forelegs at the entrance»

- future:

(22) [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] هذا ضارب زيداً غداً

«This [person] will beat Zayd tomorrow.»

If the verbal aspect indicated by the doer participle is perfect, then the doer participle may not govern a direct doee. So, for example, we cannot say:

(23) [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَمْسَ ×

«This [person] beat Zayd yesterday.»

If we desire to use the doer participle, then it will not have verbal force. And *زَيْدٌ* will have to be a annexed-to noun in an annexation. Furthermore, this annexation will be *real* (see chapter (ref)).

(24) [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدٍ أَمْسَ

«This [person] was the beater of Zayd yesterday.»

(See Section 35.10 for how *أَمْسَ* is governed.)

An exception is made for for transitive verbs that take more than one direct doee, like *أَعْطَى*, *جَعَلَ*, etc. When the doer participle of such a verb is

annexed to what would have been the first direct doee, then second direct doee is permitted to be in the a-case, even if the aspect is perfect.⁶ For example:

- (25) [3/78 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] هذا معطي زيد أمس درهما
« This [person] was the giver of Zayd, yesterday, a dirham. »

Even the first direct doee may remain in the a-case, if separated from the doer participle. For example:

- (26) [3/78 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] هذا ظان أمس زيدا فاضلا
« This [person] was the believer, yesterday, of Zayd as an eminent person. »

2. The second condition that should be satisfied is that the doer participle must have *government support*. This government support can be provided by the following means:

- The doer participle occurs after a question-device. Example:

- (27) [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] أضراب زيد عمرا
« Is Zayd beating ʿAmr? »

- (28) [Wright 2/65D] هل مُكْرِمٌ أَنْتَ زَيْدًا
« Will you be treating Zayd with respect? »

- The doer participle occurs after a vocative particle: Example:

- (28) [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] يا طالعاً جبلاً
« O scaler [of] a mountain! »

- The doer participle occurs in a negation: Example:

- (29) [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] ما ضارب زيد عمرا
« Zayd is not beating ʿAmr. »

- (30) [2:145 سورة البقرة cited by Wright 2/65D] مَا أَنْتَ بِتَابِعٍ قِبَلَتَهُمْ
« Nor will you be a follower of their qiblah »

- (31) [Wright 2/65D] مَا مُجِيرٌ أَحَدٌ عَدُوَّ أَجْبَاءِهِ
« No one gives protection to the enemy of his loved ones »

- The doer participle occurs as a attribute. Example:

- (30) [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] مررت برجل ضارب زيدا
« I passed by a man beating Zayd. »

- (31) [Wright 2/65C] مَرَزْتُ بِفَارِسٍ طَالِبٍ ثَأْرَ أَبِيهِ
« I passed by a horseman (who was) seeking vengeance for (the murder of) his father »

An implied attribute is also considered permissible. Example:

⁶See also 35:1 سورة فاطر for الدر المصون للسمن الحلبى and 35:1 سورة فاطر for البحر المحيط لأبى حيان

- (31) كَمْ مَالِي عَيْنَيْهِ مِنْ شَيْءٍ غَيْرِهِ [Wright 2/65C; الألفية 3/108]
 «How many a one fills his eyes with a thing of [someone] other than him»
 (i.e. كَمْ شَخْصٍ مَالِي «How many a person fills...»)
- (32) كَنَاطِحِ صَخْرَةٍ يَوْمًا لِيُوهِنَهَا [Wright 2/65C; الألفية 3/109]
 «Like the gorer of a rock, one day, to try to weaken it»
 (i.e. كَوَعِلٍ نَاطِحٍ «like a goring mountain goat...»)

• The doer participle occurs as a ḥāl. Example:

- (32) 3/107 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] جاء زيد راكبا فرسا
 «Zayd came riding a horse.»

• The doer participle occurs as a info. Example:

- (33) 3/107 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] زيد ضارب عمرا
 «Zayd is beating ʿamr.»

We will learn in later chapters, if Allāh wills, different forms of infos. The following examples show these different forms, with references to the later chapters.

- (34) 3/107 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] كان زيد ضاربا عمرا
 «Zayd was beating ʿamr.»
 (See chapter (kaana).)
- (35) 3/107 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] إن زيدا ضارب عمرا
 «Indeed Zayd is beating ʿamr.»
 (See chapter (inna).)
- (36) 3/107 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] ظننت زيدا ضاربا عمرا
 «I thought Zayd [was] beating ʿamr.»
 (See chapter (zanna).)
- (37) 3/107 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] أعلمت زيدا عمرا ضاربا بكرا
 «I let Zayd know ʿamr is beating Bakr.»
 (See chapter (zanna).)

28.5.2. When the doer participle is defined by اَلْ

When the doer participle is defined by اَلْ, then it is permitted to govern a direct doee for a perfect or imperfect aspect. Furthermore, no government support is required for it to be a governor,⁷ (as was required for the doer participle without اَلْ in section (ref) above).

So we can say:

- (35) 2/683 [شرح شذور الذهب للجوجري] جاء الضارب زيدا أمس أو الآن أو غداً
 «The beater of Zayd came yesterday/today/tomorrow»

⁷ 3/254 النحو الوافي

28.6. The doer participle as the governor of an overt doer pronoun

FIXME: The latent doer pronoun does not become overt. Rather, a overt noun can replace it. Or a overt pronoun can occur after it as tawkeed. See Saa3idi tamheed.

The latent doer pronoun becomes overt in some circumstances. In this section, we will discuss one such circumstance. Consider the sentence:

(36) الفارس الحصان مُتعبه [النحو الوافي 1/463]

This grammar is parsed as follows:

- الفارس is the subject of the outer sentence.
- الحصان is a second subject. It is the subject of the inner sentence.
- متعب is the info of the inner sentence. It is also a annexed noun.
- The pronoun ُ is a annexed-to noun.
- The inner sentence الحصان متعبه is the info of the subject (الفارس) of outer sentence.

The info of the inner sentence متعب «one who makes tired» has a latent doer pronoun, implicated as [هُوَ]. It is possible for this latent doer pronoun to refer to either الفارس or الحصان. Let's discuss both these meanings:

- i. If the latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] in متعب refers to الحصان then the meaning is that «the horse makes the horseman tired». In this case, the pronoun ُ in الفارس متعبه refers to الفارس.
- ii. And if the latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] in متعب refers to الفارس then the meaning is that «the horseman makes the horse tired». In this case, the pronoun ُ in الحصان متعبه refers to الحصان.

Both meanings are possible.

If only the second meaning is desired, then the latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] can be made overt and added after the doer participle مُتعب, thus:

(37) الفارس الحصان مُتعبه هُوَ [النحو الوافي 1/464]

«The horseman – the horse – [he] makes him tired.»

(i.e. «The horseman makes the horse tired.»)

Now only the second meaning is possible. If the first meaning is desired, the doer pronoun of متعب must stay latent and the ambiguity will remain.

By the way, the ambiguity arose in the original sentence (الفارس الحصان مُتعبه) only because both subjects (الفارس and الحصان) are singular masculine nouns. If the two subjects are distinguishable in number or gender then there will be no ambiguity. However, even in this case, according to some grammarians, if the info is to refer to the subject of the outer sentence, then the doer pronoun of the doer participle in the info should be made overt. For example:

- (38) 1/207 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her. »
 « Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her. »
 (i.e. « Zayd is beating Hind. »)

But according to other grammarians, because ضَارِب can refer only to Zayd and not to Hind, the doer participle's doer pronoun can remain latent,⁸ thus:

- (39) زَيْدٌ هُنْدٌ ضَارِبُهَا
 « Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her. »
 (i.e. « Zayd is beating Hind. »)

28.7. The sababi info

Consider again example (186) زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ عَمْرًا. From this original sentence, we replaced the verb يَضْرِبُ with its doer participle and came up with (187) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا.

Now consider the following example:

- (40) زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا
 « Zayd – his father beats Emr »

In example (235) above the doer of يَضْرِبُ is not Zayd but Zayd's father. If we use this sentence as our starting point, we can again replace the verb يَضْرِبُ with its doer participle ضَارِبٌ and say:

- (41) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا
 « Zayd – his father is beating Emr »

أَبُوهُ is the (overt) doer of the doer participle ضَارِبٌ. And عَمْرًا is its direct doee. So just like a verb can have an overt noun as its doer instead of a latent pronoun, so too can the doer participle have an overt noun as its doer instead of a latent pronoun.

Again, there is one important difference between using the verb يَضْرِبُ vs using its doer participle ضَارِبٌ. And that is that زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا in example (235) is a complete sentence. This inner sentence is the info of the outer sentence. Therefore, example (235) is a compound sentence.

However, زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا in example (236) is not a complete sentence. ضَارِبٌ itself, as a single word, is the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.⁹ So example (236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا is not a compound sentence.

The info ضَارِبٌ in example (236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا is called a sababi info.¹⁰ A deverbal noun is termed *sababi* when it governs a doer which is annexed to a pronoun that refers back to the original referent of the deverbal noun.¹¹ In our example, the deverbal noun ضَارِبٌ governs a doer أَبٌ which is annexed to a pronoun هُ that refers back to the original referent of the deverbal noun, the subject زَيْدٌ.

⁸ 1/207 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

⁹ 86 مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني

¹⁰ 4/287 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي; الخبر السببي لوجيهة السطل

¹¹ 161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي (also cited by 4/404 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي)

28.7.1. Varying the number or gender of the overt doer of the sababi info

Here is another example of a sentence with a sababi info:

- (42) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبُوهُ [Peled, *Sentence types* 208]
 «Zayd – his father was setting out.»

In example (237) above, مُنْطَلِقًا is the sababi info of كَانَ. The overt doer of the مُنْطَلِقًا is the singular masculine noun أَبُوهُ «his father».

Let's see what happens when we vary the number or gender of this overt doer of the sababi info.

- (43) كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبَوَاهُمَا [Peled, *Sentence types* 208]
 «The two Zayds – their fathers were setting out.»

In example (238) above, the sababi info مُنْطَلِقًا remains in the singular, even though its doer is the dual أَبَوَاهُمَا.

This is analogous to a verb, which remains in the singular for dual and plural doers. For example كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ يَنْطَلِقُ أَبَوَاهُمَا, etc.

If the gender of the doer participle's doer is feminine, then the doer participle remains in the singular but it is feminized. For example:

- (44) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقَةٌ أُمُّهُ
 «Zayd – his mother is setting out.»
- (45) كَانَتْ هِنْدٌ مُنْطَلِقَةً خَالَاتُهَا
 «Hind – her two maternal aunts were setting out.»

This again is analogous to the feminizing a verb that has a feminine doer.

If the doer of the doer participle is a plural, then we have an choice:

If the doer participle has a sound plural, then, again, it is not used and the doer participle remains in the singular. For example:

- (45) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ مُنْطَلِقًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
 «The Zayds – their fathers were setting out.»
- (46) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقَةٌ خَالَاتُهُ
 «Zayd – his maternal aunts are setting out.»

But if the doer participle has a broken plural, then it is allowed to be used, and is indeed preferred,¹² when the doer is a plural.

For example:

- (46) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ قِيَامًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
 «The Zayds – their fathers were standing»

Here are some examples of sababi infos from the Qur'an:

¹² 693–694 cited by Peled, *Sentence types* 208 (footnote)

- (47) ^{وَلَّ}فَإِنَّهُ عَائِمٌ قَلْبُهُ [سورة البقرة 2:283]
 «his heart is indeed sinful»
 (Other analyses besides a sababi info are also possible.¹³ One such differing analysis is discussed in section (ref) below.)
- (48) ^{وَلَّ}وَطَنُوا أَنَّهُمْ مَانِعَتُهُمْ حُصُونُهُمْ مِنَ اللَّهِ [سورة الحشر 59:2]
 «and they thought that their fortresses would protect them from Allāh»
 (Another analysis is also possible: ^{وَلَّ}حُصُونُهُمْ can be a subject, and ^{وَلَّ}مَانِعَتُهُمْ is its fronted info.¹⁴)

28.7.2. Word order of the doer and the direct doee in a sababi info

If the doer participle is transitive, then the normal word order is doer participle, doer, direct doee. For example:

- (48) هَذَا ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ زَيْدًا [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 3/89]
 «This [person] – his father is beating Zayd.»

But the direct doee can be made to precede the doer thus:

- (49) هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَبُوهُ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك 2/453]
 «This [person] – his father is beating Zayd.»

28.8. The sababi attribute

In section (ref) above we have seen how a doer participle can govern a overt doer when it is a sababi info. In a similar manner, a doer participle can govern a overt doer when it is a sababi attribute.

Consider the following example:

- (50) مَرَزْتُ بِرَجُلٍ مُنْطَلِقٍ أَبُوهُ
 «I passed by a man whose father is setting out»

The doer participle ^{وَلَّ}مُنْطَلِقٍ is a attribute of the attributee ^{وَلَّ}رَجُلٍ. Because it is a sababi attribute, it has a doer أَبُ that is annexed to a pronoun ُ which refers to the attributee ^{وَلَّ}رَجُلٍ.

We know that, in general, a attribute will match its attributee in four aspects:

- i. case
- ii. definiteness
- iii. gender
- iv. number (singular/dual/plural)

¹³ سورة البقرة for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي

¹⁴ سورة الحشر for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي

The sababi attribute will also match its preceding attributee in case and definiteness. (You can see the attribute مُنْطَلِقٍ matches its attributee رَجُلٌ in the i-case and in being indefinite.) But in matching gender and number the sababi attribute has different rules. Consistent with we learned for the sababi info above, the sababi attribute will, in general, always be singular, and it will match its doer in gender. Here are some examples that show different combinations:

- (51) مَرَرْتُ بِالرَّجُلِ الْمُنْطَلِقِ أَبُوهُ
«I passed by the man whose father is setting out.»
- (52) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ مُنْطَلِقٍ أَخَوَاهُ
«I passed by a man whose two brothers are setting out.»
- (53) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا مُنْطَلِقًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
«I saw men whose fathers are setting out.»
- (54) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا مُنْطَلِقَةً أُمُّهُ
«I saw a man whose mother is setting out.»
- (55) جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ الْمُنْطَلِقَةُ أَخَوَاتُهُ
«Zayd whose sisters are setting out came to me.»
- (56) جَاءَتْنِي امْرَأَةٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهَا
«A woman whose father is setting out came to me.»
- (57) مَرَرْتُ بِالْمَرْأَةِ الْمُنْطَلِقِ أَخَوَاهَا
«I passed by the woman whose two brothers are setting out.»

The above examples use the doer participle مُنْطَلِقٌ which only has sound plurals. Therefore it remains in the singular. If an doer participle has a broken plural, it is permitted (and in fact preferred) to use the broken plural for a plural doer.¹⁵ Examples:

- (52) [288 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى] مَرَرْتُ بِرِجَالٍ قِيَامٌ آبَاؤُهُمْ
«I passed by men whose fathers are standing.»
- (53) [288 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى] مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ قَعُودٌ غِلْمَانُهُ
«I passed by a man whose slave-boys are sitting»
(Note that the attributee رَجُلٌ is singular in this case.)

Some more aspects of gender agreement of the sababi doer with its governing deverbial noun will be discussed in section (sifah_mush sababi na3t), if Allāh wills.

¹⁵ 3/453-454 النحو الوافي; 288 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى

28.9. The doer participle as the governor of a non-sababi overt doer

When the doer of the doer participle is overt then it will often be a sababi doer, as we have seen in sections (sababi-xabar) and (sababi-na3t) above. However, it is also possible for the doer participle to govern a non-sababi overt doer. For example:

- (53) البسيط لابن أبي الربيع [مررت برجل متكلم محمد في داره]
«I passed by a man [whom] Muḥammad was speaking in his house.»

In the example above محمد is the doer of the doer participle متكلم. But because it is not annexed to a pronoun which refers back to رجل, therefore it is not a sababi doer.

28.10. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a doer

In section (ref) above, we discussed the conditions for the doer participle to govern a direct doee. Correspondingly, there exist conditions for the doer participle to govern a doer.

The doer participle can have either an overt doer (either as a noun or as a pronoun), or a latent doer pronoun. We will treat each of these separately below:

28.10.1. Conditions for the doer participle to govern an overt doer

The grammarians differed with regard to the conditions under which the doer participle is allowed to govern an overt doer. According to some, the same conditions are applicable as for governing a direct doee, namely that when an doer participle is not defined by آل, then it can only govern an overt doer when

- i. It has an imperfect aspect.
- ii. It has government support

So it is not allowed to govern an overt doer for a perfect aspect. The following example would then be disallowed:

- (54) 134 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي [زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ أَمْسَ] ×
«Zayd – his father stood yesterday.»

Other grammarians, however, allowed such a sentence.¹⁶

when an doer participle is defined by آل, then it can only govern an overt doer unconditionally. So it can govern with perfective aspect and without government support. Examples:

¹⁶ 134 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

- (55) 1/449 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] جاءني القائم أبوه
«The one whose father is standing came.»
- (56) 3/257 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان] القائم أبوه ضاحك
«The one whose father is standing is laughing.»
- (57) 59 شرح ابن النازم على ألفية ابن مالك] جاء الضارب أبوه زيداً أمس
«The one whose father beat Zayd yesterday came.»

28.10.2. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a latent doer pronoun

As a default, the doer participle requires a latent doer pronoun. So it governs a latent doer pronoun unconditionally, except when it is prevented from doing so because of one of the following situations:

The doer participle is already governing an overt doer noun

If the doer participle is already governing an overt doer, then it will not also have a latent doer pronoun. This is because one doer participle cannot have two doers.¹⁷ Example:

- (56) 139 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ
«Zayd – his father is standing»

Beware though, that sometimes it may appear that an doer participle is governing an overt doer, but actually another interpretation may also be possible. Consider the following āyah that we discussed in section (ref) above:

- (57) 2:283 سورة البقرة] فَإِنَّهُ وَءَاثِمٌ قَلْبُهُ
«his heart is indeed sinful»

We had discussed this as a case of a sababi info. But another analysis is also possible: The doer participle آثِمٌ is governing a latent doer pronoun, and قَلْبُهُ is a re-specifier for the latent doer pronoun.¹⁸

The doer participle is already governing an overt doer pronoun

We discussed in section (ref) above, a situation in which the originally latent doer pronoun of a doer participle becomes overt. Because the doer is now overt the doer participle will not govern an additional latent doer.¹⁹

- (58) 1/207 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] زَيْدٌ هِنْدَ ضَارِبُهَا هُوَ
«Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her.»
(i.e. «Zayd is beating Hind.»)

¹⁷ 139 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

¹⁸ 2:283 سورة البقرة for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي

¹⁹ 144 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

The doer participle is the annexed noun in a real annexation

When doer participle is the annexed noun in a real annexation, then it will not govern a latent doer pronoun.²⁰ This can happen when the doer participle indicates a perfective aspect. We saw an example of this in the conditions for governing a direct doee above:

- 59) [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] هذا ضارب زيد أمس
« This [person] was the beater of Zayd yesterday. »

By the way, this does not mean that the doer participle cannot govern a latent doer pronoun whenever it signifies a perfective aspect. It only cannot do so in a real annexation. So doer participle will govern a latent doer pronoun when it has a perfective aspect, but no annexation. For example:

- 60) هذا ضارب أمس
« This [person] was a beater yesterday. »

The doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun

When the doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun (see section (ref) below), then, in general, it does not govern a latent doer pronoun.²¹ For example:

- (61) زَيْدٌ صَاحِبٌ
« Zayd is a companion »

But even for entity nouns, the the latent doer pronoun can re-emerge when needed (see section (sec-the-doer-participle-crossover-to-substantive-as-a-attribute)).

28.11. Superficial annexation

Superficial annexation used to eliminate tanwīn

Consider again the sentence:

- (62) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا
zaydun dāribun ʿamran
« Zayd is beating Amr »

The doer participle ضَارِبٌ has a tanwīn which is pronounced before pronouncing the direct doee عَمْرًا. In an effort to make the pronunciation easier, this tanwīn is often eliminated and replaced with an annexation. The direct doee is then made into a annexed-to noun in the i-case. The meaning remains the same. So the above sentence then becomes:

²⁰ 142 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

²¹ See citations in 154 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

- (63) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرٍو
 zaydun ḍāribu ʿamrin
 «Zayd is beating Amr»

This is called a superficial annexation, as opposed to a real annexation, which is what we have been studying so far. This is because it is only an annexation for the purposes of easing the pronunciation, not in meaning.

Regarding terminology, عَمْرٍو syntactically becomes an annexed-to noun in the superficial annexation. But in meaning, it is still the direct doer of the doer participle ضَارِبٌ. We will refer to it as the *semantic direct doer*.

By the way, the sentence زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرٍو can also be a real annexation. In which case, the meaning will be: «Zayd is the beater of Amr». So if we come across such a sentence, how can we tell if it is a real annexation or a superficial annexation? The answer is, in this case, context should guide us. We will see below that the superficial annexation is not always identical in form to the real annexation. So in those cases, the form of the annexation will tell us whether it is a real annexation or a superficial annexation.

Here are some more examples of a superficial annexation used to eliminate a tanwīn:

- (64) الْهِنْدَاتُ ضَارِبَاتُ عَمْرٍو [modified from التوضيح على التصريح 1/682]
 «The Hinds are beating Amr»
 (instead of ضَارِبَاتُ عَمْرٍا)

When the doer participle is a semi-flexible, it will not have a tanwīn. But the superficial annexation may still be used in such a case because a tanwīn would have been present if the word were fully-flexible.²² For example:

- (65) الْهِنْدَاتُ ضَوَارِبُ عَمْرٍو [modified from التوضيح على التصريح 1/682]
 «The Hinds are beating Amr»
 (instead of ضَوَارِبُ عَمْرٍا)

Superficial annexation used to eliminate the ن of a dual or plural suffix

The superficial annexation is used in situations when the governing doer participle has tanwīn (as above), and also in situations when it ends with a ن arising from a dual or sound plural. Examples:

- (66) الزَّيْدَانِ ضَارِبَا عَمْرٍو [modified from التوضيح على التصريح 1/682]
 «The [two] Zayds are beating Amr»
 (instead of ضَارِبَانِ عَمْرٍا)

Definiteness of the superficial annexation

Because this is a superficial and not a real annexation, the annexed noun is not made definite by a definite annexed-to noun. In the examples so far, the

²² شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/682

annexed-to nouns have been proper nouns (عَمْرُو, زَيْد) which are definite. But the doer participles (صَارِبًا, صَارِب, etc.) remain indefinite, because they did not originally have أل when governing a direct doee. This example proves the above claim:

- (67) هَذِيَّا بَالِغَ الْكَعْبَةِ [4/84 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل by سورة المائدة 5:95 cited by
« as an offering [to Allāh] delivered to the Ka'bah »

In example (270) above, the doer participle بَالِغ is a annexed noun to the definite annexed-to noun الْكَعْبَةُ. But this is a superficial annexation. So بَالِغ does not become definite. Therefore بَالِغ can be a attribute to the indefinite هَذِيَّا.

If the doer participle is to be made definite in a superficial annexation then a أل is added to it. For example:

- (68) هَذَانِ الضَّارِبَا زَيْدٍ [2/132 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
« These two are the beaters of Zayd. »
(instead of هَذَانِ الضَّارِبَانِ زَيْدًا)
- (69) هَذَانِ الضَّارِبَانِ وَالْمُتَقِيْمِي الصَّلَاةِ [2/132 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل by سورة الحج 22:35 cited by
« and the establishers of prayer »

Adding أل to the annexed noun is particular to a superficial annexation. As we know, it is not permitted in a real annexation. So when we see أل with a annexed noun, then we will know that the annexation has to be a superficial one.

When the doer participle does not have tanwīn or a suffixed ن

Consider the following case of a doer participle governing a direct doee:

- (69) الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا
« the beater of Zayd »

There is no tanwīn of suffixed ن after the doer participle. Therefore, a superficial annexation is not permitted, and we cannot say:

- (70) الضَّارِبُ زَيْدٍ × [2/132 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]

The following are similarly not permitted:

- (71) الضَّارِبُ رَجُلًا × [3/47 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
« the beater of the man »
- (72) الضَّارِبُ عَبْدٌ زَيْدٍ × [Wright 2/66B] « the beater of the slave of Zayd »
- (73) الضَّارِبُ عَبْدُهُ × [Wright 2/66B] « the beater of his slave »

If, however, the direct doee is defined by أل, or is itself a annexed noun to a annexed-to noun that is defined by أل, then, as an exception, the superficial annexation is again permitted.²³ For example:

²³Wright 2/66A

- (72) الضَّارِبُ الْعَبْدَ [Wright 2/66A]
« the beater of the slave »
- (73) الضَّارِبُ رَأْسَ الْعَبْدِ [Wright 2/66A]
« the beater of the head of the slave »
- (73) الضَّارِبُ الرَّجُلَ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/132]
« the beater of the man »
- (74) الضَّوَارِبُ/الضَّرَابُ/الضَّارِبَاتُ الرَّجُلَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/47]
« the beaters of the man »
- (75) الضَّوَارِبُ/الضَّرَابُ/الضَّارِبَاتُ غُلَامَ الرَّجُلِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/47]
« the beaters of the slave-boy of the man »

Two or more direct does connected by وَ or أَوْ

When a doer participle governs two or more direct does connected by وَ or أَوْ then, if the first is in a superficial annexation then the second may either be in the i-case or the a-case. For example

- (74) هذا ضاربٌ زيدٌ وعمرو/وعمرًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/81]
« This [person] is beating Zayd and ʿAmr »

By the way, if the first direct doer is in the a-case, then it is not an annexation and the second direct doer would follow in the a-case.

- (75) هذا ضاربٌ زيدًا وعمرًا
« This [person] is beating Zayd and ʿAmr »

Superficial annexation with a overt doer

Consider an doer participle that has a overt doer and is governing a direct doer thus:

- (76) مررت بـرجل ضارب أبوه زيدا [شرح كتاب سيويه للسيرافي 2/458]
« I passed by a man whose father [was] beating Zayd. »

If we wish to use a superficial annexation, then the doer participle can only be annexed to its direct doer and not to its doer. So we can say:

- (77) مررت بـرجل ضارب زيد أبوه [2/74 شرح كتاب سيويه للسيرافي]
« I passed by a man whose father [was] beating Zayd. »
(Remember from section (ref) above that the word order ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَبُوهُ is permissible.)

We cannot say:

- (78) مررت بـرجل ضارب أبيه زيدا × [10/359 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان]

28.12. The doer participle with a pronoun as its direct doee

When the doer participle governs a direct doee that is a pronoun, there is considerable variation seen

One possibility is to separate the doer participle from its doee pronoun using the prefix *إِذَا*, thus:

- (79) 2/434 [شرح الرضي على الكافية] ضَارِبٌ إِيَّاكَ
«beating you»

- (80) 2/434 [شرح الرضي على الكافية] الضَّارِبُ إِيَّاكَ
«the beater of you»

- (81) [Wright 2/67A] الضَّارِبُونَ إِيَّاهُ
«the beaters of me»

The second possibility, and by far the more common usage, is to use a superficial annexation, thus:

- (80) 2/434 [شرح الرضي على الكافية] ضَارِبُكَ
«beating you»

- (81) 2/434 [شرح الرضي على الكافية] الضَّارِبُكَ
«the beater of you»

- (82) 2/135 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الضاربي
«the beater of me»

- (83) 2/135 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الضارباتي
«the beaters of me»

When the doer participle has a overt doer, then it will follow the attached pronoun, thus:

- (81) هَذَا ضَارِبِي أَبُوهُ
«This [person] – his father is beating me.»

For the dual and sound *ūn* plural in a superficial annexation, the *ن* of the suffix is regularly deleted. So we will say:

- (82) 1/196 [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] هذان ضارباك
«These two are beating you.»
(from ضاربان)

- (83) 1/196 [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] هؤلاء ضاربوك
«These [persons] are beating you.»
(from ضاربون)

- (84) 2/135 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] الضاربك
«the two beaters of you»
(from الضاربان)

- (85) 2/135] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [الضاربوك
«the beaters of you»
(from الضاربون)
- (86) 2/135] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [ضارباي
«the two beaters of me»
(from الضاربان)
- (87) 2/135] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [الضاربَيَّ
«the two beaters of me»
(from الضاربَيْن)
- (88) 2/135] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [الضاربَيَّ
«the beaters of me»
(from الضاربين and الضاربين)

Occasionally a ن is inserted between the doer participle annexed noun and the pronoun annexed-to noun. This would permit words like: الضَّارِبُونِي, صَارِبِنِي, etc. For example:

- (83) 11291: الكبرى للنسائي] 24 فَهَلْ أَنْتُمْ صَادِقُونِي فِيهِ
«So will you tell me the truth about it?»

It seems that this usage did not make its way to Standard Classical Arabic. But some grammarians permit this usage by poetic license, or as a rare usage.²⁵

28.13. The doer participle as a verb-like governor

<https://shamela.ws/book/17116/3534>

28.14. The static adjectival noun as a verb-like governor

الأنشاه والنظائر: ذكر ما افترق فيه الصفة المشبهة واسم الفاعل

<https://shamela.ws/book/13301/1472>

<https://shamela.ws/book/13301/582#p1>

<https://shamela.ws/book/9985/799>

²⁴also narrated as ضَادِقِي in البخاري 3169

²⁵See for more details شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 1/285; النحو الوافي 2/44; شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/137; Wright 2/67AB

28.15. The doer of a deverbal noun that fulfils the role of the info

In our discussion of the doer of deverbal nouns, we have consistently stated that the doer of a deverbal noun is not an indispensable element. This is because the deverbal noun, which has a doer, is typically already part of an existing sentence. See example (236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبِيهَ عَمْرًا above.

However, there is one special kind of sentence where that the doer of a deverbal noun is an indispensable element.

Before presenting this special *doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info* sentence, we will first give some background. Consider the sentence:

- (84) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
« Zayd is standing. »

In example (304) above, زَيْدٌ is the subject and قَائِمٌ is its info.

We can rearrange the word order to front the info thus:

- (85) قَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ
« Standing, Zayd is. »

This fronted info will be common in negative and question sentences. For example:

- (86) أَقَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/257B]
« Is Zayd standing? »

- (87) مَا قَائِمَةٌ هِنْدٌ [Wright 2/257B]
« Hind is not going »

Now we come to the special *doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info* sentence:

In negative and question sentences like examples (306) and (306) above, the deverbal noun can be analyzed as a subject, and its following doer will fulfil the role of the info.

So, in examples (306) and (306) above, قَائِمٌ can be considered a subject زَيْدٌ and can be its doer that fulfils the role of the info. Now, you might be thinking: what is the reason for this strange *doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info* analysis?

Why can't we just consider قَائِمٌ a fronted info and زَيْدٌ the backed subject?

The answer is that we can indeed consider قَائِمٌ a fronted info and زَيْدٌ the backed subject as one option. But, as another option, the *doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info* analysis allows us to keep the deverbal noun in the singular for dual and plural subjects. So we can say:

- (87) أَقَائِمُ الزَّيْدَانِ
« Are the two Zayds standing? »

- (88) مَا ذَاهِبَةٌ الْهِنْدَاتُ
« The Hinds are not going »

Sentences (308) and (309) are legitimate, but are only permitted for negative and question sentences.²⁶ If it is not a negative or question sentence, then the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info construction is not permitted. So the following are not correct as complete sentences:

(88) × قَائِمُ الزَّيْدَانِ
«The two Zayds are standing.»

(89) × ذَاهِبَةُ الْهِنْدَاتِ
«The Hinds are going»

This is because the deverbal noun قَائِمٌ cannot govern the overt doers الزَّيْدَانِ and ذَاهِبَةُ الْهِنْدَاتِ without the government support that is provided by being in a negative or question sentence.

So when it is not a negative or question sentence, then only the fronted info construction is permitted and the info will typically match the backed subject in number and gender. For example:

(89) قَائِمَانِ الزَّيْدَانِ
«Standing, the two Zayds are.»

(90) ذَاهِبَاتُ الْهِنْدَاتِ
«Going, the Hinds are.»

The fronted info construction is also permitted, as an option, even for negative and question sentences. For example:

(90) أَقَائِمَانِ الزَّيْدَانِ
«Are the two Zayds standing?»

(91) مَا ذَاهِبَاتُ الْهِنْدَاتِ
«The Hinds are not going»

When the deverbal noun and the doer are both singular, and it is a negative or question sentence, then a double analysis is possible²⁷:

- i. the fronted info analysis
- ii. the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info analysis

Such is the case in examples (306) أَقَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ and (307) مَا قَائِمَةٌ هِنْدٌ above.

Here are some more examples of doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info sentences:

(91) هَلْ مَضْرُوبٌ بَنُوكَ [Wright 2/257C]
«Are your sons beaten?»
(بَنُو is a deputy doer.)

²⁶Some grammarians did not require this condition based on the sentence خَبِيرٌ بَنُو لَهُبٍ. For details on the dispute, see أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/191 footnote 3.

²⁷Wright 2/258A

- (92) ^طأَرَاغِبُ أَنْتَ عَنْ آلِهَتِي يَا إِبْرَاهِيمُ [سورة مريم 19:46 cited by Wright 2/257D]
 «Have you no desire for my gods, O Abraham?»
 (A double analysis is reportedly possible, but the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info analysis is preferred.²⁸)
- (93) خَلِيلَيَّ مَا وَافٍ بِعَهْدِي أَنْتُمَا [Wright 2/257D]
 «My two friends, you are not keeping my promise.»
- (94) أَمُنَجِزُ أَنْتُمْ وَعَدًا وَثَقْتُ بِهِ [Wright 2/257D]
 «Are you fulfilling a promise that I put my trust on?»

28.16. The maṣḍar as a verb-like governor

<https://shamela.ws/book/36130/1479#p1>

مسألة الفرق بين اسم الفاعل والمصدر في العمل - كتاب ما لم ينشر من الأمالي الشجرية
 - ابن الشجري
 الدرر السنية

²⁸See سورة مريم for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

Work in progress

Chapter 29.

The maṣḍar

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

29.1. Introduction

Consider the example:

- (1) ذَهَابُ زَيْدٍ
« Zayd's going »

The noun ذَهَابُ « going » is the maṣḍar of the verb يَذْهَبُ « to go ».

Like the verb يَذْهَبُ, the maṣḍar ذَهَابُ signifies the action of going. But unlike the verb, the maṣḍar does not include tense. So it doesn't say when the action of going happened or will happen.

The maṣḍar is classified as a primitive noun, not a deverbal noun. In other words, in terms of grammatical theory, it is not considered to be derived from the verb. (Rather, the verb is considered to be derived from the maṣḍar.)

Also the maṣḍar is not an adjectival noun. Technically, this would put it in the category of entity nouns. But because the maṣḍar signifies the action of a verb, and not an actual entity, it is an abstract entity noun, not a concrete entity noun. In fact, we will treat it in a category of its own. We will see, if Allāh wills, that the maṣḍar can cross over to a concrete entity noun and then refer to an entity.

29.2. The maṣḍar as a verb-like governor in an annexation

As a noun which is related to a verb, a maṣḍar can govern in a verb-like manner. Let's start with a sentence which has a verb:

- (2) يسرنى أن تأتي

أَنْ in the above example is that maṣḍari أَنْ. This means that, as we learned in chapter (ref), it and its following verb can be interpreted as a maṣḍar construction, thus:

(3) يسرني إتيانك

We also learned that this interpretation of the maṣḍari أَنْ clause in example () above allows us to grammatically model the أَنْ clause as one structural element. In example () above the maṣḍar construction إتيانك is modeled as the doer of the verb يسر.

But example () is also a legitimate sentence in its own right. The maṣḍar إتيان signifies the occurrence of the verb أتي يأتي. But unlike the verb, it does not indicate tense. If we had started with a māḍī verb, for example:

(4) يسرني أن أتيت

then it would have the same modeled maṣḍar:

(5) يسرني إتيانك

In order to add tense to sentence with maṣḍar, we would have to use other means, for example, an adverb:

(6) يسرني إتيانك غدا

(7) يسرني إتيانك أمس

In example () above, the maṣḍar إتيان is a annexed noun in an annexation. Syntactically, the pronoun ك is in the i-case as the annexed-to noun in the annexation, but semantically, it is considered the doer of the. maṣḍar إتيان.

In example () above the verb تأتي was used without a direct doer. Let's see what happens when we add a direct doer. For example:

(7) يسرني أن تأتيني

In example () above, the pronoun ي me is the direct doer of the verb تأتي. If we model the أَنْ clause in example () above as a maṣḍar construction, then we will get:

(8) يسرني إتيانك إِيَّاي

Now, the pronoun ك «your» is again the syntactic annexed-to noun and the semantic doer of the maṣḍar إتيان. But the maṣḍar now also has a direct doer إِيَّاي in the a-case.

The *maṣḍar* in an annexation governing a u-case doer

Here is another example of a *maṣḍar* governing a semantic doer and a direct doee:

- (9) 3/102 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شُرْبِ زَيْدِ الْعَسَلِ

But this is not the only word order which is possible. We can flip the order of the doer and the direct doee, thus:

- (10) 3/102 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ

Now the semantic direct doee العسل is the annexed-to noun in the i-case and the doer زيد is in the u-case.

This word order of the direct doee's being the annexed-to noun and the doer occurring after it in the u-case (شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ) is not as usual as the usual word order (شُرْبِ زَيْدِ الْعَسَلِ).¹ Nevertheless, it is common enough.²

The *maṣḍar* in an annexation governing only a direct doee without a doer

The doer of the *maṣḍar* need not be mentioned. In this case, the *maṣḍar* is a annexed noun noun to its semantic direct doee directly. For example:

- (11) Wright 2/57C] مَنَعَهُمْ مِنْ قَوْلِ الْحَقِّ
«He hindered them from saying the truth.»

Sometimes, context would be needed to tell whether the annexed-to noun is the semantic doer or the semantic direct doee. For example:

- (12) 11/70 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبِ زَيْدٍ

In example (12) above, زيد may either have been the person who did the beating or the person who was beaten.³ Context would be needed to disambiguate.

The *maṣḍar* governing a deputy doer

Just like the *maṣḍar* can govern a doer in the u-case it can similarly govern a deputy doer. For example:

- (13) 3/109 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] سَرَّيْنِي إِعْطَاءُ الدَّنَائِرِ الْفَقِيرِ
«The giving of the dinārs to the poor-one made me happy.»

The *maṣḍar* governing multiple direct does

The *maṣḍar* can govern multiple direct does just like its verb. For example:

- (14) 3/109 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] عَرَفْتُ إِعْطَاءَكَ الْفَقِيرَ دَرْهَمًا

- (15) 3/109 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] عَرَفْتُ إِعْلَامَكَ خَالِدًا جَعْفَرًا مُقِيمًا

¹Wright 2/59B

²3/103 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

³11/70 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان

29.2.0.1. The maṣḍar in an annexation to an adverb of time/place

The adverb of time/place, like a ;mafulb, is considered a doee. As such, it can be a annexed-to noun to a governing maṣḍar. Any doer and/or direct doees will then occur after it in their respective syntactic cases. For example:

- (15) 3/103 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ صَرْبِ الْيَوْمِ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا
«I wondered at today's beating [by] Zayd [to] ʿamr»

A attribute to a governing maṣḍar in an annexation

A maṣḍar which is governing a governee (like a doer or a direct doee) can be described by a attribute, but that attribute should occur after the maṣḍar's governees.⁴ For example, we should not say:

- (16) 3/108 [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] عرفت سوقك العنيف الإبل ×
«I knew your harsh driving of the camels»

We should say instead:

- (17) عرفت سوقك الإبل العنيف

A attribute to the governee of a maṣḍar in an annexation

When the maṣḍar is governing a doer or a direct doee in an annexation, and that governee is to be described by a attribute, then the attribute may, optionally, be either in the i-case, or in the u-case for the doer and the a-case for the direct doee.⁵ So we can say:

- (18) 3/104 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شَرْبِ زَيْدِ الظَّرِيفِ وَالظَّرِيفِ
(19) 2/189 [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ أَكْلِ الطَّعَامِ الْحَارِّ/الْحَارَّ زَيْدٌ
«I wondered at the eating of the hot food [by] Zayd»

A conjunction to the governee of a maṣḍar in an annexation

When the maṣḍar is governing a doer or a direct doee in an annexation, and that governee is followed by a conjunction and post-conjunction, then the post-conjunction may, optionally, be either in the i-case, or in the u-case for the doer and the a-case for the direct doee.⁶ So we can say:

- (19) 2/189 [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] سَاءَنِي إِهْمَالُ سَعِيدٍ وَخَالِدٍ/خَالِدٌ
(20) [Wright 2/58A] كَرِهْتُ أَكْلَ الْخُبْزِ وَاللَّحْمِ/اللَّحْمَ
«I disliked eating the bread and the meat.»
(21) 2/189 [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] سَاءَنِي صَرْبُ خَالِدٍ وَسَعِيدٍ/سَعِيدًا خَالِدٌ

⁴ 2/188 [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]; 3/108 [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]

⁵ 3/104–105; Wright 2/59C [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]; 2/189 [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]

⁶ 2/57D–58A [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]

29.3. The tanwined maṣḍar as a verb-like governor

In section (ref) above, we have seen how the maṣḍar governing in an annexation. However, an annexation is not the only form in which a maṣḍar can govern in a verb-like manner. A maṣḍar can also govern when it is tanwined. For example:

(20) [3/94 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية; 1/189 كتاب سيبويه] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبٍ زَيْدَا

(21) [1/189 كتاب سيبويه] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبٍ زَيْدًا بَكْرًا

(22) [modified from 1/189; Wright 2/59A] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبٍ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا

(23) [90:14–15, سورة البلد] أَوْ إِطْعَمٌ فِي يَوْمٍ ذِي مَسْغَبَةٍ ﴿١٤﴾ يَتِيمًا ذَا مَقْرَبَةٍ ﴿١٥﴾ شرح 3/115 التسهيل لابن مالك
«Or feeding on a day of severe hunger An orphan of near relationship»

(24) [3/94; Wright 2/57C] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] بضرب بالسيوف رؤوس قوم
«by striking, with the swords, the heads of a people»

The tanwined maṣḍar governing a doer and a direct doee is comparatively rarer than the maṣḍar governing in an annexation.⁷ Some grammarians mandate that when a tanwined maṣḍar is a governor then its doer should not be mentioned after it.⁸ So they would allow example (343) above but not examples (344) and (345).

29.4. The maṣḍar prefixed by ال as a verb-like governor

In addition to the maṣḍar governing in an annexation and when tanwined, the maṣḍar can also govern when it is prefixed by ال. This is the rarest out of the three formations.⁹

(21) [3/94 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عَجِبْتُ مِنَ الضَّرْبِ زَيْدَا

(22) [3/116; Wright 2/57D] شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] ضَعِيفُ النَّكَايَةِ أَعْدَاءُهُ
«weak in harming his enemies»

(23) [3/116; Wright 2/57D] شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] فَلَمْ أَنْكُرْ عَنِ الضَّرْبِ مَسْمَعَا
«and I did not desist from beating Mismæ»

⁷Wright 2/59B; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94

⁸التذليل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/75

⁹3/94 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

29.5. The maṣḍar as a verb-like governor compared to the doer participle

We have already seen, in chapter (ref), that the doer participle is also a noun that is related to a verb, and that can govern in a verb-like manner. But the maṣḍar and the doer participle are different in how they govern a doer and a direct doee.

Firstly, the maṣḍar is a primitive noun. So it does not govern a latent doer pronoun. When the maṣḍar is governing a direct doee without a doer as in example () *عَجِبْتُ مِنْ قَوْلِ الْحَقِّ* then, no latent doer pronoun is taqdired.

Secondly, when the maṣḍar is governing in an annexation, (for example *عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبِ زَيْدٍ عَمْرًا*) then this annexation is real, not superficial.¹⁰ However, when the doer participle is governing in an annexation, then the annexation is superficial (see section (ref)).

Thirdly, the doer participle not prefixed by *ال* only governs in a verb-like manner when it has an imperfective meaning. The maṣḍar on the other hand can govern for both a perfective and imperfective meaning. For example:

(22) *عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبِكَ زَيْدًا أَمْسَ/غدا/الآن* [modified from شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94]

The maṣḍar as a verb-like governor does have one similarity to the governing doer participle. And that is that both their doers are not the leaned-against element of a new sentence. So, for example, in the sentence:

(23) *عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ* [3/102 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

the doer *زَيْدٌ* does not form an inner sentence with the maṣḍar *شُرِبَ*. Rather, the maṣḍar *شُرِبَ*, as a single-word element, is in the i-case, governed by the preposition *مِنْ*.

An exception to the doer of a maṣḍar not being a leaned-against element, and also to the maṣḍar not governing a latent doer pronoun, is when the maṣḍar occurs as the deputy to a verb. For example:

(24) *ضربا زيدا* [3/93 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«Hit Zayd!»

The maṣḍar as a deputy to a verb will be covered in more detail in section (mmutlaq), if Allāh wills.

TODO: Add to mmutlaq chapter

29.6. The maṣḍar governing an indirect doee

wright 2/61

¹⁰ 71/9 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي

29.7. The maṣḍar governing a direct doer with a strengthening-ل

wright 2/61D

29.8. An intervening word in the annexation

29.9. The mīmi maṣḍar

29.10. The manufactured maṣḍar

29.11. The one-time noun

29.12. The noun of manner

29.13. The entity noun→maṣḍar crossover

The entity noun→maṣḍar crossover is a concrete entity noun that crosses over to be used like a maṣḍar. Examples:

entity noun→maṣḍar crossover	verb	actual maṣḍar
سَلَام «a peace»	السَّلَامُ عَلَيَّكُمْ «to say» (على to s.o.)	نَسْلِيم
عَطَاء «a gift»	أَعْطَى يُعْطِي «to give»	إِعْطَاء
كَلَام «a speech»	كَلَّمَ يَكْلِمُ «to speak» (هـ «to») «(s.o.)»	تَكْلِيم
كَلَام «a speech»	تَكَلَّمَ يَتَكَلَّمُ «to speak»	تَكْلَم
قُبْلَة «a kiss»	قَبَّلَ يَقْبَلُ «to kiss» (هـ «s.o.»)	تَقْبِيل
عَذَاب «a punishment»	عَذَّبَ يُعَذِّبُ «to punish» (هـ s.o.)	تَعْذِيب
حَمْل «a load»	حَمَلَ يَحْمِلُ «to carry» (هـ s.th.)	خَمْل
عِشْرَة «association»	عَاشَرَ يُعَاشِرُ «to consort (with s.o.)»	مُعَاشَرَة

The entity noun→maṣḍar crossover originally signifies the meaning of a concrete entity noun.¹¹ So, for example the maṣḍar تَكْلِيم signifies the action of speaking to someone, and the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover كَلَام signifies the concrete entity noun «speech». But the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover, once it

¹¹ معاني النحو 3/164–167

crosses over to a maṣḍar, can signify the action of the verb, just like the actual maṣḍar. As such, it can even govern in a verb-like manner.¹² So we can say:

- (25) 3/100 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [بِعِشْرَتِكَ الْكَرَامَ تُعَدُّ مِنْهُمْ]
 «By your associating with the generous-ones you will be reckoned [as one] amongst them.»
 (الْكَرَامَ is in the a-case as the direct doer of the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover عِشْرَةً.)
- (26) 3/99 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [وَبَعْدَ عَطَائِكَ الْمِائَةِ]
 «And after your giving of the one hundred (camels)»
 (الْمِائَةِ is in the a-case as the direct doer of the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover عَطَاءً.)
- (27) 2/435 حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك [قَالُوا كَلَامُكَ هِنْدًا وَهِيَ مُصْغِيَةٌ تَشْفِيكَ]
 «They said “Your speaking to Hind while she is giving ear will cure you.”»
 (هِنْدًا is in the a-case as the direct doer of the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover كَلَامَ.)

29.14. The maṣḍar→entity noun crossover

Just like the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover crosses over from a entity noun to a maṣḍar, the maṣḍar→entity noun crossover crosses over from a maṣḍar to a entity noun. Here are some examples¹³

maṣḍar→entity noun crossover	plural	verb
عِلْمٌ «a science»	عُلُومٌ	عَلِمَ «to know»
عَقْلٌ «an intellect»	عُقُولٌ	عَقَلَ «to make sense (هـ of s.th.)»
عَمَلٌ «a deed»	أَعْمَالٌ	عَمِلَ «to work»
ظَنٌّ «a conjecture»	ظُنُونٌ	ظَنَّ «to conjecture»
صَوْتُ «a sound»	أَصْوَاتٌ	صَاتَ «to make a sound»
مَعِيشَةٌ «a livelihood»	مَعَاشٌ	عَاشَ «to live»
عَقْدٌ «a contract»	عُقُودٌ	عَقَدَ «to enter into a contract»
وَعْدٌ «a promise»	وُعُودٌ	وَعَدَ «to promise»
عِدَّةٌ «a promise»	عِدَاتٌ	وَعَدَ «to promise»
مَوْعِدٌ/مَوْعِدَةٌ «a promise»	مَوَاعِدٌ	وَعَدَ «to promise»
تَضْعِيفٌ «a double»	تَضَاعِيفٌ	ضَعَفَ «to double (هـ s.th.)»
تَجَرِبَةٌ «a trial, experiment»	تَجَارِبٌ	جَرَّبَ «to try (هـ، هـ s.o., s.th.)»

¹² 3/101 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

¹³ mostly taken from 129ff دراسات في النحو للزعلابوي

As you can see, once a maṣḍar crosses over to a entity noun, it can, and often does, have a plural.

29.14.1. Plurals of maṣḍar→entity noun crossovers

As you can see, most of the maṣḍar→entity noun crossovers in the table above are from stem 1 verbs. There are relatively fewer from stem 2 verbs. Most form broken plurals. All the plurals above are amongst those that are attested usage from Classical Arabic.

Most maṣḍars are not attested to have plurals from Classical Arabic. For example, perhaps we may not find the maṣḍar اسْتَعْمَلَ (from the verb اسْتَعْمَلَ (يَسْتَعْمِلُ) to have the its plural as attested usage in Classical Arabic. This has led some grammarians to restrict plurals of maṣḍars to only those recorded from attested usage.¹⁴

After the era of native Classical Arabic, when SCA became the language of science and literature, new terms and meanings were added to the language and used with their technical meanings. Many of these new terms are maṣḍar→entity noun crossovers and they are often from higher stem verbs. Here are some examples¹⁵

maṣḍar→entity noun crossover	plural	verb
اسْتِعْمَال « a use »	اسْتِعْمَالَات	اسْتَعْمَلَ يَسْتَعْمِلُ « to use (هـ s.th.) »
اِحْتِمَال « a possible interpretation »	اِحْتِمَالَات	اِحْتَمَلَ يَحْتَمِلُ « to bear a meaning (of a text) »
اِعْتِقَاد « a creed »	اِعْتِقَادَات	اِعْتَقَدَ يَعْتَقِدُ « to believe (a creed) »
اِشْكَال « a textual difficulty »	اِشْكَالَات	اَشْكَلَ يَشْكِلُ « to be difficult (of a text) »
تَعْرِيف « a definition »	تَعْرِيفَات	عَرَّفَ يُعَرِّفُ « to define (هـ s.th.) »
تَفْسِير « an explanation »	تَفَاسِير	فَسَّرَ يُفَسِّرُ « to explain (هـ s.th.) »
حَذْف « a deletion »	حُذُوف	حَذَفَ يَحْذِفُ « to delete (هـ s.th.) »

Because of the need to pluralize technical terms, some scholars have permitted that new maṣḍar→entity noun crossovers can be pluralized without restriction.¹⁶

As you can see, many of these maṣḍar→entity noun crossovers are from higher stem verbs. Since, broken plurals are not easily formed from words with many letters, the *āt* plural is preferred for these maṣḍar→entity noun crossovers. The

¹⁴ 138 دراسات في النحو للزعلابي 96; جمع المصدر وأحكامه لحياي

¹⁵ mostly taken from 99–100 جمع المصدر وأحكامه لحياي 141–142; دراسات في النحو للزعلابي

¹⁶ 129ff دراسات في النحو للزعلابي

maṣḍar pattern تَفْعِيل of stem 2 فَعَّلَ verbs can easily form a plural on the pattern تَفَاعِيل, but even for new *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossovers on this pattern, the *āt* plural often tends to be in current usage.

Remember, however, from section (ref), that there are conditions that should be satisfied in order for a word to have a *āt* plural. So if a *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossover does not end with *ḍ* and has fewer than five letters than we may prefer to form a broken plural than a *āt* plural. Nevertheless the *āt* plural may be more common in actual usage. For example: بَيَان «a statement», plural: بَيَانَات, أَبْيَانَة.
17

29.14.2. The ability of *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossovers to govern in a verb-like manner

The default for concrete entity nouns is that they will not govern in a verb-like manner. But a *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossover, even though it has crossed over to a entity noun, its *maṣḍar* origin retains some influence. Because of this, we do sometimes find a *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossover governing in a verb-like manner. This is most apparently visible in the plural of a *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossover. For example:

- (26) [107 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] وَجَرَّبُوهُ فَمَا زَادَتْ تَجَارِبُهُمْ أَبَا قُدَامَةَ إِلَّا الْحَزَمَ وَالْفَتْنَا
«And they tried him, but their tryings of Abū Qudāmah did not increase but [his] resolve and contentment»
(The plural *maṣḍar*→entity noun crossover تَجَارِب is governing أَبَا in the a-case as a direct doee.)

29.15. The *maṣḍar*→adjectival noun crossover

A *maṣḍar*→adjectival noun crossover is a *maṣḍar* that crosses over to be used like a adjectival noun. For example, the *maṣḍar* عَدَل of the verb يَعْدِلُ «to act justly» is used as a adjectival noun to mean «just». Similarly, the *maṣḍar* رَضَى of the verb يَرْضَى «to be pleased» is used as a adjectival noun to mean «pleasing». Here is an example sentence:

- (27) [2/238 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] هَذَا رَجُلٌ عَدْلٌ
«This is a just man.»

When a *maṣḍar* is used as a adjectival noun, then, normally, it is not feminized, dualized or pluralized, regardless of the number or gender of the described noun. So we will say:

- (28) [3/176 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] مررت برجل عدل أو رضي
(29) [3/176 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] مررت بامرأتين رضي
(30) [3/176 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] مررت برجلين عدل

17 147–151 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني

(31) [3/176 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مررت برجال عدل

Sometimes, a particular maṣdar is used very often as an adjectival noun. Then, exceptionally, it is feminized and pluralized.¹⁸ Such is the case with the maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover عَدْل. So we can (optionally) say:

(29) [3/176 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] امرأة عدلة

(30) [3/176 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] نساء عدلات

(31) [3/176 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] قوم عدول

Also, excepted from the restriction of not being pluralized is a maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover which ends with a *ḍ*. This is readily pluralized with a *āt* plural. For example ثِقَّة «trustworthy». So we can say:

(30) رجالٌ ثَقَاتٌ
«trustworthy men»

29.16. The maṣdar used figuratively to describe a concrete entity noun

Along the same lines as the maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover we sometimes see a maṣdar used figuratively to describe a concrete entity noun. For example:

(31) [1/193 معاني النحو] ترتع ما رتعت حتى إذا اذكرت فإنما هي إقبال وإدبار
« [The she-camel] pastures at pleasure until she remembers [her offspring],
then she is only (the act of) approaching and withdrawing. »

¹⁸ 2/238 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

Work in progress

Chapter 30.

The pertinence of the preposition

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

30.1. Pertinence vs government

In the Arabic grammatical model, in order to bring a dispensable caseful element into a sentence, a suitable element of the original sentence must act as governor of the new dispensable element. For example, consider the sentence:

- (1) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا
«Zayd beat ʿAmr.»

In example (368) above, the basic sentence, with only indispensable elements is ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ. The caseful noun عَمْرًا is a direct doee, which is a dispensable element. And it can only be added to the basic sentence because it is governed by the verb ضَرَبَ.

Prepositions are particles, not caseful elements. But they can only be added to sentence when they are *pertinent* to a verb, or a verb-like element, like a maṣḍar, doer participle, etc.. Consider the sentence:

- (2) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ
«I passed by Zayd.»

In example (369) above, the preposition بِ (or the entire prepositional phrase بِزَيْدٍ) is pertinent to the verb مَرَرْتُ. And we will say that the verb مَرَرْتُ is the *pertinente* of the preposition (or prepositional phrase).

In this sense, a prepositional phrase can be treated like pseudo-caseful dispensable element. And the verb it is pertinent to, its *pertinente*, can (loosely) be considered its governor.¹ This similitude between pertinence and government can be seen in the following example:

¹ 2/437; 3/116; See also Owens, *The foundations of grammar* 177

(3) مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَعَمْرًا²

[composed from شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/300]

«I passed by Zayd and ʿAmr.»

In example (370) above, the preposition ب is pertinent to the verb مَرَزْتُ. And once it is added, the second doer عَمْرُو can (optionally) be added as a direct doer (in the a-case). So we can say that the prepositional phrase بِزَيْدٍ is like a pseudo-direct doer, And that the verb مَرَزْتُ governs the prepositional phrase بِزَيْدٍ in the a-case.³

Of course the more usual مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَبِعَمْرٍو and مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَعَمْرٍو are also permitted.

30.2. Prepositions not needing a pertinentee

What we have just said regarding a preposition requiring a pertinentee is true of *essential* prepositions. An essential preposition is that which, by its addition, gives a distinctly new meaning to the sentence. They are also used to connect an indirect doer to its governing verb. The preposition ب in (369) مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ is an example of an essential preposition.

There also exist *non-essential* prepositions. These merely give emphasis to an existing meaning in the sentence. Non-essential prepositions do not need a pertinentee. Here is an example of a non-essential preposition:

- (4) [استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني] ما جاء من رجل
«Not a man came.»

The preposition مِنْ only emphasizes the meaning of the sentence. If we drop it the basic meaning would remain the same:

- (5) [استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني] ما جاء رجل
«Not a man came.»

By the way, مِنْ happens to be a non-essential preposition in the example above. But it may be an essential preposition in other sentences. For example:

- (6) خَرَجَ زَيْدٌ مِنَ الْبَيْتِ
«Zayd came out from the house.»

30.3. Valid pertinentees of the preposition

The preposition is usually pertinent to a verb, as in example (369) above. Besides the verb, the preposition can also be pertinent to verb-like nouns. Such nouns include:

²Not all grammarians permit this. See استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني footnote 34 for details.

³See also Kasher, “The term *al-fiʿl al-mutaʿaddi bi-ḥarf jar*” §3.1 124 citing ابن جني 2/439; Owens, *The foundations of grammar* 176 citing المبرد, ابن جني, الزجاجي.

The ism_fi3l

For example:

- (7) [2/440 النحو الوافي] نَزَالَ فِي الْبَاخِرَةِ
«Descend into the steamship!»
The preposition فِي is pertinent to the ism_fi3l نَزَالَ.

The maṣḍar

For example:

- (8) [2/440 النحو الوافي] السُّكُوتُ عَنِ السَّفِيهِ جَوَابٌ
«Being quiet with the foolish one is an answer.»
The preposition عَنِ is pertinent to the maṣḍar السُّكُوتُ.

The one-time noun, noun of manner, mīmi maṣḍar, and manufactured maṣḍar are also included in this category.⁴

The deverbal nouns

The deverbal nouns include the doer participle, doee participle, static adjectival noun, etc. Here are some examples:

- (9) [3/113 معاني النحو] أَنَا سَائِرٌ فِي الطَّرِيقِ
«I am travelling in the path.»
The preposition فِي is pertinent to the doer participle سَائِرٌ.
- (10) [3:170 سورة آل عمران] فَرَحِينَ بِمَا ءَاتَاهُمُ اللَّهُ مِنْ فَضْلِهِ
«Rejoicing in what Allāh has bestowed upon them of His bounty.»
The preposition بِ is analyzed to be pertinent to the static adjectival noun فَرَحِينَ.⁵

By the way, one of the conditions that allow deverbal nouns (not defined by ال) to govern a a-case governee is that they must signify an imperfect (progressive or future) aspect, not a perfect aspect (see Section 28.5). So, for example, we cannot say:

- (10) [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَمْسَ ×
«This [person] beat Zayd yesterday.»

However, in the case of a preposition being pertinent to a deverbal noun, it seems that it can do so with a perfect aspect. For example:

- (11) [صحيح] أَتَانِي اللَّيْلَةُ آتِيَانِ فَأَبْتَغَتَانِي، فَأَنْتَهَيْنَا إِلَى مَدِينَةٍ مَبْنِيَّةٍ بِلَبْنٍ ذَهَبٍ وَلَبْنٍ فضةٍ
[4674: البخاري]
«Two [persons] came to me last night (in my dream) and they took me. We came to a city built with gold bricks and silver bricks.»
مَبْنِيَّةٌ has a perfective aspect, yet بِ is pertinent to it.

⁴ footnote 1 [2/440 النحو الوافي]

⁵ 3:170 سورة آل عمران for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي

Similarly, in the āyah:

- (12) [7:75 سورة الأعراف] **أَتَعْلَمُونَ أَنَّ صَلَاحًا مُرْسَلًا مِّن رَّبِّهِ**
 «Do you [actually] know that Ṣāliḥ is sent from his Lord?»

the preposition **مِّن** is analyzed to be pertinent to the doer participle **مُرْسَلًا**.⁶

Some deverbal nouns do not govern a a-case governee, like the noun of time and the noun of place. However, some grammarians still allowed prepositions to be pertinent to them.⁷ Others disagreed and did not permit them to do so.⁸ Examples:

The noun of time

- (13) [2/440 النحو الوافي] **انقضى مسعاك لتأييد الحق**
 «Your [period of] effort for aiding the truth has ended.»

The noun of place

- (14) [2/443 حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك] **رأيت مدخلك إلى الدار**
 «I saw your [place of] entrance to the house.»

A primitive noun when used metaphorically

A preposition may also be pertinent to a non-deverbal noun if it is used metaphorically with an adjectival meaning. For example:

- (15) [3/113 معاني النحو] **هُوَ أَسَدٌ فِي الْمَعْرَكَةِ**
 «He is a lion in the battle.»
 The preposition **فِي** is pertinent to **أَسَدٌ** because it means «brave» here.

30.4. Multiple prepositions pertinent to the same pertinentee

Multiple prepositions, as long as they are different, can all be pertinent to the same pertinentee with no problem. For example:

- (16) **مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ فِي الْبَادِيَةِ**
 «I passed by Zayd in the desert.»

In example (384) above, both **فِي** and **بِ** are pertinent to the verb **مَرَرْتُ**.

If the multiple prepositions are the same, then in general they may not be pertinent to the same pertinentee.⁹ So we can't say:

⁶ 7:75 سورة الأعراف for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي

⁷ 2/443 حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك 2/440 النحو الوافي

⁸ 2/209 الخصائص لابن جني

⁹ 2/444 footnote 3 النحو الوافي

- (17) X مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ بِعَمْرٍو [شرح التصريح وحاشية ياسين] 1/378
 «I passed by Zayd by ʿAmr.»
 (although, separating the second preposition with a conjunction is of course allowed: مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَبِعَمْرٍو.)

But if the same preposition is used with different meanings then it is permissible for them all to be pertinent to the same pertinentee. For example:

- (18) مَرَزْتُ بِزَيْدٍ بِالْبَادِيَةِ [شرح التصريح وحاشية ياسين] 1/378
 «I passed by Zayd in the desert.»

If the first preposition restricts the verb, and the second preposition is applied after the verb has been restricted, then too may the multiple same prepositions be used.¹⁰ For example:

- (19) كُلَّمَا رُزِقُوا مِنْهَا مِنْ ثَمَرَةٍ رِزْقًا [سورة البقرة] 2:25
 «Whenever they are provided with a provision of fruit therefrom»
 (The first مِنْ restricts the pertinentee verb رُزِقُوا to الْجَنَّاتِ «the gardens». And the second مِنْ is restricted to «the fruit of the gardens.»¹¹)

30.5. A meaningful connection between the preposition and its pertinentee

In order for a prepositional phrase to be pertinent to a pertinentee, there needs to be a meaningful connection between them.¹²

Consider the following example:

- (20) شَبَّهْتُ خَالِدًا وَهُوَ يَجُودُ بِمَالِهِ بِالْبَحْرِ [معاني النحو] 3/131
 «I likened Khālid, while he (was) being generous with his wealth, with the ocean.»
 (The وَهُوَ يَجُودُ is translated as «while». See section (ref).)

In the above example, the prepositional phrase بِالْبَحْرِ «with the ocean» is meaningfully connected to the verb شَبَّهَ «to liken» not with the verb يَجُودُ «to be generous». Therefore, the prepositional phrase بِالْبَحْرِ is pertinent to the verb شَبَّهَ, not the verb يَجُودُ.

Similarly, the prepositional phrase بِمَالِهِ «with his wealth» is meaningfully connected to the verb يَجُودُ «to be generous», not with the verb شَبَّهَ «to liken». Therefore, the prepositional phrase بِمَالِهِ is pertinent to the verb يَجُودُ, not the verb شَبَّهَ.

Here is another example:

- (21) الْيَوْمَ يَسَّرَ الَّذِينَ كَفَرُوا مِنْ دِينِكُمْ [سورة المائدة] 5:3 cited by [معاني النحو] 3/131
 «This day those who disbelieve have despaired of [defeating] your religion;»

¹⁰ النحو الوافي 2/444 footnote 3

¹¹ سورة البقرة for الكشاف للزمخشري 2:25

¹² معاني النحو 3/131–133 النحو الوافي 2/442D–445

In the above example, the prepositional phrase *مِنْ دِينِكُمْ* “of your religion is meaningfully connected to the verb *يَيْسَ* «to despair», not with the verb *كَفَرَ* «to disbelieve». Therefore, the prepositional phrase *مِنْ دِينِكُمْ* is pertinent to the verb *يَيْسَ*, not the verb *كَفَرَ*.¹³

30.6. The intransitive verb with a preposition: the indirect doer

In theory, prepositions impart their own meanings.¹⁴ And there is no restriction on which prepositions may be used with a given governing verb (or verbal noun), as long as the prepositional phrase be meaningfully connected with its governor.¹⁵

The following examples show a possible set of prepositions that are meaningfully governed by the verb *أَنْصَرَفَ* «to turn around, leave»:

- (22) النحو الوافي [2/161] *أَنْصَرَفَ إِلَى مَصْنَعِهِ*
«He left to his workplace.»
- (23) النحو الوافي [2/161] *أَنْصَرَفَ مِنَ الْمَصْنَعِ إِلَى بَيْتِهِ*
«He left from the workplace to his house.»
- (24) النحو الوافي [2/161]¹⁶ *أَنْصَرَفَ الْعَالِمُ عَنِ الْهَزْلِ*
«The scholar left off joking.»
- (25) النحو الوافي [2/161] *أَنْصَرَفَ فِي سَبَّارَتِهِ*
«He left in his caravan.»

Having said that, in practice, certain verbs are more meaningfully connected with certain prepositions, sometimes almost to the exclusion of others.¹⁷ For example, the verb *أَقْسَمَ* «to swear» requires the preposition *بِ* in order to transit to what is being sworn by.¹⁸ For example,

- (23) أسرار العربية للأبناري [203] *أَقْسَمَ بِاللَّهِ*
«I swear by Allāh»

The combination of a verb and its governed preposition can even acquire a specific meaning. Consider, for example, the verb *وَجَدَ*. It's basic meaning is «to find». It may be used with prepositions like *بِ*, *عَلَى*, *فِي* with this basic meaning. For example:

- (24) *وَجَدْتُ الْكِتَابَ بِجَهْدٍ*
«I found the book with effort.»

¹³ سورة المائدة for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي

¹⁴ Kasher, “The term *al-fi'l al-muta'addi bi-harf jarr*” §2.7 124

¹⁵ النحو الوافي 2/161

¹⁶ See also صحيح البخاري [4064] *أَخَذَ انْهَزَمَ النَّاسُ عَنِ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ*

¹⁷ Kasher, “The term *al-fi'l al-muta'addi bi-harf jarr*” §3.3

¹⁸ Kasher, “The term *al-fi'l al-muta'addi bi-harf jarr*” §3.3 129 citing ابن الأنباري

- (25) وَجَدْتُ الْكِتَابَ فِي الْبَيْتِ
«I found the book in the house.»
- (26) وَجَدْتُ الْكِتَابَ عَلَى الْخِزَانَةِ
«I found the book on the cupboard.»

But this verb also has specific meanings when used with these prepositions and certain indirect does (albeit possibly with different *maṣḍars*). For example:

- (25) وَجَدَ عَلَيْهِ [Lane: root وجد]
«He was angry with him.»
- (26) وَجَدَ بِهَا [Lane: root وجد]
«He loved her.»
- (27) قَدْ وَجَدَ فِي نَفْسِهِ عَلَيَّ [1649b: صحيح مسلم]
«he may have some feelings against me»

In such cases, the preposition almost seems to lose some of its independent meaning. Instead, the meaning of the expression is obtained from the combination of the verb with the preposition.

30.7. General existence

Consider the sentence:

- (26) 2/211 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ
«Zayd is in the house.»

We mentioned in section (ref) above, that a preposition needs to be pertinent to a verb (or a verb-like noun). But we find no such pertinentee in the sentence above. So how then can the preposition *فِي* be justified?

In order to remain consistent with the Arabic grammatical model, we taqdir a pertinentee. This taqdired pertinentee is called *general existence*.

In the Arabic grammatical tradition, general existence is represented by the verb *أَسْتَقَرَّ* or its doer participle *مُسْتَقَرٌّ*, or by the word *كَانَ*, which is the doer participle of the verb *كَانَ*. We will often represent it in translation, when needed, as «being».

Using this representation of general existence, the taqdir of example (401) above is:

- (27) زَيْدٌ [مُسْتَقَرٌّ] فِي الدَّارِ
«Zayd is [being] in the house.»

The word «being» is not really needed in the translation because the verb «is» conveys the same concept. But we have added it to explicate the involvement of general existence in the grammar of the sentence.

Note that taqdiring general existence in a sentence as we did in example (402) above is not same as if the words *أَسْتَقَرَّ* «to settle», *مُسْتَقَرٌّ* «settled», or *كَانَ* «being» were actually expressed in surface speech. When expressed in surface speech, they impart their own meaning. For example

- (28) زَيْدٌ مُسْتَقَرٌّ فِي الدَّارِ
« Zayd is settled in the house. »

When using *اُسْتَقَرَّ*, *مُسْتَقَرٌّ*, and *كَانَ* to represent general existence, we only do so because we need some words to express this concept and these words give a meaning which is near enough (see Section 26.7.2.2). In fact, according to the prevalent opinion among the grammarians, general existence can only be taqdired.¹⁹ If one of these (or any other) words is actually expressed, then it will impart a specific meaning, not the meaning of general existence. Having said that, some grammarians did permit general existence to be expressed in surface speech.²⁰

30.8. General existence as the info of a sentence

The taqdīr of general existence in the sentence in example (401) زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ solves another problem for us. The preposition is a dispensable element. So if we remove it (and the following i-case noun الدَّارِ) from the sentence, we should still be left with a complete sentence. Let's try doing that:

- (29) زَيْدٌ [مُسْتَقَرٌّ]
« Zayd is [being]. »

See how the general existence serves as the indispensable leaning element: the info. If we were to not taqdīr general existence, we would be left with a grammatically incomplete sentence.

We also take this opportunity to explain an apparent inconsistency. Back in chapter (ref), we had said that a prepositional phrase can be the info of a sentence. We now state that, strictly speaking, it is the (taqdired) pertinentee of the preposition which is the info. But because the actual info is taqdired and is not expressed, we can say, loosely speaking, that the prepositional phrase is the info.

This approach of applying a terminological label differently when loosely speaking vs when strictly speaking is common.²¹ We will see other examples of it in sections (refs) if Allāh wills.

30.9. Other taqdired pertinentees besides general existence

While general existence is necessarily taqdired and never expressed (see section (ref) above), other pertinentees of prepositions too may be optionally taqdired. This is done on the condition that the overall meaning or context supplies the meaning of the taqdired pertinentee.²² For example:

¹⁹ النحو الوافي 1/477

²⁰ شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/211 footnote

²¹ النحو الوافي 1/215, 2/118, 2/442

²² النحو الوافي 2/447 footnote

- (30) أَلْحُرُّ بِالْحُرِّ [سورة البقرة 2:178 cited by النحو الوافي 2/447]
« the free for the free »

In the above example, the info has been analyzed as the taqdired pertinentee « is retributed against » or يُقْتَلُ « is killed ». So the taqdîr of example (405) is:

- (31) الْحُرُّ يَفْتَنُّ أَوْ يُقْتَلُ بِالْحُرِّ [سورة البقرة for تفسير ابن عاشور 2:178]
« the free is retributed against, or killed, for the free. »

30.10. The prepositional phrase as a attribute

Consider the sentence

- (32) [استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و أثره في المعنى لعلي هاني] رَأَيْتُ طَائِرًا عَلَى الْغَصْنِ
« I saw a bird on the branch. »

Now the logical assumption is that the bird was on the branch, not that I was seeing on a branch. So this means that the preposition عَلَى is not meaningfully connected with the verb رَأَيْتُ. Therefore, عَلَى cannot be pertinent to رَأَيْتُ.²³ So what then is the pertinentee the preposition عَلَى.

Here again, we use general existence, as if to say:

- (33) رَأَيْتُ طَائِرًا [مُسْتَقَرًّا] عَلَى الْغَصْنِ
« I saw a bird [being] on the branch. »

The preposition عَلَى is pertinent to general existence [مُسْتَقَرًّا]. General existence is also a attribute to the direct doer طَائِرًا. But because the taqdired general existence is not expressed, we may say, loosely speaking, that the prepositional phrase is the attribute.

In order for a prepositional phrase to be a attribute, its attributee will usually be an indefinite noun, like طَائِرًا is in example (407) above. In the case where the prepositional phrase occurs after a definite noun, (like in رَأَيْتُ الطَّائِرَ عَلَى الْغَصْنِ) it will typically be analyzed as a hāl. We will discuss this in more detail in chapter (ref) section (ref) if Allāh wills.

Here are some more examples of prepositional phrases as attributes:

- (34) كَمَثَلِ جَنَّةٍ بِرَبْوَةٍ [سورة البقرة 2:265]
« like a garden on high ground »
(بِرَبْوَةٍ is analyzed as a attribute.²⁴)

- (35) رَبَّنَا وَابْعَثْ فِيهِمْ رَسُولًا مِنْهُمْ [سورة البقرة 2:129]
« Our Lord, and send among them a messenger from themselves »
(مِنْهُمْ is analyzed as a attribute.²⁵)

²³ استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و أثره في المعنى لعلي هاني

²⁴ سورة البقرة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان 2:265

²⁵ سورة البقرة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان 2:129

When a prepositional phrase is, loosely speaking, a attribute, it is typically pertinent to general existence.²⁶ However, it is conceivable that the pertinentee of the preposition be analyzed, if not formally, then at least in meaning, as some other verb (or verb-like noun).²⁷ For example:

- (35) [27:12 سورة النمل] فِي تِسْعِ آيَاتٍ إِلَىٰ فِرْعَوْنَ وَقَوْمِهِ
« [These are] among the nine signs [you will take] to Pharaoh and his people. »

In one interpretation of the above āyah, the prepositional phrase إِلَىٰ فِرْعَوْنَ «to Pharaoh» has been analyzed as a attribute of آيَاتٍ «signs». The taqdir is:

- (36) [2/1005 التبيان في إعراب القرآن للعكبري]²⁸ وَاصِلَةٌ إِلَىٰ فِرْعَوْنَ
«arriving to Pharaoh»

Here is another example:

- (37) [9:125 سورة التوبة] فَزَادَتْهُمْ رِجْسًا إِلَىٰ رِجْسِهِمْ
«it has [only] increased them in evil [in addition] to their evil»

In the above āyah, the prepositional phrase إِلَىٰ رِجْسِهِمْ «to their evil» has been analyzed as attribute of رِجْسًا «evil». The taqdir is:

- (38) [9:125 سورة التوبة for الكشاف للزمخشري] كُفْرًا مَّضْمُومًا إِلَىٰ كُفْرِهِمْ
«in disbelief in addition to their disbelief»

30.11. The word-order for different categories of attributes

TODO

When a attributee is described by more than one attribute and النحو الوافي 3/496

30.12. The prepositional phrase in other functions

Besides the info and the attribute a prepositional phrase may also occur as a ḥāl and a connecting sentence.²⁹ We will cover these two remaining topics in their respective chapters in sections (ref) and (ref) respectively.

²⁶ 1/213 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, 2/285 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام

²⁷ 2/447 النحو الوافي footnote

²⁸ But see also سورة النمل 27:12 where this interpretation is critiqued.

²⁹ 2/441–442 النحو الوافي

30.13. Word order of the preposition and its pertinentee

A prepositional phrase may freely precede its pertinentee.³⁰ This may be done for a number of purposes:

To limit and particularize the effect of the pertinentee to the noun following the preposition.³¹

For example:

- (39) [2790: صحيح البخاري] وَمِنْهُ تَفَجَّرُ أَنْهَارُ الْجَنَّةِ
«and from it originate the rivers of Paradise»

- (40) [3/121 معاني النحو 3:122 سورة آل عمران] وَعَلَى اللَّهِ فَلْيَتَوَكَّلِ الْمُؤْمِنُونَ
«and upon Allāh the believers should rely.»

For drawing attention to the noun following the preposition³²

- (40) [3/123 معاني النحو 3:180 سورة آل عمران] وَاللَّهُ بِمَا تَعْمَلُونَ خَبِيرٌ
«And Allāh, of what you do, is [fully] Aware.»

- (41) [4770: صحيح البخاري] أَلَيْهَذَا جَمَعْتُنَا
«Is it for *this* (that) you have gathered us?»

- (42) [51:18 سورة الذاريات] وَبِالْأَسْحَارِ هُمْ يَسْتَغْفِرُونَ
«And in the hours before dawn they would ask forgiveness»
(The prepositional phrase بِالْأَسْحَارِ is placed not just before its pertinentee in the info يَسْتَغْفِرُونَ, but also before the subject هُمْ.)

The placement of preposition (and also the adverbs of time and place (section ref)), is especially flexible compared to other governees.³³ Even when the placement of the governees of a governor might be restricted in general, a license is often given to prepositions. For example, we saw in section (ref), that when a doer participle is prefixed with ال, then its governees may not precede it. So for example, we cannot say × هذا زيدا الضارب. We have to say instead ✓ هذا الضارب زيدا. But an exception is made for the preposition which is pertinent to the doer participle. So we can say:

- (41) [3/263 النحو الوافي] أَنَا لَكَ المرافق
«I am, for you, the travelling companion.»

³⁰ النحو الوافي 2/444A

³¹ معاني النحو 3/121

³² معاني النحو 3/121

³³ شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/289D–290A

We will see, in sections (refs) if Allāh wills that the governee, in this case, are permitted to be placed where other types of governees are not.

TODO: Add content to:

- إِنَّ and its sisters: ibn_aqil 1/278 fn; 1/349
- كَانَ and its sisters أَكَلَا طَعَامَكَ
- Hījāzi مَا: sharh uthaymeen 22/4 (مَكَا بِي أَنْتَ مَعِينَا)

Work in progress

Chapter 31.

The verb كَان

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

31.1. Introduction

We have learned that a verb must have a doer in the u-case and can have a direct doee in the a-case. In this chapter, we will learn about a new type of verb, whose doer is called its subject, and whose direct doee is called its info.

The principal verb of this type is كَان which is used to mean “was”. There are other verbs which behave in a similar manner and they are called the *sisters* of كَان.

31.2. كَان as a deficient verb

In chapter (gov), we learned that a verbal sentence is formed from a verb and its doer. The verb constitutes the leaning element and its doer constitutes the leaned-against element. For example:

- (1) قَامَ زَيْدٌ
« Zayd stood up. »

In example (421) above قَامَ is the leaning element and زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element.

Most verbs behave in this manner. They are termed *sufficient* verbs because the verb contains sufficient meaning to be the leaning element by expressing some property about its doer (the leaned-against element).

There are some verbs, however, that do not contain sufficient meaning to be the leaning element of a sentence. These verbs are termed *deficient* verbs. For such verbs, the verb's direct doee is needed to complete the meaning of the sentence. The verb كَان, which means “« was »”, is one such verb. If we say كَان زَيْدٌ « Zayd was » then the meaning is, in general, incomplete. The listener would

be left wondering, «Zayd was what?» So, in order to complete the meaning of the sentence, we have to add a direct doer for كَانَ. For example:

- (2) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا [Peled, *Sentence types* 171]
«Zayd was standing»

Now the sentence is structurally complete.

31.3. A كَانَ sentence as a nounal sentence and a verbal sentence

The fact that كَانَ is not a indispensable element of its sentence also changes the classification of the sentence from the perspective of sentence completion. The leaned-against element in example (422) زَيْدٌ needs a leaning element to complete the sentence. Because the verb كَانَ does not complete the meaning of the sentence, therefore it cannot be the leaning element. The sentence becomes structurally complete when we add the direct doer قَائِمًا.¹ Therefore, the direct doer قَائِمًا is the leaning element.

So indispensable elements in example (422) become زَيْدٌ (the leaned-against element) and قَائِمًا (the leaning element). These two are nouns, not a verb and its doer. Therefore, from the perspective of sentence completion, the sentence is reclassified as a nounal sentence, not a verbal sentence (see @3amal-refine_defs).² زَيْدٌ is considered the subject, and قَائِمًا is considered the info. However, for other purposes, the sentence may still be considered a verbal sentence. (See Section 41.6.3, for example.)

Although كَانَ is not a indispensable element anymore, it still governs both indispensable elements. Therefore, it is the foundational government of the sentence (see section (ref)).

The diagram below depicts the government of example (422).

DIAGRAM

31.4. Conjugation table for كَانَ

كَانَ is a hollow verb. Here is its conjugation table for easy reference:

Doer pronoun	māḍī verb	u-case muḍāriʿ verb	a-case muḍāriʿ verb	ø-case muḍāriʿ verb
he	كَانَ	يَكُونُ	يَكُونُ	يَكُنْ
she	كَانَتْ	تَكُونُ	تَكُونُ	تَكُنْ
you _{im}	كُنْتَ	تَكُونُ	تَكُونُ	تَكُنْ
you _{if}	كُنْتَ	تَكُونِينَ	تَكُونِي	تَكُونِي

¹The a-case governee of كَانَ is considered a direct doer according to the classification of the Baṣrans. The Kūfans considered the a-case governee of كَانَ its ḥāl. See شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/137

²See also Peled, *Sentence types* 171

Doer pronoun	māḍī verb	u-case muḍāriʿ verb	a-case muḍāriʿ verb	∅-case muḍāriʿ verb
I	كُنْتُ	أَكُونُ	أَكُونُ	أَكُنْ
they _{2m}	كَانَا	يَكُونَانِ	يَكُونَا	يَكُونَا
they _{2f}	كَانَتَا	تَكُونَانِ	تَكُونَا	تَكُونَا
you ₂	كُنْتُمَا	تَكُونَانِ	تَكُونَا	تَكُونَا
they _{3m}	كَانُوا	يَكُونُونَ	يَكُونُوا	يَكُونُوا
they _{3f}	كُنَّ	يَكُنَّ	يَكُنَّ	يَكُنَّ
you _{3m}	كُنْتُمْ	تَكُونُونَ	تَكُونُوا	تَكُونُوا
you _{3f}	كُنْتُنَّ	تَكُنَّ	تَكُنَّ	تَكُنَّ
we	كُنَّا	نَكُونُ	نَكُونُ	نَكُنْ

Here are some examples showing some of the different conjugations:

- (3) كَانَتْ زَيْنَبٌ جَائِعَةً
«Zaynab was hungry.»
- (4) كَانَ الْغُلَامُ زَيْدًا
«The boy was Zayd.»
- (5) كَانَتِ النِّسَاءُ فِي بُيُوتِهِنَّ
«The women were in their houses.»
- (6) كَانُوا مَسْرُورِينَ وَفَرِحِينَ
«They_{3m} were happy and rejoicing.»
- (7) كُنْتُ نَائِمَةً
«I_{1f} was sleeping.»
- (8) كُنْتُ لِي أَخًا
«You_{1m} were a brother to me.»

31.5. Word order of كَانَ, its subject, and its info

Verb, subject, info

In sentence word order, the natural sequence is verb, subject, info.

- 4) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/100B]
«Zayd was standing.»

Verb, info, subject

The sequence verb, info, subject is also permissible.

- (5) كَانَ قَائِمًا زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/100B]
«Zayd was standing.»

Info, verb, subject

So is the sequence info, verb, subject:

- (6) قَائِمًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/100B]
« Zayd was standing. »

This last order is common in questions and alternative sentence sentences.³
For example:

- (7) أَقَائِمًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ
« Was Zayd standing? »
- (8) أَكْرِمُ الضَّيْفَ غَنِيًّا كَانَ أَوْ فَقِيرًا [Wright 2/100B]
« Honor the guest, be he rich or poor. »

Sometimes, however, this inversion is impossible because of an indistinguishable case of the two nouns.

For example, in order to express « My brother was my companion, » we must say:

- (8) كَانَ أَخِي زَفِيقِي [Wright 2/100C]
« My brother was my companion. »

This is because, if we invert it, it would naturally mean:

- (9) كَانَ زَفِيقِي أَخِي [Wright 2/100C]
« My companion was my brother. »

Subject, verb, info

What about the sequence: subject, verb, info? For example:

- (10) زَيْدٌ كَانَ قَائِمًا
« Zayd – he was standing. »

Remember that a verb must be followed by its doer. So this is actually a compound sentence. زَيْدٌ is the subject of the outer sentence. And the info of the outer sentence is the inner sentence كَانَ قَائِمًا. The subject of كَانَ is a latent pronoun, implicated a [هُوَ].

Word order when كَانَ's info has a a-case governee

We know from chapter (ref) that a deverbal noun can have a doer. The natural word order is for this doer to occur after its governor, thus:

- (11) كَانَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي]
« Zayd was eating your food. »

³Wright 2/100B

Other word orders are also possible. We will discuss the different combinations below:

(12) Basic order: كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَكَلًا

(a) كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَكَلًا طَعَامَكَ ✓

(b) كَانَ زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ أَكَلًا ✓

(c) طَعَامَكَ كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَكَلًا ✓

(d) كَانَ طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ أَكَلًا ×

(13) Basic order: كَانَ أَكَلًا زَيْدٌ

(a) كَانَ أَكَلًا طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ ✓

(b) كَانَ أَكَلًا زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ ✓

(c) طَعَامَكَ كَانَ أَكَلًا زَيْدٌ ✓

(d) كَانَ طَعَامَكَ أَكَلًا زَيْدٌ ×

(14) Basic order: أَكَلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ

(a) أَكَلًا طَعَامَكَ كَانَ زَيْدٌ ✓

(b) طَعَامَكَ أَكَلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ ✓

(c) أَكَلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ ✓

(d) أَكَلًا كَانَ طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ ×

As you can see, only three of the combinations are disallowed.⁴ And in all three كَانَ is separated from its subject (زَيْدٌ) by the governee (طَعَامَكَ) of its info (أَكَلًا).

Even some of these disallowed combinations become permitted if the governee of the info of كَانَ is not a direct doer but a preposition or an adverb of time and place. Recall from section (ref) that the word order of prepositions and adverbs of time and place is especially flexible. So we can say:

(13) [1/280 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] كَانَ عِنْدَكَ زَيْدٌ مُقِيمًا
« Zayd was, at your place, staying. »

(14) [1/280 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] كَانَ فِيكَ زَيْدٌ رَاجِعًا
« Zayd was, of [your favour], desirous »

⁴There is some difference of opinion regarding the permissibility of some of the combinations. See 1/432. همع الهوامع للسيوطي; 2/59; الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي; 1/280; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

Some of the combinations above, though allowed, are considered ungainly by some grammarians⁵, like (440) (3) أَكَلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ. But again, if the governee of the info of كَانَ is not a direct doee but a preposition or an adverb of time and place, then there is no problem. For example:

- (14) [1/432 همع الهوامع للسيوطي] مُسَافِرًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ الْيَوْمَ
«Journeying Zayd was today»
- (15) [1/432 همع الهوامع للسيوطي] رَاغِبًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ فِيكَ
«Desirous Zayd was, of [your favour]»

Word order of a compound sentence when كَانَ's info has a a-case governee

The subject can made to precede كَانَ, such that it becomes a compound sentence:

- (15) [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي] زَيْدٌ كَانَ أَكَلًا طَعَامَكَ

Now the subject of كَانَ is a latent pronoun [هُوَ]. Since this latent pronoun is attached to كَانَ, the info أَكَلًا's governee طَعَامَكَ can no longer come between كَانَ and its subject. Now all twelve combinations are permissible.⁶, Here is a sampling out of them:

- (16) (a) [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي] طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ كَانَ أَكَلًا
(b) [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي] زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ أَكَلًا كَانَ
(c) [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي] طَعَامَكَ أَكَلًا زَيْدٌ كَانَ

31.6. Negation of كَانَ

TODO

31.7. A pronoun as the info of كَانَ

When a pronoun is the info of كَانَ, then it may optionally be attached to كَانَ or separated using the prefix إِيَّا.

Examples:

- (17) [2930a cited by صحيح مسلم] إِنْ يَكُنْهُ فَلَنْ تُسَلِّطَ عَلَيْهِ وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْهُ فَلَا خَيْرَ لَكَ فِي قَتْلِهِ
[1/231 شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك]
«If he is he (i.e. the Dajjāl), you would not be able to overpower him, and if he is not he there is no good for you in killing him»

⁵1/432 همع الهوامع للسيوطي

⁶inferred from 1/433 همع الهوامع للسيوطي

- (18) 1/114] أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكَ لِابْنِ هِشَامٍ [الصَّدِيقُ كُنْتُهُ
« The friend – you are he. »
(الصَّدِيقُ كُنْتُ إِيَّاهُ) is also permitted.⁷)

- (19) 1/114] أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكَ لِابْنِ هِشَامٍ [كَانَهُ زَيْدٌ
« Zayd was he. »

For the other sisters of كَانَ it is preferred that the pronoun be separated using the prefix إِيَّ. An attached pronoun for the other sisters is rare.⁸

31.8. A separating-pronoun between the subject and info of كَانَ

TODO

- (18) كَانَ زَيْدًا هُوَ الْقَائِمُ

1/249 النحو الوافي

31.9. A maṣdari 'an as the subject or info of كَانَ

Recall from chapter (ref) that the clause of a maṣdari 'an is equivalent to a maṣdar, which is a noun. Consider the following example:

- (19) 6:23 سورة الأنعام] ثُمَّ لَمْ تَكُنْ فَتَنْتَهُمْ إِلَّا أَنْ قَالُوا وَاللَّهِ رَبَّنَا مَا كُنَّا مُشْرِكِينَ
[714 لابن أبي الربيع
« Then there will be no [excuse upon] examination except they will say,
“By Allāh, our Lord, we were not those who associated.” »

The clause أَنْ قَالُوا is equivalent to قَوْلُهُمْ « their saying ». Due to this equivalence to a noun, a maṣdari 'an can be the subject or the info of كَانَ. For the āyah in example (451), فَتْنَةٌ is read in both the u-case (فَتْنَتُهُمْ) and the a-case (فَتْنَتَهُمْ) in different recitations.⁹ So the أَنْ قَالُوا clause is analyzed as the subject of كَانَ when فَتْنَةٌ is read in the a-case as the info. and it is analyzed as the info of كَانَ when فَتْنَةٌ is read in the u-case as the subject.

In general, a maṣdari 'an will be more likely to be the subject because is considered more definite.¹⁰

⁷ 1/275 النحو الوافي, 1/104 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

⁸ 2/245 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان

⁹ 6:23 سورة الأنعام للقراءات العشر من الشاذبية والدرة --- دار الصحابة

¹⁰ 3:147 سورة آل عمران for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي; 715 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

31.10. A complete sentence as the info of كَانَ

So far we have seen examples where the info of كَانَ is a single noun in the a-case. In example (437) كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَكَلًا طَعَامَكَ the info of the كَانَ is the noun أَكَلًا. The info أَكَلًا is governing a latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] and the direct doee طَعَامَكَ, but still, the info itself is a single noun, not a complete sentence.

Here is another example:

- (20) [662 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا
«Zayd was setting out.»

In example (452) above the info of كَانَ is the noun مُنْطَلِقًا.

In section (ref), we learned that the info of a nounal sentence can be a complete sentence. So, the info of كَانَ can be a complete sentence. For example:

- (21) [692 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ
«Zayd – his father was setting out.»
(literally: «Zayd was – his father is setting out.»)

In example (453), the info of كَانَ is the complete sentence أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ «His father is setting out». As we stated in section (ref), when the info is a sentence, then internally it is governed independently with its own foundational government. So كَانَ has no governing effect *within* the info sentence.¹¹ The inner sentence زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ has its own internal government with زَيْدٌ as the subject and مُنْطَلِقٌ as the info. That is why مُنْطَلِقٌ is in the u-case and not in the a-case.

The entire info sentence أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ in place of a a-case noun as the info of كَانَ.

Here are some more examples of كَانَ with a sentence as its info:

- (22) [692 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَخُوهُ صَاحِكٌ
«Zayd – his brother was laughing.»
- (23) [692 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ
«Zayd – setting out, his father was.»
(literally: «Zayd was – setting out, his father is.»)

In example, (455) above, the sentence info is أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ. مُنْطَلِقٌ is the fronted info and أَبُوهُ is the subject. Although this sentence is grammatically correct, we will see in the next section that a sababi info is more likely to be used instead.

When كَانَ has a info that is a complete sentence, then the info of the inner sentence will match its subject in number and gender. For example:

- (23) [693 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ أَبَوَاهُمَا حَسَنَانِ
«The two Zayds – their fathers [were] handsome.»
- (24) [693 footnote 3] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ حَسَنَانِ أَبَوَاهُمَا
«The two Zayds – handsome, their fathers [were].»
(fronted info.)

¹¹ 683 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

- (25) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ حَسَنُونَ آبَاؤُهُمْ [693 footnote 3] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع
«The Zayds – handsome, their fathers [were].»
(sound plural as the fronted info.)

- (26) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ جَسَانٌ آبَاؤُهُمْ [693 footnote 3] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع
«The Zayds – handsome, their fathers [were].»
(broken plural as the fronted info.)

31.11. A state-of-affairs pronoun as the subject of كَانَ

كَانَ may have a state-of-affairs pronoun as its subject. And the info of كَانَ will be an inner sentence. For example

- (24) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ [745 footnote 1] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع
«[The state of affairs] was – Zayd is standing.»

In example (460) above, the subject of كَانَ is a latent state-of-affairs pronoun [هُوَ]. And the info of كَانَ is the inner sentence زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ «Zayd is standing». Compare example (460) with example (422) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا, where the subject of كَانَ is زَيْدٌ. And the info of كَانَ is the single element قَائِمًا.

Similarly, if the subject of the inner sentence is a feminine noun, then the state-of-affairs pronoun subject of كَانَ is typically feminine, thus:

- (25) كَانَتْ هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةً [745 footnote 1] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع
«[The state of affairs] was – Hind is standing.»

By the way, although the gender of the state-of-affairs pronoun usually matches the gender of the subject of its info, it is possible for it to mismatch.¹² (We also mentioned this in section (ref).)

In practice, usage of the state-of-affairs pronoun in sentences like example (460) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ is uncommon, but nevertheless existent.¹³ Instead the construction in example (422) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا is far more likely to be used. But, as we will see in sections (ref) and (ref), if Allāh wills, when the info of كَانَ is a verbal sentence, then the state-of-affairs pronoun is very commonly used as the subject of كَانَ.

31.12. كَانَ with a sababi info

Consider again example (455) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ. Instead of using a sentence info, we can reconstruct the sentence to have مُنْطَلِقًا to be the info of كَانَ, and have أَبُوهُ as the doer of the doer participle مُنْطَلِقًا, thus:

¹² 745, 746 footnote 1 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

¹³ See the analysis of the reading فَكَانَ أَبُوهُ مُؤْمِنًا in البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الكهف 18:80

- (26) [692 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبُوهُ
«Zayd – his father was setting out.»

This is a sababi info construction. (See section (ref) for an introduction to the sababi info.) The info of كَانَ in example (462) above is not a complete sentence. Rather, it is the single element مُنْطَلِقًا. A sentence with a sababi info like (462) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبُوهُ will be preferred over a sentence with a fronted info like (455) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ.¹⁴

When كَانَ has a sababi info, then, as mentioned in section (ref), it generally remains singular regardless whether its doer is dual or plural. So we get:

- (27) كَانَ الرَّيْدَانِ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبَوَاهُمَا
«The two Zayds – their fathers [were] setting out.»
- (28) كَانَ الرَّيْدُونَ مُنْطَلِقَةً جَدَّائُهُمْ
«The Zayds – their grandmothers [were] setting out.»

But if the info has a broken plural, then it is permitted (and in fact preferred) to be used.¹⁵

- (28) [693 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ الرَّيْدُونَ حَسَنًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
«The Zayds – their fathers [were] handsome.»

31.13. كَانَ with a prepositional or adverbial info

It is possible for the info of كَانَ to be a prepositional or adverbial info. For example:

- (29) [682 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ
«Zayd was in the house.»
- (30) [682 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] كَانَ مُحَمَّدٌ عِنْدَكَ
«Muḥammad was at your place.»

In such cases, the info of كَانَ is technically the implication of *general beingness* [مُسْتَقَرًّا] (see section (ta3alluq)). The implicated general beingness governs the preposition/adverb. The preposition or adverb is not directly governed by كَانَ.¹⁶

31.14. كَانَ as a sufficient verb

As we mentioned in section (ref) above, the verb كَانَ that we have been using so far is called the *deficient* كَانَ.

¹⁴ 694 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

¹⁵ 693 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

¹⁶ 682; But see the tafsirs of اَنَّكَ لِلنَّاسِ عَجَبًا [10:2 سورة يونس] for a possible exception to this rule.

There is another type of كَانَ called the *sufficient* كَانَ. This كَانَ has sufficient meaning to not need an info. The meaning that the sufficient كَانَ gives is the meaning of «exists». In English, we usually express this meaning using «there was». For example,

- (30) كَانَ مَلِكٌ
« [There] was a king. »
(literally: « A king was. »)

Note that مَلِك «king» is in the u-case as the subject. If it were in the a-case, then it would change the meaning:

- (31) كَانَ مَلِكًا
« He was a king. »

When كَانَ is sufficient then it serves as the leaning element. So the sentence is a verbal sentence.

Here is another example of a sufficient كَانَ:

- (32) كَانَ تَاجِرٌ وَكَانَ لَهُ بَنُونَ [Wright 2/99D]
« There was a trader, and he had sons. »

Incidentally, in example (470), the past verb of «have»: «had» is expressed using كَانَ with the preposition لِ.

31.15. Significations of the māḍī verb كَانَ

The general signification of the māḍī verb كَانَ is to indicate a state that existed in the past, and that has possibly ceased. For example:

- (33) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا
« Zayd was standing. »

This statement is regarding Zayd's state in the past and the implication is that he is possibly no longer standing.

This is the most common signification of the māḍī verb كَانَ and the one that we have been using so far. But the māḍī verb كَانَ can admit additional significations¹⁷:

The second signification of كَانَ is to indicate a state that, at first, had not yet begun, and which then began and remained, possibly up to the present. It has, in this sense, the meaning «became», «has become», or «happened». Examples:

- (34) أَبَى وَأَسْتَكْبَرَ وَكَانَ مِنَ الْكَافِرِينَ [سورة البقرة 2:34]¹⁸
« He refused and was arrogant and became of the disbelievers. »

¹⁷ معقع الإسم سؤال وجواب: معنى "كان" في مثل قوله تعالى (وَكَانَ اللَّهُ سَمِيعًا بَصِيرًا)

¹⁸ cited by سورة البقرة for تفسير ابن عاشور 2:34

(35) اخْتَرَقَ الْخَشَبُ فَكَانَ تُرَابًا

[1/548 النحو الوافي]

«The wood burned and so became dust.»

A third signification of كَانَ is to indicate a state that will be in the future. For example:

(35) وَيَخَافُونَ يَوْمًا كَانَ شَرُّهُ مُسْتَطِيرًا [سورة الإنسان 76:7]

«and [they] fear a Day whose evil will be widespread.»

The use of the māḍī كَانَ here may be to indicate the certainty of the future event.¹⁹

A fourth signification of كَانَ is to indicate a state that will not cease to be.²⁰ For example:

(36) وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا رَحِيمًا [سورة النساء 4:96]

«And Allāh is ever Forgiving and Merciful.»

(37) وَلَا تَقْرُبُوا الزَّوَاجَ الَّذِي هُوَ كَانَ فَلَاحِشَةً وَسَاءَ سَبِيلًا [سورة الإسراء 17:32]

«And do not approach unlawful sexual intercourse. Indeed, it is ever an immorality and is evil as a way.»

See also this narration²³:

عَنْ سَعِيدٍ قَالَ: قَالَ رَجُلٌ لِابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ إِنِّي أَجِدُ فِي الْقُرْآنِ أَشْيَاءَ تَخْتَلِفُ عَلَيَّ قَالَ: ... وَقَالَ: (وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا رَحِيمًا) عَزِيزًا حَكِيمًا سَمِيعًا بَصِيرًا، فَكَأَنَّهُ كَانَ ثُمَّ مَضَى. فَقَالَ ... (وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا) سَمَّى نَفْسَهُ ذَلِكَ وَذَلِكَ قَوْلُهُ، أَيْ لَمْ يَزَلْ كَذَلِكَ، فَإِنَّ اللَّهَ لَمْ يَزِدْ شَيْئًا إِلَّا أَصَابَ بِهِ الَّذِي أَرَادَ، فَلَا يَخْتَلِفُ عَلَيْكَ الْقُرْآنُ، فَإِنَّ كُلًّا مِنْ عِنْدِ اللَّهِ.

Translation:

[On the authority of] Sa'īd, a man said to Ibn ʿAbbās, "Indeed I find in the Qur'ān things that seem to contradict each other to me." He said, "... وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا رَحِيمًا عَزِيزًا حَكِيمًا سَمِيعًا بَصِيرًا ...". It is as if it was and then it elapsed." [Ibn ʿAbbās] said, "... [regarding] كَانَ وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا, He attributed that to Himself, and that is [the meaning of] His speech. That is, that his how He has always been. For indeed Allāh did not intend anything except that He was correct in what He intended. So let not the Qur'ān seem contradicting to you, for indeed all [of it] is from Allāh."

¹⁹ 76:7 سورة الإنسان for تفسير ابن عاشور

²⁰ 3:110 سورة آل عمران for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

²¹ 3:110 سورة آل عمران for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان cited by

²² 17:32 سورة الإسراء for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان cited by

²³ صحيح البخاري 65/41 (معلقاً)

31.16. Significations of the u-case muḍāriʿ verb يَكُونُ

31.16.1. يَكُونُ used for habitual «is»

Consider the sentence, «The mother cooks the food.» The verb «cooks» implies that the action is habitually done, not necessarily that it is being done at present. If we wished to say that the action is being done at present, we might instead say, «The mother *is cooking* the food.» English maintains this distinction between the present and the habitual for most verbs. But it does not for the verb «is». So if we say, «The sky is blue,» then it can mean both (i) that the sky is blue at present, or (ii) that it is habitually blue, not necessarily that it is blue at present.

In Arabic the situation is somewhat different. Arabic does not usually have a distinction between the present and the habitual for most verbs. So تَطْبُخُ الْأُمُّ الطَّعَامَ may mean both (i) that the mother is cooking the food at present, or (ii) that she habitually does.

But for the verb «is», Arabic can distinguish between the present and the habitual. So if we say السَّمَاءُ زُرْقَاءُ, then this can, in general, mean both (i) that the sky is blue at present, and (ii) that it is habitually blue. If we wish to specify the habitual meaning, we may use the muḍāriʿ verb يَكُونُ, thus:

(37) تَكُونُ السَّمَاءُ زُرْقَاءَ

«The sky is (habitually) blue.»

While we call this the habitual يَكُونُ, it can include a range of meanings, including continually, recurring, regularly, typically, generally, often, sometimes, can, may, etc. Habitual يَكُونُ is negated using مَا or لَا, just like other u-case muḍāriʿ verbs.

Here are some examples:

(38) سَنَنَ النَّسَائِيُّ قَالَ وَمَا الْبَيْعُ وَالْمَرْزُ؟ قُلْتُ شَرَابٌ يَكُونُ مِنَ الْعَسَلِ وَالْمَرْزُ يَكُونُ مِنَ السَّعِيرِ [5604]

«He said: ‘What is mead and beer?’ I said: ‘A drink that is from honey, and beer is from barley.’»

(39) 667: صحيح البخاري [إِنَّهَا تَكُونُ الظُّلْمَةُ وَالسَّبِيلُ]

«[There] is [at times] darkness and flooding»

31.16.2. قَدْ يَكُونُ for «may be»

When the meaning «may be» is desired, the the muḍāriʿ verb يَكُونُ may be preceded by the particle قَدْ. For example,

(39) 401- جمع الجوامع للسيوطي [قَالَ أَبُو الدَّرْدَاءِ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ يَسْرِقُ الْمُؤْمِنُ قَالَ قَدْ يَكُونُ ذَلِكَ] 5b²⁴

«Abū al-Dardāʾ said, “O Messenger of Allah, Can a believer steal?” He said, “That may be.”»

²⁴See <https://islamqa.info/ar/answers/264450> for the takhrij of this ḥadīth.

31.16.3. يَكُونُ used for future « will be »

Another usage of the muḍāriʿ verb يَكُونُ is for the future tense to mean « will be ». In this case, it is often preceded by سَوْفَ or سَوْفَ. سَوْفَ and سَوْفَ are optional and are commonly dropped, especially when the context indicates the future. Future يَكُونُ is negated by لَا. Here are some examples:

- (40) فَقَدْ كَذَّبْتُمْ فَسَوْفَ يَكُونُ لِزَامًا [سورة الفرقان 25:77]
«For you [disbelievers] have denied, so it [i.e., your denial] is going to be adherent.»
- (41) لَا يَكُونُ اللَّعَّانُونَ شُفَعَاءَ وَلَا شُهَدَاءَ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ [رياض الصالحين 1553]
«The frequent cursers will be neither intercessors nor witnesses [on] the day of resurrection.»
(يَوْمَ is in the a-case because it is an adverb of time, see chapter @ref(adverb-of-time).)
- (42) يَوْمَ يَكُونُ النَّاسُ كَالْفَرَاشِ الْمَبْثُورِ [سورة القارعة 101:4]
«It is the Day when people will be like moths, dispersed,»
- (43) يَكُونُ فِي آخِرِ الزَّمَانِ دَجَالُونَ كَذَّابُونَ [صحيح مسلم 7]
«There will be in the end of time charlatan liars»

31.17. Significance of the a-case muḍāriʿ verb يَكُونُ

Like a-case muḍāriʿ verbs in general, يَكُونُ «be» expresses the meaning of purpose, wish, or expectation. It occurs after the particles لَنْ, لَنْ, أَنْ, حَتَّى, كَيْ, لَنْ, and إِذَنْ. All this is consistent with what we have learned about a-case muḍāriʿ verbs in chapter @ref(a-case-muḍāriʿ-verbs). Here are some examples:

- (41) نَزَلَ بِهِ الرُّوحُ الْأَمِينُ. عَلَى قَلْبِكَ لِتَكُونَ مِنَ الْمُنذِرِينَ [سورة الشعراء 26:193-194]
«The Trustworthy Spirit [i.e., Gabriel] has brought it down. Upon your heart, [O Muḥammad] - that you may be of the warners - »
- (42) لَنْ يَسْتَنْكِفَ الْمَسِيحُ أَنْ يَكُونَ عَبْدًا لِلَّهِ وَلَا الْمَلَائِكَةُ الْمُقَرَّبُونَ [سورة النساء 4:172]
«Never would the Messiah disdain to be a servant of Allāh, nor would the angels near [to Him] »
- (43) أَفَأَنْتَ تُكْرِهُ النَّاسَ حَتَّى يَكُونُوا مُؤْمِنِينَ [سورة يونس 10:99]
«Then, [O Muḥammad], would you compel the people in order that they become believers?»

31.18. The $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb يَكُنْ

As with other verbs, the $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb يَكُنْ is used for negative commands, indirect commands, and with لَمْ for negation, etc. Examples:

- (42) وَلْتَكُنْ مِنْكُمْ أُمَّةٌ يَدْعُونَ إِلَى الْخَيْرِ وَيَأْمُرُونَ بِالْمَعْرُوفِ وَيَنْهَوْنَ عَنِ الْمُنْكَرِ [سورة آل عمران 3:104]

«And let there be [arising] from you a nation inviting to [all that is] good, enjoining what is right and forbidding what is wrong,¹ and those will be the successful.»

- (43) الْحَقُّ مِنْ رَبِّكَ فَلَا تَكُنْ مِنَ الْمُمْتَرِينَ [سورة آل عمران 3:60]

«The truth is from your Lord, so do not be among the doubters.»

- (44) لَمْ يَكُنِ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ سَبًّا وَلَا فَحَاشًا وَلَا لَعْنًا [صحيح البخاري: 6031]

«The Prophet ﷺ was not one who would abuse (others) or say obscene words, or curse (others)»

31.18.1. Deletion of ن

For the $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ conjugations of كَانَ that don't have و between ك and ن, the ن may optionally be deleted if certain conditions are satisfied. These conjugations are:

- يَكُنْ which becomes يَكْ
- تَكُنْ which becomes تَكْ
- نَكُنْ which becomes نَكْ
- أَكُنْ which becomes أَكْ

These are the conditions, all of whom must be satisfied²⁵:

i. The verb is not followed by a sukūn. Examples:

- (43) لَمْ يَكْ الَّذِينَ ... ×

لَمْ يَكُنِ الَّذِينَ كَفَرُوا مِنْ أَهْلِ الْكِتَابِ وَالْمُشْرِكِينَ مُنْفَكِّينَ حَتَّى تَأْتِيَهُمُ الْبَيِّنَةُ ✓
[سورة البينة 98:1]

«Those who disbelieved among the People of the Scripture and the polytheists were not to be parted [from misbelief]¹ until there came to them clear evidence»

- (44) لَمْ يَكْ الرَّجُلُ حَاضِرًا ×
لَمْ يَكُنِ الرَّجُلُ حَاضِرًا ✓

«The man was not present.»

ii. The verb is not followed by an attached pronoun. Example:

²⁵Conditions and examples taken from <https://github.com/zahidsyed/learning-nahw-analytically>

- (44) $\times$ إِنَّ يَكُنْهُ فَلَنْ ... وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْهُ ... $\times$
 [2930a: صحيح مسلم] إِنَّ يَكُنْهُ فَلَنْ تُسَلِّطَ عَلَيْهِ وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْهُ فَلَا خَيْرَ لَكَ فِي قَتْلِهِ ✓
 «If he is he (i.e. the Dajjāl), you would not be able to overpower him,
 and if he is not he there is no good for you in killing him»

iii. The verb is not at the end of a sentence. Example:

- (45) $\times$ وَلَمْ أَكُ بَغِيًّا
 [19:20 سورة مريم] وَلَمْ أَكُ بَغِيًّا ✓
 «and I have not been unchaste»

Here are some more examples which satisfy the conditions so the ن is deleted.
 Examples:

- (46) وَلَا تَكُ فِي ضَيْقٍ مِمَّا يَمْكُرُونَ [16:127 سورة النحل]
 «and do not be in distress over what they conspire.»
- (47) وَقَدْ خَلَقْتُكَ مِنْ قَبْلُ وَلَمْ تَكُ شَيْئًا [19:9 سورة مريم]
 «for I created you before, while you were nothing»
- (48) قَالُوا لَمْ نَكُ مِنَ الْمُصَلِّينَ ﴿٦٧﴾ وَلَمْ نَكُ نَطْعُمُ الْمَسْكِينِ ﴿٦٨﴾ [74:43-44 سورة المدثر]
 «They will say, “We were not of those who prayed, Nor did we used to feed the poor.»
- (49) أَلَمْ يَكُ نُطْفَةً مِنْ مَنِيِّ يُمْنَى [75:37 سورة القيامة]
 «Had he not been a sperm from semen emitted?»

31.19. The verb of command كُنْ

The verb of command كُنْ is used to mean «Be!». Examples:

- (47) قُلْنَا يِنَارُ كُونِي بَرْدًا وَسَلَامًا عَلَىٰ إِبْرَاهِيمَ [21:69 سورة الأنبياء]
 We [i.e., Allāh] said, «O fire, be coolness and safety upon Abraham.»
- (48) فَقُلْنَا لَهُمْ كُونُوا قِرَدَةً خَاسِئِينَ [2:65 سورة البقرة]
 “and We said to them, ‘Be apes, despised.’

The verb of command كُنْ followed by the name of a person in the a-case is used to express one's guessing that the person whom one sees is the individual named. For example:

- (48) كُنْ أَبَا ذَرٍّ [Wright 2/44C]
 «I presume that the person approaching is Abū Dharr»
- (49) كُنْ أَبَا زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/44C]
 «I guess that you are Abū Zayd.»

31.20. The māḍī verb كَانَ combined with a muḍāriʿ verb

In section (ref) above, we mentioned that the info كَانَ can be a complete sentence. The examples we gave were where the info of كَانَ were nounal sentences.

Instead of a nounal sentence as the info of كَانَ, the info is very often a verbal sentence. كَانَ combined with verbal sentences to express complex tenses. The most common combination is the māḍī verb كَانَ with a muḍāriʿ verb in its info.

Consider again example (422):

- (49) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا [Peled, *Sentence types* 171]
« Zayd was standing »

The info of كَانَ is (as a single element) the doer participle قَائِمًا. Let's try to replace the doer participle قَائِمًا with its muḍāriʿ verb يَقُومُ. We get:

- (50) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd used to stand. »
(literally: « Zayd was – he stands. »)

When كَانَ is combined with a following muḍāriʿ verb, or its doer participle, it indicates an imperfect action that was occurring in the past. The tense is usually either:

- i. Past-continuous (« he was doing »), or
- ii. Past-habitual (« he used to do »).

In general, كَانَ with a muḍāriʿ verb can indicate either tense. Whereas كَانَ with a doer participle typically indicates the past-continuous tense. The exact difference in signification between the doer participle and its muḍāriʿ verb is discussed in more detail in chapter (ref).

Let's discuss the grammar of the new sentence (503) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ. The subject of كَانَ is زَيْدٌ. And the info of كَانَ is the complete verbal sentence يَقُومُ « he stands ». The doer of the muḍāriʿ verb يَقُومُ is the latent pronoun [هُوَ] that refers back to the subject زَيْدٌ.

The word order of كَانَ, its subject, and the muḍāriʿ verb

The sequence (كَانَ, subject, muḍāriʿ verb) is a very commonly used word order. But there is also another word order which is also very frequently used. And that is: (كَانَ, muḍāriʿ verb, subject). For example:

- (51) كَانَ يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ
« Zayd used to stand. »

There are two methods to analyze example (504) above²⁶:

²⁶For details on the dispute amongst the grammarians on the parsing of this word order, see حاشية الدر المصون للسمين 4/184; التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 2/137; الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك 9:117 for سورة التوبة for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي; مَا كَانَ يَضَعُ رُءُوسَهُ for سورة الأعراف for الحلبي مَا كَادَ يَرِيغُ قُلُوبَ فَرِيقٍ مِّنْهُمْ

The first method is to consider زَيْدٌ the doer of the muḍāriʿ verb يَقُومُ. The sentence يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ «Zayd stands» is then the info of كَانَ. And the subject of كَانَ is a latent state-of-affairs pronoun [هُوَ]. The state-of-affairs pronoun will typically go untranslated in this case.

The second method is to consider زَيْدٌ the subject of كَانَ. The sentence يَقُومُ «he stands» (with a latent doer pronoun) is then the info of كَانَ, but which is made to precede its subject. By the way, it seems that this second method is not used when the subject is dual or plural. This is because we typically always find the muḍāriʿ verb in the singular when it precedes the subject, regardless of whether the subject is singular, dual, or plural. For example:

- (52) ✓ كَانَ يَقُومُ الزَّيْدَانِ
 × كَانَ يَقُومَانِ الزَّيْدَانِ
 «The two Zayds were standing.»

Both word orders (503) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ and (504) كَانَ يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ have, more or less, a similar meaning.

But choosing one of two word orders can affect the conjugation of the muḍāriʿ verb for dual and plural subjects. Here is a table that compares conjugations for the two options:

كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ	كَانَ يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ
كَانَتْ هَيْدٌ تَقُومُ	كَانَتْ تَقُومُ هَيْدٌ
كَانَا الزَّيْدَانِ يَقُومَانِ	كَانَ يَقُومُ الزَّيْدَانِ
كَانَتِ الْهَيْدَانِ تَقُومَانِ	كَانَتْ تَقُومُ الْهَيْدَانِ
كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ يَقُومُونَ	كَانَ يَقُومُ الزَّيْدُونَ
كَانَتِ الْهَيْدَاتُ يَقُمْنَ	كَانَتْ تَقُومُ الْهَيْدَاتُ

When the subject of كَانَ is a dual or plural pronoun, then it seems that only the (كَانَ, subject, muḍāriʿ verb) is used. And the (كَانَ, muḍāriʿ verb, subject) is unused. For example:

- (53) ✓ كَانُوا يَقُومُونَ
 × كَانَ يَقُومُونَ
 «They were standing.»

Here are some more examples of كَانَ followed by a muḍāriʿ verb:

كَانَ يَعْبُدُ مُشْرِكُو مَكَّةَ الْأَصْنَامَ

or

كَانَ مُشْرِكُو مَكَّةَ يَعْبُدُونَ الْأَصْنَامَ

«The polytheists of Makkah used to worship idols.»

[1420: صحيح البخاري] كَانَتْ تُحِبُّ الصَّدَقَةَ

«She used to love [to practice] charity.»

[64:6 سورة التغابن] كَانَتْ تَأْتِيهِمْ رُسُلُهُمْ بِالْبَيِّنَاتِ

«their messengers used to come to them with clear evidences»

(Sound plurals, even of rational beings, may be treated as grammatically singular feminine. See section @ref(sound-plurals-sing-fem).)

صحيح] كُنْتُ أَلْعَبُ بِالْبَنَاتِ عِنْدَ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَكَانَ لِي صَوَاحِبٌ يَلْعَبْنَ مَعِيَ
[البخاري: 6130]

«I used to play with dolls in the presence of the Prophet, and I had companions_f playing with me.»

Occasionally, the particle قَدْ precedes the combination of كَانَ and the muḍāriʿ verb. Example:

صحيح مسلم] قَالُوا هَذَا قَدْ كَانَ يَكْتُبُ لِمُحَمَّدٍ

«They said, 'This [person] used to transcribe for Muḥammad ﷺ'»

The following muḍāriʿ verb may also be an passive verb. Example:

صحيح البخاري] إِنَّ أَنَسًا كَانُوا يُؤْخَذُونَ بِالْوَحْيِ فِي عَهْدِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ
«Indeed people were (sometimes) judged (literally: held) by the [revealing of] divine inspiration in the lifetime of the Prophet.»

31.20.1. One كَانَ suffices multiple muḍāriʿ verbs

If the signification of an action occurring continually in the past applies to more than one muḍāriʿ verb, then it is sufficient to prefix كَانَ to only the first one.

Example:

صحيح مسلم] كَانَتْ تَعْمَلُ بِيَدِهَا وَتَصَدَّقُ

«She used to work with her hand and spend (that income) on charity.»

(تَصَدَّقُ is abbreviated to تَصَدَّقُ. See section @ref(form-5-verbs-abbrev).)

31.20.2. Negation of كَانَ and a muḍāriʿ verb

In order to negate the combination of كَانَ and the following muḍāriʿ verb, multiple options are available. Using يَفْعَلُ as an example muḍāriʿ verb, we can have:

- مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ
- لَمْ يَكُنْ يَفْعَلُ
- كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ

Examples:

[982: الأدب المفرد] مَا كَانَ أَحَدٌ يَبْدُو، أَوْ يَبْذُرُ، ابْنَ عُمَرَ بِالسَّلَامِ

«No one preceded or got ahead of Ibn ʿUmar with (giving) the greeting.»

[5:79: سورة المائدة] كَانُوا لَا يَتَنَاهَوْنَ عَنْ مُنْكَرٍ فَعَلُوهُ

«They used not to prevent one another from wrongdoing that they did.»

[introduction: صحيح مسلم] لَمْ يَكُونُوا يَسْأَلُونَ عَنِ الْإِسْنَادِ

«They would not ask about the chains of narration»

In terms of the differences between these constructions مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ imparts more emphasis in the denial than كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ.

There is also difference between the options مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ and كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ in terms of when one would be used instead of the other.²⁷ For example, if someone says to you: «I thought I saw you writing yesterday.» To reply in the negative, you would say: كُنْتُ لَا أَكْتُبُ instead of كُنْتُ أَكْتُبُ to mean «I was not writing.»

²⁷ 1/222 معاني النحو

The construction مَا كَانَ يَفْعُلُ is also used when one wishes to say that one never used to do something due to one's circumstances And also to mean that one did not know how to do something in the past. For example,

مَا كُنْتُ أَحْفَظُ شِعْرًا

« I used to not memorize any poetry. »

As for كَانَ لَا يَفْعُلُ, it connotes an intentional or purposeful lack of doing something. Whereas, with مَا كَانَ يَفْعُلُ, the lack of action may be incidental. For example, كَانَ لَا يَقْرَأُ الْقُرْآنَ "He used to not read the Qur'ān imparts that the person was intentionally not doing so. Whereas مَا كَانَ يَقْرَأُ الْقُرْآنَ does not convey the intentionality of the lack of action. For example, the person may not have been reading the Qur'ān because he did not know how to.

31.20.3. The combination كَانَ يَكُونُ

Occasionally, كَانَ can be combined with its own mudārie verb يَكُونُ This gives the meaning « was being » or « used to be ». يَكُونُ is, in this combination, often optional and may be dropped for no change in meaning. Examples:

[676: صحيح البخاري] كَانَ يَكُونُ فِي مِهْنَةٍ أَهْلِهِ

and

[6039: صحيح البخاري] كَانَ فِي مِهْنَةٍ أَهْلِهِ

« He used to keep himself busy serving his family »

[2398: جامع الترمذي] قَدْ كَانَ يَكُونُ فِي الْأُمَمِ مُحَدِّثُونَ

« There used to be in the nations inspired persons »

[Wright 2/21C] رَجَالٌ كَانُوا يَكُونُونَ مَعَ الْمُلُوكِ

« men that used to be with the kings »

[Fischer 107] كَانَ يَكُونُ فِي الْبَيْتِ

« He used to be in the house. »

31.20.4. Possible occurrence

Sometimes كَانَ is used with a mudārie verb to express an action that could, should, or would have occurred. Examples:

[Fischer 108] كَانَ يَكُونُ سُوءَ أَذْبٍ

« It would have been a misbehavior. »

[1788: صحيح مسلم] فَقَالَ حَذِيفَةُ أَنْتَ كُنْتَ تَفْعَلُ ذَلِكَ

« Ḥudhayfah said: 'You might have done that.' »

This meaning can also be for the future, for example in a question:

[2606: سنن ابن ماجه] أَيُّ شَيْءٍ كُنْتَ تَصْنَعُ

« Which thing would you do? »

[2709: سنن النسائي] مَا كُنْتَ صَانِعًا فِي حَجَّكَ (54)

« What would you do for your Hajj? »

31.20.5. Omission of كَانَ

If one or more māḍī verbs precedes the muḍāriʿ verb or if the context indicates that the action was occurring in the past, then كَانَ can be omitted, and the muḍāriʿ verb is used by itself.²⁸ For example:

[2:91 سورة البقرة] قُلْ فَلِمَ تَقْتُلُونَ أَنْبِيَاءَ اللَّهِ مِنْ قَبْلُ
«Say,»Then why did you kill the prophets of Allāh before”
(.تَقْتُلُونَ before كُنْتُمْ.)

[2:102 سورة البقرة] وَاتَّبِعُوا مَا تَتْلُوا الشَّيَاطِينُ عَلَىٰ مُلْكٍ سُلَيْمَنَ
«And they followed [instead] what the devils had recited during the reign of Solomon»
(.تَتْلُوا before كَانَتْ.)

31.20.6. كَانَ followed by a doer participle or doee participle instead of a muḍāriʿ verb

Instead of a muḍāriʿ verb after كَانَ, its doer participle or doee participle may be used instead. And this can give the effect of a state of being rather than an action being done. For example:

[Wright 2/198A] كَانَ سَاكِنًا
«He was dwelling»
[Wright 2/198A] كَانَتْ أَلْعَصِيَّ مَرْكُوزَةً فِي الْأَرْضِ
«The staffs were sticking in the ground.»
(.تَتَلَوَّاهُ would imply that they were being stuck.)

When the verbal noun refers to an action taking place in the future, the idea of futurity is transferred to a past time. For example:

[Wright 2/196A] أَمْرٌ كَانَ مَفْعُولًا
«a matter which was to be done»

31.21. The māḍī verb كَانَ combined with a māḍī verb

كَانَ is combined with a following māḍī verb to denote an action completed prior to some past (specified or implied) point in time. Example:

مَاتَ الرَّشِيدُ بِطُوسَ وَكَانَ خَرَجَ إِلَىٰ خُرَاسَانَ لِمُحَارَبَةِ رَافِعِ بْنِ الْأَلَيْثِ
[Wright 2/5C]
«al-Rashīd died at Ṭūs after (literally: and) he had set out for K̲h̲urāsān to combat Rāfiʿ ibn al-Layth.»

The particle قَدْ is often used when كَانَ is combined with a māḍī verb. قَدْ may be placed either between كَانَ and the following māḍī verb, or before كَانَ. Examples:

[Wright 2/5C] كُنْتُ قَدْ رَبَّيْتُ جَارِيَةً
«I had brought up a girl»

²⁸Wright 2/21C

قَدْ كَانَتْ فَرَعَتْ مِنْ عَمَلِهَا

«She had been done with her work.»

When there are multiple māḍī verbs, and one (or more) of them occurred farther in the past than the others, it is indicated with قَدْ, the others having merely كَانَ. We re-use a previous example here and extend it:

مَاتَ الرَّشِيدُ بِطُوسَ وَكَانَ خَرَجَ إِلَى خُرَّاسَانَ لِمُحَارَبَةِ رَافِعِ بْنِ اللَّيْثِ. وَكَانَ رَافِعٌ هَذَا قَدْ خَرَجَ وَخَلَعَ الطَّاعَةَ وَتَغَلَّبَ عَلَى سَمَرْقَنْدَ.

[Wright 2/6A]

“al-Rashīd died at Ṭūs after he had set out for Khurāsān to combat Rāfiʿ ibn al-Layth. And this Rāfiʿ had already rebelled and cast off his allegiance and taken forcible possession of Samarqand.”

(Note how قَدْ is only used before Rāfiʿ’s action of rebelling.)

31.21.1. Negation

This combination may, again, be negated in multiple ways. Examples:

6609: صحيح البخاري] لَا يَأْتِي ابْنَ آدَمَ النَّذْرُ بِشَيْءٍ لَمْ يَكُنْ قَدْ قَدَّرْتُهُ

«Vowing does not bring to the son of Adam anything I have not already written in his fate,»

1778: سنن أبي داود] وَوَدِدْتُ أَنِّي لَمْ أَكُنْ خَرَجْتُ الْعَامَ

«I wish I had not come out (for Ḥajj) this year»

3/139 إحياء علوم الدين لأبي حامد الغزالي] [A report narrated in without a chain] وَمَا كَانَ قَدْ أَتَاهَا بِشَيْءٍ

«And he had not brought her anything»

31.22. The muḍārie verb يَكُونُ combined with a māḍī verb

The muḍārie verb يَكُونُ is combined with a māḍī verb (often with an interposed قَدْ) to express that the action is conceived of having been completed in the future. Examples:

1793: مشكاة المصابيح] يَكُونُ قَدْ وَجِبَ عَلَيْكَ صَدَقَةٌ

«Charity will have been incumbent upon you»

[Fischer 108] فَلِنَأْخُذْهُ فَتَكُونُ قَدْ أَخَذْنَا عَوْضًا

«Let us take him for (then) we will have taken a substitute»

31.22.0.1. The a-case verb يَكُونُ combined with a māḍī verb

An a-case يَكُونُ is combined with a māḍī verb to express being in a state of an action having occurred or that might have occurred. For example:

[Fischer 110] خَافَ أَنْ يَكُونَ قَدْ أَخْطَأَ

«He feared that he could have erred.»

p. 59] [المهذب فيما وقع في القرآن من المعرب للسيوطي] وَيَجُوزُ أَنْ يَكُونُوا سَبْقُوا

«And that they might have been preceded is possible»

يَسْتَرْطِ فِي النَّائِبِ أَنْ يَكُونَ قَدْ حَجَّ عَنْ نَفْسِهِ
 «It is conditional for the deputy that he be in as state of already having performed the Ḥajj for himself.»

31.23. The verb of command كُنْ combined with a muḍāriʿ verb

Ocassionally, the verb of command كُنْ is combined with a muḍāriʿ verb, thus:

كُنْ أَنْتَ تُكَلِّمُهُمْ [Fischer 121]
 «You be speaking to them!»

31.24. كَانَ with the ل of denial

One special use of كَانَ is what is termed the ل of *denial*. This is a negative كَانَ (either كَانَ or لَمْ يَكُنْ with the appropriate suffixes or prefixes for the subject) followed by ل and then an a-case muḍāriʿ verb. This expresses the meaning of:

- i. to deny being the one to do something, or
- ii. to deny going to do something

Here are some examples:

لَمْ تَكُنْ زَيْنَبُ لِيُضْرَبَ وَلَدُهَا
 «Zaynab was not one to beat her child.»

or

«Zaynab was not going to beat her child.»

لَمْ يَكُنْ اللَّهُ لِيُعَذِّبَهُمْ وَأَنْتَ فِيهِمْ [8:33 سورة الأنفال]
 «But Allāh would not punish them while you, [O Muḥammad], are among them»

فَقَالَ أَتَخْشَيْنَ أَنْ أَقْتُلَهُ مَا كُنْتُ لَأَفْعَلَ ذَلِكَ [31:12 سنن أبي داود]
 «He said: Do you fear that I shall kill him ? I am not going to do that.»

قَالَ لَمْ أَكُنْ لَأَفْعَلَ [1503: سنن ابن ماجه]
 «He said: I was not going to do that.»

فَلَمْ أَكُنْ لَأَفْشِيَنَّ سِرَّ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ [4005: صحيح البخاري]

31.25. كَانَ with the ل of deserving

Closely related, yet distinct from, the use of كَانَ with the ل of denial (above) is the use of كَانَ with a ل that signifies deserving, behooving, appropriateness, or possibility. This is, again, a negative كَانَ followed by the preposition ل and a following i-case noun, and then أَنْ followed by an a-case muḍāriʿ verb. This signifies that the action of the verb does not behoove, or is not appropriate or deserving or possibly for the person denoted by the noun after ل.²⁹ For example:

²⁹ 3:79 سورة آل عمران for تفسير ابن عاشور and البحر المحیط لأبي حيان

[سورة النمل 27:60] فَأَزْبَتْنَا بِهِ حَدَائِقَ ذَاتَ بَهْجَةٍ مَا كَانَ لَكُمْ أَنْ تُزْبِتُوا شَجَرَهَا
 «causing to grow thereby gardens of joyful beauty which you could not [other-
 wise] have grown the trees thereof»

مَا كَانَ لِإِبْرَاهِيمَ أَنْ يُؤْتِيَهُ اللَّهُ الْكِتَابَ وَالْحُكْمَ وَالنُّبُوَّةَ ثُمَّ يَقُولَ لِلنَّاسِ كُونُوا عِبَادًا لِي مِنْ دُونِ اللَّهِ [سورة آل عمران 3:79]

«It is not for a human [prophet] that Allāh should give him the Scripture and authority and prophethood and then he would say to the people, 'Be servants to me rather than Allāh,'»

[سنن] قَالَ أَبُو بَكْرٍ مَا كَانَ لِابْنِ أَبِي قُحَافَةَ أَنْ يُصَلِّيَ بَيْنَ يَدَيْ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ [940: أبي داود]

«Abū Bakr said ; it was not befitting for the son of Abū Quḥāfah to lead the prayer in the presence of the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ»

31.26. FINI

31.27. TODO:

كان زيد أكل طعامك

See 1/280-284 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

[66 الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي] كانت الحمى تأخذ زيدا

as subject or info of kaana. Both permitted but subject more worthy. [basit 714-715A]

p 411 شرح جمل الزجاجي لأبن عصفور

info of kaana is a pronoun

Chapter 32.

إِنَّ and its sisters

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

32.1. Introduction

The archetypal nounal sentence is governed by an abstract foundational government that governs a subject and its info, both in the u-case.

For example:

- (1) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
« Zayd is standing. » .

In example (508) above, an abstract foundational government governs the subject زَيْدٌ and its info قَائِمٌ both in the u-case.

إِنَّ and its sisters are a set of six foundational government particles that take an archetypal nounal sentence as their input and transform it, by governing the subject in the u-case and the info in the u-case. Furthermore, each particle has its own meaning that it imparts to the input sentence.

The set of إِنَّ and its sisters is:

- i. إِيَّا «indeed»
- ii. اِنَّ «that»
- iii. كَأَنَّ «as if»
- iv. لَكِنَّ «but»
- v. لَيْتَ «would that»
- vi. لَعَلَّ «perhaps»

We will discuss them in the following sections.

32.2. *إِنَّ inna*

32.2.1. Basic meaning of *إِنَّ*

إِنَّ has an assertive meaning. It asserts the property which its info expresses about its subject. For example:

- (2) *إِنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ*
« Indeed Zayd is standing. » .

As you can see, the foundational government particle *إِنَّ* has transformed the input example (508) by governing the subject *زَيْد* in the a-case and its info *قَائِمٌ* in the u-case. It has also added the assertive meaning «indeed».

32.2.2. *إِنَّ* with a pronoun subject

When the subject of *إِنَّ* (or any of its sisters) is a pronoun, then the attached pronouns are used. So we will say, for example:

- (3) *إنه قائم وإنها جالسة وإنكما قائمان وإنهم جالسون*

When the subject is a pronoun for the singular speaker-participant *ي*, then a guarding ن- may optionally be inserted. So we can say either *إِنِّي* or *إِنِّي*. Examples:

- (4) *إني/إنني قائم*

And when the subject is a pronoun for the plural speaker-participant *نا*, then the two ن can optionally be combined. So we can say either *إِنَّنَا* or *إِنَّا*. Examples:

- (5) *إنا/إننا قائمون*

The above rules, which allow adding or dropping a ن, are common for all of the sisters of *إِنَّ* that end with ن: So we can say:

- *إِنَّا* or *إِنَّنَا* and *إِنِّي* or *إِنْنِي*.
- *أَنَا* or *أَنَّنَا* and *أَنْي* or *أَنْنِي*.
- *كَأَنَّا* or *كَأَنَّنَا* and *كَأَنِّي* or *كَأَنْنِي*.
- *لَكِنَّا* or *لَكِنَّنَا* and *لَكِنِّي* or *لَكِنْنِي*.

لَبِيتَ and *لَعَلَّ* have modified rules, which will be covered in their respective sections, if Allāh wills.

32.2.3. An *إِنَّ* as part of a larger sentence

An *إِنَّ* sentence can itself, be a part of a larger sentence. For example:

- (6) 1/355 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] *زَيْدٌ إِنَّهُ قَائِمٌ*
« Zayd – indeed he is standing. »
(The sentence *إِنَّهُ قَائِمٌ* is the info of the subject *زَيْدٌ*.)

We will explore this more in section (inna vs anna) below.

32.3. أَنَّ *anna*

32.3.1. Interpretation of the أَنَّ clause as a maṣḍar construction

أَنَّ may be translated as “« that »”. أَنَّ is unique amongst إِنَّ and its sisters that when it transforms an input nounal sentence the output is actually not a structurally complete sentence anymore. Here is its output after transforming example (508):

- (7) أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
« that Zayd is standing »

As you can see above, example (514) does not stand by itself as a complete sentence. Terminologically, زَيْدًا is the subject of أَنَّ and قَائِمٌ is its info. But once أَنَّ has been added to the sentence, then the resulting output actually only constitutes a single element of a sentence (in terms of sentence structure). Let's explain what we mean by making example (514) a part of a larger sentence:

- (8) يُعْجِبُنِي أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
« That Zayd is standing pleases me. »

Now the sentence is structurally complete. In this sentence, the أَنَّ clause (i.e. أَنَّ, its subject, and its info together) constitutes the leaned-against element of the sentence as the doer of the verb يُعْجِبُنِي. The verb يُعْجِبُنِي is the leaning element of the sentence.

The grammarians have theorized that the أَنَّ clause is able to constitute a single sentence element because it is interpreted as a maṣḍar construction. And the maṣḍar is then able to take the place of a single element of the sentence. In example (515) the maṣḍar is interpreted as follows:

- (9) أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ = قَائِمٌ زَيْدٍ « that Zayd is standing » = « Zayd's [being] standing »

If we replace the أَنَّ clause in example (515) with this interpreted maṣḍar construction, we get:

- (10) يُعْجِبُنِي قَائِمٌ زَيْدٍ
« Zayd's [being] standing pleases me. ».

Now we can see how the interpreted maṣḍar construction قَائِمٌ زَيْدٍ constitutes the leaned-against element of the sentence. (Technically, the annexed noun قَائِمٌ is the leaned-against element and زَيْدٍ is its annexed-to noun governee, but loosely speaking they can be considered one unit.)

By the way, the interpretation of the أَنَّ clause as a maṣḍar construction does not mean that the sentence with the maṣḍar construction will have exactly the same meaning as the sentence with أَنَّ. Rather the maṣḍar interpretation only helps us analyze the sentence grammatically. And it will also help us determine when we can use the maṣḍari أَنَّ as opposed to other alternatives.

32.3.2. إِنَّ clauses as different elements of a sentence

Let's get back to example (515) يُعْجِبُنِي أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ «That Zayd is standing pleases me». In this sentence, as we just discussed, أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ, because of its interpretation as the maṣdar construction قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ, constitutes a single element, in terms of sentence structure. In example (515), it constitutes the doer of a verbal sentence, which is an indispensable element. But an إِنَّ clause need not only constitute a doer, or an indispensable element for that matter. An إِنَّ clause may constitute various elements of a sentence. We will discuss them below:

The إِنَّ clause as a doer

We have already seen an example of the إِنَّ clause as the doer in example (515) يُعْجِبُنِي أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ. Here is another example:

- (11) [1/176 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب] بلغني أن زيدًا منطلقًا
«[The news] that Zayd is setting out has reached me.»

If we replace the إِنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

- (12) [1/176 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب] بلغني انطلاق زيد
«Zayd's setting out has reached me.»

The إِنَّ clause as a deputy doer

- (13) [nawh_waadiH 1/264] عُرِفَ أَنَّ السَّارِقَ جَرِيءٌ
«That the thief is bold was known.»

If we replace the إِنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

- (14) [nawh_waadiH 1/264] عُرِفَ جَرَاءَةُ السَّارِقِ
«The thief's boldness was known.»

The إِنَّ clause as a direct doer

The إِنَّ clause can occur in the position of a direct doer. Here is an example:

- (15) عَلِمْتُ أَنَّكَ فَاضِلٌ
«I knew that you are excellent.»

If we replace the إِنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

- (16) عَلِمْتُ فَضْلَكَ
«I knew your excellence.»

The أَنَّ clause in the i-case

The أَنَّ clause can occur after a preposition. For example:

- (17) 1/177 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب [عَجِبْتُ مِنْ أَنَّ بَكْرًا واقفٌ]
«I wondered at that Zayd is stopped standing.»

If we replace the أَنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣḍar we get:

- (18) 1/177 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب [عَجِبْتُ مِنْ وَقُوفِ بَكْرٍ]
«I wondered at Zayd's being stopped standing.»

The أَنَّ clause can even occur as an annexed-to noun. For example:

- (19) قَالَ أَيْنَ تُرِيدُ قَالَ أُرِيدُ أَخًا لِي فِي هَذِهِ الْقَرْيَةِ قَالَ هَلْ لَكَ عَلَيْهِ مِنْ نِعْمَةٍ تَرْجُوهَا قَالَ لَا
غَيْرَ أَنِّي أَحْبَبْتُهُ فِي اللَّهِ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ
[2567a: صحيح مسلم]
[«He said, "Where are you intending [to go]?" He said, "I intend [to go to] a brother of mine in this town." He said, "Do you have upon him a favor that [you are seeking repayment for]?" He said, "No, except that I have loved him [for the sake of] Allāh the Exalted and Glorious."»]

The أَنَّ clause as a info

- (20) 409 الجنى الداني [أَمْرُكَ أَنْكَ ذَاهِبٌ]
«Your state-of-affairs is that you are going.»
(The interpreted maṣḍar ذَهَابُكَ is the info.)

The أَنَّ clause as a subject

The أَنَّ clause as a subject is not as common as the other categories, and has some restrictions. Generally, it won't begin the sentence. Instead, its info will usually precede it.¹ For example:

- (21) 408 الجنى الداني [فِي ظَنِّي أَنْكَ فاضلٌ]
«[It is] in my estimation that you are excellent.»
(فِي ظَنِّي is analyzed as a fronted info and the interpreted maṣḍar construction فَضْلُكَ «your excellence» is the backed subject.)
- (22) 41:39 سورة فصلت [وَمِنْ ءَايَاتِهِ أَنْ تَرَى الْأَرْضَ خَاشِعَةً]
«And of His signs is that you see the earth stilled»
- (23) 2/205 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام [أَحَقُّ أَنْكَ ذَاهِبٌ]
«[Is it] really that you are going?»
(The interpreted maṣḍar ذَهَابُكَ is the subject. حَقًّا is analyzed as an adverb info.³)

¹See 408 الجنى الداني for an exception. See also 1/204 (editor's footnote) for another example.

²See 41:39 سورة فصلت for إعراب القرآن للدعاس.

³See 2/206 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام (editor's footnote).

The إِنَّ clause may even be a subject of كَانَ and كَانَتْ. Examples:

- (22) [408 الجنى الداني] كان في ظني أنك فاضل
« [It] was in my estimation that you are excellent. »

As the subject of إِنَّ, the إِنَّ clause must be separated from إِنَّ:

- (23) [408 الجنى الداني] إن عندي أنك فاضل
« Indeed [it is your rank] with me that you are excellent. »
i.e. « You are excellent in my sight. »

When the إِنَّ clause is a governee of كَانَ then it can, in general, be either the subject or the info. For example:

- (24) [59:17 سورة الحشر] فَكَانَ عَاقِبَتُهُمَا أَنَّهُمَا فِي النَّارِ
« So the outcome for both of them is that they will be in the Fire »
(In some recitations عَاقِبَةُ is in the u-case.⁴)

Compare also to section (masdar an in kaana chapter).

32.3.3. The interpreted maṣḍar when the info of إِنَّ is a prepositional/adverbial phrase

Consider the following sentences, where the info of إِنَّ is a prepositional or adverbial phrase:

- (25) [haazimi 24/10] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ أَنْ زَيْدًا عِنْدَكَ
« I wondered at that Zayd is at [your place]. »
(The info of إِنَّ is an adverbial phrase: عِنْدَكَ « at your place ».)
- (26) [haazimi 37/15] عَلِمْتُ أَنْ زَيْدًا فِي الدَّارِ
« I knew that Zayd is in the house. »
(The info of إِنَّ is a prepositional phrase: فِي الدَّارِ « in the house ».)

In such cases, the interpreted maṣḍar is general beingness, represented by the maṣḍar كَوْن or اسْتِقْرَار, as below:

- (27) [haazimi 24/10] عَجِبْتُ مِنْ اسْتِقْرَارِ زَيْدٍ عِنْدَكَ
« I wondered at Zayd's being at [your place]. »
- (28) [haazimi 37/15] عَلِمْتُ كَوْنَ زَيْدٍ فِي الدَّارِ
« I knew Zayd's being in the house. »

⁴ سورة for معاني القرآن للفراء; 5/149; معاني القرآن وإعرابه للزجاج; 59:17 سورة الحشر for البحر المحیط لأبي حيان; 7:5 الأعراف

32.3.4. The interpreted maṣḍar when the info of أَنَّ is a entity noun

Consider the following sentence, where the info of أَنَّ is a entity noun:

- (28) علمت أن زيداً أسد [haazimi 37/15]
 «I knew that Zayd is a lion.»
 (The info of أَنَّ is a entity noun: أسد «a lion».)

In this case as well, the interpreted maṣḍar can be general beingness:

- (29) علمت كون زيد أسداً [haazimi 37/15]
 «I knew Zayd's being a lion.»

Or the interpreted maṣḍar can be formed from the entity noun, using the suffix *-iyyah* (see section (ref)), as below:

- (30) علمت أسدية زيد [haazimi 37/15]
 «I knew Zayd's lion-like-ness.»

32.3.5. Optionally delete the preposition before أَنَّ

When the أَنَّ clause is in the i-case following a preposition, then it is allowed to (optionally) delete the preposition, for the same meaning, as long as the meaning remains clear. So, instead of saying:

- (31) 2/151 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عجب من أنك قائم
 «I wondered at that you are standing.»

we can say:

- (32) 2/151 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] عجب أنك قائم
 «I wondered that you are standing.»

32.3.6. «لأنَّ» because

The preposition ل when attached before أَنَّ can signify the meaning «because».⁵ For example:

- (33) قَالَ كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ إِذَا أُتِيَ بِطَعَامٍ أَكَلَ مِنْهُ وَبَعَثَ بِفَضْلِهِ إِلَيَّ وَإِنَّهُ بَعَثَ إِلَيَّ يَوْمًا بِفَضْلَةٍ لَمْ يَأْكُلْ مِنْهَا لِأَنَّ فِيهَا ثُومًا فَسَأَلْتُهُ أَحْرَامٌ هُوَ قَالَ لَا وَلَكِنِّي أَكْرَهُهُ
 [2053: صحيح مسلم] مِنْ أَجْلِ رِيحِهِ
 «He said, "The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ would, when he was brought some food, eat from it and send its extra to me. And indeed he sent to me, one day, some extra having not eaten from it **because** in it was some garlic. So I asked him, 'Is it unlawful?' He said, 'No, but I dislike it because of its odor.'"»

⁵Wright 1/293B

32.3.7. لَعَلَّ with the meaning of أَنْ

As a niche use, لَعَلَّ can be used with the meaning of أَنْ (see section (ref) below).
For example:

- (34) 5/178 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان] اثبت السوق أنك تشتري لنا شيئا
«Come to the market [so] that you may buy for us something.»
- (35) 5/178 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان] ما أدري أنه صاحبها
«I don't know, perhaps he is his companion.»

32.4. كَأَنَّ ka'anna

كَأَنَّ signifies «as if». Examples:

- (35) 1/272 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] كَأَنَّ الْعِلْمَ نُورٌ
«[It is] as if knowledge is a light.»
- (36) 1/272 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] كَأَنَّ عَلِيًّا أَسَدٌ
«[It is] as if Ealiyy is a lion.»
- (37) 4192: سنن أبي داود] فَجِئَ بَنَا كَأَنَّا أَفْرَحُ
«So we were brought [and it was] as if we [were] chicks.»
- (38) 74:50 سورة المدثر] كَأَنَّهُمْ حُمُرٌ مُسْتَنَفِرَةٌ
«As if they were alarmed donkeys»
- (39) 65: صحيح البخاري] كَأَنِّي أَنْظُرُ إِلَى بَيَاضِهِ فِي يَدِهِ
«It is as if I am looking at its whiteness in his hand.»

32.5. لَكِنَّ lākinna

لَكِنَّ signifies «but». It forms a complete sentence with its subject and its info.
But it will usually follow a previous sentence and contrast it. Examples:

- (36) الشَّمْسُ مُشْرِقَةٌ لَكِنَّ الْجَوَّ بَارِدٌ
[1/272 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
«The sun is bright but the air is cold.»
- (37) 7:61 سورة الأعراف] قَالَ يَقَوْمِ لَيْسَ بِي ضَلَالَةٌ وَلَكِنِّي رَسُولٌ مِّن رَّبِّ الْعَالَمِينَ
«[Noah] said, "O my people, there is not error in me, but I am a messenger from the Lord of the worlds."»

32.6. لَيْتَ layta

لَيْتَ has a wishful meaning. For example:

- (37) [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] ليت زيدا قائماً (4/568)
«Would that Zayd were standing.»

The vocative يا is frequently used before لَيْتَ. For example:

- (38) [36:26 سورة يس] قَالَ يَلَيْتَ قَوْمِي يَعْلَمُونَ
«He said, "I wish my people could know"»

When the subject is a pronoun for the singular speaker-participant يَ, then a guarding-ن is inserted by default, thus: لَيِّتَنِي. For example:

- (39) [78:40 سورة النبأ] وَيَقُولُ الْكَافِرُ يَلَيْتَنِي كُنْتُ تُرَابًا
«and the disbeliever will say, "Oh, I wish that I were dust!"»

Very rarely, the guarding-ن can be omitted thus: لَيِّتِي.⁶

When the subject is a pronoun for the plural speaker-participant نَا, then the ن of the pronoun is never omitted, and we will say: لَيِّتْنَا. For example:

- (40) [33:66 سورة الأحزاب] يَلَيِّتُنَا أَطَعْنَا اللَّهَ وَأَطَعْنَا الرَّسُولَ
«How we wish we had obeyed Allāh and obeyed the Messenger.»

لَيِّتَ can be combined with أَنْ thus:

- (41) [4/569 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] ليت أن زيدا خارجاً
«Would that Zayd were going out.»
- (42) [Fischer 180] لَيْتَ أَنَّهُ شَاعِرٌ
«Would that he were a poet.»

32.7. لَعَلَّ laṣalla

لَعَلَّ signifies «perhaps». It tends to be used in situations signifying hope for, or apprehension from, an impending event.⁷

Example of hope:

- (42) [1/305 معاني النحو] لعل زيدا يكرماني
«Perhaps (i.e. I hope) Zayd will honor me.»

Example of apprehension:

- (43) [4/570 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] لعل بكرًا يضرب
«Perhaps (i.e. I fear) Bakr will beat.»

⁶ 1/332 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي

⁷ 4/569 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

Opposite to *لَيْتَ*, when the subject is a pronoun for the singular speaker-participant *ي*, then a guarding-*ن* is not inserted by default, thus: *لَعَلِّي*. For example:

- (44) إِذْ رَأَىٰ نَارًا فَقَالَ لِأَهْلِهِ امْكُثُوا إِنِّي آنَسْتُ نَارًا لَّعَلِّي آتِيكُم مِّنْهَا بِقَبَسٍ أَوْ أَجْدٍ عَلَىٰ (44)
[20:10 سورة طه] النَّارِ هُدًى
«When he saw a fire and said to his family, “Stay here; indeed, I have perceived a fire; perhaps I can bring you a torch or find at the fire some guidance.”»

Very rarely, a guarding-*ن* can be added thus: *لَعَلَّلِي*.⁸

But like *لَيْتَ*, the subject is a pronoun for the plural speaker-participant *نَا*, then the *ن* of the pronoun is not never omitted, and we will say: *لَعَلَّلْنَا*. For example:

- (45) [4359: صحيح البخاري] أَخْبِرْ صَاحِبَكَ أَنَّا قَدْ جِئْنَا وَلَعَلَّلْنَا سَنَعُودُ إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ (45)
«Inform your companion that we came and perhaps we will come again, if Allāh wills.»

Here are some more examples showing the semantic range of *لَعَلَّ*:

- (46) [2362: صحيح مسلم] لَعَلَّكُمْ لَوْ لَمْ تَفْعَلُوا كَانَ خَيْرًا (46)
«Perhaps if you did not do [it], it would be better.»
- (47) [4029: سنن ابن ماجه] إِنْكُمْ لَا تَدْرُونَ لَعَلَّكُمْ أَنْ تُبْتَلَوْا (47)
«Indeed you do not know, perhaps you will be tested.»
- (48) قَالَ كُنَّا عِنْدَ عُمَرَ فَقَالَ أَيُّكُمْ سَمِعَ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَذْكُرُ الْفِتَنَ فَقَالَ (48)
[صحيح مسلم] قَوْمٌ نَحْنُ سَمِعْنَاهُ فَقَالَ لَعَلَّكُمْ تَعْنُونَ فِتْنَةَ الرَّجُلِ فِي أَهْلِهِ وَجَارِهِ قَالُوا أَجَلٌ :144a]
«We were with ʿUmar and he said, “Which of you has heard the Messenger of Allāh mention the tribulations?” Some people said, “We did hear him.” So he said, “Perhaps you are meaning the tribulation of a man in regard to his household and his neighbor?”»

لَعَلَّ can also be used for a past event. For example:

- (47) [6824: صحيح البخاري] لَعَلَّكَ قَبَّلْتَ أَوْ غَمَزْتَ أَوْ نَظَرْتَ (47)
«Perhaps you (only) kissed or winked or looked?»
- (48) [180: صحيح البخاري] لَعَلَّنَا أَعْجَلْنَاكَ (48)
«Perhaps we have forced you to hurry?»

لَعَلَّ is often connected in meaning to a previous sentence, signifying in its meaning a connotation of «in order to». In this sense, it approaches the meaning of *لِي*.⁹ For example:

⁸ 1/333 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي

⁹ See (with caution) also 2:21 سورة البقرة for تفسير ابن عاشور and 2:21 سورة البقرة for الكشف للزمخشري

سورة البقرة for تفسير ابن عاشور and 2:21 سورة البقرة for الكشف للزمخشري
يَا أَيُّهَا النَّاسُ اعْبُدُوا رَبَّكُمُ الَّذِي خَلَقَكُمْ وَالَّذِينَ مِنْ قَبْلِكُمْ لَعَلَّكُمْ تَتَّقُونَ
يَا أَيُّهَا الَّذِينَ آمَنُوا كُتِبَ عَلَيْكُمُ الصِّيَامُ كَمَا كُتِبَ عَلَى الَّذِينَ مِنْ قَبْلِكُمْ لَعَلَّكُمْ تَتَّقُونَ 2:183

- (48) فَلَمَّا قُبِضَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فَخَرَجَ مُسْنِلِمَةُ الْكَذَّابِ قُلْتُ لِأَخْرَجَنِّي إِلَى
[4072: صحيح البخاري] مُسْنِلِمَةَ لَعَلِّي أَقْتُلُهُ فَأَكْفَأَنِي بِهِ حَمْرَةً

«When the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ passed away, and then Musaylimah the Liar appeared, I said, “I will surely go out to Musaylimah so that I may kill him and so make amends for [killing] Ḥamzah.»

32.8. A prepositional/adverbial phrase as the info of **إِنَّ** and its sisters

A prepositional/adverbial phrase can occur as the info of **إِنَّ** and its sisters. For example:

- (49) إِنَّ زَيْدًا فِي الدَّارِ
«Indeed Zayd is in the house.»

- (50) عَلِمْتُ أَنَّ زَيْدًا عِنْدَكَ «Indeed Zayd is at [your place].»

In such cases, based on what we have learned in section (ref), the info is actually implicated as general beingness, and the preposition or adverb is its governee. But loosely speaking we may say that the prepositional/adverbial phrase is the info.

32.9. A complete sentence as the info of **إِنَّ** and its sisters

The info of **إِنَّ** and its sisters may be a complete sentence. Examples:

- (50) [272 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ يُعَزِّزُ صَاحِبَهُ
«Indeed the knowledge – it makes esteemed its companion.»
(The info of **إِنَّ** is the verbal sentence «يُعَزِّزُ صَاحِبَهُ» it makes esteemed its companion.)

- (51) [1/272 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] إِنَّ الْعَالِمَ قَدْرُهُ مُرْتَفِعٌ
«Indeed the scholar – his worth is high.»
(The info of **إِنَّ** is the nounal sentence «قَدْرُهُ مُرْتَفِعٌ» his worth is high.)

- (52) [1/272 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] لَعَلَّكَ اجْتَهِدْتَ
«Perhaps you may exert yourself.»
(The info of **لَعَلَّ** is the verbal sentence «اجْتَهِدْتَ» you exert yourself.)

The info of **إِنَّ** (and its sisters) can even be a compound itself itself. Here is an example where the info of **إِنَّ** is a **كَانَ** sentence with its own subject and verbal sentence info:

- (51) وَإِنَّ أَبَا هُرَيْرَةَ كَانَ يَلْزِمُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ بِشَبَعِ بَطْنِهِ وَيَخْضُرُ مَا لَا يَخْضُرُونَ
[118: صحيح البخاري] وَيَحْفَظُ مَا لَا يَحْفَظُونَ
«And indeed Abū Hurayrah used to stick with the Messenger of Allāh with the fill of his stomach and be present for what they [were] not present for, and memorize what they [were] not memorizing.»

32.10. Word order of the subject and the info with إِنَّ and its sisters

32.10.1. Word order for a single element info

The subject of إِنَّ (and its sisters) must always follow it in word order. And its info must always follow the subject. So, for example, we cannot say:

- (52) × [162 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى] إِنَّ قَائِمٌ زَيْدًا

We must say instead:

- (53) إِنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

32.10.2. Word order for a prepositional or adverbial phrase info

When the info is itself (loosely speaking) the prepositional or adverbial phrase, then then it may be placed before the subject. Sometimes, placing the prepositional/adverbial phrase before the subject is optional. For example:

- (54) 1/273 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] إِنَّ فِي الدَّارِ ضُيُوفًا كِرَامًا
«Indeed in the house are noble guests.»
(55) 1/273 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] لَبِثْتُ عِنْدَكَ مُحَمَّدًا
«O that with you was Muḥammad»

In such cases, where the prepositional/adverbial phrase info may be placed either before or after the subject, the signification can be slightly different. For example, if we say:

- (55) إِنَّ مَعَكَ صَاحِبَكَ. [Wright 2/80C]
«Indeed, with you, is **your companion**.»

This puts the logical accent on the subject صَاحِبَكَ “your companion”. If the subject is placed first then this puts the logical accent on the info:

- (56) إِنَّ صَاحِبَكَ مَعَكَ. [Wright 2/80C]
«Indeed your companion is **with you**.»

When the prepositional/adverbial phrase has a pronoun that refers to the subject, then it must obligatorily be placed before the subject. For example:

- (57) ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب [إِنَّ فِي الدَّارِ سَاكِنَهَا
« Indeed in the house is its resident. »

- (58) ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب [إِنَّ عِنْدَ هِنْدٍ بَعْلَهَا
« Indeed with Hind is her husband. »

32.10.3. Word order when the info has a governee

If the info has a governee, then the normal word order is for it to follow its governor. For example:

- (58) 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] إِنَّ زَيْدًا آكَل طَعَامَكَ
« Indeed Zayd is eating your food. »

Optionally, the governee of the info can be made to precede it. For example:

- (59) 2/317 [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] إِنَّ زَيْدًا طَعَامَكَ آكَل
« Indeed Zayd is eating your food. »

But the governee of the info should not, in general, precede the subject. So we cannot say:

- (60) 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] إِنَّ طَعَامَكَ زَيْدًا آكَل ×

However, when the governee of the info is a preposition or adverb, then there is some disagreement amongst the grammarians, with regard to whether the governee of the info can precede the subject.¹⁰ Some grammarians allowed sentences like:

- (61) 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] إِنَّ عِنْدَكَ زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ
« Indeed with you Zayd is sitting. »

- (62) 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] إِنَّ بَكَ زَيْدًا وَاثِقٌ
« Indeed in you Zayd is trusting. »

- (63) 11:8 [سورة هود for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان] إِنَّ الْيَوْمَ زَيْدًا مُسَافِرٌ
« Indeed today Zayd is a journeying-one. »

- (64) 3/65 [تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] علمت أن اليوم زيدا سائر
« I knew that today Zayd is a travelling-one. »

Others disallowed such sentences and mandated that the governee of the info not precede the subject even in the case of preposition or adverb governee.¹¹ So they allow:

- (62) 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ عِنْدَكَ
« Indeed Zayd is sitting with you. »

- (63) 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] زَيْدًا وَاثِقٌ بَكَ
« Indeed Zayd is trusting in you. »

¹⁰ 2/464 [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] 3/1244 ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب

¹¹ 1/349 [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

It is also allowed to make the governee of the info precede it (but not the subject) (as in example (584) above). For example:

(63) إِنَّ زَيْدًا عِنْدَكَ جَالِسٌ

(64) إِنَّ زيدا بك واثق

32.11. A state-of-affairs pronoun as the subject of إِنَّ and its sisters

A state-of-affairs pronoun can occur as the subject of إِنَّ and its sisters. In this case, as usual, the info will be a complete sentence.

As with كَانَ, when the subject is a state-of-affairs pronoun, then the info can be a nominal sentence or a verbal sentence.

For example:

(64) إِنَّهَا تَكُونُ الظُّلْمَةُ وَالسَّيْلُ [صحيح البخاري: 667]

«The state-of-affairs is: [there] is [at times] darkness and flooding»

(65) وَقَالَ إِنَّهُ قَدْ اجْتَمَعَ لَكُمْ فِي يَوْمِكُمْ هَذَا عِيدَانِ

<https://sunnah.com/urn/504350>

The state-of-affairs pronoun may be optionally deleted. For example:

(65) فِي فِتْنَةٍ كَسُيُوفِ الْهِنْدِ قَدْ عَلِمُوا ... أَنَّ هَالِكَ كُلِّ مَنْ يَحْفَى وَيُنْتَعِلُ [sibawayhi 3/74]

(.أَنَّ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun thus: أَنَّهُ.)

32.12. إِنَّ with a ل of beginning

The ل of beginning is a particle which generally occurs in the beginning of a sentence signifies an assertive meaning. For example, if we start with:

(66) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ

«Zayd is standing.»

then we can make the sentence more assertive by using ل of beginning in its beginning:

(67) لَزَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ

«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

The ل of beginning, in sentences without إِنَّ (as above), is placed in the beginning of the sentence and is attached only to the subject. If the info were fronted, we wouldn't say:

(68) لَقَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ × [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي: 2/353]

32.12.1. The ج of beginning placed before the info of إِنَّ

This ج of beginning is frequently found used with إِنَّ. But instead of occurring before إِنَّ thus:

(69) × لَإِنَّ

it is placed between the subject of إِنَّ and its info, thus:

(70) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] إِنَّ زَيْدًا لَقَائِمٌ (70)
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

When إِنَّ is used together with ج of beginning as in the example above, then the sentence signifies extra assertion, compared to if had only إِنَّ or only the ج of beginning.

In a similar manner to example () above, we can say:

(71) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] إِنَّ زَيْدًا لَفِي الدَّارِ (71)
«Indeed Zayd is in the house.»

The ج of beginning has certain restrictions placed on its usage, when used with إِنَّ:

Firstly, it can only be used with إِنَّ and not with any of its sisters.

Secondly, the إِنَّ sentence should be an affirmative sentence, not a negative sentence. So we cannot say:

(72) × إِنَّ عَلِيًّا لَّمَّا حَاضَرَ (72) [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] 1/288

Instead, we should say (without the ج of beginning):

(73) [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] إِنَّ عَلِيًّا مَا حَاضَرَ (73)
«Indeed ʿAlīyy was not present.»

Additionally, when the info of إِنَّ is a verbal sentence with a māḍī verb, then the ج of beginning is not attached to the māḍī verb. But if قَدْ is used before the māḍī verb, then the ج of beginning may be attached before it. So we cannot say:

(74) × إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ لَرَفَعَ قَدْرَ صَاحِبِهِ (74) [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] 1/288

But we can say:

(75) [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ لَقَدْ رَفَعَ قَدْرَ صَاحِبِهِ (75)
«Indeed the knowledge – it has raised the worth of its companion.»

Or we can say without both the ج of beginning and قَدْ

(76) [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ رَفَعَ قَدْرَ صَاحِبِهِ (76)
«Indeed the knowledge – it raised the worth of its companion.»

This restriction is not placed on a ;xabar which is a verbal sentence with a muḍārie verb. So we can say:

- (77) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا ليُخرج اليوم*
 «Indeed Zayd – he will go out today.»

When the mudārie verb has *سَوْفَ*, then grammarians have disagreed with regards to allowing *ل* of beginning to attach to it. ^٥
 [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] 2/354]

- (78) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا لسوف يقوم*
 «Indeed Zayd – he will soon stand.»

Also, rigid māḍī verbs are exempted from being restricted and may be used with *ل* of beginning directly. For example:

- (79) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا لنعم الرجل*
 «Indeed Zayd – how excellent the man.»

- (80) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ عمرًا لبئس الغلام*
 «Indeed Zayd – how wretched the boy.»

However, *لَبِئْسَ* is a rigid verb, but *ل* of beginning does not attach to it because of the undesirableness of two *ل*s coming together. So we won't say:

- (80) × [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا لليس بقائم*
 «Indeed Zayd – he is not standing.»

When a governee of the info is placed before it in word order (but still after the subject), such that it comes between the subject and the info, then *ل* of beginning will attach to the fronted governee, thus:

- (81) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا لفي الدار قائم*
 «Indeed Zayd, in the house is standing.»

- (82) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا لطعامك آكل*
 «Indeed Zayd, your food he is eating.»

But if the governee of the info is placed after the info then the info will have *ل* of beginning, not its governee. So we won't say:

- (83) × [الأصول في النحو لابن السراج] *إنَّ زيدًا آكل لطعامك*

Instead, we will say:

- (84) [الأصول في النحو لابن السراج] *إنَّ زيدًا لآكل طعامك*
 «Indeed Zayd is eating your food.»

Also, if the subject has a attribute which occurs between it and the info, then again *ل* of beginning is placed with the info. For example:

- (85) [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] *إنَّ زيدًا الفاضل لقائم*
 «Indeed the excellent Zayd is standing»

32.12.2. The ِ of beginning placed before the subject of اِنَّ

So far, we have seen the ِ of beginning attached before the info of اِنَّ. But, if the info occurs before the subject in word order, then ِ of beginning is actually attached before the subject. In this way, ِ of beginning again occurs between the subject and the info. For example:

- (86) [1/373 شرح ابن عقيل على ألفية] إن في الدار لزيدا
« Indeed in the house is Zayd. »

If the info occurs after the subject in word order, but a governee of the info occurs before the subject, then we have two options: ِ of beginning may optionally be attached before the subject or before the info. For example:

- (87) إن فيها زيدًا لقائم
إن فيها لزيدًا قائم
[2/357 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي]
« Indeed in it Zayd is standing. »

32.12.3. The ِ of beginning with a separating-pronoun

If a separating-pronoun occurs between the subject and the info of اِنَّ, and a ِ of beginning is to be used, then the ِ of beginning will be attached before the separating-pronoun. For example, if we start with:

- (88) [2/357 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] إن زيدًا هو القائم
« Indeed Zayd is the standing one. »

and we add ِ of beginning, we get:

- (89) [2/357 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] إن زيدًا لهو القائم
« Indeed Zayd is the standing one. »

32.13. When to use اِنَّ vs اِنَّ

32.13.1. The basic principle

The basic principle in choosing whether to use اِنَّ vs اِنَّ is:

- اِنَّ is used to begin a complete sentence. As a complete sentence, it can then be a part of an larger sentence.
- اِنَّ is used to begin a clause which is part of a larger sentence. The larger sentence, in order for its meaning to work, requires a maṣḍari interpretation of the اِنَّ clause.

In theory, this is a pretty clear demarcation. But in practice it can be a little tricky to tell when to use اِنَّ vs اِنَّ. Let's work through some examples:

(90) نُطْقِي اللَّهَ حَسْبِي

[Wright 2/256D, شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, 1/204, previously cited in section (ref)]

«My utterance is “Allāh is sufficient for me.”»

In the example above, the sentence info *اللَّهُ حَسْبِي* «Allāh is sufficient for me», is simply being reported as speech. It's not an interpreted *maṣḍar* of the info which is expressing a property about the subject *نُطْقِي*. Rather, the info, as a complete sentence, is the complement of the subject. So it can begin with *إِنَّ* but not *أَنَّ*, thus: *نُطْقِي إِنَّ اللَّهَ حَسْبِي*.

Here are a couple more examples:

(91) خَيْرُ الْقَوْلِ إِنِّي أَحْمَدُ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, 1/355]

«The best of speech is: Indeed I praise.»

(92) أَوْضَحُ الْمَسَالِكِ لَابِنِ هِشَامٍ قَوْلِي إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [1/325]

«My saying is: Indeed he is excellent.»

But if the info expresses a property about the subject, not as a complete sentence, but as an interpreted *maṣḍar*, then *أَنَّ* is used. For example:

(92) أَوْضَحُ الْمَسَالِكِ لَابِنِ هِشَامٍ اِعْتِقَادِي أَنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [1/325]

«My belief is that he is excellent.»

(i.e. اِعْتِقَادِي أَنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ «My belief is his being excellent.»)

In the example above, it is not exactly the sentence *هُوَ فَاضِلٌ* “he is excellent” which is my belief. Rather my belief is his *being* excellent.

Here are some more examples of a complete sentence with *إِنَّ* in a larger sentence. In all the examples, the *إِنَّ* sentence is part of the larger sentence, as is. It does not need to be interpreted as a *maṣḍar* construction.

(93) زَيْدٌ إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام, 1/324]

«Zayd – indeed he is excellent.»

(94) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام, 1/323]

«I passed by a indeed-he-is-excellent man.»

(The sentence *إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ* is the attribute of *رَجُلٍ*.)

(95) أَحْتَرِمُ الَّذِي إِنَّهُ مُخْلِصٌ فِي عَمَلِهِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان, 1/275]

«I respect the one who – indeed he is sincere in his work.»

(The *إِنَّهُ مُخْلِصٌ فِي عَمَلِهِ* sentence is the connecting sentence of the connected noun *الَّذِي*. See chapter (ref).)

(96) جِئْتُ وَإِنَّ الشَّمْسَ تَغْرُبُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان, 1/276]

«I came while the sun was setting.»

(The *جِئْتُ وَإِنَّ الشَّمْسَ تَغْرُبُ* is a *ḥāl*. See chapter (ref).)

Now let's again consider some tricky areas:

32.13.2. When إِنَّ or اِنَّ occur as a annexed-to noun

Consider the following sentence:

- (94) 1/355] شرح ابن عقيل على ألفية] اجْلِسْ حَيْثُ إِنَّ زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ

«Sit where – indeed Zayd is sitting.»

In the above example حَيْثُ is an adverb of place (see chapter (ref)) which is a annexed noun to the sentence-annexed-to noun جَالِسٌ. The إِنَّ sentence does not require the maṣdari interpretation جُلُوسٌ for the meaning to work.

Now consider this sentence:

- (95) قَالَ كَعْبُ بْنُ مَالِكٍ لَمْ أَتَخَلَّفْ عَنْ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فِي غَزْوَةٍ غَزَاهَا قَطُّ [2769a: صحيح مسلم] إِلَّا فِي غَزْوَةِ تَبُوكَ غَيْرَ أَنِّي قَدْ تَخَلَّفْتُ فِي غَزْوَةِ بَدْرٍ ...

«Ka'ab ibn Mālik said, "I didn't remain behind the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ in any expedition that he went on, ever, except in the expedition of Tabūk, other than that I remained behind in the expedition of Badr ...»

In this example, the اِنَّ clause قَدْ تَخَلَّفْتُ أَنِّي is annexed-to noun of غَيْرَ. اِنَّ is used instead of اِنَّ because, in order for the meaning to work, the maṣdar of تَخَلَّفٌ is interpreted, thus: «غَيْرَ تَخَلُّفِي» other than my remaining behind».

32.13.3. In reported speech

When a sentence is reported as (direct or indirect) speech, then اِنَّ is used instead of اِنَّ in the beginning of the reported speech. (By the way, direct speech can also begin without اِنَّ.) Here are examples with اِنَّ:

- (96) 1/650] النحو الوافي] نُعَيِّرُنَا أَتَا قَلِيلٌ عَدِيدُنَا فَقُلْتُ لَهَا إِنَّ الْكَرَامَ قَلِيلٌ

«She reproaches us that we – our number is few. So I said to her, "Indeed the noble are few."»

- (97) 1283: صحيح البخاري] فَقِيلَ لَهَا إِنَّهُ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ

«Then it was said to her Indeed he is the Prophet ﷺ»

In the following example, the pronoun in اِنَّهَا indicates indirect speech, yet still اِنَّ is used instead of اِنَّ:

- (97) 1695a: صحيح مسلم] قَالَتْ اِنَّهَا حُبْلَى مِنَ الزَّنا

«She said that she had become pregnant as a result of fornication.»

The reason for using اِنَّ instead of اِنَّ is, again, that that the reported speech is not interpreted as a maṣdar in order to connect it to the verb قَالَ before it. Rather, the entire reported speech is, as is, the direct doer of the verb قَالَ.

With other verbs that may indicate reported speech, اِنَّ is typically used. For example:

- (98) صَلَّى بِنَا سَعِيدُ بْنُ جُبَيْرٍ بِجَمْعِ الْمَغْرِبِ ثَلَاثًا بِإِقَامَةٍ ثُمَّ سَلَّمَ ثُمَّ صَلَّى الْعِشَاءَ رَجْعَتَيْنِ ثُمَّ ذَكَرَ أَنَّ عَبْدَ اللَّهِ بْنَ عُمَرَ فَعَلَ ذَلِكَ وَذَكَرَ أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فَعَلَ ذَلِكَ [483: سنن النسائي]

«Sa'eed bin Jubair led us in prayer in Jam'. (He prayed) Maghrib, three Rak'ahs with an Iqamah, then he prayed 'Isha', two Rak'ahs. Then he mentioned that 'Abdullah bin 'Umar had done that, and he mentioned that the Messenger of Allah ﷺ had done that.»

The reason is that now, the *maṣdari* meaning of the speech is interpreted as the direct doer of ذَكَرَ. That is, «he mentioned [#3abd] Allāh's doing that».

Occasionally, we will find أَنَّ used with قَالَ. And that is when قَالَ is not simply reporting speech, but signifying the speaker's belief, estimation, or claim of the *maṣdari* content of the following speech.¹² For example:

- (99) 1/650 [النحو الوافي] أتقول المراضد أن الجو بارد في الأسبوع المقبل
«Does the forecaster say that the weather is cold in the upcoming week?»
(i.e. «Does the forecaster estimate the weather to be cold ... »)

32.13.4. After verbs of perception

After, verbs of perception (see chapter (ref)), if a sentence suspends its government (see section (ref)), then either إِنَّ or أَنَّ may be used. For example:

- (100) علمت أن الرياء بلاء
علمت أن الرياء بلاء
[1/651 النحو الوافي]
«I knew that showing off is a trial.»

If ل of beginning is used, then, of course; it would only be used with إِنَّ not أَنَّ. For example:

- (101) [1/651 النحو الوافي] علمت أن الإسراف لطريق الفقر
«I knew indeed extravagance is the path to poverty.»

32.13.5. After إِذَا or suddenness

After إِذَا or suddenness (see chapter (ref)), either إِنَّ or أَنَّ may be used¹³:

- (102) خرجت فإذا أن زيدا قائم
خرجت فإذا أن زيدا قائم
[1/356 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«I came out [and] suddenly Zayd was standing.»

32.13.6. After an oath

278 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان
1/650 النحو الوافي

¹² 4/319 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 1/650; see also

¹³ 1/356. Also see editor's footnote. 1/277; النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

32.13.7. After **ف** in a condition-response

When the condition-response begins with a **فَ**, either **إِنَّ** or **أَنَّ** (or neither) may be used.¹⁴ For example:

- (103) [1/279 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] **إِنْ تَجْتَهِدْ فَإِنَّكَ / فَأَنْتَ نَاجِحٌ**
 «If you exert yourself then you will be successful.»

32.14. A conjunction following **إِنَّ** and its sisters

When a conjunction is used with the subject of **إِنَّ**, and the post-conjunction is placed after the info of **إِنَّ** then it can optionally either be put in the a-case or the u-case. For example:

- (104) [1/375 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **إِنْ زيدا قائم وعمرا**

- (105) [1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **إِنْ زيدا قائم وعمرو**

If the post-conjunction is put in the u-case (**وَعَمْرُو**), then it can be thought of as the subject of a new sentence, i.e.:

- (105) [1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **إِنْ زيدا قائم وَعَمْرٌ كَذَلِكَ**
 «Indeed Zayd is standing and ʿamr [is like that as well].»

When post-conjunction is put before the info of **إِنَّ**, then according to the dominant view, the post-conjunction must be in the a-case. So we will say:

- (106) [1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **إِنْ زيدا وعمرا قائمان**

- (107) [1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **إِنَّكَ وزيدا ذاهبان**

Some grammarians permitted the post-conjunction to be in the u-case in this case as well.¹⁵

The rules for **أَنَّ** and **لَكِنَّ** are the same as the rules for **إِنَّ**. So we will say, for example:

- (107) [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **علمت أن زيدا قائم وعمرو/وعمرا**

- (108) [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **علمت أن زيدا وعمرا قائمان**

- (109) [1/377 modified from شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **لكن عمرا منطلق وخالدا/خالد**

- (110) [1/377 modified from شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **لكن عمرا وخالدا منطلقان**

As for **كَأَنَّ**, **لَيْتَ**, and **لَعَلَّ**, only the a-case is permitted for the post-conjunction, whether or not it is after the info or before. So we will say, for example:

- (108) [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **ليت زيدا وعمرا قائمان**

- (109) [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] **ليت زيدا قائم وعمرا**

As mentioned, **كَأَنَّ** and **لَعَلَّ** are treated similarly to the above two examples.

¹⁴ 1/279 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

¹⁵ 1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

32.15. The lightened إِنَّ

296 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

The particles إِنَّ, أَفَّ, كَأَنَّ, and لَكِنَّ, because of the *shaddah* on the ن, can be termed *heavy*. They have *lightened-from-the-heavy* versions: اِنْ, اَنَّ, اَكَنَّ, and اَلَكَنَّ. The lightened particles have somewhat different rules from their original heavy counterparts. In this section we will treat the lightened اِنْ. We will treat the rest of the lightened particles in subsequent sections, if Allāh wills.

32.15.1. Government of the lightened اِنْ

The lightened اِنْ is less assertive in meaning than the heavy اِنَّ.¹⁶ In using it there are two optional possibilities:

The first, and more common, option is that the lightened leaves the case of its subject in the u-case, just like a basic nounal sentence. But now, a ل is almost always required. For example:

- (109) اِنْ سَعِيدٌ لَمْجْتَهْدُ [أحكام ومعان] 1/296-297
«Indeed Sa'īd is an exorter [of himself].»

Note that the subject سَعِيدٌ is in the u-case, and that a ل is used with the info: لَمْجْتَهْدُ. This ل is now called the *differentiator* ل, because it differentiates the lightened اِنْ from another type of اِنْ called the *negating-اِنْ* (see chapter (ref)). Occasionally, when the meaning is clear without it, the differentiator ل may be omitted.¹⁷ For example:

- (110) اِنْ الْعَاقِلُ يَتَّبِعُ سَبِيلَ الرَّشَادِ [أحكام ومعان] 1/297
«Indeed the sensible one follows the path of right conduct.»

The second, and less commonly used, option is for the lightened اِنْ to govern its subject in the a-case, just like the heavy اِنَّ. Now the ل (called ل of beginning again) is optional, as it was with اِنَّ. Examples:

- (111) اِنْ سَعِيدًا مُجْتَهْدُ [أحكام ومعان] 1/297
«Indeed Sa'īd is an exorter [of himself].»
- (112) اِنْ كُلًّا لَّمَّا لَيُؤْفِقْنَهُمْ رَبُّكَ اَعْمَلَهُمْ [1/297 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] سورة هود 11:111 cited by
«And indeed, each [of the believers and disbelievers] - your Lord will fully compensate them for their deeds.»

32.15.2. A verbal sentence after the lightened اِنْ

Unlike the heavy اِنَّ, the lightened اِنْ can be followed directly by a verb. But the verb that follows it is usually constrained to be a canceling verb. Examples:

¹⁶ 1/299 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

¹⁷ 1/297 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

- (112) النحو العربي: أحكام 2:143 سورة البقرة [وَأِنْ كَانَتْ لَكَبِيرَةً إِلَّا عَلَى الَّذِينَ هَدَى اللَّهُ ۚ] (1/297 ومعان)
« And indeed, it is difficult except for those whom Allāh has guided. »
- (113) النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297 سورة الصافات 37:56 [قَالَ تَأَلَّهَ إِنْ كِدَتْ لِتُزَيِّنَ] (1/297 ومعان)
« He will say, "By Allāh, you almost ruined me. »
- (114) النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297 سورة الشعراء 26:186 [وَأِنْ نَّظُنُّكَ لَمِنَ الْكَاذِبِينَ] (1/297 ومعان)
« and indeed, we think you are among the liars. »
- (115) النحو العربي: أحكام 68:51 سورة القلم [وَأِنْ يَكَادُ الَّذِينَ كَفَرُوا لَيُزْلِقُونَكَ بِأَبْصَرِهِمْ] (1/298 ومعان)
« And indeed, those who disbelieve would almost make you slip with their eyes [i.e., looks] »
- (116) صحيح البخاري [6627] وَإِنْ كَانَ لَخَلِيفًا لِلْإِمَارَةِ، وَإِنْ كَانَ لَمِنْ أَحَبِّ النَّاسِ إِلَيَّ
« By Allāh, he was fit for [assuming] the command, and he was from the most beloved of people to me. »

Rarely, a non-canceling verb is found to occur after the lightened *إِنْ*. For example:

- (113) شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية، 1/298 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [إِنْ قَتَلْتَ لَمُسْلِمًا] (1/382)
« Indeed you killed a Muslim »

The analysis of this sentence is that the subject of the lightened *إِنْ* is implicated to be a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun. And the verb which follows with its governees is a sentence which is the info of the lightened *إِنْ*.¹⁸

32.16. The lightened أن

32.16.1. Government of the lightened أن

The lightened *أَنْ* retains the government of the the heavy *إِنْ*.¹⁹ But its subject is (almost) always a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun. And its info is then a complete sentence. For example:

- (114) شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [علمت أن زيد قائم] (1/383)
« I knew that [the state-of-affairs is:] Zayd is standing. »

Note, in the above example, that *زَيْدٌ* is in the u-case because it is the subject of an independent sentence *زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ*. The subject of *أَنْ* is a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun, implicated thus: *أَنَّهُ*.

¹⁸ 26/6 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين

¹⁹ 1/300 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

Occasionally, the subject the lightened اِنَّ is not deleted, in which case it won't be a state-of-affairs pronoun.²⁰ In this case the info may either be a single noun or a complete sentence.²¹

- (115) 4/552 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [أظنُّ أنك قائمٌ
«I estimate that you are standing.»

- (116) 4/552 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [أحسبُّ أنه ذاهبٌ
«I deem that he is going.»

But most of the time, the subject of the lightened اِنَّ will be a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun, and its info will be a sentence. The sentence which is the info of this lightened اِنَّ can begin either with a noun or with a verb.

When it begins with a noun, then it does not need any separation between it and the اِنَّ. For example:

- (116) النحو العربي: أحكام cited by سورة يونس 10:10 [وَأَخِرُ دَعْوُهُمْ أَنِ الْحَمْدُ لِلَّهِ رَبِّ الْعَالَمِينَ
301 ومعان
«And the last of their call will be, "Praise to Allāh, Lord of the worlds!"»

Similarly, if the sentence info begins with a fixed verb, then again no separation is needed between it and the اِنَّ. For example:

- (117) سورة النجم 53:39 [وَأَن لَّيْسَ لِلْإِنْسَانِ إِلَّا مَا سَعَى
«And that there is not for man except that [good] for which he strives»
- (118) 301 النحو العربي: أحكام cited by سورة الأعراف 7:185 [أَوَلَمْ يَنْظُرُوا فِي مَلَكُوتِ السَّمَوَاتِ وَالْأَرْضِ وَمَا خَلَقَ اللَّهُ مِنْ شَيْءٍ وَأَن عَسَى أَن يَكُونَ قَدِ اقْتَرَبَ أَجَلُهُمْ
«Do they not look into the realm of the heavens and the earth and everything that Allāh has created and [think] that perhaps their appointed time has come near?»

But if the verb is flexible, then it is preferred that it be separated from the lightened اِنَّ by one of the following:

- فَذ. For example:

- (118) 301 النحو العربي: أحكام cited by سورة المائدة 5:113 [قَالُوا نُرِيدُ أَنْ نَأْكُلَ مِنْهَا وَنَطْمِئِنَّ قُلُوبُنَا وَنَعْلَمَ أَنَّ قَدْ صَدَقْتَنَا وَنَكُونَ عَلَيْهَا مِنَ الشَّاهِدِينَ
«They said, "We wish to eat from it and let our hearts be reassured and know that you have been truthful to us and be among its witnesses."»

- The particles سَوْفَ or سَ . For example:

²⁰ 1/384 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/300 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

²¹ 1/385 editors footnote شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [سورة المزمل 73:20 cited by 1/301] عِلِمَ أَنْ سَيَكُونُ مِنْكُمْ مَرْضًى (119)

- One of the particle of negation لَا, لَنْ, or لَمْ

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [سورة طه 20:89 cited by 1/302] أَفَلَا يَرَوْنَ إِلَّا يَرْجِعُ إِلَيْهِمْ قَوْلًا (120)

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [سورة البلد 90:7 cited by 1/302] أَيْحَسِبُ أَنْ لَمْ يَرَهُ أَحَدٌ (121)

النحو العربي: أحكام [سورة المزمل 73:3 cited by 1/302] أَيْحَسِبُ الْإِنْسَنُ أَنْ نَجْمَعَ عِظَامَهُ (122)

In (non-Qur'anic) SCA, أَنْ is not joined in writing to the following particle. So we will write لَا أَنْ²², أَنْ لَنْ, and أَنْ لَمْ. But in pronunciation, the ن is assimilated with the ل, as usual, so we will say 'allā, 'allan, and 'allam, respectively. For example:

(121) [النحو الوافي 4/298] تَيَقَّنْتُ أَنْ لَا أَسَافِرُ
«I was sure that I will not journey.»

- The conditional particle لَوْ For example:

النحو [سورة الجن 72:16 cited by 1/302] وَاللَّوِ اسْتَقْلَمُوا عَلَى الطَّرِيقَةِ لَأَسْقَيْنَهُمْ مَاءً غَدَقًا (122)

32.16.2. When to use the lightened أَنْ vs the a-case-izing أَنْ

When أَنْ is to be followed by a muḍāriʿ verb (whether or not separated by a particle like لَا), then the question is should we use the lightened أَنْ or the a-case-izing أَنْ?

If we choose the lightened أَنْ, then the muḍāriʿ verb is put in the u-case. For example:

(123) [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/553] عَلِمْتُ أَنْ لَا يَخْرُجَ زَيْدٌ
«I knew that Zayd will not go out.»

And if we choose the a-case-izing أَنْ, then the muḍāriʿ verb is put in the u-case. For example:

(124) [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]²³ اِسْتَهْبَيْتُ أَنْ لَا يَخْرُجَ زَيْدٌ
«I desired that Zayd not go out.»

²² النحو الوافي 4/298

²³ The term مخففة is used by the authour here to mean الخفيفة الناصبة للمضارع as can be seen from أفعال العلم واليقين والمعرفة وما جرى مجراها من أفعال التحقيق تختص به " أَنْ " المشددة أفعال الناصبة للأسماء دون " أَنْ " المخففة الناصبة للأفعال

The general principle is that the lightened اِنَّ is used when the verb before it signifies certainty, like عَلِمَ «to know». This is because it is the lightened from the heavy اَنَّ, which is used assertively.

As for the a-case-izing اَنْ, it is used when the verb before it signifies a wanting for something to happen, or a fearing that something not happen. Here are some examples that can illustrate this:

- (125) عَلِمْتُ اَنْ سَيُخْرَجُ زَيْدٌ [modified from شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I knew that Zayd will go out.»

- (126) اَرْجُو اَنْ تُحْسِنَ اِلَيَّ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I hope that you will do good to me.»

- (127) اَخَافُ اَنْ تُسِيءَ اِلَيَّ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I fear that you will do evil to me.»

There are a class of verbs that vary in the amount of certainty or wanting that they signify. Such verbs include: ظَنَّ «to conjecture», حَسِبَ «to deem», خَالَ «to imagine», رَأَى «to opine», etc. In this context, they can be translated in idiomatic English as «to think». Furthermore, the māḍī verb can be used where in English we would use the present tense (in accordance with what we learned in section (māḍī used for moment of utterance)).

With such verbs, both the lightened اَنْ (and therefore also the heavy اَنَّ), and the a-case-izing اَنْ can be used. In theory, the lightened اَنْ (and the heavy اَنَّ) is used when the speaker *believes* the following statement to be true.²⁴

For example:

- (126) ظَنَنْتُ اَنْكَ تَخْرُجُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I [believe] that you are going out.»
or «I [believe] that you will go out.»

- (127) ظَنَنْتُ اَنْ سَتَخْرُجُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I [believe] that you will go out.»

- (128) حَسِبْتُ اَنْ زَيْدًا مُنْطَلِقَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]
«I [believe] that Zayd is setting out.»

- (129) ظَنَنْتُ اَنْكَ اَخُونَا [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]
«I [believe] that you are our brother.»

- (130) قَدْ حَسِبْتُ اَنْ لَا تَقُولَ ذَلِكَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]
«I [believe] that you will not say that.»

- (131) اَرَى اَنْ سَيَفْعَلُ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/407]
«I [believe] that he will do [it].»

²⁴ 3/406 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي

Conversely, the a-case-izing أَنْ is used when the speaker *feels* the following statement, without any strong evidence or indicator which is guiding his feeling.²⁵

(127) [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] ظننت أن تَخْرُجَ

«I [feel] that you will go out.»

(128) [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ لَا تَفْعَلَ

«I [feel] that you will not do [it]»

Despite this theoretical difference between the two uses, practically, the a-case-izing أَنْ is used more commonly in such situations because it is the default.²⁶

When أَنْ is followed directly by a māḍī verb (without an intervening قَدْ), then it seems that the أَنْ is a-case-izing (despite their being no effect of the a-case-izing أَنْ on the māḍī verb). This is because the lightened أَنْ would have required قَدْ.²⁷ For example:

(128) [5/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] كرهْتُ أن قَمَتَ

«I disliked that you stood.»

We list the following examples to illustrate the range of أَنْ.

(129) [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] تَظُنُّ أَنْ يُفْعَلَ بِهَا فَاقْرَأْ [75:25 سورة القيامة cited by]

(130) [2:230 سورة البقرة cited by] فَلَا جُنَاحَ عَلَيْهِمَا أَنْ يَتَرَاجَعَا إِنْ ظَنَّا أَنْ يُقِيمَا حُدُودَ اللَّهِ [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]

(131) [3/407 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] وَحَسِبُوا أَلَّا تَكُونَ فِتْنَةً [5:71 سورة المائدة cited by]

«And they thought there would be no [resulting] punishment»

(Some recitations have the verb following أَنْ in the u-case.²⁸)

(132) [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] أَيْحَسَبُ أَنْ لَمْ يَرَهُ أَحَدٌ [90:7 سورة البلد cited by]

(133) [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] عَلِمَ أَنْ سَيَكُونُ مِنْكُمْ مَرْضًى [73:20 سورة المزمل cited by]

(134) [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] أَفَلَا يَرَوْنَ أَلَّا يَرْجِعُ إِلَيْهِمْ قَوْلًا [20:89 سورة طه cited by]

(135) [26:82 سورة الشعراء cited by] وَالَّذِي أَطْمَعُ أَنْ يَغْفِرَ لِي خَطِيئَتِي يَوْمَ الدِّينِ [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]

²⁵ [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]

²⁶ 64 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى

²⁷ But see [24:9 سورة النور for the recitation أَن غَضِبَ اللَّهُ (cited by النحو العربي: 1/301). See also تفسير ابن عاشور for 24:9 for a counter-argument.]

²⁸ 7 footnote 4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

- (136) [2661: صحيح البخاري] وَأَنَا أَرْجُو أَنْ يُبَرِّئَنِي اللَّهُ، وَلَكِنْ وَاللَّهِ مَا ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ يُنْزَلَ فِي شَأْنِي وَحْيًا
- (137) [سنن] فَأَنْزَلَ اللَّهُ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ وَفَخِذَهُ عَلَى فُجْذِي فَتَقَلَّتْ عَلَيَّ حَتَّى ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ سَتَرْتُ فُجْذِي [3099: النسائي]
- (138) [2751: صحيح البخاري] وَحَسِبْتُ أَنْ قَدْ قَالَ وَالرَّجُلُ رَاعٍ فِي مَالِ أَبِيهِ
- (139) [6464: صحيح البخاري] وَاعْلَمُوا أَنْ لَنْ يُدْخِلَ أَحَدَكُمْ عَمَلُهُ الْجَنَّةَ
- (140) عَنِ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ أَنَّ النَّبِيَّ قَالَ سَأَلْتُ اللَّهَ مَسْأَلَةً وَوَدِدْتُ أَنِّي لَمْ أَكُنْ سَأَلْتُهُ ذَكَرْتُ رَسُولَ رَبِّي فَقُلْتُ يَا رَبِّ سَحَرْتُ لِسُلَيْمَانَ الرَّيْحَ وَكَلَّمْتُ مُوسَى فَقَالَ تَبَارَكَ وَتَعَالَى أَلَمْ أَجِدْكَ يَتِيمًا فَآوَيْتُكَ وَصَالًا فَهَدَيْتُكَ وَغَائِلًا فَأَغْنَيْتُكَ؟ قَالَ فَقُلْتُ نَعَمْ فَوَدِدْتُ أَنْ لَمْ أَسْأَلْهُ [مستدرک]
- (141) [96b: صحيح مسلم] تَمَنَّيْتُ أَنِّي لَمْ أَكُنْ أَسْلَمْتُ قَبْلَ ذَلِكَ الْيَوْمِ
- (142) [7218: صحيح البخاري] وَوَدِدْتُ أَنِّي نَجَوْتُ مِنْهَا كَفَافًا لَا لِي وَلَا عَلَى
- (143) [4478: صحيح ابن حبان] إِنِّي وَدِدْتُ أَنْ أَتَخَلَّصَ مِنْهَا لَا عَلَى وَلَا لِي
- (144) [1447: سنن أبي داود]²⁹ مَا زَالَ بِكُمْ صَنِيعُكُمْ حَتَّى ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ سَتُكْتَبَ عَلَيْكُمْ
- (145) [2940: صحيح البخاري] فَزَعَمْتُ أَنْ قَدْ فَعَلَ
- (146) [2769a: صحيح مسلم] فَخَرَزْتُ سَاجِدًا وَعَرَفْتُ أَنْ قَدْ جَاءَ فَرَجٌ
« So I fell down prostrating and I knew that a relief had come. »
- (147) ثُمَّ يُخَلِّلُ بِيَدِهِ شَعْرَهُ، حَتَّى إِذَا ظَنَّ أَنْ قَدْ أُرْوَى بَشَرَتَهُ، أَفَاضَ عَلَيْهِ الْمَاءَ ثَلَاثَ مَرَّاتٍ [272: صحيح البخاري]
« Then he [would] get the water in the interstices of his hair with his hand until when he thought that he had wettened his skin, he poured on it water three times. »

32.17. The lightened كَأَنَّ

Similar to the lightened أَنَّ, the lightened كَأَنَّ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun as its subject and its info is sentence.

1/303 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

32.18. The lightened لَكِنَّ

1/304 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

²⁹It is not clear to us why the source has سَتُكْتَبَ in the a-case.

Work in progress

Chapter 33.

Significance of the doer participle

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

33.1. Introduction

The doer participle basically signifies the meaning of one who does the action of a verb. Consider the verb **اَنْطَلَقَ** *yanṭaliqu* «to set out». Its doer participle is **مُنْطَلِقٌ** *munṭaliqu*. The basic significance of the doer participle **مُنْطَلِقٌ** is a *setter-out* or a *setting-out one* or *one who sets out*.

Consider the sentence **زَيْدٌ يَنْطَلِقُ** *zaydun yanṭaliqu*. We know that the u-case *muḍāriʿ* verb can signify a present or future tense. So we can translate it as:

- (1) **زَيْدٌ يَنْطَلِقُ** [الجرجاني 486 citing دراسات في النحو للزعلابي]
«Zayd is setting out»
or «Zayd sets out»
or «Zayd will set out.»

Now consider the sentence **زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ** *zaydun munṭaliqu*. The basic significance of the doer participle **مُنْطَلِقٌ** is *one who sets out*. However, in addition to this basic significance, the doer participle can also signify the meaning of the verb. So we can translate it, in context, as:

- (2) **زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ** [الجرجاني 486 citing دراسات في النحو للزعلابي]
«Zayd is a setter out»
or «Zayd is setting out»
or «Zayd will set out.»

The basic significance of the doer participle, when used verbally instead of the *muḍāriʿ* verb, is that the doer participle, being a noun, signifies more permanence and state than the dynamic action of the verb. So **زَيْدٌ فَاعِلٌ** *zaydun faʿilun* can imply:

- (3) **زَيْدٌ فَاعِلٌ**
«Zayd is in the state of doing something.»
«Zayd is the one to do something.»
«Zayd is the doer of something.»

We will explore this verbal significance of the doer participle in the sections below.

33.2. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun

Adjectival nouns, most commonly, are *static adjectival nouns* (see chapter ()). The word *static* implies a lack of dynamic progressive activity. Consider the sentence:

- (4) زَيْدٌ طَوِيلٌ
«Zayd is tall.»

In example () above, the static adjectival noun طَوِيلٌ signifies the static quality of being tall without any aspect of the progression of time.

As opposed to the static adjectival noun, the doer participle can be used as a *dynamic adjectival noun*. Which means that it can signify an adjectival quality along with an aspect of the progression of time. In this sense, it has the signification of both a u-case muḍārie verb, and an adjectival noun. Consider the sentence:

- (5) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

In example () above, the doer participle قَائِمٌ signifies the quality of being in the state of standing along with the aspect of the progression of time which is inherent in the verb يَقُومُ.

The usage of the doer participle قَائِمٌ instead of the verb يَقُومُ points to the Zayd's being in a state of standing as time progresses. Whereas the sentence زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ would indicate only Zayd's verbal activity of standing as time progresses, without emphasizing his state of being in the standing position.

Consider the following example, where both the u-case muḍārie verb and the doer participle are used:

- (6) [2281: سنن النسائي] كُنْتُ مُسَافِرًا فَأَتَيْتُ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ يَأْكُلُ وَأَنَا صَائِمٌ
“I was traveling and I came to the Prophet while he was eating and I was fasting.”

The verb يَأْكُلُ indicates the doer's activity of eating. Whereas the doer participle صَائِمٌ indicates the doer's being in a state of fasting as time progresses.

Incidentally, in example () above, both the verb يَأْكُلُ and the doer participle صَائِمٌ are in a ḥāl construction (see chapter()). The ḥāl *syntactically* signifies the state of its referent. As a matter of fact, the doer participle, when used as a dynamic adjectival noun, is often a ḥāl, or part of a ḥāl. This serves to emphasize its “state-describing” significance.

Here are some more examples of the doer participle being used as a dynamic adjectival noun:

- (7) فَلَبِثَ الْأَوْسُ وَالْخَزْرَجُ مُتَحَارِبِينَ عِشْرِينَ سَنَةً فِي أَمْرِ سُمَيْرٍ [Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 134]
 “So al-ʿAws and al-Khazraj stayed (in a state of) fighting each other for twenty years because of the matter of Sumayr.”
- (8) فَمَا الَّذِي أَنْتَ فِيهِ الْآنَ مُجْمِعٌ [Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 99A]
 “So what is it that you are now (in a state of being) decided about?”
- (9) لَمَّا كَانَ يَوْمٌ أَحْدٌ انْهَزَمَ النَّاسُ عَنِ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَأَبُو طَلْحَةَ بَيْنَ يَدَيِ النَّبِيِّ ﷺ [صحيح البخاري: 4064]
 “When it was the day of Uhud, the people left the Prophet ﷺ while Abū Ṭalhah was in front of the Prophet ﷺ, shielding him with a leather shield of his.”
- (10) فَخَرَجَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ مُسْتَمِلٌ عَلَى شَيْءٍ [جامع الترمذي: 3769]
 “So the Prophet ﷺ came out while he was (in a state of) covering something [with his garment].”
- (11) وَإِذَا هُوَ مُعْتَمِدٌ عَلَى عَصَا فِي صَلَاتِهِ فَقُلْنَا بَعْدَ أَنْ سَلَمْنَا . فَقَالَ حَدَّثَنِي أُمُّ قَيْسٍ بِنْتُ مُحْضَنٍ أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ لَمَّا أَسَنَّ وَحَمَلَ اللَّحْمَ اتَّخَذَ عُمُودًا فِي مُصَلَّاهُ [948: سنن أبي داود] يَعْتَمِدُ عَلَيْهِ
 “And incidentally, he was resting on a staff in his prayer. We [asked] him (about resting on the staff) after we had given the salutation; He said: Umm Qays daughter of Miḥṣan said to me that when the Messenger of Allah ﷺ became aged and the flesh grew increasingly on him, he took a prop at his place of prayer and he would rest on it.”
 (Note how the doer participle مُعْتَمِدٌ indicates a state and the muḍāriʿ verb يَعْتَمِدُ indicates the activity.)
- (12) [48: موطأ مالك] فَبَيْنَمَا أَنَا نَازِلٌ تَحْتَ شَجَرَةٍ إِذَا رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ
 While I was in a dismounted state under a tree, the Messenger of Allah [came]
- (13) [56: صحيح البخاري] إِذَا مَرَضَ الْعَبْدُ أَوْ سَافَرَ، كُتِبَ لَهُ مِثْلُ مَا كَانَ يَعْمَلُ مُقِيمًا صَحِيحًا
 When a slave journeys or falls ill, a [similar reward] is written for him as what he used to do while staying (i.e. not journeying) [and] healthy.
- (14) [5979: صحيح البخاري] إِنَّ أُمِّي قَدِمَتْ وَهِيَ رَاجِيَةٌ
 My mother has arrived and she is desirous (of my favor).

33.2.1. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun with a direct doee

When the doer participle is derived from a transitive verb, then the doer participle, when acting as a dynamic adjectival noun, may take a direct doee (as long as it satisfies the conditions specified in section (ref)). Here are some examples:

- (8) سنن النسائي [سنن أحمد] وَأَنَا مُتَّبِعٌ فِي ذَلِكَ قَضَاءَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فِي مَرِيَمَ الْمَغَالِيَةِ :3498
«I am following, in that [matter], the ruling of the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ concerning Maryam al-Maghāliyyah.»
- (9) :298 مسند أحمد] مَنْ كَانَ مِنْكُمْ مُلْتَمِسًا لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ فَلْيَلْتَمِسْهَا فِي الْعَشْرِ الْأَوَاخِرِ وَتَرَا
“Whoever amongst you is seeking the Night of Decree, then let him seek it in the last ten days of Ramaḍān, [in the] the odd [nights].”
(Note the the doer participle مُلْتَمِسًا has a direct doee الْقَدْرِ لَيْلَةَ.)
- (10) :638, graded weak by al-ʿAlbānī] سنن أبي داود] إِنَّهُ كَانَ يُصَلِّي وَهُوَ مُسْبِلٌ إِزَارَهُ
“Indeed he was praying while trailing his lower garment.”
- (11) :451 [الأدب المفرد] وَوَقَفْتُ عِنْدَ بَابِ عَائِشَةَ فَإِذَا هُوَ مُسْتَقْبِلُ الْمَغْرِبِ
“And I stopped at the door of ʿĀʾishah and incidentally, it was facing the west.”
- (12) جامع الترمذي] كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ حَامِلَ الْحَسَنِ بْنِ عَلِيٍّ عَلَى عَاتِقِهِ :3784
“The Messenger of Allah ﷺ was carrying al-Ḥasan ibn ʿAlīyy on his shoulder”
(حَامِلَ الْحَسَنِ is a superficial annexation.)
- (13) :1204 سنن النسائي] أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ كَانَ يُصَلِّي وَهُوَ حَامِلٌ أُمَامَةَ
“that the Messenger of Allah used to pray while he [was] carrying Umāmah”
- (14) أَنْ أَبَا بَكْرٍ اسْتَأْذَنَ عَلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ مُضْطَجِعٌ عَلَى فِرَاشِهِ لِابْنِ :2402a صحيح مسلم] مَرْطُ عَائِشَةَ
“that Abū Bakr sought permission from the Messenger of Allah ﷺ [for entrance in his apartment] while he was lying on his bed having on him ʿĀʾishah’s bed-sheet.”

However, when the main intent is to indicate the state of the doer independent of the action of the doer upon any doee, then the doer participle can occur without a direct doee. For example:

- (9) :431 مسند أحمد] قَالَ عُثْمَانُ أَجَلٌ وَلَكِنَّا كُنَّا خَائِفِينَ
ʿUthman said, “Yes, but we were in a state of fear.”

In such cases, the doer participle can be followed with a verb (typically its own), specifying the direct doee. For example:

- (10) :138 [Arabic] :28 مغازي الواقدي] فَخَرَجْنَا خَائِفِينَ نَخَافُ الرِّصْدَ
“So we set out afraid, fearing ambush.”
- (11) :893 صحيح البخاري] وَرَزَقَ غَامِلٌ عَلَى أَرْضٍ يَعْمَلُهَا
“Ruzayq was (in a state of) working on the land, working (i.e. farming) it.”

33.2.2. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun for verbs of posture

Verbs of posture include: جَلَسَ to sit, قَامَ to stand, اِصْطَجَعَ to lie down, etc.

With such verbs, the muḍārie verb, when used for the present or past, tends to be used only for the habitual tense and not for the continuous tense. So if we say زَيْدٌ يَجْلِسُ then it will usually mean *Zayd sits* and not *Zayd is sitting*.

For the continuous tense, only the doer participle tends to be used. So, in order to say *Zayd is sitting* we will usually say زَيْدٌ جَالِسٌ.

Here are some examples of the doer participle and muḍārie verb for verbs of posture:

The doer participle for verbs of posture indicating the continuous tense

- (11) [2044a: صحيح مسلم] رَأَيْتُ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مُقْعِيًا يَأْكُلُ تَمْرًا
“I saw the Prophet ﷺ squatting, eating dates.”
- (12) [177a: صحيح مسلم] قَالَ كُنْتُ مُتَكِيًا عِنْدَ عَائِشَةَ
“I was resting at [the house of] ʿĀʾishah”
- (13) [4605: سنن أبي داود] لَا أَلْفَيْنَ أَحَدَكُمْ مُتَكِيًا عَلَى أَرِيكْتِهِ ...
“Let me not find one of you reclining on his couch ...”
- (14) [514: مسند أحمد] أَنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ رَضِيَ اللَّهُ عَنْهُ اسْتَأْذَنَ عَلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ مُصْطَجِعٌ
[14] “that Abū Bakr sought permission from the Messenger of Allah ﷺ [for entrance in his apartment] while he was lying on his bed having on him ʿĀʾishah’s bed-sheet.”
- (15) [564: الأدب المفرد] كُنْتُ جَالِسًا عِنْدَ مُعَاوِيَةَ، فَحَدَّثَ نَفْسَهُ ثُمَّ انْتَبَهَ
“I was sitting with Muʿāwiyah when he [muttered to] himself, then he came to his senses.”
- (16) [2672d: صحيح مسلم] إِنِّي لَجَالِسٌ مَعَ عَبْدِ اللَّهِ وَأَبِي مُوسَى وَهُمَا يَتَحَدَّثَانِ
I was sitting with ʿAbd Allāh and Abū Mūsā while they were talking to each other.
- (17) [2027a: صحيح مسلم] سَقَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مِنْ زَمْزَمَ فَشَرِبَ وَهُوَ قَائِمٌ
I served the Messenger of Allah some Zamzam and he drank (it) while he was standing.
- (18) [732a: صحيح مسلم] هَلْ كَانَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يُصَلِّي وَهُوَ قَاعِدٌ
Did the Prophet ﷺ pray while he was sitting?

The muḍāriʿ verb for verbs of posture indicating the habitual tense

- (12) تِلْكَ صَلَاةُ الْمُتَأَفِّقِ يَجْلِسُ يَرْقُبُ الشَّمْسَ حَتَّى إِذَا كَانَتْ بَيْنَ قَرْنَيِ الشَّيْطَانِ قَامَ فَنَقَرَ [160: جامع الترمذي]
That is the prayer of the hypocrite. He sits watching the sun, until when it is between the horns of the devil he stands and pecks out four (units of prayer), not remembering Allah in them but a little.”
- (13) كُنْتُ أَقْعُدُ مَعَ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ، يُجْلِسُنِي عَلَى سَرِيرِهِ [53: صحيح البخاري]
I used to sit with Ibn ʿAbbās and he would seat me on his couch.
- (14) كَانَ جَذْعٌ يَقُومُ إِلَيْهِ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ [918: صحيح البخاري]
[There] was a stem (of a date palm) [which] the Prophet ﷺ would stand against.
- (15) وَبَرَكَعَ رَكْعَتَيْنِ قَبْلَ صَلَاةِ الْفَجْرِ ثُمَّ يَضْطَجِعُ عَلَى شِقِّهِ الْأَيْمَنِ حَتَّى يَأْتِيَهُ الْمُؤَدِّنُ لِلصَّلَاةِ [994: صحيح البخاري]
And he would pray two units [of (sunnah) prayer] before the Fajr prayer, then he would lie on his right side until the muʾadhdhin would come to him for the (obligatory) prayer”

Rarely, the muḍāriʿ verb has been found to be used to indicate a continuous tense. But in such cases it will likely be in a ḥāl or with an adverb which will help indicate its continuous, rather than habitual, significance. Examples:

- (13) 994: سنن أبي داود أَنَّهُ رَأَى رَجُلًا يَتَّكِي عَلَى يَدِهِ الْيُسْرَى
that he saw a man reclining on his left hand
- (14) 3/429 تاريخ الطبري رَأَيْتُ عُمَرَ بْنَ الْخَطَّابِ وَهُوَ يَجْلِسُ وَالنَّاسُ مَعَهُ
I saw ʿUmar ibn al-Khaṭṭāb while he [was] sitting while the people [were] with him

Transitive verbs of posture

The verbs of posture are usually intransitive verbs, as you can see in the examples so far. But a transitive verb of posture can also be used. For example:

- (14) 5687: سنن النسائي سَأَلْتُ ابْنَ عَبَّاسٍ وَهُوَ مُسْنِدٌ ظَهْرَهُ إِلَى الْكَعْبَةِ عَنِ الْبَادِقِ
I asked Ibn ʿAbbās, while he was leaning his back against the Kaʿbah, about (a drink called) al-Bādhāq
- (15) 2741: صحيح البخاري وَقَدْ كُنْتُ مُسْنِدْتُهُ إِلَى صَدْرِي
“I had been leaning him against my chest.”
- (16) 2861: جامع الترمذي فَتَبَيَّنَا أَنَا قَاعِدٌ وَرَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مُتَوَسِّدٌ فَخِذِي
So while I was sitting and the Prophet ﷺ [was] using my thigh as a headrest

Other verbs that have similar behavior to the verbs of posture

In addition to verbs of posture, there are a few other verbs that indicate show the same distinction of the doer participle being used for the continuous tense and the *muḍāriʿ* verb for the habitual tense. For example: *نَامَ* to sleep, *صَامَ* to fast. The reason that these verbs show the same behavior as verbs of posture may be that the doer is not actively *doing* anything except remaining in a condition. Here are some examples with these verbs:

- (15) صحيح] قُلْنَا لِعَمْرٍو إِنَّ نَاسًا يَقُولُونَ إِنَّ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ تَنَامُ عَيْنُهُ وَلَا يَنَامُ قَلْبُهُ (859: البخاري

“We said to ʿAmr: ‘Indeed some people say that the Prophet ﷺ his eye sleeps but his heart does not sleep.’”

- (16) جَاءَتْ مَلَائِكَةٌ إِلَى النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ نَائِمٌ فَقَالَ بَعْضُهُمْ إِنَّهُ نَائِمٌ وَقَالَ (7281: صحيح البخاري] بَعْضُهُمْ إِنَّ الْعَيْنَ نَائِمَةٌ وَالْقَلْبَ يَقْظَانُ

Some angels came to the Prophet ﷺ while he was sleeping. Some of them said, “He is sleeping.” Some [others] of them said, “His eye[s] are sleeping but his heart is awake.”

- (17) [1121d: صحيح مسلم] إِنِّي رَجُلٌ أَصُومُ أَفَاصُومُ فِي السَّفَرِ

“I am a man who [habitually] fasts, so should I fast in journeying?”

- (18) [1101c: صحيح مسلم] سِرْنَا مَعَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ صَائِمٌ

We travelled with the Messenger of Allah ﷺ while he [was] fasting.

33.2.3. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun for verbs of motion

The doer participle is very common with verbs of motion, like: *مَشَى* to go, *دَهَبَ* to walk, *رَجَعَ* to return, *سَارَ* to travel, etc. The doer participle for these verbs, in its capacity as a dynamic adjectival noun, highlights the situation of being in a state of moving rather than the actual dynamic movement.¹ Here are the examples:

- (16) [485: صحيح البخاري] وَذَلِكَ الْمَسْجِدُ عَلَى خَافَةِ الطَّرِيقِ الْيُمْنَى، وَأَنْتَ ذَاهِبٌ إِلَى مَكَّةَ

And that mosque is on the right edge of the path as you are going to Makkah

- (17) [1194: صحيح البخاري] كَانَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَأْتِي قُبَاً رَاكِبًا وَمَاشِيًا

The Prophet ﷺ used to come to Qubā' while riding and while walking.

- (18) [3116: سنن النسائي] لَحِقَنِي عَبَايَةُ بْنُ رَافِعٍ وَأَنَا مَاشٍ، إِلَى الْجُمُعَةِ

ʿAbāyah ibn Rāfiʿ joined me while I was walking to the jumʿah

¹Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 127

- (19) [2281: سنن النسائي] كُنْتُ مُسَافِرًا فَأَتَيْتُ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ يَأْكُلُ وَأَنَا صَائِمٌ
 “I was journeying and I came to the Prophet ﷺ while he was eating and I was fasting.”
- (20) [16844: السنن الكبير للبيهقي] بَيْنَا النَّبِيُّ ﷺ سَائِرٌ إِلَى تَبُوكَ نَزَلَ عَنْ رَاحِلَتِهِ
 “While the Prophet ﷺ was travelling to Tabūk, he dismounted off his mount”
- (17) [16539: مسند أحمد] ثُمَّ أَرَدَفَنِي وَرَاءَهُ عَلَى الْعُضْبَاءِ رَاجِعِينَ إِلَى الْمَدِينَةِ
 Then he seated me behind him on (his camel) al-ʿaḍbā’ while we [were] returning to al-Madinah
- (18) [953: سنن النسائي] اتَّبَعْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ رَاكِبٌ
 [move to verbs of motion]
 “I followed the Messenger of Allah ﷺ when he was riding”

Unlike verbs of posture and temporary state, verbs of motion are frequently used for the continuous tense. Here are some examples:

- (18) [907: صحيح البخاري] أَذْرَكَنِي أَبُو عَنَسٍ وَأَنَا أَذْهَبُ إِلَى الْجُمُعَةِ
 Abū ʿAns overtook me while I [was] going to the jumūʿah
- (19) بَيْنَا أَنَا أُسِيرُ مَعَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ بَيْنَ الْجُحْفَةِ وَالْأَبْوَاءِ إِذْ عَشِبَتْنَا رِيحٌ
 [1463: سنن أبي داود] While I was travelling with the Messenger of Allah ﷺ between al-Juhfah and al-ʿAbwāʾ, suddenly a wind and intense darkness enveloped us

33.2.4. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun with a habitual sense

When the doer participle is used as a dynamic adjectival noun, then it usually has a continuous meaning. However, it can admit a habitual meaning as well. For example:

- (19) [482: دراسات في النحو للزعبلوي] زَيْدٌ مُكْرِمٌ ضَيْفَانِهِ
 «Zayd is an honoring-one to his guests»

33.3. The doer participle used to indicate a future event

In addition to its use as a dynamic adjectival noun, the doer participle is used to indicate the future tense.

Here too, the doer participle is used instead of the muḍāriʿ verb. When a muḍāriʿ verb is used to indicate a future event, then it merely signifies that the speaker thinks that the doer will take an action. For example, the muḍāriʿ verb

أَذْهَبُ (when used to indicate the future tense) merely signifies the speaker's intention of going some time in the future.

In contrast, when the doer participle is used to indicate the future tense, then it signifies that, in the estimation of the speaker, the event will definitely take place. In other words, the doer's future action is so settled and resolved in the speaker's mind that doer can already be described by the doer participle.² So, for example, if the speaker says أَذْهَبُ and the context tells us he is referring to a future action, then the use of the doer participle ذَاهِبٌ instead of the mudāriʿ verb يَذْهَبُ, signifies that the speaker is so sure that he will do this action that he can already be described as a “goer”.

Here are some examples of the doer participle being used to indicate the future tense:

- (20) وَقَالَ إِنِّي ذَاهِبٌ إِلَىٰ رَبِّي سَيَهْدِينِ [37:99] سورة الصافات
And [then] he said, “Indeed, I will go to [where I am ordered by] my Lord; He will guide me.
- (21) فَهُوَ ذَاهِبٌ وَتَارِكُهُ لِلنَّاسِ [2959a] صحيح مسلم
For he is going to go and leave it for the people.
- (22) إِنِّي ذَاكِرٌ لَّكَ أَمْرًا [1925] صحيح البخاري
I am going to mention to you a matter.
- (23) سَأَلْتُ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ أَنْ يَشْفَعَ لِي يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ فَقَالَ أَنَا فَاعِلٌ [2433] جامع الترمذي
I asked the Prophet ﷺ that he intercede for me on the Day of Resurrection. So he said, “I will do [it].”
- (24) وَإِذْ قَالَ رَبُّكَ لِلْمَلَائِكَةِ إِنِّي جَاعِلٌ فِي الْأَرْضِ خَلِيفَةً [2:30] سورة البقرة
And [mention, O Muḥammad], when your Lord said to the angels, “Indeed, I will make upon the earth a successive authority.”
- (25) أَلَا وَإِنِّي تَارِكٌ فِيكُمْ ثَقَلَيْنِ [2408d] صحيح مسلم
Unquestionably, I am leaving amongst you two weighty [things]
(In English, “I am leaving s.th.” can indicate the future tense.)
- (26) زَعَمَ ابْنُ أُمِّي أَنَّهُ قَاتِلٌ رَجُلًا قَدْ أَجَزْتُهُ [6158] صحيح البخاري
“My maternal brother claims that he will kill a man whom I have given protection to.”
- (27) وَإِنِّي مُرْسِلَةٌ إِلَيْهِمْ بِهَدِيَّةٍ فَنَاظِرَةٌ بِمَ يَرْجِعُ الْمُرْسَلُونَ [27:35] سورة النمل
“But indeed, I will send to them a gift and see with what [reply] the messengers will return.”
- (28) إِنِّي سَائِلٌ هَذَا عَنِ هَذَا الرَّجُلِ الَّذِي يَزْعُمُ أَنَّهُ نَبِيٌّ [4553] صحيح البخاري
I am going to ask this [person] about this man who claims that he is a prophet.

²Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 171

- (29) [15841: مسند أحمد] وَيَخْلُكَ يَا فَلَانُ تَرَى هَذَا كَائِنًا
A mercy on you O so-and-so! Do you think this **will be**?
(30) [3110: صحيح البخاري] فَهَلْ أَنْتَ مُعْطِي سَيْفِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ
«So will you give me the sword of the Messenger of Allāh?»

The use of the doer participle instead of the *muḍārie* verb to indicate a future event can also, depending on context, indicate that the event is imminent, i.e. that it is in the very near future. In such cases it can be translated using “be going to”. For example:

- (21) وَقَالَ أَبُو جَهْلٍ فَمَا تُرِيدُ هَذَا سَيِّدُ كِنَانَةَ وَهُوَ لَنَا جَارٌ عَلَى مَنْ تَخَلَّفَ فَقَالَ عُنْبَةُ لَا شَيْءَ
[1/38 cited by Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 171] أَنَا خَارِجٌ
«Abū Jahl said, “So what do you want? This is the chief of Kinānah and he is for us a protector over who remains behind.” So ʿUtbah said, “[I want] nothing. I am going out.”»

By the way, it is not just the doer participle which is used to indicate an imminent future event. The *muḍārie* verb can also be used with this meaning. For example,

- (22) [560a: صحيح مسلم] قَالَتْ أَيْنَ قَالَ أَصْلِي قَالَتْ اجْلِسْ قَالَ إِبْنِي أَصْلِي
She said, “Where [are you going]?” He said, “I **am going to pray**.” She said, “Sit!” He said, “Indeed I **am going to pray**.”

The doer participle of verbs of posture and verbs of motion don’t have any special behavior when used with a future tense meaning. Examples:

- (23) إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ لَنَأْنِمْ الْعَشِيَّةَ فِي النَّاسِ، فَمَحْذَرُهُمْ هَؤُلَاءِ الَّذِينَ يُرِيدُونَ أَنْ يَغْصِبُوهُمْ
[6830: صحيح البخاري] أُمُورُهُمْ
I, if Allāh wills, **will stand** tonight amongst the people and **warn** them [about] these [people] who want to forcibly seize their affairs.

33.4. The doer participle used to indicate a hypothetical event

The doer participle, is used very commonly in conditional hypothetical clauses with *كانَ*. Here are some examples:

- (24) [467: صحيح البخاري] وَلَوْ كُنْتُ مُتَّخِذًا مِنَ النَّاسِ خَلِيلًا لَأَتَّخَذْتُ أَبَا بَكْرٍ خَلِيلًا
If I were to take [anyone] from the people as a friend, I would have taken Abū Bakr as a friend.
(25) [5185: مسند أحمد] لَوْ كُنْتُ مُصَلِّيًا قَبْلَهَا أَوْ بَعْدَهَا لَأَتِمَمْتُهَا
If I were to pray before it or after it, I would have completed them.

- (26) صحيح] وَلَوْ كَانَ مُحَمَّدٌ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ كَاتِمًا شَيْئًا مِمَّا أُنْزِلَ عَلَيْهِ لَكَتَمَ هَذِهِ الْآيَةَ
[177b]: مسلم
And if Muḥammad were to conceal anything from what was revealed to him, he would have concealed this āyah.
- (27) [3708]: مسند أحمد] لَوْ كُنْتُ قَاتِلًا رَسُولًا لَصَرَبْتُ أَغْنَافَكُمْ
If I were a killer of a messenger I would have struck your necks.
- (28) [1159]: جامع الترمذي] لَوْ كُنْتُ أَمِيرًا أَحَدًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لِأَحَدٍ لَأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا
If I were to order anyone that he prostrate to anyone, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse
- (29) [12289]: مسند أحمد] لَوْ كَانَ لَكَ مَا عَلَى الْأَرْضِ مِنْ شَيْءٍ أَكُنْتُ مُفْتَدِيًا بِهِ
If you had everything that is on the earth would you ransom yourself with it?
- (30) [546]: صحيح مسلم] إِنْ كُنْتُ لَا بُدَّ فَاعِلًا فَوَاحِدَةً
If you must do it then (only) once.

The muḍāriʿ verb is also used in such clauses, but it tends to indicate a hypothetical *current* situation. For example:

- (25) [746a]: صحيح مسلم] لَوْ كُنْتُ أَقْرَبُهَا أَوْ أَدْخُلُ عَلَيْهَا لَأَتَّبِعُهَا حَتَّى تُشَافِهَنِي بِهِ
If (the current situation were such that) I were nearing her or entering upon her, I would have come to her so that she would [tell] it to me face-to-face.
- (26) سورة [746a]: صحيح مسلم] قُلْ لَوْ كَانَ فِي الْأَرْضِ مَلَائِكَةٌ يَمْشُونَ مُطْمَئِنِّينَ لَنَزَّلْنَا عَلَيْهِمْ مِنَ السَّمَاءِ مَلَكًا رَسُولًا
[17:95]: الإسراء
Say, "If there were upon the earth angels walking securely, We would have sent down to them from the heaven an angel [as a] messenger."
- (27) [3919]: سنن ابن ماجه] إِنَّ عَبْدَ اللَّهِ رَجُلٌ صَالِحٌ لَوْ كَانَ يُكْثِرُ الصَّلَاةَ مِنَ اللَّيْلِ
Indeed ʿabd Allāh is a righteous man, if only he would pray much in the night.

The doer participle can also be used in non-conditional hypothetical sentences (see section (kaana)). For example:

- (26) [1807a]: صحيح مسلم] يَا سَلَمَةُ أَتُرَاكَ كُنْتُ فَاعِلًا
O Salamah, do you think you could do [it]?
- (27) [61]: مسند أحمد] أَوْ كُنْتُ فَاعِلًا ذَاكَ
Would you have done that?

The muḍāriʿ verb is also used in such sentences. For example:

- (27) [1788]: صحيح مسلم] أَنْتَ كُنْتَ تَفْعَلُ ذَلِكَ
You would/may have done that

33.5. Interchangeability of the muḍārie verb and the doer participle

We have described above, the situations when the doer participle is used instead of the muḍārie verb. We would like to state that these are more like trends rather than hard and fast rules. We sometimes find a muḍārie verb where an doer participle could have worked, and vice versa.

For the indication of a dynamic state, consider, for instance, example (728) (وَهُوَ مُصْطَجِعٌ عَلَى فِرَاشِهِ لِأَيْسٍ مِرْطٍ غَائِشَةٍ) above and compare it with with example (790) below:

- (28) سنن أبي [فَإِنِّي رَأَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَلْبِشُ النَّعَالَ الَّتِي لَيْسَ فِيهَا شَعْرٌ] (1772: داود)
 “I have seen the Messenger of Allah ﷺ wearing the sandals which don’t have hair on them (i.e. tanned).”

Consider also the following two narrations:

- (29) صحيح مسلم [... وَلَا آخَرَ قَدْ اشْتَرَى غَنَمًا أَوْ خِلْفَاتٍ وَهُوَ مُنْتَظِرٌ وَلَادَهَا] (1747: صحيح مسلم)
 “... nor another who has bought sheep or pregnant she-camels and he is waiting for their giving birth”
- (30) صحيح البخاري [... وَلَا أَحَدٌ اشْتَرَى غَنَمًا أَوْ خِلْفَاتٍ وَهُوَ يَنْتَظِرُ وَلَادَهَا] (3124: صحيح البخاري)
 “... nor one who has bought sheep or pregnant she-camels and he is waiting for their giving birth”

Similarly, for the indication of the future tense, contrast example (@ism_fail_going_to_my_lord) with example (793) below:

- (30) صحيح مسلم [فَقَالَ يَا أُتَيْسُ أَذْهَبْتَ حَيْثُ أَمَرْتُكَ قَالَ قُلْتُ نَعَمْ أَنَا أَذْهَبُ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ] (2310a: صحيح مسلم)
 He said “O Unays, did you go where I commanded you [to go]?” I said, “Yes I am going, O Messenger of Allah”

Consider also the following two narrations:

- (31) صحيح مسلم [أَرَأَيْتُمْ لَوْ أَخْبَرْتُكُمْ أَنَّ خَيْلًا تَخْرُجُ بِسَفْحِ هَذَا الْجَبَلِ أَكُنْتُمْ مُصَدِّقِي] (208a: صحيح مسلم)
 “Do you think if I were to inform you that there were horsemen emerging out of the foot of this mountain, would you believe me?”
- (32) صحيح البخاري [أَرَأَيْتُمْ إِنْ حَدَّثْتُكُمْ أَنَّ الْعَدُوَّ مُصْبِحَكُمْ أَوْ مُمْسِيَكُمْ، أَكُنْتُمْ تُصَدِّقُونِي] (4972: صحيح البخاري)
 “Do you think if I told you that an enemy is going to attack you in the morning or in the evening, will you believe me?”

33.6. The doer participle without اَلْ used with a past significance

We have seen, in the sections above, that the doer participle without اَلْ has a strong correlation with the u-case muḍārie verb, giving an imperfect meaning.

But, the doer participle without *أل* can also carry the significance of the *māḍī* verb. Such that it can indicate that the doer has completed the action of the verb. As when the doer participle was used in an imperfect sense, here too it can indicate being in a state. Examples:

- (32) لَا آتِيكَ مُجْرِمًا [Fischer 112]
I shall not come to you as one who has committed a crime.
(مُجْرِمًا is here in place of the *māḍī* verb أَجْرَمْتُ.)
- (33) [2316: صحيح البخاري] جِيءَ بِالنُّعَيْمَانِ أَوْ ابْنِ النُّعَيْمَانِ شَارِبًا
al-Nuʿaymān or al-Nuʿaymān's son was brought (in a state of) of having drunk (wine).
- (34) [48: موطأ مالك] قَالَ جَابِرٌ فَبَيَّنَّا أَنَا نَازِلٌ تَحْتَ شَجَرَةٍ إِذَا رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ
“While I was (resting) dismounted under a tree, the Messenger of Allah ﷺ [came].”
- (35) [15147: مسند أحمد] لَوْ كُنْتُ مُتَوَضِّعًا أَكَلْتُهُ
If I were in a state of having done wuḍʿū, I would have eaten it.

When used with a *māḍī* significance, then, according to most authorities, the doer participle cannot usually have a direct doer. (See section (ref).)

33.7. The doer participle prefixed with *أل*

Consider the sentence:

- (33) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ
«I saw the man.»

The definite article *أل* indicates that the listener would know identity of the person who was seen because of his being referred to as a definite entity: *الرَّجُلُ* the man.

Consider now the sentence:

- (34) رَأَيْتُ الضَّارِبَ
«I saw the beater_m.»

Now the person who was seen is identified, not by his virtue of being an entity, but because of his being the doer of the verb *ضَرَبَ* يَضْرِبُ. In this sense, the noun *الضَّارِب* is similar in meaning to *الَّذِي ضَرَبَ/يَضْرِبُ* «the one who beat/beats».

Similarly, if we say:

- (35) جَاءَتِ الضَّارِبَةُ
«The beater_f came.»

then this is similar to saying جَاءَتِ الَّتِي صَرَبَتْ/تَضْرِبُ «The one_f who beat/beats came.»

Because of the equivalence of this آل to the connected nouns (الَّذِي, الَّتِي, etc.), this آل, that is prefixed to doer participles (and to deverbal nouns in general) is called the *connected noun* آل. We will learn more about the *connected noun* آل in section (ref).

For now, we note that when the connected noun آل, is prefixed to a deverbal noun then the deverbal noun retains its capability to govern a doer and a a-case governee.

So in example (@) جَاءَتِ الصَّارِبَةُ, the doer participle الصَّارِبَةُ is governing a latent doer pronoun [هِيَ]. And in the following example, the doer participle is also governing a direct doee:

- (36) [601: صحيح مسلم] فَقَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مَنِ الْقَائِلُ كَلِمَةً كَذَا وَكَذَا
«The Messenger of Allah ﷺ said: “Who is the one who said such and such speech?”»

- (37) عَاتَبْتُ الْمُخْلِفَ الْوَعْدَ
«I reproved the promise-breaker.»

The construction عَاتَبْتُ الْمُخْلِفَ الْوَعْدَ can also be converted to a superficial annexation, thus:

- (37) عَاتَبْتُ الْمُخْلِفَ الْوَعْدَ
«I reproved the promise-breaker.»

When the *connected noun* آل is used with an doer participle, then the doer participle includes the meaning of the verb. So much so, that an actual verb may be conjuncted to the *meaning of the verb* that is included in the doer participle.³ For example:

- (38) [سورة] إِنَّ الْمُصَّدِّقِينَ وَالْمُصَّدِّقَاتِ وَأَقْرَضُوا اللَّهَ قَرْضًا حَسَنًا يُضَاعَفَ لَهُمْ وَلَهُمْ أَجْرٌ كَرِيمٌ
[57:18 الحديد]
“Indeed, the men who practice charity and the women who practice charity and [they who] have loaned Allāh a goodly loan - it will be multiplied for them, and they will have a noble reward.”

33.8. The doer participle→entity noun crossover

Sometimes, the doer participle crosses over to be used as an entity noun. When this happens, it loses its purely verbal meaning of the doer of a verb, and signifies only an entity, just like an entity noun. There are two categories of doer participle→entity noun crossovers:

- i. The lexical doer participle→entity noun crossover
- ii. The ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover

³ سورة الحديد for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

In reality, these are not completely distinct categories. They more represent a spectrum of meanings. And it can be a judgement call as to which category a particular noun may belong. We will discuss each of these categories in the following sub-sections:

33.8.1. The lexical doer participle→entity noun crossover

The doer participle is from the class of adjectival nouns, not entity nouns. And in terms of its meaning, it has a relatively temporary and incidental meaning when compared to a entity noun. For example the doer participle ضَارِب «beater» would only be applicable to someone when he is associated with the act of beating. Otherwise he would not be referred to as a ضَارِب. On the other hand, a entity noun like رَجُل «man» has a more permanent meaning, that is not associated with any action from him.

Some doer participle's can take on this more permanent meaning of a entity noun. Usually, their meaning will be somewhat distinct from the original doer participle or the verb from which it is derived. Such a doer participle is termed a lexical doer participle→entity noun crossover because its new meaning often deserves a new lexical definition in the dictionary.

For example, the doer participle صَاحِب (from the verb صَحَبَ يَصْحَبُ «to accompany») is predominantly used as a entity noun to mean «companion». With this meaning, it can no longer act as a verb-like governor. So it will not have a latent doer pronoun, and it will not govern a direct doee. So we cannot say:

- (39) × [العدناني citing 487 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني] حَسَّامٌ صَاحِبٌ يَاسِرًا
«Ḥassām is a companion of Yāsir.»

Additionally any آل that is prefixed to a doer participle→entity noun crossover cannot be the connected noun آل. It will be the regular آل that is prefixed to entity nouns.⁴ So when it is the annexed noun in an annexation then it must be a real annexation, and the آل is dropped.

So we will say:

- (40) [العدناني citing 487 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني] صَحَبَ حَسَّامٌ يَاسِرًا فَهُوَ صَاحِبُهُ
«Ḥassām accompanied Yāsir so he is **his** companion.»

With regard to their plurals, the default behavior for the doer participle, especially when used with a verbal meaning, is to have a sound plural. But when the doer participle crosses-over to a entity noun then it is more likely to have a broken plural.⁵

Here are some examples of entity nouns from cross-over doer participles:

entity noun	meaning	plural	verb
صَاحِب	a companion	أَصْحَاب	صَحَبَ يَصْحَبُ to accompany

⁴ 484 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني

⁵ السيوطي citing 503 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني

entity noun	meaning	plural	verb
سَائِل	a beggar	سُوَّال, سَائِلَة	سَأَلَ يَسْأَلُ to ask
عَالِم	a scholar	عُلَمَاء	عَلِمَ يَعْلَمُ to know
قَاضٍ	a judge	قُضَاة	قَضَى يَقْضِي to decree
كَاتِب	a scribe	كُتَّابَة	كَتَبَ يَكْتُبُ to write
شَاعِر	a poet	شُعْرَاء	شَعَرَ يَشْعُرُ to be aware
بَالِغ	a legally mature person	بَالِغُونَ	بَلَغَ يَبْلُغُ to reach
مُصِيبَة	a calamity	مَصَائِب	أَصَابَ يَصِيبُ to strike
جَارِيَة	a girl	جَوَارٍ	جَرَى يَجْرِي to run
طَالِب	a student	طُلَّاب, طَلَبَة	طَلَبَ يَطْلُبُ to seek
شَارِب	a moustache	شَوَارِب	شَرَبَ يَشْرِبُ to drink
سَاحِل	a shore	سَوَاحِل	سَخَلَ يَسْخُلُ to abrade
جَامِع	a large mosque	جَوَامِع	جَمَعَ يَجْمَعُ to gather
جَامِعَة	a university	جَامِعَات	جَمَعَ يَجْمَعُ to gather
قَائِمَة	a leg (of a beast, furniture)	قَوَائِم	قَامَ يَقُومُ to stand
وَارِث	an heir	وَرَاث, وَرَثَة	وَرِثَ يَرِثُ to inherit
وَالِد	a parent	وَالِدُونَ	وَلَدَ يَلِدُ to beget (offspring)
حَامِل	a carrier	حَمَلَة	حَمَلَ يَحْمِلُ to carry
قَارِئ	a reciter	قُرَّاء	قَرَأَ يَقْرَأُ to read, recite
مُعَلِّم	a teacher	مُعَلِّمُونَ	عَلَّمَ يَعْلَمُ to teach

When the doer participle that has crossed over to a entity noun refers to human beings, then often, but not always, a feminine version of the crossed over entity noun will also exist, with a ة. So صاحبة is a female companion, والدة is a female parent, etc. Sometimes, however, the entity noun exists for only one gender and not for the other, e.g. جارية «a girl». Also sometimes, the same entity noun is used for both genders, e.g. بالغ «a legally mature person». So we will say:

(41) 1/136] المذكر والمؤنث لابن الأنباري [رجل بالغ، وامرأة بالغ (41)

«A legally mature man and a legally mature woman»

There is often some flexibility in these cases, so بالغة can also be used for a female legally mature person. The dictionary is the best guide in these matters.

Recall from section (ref) that the *ḍ* that exists in a feminine doer participle is because of its latent doer pronoun. So when we say هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ «Hind is standing» then the *ḍ* in قَائِمَةٌ is to match its latent doer pronoun [هي] that refers to هِنْدٌ. But the *ḍ* that exists in a doer participle→entity noun crossover is no longer because of a latent doer pronoun. This is because, as mentioned previously, the doer participle→entity noun crossover is not a verb-like governor, so it will not govern a latent doer pronoun. So the *ḍ* in the doer participle→entity noun crossovers صاحبة «female companion» and والدة «female parent» is a fixed

feminine marker, just like the ة in any other feminine entity noun, e.g. شَجَرَةٌ «tree», امْرَأَةٌ «woman», etc.

Additionally, once a doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun, then like all entity nouns, it loses its genderizability. So we cannot add or remove a feminine marker (like ة) at will. For example, if we wish to say «The building is a university», then we will say

- (42) الْبِنَاءُ جَامِعَةٌ
«The building is a university.»

We cannot remove ة from جَامِعَةٌ in order to match the gender of الْبِنَاءُ. If we do so then the meaning will be:

- (43) الْبِنَاءُ جَامِعٌ
«The building is a large mosque.»

In this case, جَامِعٌ happens to exist as another doer participle→entity noun crossover. So example (43) is a valid sentence, but with a different meaning than intended.

Sometimes it can be difficult to tell whether a noun from this category is an doer participle with its original meaning, or one that has crossed over to a entity noun. If you find that it is used independently (in meaning) without referring to an (implicit or explicit) referent, then it is likely that it is a doer participle→entity noun crossover. Another clue is that it is used with a broken plural.⁶ But broken plurals may be used for governing doer participles as well (as we saw in section (ref)) so this isn't a definitive indicator. A more reliable indicator is whether it is made definite by being annexed to a definite annexed-to noun in a real annexation. Here are some examples:

- (44) 503 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني هؤلاء حملة الأقلام
«These are the carriers of the pens.»
- (45) وَمَنْ تَرَكَ مَالًا فَلْيُورَثْهُ وَأَنَا وَارِثٌ مَنْ لَا وَارِثَ لَهُ وَأَعْقَلُ لَهُ وَأَرْثُهُ وَالْحَالُ وَارِثٌ مَنْ لَا وَارِثَ لَهُ
[2899: سنن أبي داود] لَهُ يَعْقِلُ عَنْهُ وَيَرْثُهُ
«Whoever leaves wealth then [it is] for his heirs. And I am the heir of he who has no heir, paying blood-wit for him and inheriting from him. And the maternal uncle is the heir of he who has no heir, paying blood-wit for him and inheriting from him.»

Another possible indicator is whether the doer participle as an info mismatches in gender with the subject. For example:

- (45) الْعُودُ قَائِمَةٌ
«The stick is a leg (of some furniture or other structure).»
(If the doer participle was intended, then we would say الْعُودُ قَائِمٌ «The stick is standing».)

But this isn't always reliable because the subject may match in gender with the doer participle→entity noun crossover anyway. For example:

⁶ 503 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاني

- (46) الْعَصَا قَائِمَةٌ
 « The stick is a leg. »
 or « The stick is standing. »
 (عَصَا is a feminine noun.)

Another indicator also whether the singular feminine of the doer participle is used as a info or attribute for non-intelligent beings. For example:

- (47) الْأَعْوَادُ قَائِمَةٌ
 « The sticks are standing. »

In the above example قَائِمَةٌ is likely to be an doer participle. (By the way, a entity noun reading is also possible: « the sticks (collectively) are a leg ».) But if we say:

- (48) الْأَعْوَادُ قَوَائِمٌ
 « The sticks are legs. »

then قَوَائِمٌ is more likely to be a entity noun. Context is a useful guide here.

33.8.2. The ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover

This second category consists of doer participles that are made entity nouns on an ad hoc basis. That is, the dictionary will typically not list the doer participle (for this category of meaning) separately for any distinct meaning.

Th ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover is routinely formed for doer participles that signify the action of a perfect verb. This is especially done when the doer participle of the perfect action is to be the annexed noun in a (now real) annexation.

So for example, if someone has done the action of beating, then he can be described as a ضَارِب. Now, if we wish to refer to this specific person, we have a choice: Either we can use the connected noun آل or we can use the regular آل. Either way, the word will look the same: الضَّارِب. But its meaning will be slightly different.

In the case of the connected noun آل, we are defining the person based on an action of beating that he did. الضَّارِب, in this case, remains a doer participle.

And in the case of the regular آل, we are defining him by virtue of his entity. Just like we would say الرَّجُل « the man », الْمَرْأَة « the woman », etc. الضَّارِب, in this case, becomes a entity noun.

Either of these can generally be used when describing the definite doer of a perfect verb. When the semantic direct doer of the verb is mentioned, then the doer participle الضَّارِب retains its آل and governs the semantic direct doer in the a-case. For example:

- (49) هَذَا الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا أَمْسَ [2/265 الأصول في النحو لابن السراج 4/100 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
 « This [person] [was] the one who beat Zayd yesterday »
 (الضَّارِب is a doer participle governing a latent doer pronoun and a direct doer.)

But the entity noun الضَّارِب cannot govern a direct doer and so it has to be annexed to the semantic direct doer in a real annexation. So we will say:

- (50) [الزجاجي 3/171 معاني النحو; 4/32 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدٍ أَمْسَ
«This [person] [was] the beater of Zayd yesterday»
(ضَارِب is an entity noun in a real annexation.)

In theory, if the speaker intends to define the person by his being the doer of the verb ضَرَبَ, then he would use example (818).⁷ And if the speaker intends to define the person by virtue of his entity then he would use example (819).

But in practice, they are often (but not always) close enough in meaning that they can be used interchangeably. Here is another example:

- (51) [مسند أحمد: 7060] فَقَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ ﷺ مَنْ قَائِلُهَا
«The Messenger of Allah ﷺ said: "Who is the sayer of it?"»
Compare with example (803) وَمَنْ الْقَائِلُ كَلِمَةً كَذَا وَكَذَا above.

33.8.3. The doer participle→entity noun crossover as a attribute

Once an doer participle has crossed over to an entity noun, it can still be used as an attribute. This is because the doer participle→entity noun crossover still signifies its verbal meaning to some degree. So, for example, ضَارِب, even once it has crossed over to an entity noun still signifies its verbal meaning of being a one who beats. But because it is now an entity noun, it will lose its ال when it is an annexed noun. Consider the following example:

- (52) [المقتضب للمبرد 4/149] مررت بزید ضارب عمر
«I passed by the beater-of-ʿAmr Zayd»

See also the tafsirs of:

- (53) [سورة الفاتحة 1:4] مَلِكِ يَوْمِ الدِّينِ
«Sovereign of the Day of Recompense.»

- (54) الْحَمْدُ لِلَّهِ فَاطِرِ السَّمَوَاتِ وَالْأَرْضِ جَاعِلِ الْمَلَكِ رُسُلًا أُولَئِكَ أَجْنَحٌ مِثْنَى وَثُلَاثٌ
[سورة فاطر 35:1] وَرُبْعٌ
«[All] praise is [due] to Allāh, Creator of the heavens and the earth, [who] made the angels messengers having wings, two or three or four.»

33.8.4. The doer participle→entity noun crossover of doubly transitive verb

As we have mentioned, when an doer participle crosses over to an entity noun, then it cannot govern a doer or an a-case governee like a direct doer. But an

⁷ 2/265 الأصول في النحو لابن السراج

exception is made for the doer participle of transitive verb that has two direct doees. When an doer participle of such a verb is used with a perfect meaning (as a entity noun) in a real annexation, then it's first semantic direct doee is made into the annexed-to noun but it's second direct doee remains in the a-case. We mentioned this already in section (ref) and gave the following example:

- (54) [3/78 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] هذا معطي زيد أمس درهما
«This [person] was the giver of Zayd, yesterday, a dirham.»

33.8.5. An doer participle can co-exist with its doer participle→entity noun crossovers

When a cross-over entity noun exists, it does not mean that the original doer participle meaning has ceased to exist. Both can continue to exist and context will clue us in as to which meaning is intended. For example, *بَالِغ* is used as an doer participle here:

- (55) [5:95 سورة المائدة] هَدِيًّا بَالِغَ الْكَعْبَةِ
«as an offering [to Allāh] delivered to the Ka'bah»

For some cross-over entity nouns, however, the entity noun usage is predominant and the original doer participle meaning is virtually non-existent. Such is the case for *صَاحِب* «a companion» and *وَإِلِد* «a parent».⁸

33.9. Eligibility to be described with the doer participle

Theoretically, anyone who is the doer of a verb can be described with its doer participle. So, for example, any person who is the doer of the verb *قَرَأَ*, even once, can be called a *قَارِئ*. And from context it will be understood that the person is being called a *قَارِئ* within the situation of a certain reading or recitation. Here are some examples:

- (56) أَنْ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ صَلَّى الظُّهْرَ فَجَعَلَ رَجُلٌ يَقْرَأُ خَلْفَهُ بِسَبِّحِ اسْمِ رَبِّكَ [398b: صحيح مسلم] الْأَعْلَى فَلَمَّا انْصَرَفَ قَالَ أَيُّكُمْ قَرَأَ أَوْ أَيُّكُمْ الْقَارِئُ
that the Messenger of Allah ﷺ prayed the *ḏhuhr* prayer; and a man began to recite behind him [*sūrat al-A'elā*]. When [the Prophet ﷺ] concluded the prayer and] turned around, he said: "Which of you recited?" or "Which of you [was] the reciter?"
- (57) [5042: صحيح البخاري] سَمِعَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ قَارِئًا يَقْرَأُ مِنَ اللَّيْلِ فِي الْمَسْجِدِ
The Prophet ﷺ heard a **reciter** reciting the *Qur'ān* in the mosque at night.

⁸ سيويوه 488 citing دراسات في النحو للزعلوي

Having said that, the doer participle is a noun. And a noun, by its very nature, signifies a more permanence and constancy in its meaning than a verb. So there can be scenarios where being described by an doer participle can have a higher bar of eligibility than simply being the doer of a verb. Consider for example سورة الكافرون:

قُلْ يٰٓاَيُّهَا الْكٰفِرُوْنَ ۝ لَا اَعْبُدُ مَا تَعْبُدُوْنَ ۝ وَلَا اَنْتُمْ عٰبِدُوْنَ مَا اَعْبُدُ ۝ وَلَا اَنَا عٰبِدُ مَا عٰبَدْتُمْ ۝ وَلَا اَنْتُمْ عٰبِدُوْنَ مَا اَعْبُدُ ۝ لَكُمْ دِيْنُكُمْ وَلِىَّ دِيْنِ ۝

[سورة الكافرون]

Say, "O disbelievers, I do not worship what you worship. Nor are you worshippers of what I worship. Nor will I be a worshipper of what you worship. Nor will you be worshippers of what I worship. For you is your religion, and for me is my religion."

Ibn al-Qayyim says, in the tafsir of this sūrah:

Negation isn't employed for [the disbelievers] except by the doer participle. And for [the Prophet ﷺ], negation is employed once using the verb, and once using the doer participle.

And this is—and Allāh knows best—due to a marvelous wisdom, which is that the greater objective is [the Prophet's ﷺ] disassociation from their gods from every perspective and in every [instance of] time. So [the Prophet ﷺ, in speaking to the disbelievers with the words of the revealed sūrah], used first the verb [أَعْبُدُ], which signifies dynamic occurrence, and then used for this same negation the doer participle [عَابِدُ] in the second instance, i.e. "This [worshipping of what you worship] is not my description nor my state of affairs." [This is] as if he had said: "Worshipping other than Allāh will not be an verbal action of mine, nor a description of mine." Thus he used two negations for two negated items [a verbal action, and a description], that are intended by the negation.

As for [the negation used for the disbelievers], he used only the doer participle [عَابِدُونَ], which signifies the description [of its referent by the doer participle] and the stability [of this description], i.e. "The stable, requisite, description [of being a worshipper] of Allāh is negated from you. For this description cannot be established for you. It is only established for the one who singles out Allāh exclusively for worship, and then does not associate anyone with Him. But you, because you have worshipped other than Him, are not from His worshippers." Even if they may have worshipped Allāh some of the time. For the polytheist worships Allāh and worships, with Him, others besides Him. Just like the People of the Cave said: «And when you have withdrawn from them and that which they worship other than Allāh» [سورة الكهف 18:16] i.e., "you have withdrawn from their gods excluding Allāh, for you have not withdrawn from Him." And similarly did the polytheists say regarding their gods: «"We only worship them that they may bring us nearer to Allāh in position."» [سورة الزمر 39:3]. Thus they used to worship, with Him, others besides Him. So the verb [عَبَدَ يَعْبُدُ] is not negated from them because of

its occurrence from them. But the description [عَابِد] is negated because whoever worshipped other than Allāh is not established on the worship of Allāh, and is not described by [being a worshipper of Allāh].⁹

33.10. Verbs for which the doer participle is rarely used

33.10.1. The doer participle for stative verbs

Technically, an doer participle can be formed from any verb.¹⁰ For form 1 verbs, it will always be on the pattern فَاعِل. However, there are some *stative* verbs whose doer participles are rarely used.

These are verbs which indicate only being in a static state, with virtually no dynamic action. The meaning signified is usually (but not exclusively) an innate permanent quality. For such verbs, their static adjectival nouns (see chapter (ref)) are generally used instead of their doer participles. The following table lists some such verbs, along with their rarely used doer participles, and their commonly used static adjectival nouns.

verb	meaning	doer participle	static adjectival noun
كَرَّمَ	«to be noble, generous»	كَارِم	كَرِيم «noble, generous»
بَخَلَ	«to be stingy»	بَاخِل	بَخِيل «stingy»
فَرَحَ	«to be joyous»	فَارِح	فَرَح «joyous»
صَاقَ	«to be narrow»	صَائِق	صَبِيق «narrow»
حَسَّنَ	«to be handsome»	حَاسِن	حَسَن «handsome»

Nevertheless, the doer participles for such verbs can be used, on occasion, to indicate an incidental dynamic state that has only temporarily occurred. As opposed to the more permanent static state that the static adjectival noun would signify.¹¹ For example:

(57) فَلَعَلَّكَ تَارِكٌ بَعْضَ مَا يُوحَىٰ إِلَيْكَ وَضَائِقٌ بِهِ صَدْرُكَ أَن يَقُولُوا لَوْلَا أُنزِلَ عَلَيْهِ كِتَابٌ أَوْ

جَاءَ مَعَهُ مَلَكٌ [سورة النحل 11:12 cited by النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3]

«Then would you possibly leave [out] some of what is revealed to you, or is your breast constrained by it because they say, “Why has there not been sent down to him a treasure or come with him an angel?”»

⁹ 109:6 سورة الكافرون for تفسير ابن القيم

¹⁰ النحو الوافي 3/242

¹¹ النحو الوافي 3/292 footnote 3; النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3

According to the commentary on this āyah, ضَائِق is used in place of the more commonly used ضَيِّق to indicate a temporary constrictedness.¹²

33.10.2. The doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

Sometimes, for stative verbs like the above what would appear to be an doer participle is very commonly used. But actually, these usages are from the class of doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers. Here are some examples:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
عَدَلَ	« to be just »	عَادِل « just »
بَسَلَ	« to be courageous »	بَاسِل « courageous »
صَلَحَ	« to be righteous »	صَالِح « righteous »
رَبَحَ	« to be profitable »	رَابِح « profitable »
نَعَّمَ	« to be soft »	نَاعِم « soft »

We will study this category in more detail in section (ref), if Allāh wills.

33.10.3. Verbs for which the doer participle is rarely used in place of the muḍārie verb

The doer participle is also not found used in place of a muḍārie verb for various other classes of verbs, including verbs that indicate mental states, perception, or action.¹³ Such verbs include رَأَى to see, رَجَا to hope, أَرَادَ to want, and others. For such verbs, only the verb is typically used when the meaning of the verb is needed. Nevertheless, the doer participle for such verbs has been found to be used on occasion. Examples:

- (58) تاريخ الطبري] أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ ص لَمَّا انْصَرَفَ مِنَ الطَّائِفِ مُرِيدًا مَكَّةَ مَرَّ بِهِ بَعْضُ أَهْلِ مَكَّةَ
2/347 cited by Waltisberg, *Satzkomplex und funktion* 293]

that the Messenger of Allah, when he departed from al-Ṭā'if intending (as his destination) Makkah, one of the people of Makkah passed by him.

- (59) صحيح البخاري] أُرَاني اللَّيْلَةَ عِنْدَ الْكَعْبَةِ فَرَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا آدَمَ كَأَحْسَنِ مَا أَنْتَ رَأَيْ مِنْ أَدَمِ الرَّجَالِ
:6999]

I saw myself (in a dream) near the Ka'bah last night, and I saw a man with whitish red complexion, the best you may see amongst men of that complexion.

The doer participle of such verbs may also freely be used when its essential “doer” meaning is intended. For example:

¹² سورة for الكشف للزمخشري; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 3/240 footnote 3 citing النحو الوافي 11:12

¹³ See Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 124

- (59) [210: سنن الدارمي] وَكَمْ مِنْ مُرِيدٍ لِلْخَيْرِ لَنْ يُصِيبَهُ
 «How many of an intender of goodness shall not achieve it.»

33.11. Further reading

1. Fischer §201–§204, pp. 111–113.
2. Kinberg, *Semi-imperfectives and imperfectives: A case study of aspect and tense in Arabic participial clauses*
3. Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic*
4. Odilavadze, *Western scholars' opinions on rendering the tense by means of the participle in Arabic*
5. Owens and Yavrumyan, *The participle*
6. van Putten, *The morphosyntax of objects to participles in the Qur'ān*
7. Waltisberg, *Satzkomplex und funktion*
8. Wright, vol. ii, §30–§31 pp. 63–69, §72–§74 pp. 194–198.
9. Youssef, *Das partizip im Arabischen*
10. دراسات في النحو للزعلوي pp. 480–525.
11. معاني النحو 3/170ff.
12. النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3, 3/241, 3/292ff.
13. دلالة سياق اسم الفاعل في الحديث النبوي الشريف صحيح مسلم أنموذجاً لشادي محمد جميل عايش
14. تحرير اسم الفاعل من مزاعم المجارة لحامد علي أبو صعيلىك

Chapter 34.

The static adjectival noun

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

34.1. Introduction

The static adjectival noun is a deverbal noun. The static adjectival noun is called as such because it assigns an adjectival quality to its referent *statically*, i.e. without any aspect of the progression of time. حَسَن «handsome, good» is an example of a static adjectival noun.

We saw in chapter (ref) that the doer participle can be used as a *dynamic* adjectival noun because it can signify an adjectival quality along with signifying the progression of time.¹ In this sense, the doer participle is the closest of the adjectival nouns to the verb.

The static adjectival noun, although not as close to the verb as the doer participle, can also govern in a manner which is similar (but not quite exactly the same) as the governing of the doer participle. In this chapter, we will explore its significance and its ability to govern in a verb-like manner.

34.2. The forms of the static adjectival noun

The static adjectival noun comes in various forms. We will list the most common of them²:

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعِل

¹See also Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 48 footnote 2

²The following list is taken mostly from النحو الوافي 3/285ff

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
فَرَحَ	« to be joyous »	فَرَحٌ	« joyous »
حَزَنَ	« to be sad »	حَزَنٌ	« sad »
حَذَرَ	« to be precautious »	حَذَرٌ	« precautious »
تَعَبَ	« to be tired »	تَعَبٌ	« tired »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعْلَان

Feminine: usually فَعْلَى

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
عَطَشَ	« to be thirsty »	عَطْشَانٌ	« thirsty »
ظَمِئَ	« to be thirsty »	ظَمَّانٌ	« thirsty »
شَبِعَ	« to be sated »	شَبِيعَانٌ	« sated »
يَقِظَ	« to be awake »	يَقِظَانٌ	« awake »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern أَفْعَل

Feminine: فَعْلَاءَ

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
حَمَرَ	« to be red »	أَحْمَرٌ	« red »
خَضَرَ	« to be green »	أَخْضَرٌ	« green »
عَرَجَ	« to be lame »	أَعْرَجٌ	« lame »
حَوَرَ	« to be big-eyed »	أَحْوَرٌ	« big-eyed »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعِيل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
شَرَّفَ	« to be noble »	شَرِيفٌ	« noble »
قَبَحَ	« to be ugly »	قَبِيحٌ	« ugly »
بَخَلَ	« to be stingy »	بَخِيلٌ	« stingy »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعْلٌ

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
صَعَّبَ	« to be difficult »	صَعْبٌ	« difficult »
صَخَّمَ	« to be large »	صَخْمٌ	« large »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعَال

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
جَبَنَ	« to be cowardly »	جَبَانٌ	« cowardly »
حَصَنَ	« to be chaste »	حَصَانٌ	« chaste »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فُعَال

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
شَجَعَ	« to be brave »	شُجَاعٌ	« brave »
فُرَّتْ	« to be sweet »	فُرَاتٌ	« sweet »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فُعْل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
صَلَّبَ	« to be hard (rigid) »	صُلْبٌ	« hard (rigid) »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فُعْل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
مَلَحَ	« to be salty »	مُلْحٌ	« salty »

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَيَعِل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
مَاتَ	« to die »	مَيِّتٌ	« dead, dying »

34.3. The static adjectival noun as the governor of a latent doer pronoun

Just like the doer participle, the static adjectival noun will, by default, govern a latent doer pronoun.³ Consider the following examples:

- (1) 161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي [مررت بامرأة حسنة]
«I passed by a handsome woman.»
(هي has a latent doer pronoun implicated as (هي).)
- (2) 161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي [مررت برجلين حسنين]
«I passed by two handsome men.»
(هما has a latent doer pronoun (هما).)

34.4. The static adjectival noun as the governor of a sababi overt doer

TODO: sifah should be valid for both genders if mismatch. Also for ism_fail like murDi3. Add forward reference to ism_fail chapter. [النحو الوافي] 3/303–304]

Similar to the doer participle the static adjectival noun can govern a overt doer. So we can say:

- (2) 1077 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع [مررت برجل حسن وجهه]
- (3) 1077 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع [مررت برجلين حسن أبواهما]
- (4) 1077 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع [مررت برجال حسن آبأؤهم]
- (5) الرجال كريمة أمهاتهم
- (6) رأيت الرجال الكريمة أمهاتهم

Also similar to the doer participle, when static adjectival noun's doer is a broken plural (as in example () above آبأؤهم), then the static adjectival noun is permitted, and preferred, to also be a broken plural.⁴

So we can say:

- (3) 1077 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع [مررت برجال حسان آبأؤهم]
- (4) 3/453 النحو الوافي [هؤلاء زملاء كرام آبأؤهم]

But if the doer of the static adjectival noun is a sound plural, then it is preferred that the static adjectival noun remain singular. Examples:

- (4) 3/454 النحو الوافي [هؤلاء زملاء كريم والدوهم]

³ 161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

⁴ 288 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى; fawzan_sharh_qatr 248; 3/453–454 النحو الوافي

(5) هؤلاء زميلات كريمة والداتهن [3/454 النحو الوافي]

By the way, when the static adjectival noun is a attribute, then instead of using a sababi na3t (as in examples () above), we can use a sentence attribute. So instead of saying مررت برجل حسن وجهه, we can say:

(5) 1076 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] مررت برجل حسن وجهه

Now the attribute is the sentence حسن وجهه «handsome, his face is». حسن in this sentence is a fronted info.

The static adjectival noun cannot govern a non-sababi overt doer

In section (ref) above, we saw that an doer participle can govern a non-sababi overt doer. Unlike the doer participle the static adjectival noun can only govern a sababi overt doer. So we cannot say:

(6) 1075 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] مررت برجل حسن عمرو في داره ×
«I passed a man [whom] ʕamr was handsome in his house.»

34.5. The static adjectival noun in a superficial annexation

Like the doer participle, the static adjectival noun forms a superficial annexation with its governee. In section (ref), we learned that the doer participle forms a superficial annexation between the doer participle and its semantic direct doer. The static adjectival noun is typically from an intransitive verb. so it will not have a direct doer. Instead, it forms a superficial annexation in two ways:

- i. A superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its semantic doer.
- ii. A superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its tamyiz.

34.5.1. Superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its semantic doer

The static adjectival noun can form a superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its semantic doer. It does this by first transforming its doer into a *direct doer-like* governee. Wil will explain this process below:

Consider the sentence:

(7) 1077 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] مررت برجل حسن وجهه

In this sentence, the static adjectival noun has a definite sababi doer وجهه. This sentence is transformed in the following manner⁵:

⁵ 1080 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

First step of the transformation

Firstly, the annexed-to noun ه in وجهه is transferred to being a latent doer pronoun of the static adjectival noun حسن.

Second step of the transformation

Secondly, وجه, with its annexed-to noun ه eliminated, is made into الوجه to keep it definite (to match وجهه which was also definite).

Now that the static adjectival noun حسن already has a doer (its latent doer pronoun هو), the noun الوجه cannot be its doer. So it is made into what we will call a *direct doee-like* governee. So it is put into the a-case thus: الْوَجْهَ.

We call الْوَجْهَ a direct doee-like governee, and not a true direct doee because, in meaning, it is still the doer of the static adjectival noun حسن. The static adjectival noun حسن is derived from an intransitive verb حَسَنَ which does not take a direct doee.

With this transformation, the sentence becomes:

(8) [1080 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] مررت برجل حسن الوجه (8)

It is important to note that this transformation affects only the syntax of the sentence, but not its meaning. The static adjectival noun حسن is still describing a quality of الوجه, not رجل.

But now that الوجه is not syntactically the doer of the static adjectival noun, the static adjectival noun match its syntactic referent رجل in gender and number, not its semantic doer الوجه. So we will say:

مررت برجلين حسنين الوجهين (9)

مررت برجالٍ حسانِ الوجوة (10)

مررت بمرأة حسنة الوجه (11)

مررت بمرأتين حسنتين الوجهين (12)

Remember, that if الوجه were syntactically the doer, then we would have said instead:

مررت برجلين حسنين وجهاهما (10)

مررت بمرأة حَسَنٍ وجْهَهَا (11)

etc.

The transformation that we have described above works exactly the same for definite static adjectival nouns. So we will say:

مررت بالرجل الحسن الوجه (11)

جاءت المرأتان الحسنتان الوجهين (12)

etc.

Final step of the transformation

A sentence with a direct doee-like governee, like in example () مررت برجل حسن above, while grammatically correct, is rarely used in practice.⁶ The main purpose of the direct doee-like governee is that it is used as an intermediate step for the final step of the transformation: and that is into a superficial annexation⁷ This is done by converting the direct doee-like governee into a syntactic annexed-to noun.

Lets start with static adjectival nouns with their direct doee-like governees:

- Indefinite static adjectival noun: حَسَنُ الْوَجْهَةِ
- Definite static adjectival noun: الْحَسَنُ الْوَجْهَةِ

The a-case direct doee-like governees are converted into annexed-to nouns in the i-case:

- Indefinite static adjectival noun: حَسَنُ الْوَجْهِ
- Definite static adjectival noun: الْحَسَنُ الْوَجْهِ

Here are some examples using this superficial annexation:

(12) 1078, 1081 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] مررت برجل حسن الوجه (12)

(13) جاء الرجل الحسن الوجه

Note that, because الوجه is a a-case governee, and not the doer, of the static adjectival noun, therefore, the static adjectival noun is feminized, dualized, or pluralized to match its referent, not الوجه. Examples:

(13) 3/439 شرح الرضي على الكافية] هند حسنة الوجه (13)

(14) 3/439 شرح الرضي على الكافية] الزيدان حسنا الوجهين (14)

(15) 3/439 شرح الرضي على الكافية] الزيدون حسنو الوجوه (15)

34.6. The static adjectival noun with a tamyīz

Remember from section (ref), that the tamyīz is a a-case governee that specifies the scope of its governor. As a verb-like noun, the static adjectival noun can govern a tamyīz. So we can say, for example:

(14) 1080 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع] مررت برجل حسن وجهًا (14)

(15) جاءت المرأة الحسنة وجهًا (15)

(16) 9/241 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان] الزيدون حسنون وجوها (16)

⁶ 166 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

⁷ 167 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

34.6.1. Superficial annexation of the static adjectival noun with a tamyīz

As with the static adjectival noun that has a direct doee-like governee, the static adjectival noun with a tamyīz also can also form a superficial annexation.

So *حَسَنٌ وَجْهًا* will become:

(15) [171 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] *حَسَنٌ وَجْهٌ*

Again, the static adjectival noun will match its referent in gender and number. So, for example, we will say:

(16) [9/227 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان] *هم حسنو وجوه*

Unlike, the static adjectival noun with a direct doee-like governee, a static adjectival noun prefixed by *الـ* with a tamyīz does not form a superficial annexation. This is because a definite annexed noun with an indefinite annexed-to noun is fundamentally inconsistent with an annexation construction.[^] [169 عبيد الله الصاعدي] *الْحَسَنُ وَجْهًا*, however, does not form a superficial annexation to become:

(17) [169 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] *الحسنُ وجهٌ* ×

Finally, whereas the static adjectival noun with its direct doee-like governee (e.g. *حَسَنُ الْوَجْهَةِ*) is pretty much only used as an intermediate step to form a superficial annexation, such is not the case for the static adjectival noun with a tamyīz. The static adjectival noun with a tamyīz can be used, as is, without converting it into a superficial annexation.⁸

34.7. The word order of the static adjectival noun and its a-case governee

Recall from section (ref) above that the a-case governee of a doer participle is permitted to precede its governing doer participle in word order. So we can say:

(18) [3/143 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] *زيد عمرا ضارب*

But this is not permitted for the static adjectival noun.[^] [شرح كتاب سيبويه] [3/143 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية; 1/259 للسيرافي] So we cannot say:

(19) [3/143 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] *زَيْدٌ الْوَجْهَ حَسَنٌ* ×

Nor is the tamyīz allowed to precede its governing static adjectival noun (see section (ref)). So we cannot say:

(20) [4/164 المقتضب للمبرد] *زيد وجهها حسن* ×

⁸ 3/439 شرح الرضي على الكافية 167 citing الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

34.8. Uncommon constructions of the static adjectival noun

There are some constructions of the static adjectival noun, that are uncommonly found. Some are disagreed upon with regard to their grammatical correctness. Some grammarians allow some of them unconditionally, others by poetic license only, while others would disallow them. [^][162–170 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي]

We list these constructions here for completeness:

Governing a doer

(21) [162 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] حَسَنُ الْوَجْهِ

(22) [162 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] الْخَسَنُ الْوَجْهُ

(23) [163 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] حَسَنٌ وَجْهٌ

(24) [163 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] الْخَسَنُ وَجْهٌ

Governing a a-case governee

(22) [166 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] حَسَنٌ وَجْهُهُ

(23) [166 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] الْخَسَنُ وَجْهُهُ

In a superficial annexation

(23) [169 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] حَسَنٌ وَجْهٍ

When the static adjectival noun is defined by أَل and the semantic doer is not defined by أَل, then a superficial annexation is disallowed. [^][الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 166] For example:

(24) [169 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي] الْخَسَنُ وَجْهٍ ×

34.9. Superficial annexation to an annexation

It is possible for the doer of a static adjectival noun to itself be in an annexation. For example:

(25) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ وَجْهٌ أَبِيهِ

(26) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَةَ لِحْيَةً أَبِيهِ

Superficial annexations can, in general, be formed from such constructions after, of course, first transforming the doers into a-case governees.

But when the static adjectival noun is defined by أَل, then a superficial annexation is only permitted, if the annexed-to noun of semantic doer also is defined by أَل.⁹ Compare this with section (ref) for the doer participle. Examples:

- (26) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ وَجْهَ الْأَبِ ✓
 (27) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ وَجْهَ أَبِي ✓
 (28) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ وَجْهَ أَبِيهِ ✓
 (29) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ لِحْيَةَ الْأَبِ ✓
 (30) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ لِحْيَةَ أَبِي ×
 (31) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ لِحْيَةَ أَبِيهِ ×

34.10. Significance of the static adjectival noun

The static adjectival noun is typically derived from a stative verb. A stative verb is one which, rather than describing any process or action, signifies that its doer is in a particular state. Furthermore, its doer does not do any actual work or action that causes him to be in the state described by the static adjectival noun.

34.10.1. Permanence of the meaning of the static adjectival noun

Some static adjectival nouns have a very permanent meaning. For example:

static adjectival noun	meaning
أَخْضَرُ	« green »
أَعْرَجُ	« lame »
شَرِيفُ	« noble, highborn »
زَنِيمُ	« ignoble, baseborn »

Others are fairly permanent but can change gradually. For example:

static adjectival noun	meaning
جَمِيلُ	« beautiful »
قَبِيحُ	« ugly »

⁹ 3/145–146 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

Others can change fairly quickly. For example

static adjectival noun	meaning
جَوْعَان	« hungry »
فَرِح	« joyous »
تَعِب	« tired »

34.10.2. Transitivity of the verb from which the doer participle is derived

The static adjectival noun is typically derived from intransitive verbs. Rarely, we find a static adjectival noun which is derived from a transitive verb. For example:

static adjectival noun	meaning
تَكْلَان	« bereft (of child) »

34.10.3. Static adjectival nouns whose meaning aligns with the doer

Most of the time, the static adjectival noun aligns in meaning with the doer of the verb from which it is derived. For example, حَسَن « handsome » aligns in meaning with the doer of the verb حَسَنَ « to be handsome ». Occasionally, however, the static adjectival noun aligns in meaning with the doer of its verb. Examples:

static adjectival noun	meaning	verb
حَمِيد	« praiseworthy »	حَمَدَ « to praise (s.o.) »
ذَمِيم	« blameworthy »	ذَمَّ « to blame (s.o.) »
مَنْع	« inaccessible, impregnable »	مَنَعَ « to prevent (s.o., s.th.) »

34.11. The doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

Whereas static adjectival noun are typically derived from stative verbs, doer participles are derived from both intransitive verbs (like قَائِم from قَامَ « to stand »), and transitive verbs (like ضَارِب from ضَرَبَ « to beat »). Furthermore, when a verb has a stative meaning, then, as we learned in section (ref) its doer participle is often not in common usage. Instead, a static adjectival noun will

often exist for the stative verb and the static adjectival noun will be generally used instead. For example, the doer participle *كَارِم* of the stative verb *كَرَّمَ* «to be noble, generous» is rarely used. Instead, the static adjectival noun *كَرِيم* «noble, generous» will generally be used instead. But, as we also learned, *كَارِم* could be used when a dynamic meaning is intended.

The above is the general rule for doer participles of stative verbs. However, there are some stative verbs, for which the doer participle is commonly used, but only after it crosses over to become a static adjectival noun. As with the doer participle→entity noun crossover there are two categories of doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers:

- i. The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
- ii. The ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

34.11.1. The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is one which is commonly used with its static adjectival noun meaning. It will typically have its own entry in a dictionary. Examples are:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
طَهَّرَ	«to be clean»	طَاهِر «clean»
ضَمَرَ	«to be lean»	ضَامِر «lean»
صَلَحَ	«to be righteous»	صَالِح «righteous»
نَعِمَ	«to be soft»	نَاعِم «soft»
بَسَلَ	«to be courageous»	بَاسِل «courageous»

Sometimes, a true static adjectival noun with a similar meaning, can co-exist with the lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover. For example *طَهِير* «clean».

Sometimes, lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover occurs for verbs which are not purely stative. In fact, it can even occur for transitive verbs. Here are some examples:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
عَدَلَ	«to act justly»	عَادِل «just»
رَبَحَ	«to gain a profit»	رَابِح «profitable»
ظَلَمَ	«to wrong (s.o.)»	ظَالِم «unjust, tyrannical»
رَحِمَ	«to have mercy (on s.o.)»	رَاحِم «merciful»
قَطَعَ	«to cut (s.th.)»	قَاطِع «sharp, incisive»

Occasionally, the meaning of the doer participle can change considerably when it crosses over to a static adjectival noun. For example:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
كَتَمَ	« to conceal (s.th.) »	كَاتِمٌ « concealed »
دَفَقَ	« to pour (s.th.) »	دَافِقٌ « poured forth »

In the above examples, we can see that the lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers actually have the meaning of the doer participles. So كَاتِمٌ [Lane's Lexicon «دَفَقَ»] is « a concealed secret », and دَافِقٌ [Lane's Lexicon «دَفَقَ»] is « water that is poured forth ».¹⁰ But the doer participle can still be used with its original meaning. For example:

- (27) وَلَوْ كَانَ مُحَمَّدٌ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ كَاتِمًا شَيْئًا مِمَّا أُنْزِلَ عَلَيْهِ لَكَتَمَ هَذِهِ الْآيَةَ [صحیح] مسلم 177b
 And if Muḥammad were to conceal anything from what was revealed to him, he would have concealed this āyah.

When an doer participle crosses over to a static adjectival noun, then it will govern in the manner of a static adjectival noun. So, it can govern a doer, and the doer is transformed into a direct doer-like governee, which is then used in a superficial annexation. For example:

- (28) طَاهِرُ الْقَلْبِ [2/41 شرح التصريح على التوضيح]
 « clean of heart »
 (طَاهِرُ الْقَلْبِ → طَاهِرُ الْقَلْبِ → طَاهِرُ قَلْبِهِ)
 (29) صَامِرُ الْكَشْحِ [10/298 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان]
 « lean of flank »
 (صَامِرُ الْكَشْحِ → صَامِرُ الْكَشْحِ → صَامِرُ كَشْحِهِ)

The process above is normal and straightforward when it comes to doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers that are derived from intransitive verbs. But if a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is derived from a transitive verb, then there is more care required when using it in a superficial annexation. For example, consider the following two doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers that are derived from transitive verbs:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
ظَلَمَ	« to wrong (s.o.) »	ظَالِمٌ « unjust, tyrannical »
رَجَمَ	« to have mercy (on s.o.) »	رَاجِمٌ « merciful »

Now let's say that we wish to use the doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover رَاجِمٌ in a superficial annexation. Then, it is preferred that the actual direct doer of the doer participle not be mentioned. So, for example, we can say

¹⁰See also فَهُوَ فِي عَيْشَةٍ رَاضِيَةٍ 69:21 سورة الحاقة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

- (29) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْقَلْبِ
«Zayd is merciful of heart.»

But we shouldn't say:

- (30) × زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْقَلْبِ النَّاسِ
«Zayd is merciful of heart to the people.»

Sometimes, the meaning of the syntactic annexed-to noun can cause ambiguity. For example if we say:

- (31) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءِ [modified from مالک لابن التسهيل 3/104]

then there are two routes to end up with this construction:

- i. رَاحِمٌ is a doer participle and الْأَبْنَاءِ is its direct doee. The original sentence is:

- (32) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءِ
«Zayd is/will be having mercy on the sons.»

- ii. رَاحِمٌ is a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover and الْأَبْنَاءِ is its semantic doer. The original sentence is:

- (33) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ أَبْنَاؤُهُ
«Zayd is merciful of sons.»
i.e. «Zayd has merciful sons.»

This sentence gets transformed according to the transformation of static adjectival nouns. Even though رَاحِمٌ is derived from a transitive verb, its governee أَبْنَاءُ is treated as a direct doee-like governee, not as a direct doer.¹¹ So the transformation is زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ أَبْنَاؤُهُ → زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءِ → زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءِ.

There is actually a third route as well, where رَاحِمٌ is an ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover. In this case the meaning would be «Zayd is the merciful-one of the sons». However, this meaning is a little less likely and not very relevant to our discussion here.

Coming back to the sentence زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءِ, there is no problem with using رَاحِمٌ as a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover to mean «merciful of sons». But only if context makes it clear that Zayd has merciful sons, not that he is having mercy on the sons.

Similarly, one can use ظَالِمٌ as a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover instead of as a doer participle. For example:

- (34) زَيْدٌ ظَالِمٌ الْعَبِيدِ [modified from مالک لابن التسهيل 3/104]
«Zayd is unjust of slaves.»

¹¹ 3/104 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك

This meaning can be understood when context indicates that Zayd has unjust slaves.¹²

The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is not as common for form 1 verbs as the true static adjectival noun. But for form 2+ verbs, the doer participle crossing over to a static adjectival noun is the default mechanism to derive a static adjectival noun from the verb. Examples:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
انْطَلَقَ	« to be let loose »	التَّزِيلُ والتَّكْمِيلُ لِأَبِي حَيَّانٍ « fluent of tongue » [3/308]
اطْمَأَنَّ	« to be tranquil »	التَّزِيلُ والتَّكْمِيلُ لِأَبِي حَيَّانٍ « tranquil of heart » [3/308]
اسْتَقَامَ	« to be upright »	مُسْتَقِيمٌ « straight »
اعْتَدَلَ	« to be moderate »	مُعْتَدِلٌ « moderate »

34.11.2. The ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

The ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover can be created from any doer participle, on the fly, when what is intended by the doer participle is a more permanent quality. So, for example, the doer participle قائم can cross over to a static adjectival noun. Now it will statically signify *one who stands*. For example, a person who stands a lot can be described statically as قائم. Now it will no longer signify the dynamic progression of time while standing.

Once قائم is a static adjectival noun, now it can follow the same transformation of governing a direct doer-like governee and then into a superficial annexation.¹³ So we can say:

(35) 2/222 [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ الْأَبُ

« Zayd's father is a stander. »

(The process of transformation is زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ → زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ الْأَبُ → زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ الْأَبُ.)

But we should not use the superficial annexation زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ الْأَبُ with the dynamic meaning of the doer participle « Zayd's father is standing ». This is because then قائم is not a static adjectival noun and thus cannot govern a direct doer-like governee.¹⁴ And it is derived from a transitive verb, so it cannot govern a true direct doer either. So we can't say (with a temporary meaning):

¹² 14:39 سورة إبراهيم for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي 2/222; see also المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل

¹³ 2/230 شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك 2/222; المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل

¹⁴ 4/393 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 3/140; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

- (36) × زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ الْأَبِ غَدًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] 3/140 «Zayd's father will stand tomorrow.»

We should only say, in this case:

- (37) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ غَدًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] 3/140 «Zayd's father will stand tomorrow.»

An ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover can be formed from a transitive doer participle using the same reasoning. So we can say:

- (38) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ الْأَبِ [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] 2/222-223
«Zayd's father is a beater.»

But one should only use such a construction when context makes it clear that Zayd's father is the beater. Otherwise the apparent meaning, out of context, is «Zayd is the beater of the father». By the way, we have already learned in section (ref) above that when a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is derived from a transitive verb, then the true direct doer of the verb should not be used. So we shouldn't say:

- (39) × زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ الْأَبِ عَمْرًا [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] 2/223
«Zayd's father is a beater of Emr.»

34.12. The entity noun→static adjectival noun crossover

It is possible for a entity noun to cross over to a adjectival noun. Sometimes this crossing over is metaphorical, such that the entity noun is used with an adjectival noun meaning. For example:

- (40) مررت برجل أسد
«I passed by a lion man»
(«lion» is used metaphorical to mean courageous.)

Othertimes, the entity noun is simply used descriptively. For example:

- (41) مررت برجل عبد «I passed by a slave man»

When a entity noun crosses over to a adjectival noun, then it will govern a latent doer pronoun. This doer can also be an overt sababi doer. For example:

- (42) مررت برجل عبد أبوه [4:172 سورة النساء for الكشف للزمخشري] مررت برجل عبد أبوه

34.13. The lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover

Very often, a static adjectival noun can cross over to a entity noun.

Here are some examples:

static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	meaning
صَغِير	« a baby »
كَبِير	« a elder person »
صَغِيرَة	« a minor sin »
كَبِيرَة	« a major sin »
نَصِيحَة	« an advice »
حَسَنَة	« a good deed »

As with doer participle→entity noun crossovers when an adjectival noun crosses over to a entity noun, it loses its genderizability. For example, the feminine static adjectival noun حَسَنَة « good » crosses over to a entity noun to mean « a good deed ». Let's use it in a sentence:

- (43) الصَّيَامُ حَسَنَةٌ.
« Fasting is a good deed. »

The subject in this sentence is the masculine noun الصَّيَام « fasting ». And the info is the feminine noun حَسَنَة « a good deed ». Note that the info does not match the subject in gender. This is because it lost its genderizability since it is no longer acting as an static adjectival noun « good », but rather as the entity noun « a good deed ».

What if we have the sentence:

- (44) الصَّدَقَةُ حَسَنَةٌ.

The feminine gender of the subject الصَّدَقَةُ « charity » now matches the gender of the info حَسَنَة. So now, technically, the info could be the static adjectival noun, meaning « good ». So the sentence could mean « Charity is good. »

Or the info could be the entity noun meaning « a good deed ». Then the sentence would mean « Charity is a good deed. ».

Context would be needed to tell us which meaning is intended.

Frequently, when a static adjectival noun can cross over to a entity noun, then it uses a different plural from the original static adjectival noun. For example, كَبِيرَة as a static adjectival noun can use the broken plural كِبَار. So we can say:

- (45) الْجَوَارِي كِبَارٌ « The girls are big. »
(كِبَارَات could also have been used.)

But when كَبِيرَة crosses over to a entity noun, then it will use the plural كِبَائِر. For example:

- (46) هَذِهِ الْأَفْعَالُ كِبَائِرٌ
« These acts are major sins. »

The static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover on the pattern فَعِيل

There is a special category of lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossovers and that is on the pattern فَعِيل, when it has the meaning of the doer participle. Examples are:

static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	meaning	verb	definition
قَتِيل	« a killed person »	قَتَلَ	« to kill (s.o.) »
جَرِيح	« a wounded person »	جَرَحَ	« to wound (s.o.) »
أَجِير	« a hired person »	أَجَرَ	« to hire (s.o.) »

These static adjectival noun→entity noun crossovers are used under the following general guidelines:

- They can be used as a attribute (by crossing back over to a adjectival noun as in section (ref) above)).
- When with an (explicit or implicit) noun as its referent has been previously mentioned, then only the masculine noun is used, even for feminine referents.
- When used without an (explicit or implicit) noun as its referent, then the feminine noun (with ة) may be used for a feminine referent.

Here are some examples:

- (47) شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [مررت بامرأة جريح 4/94]
« I passed by a wounded-person woman. »
- (48) 2/209 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل [مررت برجل جريح أبوه]
« I passed by a man whose father was a wounded-person. »
- (49) رَأَيْتُ قَتِيلًا وَقَتِيلَةً
« I saw a male killed person and a female killed person. »

Not all static adjectival nouns with the meaning of the doer participle cross over (lexically) to entity nouns. Some remain as static adjectival nouns and then are feminized as usual. For example:

- (48) رَجُلٌ حَمِيدٌ وَامْرَأَةٌ حَمِيدَةٌ
« a praiseworthy man and a praiseworthy woman »
- (49) رَجُلٌ ذَمِيمٌ وَامْرَأَةٌ ذَمِيمَةٌ
« a blameworthy man and a blameworthy woman »
- (50) حِصْنٌ مَنِيعٌ وَقَلْعَةٌ مَنِيعَةٌ
« an impregnable fort and an impregnable citadel »

Another example of lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossovers that is on the pattern فَعِيل is:

static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	meaning	verb	definition
زَهِيَّة	« a pledged-item »	زَهَنَ	« to pledge (s.th.) »

In this case, the entity noun has a ة and can be used for both masculine and feminine referents. For example:

- (49) سنن أبي داود [2837: سنن أبي داود] كُلُّ غُلَامٍ زَهِيَّةٌ بِعَقِيقَتِهِ
« Every boy is a pledge by his ʿaḳiqah »

The masculine زَهِيْن can also be used but it will generally retain its adjectival noun sense.¹⁵

34.14. Definiteness of a static adjectival noun in a superficial annexation

We learned in section (ref) that the annexed noun in a superficial annexation is not made definite by a definite annexed-to noun. We saw this in example (854) مررت برجل حسن الوجه, where حَسَن in the superficial annexation remains indefinite even though it is a annexed noun to a definite annexed-to noun اَلْوَجْه. Therefore, the indefinite حَسَن is a attribute to the indefinite attributee رَجُل.

If the attributee is definite, then the static adjectival noun annexed noun is prefixed by ال.

- (50) شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [4/116] مررت بالرجل الحسن الوجه

- (51) 2/132 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [مررتُ بزيد الحسن الوجه، وهند الجائلة الوشاح]

This rule of a static adjectival noun not becoming definite because of a definite annexed-to noun is followed more strictly than for the doer participle.¹⁶ In the case of an doer participle, we saw in section (ref) that it can cross over to a entity noun in an ad hoc manner. When this happens, then it becomes definite when it is a annexed noun to a definite annexed-to noun (section (ref)).

But the static adjectival noun, when it is a annexed noun to its semantic doer, cannot be understood as a real annexation. That is حَسَنُ الْوَجْه « handsome of face » can only be understood to mean that the face is handsome, never « the face's handsome-one ». So we cannot, in general, say:

- (51) الجامي 496 citing دراسات في النحو للزعلابي [مررت بزيد حسن الوجه × (51)]

¹⁵Lane's Lexicon entry زَهَنَ

¹⁶495 دراسات في النحو للزعلابي

We would have to say مررتُ بزيدٍ الحسنِ الوجهِ instead, as in example () above.

All this notwithstanding, some grammarians allow, on occasion, a static adjectival noun, when a annexed noun to its semantic doer, to become definite by a definite annexed-to noun. This is by reason of aligning to the *form* of a real annexation. For more discussion on this, see تفسير ابن عثيمين for 40:3 سورة غافر:

سورة [سورة] غَافِرِ الذَّنْبِ وَقَابِلِ التَّوْبِ شَدِيدِ الْعِقَابِ ذِي الطَّلَلِ لَا إِلَهَ إِلَّا هُوَ إِلَيْهِ الْمَصِيرُ (52)
[40:3 غافر]

«The forgiver of sin, acceptor of repentance, severe in punishment, owner of abundance. There is no deity except Him; to Him is the destination.»

34.15. Further reading

1. الصفة المشبهة (قراءة جديدة في البنية الشكلية والدلالية لبعض الأوصاف المشتقة). د. فيصل إبراهيم صفا

Chapter 35.

The adverb of time and the adverb of place

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

35.1. Introduction

Consider the sentence:

«Zayd went to the market one day.»

The term «one day» here is an *adverb of time*. It describes the verb «went» and tells us the time in which the action of going occurred.

In this chapter, we will study two kinds of adverbs in Arabic: the *adverb of time* and the *adverb of place*. These two adverbs are treated together because they both describe the space (of time and place, respectively) in which the action of a verb occurs. There are other kinds of adverbs as well, and we will study them in other chapters, if Allāh wills.

The adverb, in Arabic, is a noun that qualifies a verb. It is put in the a-case. Let's express the above sentence in Arabic:

(1) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ إِلَى السُّوقِ يَوْمًا

«Zayd went to the market one day.»

The noun يَوْم is functioning as an adverb of time. When used thus, as an adverb, we can translate it idiomatically as «one day» instead of «a day».

35.2. Determining when a noun is an adverb of time or place

The term *adverb* in Arabic grammar technically does not refer to any specific class of nouns. Generally, nouns can be used for different functions, including as adverbs. For example, the noun يَوْم doesn't necessarily need to be used as an adverb. It may be used, for example, as the subject of a sentence:

- (2) **الْيَوْمُ طَوِيلٌ**
«The day is long.»

Even when it is in the a-case, it is not necessarily an adverb. Here it is as a direct doee:

- (3) **أَخَافُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ**
[2/178 معاني النحو]
«I fear the Day of Resurrection.»

The way that we can tell when a noun is an adverb of time or place is if it satisfies the following conditions:

1. The noun is in the a-case.
2. The noun is dispensable, such that the sentence is complete, albeit more vague, without it.
3. The noun signifies the time or place in which the verb occurred.

In the sentence **أَخَافُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ**, the noun **يَوْمٌ** is not signify the time in which the verb **أَخَافُ** is occurring. So it is not an adverb of time.

Having said that, there are nouns that are used exclusively or mostly as adverbs, like **قَبْلُ** «before». So, loosely speaking, such nouns, themselves, may be referred to as adverbs.

35.3. The adverb or time

The adverb of time is more unrestricted than the adverb of place. So we will deal with it first. We have already seen an example of an adverb of time in the sentence:

- (4) **ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ إِلَى السُّوقِ يَوْمًا**
«Zayd went to the market one day.»

In the above example, the adverb of time **يَوْمٌ** is singular and indefinite. But an adverb of time can occur in other formations as well. For example:

As a definite common noun:

- (5) **ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ إِلَى السُّوقِ الْيَوْمَ**
«Zayd went to the market today.»
(**الْيَوْمُ** «the day» is also used to mean «today».)

With a attribute:

- (6) **قَتَلْتُهُ السَّنَةَ الْمَاضِيَةَ** [Wright 2/110A]
«I killed him last year.»

As a proper noun:

- (7) **صُمْتُ رَمَضَانَ** [Wright 2/110A]
«I fasted (the month of) Ramaḍān.»

As an annexed noun to a annexed-to noun:

- (8) جِئْتُ زَمَنَ الشَّتَاءِ [Wright 2/110A]
«I came in the winter-time.»

As an annexed noun to a sentence:

- (9) صَحَبْتُ صَدِيقِي يَوْمَ خَرَجْنَا مِنَ الْمَدِينَةِ
«I accompanied my friend the day we left the city.»

As a dual or plural:

- (10) تَأَمَّلْ شَهْرَيْنِ فِي اخْتِيَارِ الْأَسْتَاذِ [Wright 2/109D]
«Reflect two months upon the choice of a teacher.»
- (11) سَكَنَ فِي بَعْضِ الْقُرَى أَيَّامًا [Wright 2/109D]
«He stayed in one of the villages (a few) days.»

The adverb before its verb in sentence word order¹:

- (11) الْيَوْمَ اكْمَلْتُ لَكُمْ دِينَكُمْ [سورة المائدة: 5:3]
«This day I have perfected for you your religion»

35.4. The adverb of place

The adverb of place is more restricted than the adverb of time. Only some nouns are suitable to function as adverbs of place. Such nouns fall under some categories that we will discuss in the next few subsections:

35.4.1. Vague and unbounded nouns

Generally, only vague and unbounded nouns are permitted to be used as adverbs of place. A noun that denotes a specific place are not permitted. So, for example, we can't use the noun بَيْت as an adverb of place to say جَلَسْتُ بَيْتًا. Instead we'll have to use the preposition فِي and say جَلَسْتُ فِي بَيْتٍ.

Directional nouns are considered vague enough to be used as adverbs of place. Such nouns include:

- أَمَامَ «in front (of)»
- خَلْفَ «behind»
- فَوْقَ «above»
- تَحْتَ «under», أَسْفَلَ «lower», دُونَ «beneath»
- يَمِين «right»
- يَسَار «left»

Permitted also are general spatial nouns including, but not limited to:

- وَسْطَ «in the middle (of)»

¹ النحو الوافي 2/245

- حَوْل «around»
- لَدَى, لَدُنْ, عِنْد «at, with, by»
- مَعَ «with»
- بَيْنَ «between»

Some of the nouns above we have introduced previously in section (ref) as *pseudo-prepositions*. But they are actually nouns, that when used as adverbs give meanings similar to prepositions.

Here is an example of the use of these nouns as adverbs of place:

- (12) نَظَرَ يَمِينًا وَيَسَارًا (وَشِمَالًا) [Wright 2/111B]
«He looked right and left.»

Generally, these nouns indicate place by being annexed to a annexed-to noun reference point. For example أَمَامَ الْبَيْتِ «in front of the house». When they are annexed to a definite noun then they too will be definite. But this in no way restricts their vagueness and thus ability to be used as adverbs of place.² For example,

- (13) 7208: صحيح البخاري] بَايَعْنَا النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ تَحْتَ الشَّجَرَةِ
«We gave the oath of allegiance to the Prophet ﷺ under the tree»

There are some nouns whose meaning is associated with the word «side»:

- جَنْبَ, وَجْهَ, نَاحِيَةَ, جَانِبَ «side»
- جَوْفَ, دَاخِلَ «inside»
- خَارِجَ «outside»

With these nouns, it is more common to use prepositions like مِنْ, إِلَى, فِي before them. For example,

- (14) نِمْتُ فِي خَارِجِ الدَّارِ [Wright 2/112A]
«I slept outside the house.»
- (15) زَيْدٌ فِي جَانِبِ عَمْرٍو
or
[1/489 شرح الرضي على الكافية] زَيْدٌ إِلَى جَانِبِ عَمْرٍو
«Zayd is beside ʿAmr»
- (16) [1/489 شرح الرضي على الكافية] زَيْدٌ مِنْ خَارِجِ الدَّارِ
«Zayd is outside the house.»

But there are (rare) examples of them being used as adverbs of place as well:

- (15) 6520: مسند أحمد ط الرسالة] أَتَشَوُّفُ دَاخِلًا وَخَارِجًا
«I (was) looking inside and outside.»
- (16) 15837: مسند أحمد ط الرسالة] فَهُوَ مُتَّكِيٌّ عَلَيْهَا دَاخِلَ الْمَسْجِدِ
«And he (was) relying on [our arms] inside the mosque»

² 1/488 شرح الرضي على الكافية

Some place nouns are vague in that they mean «place», like مَكَان, and مَقَام. These nouns are permitted to be used as adverbs of place when unspecified and indefinite. For example:

- (16) [754: سنن ابن ماجه] فَتُصَلِّي فِي بَيْتِي مَكَانًا
«that you may pray in my house (at) a place»
- (17) وَلَكِنَّ وَاللَّهِ لَا تَجْتَمِعُ ابْنَةُ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ، وَابْنَةُ عَدُوِّ اللَّهِ مَكَانًا وَاحِدًا أَبَدًا
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794/15437>

The word مَكَان may be annexed to a vague expression like كَذَا وَكَذَا and remain vague. For example:

- (17) ثُمَّ مَوْعِدُكَ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794/21044#p1>
- (18) وَلَكِنِّي رَأَيْتُهُ انْطَلَقَ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794/19824>

However, when these nouns are specified, typically by definiteness, then it is better that they only be used as nouns of place when construed with a verb conveying the idea of stopping or remaining. For example,

- (18) جَلَسْتُ مَكَانَ زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/111D]
«I sat down in Zayd's place.»
- (19) امْكُثْ مَكَانَكَ [940: سنن أبي داود]
«Stay (at) your place.»
- (20) اجْلِسُوا مَكَانَكُمْ [4039: صحيح البخاري]
«Sit (at) your places.»

The noun مَكَان is also used in an annexation to mean «in place of». With this meaning, it may be used as an adverb of place unrestrictedly. For example,

- (19) خُذْ هَذَا مَكَانَ ذَلِكَ [2/261: النحو الوافي]
«Take this in place of that.»

So too may the noun بَدَل «replacement» be used in this way.

- (20) خُذْ هَذَا بَدَلَ ذَلِكَ [2/261: النحو الوافي]
«Take this in replacement of that.»

35.4.2. Units of distance and space

Units of distance and space are permitted to be used as adverbs of place. For example:

- (21) سَارُوا مِيلًا
«They travelled a mile.»

- (22) مَشَيْتُ فَرَسَخَيْنِ [Wright 2/111B]
 «I walked two parasangs.»
 (A فَرَسَخُ is a unit of distance approximately equal to three miles.)
- (23) جَرَى غُلُوَةً [Wright 2/111B]
 «He ran the distance of a bowshot.»

35.4.3. Nouns of place

In section (ref) we studied the *noun of place*, which is formed on the pattern مَفْعِل or مَفْعُل. The noun of place is permitted to be used as an adverb of place, but only when construed with the verb from which it is derived. For example,

- (22) قَعَدْتُ مَقْعَدَ زَيْدٍ,
 جَلَسْتُ مَجْلِسَ زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/112A]
 «I sat down in Zayd's seat.»
- (23) رَأَى النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ ذَهَبَ مَذْهَبًا مُوَاجِهًا لِلْقِبْلَةِ [5741: مسند أحمد ط الرسالة]
 «He saw the Prophet ﷺ going a path facing towards the qiblah.»

Also included in this category are the vague place nouns (like مَكَان, مَوْضِع, and مَقَام) annexed to the verb's maṣdar. They may occur as adverbs of place instead of the verb's actual noun of place. For example,

- (23) قَاتَلْتُ مَوْضِعَ الْقِتَالِ [1/490: شرح الرضي على الكافية]
 «I fought (in) the place of fighting.»

Some grammarians allow using the noun of place of one verb as an adverb of place with another verb, when both verbs are close in meaning, or when one verb is used with the meaning of another verb.³ So according to these grammarians, we can say:

- (24) جَلَسْتُ مَجْلِسَ زَيْدٍ [9:5: سورة التوبة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان]
 قَعَدْتُ مَجْلِسَ زَيْدٍ [9:5: سورة التوبة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان]
 «I sat (in) Zayd's seat.»

According to other grammarians, it is the meaning of remaining stopped (in either the verb or the noun of place) that allows freedom in mixing and matching verbs and nouns of place.⁴ So according to these grammarians, we can say:

- (25) جَلَسْتُ مَوْضِعَ الْقِيَامِ [1/490: شرح الرضي على الكافية]
 «I sat in the place of standing.»
- (26) تَحَرَّكَتُ مَكَانَ السَّكُونِ [1/490: شرح الرضي على الكافية]
 «I moved in the place of resting.»
- (27) قَعَدْتُ مَوْضِعَكَ [1/490: شرح الرضي على الكافية]
 «I sat in your place.»

³ وَاَقْعُدُوا لَهُمْ كُلَّ مَرْصِدٍ 9:5 سورة التوبة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

⁴ 1/490: شرح الرضي على الكافية

- (28) [1/490 شرح الرضي على الكافية] جلست منزل فلان
«I sat in the so-and-so's place of alighting.»

- (29) [1/490 شرح الرضي على الكافية] نمت مبيته
«I slept in his place of spending the night.»

35.4.4. Gray area in vagueness

There is actually considerable difference of opinion among the grammarians with regard to which nouns are permissible as adverbs of place. We got a taste of this in the previous section with respect of nouns of place as adverbs. Most of this disagreement centers around whether a noun is sufficiently vague. Consider the following example:

- (26) [12:9 سورة يوسف] أَفْتُلُوا يُوسُفَ أَوْ اطْرَحُوهُ أَرْضًا
«Kill Joseph or cast him out to [another] land;»

The noun *أَرْضًا* is in the a-case. Our first thought would be that it is an adverb of place. However, in the *tafsir* of this *ayah*, scholars have differed with regard to how to analyze *أَرْضًا*.

Some do analyze it as an adverb of place.⁵ Others deem the noun *أَرْضًا* not vague enough to be an adverb of place.⁶ Other analyses are then proposed like it's being in the a-case is due to the dropping of a preposition (see (ref)) or because the verb *أَطْرَحَ* «to cast» is used with the meaning of another (transitive) verb (section (ref)) like *أَوْدَعَ* «to deposit».

35.4.5. Irregular adverbs of place

There are some examples of adverbs of place that don't align with the examples that we have given. They are considered irregular adverbs of place. We will list these irregular adverbs of place below:

The verbs *دَخَلَ* «to enter», *سَكَنَ* «to dwell», and *نَزَلَ* «to alight» may govern place nouns in the a-case without an intermediate preposition.⁷ So we can say:

- (27) دَخَلْتُ الدَّارَ
«I entered the house,»
- (28) سَكَنْتُ الْبَيْتَ
«I dwelled (in) the house,»
- (29) نَزَلْتُ الْبِلَدَ
«I alighted (in) the country.»

Also permitted is the country name *السَّامُ* «Syria» with the verb *ذَهَبَ* «to go.» So we can say:

⁵ 12:9 سورة يوسف for الكشف للزمخشري

⁶ 12:9 سورة يوسف for تفسير ابن عاشور and 12:9 سورة يوسف for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان#

⁷ 2/253 النحو الوافي

- (28) ذَهَبْتُ الشَّامَ
«I went (to) Syria.»

Some grammarians consider the nouns governed by these verbs as direct does, whereas others consider them adverbs of place.⁸

The expressions below are also irregular in that they contain specific, i.e. non-vague, adverbs of place:

- (29) مُطَرِّبًا السَّهْلَ وَالْجَبَلَ
(30) قُلِبَ زَيْدٌ الظَّهْرَ وَالْبَطْنَ

35.5. The deputy adverb of time and place

The adverb of time or place may be substituted by another noun. This other noun then becomes the adverb in the a-case as the deputy of the original adverb. The meaning of the original (substituted) adverb is then implied. The substitute may be from the following categories:

35.5.1. A qualifier

When an adverb of time or place is qualified by another noun, then the adverb may be dropped and the qualifier may take its place.⁹

Such qualifiers include:

- A attribute:

- (30) [معاني النحو 2/191] جَلَسْتُ شَرْقِي الدَّارِ
«I sat east of the house.»
(جَلَسْتُ مَكَانًا شَرْقِي الدَّارِ)
(31) [Wright 2/110B] جَلَسْتُ عِنْدَهُ طَوِيلًا مِنْ الدَّهْرِ
«I sat with him (for) a long (time).» (for) (زَمَنًا طَوِيلًا)

- A number:

- (31) [Wright 2/111B] سَارُوا أَرْبَعَةَ أَمْيَالٍ
«They travelled four miles.»
(Technically the number أَرْبَعَةَ is the adverb in the a-case.)

- A fraction or a whole:

- (32) [سورة المؤمنون 23:113] لَبِثْنَا يَوْمًا أَوْ بَعْضَ يَوْمٍ
«We remained a day or part of a day»

- A pointing noun:

⁸ 7/251 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان
⁹ 2/191 معاني النحو

- (33) جئت هذا الوقت [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I came (at) this time.»
- (34) خرج محمد هذه الساعة [معاني النحو 2/191]
«Muḥammad left (at) this hour.»
- (35) سرت هذه المسافة [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I travelled this distance.»

35.5.2. A maṣḍar

A maṣḍar may substitute an adverb of time or place if:

- the meaning «at the time of» or «the amount of time of» is implied for adverb of time;
- and the meaning «at the place of» «the amount of space of» is implied for the adverb of place.

Examples:

- (34) جاء طُلُوعُ الشَّمْسِ [Wright 2/110C]
«He came (at the time of) the rising of the sun.»
(جاءَ وَقْتُ طُلُوعِ الشَّمْسِ)
- (35) جئتُ صَلَاةَ الْعَصْرِ [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I came (at the time of) the ʿaṣr prayer.»
(جئتُ وَقْتُ صَلَاةِ الْعَصْرِ)
- (36) انتظرتُ حَلَبَ نَاقَةٍ [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I waited for him (the amount of time of) the milking of a she-camel.»
(انتظرتُ مِقْدَارَ حَلَبِ نَاقَةٍ)
- (37) جلسْتُ قُرْبَ زَيْدٍ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/200]
«I sat near Zayd.»
(literally: «I sat (at the place of) the nearness of Zayd.»)

This substitution by a maṣḍar is more common for the adverb of time than for the adverb of place.¹⁰

35.6. Using prepositions instead of adverbs of time and place

Often we can replace a noun used as an adverb of time or place by a preposition followed by the same noun. This preposition is usually في. For example, instead of saying: خَرَجْتُ يَوْمًا مَاطِرًا «I left (on) a rainy day,» we can say:

¹⁰ 2/200 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

- (35) خَرَجْتُ فِي يَوْمٍ مَاطِرٍ
 «I left (on) a rainy day.»
 (literally «in a rainy day».)

The noun يَوْم is technically no longer an adverb since it is not in the a-case. The preposition فِي signifies that the verb occurs *in* the time or place denoted by the adverb. So, in the example above, my act of leaving occurred *in* a time which is denoted by «a rainy day». In cases like the example above, the choice of whether to use an adverb or preposition is a matter of style, and is up to the speaker.

Note, however, that this substitution with فِي is not always literally correct.¹¹ For example, we can't say × طَارَ الطَّائِرُ فِي فَوْقَ الشَّجَرَةِ for «The bird flew above the tree.» Instead we have to say طَارَ الطَّائِرُ فَوْقَ الشَّجَرَةِ. Nevertheless, the idea of فِي is still correct in that the bird flew *in* the space which is above the tree.

And sometimes, if we substitute a noun used as an adverb with فِي followed by the noun, then the sentence may be grammatically correct, but with a different meaning from the original. Consider the following examples:

- (36) فَعَلْتُ هَذَا سَبْعَةَ أَيَّامٍ [معاني النحو 2/179]
 «I did this (for) seven days.»

- (37) فَعَلْتُ هَذَا فِي سَبْعَةِ أَيَّامٍ [معاني النحو 2/179]
 «I did this (in) seven days.»

Example (975) indicates that I did an action repeatedly during seven days. Whereas example (976) indicates that I did the action once, and it took seven days to complete the action.

Similarly, consider these two examples:

- (37) أَذْرُسُ اللَّيْلَ وَالنَّهَارَ [معاني النحو 2/181]
 «I study night and day.»

- (38) أَذْرُسُ فِي اللَّيْلِ وَالنَّهَارِ [معاني النحو 2/181]
 «I study in the night and day.»

Example (977) is about the amount of time that I study. This is the answer to «How much do you study?» Whereas example (978) is about the period of time during which I study. This is the answer to «When do you study?»

35.6.1. Using other prepositions besides فِي

While فِي is the most general preposition for substituting an adverb, other prepositions are also used. This often depends on the adverb itself. For example, instead of saying أَخْرُجُ غَدًا for «I will leave tomorrow,» we can say:

- (38) أَخْرُجُ بِالْغَدِ
 «I will leave tomorrow»

¹¹ معاني النحو 2/179

And instead of saying نَظَرَ بَمِيمًا وَشِمَالًا for «He looked right and left,» we can say:

- (39) نَظَرَ عَنِ الْيَمِينِ وَعَنِ الشِّمَالِ
«He looked right and left.»

One common preposition used before a class of adverbs is مِنْ. We will discuss it separately in the next section below.

35.7. Using مِنْ before some adverbs

There are some nouns that are used as adverbs, but are also used with the preposition مِنْ to give the same adverbial meaning. Some of these nouns are عِنْدُ «by, with», قَبْلُ «before», بَعْدُ «after», فَوْقُ «above», تَحْتَ «under»,¹² etc.

Often times, مِنْ signifies its literal meaning «from», as usual. For example:

- (40) مَكَثْتُ عِنْدَكَ سَاعَةً ثُمَّ خَرَجْتُ مِنْ عِنْدِكَ إِلَى بَيْتِي [النحو الوافي 2/262]
«I stayed at your [place] an hour, then I left from your place to my house.»

Other times, the significance of this مِنْ is less obvious. Consider the following examples:

- (41) قَرَأْتُ الْقُرْآنَ بَعْدَ صَلَاةِ الْعَصْرِ
«I read the Qur'ān after the ḥaṣr prayer.»
- (42) قَرَأْتُ الْقُرْآنَ مِنْ بَعْدِ صَلَاةِ الْعَصْرِ
«I read the Qur'ān (during a time which starts) from after the ḥaṣr prayer.»

Example (983) specifies the *beginning of the time period* that is indicated by the adverb. Technically, this is not necessarily when the action of the verb began. But this usage of مِنْ could be used to signify that the action started very close to the beginning of the time period. That is, it could indicate that I started to read the Qur'ān right after the ḥaṣr prayer.¹³ Often, when the meaning of مِنْ is subtle, it is not translated as «from». For example:

- (42) لِكَيْلَا يَعْلَمَ مِنْ بَعْدِ عِلْمٍ شَيْئًا [سورة الحج 22:5]
«so that he knows, after [once having] knowledge, nothing»
- (43) لِكَيْ لَا يَعْلَمَ بَعْدَ عِلْمٍ شَيْئًا [سورة النحل 16:70]
«so that he will not know, after [having had] knowledge, a thing»

Sometimes it may be left untranslated.

¹² معاني النحو 2/193

¹³ التذييل والتكميل لأبي and, من الفرق بين بعد ومن بعد في اللفظ القرآني لعلي هاني, 201-2/193 معاني النحو 11/142 حيان

35.8. قَبْل and its sisters

There are a class of nouns, which are usually adverbs of time and place, that are sometimes flexible, and sometimes rigid. These nouns are:

- قَبْل « before »
- بَعْد « after »
- دُون « beneath »,
- أَسْفَل « lower »
- فَوْق « above »
- تَحْتَ « under »
- قُدَّام, أَمَام « in front »
- وَرَاء, خَلْف « behind »
- عَلُو, عُلُو « on top »
- أَوَّل « first »

Also usually included with these are¹⁴:

- يَمِين « right »
- شِمَال « left »
- آخِر « last »

Collectively, we will call them قَبْل and its sisters.

We have already seen some of these being used as adverbs of time or place. The cases for determining when they are flexible and when rigid are as follows:

- a. When used as annexed nouns with a mentioned annexed-to noun: When used as annexed nouns then قَبْل and its sisters are flexible. For example,

(43) قَامَ الْأَمِيرُ أَمَامَ الْجَيْشِ
« The commander stood in front of the army »

As we've previously discussed, instead of using these nouns as adverbs, it is common to also precede them with a preposition, like مِنْ. For example:

(44) قَامَ الْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامَ الْجَيْشِ
« The commander stood in front of the army »

In this case, whether قَبْل or one of its sisters is an adverb in the a-case, or following a preposition in the i-case, then it is flexible. This is indicated in the examples above by the fatḥah on its ending when in the a-case, and the kasrah when in the i-case.

- b. When used as annexed nouns but the annexed-to noun is not mentioned: Rarely, for stylistic reasons, the annexed-to noun in sentences like the example above is dropped. But the presence of the annexed-to noun is intended by the speaker. In such cases, the annexed noun will be flexible and without tanwīn. For example:

¹⁴See النحو الوافي 3/142, footnote 1 for references to the difference of opinion regarding them

(45) a. قَامَ الْأَمِيرُ أَمَامَ

b. قَامَ الْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامَ
«The commander stood in front [of the army]»

- c. More commonly, the annexed-to noun is deleted, both in expression and in intention, but the adverb is still understood to be bounded implicitly. In this case, قَبْل and its sisters will be rigid. Their ending will have a ḍammah regardless of whether they are in the a-case (as an adverb) or in the i-case (following مِنْ). For example:

(46) a. قَدِمَ الْجَيْشُ وَقَامَ الْأَمِيرُ أَمَامَ

b. قَدِمَ الْجَيْشُ وَقَامَ الْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامَ
«The army arrived, and the commander stood in front (of the army)»

This usage is quite common. Much more so than case b. where the annexed-to noun is dropped only stylistically.

- d. Lastly, قَبْل and its sisters may occur as indefinite nouns without an implicit or explicit annexed-to noun. They then have an absolute and unbounded meaning. In this case, they are flexible. For example,

(47) a. قَامَ الْأَمِيرُ أَمَامًا

b. قَامَ الْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامَ
«The commander stood in front»

In the example above, we can see that أَمَام is a flexible noun due to its tanwīn.

The difference in meaning between some of these cases is quite subtle. In practice, cases a. and c. are more common. And case b. is rare.

Here are some more examples:

(48) مصنف ابن [يُخْرِجُ غِلْمَانَهُ إِلَى الْحَجِّ فَلَا يُحْرِمُونَ مِنْ ذِي الْحُلَيْفَةِ، يُحْرِمُونَ مِنْ أَمَامِ ذَلِكَ
14178]: أَبِي شَيْبَةَ

«He would take his (slave) boys out for the Ḥajj. But they would not enter iḥrām from Ḍhu l-Ḥulayfah; they would enter iḥrām from before that [location].»

The words أَوَّل and أَسْفَل also have some rules that are specific to them and we will treat them separately in section (ref).

35.9. Similarity between adverbs of time/place and prepositions

Adverbs of time/place, (especially directional adverbs of time/place like **فَوْقَ** «above», **أَمَامَ** «in front (of)», etc.) and prepositions have much similarity. For example, if we say

- (49) **بُنِيَ فَوْقَ قَوَاعِدَ**
«It was built above foundations.»

and

- (50) **بُنِيَ عَلَى قَوَاعِدَ**
«It was built on foundations.»

they are very similar in construction and also in meaning. The main difference is that **فَوْقَ** is a noun, whereas **عَلَى** is a preposition. Another similarity is that adverbs of time/place, like prepositions, need to be meaningfully *pertinent to* a verb, or verb-like noun¹⁵ (see Section 30.1). In examples (992) and (993) above, **فَوْقَ** and **عَلَى** are pertinent to the verb **بُنِيَ** «to be built».

The pertinentee of a adverb of time/place is also its governor, as we will see in Section 35.10 below.

35.10. The governor of the adverb of time and place

The adverb of time/place is a a-case dispensable element. As such, it needs to be governed by a verb, or a verb-like noun like a *maṣdar*, doer participle, or any of the other deverbal nouns.

So, for example, if we say:

- (51) **سَرْتُ الْيَوْمَ**
«I travelled today.»

then, the adverb of time **الْيَوْمَ** «today» is governed by the verb **سَارَ** «to travel».

Essentially the adverb of time/place is an a-case doer of a verb. As such, if it is governed by a deverbal noun, like an doer participle, then the conditions for governing a doer need to be satisfied. We discussed such conditions for the doer participle in Section 28.5, and the doer participle in ?@sec-shuroot_i3maal_ism_maful.

One of those conditions, for the the deverbal nouns in general, is that they must signify an imperfect aspect, not a perfect aspect. One of the examples we gave, was that we cannot say:

- (52) **هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَمْسَ** × [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«This [person] beat Zayd yesterday.»

¹⁵ 3/113 معاني النحو

Instead, we have to say:

- (53) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيْدٍ أَمْسَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] 3/106
«This [person] was the beater of Zayd yesterday.»

These examples show that the doer participle ضَارِبُ can not govern زَيْد as a direct doee, if it signifies a perfect aspect. But the question is: how is the adverb of time/place أَمْسَ in example (996) then governed?

The way to analyze this, while remaining consistent with the established conditions, is to assume a taqdired verb which matches the doer participle. And it is this taqdired verb which will govern the adverb of time/place أَمْسَ, thus:

- (54) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيْدٍ [ضَرَبَهُ] أَمْسَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] 3/106
«This [person] was the beater of Zayd. [He beat him] yesterday.»

In general, much leniency is afforded to adverbs of time/place, compared to other doees. And governors for them, if not expressed in surface speech, are readily taqdired.

Here are some more scenarios where the adverb of time/place has a taqdired governor:

When the adverb of time/place is in response to a question

Consider the following question and answer sequences:

- (55) مَتَى صُمْتُ---يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] 1/521
«—When did you fast?—The day of Friday.»
- (56) كَمْ سِرْتُ---فَرَسَخَيْنِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] 1/521
«—How much did you travel?—Two parasangs.»

In examples (998) and (999) above, The answers are adverbs of time/place by themselves. Their governors are (optionally) deleted verbs which match the verbs in the questions. The taqdirs for the answers are:

- (56) صُمْتُ [يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ] [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] 1/521
«[I fasted] the day of Friday.»
- (57) سِرْتُ [فَرَسَخَيْنِ] [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] 1/521
«[I travelled] two parasangs.»

When the adverb of time/place is a attribute

Consider the following sentence:

- (57) مَرَرْتُ بِطَائِرٍ فَوْقَ غُصْنٍ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] 1/521
«I passed by a bird above a branch.»

In example (1002) above, the adverb of place فَوْق is not pertinent to/governed by the verb مَرَّ. This is because it is the bird which was above the branch, not that my action of passing was above the branch. So who then is the governor of the adverb of place فَوْق?

In such cases, we assume the general existence (represented by مُسْتَقَرٌّ or كَائِنٌ) as the governor of the adverb of place فَوْق. The taqdir of example (1002) above is:

- (58) مَرَرْتُ بِطَائِرٍ [مُسْتَقَرٌّ] فَوْقَ غُصْنٍ
«I passed by a bird [being] above a branch.»

The general existence مُسْتَقَرٌّ is, strictly speaking, the attribute of طَائِر. This is the typical analysis when the noun (طَائِر) is indefinite.

Loosely speaking, however, we can say that the adverbial phrase فَوْقَ غُصْنٍ is a attribute of طَائِر.

Compare the above analysis with Section 30.10 which discussed the prepositional phrase as a attribute.

When the adverb of time/place is a ḥāl

- (59) 1/521 [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] رَأَيْتُ الْهَلَالَ بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ
«I saw the crescent between the clouds»

In example (1004) above, the governor of the adverb of place بَيْنَ is considered general existence [مُسْتَقَرٌّ], as a ḥāl. This is discussed in more detail in section ().

When the adverb of time/place is a info

Consider example (1005) below:

- (60) 1/521 [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] زَيْدٌ عِنْدَكَ
«Zayd is at your [house].»

عِنْدُ is an adverb of place. Its governor is general existence [مُسْتَقَرٌّ], which, technically, is the info. The taqdir is:

- (61) زَيْدٌ [مُسْتَقَرٌّ] عِنْدَكَ
«Zayd is [being] at your [place].»

Loosely speaking, we will say that the adverbial phrase عِنْدَكَ is the info.

Compare the above analysis with Section 30.8 which discussed the prepositional phrase as a info.

When the adverb of time/place is a connecting sentence

Consider example (1007) below:

- (62) 1/521 [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] رَأَيْتُ الَّذِي عِنْدَكَ
«I saw the one at your [place].»

عِنْدَ is an adverb of place. Its governor is general existence [اِسْتَقَرَّ], which, technically, is the connecting sentence. The taqdīr is:

(63) زَيْدٌ [اِسْتَقَرَّ] عِنْدَكَ

«I saw the one [who was being] at your [place].»

Loosely speaking, we will say that the adverbial phrase عِنْدَكَ is the connecting sentence.

When the adverb of time/place is preoccupied-from

Consider the sentence:

(64) [1/522 شرح التصريح على التوضيح] يَوْمَ الْخَمِيسِ صُمْتُ فِيهِ

«The day of Thursday, I fasted in it.»

In example () above, يَوْمَ is a adverb of time. Its governor cannot be the verb صُمْتُ after it because it is preoccupied by the prepositional phrase فِيهِ after it. So the governor of يَوْمَ is a deleted verb before it. The taqdīr is:

(65) [1/522 شرح التصريح على التوضيح] صُمْتُ يَوْمَ الْخَمِيسِ فِيهِ

«I fasted the day of Thursday in it.»

35.10.0.1. In certain examples from attested usage

Consider the sentence:

(66) [كتاب سيبويه 1/522 citing شرح التصريح على التوضيح] حِينَئِذٍ الْآنَ

«[That was] then. [This is] now.»

In example () above, حِينَ and الْآنَ are governed by deleted governors. The taqdīr is:

(67) [شرح التصريح على التوضيح] كان ما تقول واقعًا حين إذ كان كذا، واسمع الآن ما أقول لك [1/522]

«What you say happened at the time when such-and-such. Listen now to what I say to you.»

35.11. A adverb of time/place as a direct doee

A adverb of time/place may figuratively be considered a direct doee, and in that case be represented by an attached pronoun. For example:

(68) [1/119 التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه للفارسي] صُمْتُ يَوْمًا

«I fasted one day.»

In example () above, صَامَ is an intransitive verb, but it can be made transitive, due to latitude, when the doee is a adverb of time/place. So, يَوْمًا, in example () above, may be considered a direct doee. And in that case, it can be replaced by an attached pronoun, thus:

- (69) [1/119 التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه للفراسي] صُمْتُه
«I fasted it.»

If, however, *يَوْمًا* is parsed as a adverb of time, then it shouldn't be replaced directly with an attached pronoun. Instead a proposition (usually *في*) needs to be added, thus:

- (70) [1/119 التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه للفراسي] صُمْتُ فِيهِ
«I fasted it.»

Similarly, we can say:

- (71) [1/376 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ صُمْتُه
«The day of Friday, I fasted it.»

based on the taqdir:

- (72) [1/376 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] صُمْتُ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ صُمْتُه
«I fasted the day of Friday, I fasted it.»

35.12. Multiple adverbs of place with a single verb

35.12.1. Multiple adverbs with conjunctions

It is possible for multiple adverbs to be used with a single verb. This is regularly done with using particles like *وَ* and *فَ*. For example:

- (73) اَلْتَّمَسْتُهُ لَيْلًا وَنَهَارًا
«I searched for it night and day»
- (74) [2/202 معاني النحو] لَقِيتُهُ صَبَاحًا فَمَسَاءً
«I met him evening after morning.»
(i.e., every morning and evening.)
- (75) لَقِيتُهُ يَوْمًا فَيَوْمًا
«I met him day after day.»

35.12.2. Multiple adverbs without conjunctions

If particles like *وَ* and *فَ* are not used then multiple adverbs may be used for one verb in one of the following cases¹⁶:

- a. When one is an adverb of time and the other an adverb of place. For example:

¹⁶ 2/255 النحو الوافي

(74) أَجْلِسْ عِنْدِي سَاعَةً

«Sit with me an hour.» (عِنْد is an adverb of place and سَاعَة is a adverb of time.)

b. When both are adverbs of the same kind:

i. When the second adverb is a replacement for the first. For example:

(75) أَقَابِلُكَ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ ظَهْرًا [النحو الوافي 2/255]

«I will meet you Friday afternoon.»

(ظَهْر is a replacement for يَوْم and specifies when on Friday.)

ii. When the adverb is a comparative noun (see chapter (ref)). For example:

(76) الْمَرِيضُ الْيَوْمَ أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ أَمْسَ [النحو الوافي 2/256]

«The patient today is better than he (was) yesterday.»

35.12.3. Compound adverbs

Instead of using particles like وَ and فَ between adverbs, compound adverbs may be formed. There are two ways to form a compound adverb:¹⁷

a. Both adverbs end with a fatḥah without tanwīn. For example,

(77) لَقِيتُهُ يَوْمَ يَوْمَ

«I met him day after day.»

b. The adverbs form an annexation. For example,

(78) تَزُورُنَا صَبَاحَ مَسَاءَ [النحو الوافي 2/271]

«You visit us morning and night.»

Both options can be used more or less interchangeably. Unless there is a compound adverb with a set meaning. For example:

(79) دَرَجَةُ حَرَارَةِ الْجَوِّ بَيْنَ بَيْنَ

«The degree of the temperature of the air is intermediate.»

35.13. Some commonly used adverbs of time and place

35.13.1. هُنَا and هُنَاكَ

35.13.2. أَسْفَلَ

أَسْفَلَ is actually a comparative noun, meaning «lower». And even when it is used as an adverb of place, it is with this comparative meaning.¹⁸

¹⁷ 2/202-204 معاني النحو، 2/271 النحو الوافي

¹⁸ 79 شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب

Most of the directional nouns, like **أَمَامَ**, **خَلْفَ**, **وَرَاءَ**, **فَوْقَ**, and **تَحْتَ** are used as annexed nouns. For example, **فَوْقَ الْأَرْضِ** means «above the Earth.»

We have learned that comparative nouns are used with the preposition **مِنْ** to express their «-er» meaning. For example **أَكْبَرُ مِنَ الْبَيْتِ** «bigger than the house.» They may also be used as annexed nouns to express their «-est» meaning. For example, **أَكْبَرُ الْبُيُوتِ**, **أَكْبَرُ بَيْتٍ** «biggest house.»

أَسْفَلَ too may be used in both these formations. We will discuss them below:

35.13.2.1. **أَسْفَلَ** used before **مِنْ**

Usually **أَسْفَلَ** is used with **مِنْ** to express the adverb of place «lower (than)» Here are some examples of **أَسْفَلَ**, as an adverb of place:

- (80) **وَالرَّكْبُ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ** [8:42: سورة الأنفال]¹⁹
«and the caravan was lower [in position] than you»
- (81) **زَيْدٌ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكَ** [3/289: كتاب سيبويه]
«Zayd is lower than you.»
- (82) **وَضَعَ رَاِحَتَيْهِ عَلَى رُكْبَتَيْهِ وَجَعَلَ أَصَابِعَهُ أَسْفَلَ مِنْ ذَلِكَ** [1036: سنن النسائي]
«He put his palms on his knees and put his fingers lower than that.»
- (83) **نَهَى رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ أَنْ يَقُومَ الْإِمَامُ فَوْقَ شَيْءٍ وَالنَّاسُ خَلْفَهُ يَغْنِي**
[1692: مشكاة المصابيح] **أَسْفَلَ مِنْهُ**
«The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ forbade that the imām should stand on anything when the people are behind him, meaning lower than him.»

Note, in the examples above, that **أَسْفَلَ** does not have tanwīn. This is because it is a semi-flexible noun.

Now, in the case of **قَبْلَ** and its sisters we saw that their rigidity and flexibility is determined by whether or not they are annexed nouns and if they have annexed-to nouns in an annexation.

But **أَسْفَلَ**, when used with before **مِنْ** as an adverb of place, is not an annexed noun. So its rigidity and flexibility is determined by whether or not it is compared to a noun (with **مِنْ**):

If the adverb of place **أَسْفَلَ** is followed by **مِنْ** and a compared noun, then it is flexible. By the way, there may be another **مِنْ** before **أَسْفَلَ** as well, as we learned in section (ref). Here is an example,

- (81) **إِذْ جَاءُوكُمْ مِنْ فَوْقِكُمْ وَمِنْ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ** [33:10: سورة الأحزاب]
«[Remember] when they came at you from above you and from below you»

And if the adverb of place **أَسْفَلَ** is not followed by **مِنْ** and a compared noun, but the adverb is still understood to be bounded implicitly, then it will be rigid ending with a ḍammah. For example:

¹⁹ (وَقَرَأَ زَيْدٌ بِنُ عَلَيْهِ: أَسْفَلَ) سورة الأنفال for البحر المحیط لأبي حيان

- (82) [621: صحيح البخاري] وَقَالَ بِأَصَابِعِهِ وَرَفَعَهَا إِلَى فَوْقٍ وَطَاطَأَ إِلَى أَسْفَلٍ
 «and he gestured with his fingers and raised them up upward and lowered [them] downward.»
- (83) [137: فقه اللغة للعلالي] وَالطَّفْرُ وَثَبُّ مَنْ أَسْفَلَ إِلَى فَوْقٍ
 «and *atṭafr* is a leap from down to up.»

35.13.2.2. أَسْفَلَ as an annexed noun

Most of the time, we will want to say that something is *below* or *lower than* another thing. In this case, we will use أَسْفَلَ مِنْ as we have described above.

However, sometimes, we may want to say that something is at the *lowest* place. In this case, we can use أَسْفَلَ as an annexed noun to be an adverb of place.²⁰

For example,

- (83) [1/484: النحو الوافي] نَعْلُكَ أَسْفَلَ رِجْلِكَ
 «Your sandal is (at) the lowest [part] of your foot.»
 (Note the partitive meaning of أَسْفَلَ annexed to a singular annexed-to noun.)

35.13.2.3. Non-adverbial use of أَسْفَلَ

By the way, أَسْفَلَ need not always be an adverb of place. It may be used like other common nouns. In the following example, it is the doer of a verb and also an annexed noun.

- (84) [1059: سنن أبي داود] لَمْ تَتَبَتَّلْ أَسْفَلُ نَعَالِهِمْ
 «The lower [part] of their sandals did not get wet.»

35.13.3. أَوَّل

أَوَّل is used as an adverb of time, meaning «first»

Much of what we have said about أَسْفَلَ applies also to the noun أَوَّل.

However there is some difference from أَسْفَلَ:

- The meaning of «first» is inherently superlative. In English we don't say that something is *more first than* another thing. We can try to capture this meaning by translating it as «prior to».
- أَوَّل, despite being on the pattern أَفْعَل, is irregular in that it can take tanwin when used in an absolute and unbounded sense.

²⁰See ظرف أَسْفَلَ (ثُمَّ رَدَدْنَاهُ أَسْفَلَ سَافِلِينَ) 95:5 سورة التين for تفسير ابن عاشور

35.13.3.1. مِنْ أَوَّل used before مِنْ

مِنْ is a semi-flexible noun when used with مِنْ:

- (85) [7510: صحيح البخاري] لَا تَسْأَلُهُ عَنْ شَيْءٍ أَوَّلَ مِنْ حَدِيثِ الشَّفَاعَةِ
 «Don't ask him about anything prior to the ḥadīth of intercession»
- (86) [1641: صحيح البخاري] لَا تَبْتَدِئَانِ بِشَيْءٍ أَوَّلَ مِنَ الْبَيْتِ، تَطُوفَانِ بِهِ
 «They_{2f} would not begin with anything prior to the House, performing the ṭawāf around it.»

When مِنْ is not used but أَوَّل is implicitly bounded then it is rigid with a ḍammah on its ending:

- (86) [4924: صحيح البخاري] أَيُّ الْقُرْآنِ أُنْزِلَ أَوَّلَ
 «Which [part] of the Qur'ān was revealed first (of all the sūrah)s?»
- (87) [753: سنن ابن ماجه] أَيُّ مَسْجِدٍ وُضِعَ أَوَّلَ
 «Which mosque was established first (of all the mosques)?»

When أَوَّل is used in an absolute and unbounded sense, then it takes tanwīn despite being on the pattern أَفْعَل:

- (87) [1062: سنن النسائي] يَبْتَذِرُونَهَا أَيُّهُمْ يَكْتُبُهَا أَوَّلًا
 «They (were) rushing (to see) which of them would write it first»
- (88) [20165: مسند أحمد ط الرسالة] وَأَمَّا الدَّارُ الَّتِي دَخَلْتَ أَوَّلًا فَدَارُ عَامَّةِ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ
 «And as for the house that you entered first, it was for the common people of the Muslims.»
- (89) [1700: مشكاة المصابيح] أَيُّهُمَا جَاءَ أَوَّلًا عَمِلَ عَمَلُهُ
 «Which of them came first [that] did his deed?»

35.13.3.2. أَوَّل as an annexed noun

Like أَشْفَل, when أَوَّل can be used as an annexed noun as well, even when it is an adverb of time. For example

- (88) [739: صحيح مسلم] كَانَ يَنَامُ أَوَّلَ اللَّيْلِ
 «He used to sleep the first [part] of the night»

The usage of أَوَّل as an annexed noun when it is an adverb of time is probably not as uncommon as it is for أَشْفَل.

35.13.3.3. Non-adverbial use of أَوَّل

Just like أَوَّل, أَسْفَل need not be used adverbially. Here it is as the info of a sentence and an annexed noun:

- (89) [6:163 سورة الأنعام] وَأَنَا أَوَّلُ الْمُسْلِمِينَ
« and I am the first [among you] of the Muslims. »

Even when used non-adverbially, أَوَّل may take tanwīn. For example, here it is the subject of إِنَّ in the a-case:

- (90) [151: جامع الترمذي] إِنَّ لِلصَّلَاةِ أَوَّلًا وَآخِرًا
« Indeed the prayer has a first [time] and a last [time] »

35.13.4. بَعْد

- used for time and place
- meaning « yet »

35.13.5. ذَات

35.14. TODO

- (91) ثُمَّ مَوْعِدُكَ مَكَانٌ كَذَا وَكَذَا
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794/21044#p1>
- (92) وَلِكَيْ يَرَاهُ انْطَلَقَ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794/19824>
- (93) وَلَكِنْ وَاللَّهِ لَا تَجْتَمِعُ ابْنَتُهُ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ، وَابْنَتُهُ عَدُوُّ اللَّهِ مَكَانًا وَاجِدًا
أَبَدًا
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794/15437>
- (94) [388a: صحيح مسلم] إِنَّ الشَّيْطَانَ إِذَا سَمِعَ النَّدَاءَ بِالصَّلَاةِ ذَهَبَ حَتَّى يَكُونَ مَكَانَ الرُّوحَاءِ

Work in progress

Chapter 36.

The absolute doee

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

36.1. Introduction

The absolute doee is, fundamentally, the verb taking it's own maṣḍar as a doee in the a-case. For example,

- (1) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا ضَرْبًا
“Zayd beat ʿAmr a beating”

In the above example ضَرْبًا is the maṣḍar of the verb ضَرَبَ and is governed by it in the a-case as its absolute doee.

This sort of sentence is unfamiliar in English, as evinced by its awkward translation, “Zayd beat ʿAmr a beating.” Nevertheless, we can find some parallels so you can get a feel for it:

- (2) 1. “He died an honorable death.”
2. “He slept the sleep of the just.”
3. “He lived two lives.”

The absolute doee is somewhat different from the direct doee in that the direct doee only occurs for transitive verbs. Whereas, the absolute doee can occur for any verb, whether transitive or intransitive. Also, the absolute doee is effectively an adverb because it qualifies the meaning of the verb as we will learn in this chapter, if Allāh wills.

The absolute doee is used for the following purposes:

1. To reinforce or emphasize the meaning of the governing verb.
2. To qualify the meaning of the governing verb.
3. To act as a deputy for the governing verb, substituting it and fulfilling it's role.

36.2. The reinforcing absolute doee

Reinforcing and emphasizing the meaning of the governing verb is the basic function of the absolute doee. Consider again our earlier example:

- (3) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا ضَرْبًا
“Zayd beat ʿamr a beating”

The absolute doee ضَرْبًا signifies that beating actually occurred, as if to counter any possible suspicion that it didn't. If the usage of the governing verb can support both a literal and a metaphorical meaning, then the absolute doee can also signify that the meaning of the verb is literal, and not metaphorical.¹

For greater emphasis, the maṣdar may be repeated.² For example,

The reinforcing absolute doee, when used purely for emphasis and not also for other purposes, cannot be dualized or pluralized. So we cannot say × وَعَدْتُكَ وَعُدَا (“I promised you promises”).³ Though, this sentence is correct for the other purposes of the absolute doee, which we will learn in subsequent sections, if Allāh wills.

36.3. The qualifying absolute doee

With regard to the meaning of the governing verb, the qualifying absolute doee indicates either what kind was intended, or its quantity, or both.

The kind of the maṣdar is frequently used with a attribute or in an annexation. For example,

- (4) ضَرَبْتُهُ ضَرْبًا شَدِيدًا [Wright 2/54A]
“I beat him (with) a severe beating.”
(5) ضَرَبَهُ ضَرْبُ الظَّالِمِ [Wright 2/54B]
“He beat him (with) the beating of an oppressor.”

Such a qualifying absolute doee may also be signified simply with the definite article ال. ⁴ For example, if a specific kind of beating is known before-hand to both the speaker and addressee, then the speaker may simply say:

- (5) أَضْرِبُهُ الضَّرْبَ
“I will beat him (with) *the* beating.”

The qualifying maṣdar may also be annexed to a pronoun referring to the doer of the verb. For example,

- (6) ضَرَبَ ضَرْبَهُ
“He beat him (with) his beating”

¹See معاني النحو 2/194–195. But see also تفسير ابن القيم for سورة النساء 4:164 (وَكَلَّمَ اللَّهُ مُوسَى تَكْلِيمًا) and تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة النمل 27:50 (وَمَكْرًا وَمَكْرًا مَكْرًا)

²Wright 2/55B

³النحو الوافي 2/211

⁴النحو الوافي 2/207 (footnote 4)

The quantity of the maṣdar often uses the *one-time noun*. It may be dualized or pluralized. For example,

- (7) صَرَبْتُهُ صَرْبَةً وَصَرَبَنِي صَرَبَتَيْنِ أَوْ صَرَبَاتٍ [Wright 2/53D]
 “I beat him one blow and he beat me two blows or (three or more) blows.”

Some maṣdars themselves end with a ة, like تَلَاوَةٌ, so they are readily dualized or pluralized⁵ (to the sound *āt* plural) without resorting to the one-time noun. For example,

- (8) تَلَا الْقَارِئُ تِلَاوَاتٍ
 “The reader recited recitations.”

But in reality, when a maṣdar is dualized or pluralized in this manner, it seems to leave its maṣdar meaning, which is purely a verbal meaning, and begins to denote a regular (non-verbal) noun.⁶ So تِلَاوَاتٍ will denote, not so much the actions of reciting but kinds of recitations.

The same goes for maṣdars that don't end with a ة but for whom a broken plural has been recorded from Classical Arabic, like غُلُومٌ, which is the plural of عِلْمٌ “knowledge”, and وُعُودٌ which is the plural of وَعْدٌ “promise”.

So we can say:

- (9) وَعَدْتُكَ وُعُودًا
 “I promised you promises.”

وُعُودٌ here refers to different kinds or occasions of promises, rather than the purely verbal actions of promising.⁷

Plurals have not been recorded for all maṣdars. For example, صَرَبٌ does not have a recorded plural for its maṣdar meaning of “beating”.

So can we pluralize it if we wish to say “I beat him (many) kinds of beatings”? Some authorities allow us to form a new broken plural if there is a need.⁸ So according to them we should be able to coin a new plural صُرُوبٌ⁹ “beatings” and say,

- (10) صَرَبْتُهُ صُرُوبًا
 “I beat him (many kinds of) beatings”

Other authorities are more conservative and would only allow using broken plurals for existing meanings of words if one has been recorded for them. Following this opinion, we might then say:

- (11) صَرَبْتُهُ أَنْوَاعًا مِنَ الصَّرْبِ
 “I beat him (many) kinds of beatings”

⁵ 817 الكليات للكفوي 137D citing دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي

⁶ المصباح وحاشية ياسين على التصريح 137–138 citing دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي

⁷ See also سورة الأحزاب 33:10 تفسير ابن عاشور

⁸ 139 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي

⁹ this plural already exists for صَرَبٌ but for its other meaning “example”

In any case, any maṣdar may at least be dualized to indicate the kinds of its action.¹⁰ So we can say:

- (12) ضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَيْنِ [Wright 2/55D]
 “He beat me two (kinds of) beatings.”
 or
 “He beat me (on) two (occasions of) beatings.”

By the way, you should be able to see that saying ضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَيْنِ is different from if we had said

- (13) ضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَتَيْنِ
 “He beat me (with) two blows.”

The former signifies the kinds or occasions of beating whereas the latter indicates the number of individual acts of beating.

By the way, for maṣdars that themselves end with ة, if we wish to specify that the action occurred only once, we cannot, of course, form a one-time noun by appending another ة to it. In such a case, we may qualify the maṣdar with the attribute وَاجِدَةً “once”. For example:

- (14) رَحِمَهُ رَحْمَةً وَاجِدَةً [Wright 1/123C]
 “He took one mercy upon him.”

It is also important to mention that the qualifying absolute doee includes the reinforcing meaning.¹¹ We cannot use the qualifying absolute doee without also emphasizing the meaning of the verb. For example,

- (15) فَاصْبِرْ صَبْرًا جَمِيلًا [سورة المعارج 70:5]
 “So be patient with gracious patience”

In section (ref), we will see that in order to only qualify the verb without emphasizing it, we can substitute the verb with the absolute doee which then becomes a *deputy to the verb*.¹²

Finally, the qualifying absolute doee may qualify both the kinds and quantity of the meaning of the verb. For example:

- (16) قَرَأْتُ الْكِتَابَ قِرَاءَتَيْنِ نَافِعَتَيْنِ [النحو الوافي 2/209]
 “I read the book two useful readings.”

36.4. The deputy to the maṣdar as an absolute doee

Frequently, instead of using the maṣdar as the absolute doee directly, it is substituted by another word. This word is then called the deputy to the maṣdar

¹⁰ النحو الوافي 2/212

¹¹ النحو الوافي 2/207–209

¹² معاني النحو 2/203

as an absolute doee because it fulfils the absolute doee's role. The maṣḍar may still figure in the expression. It will just not technically be the absolute doee, because the first a-case doee in that position is now its deputy.

The deputy to the maṣḍar can be one of several categories:

A attribute to a deleted maṣḍar

For example:

- (17) *صَرَبْتُهُ شَدِيدًا* [Wright 2/54A]
 "I beat him severely."
 (for *صَرَبْتُهُ صَرَبًا شَدِيدًا* "I beat him a severe beating.")
- (18) *أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكَ إِلَى أَلْفِيَةِ ابْنِ مَالِكٍ لَابِنِ هِشَامٍ سَبْرْتُ أَحْسَنَ السَّبْرِ* [2/184]
 "I travelled the best (kind) of travelling."
 (for *سَبْرْتُ السَّبْرِ أَحْسَنَ السَّبْرِ*)

When the maṣḍar is thus substituted with its attribute, then the masculine adjectival noun is typically used for the attribute, even if the maṣḍar was a feminine noun. For example:

- (18) *كَتَبُوا سَرِيعًا*
 "They wrote quickly."
 (for *كَتَبُوا كِتَابَةً سَرِيعَةً*)

This is because even when maṣḍars end with a feminine marker, they are abstract enough in their meaning that when they are absent, only the idea of them retains influence, not their actual wording. And because that abstract idea is not feminine in its meaning, it doesn't cause the attribute to match the feminine wording of the maṣḍar in gender. So, by default, the masculine adjectival noun is used for the attribute.

Also, the a-case adjectival noun in such phrases as *صَرَبْتُهُ شَدِيدًا* may, where the sense allows or requires it, be a deputy to the adverb of time instead of a deputy to the absolute doee.¹³ For example: *سَارُوا طَوِيلًا* "They travelled a long time," (for *سَارُوا زَمَنًا طَوِيلًا*. See section (ref).)

In fact, according to some authorities, when the a-case noun in such phrases could be applied to both a deleted absolute doee or a deleted adverb of time (or, for that matter, other a-case functions like a direct doee), then it is possible that both meanings could be intended.¹⁴ For example,

- (19) *صَرَبْتُهُ كَثِيرًا*
 "I beat him a lot."

This sentence could mean, at the same time, both *صَرَبْتُهُ صَرَبًا كَثِيرًا* "I beat him a lot [of beatings]," and *صَرَبْتُهُ زَمَنًا كَثِيرًا* "I beat him (for) a lot [of time]."

¹³Wright 2/54D

¹⁴معاني النحو 2/196–199

An entity noun→maṣḍar crossover

The entity noun→maṣḍar crossover may be a regular common noun that is used in place of a verb's maṣḍar (see (ref)).

For example:

- (20) صَحِيحٌ [فَرَجَعَ إِلَى قَوْمِهِ فَقَالَ يَا قَوْمِ اسْلِمُوا فَإِنَّ مُحَمَّدًا يُعْطِي عَطَاءً لَا يَخْشَى الْفَاقَةَ] (2312a: مسلم)
 “So he returned to his people and said, ‘O my people, embrace Islām for indeed Muḥammad gives a gift not fearing want.’”
 (إِعْطَاء “gift” is a entity noun→maṣḍar crossover for the actual maṣḍar عَطَاءُ.)

- (21) أَنْهَزَمُوا هَزِيمَةً شَنِيعَةً [Wright 2/56B]
 “They were defeated an atrocious defeat”
 (The maṣḍar of أَنْهَزَمَ is properly هَزَامٌ)

Also falling under the category of entity noun→maṣḍar crossover is the maṣḍar of another form of the verb from the same root.¹⁵ For example:

- (21) أَفْتَتَلُوا قِتَالًا شَدِيدًا [Wright 2/56B]
 “They fought with one another a hard fight”
 (قَاتَلَ is properly the maṣḍar of the form 3 verb قَاتَلَ)
- (22) [سورة المزمل 73:8] وَتَبَتَّلْ إِلَيْهِ تَتَبَّلًا
 “and devote yourself to Him with [complete] devotion”
 (بَتَّلَ is properly the maṣḍar of the form 2 verb تَبَتَّلَ)

A synonymous maṣḍar from a different root

For example:

- (22) جَلَسَ قُعُودًا [Wright 2/56C]
 “I sat (with) a sitting”

A noun that indicates the type of maṣḍar

For example:

- (23) رَجَعَ أَفْقَهْرِي [Wright 2/56C]
 “He returned walking backwards.”
 قَهْقَرِي is a noun which means “backward walk”.

A noun of manner of the pattern فُعْلَةٌ

For example:

- (24) [النحو الوافي 2/218] مَشَى الْقَطُ مَشْيَةَ الْأَسَدِ
 “The cat walked (with) the gait of a lion”

¹⁵ النحو الوافي 2/215

The number of the maṣḍar

For example:

- (25) صَرَبْتُ ثَلَاثَ صَرَبَاتٍ
“I beat him three blows”

The maṣḍar may also be omitted from the annexed-to noun such that only the number remains. For example:

- (26) صَرَبْتُ ثَلَاثًا
“I beat him three (blows)”
(Note the feminine number ثَلَاث instead of the masculine ثَلَاثَةٌ because the deleted annexed-to noun will be feminine in such circumstances.)

A partial or whole fraction

Words like كُلٌّ “all”; بَعْضٌ “some”; شَطْرٌ, نِصْفٌ “half”, etc. can be used to indicate how much of an action is done.

For example:

- (27) فَلَا تَبِيلُوا كُلَّ الْأَمَلِ [سورة النساء 4:129]
“So do not incline completely [toward one]”
(28) أَهْمَلُ الطَّالِبُ بَعْضَ الْإِهْمَالِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/452]
“The student was negligent somewhat”

Included in this category is the word شَيْءٌ “thing”. When used in the a-case governed by a verb it can signify the meaning “a bit” or “somewhat”, etc.¹⁶ For example:

- (28) فَسَارَ عَلِيٌّ شَيْئًا ثُمَّ وَقَفَ [2405: صحيح مسلم]
“So Āliyy went a bit, then he stopped”

The a-case noun شَيْئًا isn't always a absolute doee after a verb. It may be, depending on the meaning of the sentence, a direct doee. For example, in the وَجَدْتُ شَيْئًا “I found something.” However, in some circumstances, شَيْئًا may make sense both as an absolute doee and as a direct doee.¹⁷ For example:

- (29) وَلَا تُشْرِكُوا بِهِ شَيْئًا [سورة النساء 4:36]
“and associate nothing with Him”

Regarding this āyah, the mufasssīr Ibn ʿĀshūr says:

تُشْرِكُوا is in the a-case due to its being a [direct] doee for شَيْئًا, i.e. “Don’t make a partner anything from what is worshipped”, similar to His saying, وَلَنْ تُشْرِكَ بِرَبِّنَا أَحَدًا [سورة الجن 72:2] (“And we will never associate with our Lord anyone”).

¹⁶See, for example, كَدْتُ تُرَكُّنَ إِلَيْهِمْ شَيْئًا قَلِيلًا [سورة الإسراء 17:74] for تفسير ابن عاشور

¹⁷2/199 معاني النحو

And it is permissible that شَيْئًا is in the a-case due to its being [a deputy to] the maṣdar, i.e. “a bit of associating even if it is slight”, similar to His saying, فَلَنْ يَضُرُّوكَ شَيْئًا [سورة المائدة 5:42] (“never will they harm you at all.”).¹⁸

The instrument or implement used in the action

The type of action may be indicated with the the instrument or implement used in the action. For example:

- (30) ضَرَبْتُهُ سَوْطًا [Wright 2/56D]
 “I beat him (with) a whip.”
 (for ضَرَبَ سَوْطٍ)

A pronoun

A absolute doee can be substituted by a pronoun that refers to it.¹⁹ For example:

- (31) أَحْسَنَ الْإِكْرَامَ وَأَكْرَمَهُ ضَيْفَهُ
 “He perfected generosity and was generous (with it) [to] his guest.”
 (i.e., he was generous with the generosity)

A pointing noun

Similar to the pronoun as a deputy maṣdar absolute doee, a pointing noun may be used in the same vein. For example

- (32) 2/159 [النحو الواضح لعلی الجارم] الرَّجُلُ الْمَهْدَبُ لَا يُعَامِلُ النَّاسَ هَذِهِ الْمَعَامَلَةَ
 “The refined man does not deal with the people (with) this dealing.”
- (33) [Wright 2/54A] يَحْفَظُونَ أَسْرَارَهُمْ هَذَا الْحِفْظَ
 “They keep their secrets (with) this keeping”
 (i.e. so carefully)

36.5. The absolute doee with a deleted governing verb

The governing verb of the specifying absolute doee may be deleted if there is sufficient context or circumstance to supply its meaning. For example, in response to the question,

هَلْ جَلَسَ الزَّائِرُ عِنْدَكَ؟
 “Did the visitor sit with you?”
 one may reply:

¹⁸ سورة النساء for تفسير ابن عاشور 4:36

¹⁹ See also سورة المائدة for تفسير ابن عاشور 5:115 (فَأَنِّي أُعَذِّبُهُ عَذَابًا لَا أُعَذِّبُهُ أَحَدًا مِّنَ الْعَالَمِينَ)

(33) [2/219 النحو الوافي] جُلُوسًا طَوِيلًا

“A long sitting”

(for جَلَسَ جُلُوسًا طَوِيلًا “He sat a long sitting.”)

Similarly, if one sees a hunter striking his quarry with an arrow successfully, he might say:

(34) [2/219 النحو الوافي] إِصَابَةً سَرِيعَةً

“A quick striking”

(for أَصَابَ إِصَابَةً سَرِيعَةً “He struck a quick striking.”)

In both the above scenarios, the deleted governing verb is implied. So the complete sentence includes both the implied governing verb, and the absolute doee

36.6. The absolute doee as a deputy of the deleted governing verb

In some cases, the deleted governing verb is replaced by the absolute doee. The absolute doee is then a deputy of the deleted verb. This can be done in the following circumstances:

36.6.1. The absolute doee as a deputy of the verb in a command or supplication

For example, instead of using the verb of command أَصْبِرُوا “Be patient,” one may say:

(35) صَبْرًا

“Patience”

In terms of government, the complete sentence is أَصْبِرُوا صَبْرًا. The sentence أَصْبِرُوا is valid on its own right as a use of the reinforcing absolute doee. But that is not exactly what the utterance صَبْرًا, by itself, signifies. Rather the governing verb أَصْبِرُوا is substituted with the absolute doee, such that the verb is no longer present in meaning, and the absolute doee is now its deputy, fulfilling its role.

Why then would one choose to use a absolute doee instead of a verb?²⁰ The maṣḍar signifies only a meaning of the action of the verb. The verb signifies both the meaning of its maṣḍar and is also linked to a time in which the action originates, continues, or renews. So the verb is more temporary than its maṣḍar. Therefore, if we use a absolute doee instead of a verb, then it is not explicitly linked to any time, nor does it explicitly imply a renewal of the action. So the absolute doee as a deputy for the verb signifies a constancy and inseparableness of the action. Whereas the verb is a direct application of the action.

²⁰ معاني النحو 2/203

Secondly, the verb is necessarily tied to its doer. So, also in circumstances where the objective is the action itself, and not who does it, the absolute doer may be used as a deputy to the verb.

Here are some more examples of a absolute doer as a deputy for the verb:

- (36) قَالَ أَبُو لَهَبٍ تَبًّا لَكَ أَلِهَذَا جَمَعْتَنَا فَنَزَلَتْ تَبَّتْ يَدَا أَبِي لَهَبٍ [4973: صحيح البخاري]
 “Abū Lahab said: ‘A perishing for you! Is it for this (that) you have gathered us?’ So there was revealed: ‘May the hands of Abū Lahab be ruined’” [سورة
 المسد 111:1]
 (تَبَّ is a absolute doer of the verb تَبَّ “to perish”).

- (37) شُكِّرًا لَكُمْ
 “A thanking for you”
 (for أَشْكُرُكُ “I thank you.”)

- (38) سُبْحَانَ اللَّهِ “The glorification of Allāh!”
 (سُبْحَانَ is a entity noun→maṣḍar crossover for the verb سَبَّحَ “to glorify”).

In the above example, the sentence with the verb could be, e.g., أُسَبِّحُ سُبْحَانَ “I glorify the glorification of Allāh.” But again, though this may be a valid sentence on its own right, it is not exactly what the utterance سُبْحَانَ اللَّهِ, by itself, signifies. The entity noun→maṣḍar crossover سُبْحَانَ, as a deputy to the verb does not explicitly specify the verb or its doer. Rather, the entity noun→maṣḍar crossover سُبْحَانَ replaces its governing verb. The purpose is to mention the glorification of Allāh without being limited by a time limit for the action of the verb, or a need to mention the doer of the verb.²¹

Similarly,

- (37) مَعَاذَ اللَّهِ
 “The refuge of Allāh”
 (مَعَاذَ is a maṣḍar of غَاذَ يَغُوذُ “to seek refuge”).

Using the u-case maṣḍar instead of the absolute doer

In situations that call for a course of action, the u-case maṣḍar may optionally be used instead of using the (a-case) absolute doer.

For example, in a situation that calls for patience, one might say

- (38) صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ [2/206 معاني النحو]
 “A beautiful patience”

instead of saying صَبْرًا جَمِيلًا. Here, the implied meaning is الْأَمْرُ فِيهِ صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ “The thing to be done in the matter is a beautiful patience.”²²

The u-case maṣḍar (instead of the a-case absolute doer) has the force of more constancy and generality. Additionally, it can imply that the action called for has, in the speaker’s estimation, already begun and become established. Here are some more examples:

²¹ معاني النحو 2/206

²²See also (فَصْبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ) سورة يوسف for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

- (39) رَحْمَةُ اللَّهِ عَلَيْهِ [معاني النحو 2/206]
 “The mercy of Allāh on him”

- (40) وَيْحَ لَزَيْدٍ [Lane’s Lexicon, root ويح]
 “A mercy on Zayd”

In the above example, the following alternative (using the absolute doee) is also possible:

- (40) (1) وَيْحًا لَزَيْدٍ [Lane’s Lexicon, root ويح]
 (2) وَيْحَ زَيْدٍ [Lane’s Lexicon, root ويح]
 “A mercy on Zayd”
 (as though one were to say: أَلَزَمَهُ اللَّهُ وَيْحًا “May Allāh may mercy to attend him constantly!”)

The words وَيْلٌ, وَيْبٌ, and وَيْسٌ are used in a similar manner to وَيْحٌ above. These are all maṣḍars of disused verbs. وَيْحٌ and وَيْسٌ typically signify compassion and a mild chiding. Whereas وَيْلٌ and وَيْبٌ typically signify a severe chiding, calling for misfortune and destruction.

36.6.2. The absolute doee as a deputy of a verb that is a info

There is a set of circumstances where the governing verb can be deleted, and its place is taken by the absolute doee as its deputy. This is when the verb is the info of a nounal sentence, and the verb’s maṣḍar wouldn’t ordinarily be a info in the u-case for the subject.²³

Here are some examples that should illustrate what we mean:

Consider the sentence أَنْتَ تَأْكُلُ وَتَشْرِبُ “You are eating and drinking.” The verbs in this sentence may be deleted and each is substituted with its a-case absolute does as a deputy. So we can say:

- (41) أَنْتَ أَكَلًا وَشَرِبًا [معاني النحو 2/208]
 “You are eating and drinking.”
 (أَنْتَ تَأْكُلُ وَتَشْرِبُ for)

What allows this is that the maṣḍars أَكَلٌ شَرِبٌ wouldn’t ordinarily work as u-case infos for this subject. That is, we can’t say أَنْتَ أَكَلٌ وَشَرِبٌ ×. So when we use the maṣḍars in the a-case as absolute does (أَنْتَ أَكَلًا وَشَرِبًا), it is understood that they are acting as a deputy for their respected deleted verbs.

Here are some more examples:

- (42) الْمَطَرُ سَحًا سَحًا [النحو الوافي 2/225]
 “The rain (is) pouring (and) pouring.”
 (سَحٌّ is the maṣḍar of the verb سَحَّ يَسْحُ “to pour down abundantly (of rain)”)

²³ معاني النحو 2/209

- (43) [النحو الوافي] 2/226 مَا الْأَسَدُ مَعَ فَرِيَسَتِهِ إِلَّا فَتَكًا
 “The lion is not, with his prey, [anything] but slaying”
 (فَتَك is the maṣḍar of يَفْتِكُ “to assault and slay”)
- (44) [النحو الوافي] 2/222 أَسْفَاهَةٌ وَأَنْتَ مُتَّقِفٌ؟
 “[Do you act] foolishly while you are an educated [person]?”
 (سَفَاهَةٌ is the maṣḍar of يَسْفَهُ “to be foolish”)

As you can see from the examples above, these circumstances are usually limited to one of the following kind of sentences:

- a repeated maṣḍar
- multiple maṣḍars joined with conjunctive particles
- a restricted maṣḍar
- a maṣḍar that is asked about in a question

36.6.3. The absolute doee as a deputy for a verb in detailing a vague consequential action

This is a very specific circumstance where the absolute doee may occur as a deputy to a verb. Consider an action that is done as a consequence of some matter. If this consequential action is expressed only vaguely, then the following sentence can add detail to this vague action using absolute doees.²⁴ Here is an example:

- (44) [النحو] 2/224 إِنْ أَسَاءَ إِلَيْكَ الصَّدِيقُ فَأَسْلُكْ مَسْلَكَ الْعُقَلَاءِ. فَإِمَّا عِتَابًا كَرِيمًا وَإِمَّا صَفْحًا جَمِيلًا
 [النحو] 2/224
 If a friend does you wrong then take the path of the intelligent: So either an honorable reproving or a gracious pardoning”

In the example above, the consequential vague action is فَاسْلُكْ مَسْلَكَ الْعُقَلَاءِ “take the path of the intelligent”. The maṣḍars عِتَاب “reproving” and صَفْح “pardoning” are then used as absolute doees to detail this vague action, فَإِمَّا عِتَابًا كَرِيمًا وَإِمَّا صَفْحًا جَمِيلًا “So either an honorable reproving or a gracious pardoning.”²⁵

36.6.4. The absolute doee as a deputy for a verb in emphasizing the meaning of an entire sentence

One usage of the absolute doee as a deputy for a verb is in emphasizing the meaning of an entire sentence. The absolute doee in such cases are maṣḍars (or entity noun→maṣḍar crossovers) like:

- أَجَبْتُ حَقًّا “truly” for أَجَبْتُ حَقًّا “I assert a truth”
- أَوْقِنُ بَقِيًّا “certainly” for أَوْقِنُ بَقِيًّا “I ascertain a certainty”

²⁴ 1/459 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

²⁵ See also سورة محمد 47:4 (فِيمَا مَنَّا بَعْدُ وَإِمَّا فِدَاءً)

For example,

- (45) [6982: صحيح البخاري] تَبَيَّنَ لَهُ جِبْرِيلُ فَقَالَ يَا مُحَمَّدُ إِنَّكَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ حَقًّا
 “Gabriel would appear before him and say, ‘O Muḥammad! Indeed you are Allāh’s Messenger ﷺ truly’”

- (46) [4:157 سورة النساء] وَمَا قَتَلُوهُ يَقِينًا
 “And they did not kill him, for certain.”

36.6.5. The dualized absolute doee as a deputy of the verb

There are some absolute doees that are dualized and annexed to a pronoun in set phrases. The dual indicates a recurringness of the action. These include:

- أَلَبَّ يَلَبُّ is the entity noun→maṣdar crossover of the verb “to remain.” The a-case dualized maṣdar annexed to the addressee pronoun, لَبَّيْكَ, signifies “I remain for you (i.e. at your service] time after time.” A verb لَبَّيْ تَلَبُّيَّةٌ “to utter لَبَّيْكَ” is derived from this phrase.
- أَسْعَدُ يُسْعِدُ is the entity noun→maṣdar crossover of the verb “to help” The a-case dualized maṣdar annexed to the addressee pronoun, سَعْدُكَ, signifies “I am at your aid time after time.”
- خَنَّانُكَ – from خَنَّان “mercy”. خَنَّانُكَ signifies “Let your mercy be continuous to me.”
- دَوَالِيكَ – from دَوَالٍ which is equivalent to مَدَاوِلَةٌ and تَدَاوُلٌ “taking by turns”. دَوَالِيكَ signifies “Make (you) the action to be done by turns.”
- حَذَارِيكَ – from حَذَارٍ “Beware”. حَذَارِيكَ signifies “Twice beware!”

36.7. Differentiating the absolute doee from the other a-case doees

The absolute doee is a kind of doee. Other kinds of doees include the direct doee, the adverb of time and the adverb of place, and the adverb of reason. Generally, all adverbs can be considered to be in the category of doees. All doees are governed by verbs and occur in the a-case.

Sometimes it is not easy to disambiguate the exact function of an a-case noun occurring as a doee. We have already seen some instances of this. For example, we mentioned that in example (1070) ضَرْبُهُ كَثِيرًا, that the a-case doee كَثِيرًا could be analyzed as either a absolute doee or a adverb of time, depending on context.

Similarly, in example (1083) وَلَا تُشْرِكُوا بِهِ شَيْئًا [36: سورة النساء] “and associate nothing with Him”, شَيْئًا has been analyzed to support both a absolute doee meaning and a direct doee meaning.

For some verbs, their maṣdars are re-used as common nouns. For example:

- أَكَلَ يَأْكُلُ أَكْلًا – أَكْلٌ is re-used to mean “a food”
- صَادَ يَصِيدُ صَيْدًا – صَيْدٌ is re-used to mean “a prey”
- قَالَ يَقُولُ قَوْلًا – قَوْلٌ is re-used to mean “a saying” or “a speech”

- سَأَلَ is re-used to mean “a question” – سَأَلَ يَسْأَلُ سُؤَالًا

When these nouns are in the a-case governed by their verb, then how do we tell whether they are a absolute doee or a direct doee? For example:

- (46) أَكَلَ زَيْدٌ أَكْلًا
 “Zayd ate an eating.”
 or
 “Zayd ate a food.”

By itself, أَكْلًا supports both functions of the direct doee and the absolute doee. And we have to look at context to see which of the two meanings the speaker intended.

Sometimes, if the a-case doee is qualified, then that can help us distinguish between the two functions. For example,

- (47) أَكَلَ زَيْدٌ أَكْلًا سَرِيعًا
 “Zayd ate a fast eating”
 (i.e. “Zayd ate quickly.”)

In the above example, the attribute سَرِيع “fast” is applied to the attributee أَكْلًا. Now, unless Zayd was eating “fast food” (unlikely in classical times), the attribute applies to the manner in which Zayd was eating. Hence أَكْلًا is a absolute doee and not a direct doee.

Sometimes, the qualifier may be applicable to both the absolute doee and the doee. Yet each meaning will be distinct. For example,

- (48) صَادَ زَيْدٌ صَيْدَ الْأَسَدِ
 “Zayd hunted (in the manner of) the hunting of a lion.”
 or
 “Zayd hunted the lion’s prey.”

In the above example, the doee صَيْد is qualified in an annexation with the annexed-to noun الْأَسَد “the lion”. But the qualifier is applicable to both meanings of صَيْد: the absolute doee meaning: “hunting”, and the direct doee meaning: “prey”. When applied to the absolute doee meaning then the sentence means that Zayd hunted in a ferocious and daring manner, like a lion does. And when applied to the direct doee meaning then the sentence means that Zayd hunted a prey which was (previously) the prey of a lion. However, both of these meanings are distinct from each other. In this sort of case, context should help in figuring out the intended meaning.

In the case of maṣḍars like أَكَلَ and صَيْدَ, when they are re-used as common nouns, then their existence is not tied to the action of the verb. For example, أَكَلَ, meaning “food”, exists prior to the action of eating. And صَيْدَ, meaning “prey” exists prior to the action of hunting.

But in the case of maṣḍars like قَوْلَ and سُؤَالَ, even when they are a direct doee, they only come into existence with the action of their verb. So there is no قَوْلَ, either as a absolute doee or as a direct doee, before the action of “saying”

And there is no سُؤَال, either as a absolute doee or as a direct doee, before the action of “asking”.

In such cases, even when a qualifier is applied, the line between the absolute doee and the direct doee can remain blurry. And that is not really a big deal because both meanings will be similar. For example,

(49) سَأَلَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا سُؤَالًا صَعْبًا

“He asked a difficult questioning.”

(i.e. the questioning was difficult upon ʿamr)

or

“He asked a difficult question.”

This sort of ambiguity can sometimes be found in the other adverb does as well.

36.8. Candidates for governing the absolute doee

The verb is the fundamental governor of the doer and the doee. But we have seen (in sections (ref)), that nouns that have a verbal quality to them, like the maṣḍar, the doer participle, etc., can also govern a doer and a doee.

So a absolute doee may occur, governed by either a verb (as we have seen), or a doer participle, or a doee participle, or a static adjectival noun, or even another maṣḍar.

Here are some examples:

(50) 1/449 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] فَرَحْتُ بِأَجْتِهَادِكَ أَجْتِهَادًا حَسَنًا

“I rejoiced at your striving a good striving”

(the absolute doee أَجْتِهَادًا is governed by the preceding maṣḍar أَجْتِهَاد)

(51) 1/449 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] أَنَا مُكْرِمٌ خَالِدًا إِكْرَامًا عَظِيمًا

“I will honor Khālīd a great honoring.”

(the absolute doee إِكْرَامًا is governed by the doer participle مُكْرِمٌ)

Work in progress

Chapter 37.

The ḥāl

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

37.1. Introduction

The ḥāl (الْحَال) is a kind of adverb, governed typically by a verb, that describes the state of the *person of ḥāl* during the time that the ḥāl's governing verb is taking place. Here is an example of a ḥāl:

ḥāl person of ḥāl governor
جَاءَ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا .

“Zayd came riding”

In the example above, the usage of the ḥāl signifies that Zayd, while he was coming, was in a riding state.

37.2. Matching the ḥāl to the person of ḥāl

Consider again the example:

- (1) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا [Wright 2/112C]
“Zayd came riding”

The ḥāl رَاكِبًا is an adjectival noun matching the person of ḥāl زَيْدٌ in number (singular) and gender (masculine).

If the person of ḥāl is feminine in gender or more than one in number, then the ḥāl will match it accordingly. For example:

- (2) قَامَتْ ابْنَتُهُ إِلَيْهِ بَاكِئَةً [Fischer 196D]
“His daughter [went and] stood to him crying”

- (3) وَتَبَا مُسْرِعِينَ [صحيح البخاري: 4794]
 “they_{2m} got up hastening”
- (4) جَاءَ سَعِيدٌ وَخَالِدٌ رَاكِبِينَ [أحكام ومعان: 2/38]
 “Saeid and Khālīd came riding.”

For plurals, both sound and broken plurals may be used:

- (3) وَأَدْخُلُوا الْبَابَ سُجَّدًا [سورة البقرة: 2:58]
 “and enter the gate bowing humbly”
 (The person of ḥāl is the plural masculine doer pronoun in اَدْخُلُوا and the ḥāl سُجَّد is the plural of سَجَد.)
- (4) خَرَجْنَا مُتَوَجِّهِينَ إِلَى الْيَمَنِ [Fischer 196D]
 “We left heading towards Yemen”

As with attributes and infos, when the person of ḥāl is a plural of non-intelligent beings, the singular feminine is typically used for the ḥāl. For example:

- (4) صَالَتِ الْأَشْوَذُ عَلَى الْفَرَيْسَةِ فَاتِكَةً
 “The lions pounced on the prey slaying”

37.3. The governor of the ḥāl

The governor of the ḥāl may be one of the following:

A verb

The verb is the typical governor of the ḥāl. For example:

- (5) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا [Wright 2/113D]
 “Zayd came riding”

A maṣḍar

- (6) رُكُوبُكَ السَّيَّارَةَ مُسْرِعَةً خَطَرٌ عَلَيْكَ [أحكام ومعان: 2/51]
 “Your riding the car speeding is a danger for you.”

A quasi-verb

A quasi-verb is a deverbal verbal noun like an doer participle or an doer participle, or an adjectival noun, etc. For example:

- (7) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا قَائِمًا [Wright 2/113D]
 “Zayd is beating ʿamr standing.”
- (8) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/113D]
 “Zayd is handsome standing.”
- (9) زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ قَاعِدًا [Wright 2/114A]
 “Zayd, standing, is more handsome than him sitting.”

An expression that has verbal force

FIXME: Add more detail from شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/596.

An expression that has verbal force could be:

- a preposition or adverb of time or place with a following noun in the i-case
- a pointing noun
- a question-device
- a word like لَعَلَّ, كَأَنَّ, لَيْتَ

In such cases there will typically be the implicit existential verb “is” providing the verbal force.

Examples:

- (8) زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/114A]
“Zayd is in the house standing.” (the existential verb “is” is implied)
- (9) هَذَا عَمْرُو مُنْطَلِقًا [Wright 2/114A]
“This is ʿAmr (in the act of) setting out.”
- (10) وَهَذَا بَعْلِي شَيْخًا [سورة هود 11:72 cited by Wright 2/114B]
“and this, my husband, is an old man”
- (11) مَا شَأْنُكَ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/114B]
“What is your matter, standing?”
(i.e. “Why are you standing?”)
- (12) مَا لَكَ وَاقِفًا [Wright 2/114B]
“What (happened) to you, standing?”
(i.e. “Why are you standing?”)

37.4. Valid persons of ḥāl

The person of ḥāl may be the doer of the governing verb but it may also be the direct doee, or even other nouns in a sentence.

Let’s see some examples.

The person of ḥāl as a doer

- (9) فَخَرَجَ مِنْهَا خَائِفًا [سورة القصص 28:21]
“So he left it, fearful”

The person of ḥāl as a direct doee

- (10) وَأَرْسَلْنَاكَ لِلنَّاسِ رَسُولًا [سورة النساء 4:79]
“And We have sent you, [O Muḥammad], to the people as a messenger”
- (11) رَكِبْتُ الْفَرَسَ مُسَرَّجًا [Wright 2/113A]
“I rode the horse saddled”

The person of ḥāl as a deputy doer

- (11) 2/28 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] تُوْكَلُ الْفَاكِهَةُ نَاضِجَةً
“The fruit is eaten fresh”

The person of ḥāl as a subject

- (12) 2/28 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] الْفَاكِهَةُ لَذِيذَةٌ نَاضِجَةٌ
“The fruit is delicious (when it is) fresh.”

The person of ḥāl as a info

- (13) 2/28 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] هَذَا هُوَ الْهَلَالُ طَالِعًا
“This is the crescent (as it is) rising.”

The person of ḥāl in the i-case following a preposition

- (14) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ جَالِسًا [Wright 2/113A]
“I passed by Zayd (as he was) sitting.”
(15) كُنْتُ فِي الْبُسْتَانِ زَاهِرًا [Wright 2/113B]
“I was in the garden (while it was) in bloom.”

The person of ḥāl in the i-case in as the annexed-to noun in an annexation

The annexed-to noun in an annexation is permitted to be a person of ḥāl if it satisfies any one of the following conditions:

- i. When the annexed noun is naturally capable of being the governor of the ḥāl (as a maṣḍar or doer participle, etc.). For example:

- (15) أَعْجَبَنِي قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ مُسْرِعًا [Wright 2/119C]
“Zayd’s standing speedily pleased me.”
(The governor is the annexed noun قِيَامٌ which is a maṣḍar)
(16) إِلَى اللَّهِ مَرْجِعُكُمْ جَمِيعًا [سورة المائدة 5:105]
“To Allāh is your return all together”
(The governor is the annexed noun مَرْجِعٌ which is a maṣḍar)
(17) أَنْتَ شَارِبٌ أَلْمَاءٍ صَافِيًا [2/50 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
“You are drinking the water clear.” (The governor is the annexed noun شَارِبٌ which is a doer participle)

- ii. When the annexed noun is a real part of the annexed-to noun. For example:

- (16) 15:47 سورة الحجر] وَنَزَعْنَا مَا فِي صُدُورِهِمْ مِّنْ غِلٍّ إِخْوَانًا
“And We will remove whatever is in their breasts of resentment, [so they will be] brothers”

(The annexed noun صُدُور is a real part of the annexed-to noun person of ḥāl هُمْ.)

- (17) [49:12 سورة الحجرات] أَتَيْجِبُ أَحَدَكُمْ أَنْ يَأْكُلَ لَحْمَ أَخِيهِ مَيْتًا
 “Would one of you like to eat the flesh of his brother when dead?”
 (The annexed noun لَحْم is a real part of the annexed-to noun person of ḥāl أَيْخ.)

iii. When the annexed noun is not really but is virtually a part of the annexed-to noun. Such that the meaning would still be correct if the annexed noun was removed. For example:

- (17) [16:123 سورة النحل] ثُمَّ أَوْحَيْنَا إِلَيْكَ أَنْ اتَّبِعْ مِلَّةَ إِبْرَاهِيمَ حَنِيفًا
 “Then We revealed to you, [O Muḥammad], to follow the religion of Abraham, inclining toward truth”
 (إِبْرَاهِيمَ is a ḥāl of the person of ḥāl حَنِيفًا. مِلَّة is virtually a part of (أَتَتَّبِعُ إِبْرَاهِيمَ حَنِيفًا) such that the meaning is correct without it: أَتَتَّبِعُ حَنِيفًا.)

When none of these conditions are satisfied then the annexed-to noun cannot be a person of ḥāl. So we cannot say:

- (18) [2/51 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] مَرَرْتُ بِغُلَامٍ هِنْدِيٍّ جَالِسَةً ×
 “I passed by Hind’s slave boy (when she was) sitting.”

Determining the person of ḥāl when there is more than one possibility

When the sentence has more than one noun as a possible person of ḥāl, usually the meaning, gender, or number is sufficient to determine whom the ḥāl is describing. But sometimes context will be needed to determine who the person of ḥāl is. For example:

- (19) [2/386A النحو الوافي] فَابْتَلْتُ الْأَخَ رَاكِبًا
 “I met the brother riding”

In the example above, the ḥāl رَاكِبًا may be applicable to either the speaker (assuming he is male), or to الْأَخَ “the brother”. Context should tell us which is intended. If context is not sufficient then is more suitable for the closer of the two to the ḥāl to be the person of ḥāl. Or, to avoid ambiguity, it may be better that the expression not be used in this case.¹

37.5. The ḥāl after verbs like رَأَى and وَجَدَ

The verbs رَأَى and وَجَدَ are what are known as verbs of perception (see chapter (ref)). That is, they signify an act that takes place in the mind. So they may take two direct does. For example:

¹ 2/386 النحو الوافي

- (20) [70:6 سورة المعارج] إِنَّهُمْ يَرَوْنَهُ بَعِيدًا
 “Indeed, they see it [as] distant,”
 (بَعِيدًا has been analyzed as a second direct doee²)
- (21) [4:64 سورة النساء] لَوْ جَدُّوا اللَّهَ تَوَّابًا رَحِيمًا
 “they would have found Allāh Accepting of Repentance and Merciful.”
 (تَوَّابًا has been analyzed as a second direct doee³)

However, if these verbs are mere verbs of sense, i.e. they express nothing but acts of the external organs of sense, then they may still have two governees in the a-case but the second governee will no longer be a direct doee but a ḥāl.⁴ For example:

- (21) [Wright 2/50C] رَأَيْتُكَ نَائِمًا
 “I saw you sleeping.”
- (22) [Wright 2/50C] وَجَدْتُهُ مَرِيضًا
 “I found him sick.”

37.6. Multiple ḥāls or persons of ḥāl

There may be one or multiple ḥāls that correspond to one or multiple persons of ḥāl. This occurs in the following cases:

37.6.1. Multiple ḥāls for one person of ḥāl

These are examples of multiple ḥāls corresponding to one person of ḥāl:

- (22) [7:150 سورة الأعراف] وَلَمَّا رَجَعَ مُوسَى إِلَى قَوْمِهِ غَضْبَانَ أَسِفًا
 “And when Moses returned to his people, angry and grieved”
- (23) [89:28 سورة الفجر] ارْجِعْ إِلَىٰ رَبِّكَ رَاضِيَةً مَّرْضِيَّةً
 “Return to your Lord, well-pleased and pleasing [to Him]”
- (24) [974b: صحيح مسلم] مَا لَكَ يَا عَائِشُ حَشِيًا رَابِيَةً
 “Why are you, O ʿĀʾishah, panting and short of breath?”
 (حَشِيًا, on the pattern فَعْلِي, is the feminine of حَشِيَان meaning “short of breath”. رَابِيَةً has a similar meaning.)

As you can see, there is no need for a conjunction like و to connect the multiple ḥāls (though we may use the word “and” in the translation). If such a و is inserted, then the noun(s) following it is technically no longer a ḥāl. Rather, it is now a post-conjunction to the preceding ḥāl.⁵ For example:

² 70:6 سورة المعارج for إعراب القرآن للدرويش

³ 4:64 سورة النساء for إعراب القرآن للدرويش

⁴ Wright 2/50B

⁵ النحو الوافي 2/386

- (23) أَقْبَلَ الْمُنْتَصِرُ فَرَحًا وَمُسْرِعًا وَمُصَافِحًا رِفَاقَهُ [النحو الوافي 2/430]
 “The victor approached rejoicing, hastening, and shaking hands with his companions.”

In the above example, *فَرَحًا* is a ḥāl, *مُسْرِعًا* and *مُصَافِحًا* are post-conjunctions.

This distinction is technically correct. However, loosely speaking, words like *مُسْرِعًا* and *مُصَافِحًا* in the example above may be referred to as ḥāls.⁶

See also section (ref) later in this chapter for multiple ḥāls when one or more is a *sentence ḥāl*.

37.6.2. One ḥāl for multiple persons of ḥāl

If there are multiple persons of ḥāl and the same ḥāl can be used to describe all of them, then one ḥāl, appropriately dualized or pluralized, may be used. We have already seen an example of this in example (1115) earlier in this chapter:

- (24) جَاءَ سَعِيدٌ وَخَالِدٌ رَاكِبَيْنِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “Saeid and Khālid came riding.”

Here is another example:

- (25) وَسَخَّرَ لَكُمُ الشَّمْسَ وَالْقَمَرَ دَائِبَيْنِ [سورة إبراهيم 14:33]
 “And He subjected for you the sun and the moon, continuous [in orbit]”

Sometimes the multiple persons of ḥāl may even occur in different functions in the sentence. For example:

- (26) قَابَلَ عَلِيٌّ صَدِيقَهُ مَسْرُورَيْنِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “‘Aliyy met his friend (while they both were) happy.”

- (27) لَقِيتُهُ رَاكِبَيْنِ [Wright 2/113B]
 “I met him (while we both were) riding”

37.6.3. Multiple ḥāls for multiple persons of ḥāl

If there are multiple persons of ḥāl, and each is to be described by different ḥāls, then the individual ḥāls may occur in the sentence without any conjunction. If context and meaning are not sufficient to determine which ḥāl applies to which person of ḥāl, then the first ḥāl (in sentence word order) should apply to the second person of ḥāl, and the second ḥāl should apply to the first person of ḥāl.⁷ For example:

- (27) لَقِيتُ خَالِدًا مُصْعِدًا مُنْخَدِرًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “I met Khālid (while he was) going up (and I_m was) coming down.”

⁶See, for example, the analysis of طَمَعًا لأبي حيان سورة السجدة 32:16 يَدْعُونَ رَبَّهُمْ خَوْفًا (وَطَمَعًا)

⁷2/38–39. But see also Wright 2/115CD

But if meaning and context are sufficient to disambiguate, then the ḥāls may occur in either order. For example:

- (28) [2/39 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] لَقِيتُ هِنْدًا مُصْعِدًا مُنْحَدِرَةً
 “I met Hind (while I_m was) going up (and she was) coming down.”

37.7. Definiteness of the ḥāl

The ḥāl is typically an indefinite noun, as we have seen in all the examples so far. Occasionally, however, it does occur as a definite noun. The most common such ḥāl is the noun وَحْدٌ annexed to a pronoun, meaning “alone”. For example:

- (29) [2/375 النحو الوافي] جَاءَ الضَّيْفُ وَحْدَهُ
 “The guest came by himself.”

Other definite nouns may also occur as ḥāls. For example:

- (30) اُدْخُلُوا الْأَوَّلَ فَالْأَوَّلَ
 [2/376 النحو الوافي]
 “Enter! the first then the first”
 (i.e. “Enter in order”)
- (31) [2/34 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] كَلَّمْتُهُ فَاهُ إِلَى فِيٍّ
 “I spoke to him his mouth to my mouth.”
 (i.e. face to face)

The definite ḥāl may also occur in a comparative statement. For example:

- (31) زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ الْمَاشِي [Wright 2/116D]
 “Zayd as the rider is more handsome than he is (as) the walker.”

Although, it is more usual to use the indefinite ḥāl in this case: زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ مَاشِيًا.

37.8. Definiteness of the person of ḥāl

The person of ḥāl is typically a definite noun, as we have seen in all the examples so far. Sometimes, however, it does occur as an indefinite noun. Usually, when the person of ḥāl is indefinite, it occurs in the following circumstances:

The ḥāl precedes the indefinite person of ḥāl

- (32) [Wright 2/117B] فِيهَا قَائِمًا رَجُلًا
 “in it (i.e. the house) is a man standing”

The order of the ḥāl and the person of ḥāl is treated in more detail in section (ref).

The indefinite person of ḥāl is qualified by a attribute or a annexed-to noun

- (33) عِنْدِي غُلَامٌ رَجُلٌ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/117D]
“in my house is a man’s slave standing”
- (34) قَدِمَ طِفْلٌ صَغِيرٌ بَاكِيًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/45]
“a small child came crying”
- (35) وَبَارَكَ فِيهَا وَقَدَّرَ فِيهَا أَقْوَاتَهَا فِي أَرْبَعَةِ أَيَّامٍ سَوَاءً لِلْإِنْسَانِ لِلسَّائِلِينَ [سورة فصلت 41:10 cited by
النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/45]
“and He blessed it and determined therein its [creatures’] sustenance in four days without distinction - for [the information of] those who ask.”

The indefinite person of ḥāl is in a negative statement or a question

- (34) مَا خَابَ عَامِلٌ مُخْلِصًا [النحو الوافي 2/403]
“A worker, when sincere, does not fail.”
- (35) لَا تَشْرَبْ فِي كُوبٍ مَكْسُورًا [النحو الوافي 2/403]
“Don’t drink in a cup (when it is) broken.”
- (36) أَجَاءَ أَحَدٌ رَاكِبًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/44]
“Did anyone come riding?”

The indefinite person of ḥāl without any special circumstance

Occasionally, the person of ḥāl may be indefinite without any special circumstance.⁸ For example:

- (35) وَصَلَّى وَرَاءَهُ قَوْمٌ قِيَامًا [صحيح البخاري: 1113]
“and [some] people prayed behind him standing”

37.9. The order of the ḥāl, the person of ḥāl and the governor

The normal order is: first the governor, then the person of ḥāl, then the ḥāl. However, there is much variability permitted, subject to certain rules.

37.9.1. The ḥāl preceding the governor

The ḥāl may precede the governor if the governor is an verb or quasi-verb that flexes based on the doer.

So we can say:

- (36) رَاكِبًا جَاءَ زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/118B]
“Zayd came riding.”

⁸ 45–47 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

- (37) 2/53 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [Wright 2/118B and 2/53]
 “In haste is this this (man) departing.”
 (ذَا is a pointing noun like هَذَا. See section (ref).)
- (38) [add ref to alfiyyah ibn malik]
 “Sincerely did Zayd supplicate.”
 (The ḥāl مُخْلِصًا precedes not just its governor in the info دَعَا, but also the subject زَيْدٌ.)

If the governor is a verb or adjectival noun that is rigid (does not flex based on the doer), then the ḥāl rarely⁹, if ever¹⁰, precedes the governor. Examples of such governors are the verb of wonder and the comparative noun. For example:

- (37) [Wright 2/118B]
 مَا أَحْسَنَ زَيْدٌ صَاحِبًا
 (not × أَحْسَنَ زَيْدٌ ×)
 “How handsome is Zayd (when) laughing!”
- (38) [Wright 2/118B]
 زَيْدٌ أَحْسَنُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو صَاحِبًا
 (not × زَيْدٌ أَحْسَنُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو ×)
 “Zayd is more handsome than ʿAmr (when) laughing.”

An exception is permitted when a noun, in one ḥāl, is compared with itself or another noun in another ḥāl. In this case, the ḥāl regularly precedes its comparative noun governor. For example:

- (38) [Wright 2/118C]
 زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ قَاعِدًا
 “Zayd when standing is more handsome than [himself] when sitting.”
- (39) [Wright 2/118C]
 زَيْدٌ مُفْعَدًا أَنْفَعُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو مُعَانًا
 “Zayd when alone is more useful than ʿAmr when assisted (by others).”

If the governor is not a verb or a quasi-verb but an expression that has verbal force, then the ḥāl usually does not precede the governor.¹¹

- (39) [Wright 2/118D]
 كَانَ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا أَسَدٌ
 (not × رَاكِبًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَسَدٌ ×)
 “[It is] as if Zayd, when riding, is a lion.”
- (40) [Wright 2/118D]
 زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ قَائِمًا
 (not × زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا فِي الدَّارِ ×)
 “Zayd is in the house standing.”
- (41) 2/53 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [Wright 2/118D and 2/53]
 تِلْكَ هِنْدٌ بَاجِئَةٌ
 (not × تِلْكَ هِنْدٌ ×)
 “That is Hind, searching.”

⁹ibn uthaymeen

¹⁰wright

¹¹See, however, سورة الزمر 39:67 for the recitation بيمينه والسموات مطويات بيمينه. Also mentioned by Wright 2/118D

37.9.2. The ḥāl preceding the person of ḥāl

The ḥāl is generally allowed to precede the person of ḥāl when the person of ḥāl is in the u-case or a-case. For example:

- (40) جَاءَ صَاحِبًا زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/119A]
 “Zayd came riding.”
- (41) شَرِبْتُ الْمَاءَ صَافِيًا [أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي: 2/48]
 “I drank the water clear.”

Excepted from this general permissibility is if the person of ḥāl is restricted by *إِلَّا*. For example:

- (41) مَا جَاءَ أُسَامَةُ إِلَّا رَاكِبًا [أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي: 2/48]
 “Usāmah did not come except riding.”
- (42) وَمَا نُرْسِلُ الْمُرْسَلِينَ إِلَّا مُبَشِّرِينَ وَمُنذِرِينَ [سورة الأنعام: 6:48]
 “And We send not the messengers except as bringers of good tidings and warners.”

When the person of ḥāl is in the i-case then: if it is a annexed-to noun in an annexation, then the ḥāl should follow the person of ḥāl and not precede it.

For example:

- (42) أَعْجَبَنِي قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ مُسْرِعًا [Wright 2/119C]
 “Zayd’s standing speedily pleased me.”

If the person of ḥāl is in the i-case due to a preceding preposition, then the ḥāl will usually follow it and not precede it. For example:

- (43) مَرَرْتُ بِهِنْدٍ جَالِسَةً [Wright 2/119B]
 “I passed by Hind (when she was) sitting.”

Occasionally, however, the ḥāl has been found to precede the i-case person of ḥāl preceded by a preposition. For example:

- (44) وَمَا أَرْسَلْنَاكَ إِلَّا كَافَّةً لِلنَّاسِ [سورة سبأ: 34:28]
 “And We have not sent you except comprehensively to mankind”

37.9.3. Reasons for varying the normal order

The natural order, as we have mentioned, is: first the governor, then the person of ḥāl, then the ḥāl. So normally we would say:

- (45) حَضَرَ مُحَمَّدٌ مَاشِيًا [أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي: 2/55]
 “Muḥammad came walking.”

The speaker may choose to vary this normal order for a variety of reasons. For example, if Muḥammad had been previously hampered from walking due to an illness or injury, then in order to emphasize his being able to walk, the speaker may say:

(46) [2/55 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] حَضَرَ مَاثِيًا مُحَمَّدٌ

Or if the listener was incorrectly assuming that Muḥammad came riding and not walking, then the speaker may wish to disabuse him by saying

(47) [2/55 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] مَاثِيًا حَضَرَ مُحَمَّدٌ

There may be other reasons as well.¹²

37.10. Transitory and permanent meanings for the ḥāl

Fundamentally, the ḥāl is transitory in its meaning; i.e. it is not meant to be a permanent description of the person of ḥāl. For example:

(48) [2/28 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] جَاءَ سَعِيدٌ غَاضِبًا

“Saeid came angry”

(49) [2/28 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] أَقْبَلَ خَالِدٌ رَاكِبًا

“Khālīd came riding.”

In the above examples, the ḥāls “angry” and “riding” are meant to be transitory descriptions, such that it is conceivable that Saeid may cease to be angry, and that Khālīd could come walking instead of riding.

However, it is possible that the ḥāl have a more permanent meaning. This is primarily when the ḥāl describes person of ḥāl as it comes in to existence or relevance.

For example:

(49) [4:28 سورة النساء] وَخُلِقَ الْإِنْسَانُ ضَعِيفًا

“and mankind was created weak”

(50) [3:36 سورة آل عمران] قَالَتْ رَبِّ إِنِّي وَضَعْتُهَا أُنْثَىٰ

“she said, ‘My Lord, I have delivered a female.’”

(51) [2/29 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] وَلَدَتْهُ أَرْزُقُ الْغَيْنَيْنِ أَفْطَسَ الْأَنْفِ

“She gave birth to him blue-eyed (and) snub-nosed”

The ḥāl may also have a more permanent meaning in the sense that while it describes the person of ḥāl linked in time to the governor, its meaning also applies more permanently to the person of ḥāl. For example:

(50) [2/30 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] وَهَذَا صِرَاطُ رَبِّكَ مُسْتَقِيمًا

“And this is the path of your Lord, [leading] straight”

(The ḥāl “straight” applies permanently to the person of ḥāl صِرَاطُ رَبِّكَ “path of your Lord”)

¹² 2/354 معاني النحو

37.11. Difference in meaning between the ḥāl and the attribute

The ḥāl and the attribute are typically both sourced from adjectival nouns. And generally when you use the adjectival noun as a ḥāl it will have a different meaning from when it is used as an attribute.

Consider the following two examples:

- (51) هَذَا الْفَرَسُ الْأَسْبَقُ [معاني النحو 2/334]
“This is the foremost horse.”

- (52) هَذَا الْفَرَسُ سَابِقًا [معاني النحو 2/334]
“This is the horse (when it is) foremost”

The former sentence is describing the horse as being foremost, but not necessarily at the time when the speaker is pointing to it. So, at the moment of pointing to it, the horse may actually be tethered. Whereas the latter sentence is describing the horse at the moment of pointing at it. It would likely be running and being foremost at that time.

Similarly, consider:

- (52) أَقْبَلَ الطَّالِبُ الْمَقْصُرُ [معاني النحو 2/333]
“The slacking student approached.”

- (53) أَقْبَلَ الطَّالِبُ مُقْصِرًا [معاني النحو 2/333]
“The student approached (while) slacking.”

The same distinction applies to the above two examples. The former sentence describes the student as a slacker generally. But he may not be slacking at the moment when he is approaching. Whereas the latter sentence describes the student as slacking when he is approaching. He may not be a slacker in general.

However, there can sometimes be some overlap in meaning.¹³ For example, in the scenario when all the following conditions are satisfied:

- the ḥāl has a transitory meaning,
- the meaning of the ḥāl is a description of motion or posture (like “sitting”, “standing”, “sleeping”, “running”, etc.),
- the person of ḥāl is indefinite,
- the governor is an expression that has verbal force (see section (ref)).

In such a case, the adjectival noun used as an attribute may have a somewhat similar meaning to it being used as a ḥāl. For example:

- (53) فِيهَا رَجُلٌ قَائِمٌ
“In it (i.e. the house), is a standing man.”
(attribute)

¹³See also معاني النحو 2/350 cited by شرح إبي سعيد بهامش كتاب سيبويه 1/272

- (54) فِيهَا رَجُلٌ قَائِمًا
[معاني النحو 2/352 cited by سيبويه 1/272]
“In the house, is a man standing.”
(ḥāl)

There may also be a case where the ḥāl is indistinguishable from the attribute due to the person of ḥāl being indefinite and in the a-case. For example:

- (54) رَأَيْتُ طَالِبًا مُقْصِرًا [معاني النحو 2/352]
“I saw a student slacking.”
or
“I saw a slacking student.”

37.12. An primitive noun as the ḥāl

Because the ḥāl is a description of the person of ḥāl, and a description is likely to be a adjectival noun, and adjectival nouns are typically deverbal nouns, it therefore follows that the ḥāl is likely to be a deverbal noun. Most of the examples we have seen so far have been of the ḥāl as a deverbal noun. For example: غَاضِبًا, رَاكِبًا, etc. However, it is possible for the ḥāl to be primitive noun. Here are some examples:

- (55) طَلَعَ الْقَمَرُ بَدْرًا [Wright 2/115A]
“The moon rose (as) a full moon.”
- (56) كَرَّ زَيْدٌ أَسَدًا [Wright 2/115A]
“Zayd charged (like) a lion.”
- (57) بَعْهُ مُدًّا بِدِرْهَمٍ [Wright 2/115A]
“Sell it (at the rate of) a mudd for a dirham”
(a mudd is a measure of volume)
- (58) بَعْتُ الشَّاةَ شَاءَةً وَدِرْهَمًا [Wright 2/115A]
“I sold the sheep (at the rate of) a sheep [for] a dirham.”
- (59) بَايَعْتُهُ يَدًا بِيَدٍ [Wright 2/115A]
“I traded with him hand in hand”
(i.e. for ready money)
- (60) بَيَّنْتُ لَهُ حِسَابَهُ بَابًا بَابًا [Wright 2/115A]
“I explained his account for him item by item.”
- (61) دَخَلَ الْقَوْمُ رَجُلًا رَجُلًا [أحكام ومعاني 2/30 cited by النحو العربي]
“The people entered, man by man.”
- (62) كَلَّمْتُهُ فَاهُ إِلَى فِيٍّ [Wright 2/115B]
“I spoke to him his mouth to my mouth.”
(i.e. face to face)

- (63) هَذَا عِنَبًا أَطْيَبُ مِنْهُ زَبِيًّا [Wright 2/115B]
 “This (fruit), as a grape, is better than it as a raisin.”
- (64) وَكَذَلِكَ أَنْزَلْنَاهُ قُرْآنًا عَرَبِيًّا [2/33 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان سورة طه 20:113 cited by]
 “And thus We have sent it down as an Arabic Qur’ān”
- (65) هَذِهِ أَمْوَالُكَ ذَهَبًا [2/34 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “These are your wealths, as gold.”
- (66) هَذِهِ فِصَّةُكَ خَاتَمًا [2/34 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “This is your silver, as a ring.”
- (67) هَذَا خَاتَمُكَ فِصَّةً [2/34 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “This is your ring, in silver”

37.13. A maṣḍar as the ḥāl

The maṣḍar can sometimes *appear* to be a ḥāl. For example:

- (56) أَقْبَلَ عَلَيَّ رَكْعًا [2/345 معاني النحو]
 “‘Āliyy approached (in the state of) running.”

In the above example, the opinion of some scholars would be that the maṣḍar أَقْبَلَ عَلَيَّ رَكْعًا is a ḥāl. And this is a substitute for saying رَاكِعًا عَلَيَّ رَكْعًا.

When the maṣḍar is used thus it remains in the indefinite singular regardless of the number of the persons of ḥāl. For example:

- (57) أَقْبَلَ الْقَوْمُ رَكْعًا
 “The people approached running.”

The reasons for using a maṣḍar رَكْعًا in this way instead of the adjectival noun رَاكِعًا may be:

- i. Emphasis. The maṣḍar signifies purely the meaning of the verb “to run”. Whereas the adjectival noun signifies the meaning of the verb along with person described by the adjectival noun (the runner). So using the maṣḍar as a ḥāl draws attention to the meaning of running rather than the person who is running. The maṣḍar used in this way can also be seen as a sort of metaphor, as if ‘Āliyy, while executing the action of running, *became* the act of running.¹⁴
- ii. Expanding the sense of the adverb to incorporate other adverbs. The maṣḍar رَكْعًا, in the above example, can also be analyzed as an absolute doer (being a deputy to the maṣḍar إِقْبَالَ meaning:

- (58) أَقْبَلَ عَلَيَّ إِقْبَالَ رَكْعٍ [2/348 معاني النحو]
 “‘Āliyy approached (in) the type of approaching (that is) running.”

¹⁴2/348 معاني النحو

The use of the maṣdar in this way could then be used to intend both the ḥāl meaning and the absolute doee meaning together. That is Ḥaliyy's type and state of approaching was running.

Depending on the meaning of the maṣdar, other types of adverbs, like the adverb of reason, may be included in this expanded sense as well.¹⁵

Some scholars are conservative in analyzing a maṣdar as a ḥāl, and instead prefer that it be analyzed as another adverb, like a (deputy) absolute doee or an adverb of reason, etc.¹⁶ And if the meaning of the maṣdar does not allow it to be analyzed as another adverb, and only as a ḥāl then it is accepted as a permitted usage but one that is restricted to what has been recorded from Classical Arabic.

Here are some examples of maṣdars having being analyzed as ḥāl. They may fit other adverbs instead or as well.

- (59) قَتَلْتُهُ صَدْرًا [Wright 2/114C]
“I killed him in cold blood.”
- (60) 2/12 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] كَلَّمْتُهُ مُسَافِقَةً
“I spoke to him face to face.”
- (61) 32:16 [سورة السجدة] يَدْعُونَ رَبَّهُمْ خَوْفًا وَطَمَعًا
“they supplicate their Lord in fear and aspiration”
(خَوْفًا (above) is analyzed as either a adverb of reason or a ḥāl.¹⁷)
- (62) 2:274 [سورة البقرة] الَّذِينَ يُنْفِقُونَ أَمْوَالَهُمْ بِاللَّيْلِ وَالنَّهَارِ سِرًّا وَعَلَانِيَةً
“Those who spend their wealth [in Allāh's way] by night and by day, secretly and publicly”
(سِرًّا is analyzed as either a ḥāl or a attribute to a deleted absolute doee (إِنْفَاقًا).¹⁸)
- (63) 4:10 [سورة النساء] إِنَّ الَّذِينَ يَأْكُلُونَ أَمْوَالَ الْيَتَامَى ظُلْمًا
“Indeed, those who devour the property of orphans unjustly”
(ظُلْمًا (above) is analyzed as either a adverb of reason or a ḥāl.¹⁹)
- (64) 6:31 [سورة الأنعام] حَتَّىٰ إِذَا جَاءَتْهُمْ السَّاعَةُ بَغْتَةً
“until when the Hour [of resurrection] comes upon them unexpectedly”
(بَغْتَةً (above) is analyzed as either a ḥāl or a absolute doee.²⁰)

37.14. A sentence as the ḥāl

In the examples so far, the ḥāl has always been a single word, usually an adjectival noun. For example, جَاءَ زَيْدٌ صَاحِكًا “Zayd came laughing”. Instead, of

¹⁵2/348 معاني النحو

¹⁶See 529–530; Sadan, “Which verbal nouns can function as adverbial accusatives of state or condition (ḥāl) according to Sibawayhi and later grammarians?”

¹⁷32:16 سورة السجدة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

¹⁸2:274 سورة البقرة for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

¹⁹4:10 سورة النساء for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

²⁰6:30 سورة الأنعام for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

using the adjectival noun صَاحِبًا, we can instead use the u-case muḍāriʿ verb يَضْحَكُ:

- (60) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ يَضْحَكُ [Wright, 2/331C]
 “Zayd came laughing.”

Actually, يَضْحَكُ is not just a verb. Rather, it is a complete sentence comprising of the verb itself and the doer which, in this case, is the hidden pronoun “he”. So the ḥāl here is a sentence.

As we know, the ḥāl describes the person of ḥāl during time of ḥāl’s governing verb. The use of the muḍāriʿ verb يَضْحَكُ signifies that Zayd’s action of laughing was ongoing during the time of the governor جَاءَ. So يَضْحَكُ has a past meaning because of the māḍī verb جَاءَ. An additional verb like كَانَ is not needed to transport the verb يَضْحَكُ to the past. Similarly, if the governor was in the present or the future, the muḍāriʿ verb in the ḥāl would automatically be transported to the present or future as well. For example:

- (61) سَيَأْتِي زَيْدٌ يَضْحَكُ
 “Zayd will come laughing.”

In fact, it is not permitted for the ḥāl sentence that begins with the muḍāriʿ verb to itself be prefixed with سَ or سَوْفَ.²¹ So we cannot say (intending سَيَضْحَكُ to be a ḥāl):

- (62) × سَيَأْتِي زَيْدٌ سَيَضْحَكُ or
 × يَأْتِي زَيْدٌ سَيَضْحَكُ

This restriction only applies to muḍāriʿ verbs that begin a sentence ḥāl. If a muḍāriʿ verb begins a sentence that is not a ḥāl then it may begin with سَ or سَوْفَ. For example:

- (63) وَقَالَ إِنِّي ذَاهِبٌ إِلَىٰ رَبِّي سَيَهْدِينِ [سورة الصافات 37:99]
 “And [then] he said, ‘Indeed, I will go to [where I am ordered by] my Lord; He will guide me.’”

Here are some more examples of sentence ḥāls comprised of a muḍāriʿ verb and a doer (or deputy doer) pronoun:

- (64) وَجَاءُوا أَبَاهُمْ عِشَاءً يَبْكُونَ [سورة يوسف 12:16]
 “And they came to their father at night, weeping.”

37.14.1. The link between the sentence ḥāl and the person of ḥāl

The sentence comprising of only the muḍāriʿ verb and its doer is the simplest, and one of the most common, kind of ḥāl sentence. However, more complex

²¹ شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/354 citing معاني النحو. But see تفسير ابن عاشور 37:99 for a dissenting opinion.

ḥāl sentences are also possible. And the person of ḥāl need not always be the doer of the verb in the sentence.

But the sentence ḥāl needs to have a link between it and the person of ḥāl. This link is often a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. In the examples above this link pronoun was the doer pronoun of the muḍārie verb. Here is an example of a more complex ḥāl sentence:

- (65) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ يَدُهُ عَلَى رَأْسِهِ [Wright, 2/331A]
 “Zayd came (with) his hand on his head.”

In the example above, the sentence يَدُهُ عَلَى رَأْسِهِ is the ḥāl. Note that يَد is in the u-case because it is the subject of the sentence. It is not in the a-case because it is not, by itself, the ḥāl. The entire sentence يَدُهُ عَلَى رَأْسِهِ is considered to be in the a-case as the ḥāl. The link is the pronoun ه in يَدُهُ and رَأْسِهِ.

Here are some more examples:

- (66) أَهْبِطُوا بُعْضُكُمْ لِبَعْضٍ عَدُوٌّ [سورة البقرة 2:36]
 “Go down, [all of you], as enemies to one another”
 (The sentence بُعْضُكُمْ لِبَعْضٍ عَدُوٌّ is the ḥāl. The link is the pronoun كُمْ in بُعْضُكُمْ.)

37.15. The و of ḥāl and its rules

Instead of, or in addition to, a pronoun as the link between the sentence ḥāl and the person of ḥāl, a special و, called the و of ḥāl, may be used. The و of ḥāl signifies that the sentence ḥāl occurred *while* the governing verb took place. Here are some examples of the the و of ḥāl:

- (67) قَامَ زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ بَاكٍ [Wright 2/330C]
 “Zayd stood up while he was crying.”
- (68) أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مَرَّ بِسَعْدٍ وَهُوَ يَتَوَضَّأُ [سنن ابن ماجه 425]
 “that the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ passed by Saed while he was performing ablution”

We have defined the ḥāl as an adverb that describes the person of ḥāl. However, sometimes, the ḥāl sentence that is linked with a و of ḥāl won't apparently describe the person of ḥāl. In fact, it may not even refer to the person of ḥāl at all. For example:

- (68) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ وَعَمْرُو يَشْتَغِلُ [Wright 2/331A]
 “Zayd went while Eamr was busy.”

In the example above, the ḥāl's description of the person of ḥāl is only circumstantial, in that it alludes to the time in which the action of the governing verb occurred. In such cases the meaning of the ḥāl approaches that of the adverb of time. This is another of the cases where the lines between different types of

adverbs get blurred. We have seen similar cases in sections (ref). Here are some more examples:

Depending on the sentence, the و of ḥāl can be either mandatory, optional, or disallowed.

Let's go over the different types of ḥāl sentences, and discuss the ruling of the و of ḥāl in each type of sentence.

37.15.1. The ḥāl sentence is a nounal sentence

When the ḥāl sentence is a nounal sentence, then there are three possibilities:

- i. The ḥāl sentence is devoid of a pronoun referring back to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the و of ḥāl is obligatory. For example:

(69) وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار 4/125 cited by المبرد
مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَعَمْرُو فِي الدَّارِ
[فتحي زيدان]

“I passed by Zayd while ʿAmr (was) in the house.”

In the above example the person of ḥāl is زَيْدٌ and the ḥāl is the nounal sentence عَمْرُو فِي الدَّارِ. The sentence ḥāl does not have a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. Therefore the و of ḥāl is necessary to link the sentence ḥāl to the person of ḥāl.

We have also already seen this usage in example (1234) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ وَعَمْرُو يَشْتَغِلُ. Here are more examples:

(70) 8:5 سورة الأنفال] كَمَا أَخْرَجَكَ رَبُّكَ مِنْ بَيْتِكَ بِالْحَقِّ وَإِنَّ فَرِيقًا مِّنَ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ لَكَارِهُونَ
[النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58]

“[It is] just as when your Lord brought you out of your home [for the battle of Badr] in truth, while indeed, a party among the believers were unwilling,”

(71) النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58] قَالُوا لَئِنْ أَكَلَهُ الذِّئْبُ وَنَحْنُ عُصْبَةٌ
[سورة يوسف 12:14 cited by]

“They said, ‘If a wolf should eat him while we are a [strong] clan,’”

- ii. The sentence ḥāl begins with a pronoun that refers to person of ḥāl. In this case as well, the و of ḥāl is obligatory. The link between the sentence ḥāl and the person of ḥāl is now both the pronoun and the و of ḥāl. We saw this usage in examples (1232) أَمَّا زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ بَاكٍ and (1233) اللَّهُ أَنْ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مَرَّ بِسَعْدٍ وَهُوَ يَتَوَضَّأُ.

Here are some more examples:

(71) 2/58] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58] لَا تَقْرُبُوا الصَّلَاةَ وَأَنْتُمْ سُكَارَى
[سورة النساء 4:43 cited by]

“do not approach prayer while you are intoxicated”

(72) كَذَبْتُمْ وَأَنْتُمْ تَعْلَمُونَ [Wright 2/330D]

“You lied, knowing (that you did so).”

(73) 9:54] وَلَا يَأْتُونَ الصَّلَاةَ إِلَّا وَهُمْ كُسَالَى [سورة التوبة 9:54]

“and that they come not to prayer except while they are lazy”

Some grammarians admitted optionally dropping the و of ḥāl in this case to allow sentences like:

- (72) وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار 2/317 cited by معاني القرآن وإعرابه للزجاج [فتحي زيدان]
 “Zayd came to me while he (was) on horseback.”
 (instead of the more normal usage with the و of ḥāl: جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ (فَارَسٌ))

But this opinion is considered anomalous by the majority of the grammarians.²²

- iii. The ḥāl sentence has a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl but it does not begin the ḥāl sentence. In this case, the و of ḥāl is optional. But generally, it will be preferred to have the و of ḥāl. For example:

- (73) جَاءَ مُحَمَّدٌ وَيَدُهُ فِي جَيْبِهِ. [2/61 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] (more preferred)
 جَاءَ مُحَمَّدٌ يَدُهُ فِي جَيْبِهِ. [2/61 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] (less preferred)
 Muḥammad came (with) his hand in his pocket.”

If the ḥāl sentence's info is a quasi-sentence (consisting of an prepositional or adverbial phrase), and the info precedes the subject, then dropping the و of ḥāl is normal.²³ For example:

- (74) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ فِي يَدِهِ سَوْطٌ
 “Zayd came (with) a whip in his hand.”
 (The ḥāl sentence is فِي يَدِهِ سَوْطٌ. Its info فِي يَدِهِ precedes its subject سَوْطٌ.)

37.15.2. The ḥāl sentence is a verbal sentence that begins with a māḍī verb

There are several possible cases here:

- i. The ḥāl sentence is devoid of a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. In this case the و of ḥāl is mandatory. Furthermore, if the ḥāl sentence is affirmative, the māḍī verb shall be preceded by the particle قَدْ. And if the ḥāl sentence is negative, the māḍī verb shall not be preceded by the particle قَدْ. Examples:

- (75) جِئْتُ وَقَدْ طَلَعَتِ الشَّمْسُ [2/58 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “I came while the sun had already risen.”
 (76) جِئْتُ وَمَا طَلَعَتِ الشَّمْسُ [2/58 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
 “I came while the sun had not risen.”

²² وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار فتحي زيدان

²³ 1/203 دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني

- ii. The ḥāl sentence has a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. In this case the ۛ of ḥāl is optional. Furthermore, if the ḥāl sentence is affirmative, the māḍī verb can optionally be preceded by the particle **قَدْ**. And if the ḥāl sentence is negative, the māḍī verb shall not be preceded by the particle **قَدْ**. Here are some examples:

Affirmative with ۛ of ḥāl and with **قَدْ**. (This is the most common case.):

- (76) وَمَا لَنَا أَلَّا نُقَاتِلَ فِي سَبِيلِ اللَّهِ وَقَدْ أُخْرِجْنَا مِنْ دِيَارِنَا وَأَبْنَائِنَا [سورة البقرة 2:246 cited by Wright 2/332B]

“And why should we not fight in the cause of Allāh when we have been driven out from our homes and from our children?”

Affirmative with ۛ of ḥāl and without **قَدْ**:

- (77) قَالُوا أَنُؤْمِنُ لَكَ وَتَتَّبِعَكَ الْأَرْذَلُونَ [سورة الشعراء 26:111 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/62]

“They said, ‘Should we believe you while you are followed by the lowest [class of people]?’”

Affirmative without ۛ of ḥāl and without **قَدْ**:

- (78) أَوْ جَاءُوكُمْ حَصِرَتْ صُدُورُهُمْ أَنِ يُقَاتِلُوكُمْ [سورة النساء 4:90 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/62 and Wright 2/332B]

“or those who come to you, their hearts strained at [the prospect of] fighting you”

Affirmative without ۛ of ḥāl and with **قَدْ**:

- (79) رَأَيْنَاهُ قَدْ تَغَيَّرَ لِزَيْدٍ وَكَانَ عَلَى جُنْدِهِ [Wright 2/332C]

“We saw him (when) he had changed [color due to being enraged] at Zayd who (was) [in command of] his army.”

Negative with ۛ of ḥāl (more common):

- (80) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ وَمَا قَامَ أَبُوهُ [Wright 2/332D]

“Zayd came without his father having stood up.”

Negative without ۛ of ḥāl (less common):

- (81) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ مَا قَامَ أَبُوهُ [Wright 2/332D]

“Zayd came without his father having stood up.”

- iii. The ḥāl sentence is an exception, preceded by **لَا**. In this case the ۛ of ḥāl is prohibited. For example:

- (82) وَمَا يَأْتِيهِمْ مِّن رَّسُولٍ إِلَّا كَانُوا بِهِ يَسْتَهْزِءُونَ [سورة الحجر 15:11 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/61]

“And no messenger would come to them except that they ridiculed him.”

(The sentence **يَسْتَهْزِءُونَ** is the ḥāl beginning with a māḍī verb.)

Some grammarians allowed the و of ḥāl in this case, but the examples they cite are considered irregular to normal usage.²⁴

- iv. The māḍī verb is followed by the conjunction **وَأَوْ**. In this case, the māḍī verb is used with a conditional meaning. For example:

(83) **أَحْفَظُ زَوْجِي غَابَ أَوْ حَضَرَ** [أحكام ومعان] 2/61 [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]

(84) أوضح المسالك لابن and حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان [لأضربته ذهب أو مكث 2/289 هشام]

“I will certainly beat him [whether] he went or stayed.”

37.15.3. The ḥāl sentence is a verbal sentence that begins with a muḍāriʿ verb

When a sentence ḥāl begins with a muḍāriʿ verb, then, if the muḍāriʿ is used with a continuous meaning (i.e. not with **لَمْ** or **لَمَّا**), then the ḥāl sentence will contain a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. If the muḍāriʿ is used with a past meaning (i.e. with **لَمْ** or **لَمَّا**), then the ḥāl sentence may or may not have a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl.²⁵

There are again a number of possible cases.

- i. The sentence is affirmative and the muḍāriʿ verb is preceded by the particle **فَ**. In this case, the و of ḥāl is obligatory. For example,

(84) **لِمَ تُؤْذُونَنِي وَقَدْ تَعْلَمُونَ أَنِّي رَسُولُ اللَّهِ إِلَيْكُمْ** [سورة الصف 61:5 cited by Wright 2/331C]
“why do you harm me while you certainly know that I am the messenger of Allāh to you?”

- ii. The sentence is affirmative and the muḍāriʿ verb is not preceded by the particle **فَ**. We assume here that the sentence ḥāl contains a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl.

In this case, the و of ḥāl is usually not used. We have already seen examples of this case earlier, like **جَاءَ زَيْدٌ يَضْحَكُ** (1225) and **وَجَاءُوا أَبَاهُمْ عِشَاءً** (1229) **وَيَبْكُونَ**.

Here are some more examples:

(85) **جَاءَ الْأَمِيرُ تُقَادُ الْجَنَائِبُ بَيْنَ يَدَيْهِ** [Wright 2/331C]

“The commander came with the horses led in front of him.”

(جَنَائِبُ is the plural of جَنِيب which is a word for a tractable horse that is led.)

(86) **وَجَاءَ رَجُلٌ مِنْ أَقْصَى الْمَدِينَةِ يَسْعَى** [سورة القصص 28:20]

“And a man came from the farthest end of the city, running.”

²⁴ حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان

²⁵ علة امتناع ربط المضارع المنفي بـ(لا) و(ما) and علة امتناع ربط المضارع المثبت بالواو فتحي زيدان in بالواو حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان

What we have shown above constitutes the more common usage. However, we do sometimes see a ḥāl sentence beginning with a muḍāriʿ verb with the ۛ of ḥāl and without قَدْ. For example,

- (86) حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي and 2/59 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [زبدان]
قُمْتُ وَأَضَكْتُ عَيْنَهُ
“I stood up, slapping his eye.”

More usually though, if a ۛ of ḥāl is to be used with a muḍāriʿ verb, then a pronoun referring to the doer is inserted before it, converting the ḥāl sentence to a nounal sentence, thus:

- (87) قُمْتُ وَأَنَا أَضَكْتُ عَيْنَهُ
“I stood up, slapping his eye.”

We have already covered this type of ḥāl sentence in section (ref) above.

- iii. The sentence is negative and the muḍāriʿ verb is negated with لَا or مَا. We again assume here that the sentence ḥāl contains a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the ۛ of ḥāl is prohibited.

- (88) أَوْضَح and 2/59 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [أوضح and 5:84 سورة المائدة] وَمَا لَنَا لَا نُؤْمِنُ بِاللَّهِ
2/289 المسالك لابن هشام
“And why should we not believe in Allāh”
- (89) أَوْضَح المسالك لابن 2/60 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [عَهْدْتُكَ مَا تَصْبُو وَفَيْكَ شَبِيهٌ
2/290 هشام
“I knew you when you were not childish while [you had] in you youth.”
“You were not childish” is a sentence ḥāl)

- iv. The sentence is negative and the muḍāriʿ verb is negated with لَمْ. Here, the sentence ḥāl need not contain a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the ۛ of ḥāl is usually kept, although it is permissible to drop it. For example:

- (89) النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [أَوْ قَالَ أَوْحَى إِلَيَّ وَلَمْ يُوحَ إِلَيْهِ شَيْءٌ
2/60] cited by سورة الأنعام 6:93
“or says, ‘It has been inspired to me,’ while nothing has been inspired to him”
- (90) النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [فَانْقَلَبُوا بِنِعْمَةٍ مِنَ اللَّهِ وَفَضْلٍ لَمْ يَمَسْسَهُمْ سُوءٌ
2/60] cited by سورة الأنعام 6:93
“So they returned with favor from Allāh and bounty, no harm having touched them.”
- (91) 2/60 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [أَقْبَلَ مُحَمَّدٌ وَلَمْ يَحْمِلْ كُتُبَهُ
2/60] cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان [أَقْبَلَ سَعِيدٌ لَمْ يَحْمِلْ كُتُبَهُ
“Muḥammad/Saeid approached while he didn’t carry his books.”

If the sentence ḥāl does not have a pronoun that links to the person of ḥāl then the ۛ of ḥāl is to be used. For example:

- (90) [2/60 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] أَقْبَلَ سَعِيدٌ وَلَمْ تَطْلُعِ الشَّمْسُ
 “Sa‘īd approached while the sun had not risen.”

- (91) [النحو العربي: أحكام] وَلَقَدْ خَشِيتُ بِأَنْ أَمُوتَ وَلَمْ تَذَرْ لِلْحَرْبِ دَائِرَةً عَلَى ابْنَيْ صَمْصَمٍ
 [2/60 ومعان]
 “And indeed I feared that I would die, while a turn [of misfortune] had not [yet] turned, in battle, on the two sons of Ḍamḍam”
 (وَلَمْ تَذَرْ لِلْحَرْبِ دَائِرَةً) is the sentence ḥāl

- v. The sentence is negative and the muḍārie verb is negated with لَمْ. Here again, the sentence ḥāl need not contain a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the و of ḥāl is typically chosen to be used.²⁶ For example:

- (91) أَمْ حَسِبْتُمْ أَنْ تَدْخُلُوا الْجَنَّةَ وَلَمَّا يَلْعَمِ اللَّهُ الَّذِينَ جَاهَدُوا مِنْكُمْ وَيَعْلَمَ الصَّابِرِينَ
 [3:142 سورة آل عمران]
 “Or do you think that you will enter Paradise while Allāh has not yet made evident those of you who fight in His cause and made evident those who are steadfast?”

37.15.4. The sentence ḥāl strengthens the meaning of the preceding sentence as a whole

Sometimes the ḥāl describes, not just a single word as the person of ḥāl but the preceding sentence as a whole. (See section (ref)). If the ḥāl is itself a sentence, then the و of ḥāl is not used.

For example:

- (92) [حالات and 2/289 أَوْضَحَ المسالك لابن هشام cited by سورة البقرة: 2:2] ذَٰلِكَ الْكِتَابُ لَا رَيْبَ فِيهِ
 [الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان]
 “This is the Book about which there is no doubt”
 (The sentence لَا رَيْبَ فِيهِ, in this interpretation, is analyzed as a ḥāl to the preceding sentence ذَٰلِكَ الْكِتَابُ.)

37.15.5. The sentence ḥāl is a post-conjunction

If a sentence ḥāl is preceded by a conjunction (see section (multiple ḥals) above), then an additional و of ḥāl is not typically tacked on to the conjunction.

For example:

- (93) [سورة الأعراف: 7:4] فَجَاءَهَا بِأَسْنًا بَيَاتًا أَوْ هُمْ قَائِلُونَ
 “and Our punishment came to them at night or while they were sleeping at noon.”
 (An additional و of ḥāl is not tacked on to the conjunction أَوْ.)

However, according to some grammarians, a و of ḥāl, can be added to the conjunction and it would be acceptable.²⁷ For example:

²⁶From وإن كانت منفية ب «لما» فالمختار ربطها بالواو: 7:4 سورة الأعراف for إعراب القرآن للدرويش

²⁷معاني القرآن للفراء citing حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان

- (94) سورة الأعراف for معاني القرآن للفراء] أَتَيْتَنِي وَالْيَا أَوْ وَأَنَا مَعَزُولٌ
 “You came to me, while I was adjacent, or while I was remote.”

37.16. Purposes of the و of ḥāl

The و of ḥāl essentially distances the ḥāl from the influence of the governing verb.²⁸ For example, consider the expression:

- (95) 1/213 [دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني] جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ يُسْرِعُ
 “Zayd came to me hastening.”

The above example is almost equivalent to saying جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ مُسْرِعًا. The ḥāl جَاءَ is tightly bound to the governor جَاءَ. So the expression asserts Zayd's coming and his hastening as one assertion.

Consider now the expression with the و of ḥāl:

- (96) 1/214 [دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني] جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ يُسْرِعُ
 “Zayd came to me while he was hastening.”

Here the ḥāl sentence وَهُوَ يُسْرِعُ is a more independent assertion. Now, the only link between the ḥāl and its governing verb is that the ḥāl expresses the state of the person of ḥāl when the action of the governing verb took place.

The و of ḥāl can be used for a different purposes. We will list them below. In the following discussion, there will be three distinct expressions that we will refer to:

- i. The و of ḥāl
- ii. The ḥāl sentence which follows the و of ḥāl
- iii. The *preceding statement* which precedes the و of ḥāl

Here are some purposes of the و of ḥāl:

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the event in the preceding statement took place at the time when the ḥāl occurred. For example:

- (97) 2/361 [معاني النحو cited by 606 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام] جَاءَ زَيْدٌ وَالشَّمْسُ طَالِعَةٌ
 “Zayd came when the sun was risen.”

- (98) 2/367 [معاني النحو] سَأُزَوِّدُكَ وَالْقَمَرُ طَالِعٌ
 “I will visit you when the moon is risen.”

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the person of ḥāl was already in the state described by the ḥāl before the event in the preceding statement occurred. For example:

- (98) 2:246 [سورة البقرة] وَمَا لَنَا أَلَّا نُقَاتِلَ فِي سَبِيلِ اللَّهِ وَقَدْ أَخْرَجْنَا مِنْ دِيَارِنَا وَأَبْنَاءَنَا
 by 2/368 [معاني النحو]
 ““And why should we not fight in the cause of Allāh when we have been driven out from our homes and from our children?””

²⁸ 357–358 [معاني النحو] 1/213–214 [دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني]

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the ḥāl after it is something obvious and should be taken into account, when considering the preceding statement. For example:

(99) سورة البقرة [2:214] أَمْ حَسِبْتُمْ أَنْ تُدْخَلُوا الْجَنَّةَ وَلَمَّا يَأْتِكُمْ مَثَلُ الَّذِينَ خَلَوْا مِنْ قَبْلِكُمْ
cited by معاني النحو 2/367]

“Or do you think that you will enter Paradise while such [trial] has not yet come to you as came to those who passed on before you?”

(100) سنن أبي داود [2385] أَرَأَيْتَ لَوْ مَضَمَضْتَ مِنَ الْمَاءِ وَأَنْتَ صَائِمٌ

“What do you think if you rinse your mouth with water while you are fasting?”

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the ḥāl sentence is describing something extraordinary. For example:

(100) معاني النحو [2/368] عَبَرَ النَّهْرَ وَلَمْ يَحْرِكْ يَدَهُ

“He crossed the river while not (even) moving his hand!”

(101) معاني النحو [2/368] دَخَلَ عَلَى الْأَمِيرِ وَبِيَدِهِ سَيْفُهُ

“He entered upon the commander while in his hand was his sword!”

- To differentiate between a ḥāl and a attribute. For example:

(101) معاني النحو [2/368] رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا عِنْدَهُ مَالٌ

“I saw a man (who) had wealth.”

(The sentence عِنْدَهُ مَالٌ can be analyzed as a attribute.)

(102) معاني النحو [2/368] رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا وَعِنْدَهُ مَالٌ

“I saw a man while he had wealth.”

(The sentence عِنْدَهُ مَالٌ can only be analyzed as a ḥāl.)

There may be other purposes as well.²⁹

37.17. A quasi-sentence as the ḥāl

(Compare this section to section (ref).) A quasi-sentence, in this context, is a prepositional or adverbial phrase. For example: عَلَى الْغُصْنِ “on the branch” and بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ “between the clouds”.

Just like a complete sentence, a quasi-sentence too may occur as a ḥāl. For example:

(102) أوضح المسالك لابن هشام [2/285] رَأَيْتُ الْهَلَالَ بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ

“I saw the crescent between the clouds.”

(بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ is analyzed as a ḥāl.)

(103) جامع الدروس العربية لمصطفى الغلاييني [3/101] نَظَرْتُ الْغُصْفُورَ عَلَى الْغُصْنِ

“I looked at the sparrow on the branch.”

²⁹ معاني النحو 2/368–369

- (104) 2/52 [الأصول في النحو لابن السراج] كتب عمر إلى أبي عبيدة بالشام
 “Eumar wrote to Abī Eubaydah in Syria.”
- (105) 2/285 [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام] 28:79 cited by فَخَرَجَ عَلَى قَوْمِهِ فِي زِينَتِهِ
 “So he came out before his people in his adornment.”
 (فَخَرَجَ عَلَى قَوْمِهِ فِي زِينَتِهِ is analyzed as a ḥāl.³⁰)
- (106) 3:46 [سورة آل عمران] وَيَكَلِّمُ النَّاسَ فِي الْمَهْدِ
 “He will speak to the people in the cradle”
 (وَيَكَلِّمُ النَّاسَ فِي الْمَهْدِ has been analyzed as a ḥāl.³¹)

Now, you might be thinking: Didn't we learn in chapter (ref) that بَيْنَ is an adverb of place? So why are we now saying that it is a ḥāl?

Well, first of all, we are saying that the quasi-sentence بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ is a ḥāl, not just بَيْنَ. Secondly, we say that the quasi-sentence is a ḥāl only loosely speaking.

Remember that an adverb of time or place is governed by a verb. And the adverb of time or place indicates the time or place where the action of the verb occurred. In a sentence like (1282) رَأَيْتُ الْهَلَالَ بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ, the crescent was between the clouds before the action of seeing took place. So, in this case, we say that بَيْنَ is an adverb of place, but it is governed, not by the verb رَأَيْتُ, but by an implied general beingness (see section (ref)) So it is as if we are saying:

“I saw the crescent (while it was) [being] between the clouds.”

And it is this implied general beingness which is technically the ḥāl.³² While بَيْنَ remains (technically) an adverb of place.

Because the actual ḥāl “being” is (necessarily) unexpressed and only implied, we can loosely say that the quasi-sentence بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ is a ḥāl.

Similarly, in example (1283) نَظَرْتُ الْغُصْفُورَ عَلَى الْغُصْنِ, the prepositional phrase عَلَى الْغُصْنِ is governed, not by the verb نَظَرْتُ but by an implied verb “being” which is the true ḥāl. But, loosely speaking, we may say that the quasi-sentence عَلَى الْغُصْنِ is the ḥāl.

Similarly, in example (1284) كتب عمر إلى أبي عبيدة بالشام, the act of writing was done by Eumar in al-Ḥijāz, not in Syria. So the prepositional phrase بالشام is describing the state of Abū Eubaydah while he was in Syria.

This is yet another instance of where the lines between different types of adverbs get blurred. In fact, some grammarians have classified the ḥāl to be of the same class of adverbs as the adverb of time and the adverb of place.³³

From the perspective of meaning, the quasi-sentence بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ “between the clouds” describes the state of the person of ḥāl الْهَلَالُ during the occurrence of the verb رَأَيْتُ. Similarly, the quasi-sentence عَلَى الْغُصْنِ “on the branch” describes the state of the person of ḥāl الْغُصْفُورُ during the occurrence of the verb نَظَرْتُ.

Here is an example of where the quasi-sentence does not work as a ḥāl:

- (103) وَقَعَ الْحَجَرُ فِي الْحَفْرَةِ
 “The stone fell in the pit.”

³⁰See 28:79 سورة القصص for تفسير ابن عاشور

³¹3:46 سورة آل عمران for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

³²3/101 جامع الدروس العربية لمصطفى الغلاييني

³³4/166 المقتضب للمبرد

In the above example, the stone went in the pit due to the action of the verb وَقَعَ. So the preposition فِي is governed by the verb وَقَعَ. Because فِي is not governed by an implied governor meaning “being”, therefore, the quasi-sentence وَقَعَ فِي الْحُفْرَةِ is not a ḥāl.

One indicator to test if the quasi-sentence is valid as ḥāl in any particular sentence, is to insert a وَ of ḥāl and a pronoun (referring to the person of ḥāl) before the quasi-sentence (thus making it a complete sentence). The purpose of the وَ of ḥāl, here, is to make the ḥāl a pre-existing state. If the resulting expression (with the وَ of ḥāl is interpreted as making the ḥāl a pre-existing state) retains the same meaning as the original, then the quasi-sentence could be valid as a ḥāl. Let’s use this test on some of the examples above.

- (104) وَقَعَ الْحَجَرُ وَهُوَ فِي الْحُفْرَةِ
 “The stone fell while it had already been in the pit.”
 (This does not retain the same meaning as the original وَقَعَ فِي الْحُفْرَةِ. So the quasi-sentence in the original example is not a ḥāl.)
- (105) رَأَيْتُ الْهَيْلَالَ وَهُوَ بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ
 “I saw the crescent while it had already been between the clouds.”
 (This retains the meaning of the original رَأَيْتُ الْهَيْلَالَ بَيْنَ السَّحَابِ. So the quasi-sentence in the original example is valid as a ḥāl.)
- (106) نَظَرْتُ الْعُصْفُورَ وَهُوَ عَلَى الْغُصْنِ
 “I looked at the sparrow while it had already been on the branch.”
 (This retains the meaning of the original نَظَرْتُ الْعُصْفُورَ عَلَى الْغُصْنِ. So the quasi-sentence in the original example is valid as a ḥāl.)

There may be examples where a quasi-sentence could be validly interpreted either as a ḥāl (governed by an implied governor meaning “being”), or as governed by an overt verb.³⁴ For example:

- (105) 2/52 الأُصول في النحو لابن السراج [رَأَيْتُ زَيْدًا فِي الدَّارِ]
 “I saw Zayd in the house.”

Without context, the prepositional phrase فِي الدَّارِ could either be governed by رَأَيْتُ, signifying that the act of seeing was done in the house. Or it could be governed by the implication of general beingness, as a ḥāl for زَيْدٌ.³⁵

A quasi-sentence can only be a ḥāl if it is governed by an implied (unexpressed) governor. This implicated governor will typically be general beingness, as in the examples above.³⁶ In fact, some grammarians insist that the implied governor can only be general beingness.³⁷ However, it is conceivable that the implied governor of the preposition be interpreted, if not formally then at least in meaning, as some other verb (or verbal noun).³⁸ For example:

³⁴See also, for example, the tafsir of تَحْتَ الشَّجَرَةِ لَأَبِي حَيَّانٍ in سورة الفتح 48:18

³⁵2/52 الأُصول في النحو لابن السراج

³⁶1/213 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, 2/285 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكَ لَأَبِي هِشَامٍ

³⁷(مَا وَعَدْتُنَا عَلَى رُسُلِكَ) 3:194 سورة آل عمران for البحر المحيط لأَبِي حَيَّانٍ

³⁸2/447 footnote النحو الوافي

(106) [3:194 سورة آل عمران] رَبَّنَا وَءَاتِنَا مَا وَعَدْتَنَا عَلَىٰ رُسُلِكَ

“Our Lord, and grant us what You promised us through Your messengers”

In one interpretation of the above āyah, the prepositional phrase عَلَىٰ رُسُلِكَ “through Your messengers” has been analyzed as ḥāl of مَا وَعَدْتَنَا “what You promised us” The meaning with the implicated governor has been explained as مُنْزَلًا عَلَيْهِمْ “sent down on [Your messengers].”³⁹

37.18. Interpreting a sentence as a ḥāl vs. a attribute

We have just seen how a sentence (or quasi-sentence) can be interpreted as a ḥāl. And we already know that a sentence (or quasi-sentence) can be interpreted as a attribute. So how can we tell when a sentence (or quasi-sentence) is a ḥāl vs. when it is a attribute?

We may use the following guidelines⁴⁰:

- When a sentence (or quasi-sentence) occurs after a specific definite noun, then it will be a ḥāl.
- And when a sentence (or quasi-sentence) occurs after a unspecified indefinite noun, then it will be a attribute.
- And when a sentence (or quasi-sentence) occurs after a generic definite noun or an specified indefinite noun then it may be interpreted as either a ḥāl or a attribute.

However, in this case when both the attribute and the ḥāl interpretations are possible, one may still be preferred over the other depending on what the overall meaning and context demands.⁴¹

This is because when a sentence is interpreted as a ḥāl then it will be describing the state of the person of ḥāl. And when a sentence is interpreted as a attribute then it will be specifying or identifying the attributee.

What we mean by a *specific definite* noun is one that refers to a specific entity. Not one that refers to a generic type (for which Arabic also uses the definite).

For example, in the sentence زَيْدٌ فِي الْبَيْتِ “Zayd is in the house,” زَيْدٌ is a specific definite noun because it refers to a specific person. On the other hand, if we say الْفِيلُ حَيَوَانٌ “The elephant is an animal,” then we may be using الْفِيلُ to refer to the species, and not a specific elephant. In this case, الْفِيلُ is a *generic definite* noun.

And what we mean by an unspecified indefinite noun is one that is not restricted by a attribute or other qualifier. So it is applicable to any entity denoted

³⁹ 3:194 سورة آل عمران for تفسير ابن عاشور

⁴⁰ 560 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام

⁴¹ 3/477 النحو الوافي

by that noun. For example, *فِي الدَّارِ رَجُلٌ* in *فِي الدَّارِ رَجُلٌ* is an unspecified indefinite noun. But in *فِي الدَّارِ رَجُلٌ كَبِيرٌ* and *فِي الدَّارِ رَجُلٌ خَيْرٌ* it is a specified indefinite noun.

Here are some examples of sentences analyzed as attributes or ḥāls:

- (107) [560 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام cited by سورة الإسراء 17:93] *حَتَّى تُنَزِّلَ عَلَيْنَا كِتَابًا نَقْرُوهُ*
 “until you bring down to us a book we may read”
نَقْرُوهُ is analyzed as a attribute because *كِتَابٌ* is an unspecified indefinite noun.)
- (108) [1699a: صحيح مسلم] *فَلَقَدْ رَأَيْتُهُ يُقِيهَا مِنَ الْحَجَارَةِ بِنَفْسِهِ*
 “for indeed I saw him protecting her from the stones with his [body].”
يُقِيهَا is analyzed as a ḥāl because the pronoun *ه* in *رَأَيْتُهُ* is a specific definite noun.)
- (109) [43:31 سورة الزخرف] *وَقَالُوا لَوْلَا نُزِّلَ هَذَا الْقُرْآنُ عَلَى رَجُلٍ مِنَ الْقَرْيَتَيْنِ عَظِيمٍ*
 And they said, “Why was this Qur’ān not sent down upon a great man from [one of] the two cities?”
رَجُلٍ is a attribute. *عَظِيمٍ* is a second attribute.)
- (110) [561 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام cited by سورة الجمعة 62:5] *كَمَثَلِ الْجَمَارِ يَحْمِلُ أَسْفَارًا*
 “is like that of a donkey who carries volumes [of books]”
الْجَمَارِ is a generic definite noun. So, the sentence *يَحْمِلُ أَسْفَارًا* has been analyzed as either a ḥāl or a attribute.⁴²⁾

Consider now the following example:

- (108) [40:28 سورة غافر] *وَقَالَ رَجُلٌ مُؤْمِنٌ مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ*
 “And a believing man from the family of Pharaoh who concealed his faith said,”

In the above example, there are two (quasi-) sentences after the first attribute *مُؤْمِنٌ*:

- i. *مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ*
- ii. *يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ*

There are now multiple possible interpretations:

Since *رَجُلٌ* is now a specified indefinite noun (having been described by the attribute *مُؤْمِنٌ*) it is permissible for both *مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ* and *يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ* to be ḥāls. Or *مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ* can be a attribute and *يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ* can be a ḥāl. Or both *مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ* and *يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ* can be attributes.⁴³

37.19. Multiple ḥāls when one or more is a sentence or quasi-sentence

From section (ref) earlier in this chapter, we learned that there may be more than one ḥāl for one person of ḥāl. These multiple ḥāls may consist of sentence and quasi-sentence ḥāls. For example:

⁴² سورة الجمعة 62:5 للكشاف للزمخشري

⁴³ سورة غافر 40:28 for تفسير ابن عثيمين

- (109) [3:39 سورة آل عمران] فَنَادَتْهُ الْمَلَائِكَةُ وَهُوَ قَائِمٌ يُصَلِّي فِي الْمِحْرَابِ
 “So the angels called him while he was standing in prayer in the chamber,”
 (هُوَ قَائِمٌ and فِي الْمِحْرَابِ have both been analyzed as ḥāls as one interpretation.⁴⁴)

When one or more of these multiple ḥāls is a sentence or quasi-sentence, then it is usual, though not imperative, that the ḥāls be in the following order⁴⁵:

1. First, any ḥāls that are comprised of a single word
2. Then any quasi-sentence ḥāls
3. Then any sentence ḥāls

This is the same order that is usually followed for attributes as well.
 Here is an example:

- (110) [28:21 سورة القصص] فَخَرَجَ مِنْهَا خَائِفًا يَتَرَقَّبُ
 “So he left it, fearful and anticipating [apprehension].”

37.20. Suppressing the governor of the ḥāl

The governor of the ḥāl may be suppressed (i.e. omitted) in some cases optionally, and in other cases necessarily. We will discuss these cases below

37.20.1. Optional suppressing of the governor of the ḥāl

37.20.2. Necessary suppressing of the governor of the ḥāl

The governor is also omitted when it is conceptual with the meaning “existing” or “being”. We have seen this in section (ref) above.

37.21. TODO topics

- حذف عامل الحال
- الحال المؤكدة
- الحال من حيث الزمن/الحال المقدرة
- الحال النحو الوافي [2/400]

⁴⁴ 3:39 سورة آل عمران for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

⁴⁵ 3:46 سورة آل عمران for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

Work in progress

The connected nouns

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Consider the sentence:

- If the listener (or reader) can identify the individual referred to by the noun “the man” (maybe from a pre-existing mutual understanding with the speaker), then there is no problem with this sentence. But often, further clarification is needed for the listener to correctly identify the individual to whom the speaker is referring. This further clarification can be provided in a number of ways.

One way is to use an adjectival noun to describe the noun. For example:

- Another way is to use a pointing noun, thus:

- But sometimes, a whole sentence is needed to provide the needed identification. In this case, Arabic uses what is called a *connected noun* and a *connecting sentence*. This example should help you understand what we mean:

رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الَّذِي لَقِيتُهُ بِالْأَمْسِ .

connected noun connecting sentence

"I saw the [specific] man whom I met yesterday."

In the above sentence, the connected noun is الَّذِي *'alladhī*. It is applied to singular masculine nouns, like الرَّجُل. By itself it may be translated as “the one_{im} that/which/who/whom”. It is called a connected noun because it is directly followed by, i.e. *connected* to, a connecting sentence. The connecting sentence contains necessary information for the listener to correctly identify the individual that the connected noun refers to. The connecting sentence in the above example is the sentence لَقِيتُهُ بِالْأَمْسِ “I met him yesterday.”

Note by the way, that we did not translate the pronoun “him” in our original translation (above). This is because it would sound unnatural in English to say: “I saw the [specific] man (whom) I met *him* yesterday.” But this pronoun is an essential part of the Arabic connecting sentence and is called the *refer-back pronoun*. We will deal with it in section @ref(refer-back-pronoun) later in this chapter.

There are two types of connected nouns:

1. The specific connected nouns
2. The general connected nouns

We will study both these types separately within this chapter.

38.2. The specific connected nouns

The specific connected nouns have a significance which is restricted to a specific individual or category of individuals, and its connecting sentence should contain sufficient information to identify that specific individual.

The specific connected nouns is a group of nouns where each noun is applied to a gender and number of individuals. They are:

connected noun	Description
الَّذِي <i>'alladhī</i>	Singular masculine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Rigid. Only one ل in its spelling.
الَّتِي <i>'allati</i>	Singular feminine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Also used for plural non-intelligent beings of both genders. Rigid. Only one ل in its spelling.
الَّذَانِ <i>'alladhāni</i>	Dual masculine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Flexible: الَّذَيْنِ <i>'alladhayni</i> in the a-case and i-case. Two ل's in its spelling.
الَّتَانِ <i>'allatāni</i>	Dual feminine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Flexible: اللَّتَيْنِ <i>'allatayni</i> in the a-case and i-case. Two ل's in its spelling.
الَّذِينَ <i>'alladhīna</i>	Plural masculine. For both intelligent beings. Rigid. Only one ل in its spelling.

connected noun	Description
اللَّاتِي 'allāti	For plural feminine intelligent beings. Also used for non-intelligent beings of both genders but اللَّاتِي is more common there. Rigid. Two l's in its spelling. Has the following variants: اللَّاتِ 'allāti, اللَّائِي 'allā'i, اللَّوَاتِي 'allawāti

38.2.1. Grammatical position of the specific connected noun

Consider again the same example:

- (4) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الَّذِي لَقِيتُهُ بِالْأَمْسِ
«I saw the [specific] man whom I met yesterday.»

In this example, the connected noun الَّذِي 'allādhī is a attribute (in the a-case) to the described noun الرَّجُلَ. Because الَّذِي is a rigid noun, it will appear the same in all cases without any change to its ending.

As a attribute, the connected noun may also come as the last in a series of attributes, and can also be combined with a pointing noun. For example:

- (5) رَأَيْتُ ذَٰلِكَ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ الَّذِي لَقِيتُهُ بِالْأَمْسِ
«I saw that [specific] tall man whom I met yesterday.»

But connected nouns need not only occur as attributes. They may occur in various grammatical positions. Here are some examples:

As a subject:

- (6) سُوْرَةُ [سورة] وَالَّذِينَ يَكْتِزُونَ الذَّهَبَ وَالْفِصَّةَ وَلَا يَنْفِقُونَهَا فِي سَبِيلِ اللَّهِ فَبَشِّرْهُمْ بِعَذَابٍ أَلِيمٍ
[9:34 التوبة]
«And those who hoard gold and silver and spend it not in the way of Allāh - give them tidings of a painful punishment.»

As an info:

- (7) خَيْرُ أَيْمَتِكُمُ الَّذِينَ تُحِبُّونَهُمْ وَيُحِبُّونَكُمْ [1855: صحيح مسلم]
«The best of your rulers are the ones whom you love and who love you»

- (8) هُنَّ اللَّوَاتِي عَلَى الْمَنْبَرِ [36: سنن الدارمي]
«They are the ones which (are) on the pulpit.»

As a doer:

- (8) قَدْ بَلَغَنَا الَّذِي قُلْتُمُوهُ
«The [specific] one (thing) that you said has reached us.»

As a direct doee:

- (9) رَبَّنَا أَرْنَا الَّذِينَ أَضَلَّانَا مِنَ الْجِنَّ وَالْإِنْسِ [سورة فصلت 41:29]
 «Our Lord, show us those who misled us of the jinn and men»

Following a preposition:

- (10) أَوْ كَالَّذِي مَرَّ عَلَى قَرْيَةٍ [سورة البقرة 2:259]
 «Or [consider such an example] as the one who passed by a township»

As a annexed-to noun in an annexation:

- (11) قَدْ سَمِعَ اللَّهُ قَوْلَ الَّتِي تُجَادِلُكَ فِي زَوْجِهَا [سورة المجادلة 58:1]
 «Certainly has Allāh heard the speech of the one who argues [i.e., pleads] with you, [O Muḥammad]»

38.3. The refer-back pronoun

The connecting sentence directly follows the connected noun. As we mentioned in the introduction, the connecting sentence provides clarifying information for the listener (or reader) to identify the individual referred to by the connected noun.

In the connecting sentence is a pronoun that refers back to the connected noun. This pronoun is called the *refer-back pronoun*, and it is an essential (though not always apparent) part of the connecting sentence.

Let us identify some of the refer-back pronouns in the examples we have given.

- (12) وَالَّذِينَ يَكْتُمُونَ الذَّهَبَ وَالْفِضَّةَ
 «And those who hoard gold and silver»
 refer-back pronoun: the plural masculine doer pronoun **وَالَّذِينَ** in **يَكْتُمُونَ**
- (13) خَيْرَ أَوْلِيَّائِكُمُ الَّذِينَ تُحِبُّونَهُمْ
 «The best of your rulers are the ones whom you love and who love you»
 refer-back pronoun: the plural masculine direct doer attached pronoun **تُحِبُّونَهُمْ** in **تُحِبُّونَهُمْ**
- (14) قَدْ بَلَغَنَا الَّذِي قُلْتُمُوهُ
 «The [specific] one (thing) that you said has reached us.»
 refer-back pronoun: the singular masculine direct doer attached pronoun **قُلْتُمُوهُ** in **قُلْتُمُوهُ**
- (15) رَبَّنَا أَرْنَا الَّذِينَ أَضَلَّانَا مِنَ الْجِنَّ وَالْإِنْسِ
 «Our Lord, show us those who misled us of the jinn and men»
 refer-back pronoun: the dual masculine doer pronoun **أَضَلَّانَا** in **أَضَلَّانَا**
- (16) أَوْ كَالَّذِي مَرَّ عَلَى قَرْيَةٍ
 «Or [consider such an example] as the one who passed by a township»
 refer-back pronoun: the implied singular masculine doer pronoun “he” in **مَرَّ**

- (17) فَذَّ سَمِعَ اللَّهُ قَوْلَ الَّتِي تُجَادِلُكَ فِي زَوْجِهَا
 «Certainly has Allāh heard the speech of the one who argues [i.e., pleads] with you, [O Muḥammad] »
 refer-back pronoun: the implied singular feminine doer pronoun “she” in تُجَادِلُكَ

38.3.1. Matching the refer-back pronoun with the connected noun

The refer-back pronoun matches the specific connected noun in gender and number. And the refer-back pronoun is generally an absent-person pronoun (هُوَ، هُما، هُم، etc.). In the example وَالَّذِينَ يَكْنِزُونَ الذَّهَبَ وَالْفِضَّةَ “And those who hoard gold and silver,” the refer-back pronoun is the plural masculine absent-person doer pronoun وَ “they” in يَكْنِزُونَ “they hoard”. And it matches the plural masculine connected noun الَّذِينَ.

However, there is an exception to the refer-back pronoun being an absent-person pronoun. And that is when the connected noun refers to the speaker or the addressed person, like أَنَا الَّذِي، or أَنْتُمْ الَّذِينَ، etc. In these cases, the refer-back pronoun may optionally:

- i. either be an absent-person pronoun to match the connected noun (as usual),
- ii. or match the pronoun for the speaker or addressed person (as the case may be)

The latter is generally more common but both options are permissible. For example:

أَنَا الَّذِي حَضَرْتُ

refer-back pronoun: the singular masculine doer pronoun for the speaker ت in حَضَرْتُ

or

أَنَا الَّذِي حَضَرَ

refer-back pronoun: the implied singular masculine doer pronoun for the absent person “he” in حَضَرَ

“I am the one (who) was present.”

Here are some examples from Classical Arabic:

- (13) أَنَا الَّذِي سَمَّيْتُ أُمِّي حَيْدَرَةَ [Wright 2/324B]
 «I am the one whom my mother named Ḥaydarah »
 (The refer-back pronoun is the speaker person’s direct doer pronoun in سَمَّيْتُ، which is an abbreviation of سَمَّيْتِي “she named me”).
- (14) فَقَالَ مُوسَى يَا آدَمُ أَنْتَ الَّذِي خَلَقَكَ اللَّهُ بِيَدِهِ [2134: جامع الترمذي]
 «Mūsā said: O Ādam, you are the one whom Allāh created with His Hand »
 (The refer-back pronoun is the addressed person’s direct doer pronoun ك in خَلَقَكَ.)

There is one circumstance where matching the refer-back pronoun to the (absent person) connected noun is mandated. And that is when the connected noun is the called-out person using the particle *يَا أَيُّهَا* or *يَا أَيُّهَا*. For example,

- (14) *يَا أَيُّهَا الَّذِينَ آمَنُوا*
 «O you who have believed»
 not × *يَا أَيُّهَا الَّذِينَ آمَنُتُمْ*

Similarly,

- (15) [15:6 سورة الحجر] *يَا أَيُّهَا الَّذِي نُزِّلَ عَلَيْهِ الذِّكْرُ*
 «O you upon whom the message has been sent down»

38.4. The general connected nouns *مَنْ* and *مَا*

The general connected nouns are unrestricted in significance, and may be applied to any individual who fits the criteria given in the connecting sentence. The most commonly general connected nouns are:

- *مَنْ* *man*. Typically used for intelligent beings and translated as “who”.
- *مَا* *mā*. Typically used for non-intelligent beings and translated as “what”.
- *أَيُّ* *ayy*. Used for both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Translated as “which”, “whichever” or “any”.

There are also a couple of rarely or dialectally used general connected nouns that we will not cover. These are *دُو* *dū*, and *دَا* *dā*.

In this section we will deal with *مَنْ* and *مَا*. We will deal with *أَيُّ* separately in section (give ref) later in this chapter.

Unlike the specific connected nouns (*الَّذِي*, etc.), the general connected nouns do not vary for number and gender.

For example:

- (16) *أُحِبُّ مَنْ يَعْدِلُ* [Wright 2/322A]
 «I love [him] who is just.»
- (17) *وَمِنْهُمْ مَّنْ يَسْتَمِعُونَ إِلَيْكَ*
 [10:42 سورة يونس] «And among them are those who listen to you.»
- (18) *إِصْنَعْ مَا بَدَا لَكَ*
 «Do what seems (good) to you.»
- (19) *مَرَرْتُ بِمَا يُعْجِبُكَ*
 «I passed by what will please you.»
- (20) *عرفت ما اشتريته، وما اشتريتهما، وما اشتريتها، وما اشتريتهن* [https://shamela.ws/book/13257/195]

38.4.1. مَنْ and مَا after prepositions

When مَنْ and مَا are directly preceded by the prepositions مِنْ and عَنْ, these prepositions lose their ن and are joined to the following noun with the noun's م doubled. For example: مَمَّنْ *mimman*, مَمَّا *mimmā*, عَمَّنْ *eamman*, عَمَّا *eammā*.

The preposition فِي is also often (though not always) optionally attached to these connected nouns, thus: فِيمَنْ *fīman*, فِيمَا *fīmā*.

The remaining prepositions follow the normal rules: مَا عَلَى مَا, كَمَنْ, etc. But we will see, if Allāh wills, in chapter @ref(questions), that مَا and مَنْ are also used as question nouns, in which case the rules of joining prepositions to them will differ.

38.4.2. The refer-back pronoun for the general connected nouns

The general connected nouns مَنْ and مَا are themselves singular masculine in number and gender. However, they can be used to signify persons or things of any number and gender.

Their refer-back pronouns can then, optionally:

- i. Either match the gender and number of the persons or things meant by the connected noun. For example, for مَنْ:

(18) وَمِنْهُمْ مَنْ يَسْتَمِعُونَ إِلَيْكَ [10:42 سورة يونس] “And among them are those who listen to you”

(19) قَدْ خَابَتْ مَنْ فَعَلَتْ ذَلِكَ مِنْهُمْ وَخَسِرَتْ [33:18 جامع الترمذي] “She has thwarted herself, whoever did that from them_{3f}, and lost.”

Note also how, in this example how, in addition to the feminine refer-back doer pronouns in فَعَلَتْ and خَسِرَتْ, the feminine gender of the person signified by مَنْ has also caused the ت of femininity to be added to the verb خَابَ (of which مَنْ is the doer noun).

Examples for مَا:

(19) عرفت ما اشتريته، وما اشتريتهما، وما اشتريتها، وما اشتريتهن [https://shamela.ws/book/13257/195]

- ii. Or be singular masculine to match the connected noun itself. This is generally more common for مَا. For example:

(20) وَمِنْهُمْ مَنْ يُؤْمِنُ بِهِ وَمِنْهُمْ مَنْ لَا يُؤْمِنُ بِهِ [10:40 سورة يونس] “And of them are those who believe in it, and of them are those who do not believe in it.”

(21) جَمَعْتُ مِنَ الْوَرَقِ مَا سَقَطَ «I gathered what fell from the leaves.»

(22) صَلِّ مِنَ الْوَرَقَاتِ مَا يَتَيَسَّرُ
«Pray from the units (of prayer) what is easy.»

(23) لَمْ أَجِدْ مَا أَعْتَذِرُ بِهِ [171: مساوي الأخطاء للخرائط] «I did not find what I (could) make an excuse for with.»

Both options can be utilized together as well. For example:

- (21) بَلَىٰ مَنْ أَسْلَمَ وَجْهَهُ لِلَّهِ وَهُوَ مُحْسِنٌ فَلَهُ أَجْرُهُ عِنْدَ رَبِّهِ وَلَا خَوْفٌ عَلَيْهِمْ وَلَا هُمْ يَحْزَنُونَ [سورة البقرة 2:112]
 «Yes, [on the contrary], whoever submits his face [i.e., self] in Islām to Allāh while being a doer of good will have his reward with his Lord. And no fear will there be concerning them, nor will they grieve.»
- (22) 2:38 سورة البقرة [فَمَنْ تَبِعَ هُدَايَ فَلَا خَوْفٌ عَلَيْهِمْ وَلَا هُمْ يَحْزَنُونَ]
 «whoever follows My guidance - there will be no fear concerning them, nor will they grieve.»

38.4.3. Applicability of مَا and مَنْ to intelligent and non-intelligent beings

As we mentioned earlier, مَنْ is typically used to refer to intelligent beings. And مَا is typically used to refer to non-intelligent beings. However, there are some circumstances in which these roles can differ.

مَنْ may be used for non-intelligent beings when a non-intelligent being is compared with an intelligent being. For example,

وَاللَّهُ خَلَقَ كُلَّ دَابَّةٍ مِّن مَّاءٍ فَمِنْهُمْ مَّن يَمْشِي عَلَىٰ بَطْنِهِ وَمِنْهُمْ مَّن يَمْشِي عَلَىٰ رِجْلَيْنِ وَمِنْهُمْ مَّن يَمْشِي عَلَىٰ أَرْبَعٍ

[سورة النور 24:45]

“Allāh has created every [living] creature from water. And of them are those that move on their bellies, and of them are those that walk on two legs, and of them are those that walk on four.”

مَنْ may also be used for non-intelligent beings when attributes usually applicable to intelligent beings are applied to a non-intelligent being. For example:

- (22) أَسْرَبَ الْقَطَا، هَلْ مَن يُعِيرُ جَنَاحَهُ * لَعَلِّي إِلَىٰ مَن قَدْ هَوَيْتُ أَطِيرُ [Wright 2/314D]
 «O flock of birds, is there who will lend his wing»
 that perhaps I may fly to whom I love
 أ: “O”, سَرَبَ: “flock”, قَطَا: a species of bird, هَلْ: “is there?”, يُعِيرُ: “lend”,
 لَعَلِّي: “Perhaps I”, هَوَيْتُ: “I love”, أَطِيرُ: “I fly”.

مَنْ may also be used for non-intelligent beings when there is a mixed group including both intelligent and non-intelligent beings, and the intelligent beings are given preference. For example:

- (23) 13:15 سورة الرعد [وَلِلَّهِ يَسْجُدُ مَن فِي السَّمٰوٰتِ وَالْاَرْضِ]
 «And to Allāh prostrates whoever is within the heavens and the earth»

Similarly, مَا may, in some circumstances, be used for intelligent beings. This may be when there is a mixed group including both intelligent and non-intelligent beings, and the non-intelligent beings are given preference because of their larger number. For example:

- (24) [سورة الجمعة: 62:1] يُسَبِّحُ لِلَّهِ مَا فِي السَّمَاوَاتِ وَمَا فِي الْأَرْضِ
«Whatever is in the heavens and whatever is on the earth is exalting Allāh»

مَا may also be used for intelligent beings when the person being referred to is vague to the speaker. For example:

- (25) [سورة آل عمران: 3:35] رَبِّ إِنِّي نَذَرْتُ لَكَ مَا فِي بَطْنِي مُحَرَّرًا
«My Lord, indeed I have pledged to You what is in my womb, consecrated [for Your service]»

مَا may also be used for intelligent beings when the characteristics of an intelligent being are highlighted when referring to them. For example:

- (26) [سورة النساء: 4:3] فَانكِحُوا مَا طَابَ لَكُمْ مِنَ النِّسَاءِ
«then marry those that please you of [other] women»

38.4.4. Grammatical position of the general connected nouns

The general connected noun may occur in various grammatical positions. Here are some examples:

As a subject:

- (27) [سورة النحل: 16:96] مَا عِنْدَكُمْ يَنْفَدُ
«Whatever you have will end»

As an info:

- (28) [الأدب المفرد: 153] مَا لَكَ مَا قَدَّمْتَ، وَمَالُ وَارِثِكَ مَا أَخَّرْتَ
«Your wealth is what you have sent forward, and the wealth of your inheritors is what you have left behind.»

As a doer:

- (29) [صحيح البخاري: 668] فَعَلَهُ مَنْ هُوَ خَيْرٌ مِنِّي
«it was done by one who was better than I»

As a direct doer:

- (30) [سورة فصلت: 41:40] اْعْمَلُوا مَا شِئْتُمْ
«Do whatever you will»

Following a preposition:

- (31) [جامع الترمذي: 3563] وَأَغْنِنِي بِقُضْلِكَ عَمَّنْ سِوَاكَ
«and make me independent from (all) who are besides You»

As an annexed-to noun in an annexation:

- (32) [صحيح مسلم: 2283] فَذَلِكَ مَثَلُ مَنْ أَطَاعَنِي
«So that is the similitude of the one who obeyed me»

- (33) مَا تَرَى رَأَى مَا تَرَى [Fischer 218]
 «You do not think what we think.»
 (literally: “You do not opine the opinion of what we opine.”)

- (34) أَمْرٌ مَا تَحْذَرُ [Fischer 218]
 «the matter of which you are wary»

Unlike the specific connected nouns (الَّذِي, etc), the general connected nouns do not occur as attributes. So while we can say:

- (33) مَرَرْتُ بِالرَّجُلِ الَّذِي أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ
 «I passed by the man who was good to me.»

we cannot say:

- (34) مَرَرْتُ بِالرَّجُلِ مَنْ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ ×

We will have to say instead:

- (35) مَرَرْتُ بِمَنْ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ

The general connected noun can, however, occur as a replacement. For example,

- (36) وَالْمُسْلِمُونَ مَنِ تَبِعَ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ كَثِيرٌ [Fischer §421.2. Originally, from
 [السيرة النبوية لابن هشام].]
 «And the Muslims, who follow the Messenger of Allāh, are many»

38.4.5. Use with the preposition مِنْ

The preposition مِنْ is frequently used with the general connected nouns to restrict the applicability of the connected noun to a group or type. This مِنْ may come either before the connected noun, or after its connecting sentence. For example:

- (37) فَأَعْطَانِي مَا كَانَ عَنْدَهُ مِنْ خُبْزٍ [Fischer 218]
 «Then he gave me what he had of bread.»
- (38) مَنْ دَخَلَ الشَّامَ مِنَ الْعَرَبِ [Fischer 218]
 «Those Arabs who entered Syria»
 (literally: “Who entered Syria from the Arabs”)
- (39) فَانكِحُوا مَا طَابَ لَكُمْ مِنَ النِّسَاءِ [سورة النساء: 4:3]
 «then marry those that please you of [other] women»
- (40) اللَّهُمَّ اقْسِمْ لَنَا مِنْ خَشْيَتِكَ مَا يَحُولُ بَيْنَنَا وَبَيْنَ مَعْصِيكَ [3502: جامع الترمذي]
 «O Allāh, apportion for us, from the fear of You, (that) what shall come between us and disobedience of You»
 (The connected noun مَا is the direct doer of the verb of command اقْسِمْ.)

38.4.6. Use with a repeated word to express vagueness or uncertainty

The general connected nouns مَنْ and مَا are used with a word that is repeated to express a vague or uncertain quantity or quality. For example:

- (38) هُمْ مَا هُمْ [Fischer 218]
«They are what they are.»
- (39) نَزَلَ مَنْ نَزَلَ مِنْهُمْ [Fischer 218]
«Some of them came down.»
(literally: Came down who came down from them.)
- (40) جَمَعْتُ مَا جَمَعْتُ [Fischer 218]
«I gathered what I gathered.»

38.5. Deleting the refer-back pronoun

The refer-back pronoun may be deleted (and its meaning is then implicit) if some conditions are satisfied. Some conditions are specific to the case of the refer-back pronoun. These are:

- (a) When the refer-back pronoun is the subject of a nominal sentence, then it may be deleted, and its meaning will be implied. When deleting the refer-back pronoun in this case, it is preferred that the connecting sentence not be too short.

For example:

- (39) انْظُرُوا إِلَى مَنْ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ [صحيح مسلم: 2963c]¹
«Look at who is lower than you.»
(instead of مَنْ هُوَ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ.)
- (40) وَلَهُ مَنْ فِي السَّمَاوَاتِ وَالْأَرْضِ [سورة الأنبياء: 21:19]
«To Him belongs whoever is in the heavens and the earth.»
(instead of مَنْ هُوَ فِي السَّمَاوَاتِ وَالْأَرْضِ)
- (41) مَا أَنَا بِالَّذِي قَائِلٌ لَكَ شَيْئًا [Wright 2/322D]
«I am not the one who says anything to you.»
(instead of مَا أَنَا بِالَّذِي هُوَ قَائِلٌ لَكَ شَيْئًا)

If the connecting sentence is very short, the deleting the refer-back pronoun subject is permissible, though rare. For example:

- (40) لَا يَنْطِقُ بِمَا سَفَهُ [Wright 2/322D]
«He does not speak what is foolish.»
(instead of بِمَا هُوَ سَفَهُ)

¹See also صحيح مسلم 2963c and سنن ابن ماجه 4142 for variants with the refer-back pronoun.

- (b) When the refer-back pronoun is an attached pronoun for the direct doer it is permissible to delete it. For example:

- (41) 9:35 سورة التوبة [هَذَا مَا كُنْتُمْ لَأَنْفُسِكُمْ
«This is what you hoarded for yourselves»
(instead of كُنْتُمْ لَأَنْفُسِكُمْ مَا كُنْتُمْ لَأَنْفُسِكُمْ)

- (c) When the refer-back pronoun is in the i-case, it is permissible to delete it:

- (i) When the refer-back pronoun is the annexed-to noun in an annexation whose annexed noun is a doer participle or the direct doer implying a present or future meaning. For example:

- (42) 20:72 سورة طه [فَأَقْضِ مَا أَنْتَ قَاضٍ
“So decree whatever you are to decree.”
(instead of فَأَقْضِ مَا أَنْتَ قَاضِيهِ)
- (43) 21:23 مسند أحمد [قَالَ أَتَبْعُ إِلَيَّ مَا لَسْتَ آكِلًا
“He said: Do you send to me what you do not eat?”
(instead of مَا لَسْتَ آكِلُهُ)

- (ii) When the refer-back pronoun is attached to a preposition or adverb, and the same preposition or adverb has already been used (with the same meaning) with the connecting noun or its described noun. The preposition/adverb is deleted along with its attached pronoun. For example:

- (43) Wright 2/323C [أَنَا عِنْدَ مَنْ أَنْتَ
«I am at his [house] at whose you (are).»
(instead of مَنْ أَنْتَ عِنْدَهُ)
- (44) Wright 2/323D [مَرَرْتُ بِالَّذِي مَرَّ سُلَيْمَانُ
«I passed by the (same) one that Sulaymān did.»
(instead of مَرَرْتُ بِالَّذِي مَرَّ بِهِ سُلَيْمَانُ)

In addition to the above conditions that are specific to the case of the refer-back pronoun, a further, general, condition should be satisfied, which is: that the omission of the refer-back pronoun be obvious to the listener, and the listener can re-construct the original meaning by restoring the refer-back pronoun to get the intended meaning.

If the refer-back pronoun is deleted, and the remaining connecting sentence (with the refer-back pronoun deleted) is valid as a connecting sentence on its own right, then it will give a different meaning (even if slightly) from the original. And the listener will not know that the refer-back pronoun has been deleted. In this case, it is not permitted to delete the refer-back pronoun. Here is an example that should explain what we mean:

Consider the sentence:

- (44) 1/168 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية [جاء الذي ضربته في داره
«“The one whom I beat (him) in his house, came.»

The connecting sentence is ضربه في داره “I beat him in his house.” and the refer-back pronoun is the a-case direct doee pronoun ه “him”. If we delete this pronoun, the sentence becomes

- (45) جاء الذي ضربت في داره
«“The one who I beat in his house, came.»

Now the meaning of the sentence is markedly different. The connecting sentence ضربت في داره is valid on its own right but it gives a different meaning from the original. It does not specify that I beat *him* in his house, just that I beat in his house, possibly others. Because the omission of the refer-back pronoun is not obvious, the sentence now does not signify the original intent. And so deleting the refer-back pronoun in this case is not permitted.

38.6. The general connected noun أَيَّ

أَيَّ “which/whichever” is a general connected noun similar to مَا “what” and مَنْ “who”. But it differs from مَا and مَنْ in a few aspects:

Firstly, أَيَّ is (generally) fully flexible. So it will display its case as a vowel mark on its final letter. Whereas مَا and مَنْ, as we know, are rigid.

Secondly, أَيَّ can be, and, in fact, properly is, the annexed noun in an annexation. Whereas مَا and مَنْ cannot be annexed nouns. For example,

- (46) يُعْجِبُنِي أَيُّ التَّلَامِذَةِ يَجْتَهِدُ
«Whichever of the students strives, pleases me.»
(أَيُّ is in the u-case)

- (47) فَآوِ إِلَى أَيِّهِمْ يَحْمِيكَ
«So take shelter with whichever of them protects you.»
(أَيُّ is in the i-case)

Also, أَيَّ is used indiscriminately for both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. For example,

- (48) أَحْمِلْ أَيُّ الْحَقِيْبَتَيْنِ هِيَ الْأَثْقَلُ
«I shall carry whichever of the two bags is the heavier.»
(أَيُّ is in the a-case)

Note how, in the above examples, the final vowel mark on أَيَّ varies, depending on its case due to its being a flexible noun.

أَيَّ, like مَا and مَنْ, is itself a singular masculine noun. And, like مَا and مَنْ, أَيَّ can be used, unchanged, for both genders. The previous example used أَيَّ with حَقِيْبَةٌ which is a feminine noun. But a feminine version أَيَّة does exist and can be used with feminine annexed-to nouns. It is, however, only commonly used if its annexed-to noun is a feminine pronoun. For example,

- (49) صَادِقِي أَيُّهُنَّ تَنْصَحُكَ
 «Befriend whichever of them_{3,f} is sincere to you_{1,f}.»

By the way, أَيُّ (like مَا and مَنْ) is also a question noun and we will discuss its properties in more detail in section ...

38.6.1. The connected noun أَيُّ without an annexed-to noun

أَيُّ can sometimes occur without an annexed-to noun. Technically, it will then be indefinite, and thus tanwined. However, it will carry the meaning of an implied annexation. For example,

- (50) سَأُقَاتِلُ أَيُّاً يُقَاوِمُنِي
 «I will fight whichever [of them, the enemies, etc.] resists me.»

38.6.2. The connected noun أَيُّ with a deleted refer-back pronoun

Consistent with what we have already learned for the other connected nouns, the refer-back pronoun may be deleted in connected sentences for the connected noun أَيُّ.

For example,

- (51) أَجْزِي أَيُّهُمْ صَادِقٌ
 «I will reward whichever of them is truthful.»
 (instead of أَجْزِي هُوَ صَادِقٌ.)

38.6.3. Circumstance for the rigidity of أَيُّ

As mentioned, أَيُّ is generally fully flexible. However, there is one circumstance in which it may optionally be a rigid noun with the final vowel mark ُ thus: أَيُُّ. This is when both of the following conditions are satisfied:

- i. أَيُُّ is an annexed noun.
- ii. The refer-back pronoun to أَيُُّ is the subject of the connecting sentence and it is deleted.

For example,

- (52) أَجْزِي أَيُّهُمْ صَادِقٌ
 «I will reward whichever of them is truthful.»

Since this rigidity is optional, أَيُُّ may, in this case, retain its full-flexibility:

- (53) أَجْزِي أَيُّهُمْ صَادِقٌ
 «I will reward whichever of them is truthful.»

But if both the conditions above are not satisfied then اَيُّ shall remain fully-flexible. For example,

- (54) أَجْزِي أَيُّهُمْ هُوَ صَادِقٌ
 أَجْزِي أَيُّا هُوَ صَادِقٌ
 أَجْزِي أَيُّا صَادِقٌ²

38.7. Separating the connecting sentence from the connected noun

Generally, the connecting sentence directly follows the connected noun, as in all the examples we have given so far. However, the connecting sentence may be separated from the connected noun by one of the following:

i. An oath. For example:

- (55) جَاءَ الَّذِي وَاللَّهِ فَهَرَّ الْأَعْدَاءُ
 «The one who - by Allāh - overpowered the enemies has come.»

ii. A sentence calling out to someone. For example,

- (56) أَنْتَ الَّذِي يَا زَيْدُ فَتَحْتَ الْبَابَ
 «You are the one - O Zayd - who opened the door.»

iii. A parenthetical clause, which is a sentence within the main sentence that adds information to it, but which can be deleted without affecting the completeness of the main sentence. For example:

- (57) قَدِمَ الَّذِي أَطَالَ اللَّهُ عُمُرَهُ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ
 «The one who - may Allah lengthen his age - was good to me has arrived.»
 (58) قَدِمَ الَّذِي وَهُوَ مُبْتَسِمٌ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ
 «The one who - and he is smiling - was good to me has arrived.»

38.8. Deleting the connected noun and/or the connecting sentence

TODO. See □□□□□□ □□□□□

- (58) [5687: سنن النسائي] أَنَا أَوَّلُ الْعَرَبِ سَأَلَهُ
 I [was] the first of the Arabs [who] asked him

²The examples generally quoted by the grammarians are (1) the verse of poetry إِذَا مَا لَقِيتَ بَنِي مَالِكٍ and (2) the ayah ثُمَّ لَنَنْزِعَنَّ مِنْ كُلِّ شِيعَةٍ أَيُّهُمْ أَشَدُّ عَلَى الرَّحْمَنِ عِتِيًّا [سورة مريم 19:69], and (3) فَسَلَّمَ عَلَى أَيُّهُمْ أَفْضَلُ

38.9. Sentences without connected nouns

There are some sentences where we might expect a connected noun but which are always, or often (as the case may be), expressed in Arabic without a connected noun. These sentences are of different types:

38.9.1. Sentences with indefinite nouns needing a qualifying sentence

When an indefinite noun needs a qualifying sentence, it is natural in English to insert “that”, “which”, “who”, etc. between the noun and the following sentence. For example, “I passed by a man *who* was sleeping.”

In Arabic, however, we will not use any connected noun in such sentences. This is because the connected nouns are considered definite nouns. And therefore they may not be a attribute to an indefinite noun. So while we can say:

- (59) مَرَرْتُ بِالرَّجُلِ الَّذِي يَنَامُ
«I passed by the man who is sleeping.»

we cannot say

- (60) × مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ الَّذِي يَنَامُ

Instead, we put the qualifying sentence directly after the indefinite noun. The qualifying sentence will then not be a connecting sentence, but will itself be the attribute to the described noun:

- (61) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ يَنَامُ
«I passed by a man (who) is sleeping.»

Here is another example:

- (62) جَلَسْتُ فِي مَجْلِسٍ قَدْ رُسِّ بِمَاءِ الْوَرْدِ
«I sat in a sitting (that) had been sprinkled with rose-water.»

A connected noun can, however, follow an indefinite noun, if we intend to start a separate sentence with it, or if it is a *replacement* (see chapter @ref(the-replacement)). For example.

- (63) [614: صحيح البخاري] وَابْعَثْهُ مَقَامًا مَحْمُودًا الَّذِي وَعَدْتُهُ
«Resurrect him to a praiseworthy station, the one that you promised him»

- (64) [104:1-2 سورة الهمة] وَيْلٌ لِّكُلِّ هُمَزَةٍ لُّمَزَةٍ الَّذِي جَمَعَ مَالًا وَعَدَّدَهُ
«Woe to every scorner and mocker. Who collects wealth and [continuously] counts it.»

38.9.2. Sentences containing a noun with generic definiteness

Sometimes the definite article *الـ* does not determine a particular individual, but makes a noun definite only in a generic way. In this case a qualifying sentence may directly follow it without any intermediate connected noun used as a attribute.³ Because there is no connected noun, the qualifying sentence is, again, not analyzed as a connecting sentence. For example:

- (64) كَمَثَلِ الْجِمَارِ يَحْمِلُ أَسْفَارًا [سورة الجمعة 62:5]
 «like that of a donkey who carries volumes [of books]»
 (Note how the translator has translated *الْجِمَارِ* as “a donkey” because in English an indefinite noun is often used to indicate a generic type.)
- (65) أَنْتَ الْوَزِيرُ لَا يُعَصَى [Fischer 219]
 «You are the (sort of) vizier (who) is not disobeyed.»
- (66) هُمْ الْفَوَارِسُ يَحْمُونَ النِّسَاءَ [Fischer 219]
 «They are the (kind of) horsemen (who) protect the women.»

38.9.3. Sentences with prepositional or adverbial phrases

If a sentence has a definite noun which is to be qualified by a prepositional or adverbial phrase, then in many cases, that phrase may directly follow the definite noun without any intermediate connected noun used a attribute. But using a connected noun is also permissible if one wishes to emphasize that the specificity of the noun. When there is no connected noun, the prepositional or adverbial phrase is not analyzed as a connecting sentence, but is considered attached to an implied verb that has the idea of “being”, like “is”, “are”, etc. When there is a connected noun, then it is analyzed as a connecting sentence, as usual. For example:

- (65) سِرْتُ فِي الْحَدِيقَةِ عِنْدَ الْمَسْجِدِ
 «I walked in the garden next to the mosque.»

or

- (66) سِرْتُ فِي الْحَدِيقَةِ الَّتِي عِنْدَ الْمَسْجِدِ

or

- (67) سِرْتُ فِي الْحَدِيقَةِ الَّتِي هِيَ عِنْدَ الْمَسْجِدِ
 «I walked in the [specific] garden that [is] next to the mosque.»

³Wright 2/318C

38.10. Tense of the connecting sentence

وقد يقع الماضي بعد الموصول المذكور وهو بمعنى المستقبل لتضمنه معنى الشرط، كقولك:
الذي أتاني فله درهم

...
وكذا كان حق الصلة ألا تكون إلا فعلا مستقبلا بمعنى كشرط من وما، إلا أنه لما لم يكن
شرطا في الحقيقة جاز ألا يكون صريحا في الفعلية...

[1/268-269 شرح الرضي على الكافية]

Work in progress

Chapter 39.

The question sentence

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

39.1. Introduction

Questions in Arabic are introduced by *question-devices*. Question-devices can be particles like أَ and هَلْ used to introduce yes/no questions. Or they can be nouns like:

- مَا « what »
- مَنْ « who »
- أَيَّ « which »
- كَيْفَ « how »
- أَيْنَ « where »
- مَتَى « when »

Question-devices occur in the beginning of a question sentence. We will study these and other question-devices in this chapter, if Allāh wills.

39.2. أَ and هَلْ

39.2.1. أَ

أَ is the most basic question-device. It is used to form:

1. Yes-no questions. For example:

(1) أَحْضَرَ الْقَاضِي [معاني النحو 4/271]
« Has the judge come? »

2. Multiple-choice questions. For example:

- (2) [4/271 معاني النحو] أَمْحَمَّدٌ عِنْدَكَ أَمْ خَالِدٌ (2)
« Is Muḥammad with you or Khālīd? »

Here are some examples of yes/no questions using أَ:

- (3) [687: صحيح البخاري] أَصَلَّى النَّاسُ
« Have the people prayed? »
- (4) أَتَرِضُونَ أَنْ يَذْهَبَ النَّاسُ بِالسَّاعَةِ وَالْبَعِيرِ، وَتَذْهَبُونَ بِالنَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ إِلَى رِجَالِكُمْ [4330: صحيح البخاري]
« Are you pleased that the people are going away with sheep and camels, while you are going with the Prophet ﷺ to your homes? »
- (5) [21:62 سورة الأنبياء] قَالُوا ءَأَنْتَ فَعَلْتَ هَذَا بِآلِهَتِنَا يَا إِبْرَاهِيمُ
« They said, "Have you done this to our gods, O Abraham?" »
- (6) أَمَا تَسْتَحْيِي مِنَ اللَّهِ [Wright 2/307A]
« Aren't you ashamed from Allāh? »
- (7) [1413: صحيح البخاري] أَلَمْ أَرْسِلْ إِلَيْكَ رَسُولًا
« Didn't I send a messenger to you? »

Exceptionally, when conjunctions like وَ, فَ, and ثُمَّ are to be added before the question, they will follow أَ, not precede it. For example:

- (4) [Wright 2/307A] فَقَالَ أَبُو بَكْرٍ أَوَلَكُلِّكُمْ رَأْيُهُ عَلَى هَذَا
« Abū Bakr said, "Are all of you of this opinion?" »
- (5) [1742: صحيح البخاري] أَفَتَذَرُونَ أَيَّ شَهْرٍ هَذَا
« Do you then know which month this is? »
- (6) [10:51 سورة يونس] أَتُمْ إِذَا مَا وَقَعَ ءَامَنْتُمْ بِهِ ؕ ءَالَكُنْ وَقَدْ كُنْتُمْ بِهِ تَسْتَعْجِلُونَ
« Then is it that when it has [actually] occurred you will believe in it? Now? And you were [once] for it impatient. »

When the word following أَ is a noun beginning with a connecting hamzah, then أَ may replace the connecting hamzah. For example:

- (5) [Wright 1/24A] أَبْنُكَ ...
« Is your son ...? »
(instead of أَابْنُكَ.)
- (6) [Wright 1/24A] أُنْكَسِرَتْ
« Did it break? »
(instead of أَالنَّكَسِرَتْ.)

- (7) ... أَلْمَاءُ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is the water ...?»
(instead of أَلْمَاءُ.)

When أَ precedes ال, as in example () above, then the two alifs may also be combined to form آ. So we can also say:

- (6) ... آَلْمَاءُ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is the water ...?»
(instead of أَلْمَاءُ or آَلْمَاءُ.)

Similarly,

- (7) آَلْحَسَنُ عِنْدَكَ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is al-Ḥasan with you?»
(instead of أَلْحَسَنُ.)
- (8) آَلْقُرَشِيُّ أَمْ التَّقَفِيُّ عِنْدَكَ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is [he] of Quraysh or of Thaqif?»

39.2.2. أَوْ vs أَمْ

أَمْ is used to provide options in multiple-choice questions when the answer is *either* one or another of the provided options. For example, in the question:

- (8) أَمْ مُحَمَّدٌ عِنْدَكَ أَمْ خَالِدٌ [كتاب معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is Muḥammad with you or Khālīd?»

The answer can only be either «Muḥammad». or «Khālīd». Similarly, if we say:

- (9) أَرْيَدُ أَفْضَلَ أَمْ خَالِدٌ [كتاب سيبويه 4/296 citing معاني النحو]
«Is Zayd better or Khālīd?»

The answer can only be either «Zayd» or «Khālīd».

أَوْ, on the other hand, is used in yes/no questions. For examples:

- (10) أَلْقَبْتَ زَيْدًا أَوْ عَمْرًا أَوْ خَالِدًا [كتاب سيبويه 4/295 citing معاني النحو]
«Did you meet Zayd or ʿAṣmr or Khālīd?»
- (11) أَعِنْدَكَ زَيْدٌ أَوْ خَالِدٌ أَوْ عَمْرٌو [كتاب سيبويه 4/295 citing معاني النحو]
«Is Zayd or Khālīd or ʿAṣmr with you?»

then we are asking if you met *any* one of the named persons, and if any of them are with you. So the answer can be «yes» or «no».

Here is another scenario where أَمْ is contrasted with أَوْ. Consider the following examples:

- (11) [4/296 معاني النحو] مَا أَذْرِي أَأَكَلَ أَمْ شَرِبَ
«I don't know: did he eat or [or did he] drink.»
- (12) [4/296 معاني النحو] مَا أَذْرِي أَأَكَلَ أَوْ شَرِبَ
«I don't know: did he eat or drank.»

In the first example, you are wondering which of the two options he did. Whereas in the second example, you are wondering if he did any of the two examples.

39.2.3. أَمْ as a question-device

أَمْ is also used as a question-device on its own right, when asking a yes/no question as an alternative. For example:

- (12) [1/72 معاني القرآن للفراء] هَلْ لَكَ قَبْلَنَا حَقٌّ أَمْ أَنْتَ رَجُلٌ مَعْرُوفٌ بِالظُّلْمِ
[1/289 لابن هشام]
«Do you have a right before us, or are you a man known for transgression?»

Similarly,

- (13) [1/289 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام] قُلْ هَلْ يَسْتَوِي الْأَعْمَى وَالْبَصِيرُ أَمْ هَلْ تَسْتَوِي الظُّلُمَةُ وَالنُّورُ أَمْ جَعَلُوا لِلَّهِ شُرَكَاءَ
[13:16 سورة الرعد] خَلَقُوا كَخَلْقِهِ فَتَشَبَّهُ الْخَلْقُ عَلَيْهِمْ
«Say, "Is the blind equivalent to the seeing? Or is darkness equivalent to light? Or have they attributed to Allāh partners who created like His creation so that the creation [of each] seemed similar to them?"»
- (14) [1/289 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام] أَمْ لَهُ الْبَنَاتُ وَلَكُمْ الْبَنُونَ
[52:39 سورة الطور]
«Or has He daughters while you have sons?»

39.2.4. Omitting أَ

أَ may frequently be omitted from a question sentence. Its meaning will then be implicit. For example:

- (14) [237 معاني النحو] قَوْلَ اللَّهِ مَا أَذْرِي وَإِنْ كُنْتُ دَارِيًا بِسَبْعِ رَمِيمِ الْجَمْرِ أَمْ يَتَمَانِ
[cited by النحو] «By Allāh, I don't know, even though I am knowledgeable, with seven did they throw the pebbles or with eight?»
(أَبَسْبَعِ)

39.2.5. هَلْ

هَلْ is similar to أَ in that it introduced yes/no questions. Here are some examples with هَلْ:

- (15) [85:17 سورة البروج] هَلْ أَتَاكَ حَدِيثُ الْجُنُودِ
[2/308C Wright] «Has there reached you the story of the soldiers -»

- (16) يَأْتِيهَا الَّذِينَ ءَامَنُوا هَلْ أَذُنُكُمْ عَلَىٰ تِجَارَةٍ تُنْجِيكُمْ مِّنْ عَذَابٍ أَلِيمٍ [سورة الصف 61:10 cited by Wright 2/308C]

«O you who have believed, shall I guide you to a transaction that will save you from a painful punishment? »

- (17) هَلْ أَنْتُمْ تَارِكُو لِي صَاحِبِي [صحيح البخاري: 4640 cited by Wright 2/308C]

«Are you (people) leaving for me my companion? »

39.2.6. أَ vs هَلْ

هَلْ and أَ are often interchangeable, but there are also some differences between them. أَ is more basic and direct, whereas هَلْ will add more wonder, liveliness, or incredulity to the question.¹ Unlike أَ, هَلْ cannot be used for multiple-choice questions.

Here are some more differences between هَلْ and أَ:

Unlike أَ, the conjunctions وَ, فَ, and ثُمَّ do precede هَلْ when needed. For example:

- (16) وَهَلْ أَتَاكَ حَدِيثُ مُوسَى [سورة طه 20:9 cited by Wright 2/308D]

«And has the story of Moses reached you? - »

- (17) إِنْ أَقَمْتُ إِلَى الْمَسَاءِ فَهَلْ أَنْتَ رَاضٍ بِمَعِي [Wright 2/308D]

«If I stay till the evening, then will you go with me? »

هَلْ cannot be prefixed to a negative clause (excepting هَلَّا, see () below). For example:

- (17) هَلْ لَمْ يَخْضُرْ أَخُوكَ ×

✓ أَلَمْ يَخْضُرْ أَخُوكَ

[معاني النحو 4/283]

«Didn't your brother come? »

- (18) هَلْ لَيْسَ أَخُوكَ حَاضِرًا ×

✓ أَلَيْسَ أَخُوكَ حَاضِرًا ✓

[معاني النحو 4/283]

«Isn't your brother present? »

هَلْ prefixed to a mudāriʿ verb usually (not not exclusively) restricts the tense to the future. For example:

- (18) هَلْ تُسَافِرُ [معاني النحو 4/283]

«Will you journey? »

Occasionally, it can admit a present tense meaning. For example:

¹Wright 2/308C

- (19) قُلْ يٰٓأَهْلَ الْكِتٰبِ هَلْ تَنْقِمُونَ مِنَّا اِلَّا اَنْ ءَامَنَّا بِاللّٰهِ وَمَا اُنزِلَ اِلَيْنَا وَمَا اُنزِلَ مِن قَبْلُ

[4/283 معاني النحو cited by سورة المائدة 5:59 وَأَنْ أَكْثَرَكُمْ فَاسِقُونَ]

«Say, “O People of the Scripture, **do you resent us** except [for the fact] that we have believed in Allāh and what was revealed to us and what was revealed before and because most of you are defiantly disobedient?”»

هَلْ is not prefixed to a conditional-device. For example:

- (20) هَلْ إِنْ سَافَرَ سَافَرْتَ مَعَهُ ×

أَإِنْ سَافَرَ سَافَرْتَ مَعَهُ ✓

[4/284 معاني النحو]

«If he journeys, will you journey with him?»

هَلْ is not prefixed to a إِنَّ. For example:

- (21) هَلْ إِنَّهُ شَاعِرٌ ×

أَإِنَّهُ شَاعِرٌ ✓

[4/284 معاني النحو]

«Is he indeed a poet?»

هَلْ is not prefixed to a noun, following which is a verb indicating a choice or alternative. For example:

- (22) هَلْ خَالِدٌ يَرْجِعُ ×

أَخَالِدٌ يَرْجِعُ ✓

[4/243 معاني النحو]

«Is it Khālīd returning?»

- (23) هَلْ خَالِدًا أَكْرَمْتُ ×

أَخَالِدًا أَكْرَمْتُ ✓

[4/243 معاني النحو]

«Is it Khālīd you honored?»

هَلْ is used in an exceptive question sentence that gives the meaning of a negative sentence. أ is not used in this manner. For example:

- (23) أَحْضَرَ إِلَّا مُحَمَّدٌ × هَلْ حَضَرَ إِلَّا مُحَمَّدٌ ✓ [4/243 معاني النحو]

«Did anyone come except Muḥammad?»

(i.e. «No one came except Muḥammad.»)

Also, هَلْ because of its direct nature can imply that the action being asked about was done or is being done. هَلْ has no such implication.² For example:

- (24) أَتَضْرِبُ زَيْدًا [4/247 معاني النحو citing كتاب سيبويه]

«Are you beating Zayd?»

(The implication could be that you *are* beating him and the question is in response to your action.)

² 4/247 معاني النحو

- (25) [كتاب سيبويه 4/247 citing معاني النحو] هَلْ تُضْرِبُ زَيْدًا
 «Are you beating Zayd?»
 (There is no implication you are beating him.)

Similarly,

- (25) [معاني النحو 4/248] أَخْضَرَ خَالِدٌ
 «Did Khālīd come?»
 (The implication could be that you expected Khālīd to have come and you are confirming whether he did.)
- (26) [معاني النحو 4/248] هَلْ خْضَرَ خَالِدٌ
 «Did Khālīd come?»
 (There is no implication you expected Khālīd to have come.)

هَلْ with the verb تَسْتَطِيعُ «can» can also be used for requests.³ For example:

- (26) [سنن النسائي 98] هَلْ تَسْتَطِيعُ أَنْ تُرِينِي كَيْفَ كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَتَوَضَّأُ
 «Can you show me how the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ would perform wuḍū'?»

39.2.7. هَلْ لَكَ فِي

Wright 2/309D

39.2.8. أَلَا هَلَا

Wright 310D

39.3. Sentence word order

In a question sentence, the noun being asked about is typically put first in sentence word order. So, for example, if the question sentence is led with a verb, then it is the action of the verb which is being asked about:

- (27) [معاني النحو 4/270] أَخْضَرَ مُحَمَّدٌ
 «Did Muḥammad attend?»
 (i.e. did Muḥammad's attending occur?)

But if the noun comes first, then the identity of the person attending is being asked about:

- (28) [معاني النحو 4/270] أَمَحَمَّدٌ خْضَرَ
 «Is it Muḥammad who attended?»

Similarly,

³See also the tafsīr of سُوْرَةُ إِذْ قَالَ الْخَوَارِثِيُّونَ يَجْعَلِي ابْنَ مَرْثَمَ هَلْ يَسْتَطِيعُ رَبُّكَ أَنْ يُنْزِلَ عَلَيْنَا مَائِدَةً مِنَ السَّمَاءِ [المائدة 5:112]

(29) أَكْرَمْتَ مُحَمَّدًا [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Did you honor Muḥammad?»

(30) أَمْحَمَّدًا أَكْرَمْتَ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is it Muḥammad you honored?»

and

(30) أَسَافَرَ خَالِدٌ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Did Khālīd journey on Friday?»

(31) أَيَّوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ سَافَرَ خَالِدٌ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is it on Friday Khālīd journeyed?»

39.4. مَنْ and مَا

39.4.1. Position in the beginning of the question sentence

All question-devices typically occur in the beginning of the question sentence. (Particles like *و*, *ف*, etc. are allowed to precede them.) For example,

(31) مَنْ أَنْتَ؟ [Wright 2/311D]
«Who are you?»

(32) وَمَا تِلْكَ بِيَمِينِكَ؟ [سورة طه 20:17]
«And what is that in your right hand?»

In both the above examples, the question nouns *مَا* and *مَنْ* are in the u-case as the subject of their respective question sentences.

When the question is asking about the direct doee of a verb, then too is the question noun placed in the beginning of the sentence. For example,

(32) مَا تَقُولُ؟ [Wright 2/312A]
«What do you say?»

(33) مَنْ قَتَلْتَ؟ [Wright 2/311D]
«Whom did you kill?»

(34) مَا فَرَضَ رَبُّكَ عَلَى أُمَّتِكَ؟ [صحيح مسلم 1:162a]
«What has your Lord enjoined upon your Ummah?»

In the above three examples, the question nouns *مَا* and *مَنْ* are analyzed as the a-case direct doee of the verb following it.

It is also possible, in such cases, for the verb to have a pronoun direct doee. For example:

(33) مَنْ رَأَيْتَهُ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 5/436]
«Whom did you see?»
(مَنْ رَأَيْتَ)

In example (1453) above, مَنْ can be analyzed as either a (positional) u-case subject such that the verbal sentence رَأَيْتَهُ is its info, or مَنْ can be a preoccupied-from direct doee (see (ref)).⁴

The question nouns are exempted from being placed in the beginning of the question noun when they are in the i-case: either following a preposition, or as the annexed-to noun in an annexation. For example,

(34) [جامع الترمذي: 3688] لِمَنْ هَذَا الْقَصْرُ؟
« Whose is this palace? »

(35) [Wright 2/311D] بِنْتُ مَنْ أَنْتِ؟
« Whose daughter are you? »

39.4.2. مَا shortened to مَ in the i-case

When the question noun مَا *mā* is in the i-case it is typically shortened to مَ *ma*. Example:

(35) [سنن ابن ماجه: 4108] بِمَ يَرْجِعُ؟
« With what does he return? »

This shortened مَ is also usually joined to the preposition before it, even for prepositions constituting more than one letter (which don't typically join to the word directly following it). So we get:

- بِمَا for بِمَا
- لِمَا for لِمَا
- فِي مَا for فِي مَا
- إِلَى مَا for إِلَى مَا
- عَلَى مَا for عَلَى مَا
- حَتَّى مَا for حَتَّى مَا
- مِنْ مَا for مِنْ مَا
- عَنْ مَا for عَنْ مَا

When pausing on this shortened مَ, a ʾ is appended to it to preserve the sound of the fatḥah. For example:

(36) لِمَهْ؟
limah?
« For what? »

The shortened مَ is also used when it is the annexed-to noun in an annexation. However, in this case it won't be joined to the previous word. For example:

(37) [Wright 1/275A] مِثْلُ مَ أَنْتِ؟
« What are you like? »

⁴ 5/436 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام

39.4.3. مَا and مَنْ referred back to with an i-case pronoun

As an alternative to placing the question noun مَا or مَنْ after the preposition or annexed noun, the question noun may be placed in the beginning of the sentence and it is referred back to by a pronoun. For example,

- (38) قُلْ مَنْ بِيَدِهِ مَلَكُوتُ كُلِّ شَيْءٍ [سورة المؤمنون 23:88]
 «Say, "In whose hand is the realm of all things?"»
- (39) مَاذَا يَسْتَعْجِلُ مِنْهُ الْمُجْرِمُونَ [سورة يونس 10:50]
 «for which [aspect] of it would the criminals be impatient?»

39.4.4. Verb gender when inquiring about the doer of a verb

The question nouns مَا and مَنْ are themselves masculine singular nouns. But they can be used to ask about nouns of any gender or number. For example,

- (39) وَمَا تِلْكَ بِيَمِينِكَ؟ [سورة طه 20:17]
 «And what is that in your right hand?»
- (40) مَنْ هَؤُلَاءِ الرَّجَالُ؟
 «Who are these men?»

When inquiring about the doer of a verb, then the verb is usually construed with a masculine singular doer to match the question noun. For example:

- (40) مَنْ جَاءَ؟
 «Who has come?»
- (41) مَا يُبْكِيكَ؟ [جامع الترمذي 3894]
 «What makes you cry?»

Occasionally, the feminine verb may be used if asking about a feminine doer. For example:

- (41) مَنْ كَانَتْ أُمُّكَ؟⁵ [Wright 2/313C]
 «Who was your mother?»

If the question is regarding a specific number and gender, then we are more likely to insert the corresponding specific connected noun (الَّذِي, etc.) between the question noun مَنْ and the verb. For example:

- (42) مَنْ اللَّتَانِ تَظَاهَرَتَا عَلَى النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مِنْ أَزْوَاجِهِ [4913: صحيح البخاري]
 «Who are the ones_{2f}, from his wives, who aided one another against the Prophet ﷺ?»

Note that now the dual feminine doer pronoun لِي تَظَاهَرَتَا is the refer-back pronoun that refers back to the connected noun اللَّتَانِ.

⁵See also سورة البحر المحيط لأبي حيان and (فإن كانتا اثنتين) سورة النساء 4:176 for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان (ثم لم تكن فتنتهم) 6:23 الأنعام

39.4.5. An indefinite noun after مَنْ and مَا

The question nouns مَنْ and مَا cannot occur as annexed nouns. Nor can either of them be a replacee. So any indefinite noun after them must necessarily be the info of the question sentence. For example, مَنْ فَارِسٌ؟ [Wright 2/312C] can only mean, “Who is a horseman?” not “Who horseman?” or “Which horseman?”

39.4.6. مَنْ دَا and مَا دَا

To lend more force to the question or to make it more lively, دَا may be appended to the question nouns مَنْ and مَا. For example,

- (43) [4800: صحيح البخاري] مَاذَا قَالَ رَبُّكُمْ
«What did your lord say?»

With مَنْ دَا especially, but also with مَا, the specific connected noun الَّذِي is often appended as well. For example:

- (44) [3802: سنن ابن ماجه] مَنْ دَا الَّذِي قَالَ هَذَا
«Who is the one that said this?»

- (45) [Wright 2/312B] مَاذَا الَّذِي تَقُولُ؟
«What is it that you say?»

Note that دَا is also a variant pointing noun meaning “this” or “that”. In which case, it can be the info of the question sentence by itself. For example:

- (45) [1086: الأدب المفرد] فَدَقَّقْتُ الْبَابَ، فَقَالَ: مَنْ دَا؟ فَقُلْتُ: أَنَا، قَالَ: أَنَا، أَنَا؟ كَأَنَّهُ كَرِهَهُ.
«So I knocked at the door. He said, ‘Who is that?’ I said, ‘I.’ He said ‘I? I?’ as if he disliked it.»

39.4.7. Why

Arabic has no distinct question-device for “why”. Instead, the question noun مَا is used with a preposition, typically لِ to give the meaning “For what?”. For example,

- (46) [705b: صحيح مسلم] لِمَ فَعَلَ ذَلِكَ
«Why did he do that?»

- (47) [Wright 2/312B] لِمَاذَا وَلَّيْتَ بَعْدَ مَجِيئِكَ إِلَى هَهُنَا؟
«Why did you turn back after your coming here?»

Sometimes, other prepositions like عَلَى and بِ may be used. But this is dependent on the verb in the sentence. For example,

- (47) [4562: مشكاة المصابيح] عَلَامَ يَقْتُلُ أَحَدُكُمْ أَخَاهُ
«Why does one of you kill his brother?»
i.e. “on what [basis]”

- (48) [2840: مشكاة المصابيح] بِمَ يَأْخُذُ أَحَدُكُمْ مَالَ أَخِيهِ؟
 «Why should any of you take his brother's property?»
 i.e. "by what [justification]"

And often times, the meaning "why" is conveyed using مَا when a suitable verb exists. For example:

- (48) [3894: جامع الترمذي] مَا يُبْكِيكَ؟
 «What makes you cry?»
 i.e. "Why are you crying?"

39.4.8. Applicability of مَا and مَنْ to intelligent and non-intelligent beings

In (give ref) we discussed how, sometimes, the connected noun مَا may be used for intelligent beings and مَنْ for non-intelligent beings. Those same guidelines apply for مَا and مَنْ when they are question nouns. For example, when inquiring about the nature or qualities of a person مَا may be used. Examples:

- (49) [832: صحيح مسلم] فَقُلْتُ لَهُ مَا أَنْتَ قَالَ أَنَا نَبِيٌّ. فَقُلْتُ وَمَا نَبِيٌّ قَالَ أَرْسَلَنِي اللَّهُ
 «I said, 'Who are you?' He said, 'I am a prophet.' So I said, 'And who is a prophet?' He said 'Allāh has sent me.'»

39.5. أَيَّ

In section .. we studied أَيَّ as a general connected noun. Just like مَا and مَنْ أَيَّ too can be a question noun for "which" questions. Many of the rules that apply the question nouns مَا and مَنْ also apply to أَيَّ. For example, the default position of أَيَّ is in the beginning of the question sentence.

However, أَيَّ is also different from مَا and مَنْ in some respects. For example, consistent with what we learned in its use as a connected noun, the question noun أَيَّ is a fully-flexible noun and can be used indiscriminately for both intelligent and non-intelligent beings.

Also, أَيَّ is typically the annexed noun in an annexation. When أَيَّ is a connected noun, then its annexed-to noun is usually definite. But when أَيَّ is a question noun, then its annexed-to noun may be either definite or indefinite.

39.5.1. أَيَّ with a definite annexed-to noun

When the annexed-to noun of أَيَّ is a definite noun, the annexation has the meaning "which [one] of". For example,

- (50) [40:81: سورة غافر] فَأَيَّ آيَاتِ اللَّهِ تُنْكِرُونَ
 «So which of the signs of Allāh do you deny?»

- (51) [1449: سنن أبي داود] أَيُّ الْأَعْمَالِ أَفْضَلُ
« Which of the deeds is best? »
- (52) [6:81: سورة الأنعام] فَأَيُّ الْفَرِيقَيْنِ أَحَقُّ بِالْأَمْنِ
« So which of the two parties has more right to security »
- (53) [1160: صحيح مسلم] مِنْ أَيِّ أَيَّامِ الشَّهْرِ كَانَ يَصُومُ
« From which of the days of the month would he fast? »

As in the examples above, the annexed-to noun in such a case is typically a plural or a dual. If the annexed-to noun is a definite singular noun, then there is an implied partitive meaning, i.e. “which part of”.⁶ For example,

- (51) [3845: سنن أبي داود] فِي أَيِّ طَعَامِهِ بَيَّارُكُ لَهُ
« in which (part) of his food is the blessing »
- (52) [4063: سنن أبي داود] مِنْ أَيِّ الْمَالِ
« From which (category) of wealth? »

However, if the noun is of generic definiteness then the partitive aspect indicates one out of the set that constitutes the generic type. In English the plural is often used to signify the generic type. For example the generic type plural “the deed” can be translated in English as “deeds”. So أَيُّ الْعَمَلِ means “which one from the generic type ‘deeds’” or simply “which deed”. Examples:

- (52) [1: الأدب المفرد] أَيُّ الْعَمَلِ أَحَبُّ إِلَى اللَّهِ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ؟
« Which deed is most beloved to Allāh? »
- (53) [637: الأدب المفرد] أَيُّ الدُّعَاءِ أَفْضَلُ
“Which supplication is best?”
- (54) [4477: صحيح البخاري] أَيُّ الذَّنْبِ أَعْظَمُ عِنْدَ اللَّهِ
« Which deed is most enormous in the sight of Allāh? »

39.5.2. أَيَّ with a indefinite annexed-to noun

When the annexed-to noun of أَيَّ is a indefinite noun, the annexation has the meaning “which” without “of”. For example,

- (53) [2606: سنن ابن ماجه] أَيُّ شَيْءٍ كُنْتَ تَصْنَعُ
« Which thing would you do? »
- (54) [1887: صحيح مسلم] أَيُّ شَيْءٍ نَشْتَهِي
« What thing shall we desire? »
- (55) [3513: جامع الترمذي] أَيُّ لَيْلَةٍ لَيْلَةُ الْقَدْرِ
« Which night is the night of Decree »

⁶Wright 2/220A

If the annexed-to noun is a dual or plural indefinite then then inquiry is about the complete number, not just one of them. For example:

- (54) أَيُّ رَجَالٍ؟ [Wright 2/220A]
« Which men? »

- (55) أَيُّ رَجُلَيْنِ؟ [Wright 2/220A]
« Which two men? »

39.5.3. Matching the rest of the question sentence with أَيُّ

أَيُّ itself, like مَا and مَنْ, is singular masculine. For the purpose of matching the rest of the question sentence with أَيُّ, either it can match the singular masculine to match with the word أَيُّ, or it can match the gender and number of what أَيُّ refers to. For example,

- (55) 5254: صحيح البخاري] أَيُّ أَزْوَاجِ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ اسْتَعَاذَتْ مِنْهُ
« Which of the wives of the Prophet sought refuge (with Allāh) from him? »
(اسْتَعَاذَتْ is a feminine verb to match the feminine “wife”).
- (56) 1423: صحيح مسلم] فَأَيُّ نِسَاءِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ كَانَ أَحْظَى عِنْدَهُ مِنِّي
« So which of the women of the Prophet was dearer to him than I? »
(أَيُّ is a masculine verb to match masculine كَانَ.)

39.5.4. أَيُّ standalone without a annexed-to noun

Occasionally, أَيُّ is used without a annexed-to noun. It is then, technically, indefinite. However, the meaning of an annexation is still implicit. This may be when أَيُّ has already been used once with an annexation, and subsequent uses of أَيُّ are restricted to the previously mentioned annexation. For example,

- (56) [1: الأدب المفرد] أَيُّ الْعَمَلِ أَحَبُّ إِلَى اللَّهِ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ؟ قَالَ الصَّلَاةُ عَلَى وَفَّيْهَا، قُلْتُ ثُمَّ أَيُّ؟
« Which deed is most beloved to Allāh? » He replied, ‘Prayer at its proper time.’ I said, ‘Then which?’ »

See also section ... below, where أَيُّ is used standalone in a response.

39.5.5. أَيُّ annexed to multiple annexed-to nouns

One أَيُّ may be annexed to multiple annexed-to nouns separated by وَ “and”. For example,

- (57) [3/107 النحو الوافي] أَيُّ زِرَاعَةِ الْفَاكِهَةِ وَزِرَاعَةِ الْقُطْنِ أَرْبَحُ؟
« Which one of the agriculture of fruit, and the agriculture of cotton is more profitable? »

In such a case, it is optional to have one أَيْ or to repeat it. So we could also say, for the same meaning:

(58) أَيْ زِرَاعَةُ الْفَاكِهَةِ وَأَيْ زِرَاعَةُ الْقُطْنِ أَرْبَحُ؟

However, if one of the annexed-to nouns is an attached pronoun then repeating أَيْ is mandatory.⁷ Example:

(59) أَبِي وَأَنْتَ أَعْلَمُ؟

«Which one of you and me is more knowledgeable?»

أَبِي وَأَنْتَ is equivalent to أَيْنَا but it spells out the two options to choose from.

39.6. The question sentence within another sentence⁸

TODO

39.7. Usage of question nouns in quoting and standalone⁹

TODO

39.8. Differentiating question-devices from their other functions

2/37 معاني النحو

Many of the question-devices (أَيُّ، مَن، مَا، كَيْفَ، etc.) also have other functions. For example, in chapter @ref(the-connected-nouns) we learned that مَن، مَا، and أَيُّ are also connected nouns. Many of the question nouns can also be used as *conditional nouns* that we will study in chapter @ref(...), if Allāh wills.

In this section, we will discuss briefly how to determine when words like أَيُّ، مَن، مَا، كَيْفَ، etc. are question-devices, and when they could have one of their other functions.

The basic principle regarding a question sentence is that it is to be treated as one unit. A word from within a question sentence is not, individually, affected by anything outside the question. Let's try to understand this using an example.

Consider the following sentence:

⁷Wright 2/220B

⁸التعليق. See ٢/٣٧ (ظن وأخواتها) ٢/٢٧; معاني النحو; النحو الوافي ٢/٢٧; Howell, part II, book 5, §444, pp. 155–165.

⁹الحكاية. See Wright, vol. i., §352–353, pp. 275B–276B, vol. ii, §170, p. 313

- (60) *إِسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ*
'is'al 'ayyuhum qām
 «Ask: 'Which of them stood?'»

The speaker is commanding the addressed person to ask a group of people the question: "Which of them stood".

The question sentence is *إِسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ* *'ayyuhum qām* «Which of them stood». This entire sentence is considered the direct doer of the verb of command *إِسْأَلْ* "ask!". The question noun *أَيُّ* *'ayyu* is in the u-case because it is the subject of the question sentence. It does not become *أَيَّ* *'ayya* in the a-case because it is not, by itself, the direct doer of *إِسْأَلْ*. Rather, as we have just stated, the entire question sentence is the direct doer. But because the direct doer is a sentence, and not an individual word, it does not indicate its case using, for example, an *fat-ḥah* َ.

Now, let's modify the example. Consider now this sentence:

- (61) *إِسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ*
'is'al 'ayyahum qām
 «Ask the one of them who stood!»

Now, the noun *أَيُّ* is in the a-case because it (individually) is the direct doer of the verb of command *إِسْأَلْ*. The speaker is now commanding the addressed person to ask (something) of only the person who stood, out of a group of people. The rest of the people are not to be asked. Because the noun *أَيُّ* is individually affected by the preceding verb *إِسْأَلْ* it is now not a question noun, and must be one of the other functions that the word *أَيُّ* can have. As a matter of fact, it is here a connected noun, and the sentence following it: *قَامَ* "he stood" is its connecting sentence.

The other noteworthy point regarding questions (besides their being considered one unit) is that they may only be preceded either by a verb of knowledge, (like *دَرَى*, *عَلِمَ*, etc.) or by an expression indicating that the question is being quoted. We have already seen an example of the question being quoted in the example:

- (62) *إِسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ*
 «Ask: 'Which of them stood?'»

An example of a question being preceded by a verb of knowledge is:

- (63) *مَا عَلِمْتُ أَذْهَبَ أَمْ مَكَثَ*
 «I don't know whether he went or stayed.»

Here the question sentence is: *أَذْهَبَ أَمْ مَكَثَ* «Did he go or did he stay?»

By the way, a question sentence may be part of a bigger question as well. For example:

- (64) *أَتَدْرِي أَيُّهُمْ فِي الدَّارِ؟*
'atadri 'ayyuhum fi-ddār
 «Do you know: which of them is in the house?»

Note now the subtle difference in meaning if we change the case of أَتَى in the above example from the u-case to the a-case:

(65) أَتَذَرِي أَيُّهُمْ فِي الدَّارِ؟
 'atadri 'ayyahum fi -ddār

«Do you know the one of them who is in the house?»

When أَتَى was in the u-case it was a question noun. And the speaker was asking the addressed person if he could figure out who, from among the group of people, was in the house.

When أَتَى is in the a-case it is now a connected noun. The connecting sentence's refer-back pronoun is omitted (as is permissible in this case, see section @ref(...)). With the refer-back pronoun restored, the sentence is أَتَذَرِي أَيُّهُمْ هُوَ فِي الدَّارِ؟ And the speaker is asking the addressed person if he is familiar with the person who is in the house. Now he is not asking the addressed person to identify him, but rather if knows him as a person.

This difference is apparent with أَيٌّ because it is a flexible noun whose case is indicated by the vowel mark at its end. The same occurs in the other question nouns that are also connected nouns: مَا, and مَنْ but it won't often be as apparent because they are rigid nouns.

As a final note, sometimes, one of the words like أَ, مَنْ, مَا, كَيْفَ, etc. may be preceded by parts of a sentence that are neither quoting, nor a verb of knowledge. Here we can be sure that the word is not a question-device and must be one of its other functions. However, it still may not be easy to figure out what that other function is. Nevertheless, the meaning of the sentence can still usually be gleaned. For example:

(66) فَلْتَدْخُلْ مِنْ أَيِّ أَبْوَابِ الْجَنَّةِ شَاءَتْ

«then let her enter from whichever of the doors of paradise she wishes.» [^question-vs-other-functions]

Work in progress

Chapter 40.

ظَنَّ and its sisters

ta3leeq, ilghaa2: Peled https://www.academia.edu/101820592/Amal_and_ibti_d%C4%81_in_Medieval_Arabic_Grammatical_Tradition

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

40.1. Introduction

The basic nounal sentence consists of a subject and a info

Work in progress

Chapter 41.

The conditional sentence

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Glossary of terms used in this chapter

Conditional sentence	الْجُمْلَةُ الشَّرْطِيَّةُ
Conditional-device	أَدَاةُ الشَّرْطِ
ø-case-izing conditional-devices	أَدَوَاتُ الشَّرْطِ الْجَازِمَةِ
Non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices	أَدَوَاتُ الشَّرْطِ غَيْرِ الْجَازِمَةِ
Condition	الشَّرْطُ
Condition-core	جُمْلَةُ الشَّرْطِ
Condition-verb	فِعْلُ الشَّرْطِ
Condition-response	جَوَابُ الشَّرْطِ
Condition-response-core	جُمْلَةُ جَوَابِ الشَّرْطِ
Condition-response-verb	فِعْلُ جَوَابِ الشَّرْطِ
Condition-response-link	[الفاء] الْمُقْتَرَنَةُ بِجَوَابِ الشَّرْطِ
Request-response	جَوَابُ الطَّلَبِ

41.1. Introduction

Here is an example of a conditional sentence in English:

- (1) « If you come to me, then I will honor you. »

Figure 41.1 shows its parts.

As you can see, a conditional sentence is a special sentence, which consists of two parts:

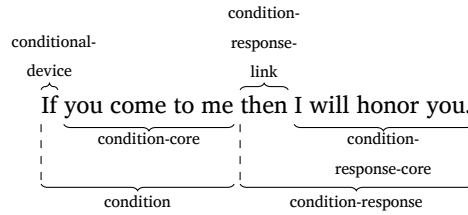


Figure 41.1.: The parts of a conditional sentence.

1. A *condition* («If you come to me») The condition itself consists of two parts:
 - i. The *conditional-device*: («if»)
 - ii. The *condition-core*: («you come to me»)
2. A *condition-response*. («then I will come to you») The condition-response can also consist of two parts:
 - i. The *condition-response-link*: («then»). This may be null for some conditional sentences.
 - ii. The *condition-response-core*: («I will honor you»)

There are many *conditional-devices* in Arabic. Some common ones are:

- **إِنْ** «if»
- **إِذَا** «when»
- **لَوْ** «if»
- **مَنْ** «who(ever)»
- **مَا** «what(ever)»

We will study them in the following sections.

41.2. The **إِنْ** conditional sentence

إِنْ is considered the most basic of all the conditional-devices.¹

There are a few different types of conditional sentence that can be formed with **إِنْ**. We will discuss them below:

41.2.1. The archetypal **إِنْ** conditional sentence

Here is an example of an archetypal, or most basic, conditional sentence:

- (2) **إِنْ يَأْتِ زَيْدٌ بِكَرْمِهِ عَمْرُو**
 «If Zayd will come, ʿAmr will honor him.»

¹ 5/106 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل; 3/63 كتاب سيبويه

The archetypal, *إِنْ* conditional sentence uses $\emptyset$ -case *muḍāriʿ* verbs in both the condition and the condition-response. This conditional sentence consists of two parts:

1. a condition, (*إِنْ يَأْتِ زَيْدٌ*) consisting of:
 - i. the conditional-device (*إِنْ*), and
 - ii. the condition-core (*يَأْتِ زَيْدٌ*), which is a verbal sentence containing:
 - a $\emptyset$ -case *muḍāriʿ* verb known as the *condition-verb* (*يَأْتِ*)
 - its doer (*زَيْدٌ*)
2. a condition-response, (*يُكْرِمُهُ عَمْرُو*) consisting of:
 - i. the condition-response-core (*يُكْرِمُهُ عَمْرُو*), which is a verbal sentence containing:
 - a $\emptyset$ -case *muḍāriʿ* verb known as the *condition-response-verb* (*يُكْرِمُ*)
 - its doer (*عَمْرُو*)

There is no condition-response-link in the archetypal *إِنْ* conditional sentence.

The conditional particle *إِنْ* directly governs the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the $\emptyset$ -case.²

Figure 41.2 depicts this government for example (1505) above.

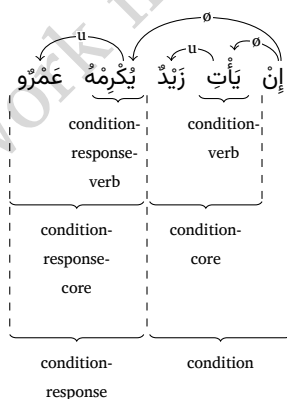


Figure 41.2.: A government diagram of a basic conditional sentence. The arrows flow from governor to governee and are labelled with the state of the governee.

Here are some more examples of the archetypal conditional sentence:

²Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 3–4 citing كتاب سيبويه

(3) *إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أَتِكَ* [كتاب سيبويه 3/63]
 «If you will come to me, I will come to you.»

(4) *إِنْ تَضْرِبْ أَضْرِبُ* [كتاب سيبويه 3/63]
 «If you will beat, I will beat.»

41.2.2. The māḍī verb with *إِنْ*

A māḍī verb can be used instead of one or both of the $\emptyset$ -case verbs in a conditional sentence. So, for example, instead of saying:

(4) *إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أَكْرَمُكَ*

we can say, any one of:

(5) *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ*

(6) *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ*

(7) *إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ*

As a matter of fact, in terms of frequency of usage, the māḍī verb is more common than the archetypal $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verb in conditional sentences.³

In general, all four options will have more-or-less the same meaning: «If you come to me, I will come to you». In Section 41.6 below, we will discuss the tense indicated by conditional sentences in more detail. But for now we can generally consider the māḍī verb in a conditional sentence to lose its past tense.

For convenience, in this, and the following sections, we will use *قَتَلَ* to refer to a māḍī verb form in either the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb. Similarly, we will use *يَقْتُلُ*, *يَقْتُلُ* and *يَقْتُلُ* to refer to u-case, a-case, and $\emptyset$ -case muḍāriʿ verbs respectively.

Of the four options in examples (1508) through (1511), the combinations *إِنْ قَتَلَ قَتَلَ* and *يَقْتُلُ يَقْتُلُ* are most preferred. This is because they exhibit a symmetry between the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb.⁴

The combination *إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلُ*, however, is by no means uncommon.

But combination *إِنْ يَقْتُلُ قَتَلَ* is the least commonly found in actual usage. This is because when the condition-verb is *يَقْتُلُ* it prefers the presence of another *يَقْتُلُ* after it as the condition-response-verb.⁵ Nevertheless, this combination is occasionally found, as we show in example (1522) below.

With regards to the government of the conditional sentences in examples (1509) through (1511), The conditional-device *إِنْ* will continue to govern the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the $\emptyset$ -case directly, regardless of whether the verbs are *يَقْتُلُ* or *قَتَلَ*. For a *قَتَلَ* verb, *إِنْ* will govern it in the positional $\emptyset$ -case.⁶

³Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 14–15. See also footnote 5 on p. 15

⁴3/91 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 7–8

⁵3/66 كتاب سيبويه

⁶النحو الوافي 4/22

In other words, for example (1509) above, *إِنْ* does not govern the verbal sentences *أَتَّبِيتَنِي* and *أَكْرَمْتُكَ* in the positional $\emptyset$ -case. Rather, the māḍī verbs *أَتَّبِيتَنِي* and *أَكْرَمْتُكَ* are, both times, directly governed in the positional $\emptyset$ -case.⁷

Figure 41.3 depicts the government of example (1509).

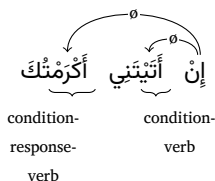


Figure 41.3.

Here are some examples from attested usage of combinations of māḍī verbs and muḍāriʿ verbs in conditional sentences:

Examples of *إِنْ يَفْتُلْنِ يَفْتُلْنِ*:

- (6) [8:19 سورة الأنفال] *وَإِنْ تَعُودُوا نَعُدْ*
«but if you return [to war], We will return»
- (7) [4750 صحيح البخاري] *وَإِنْ تَسْأَلِ الْجَارِيَةَ تَصَدِّقْكَ*
«If you ask the slave-girl, she will tell you the truth.»
- (8) [252: الشرائع المحمدية] *إِنْ أَنْطَقَ أَطْلَقَ وَإِنْ أَسْكُتَ أَعْلَقَ*
«If I speak, I will be divorced. And If I stay quiet, I will be left suspended.»
- (9) [4372 صحيح البخاري] *إِنْ تَقْتُلْنِي تَقْتُلْ ذَا دَمٍ وَإِنْ تُنْعِمَ تُنْعِمَ عَلَى شَاكِرٍ*
«If you kill me, you kill a person wanted for a killing. But if you bestow favor, you bestow favor on a grateful person.»

Examples of *إِنْ قَتَلَ قَتَلَ*:

- (7) [17:7 سورة الإسراء] *إِنْ أَحْسَنْتُمْ أَحْسَنْتُمْ لِأَنْفُسِكُمْ*
«If you do good, you do good for yourselves»
- (8) [17:8 سورة الإسراء] *وَإِنْ عُدْتُمْ عُدْنَا*
«But if you return [to sin], We will return [to punishment].»
- (9) [2602 صحيح البخاري] *إِنْ أَذِنْتَ لِي أُعْطِيَتْ هَؤُلَاءِ*
«If you permit me, I will give to these [people].»

⁷ 113/1 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي

- (10) [2007: جامع الترمذي] **إِنْ أَحْسَنَ النَّاسُ أَحْسَنًا وَإِنْ ظَلَمُوا ظَلَمْنَا**
 «If the people are good to us, we will be good [to them]. And if they wrong [us], we will wrong [them].»
- (11) [1468b: صحيح مسلم] **إِنْ كَرِهَ مِنْهَا خُلُقًا رَضِيَ مِنْهَا آخَرَ**
 «If he dislikes a characteristic of hers, he is pleased with another [characteristic of hers].»

Examples of **إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلُ**:

- (8) [3392 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 16] **وإِنْ أَذْرَكْنِي يَوْمَكَ أَتُصْرِكَ نَصْرًا مُؤَزَّرًا**
 «If your day should overtake me, I will aid you.»

Examples of **إِنْ يَقْتُلُ قَتَلَ**:

- (9) [3911 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17] **إِنْ يَعْلَمُوا أَنِّي قَدْ أَسْلَمْتُ قَالُوا فِيَّ مَا لَيْسَ فِيَّ**
 «If they know that I have accepted Islām, they will say about me that which is not [true].»

41.2.3. Negating the condition or condition-response

When either of the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb are to be negated, then we have two options:

- i. **لَا يَقْتُلُ**
- ii. **لَمْ يَقْتُلْ**

Negations **لَا يَقْتُلُ** and **لَمْ يَقْتُلْ** are not used when negating the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb.⁸ (They can however be used when negating a verb which is not directly the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb, as we will see in Section 41.7.1, if Allāh wills.)

لَمْ يَقْتُلْ is considered the negative counterpart of **يَقْتُلُ**. And **لَمْ يَقْتُلْ** is considered the negative counterpart of **قَتَلَ**. And as with positive conditional sentences, a symmetry between the condition-verb and the condition-response is preferred.

So if the condition is **قَتَلَ**, then **لَمْ يَقْتُلْ** is preferred in the condition-response.⁹ For example:

- (10) [3/295 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] **إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَمْ آتِكَ**
 «If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

And if the condition is **لَمْ يَقْتُلْ**, then **لَا يَقْتُلْ** is preferred in the condition-response.¹⁰ For example:

⁸ النحو الوافي 4/445

⁹ شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295

¹⁰ شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295

- (11) *إِنْ تَأْتِنِي لَا آتِكَ* [composed from شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295]
 «If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

The non-symmetric combination *إِنْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ يَقْتُلْ*, (corresponding to *إِنْ قَتَلَ* *يَقْتُلْ*), is also fairly common. For example:

- (12) *إِنْ لَمْ تَأْتِنِي أَجْزِكَ* [3/68 كتاب سيبويه]
 «If you don't come to me, I will recompense you.»

But as with the combination *إِنْ يَقْتُلْ قَتَلَ* in Section 41.2.2 above, the combination *إِنْ يَقْتُلْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ* is uncommon. For example:

- (13) *إِنْ تَأْتِنِي لَمْ آتِكَ* [3/295 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]
 «If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

In any case, symmetry is by no means mandatory, and the longer the distance (in words) between the condition-verb and the condition-response, the easier it is to disregard its being preferred.¹¹

With regards to their frequencies in attested usage, option (i) *لَا يَقْتُلْ* is possibly the more original,¹² but it is rarer in usage. Here are some examples:

- (14) *إِلَّا تَفْعَلُوهُ تَكُنْ فِتْنَةٌ فِي الْأَرْضِ وَفَسَادٌ كَبِيرٌ* [8:73 سورة الأنفال] cited by Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 487]
 «If you do not do so [i.e., ally yourselves with other believers], there will be fitnah [i.e., disbelief and oppression] on earth and great corruption.»
- (15) *إِنْ تَذْفِنُوا الدَّاءَ لَا نُخْفِيهِ* [Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 487]
 «If you bury the rancor, we will not conceal it»
- (16) *إِنْ لَا تَكُنْ هِنْدٌ بَكَتْهُ فَهَذَا بَكَتْ عَلَيْهِ النَّبِيُّ* [Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 487]
 «If Hind did not weep [for] him, then the Pleiades have wept over him»
 (The condition-response in this example begins with *فَ*. We will discuss this in Section 41.7 below.)
- (17) *إِنَّ تَظْهَرُ عَلَيَّ هَذِهِ الْعِصَابَةُ يَظْهَرُ الشَّرْكَ، وَلَا يَقُمْ لَكَ دِينٌ* [1/67 مغازي الواقدي] cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 15]
 «O Allāh if this band should gain ascendancy over me, polytheism would gain ascendancy, and a religion would not be established for you.»
- (18) *وَأِنْ لَا تَفْعَلْ مَلَأْتُ يَدَكَ شُغْلًا وَلَمْ أَسُدَّ فَقْرَكَ* [393: صحيح ابن حبان]
 «And if you don't do [so], I will fill your hand with preoccupation, and I will not block your poverty.»

The particle *لَا* will not affect the government of the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb. The conditional particle *إِنْ* will continue to govern these verbs directly in the $\emptyset$ -case. Figure 41.4 depicts the government of the negated condition-response-verb in example (1528) above.

¹¹ 951 شرح كتاب سيبويه للرماني - جزء منه

¹²Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17

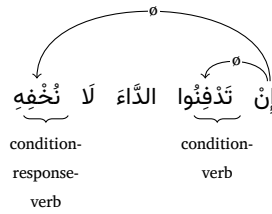


Figure 41.4.

Compared to option (i) *لَا يَقْتُلُ*, option (ii) *لَمْ يَقْتُلْ* is by far the more common technique to negate the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb.

Just like the case for *قَتَلَ*, when *لَمْ* is used to negate the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb, it also generally loses its past tense.

Here are some examples of the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb, negated with *لَمْ*:

- (15) 3/91 كتاب سيبويه [إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَمْ أَتِكَ]
«If you come to me, I will not come to you.»
- (16) 3/68 كتاب سيبويه [إِنْ لَمْ تَأْتِنِي أَجْزِكَ]
«If you don't come to me, I will recompense you.»
- (17) 6/133 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي [إِنْ لَمْ تُكْرِمْنِي لَمْ أَكْرِمَكَ]
«If you don't honor me, I will not honor you.»
- (18) 4/24 تاريخ الطبري [إِنْ افْتَرَقْتُمْ لَمْ تَجْتَمِعُوا أَبَدًا]
«If you factionate, you will not be united ever.»
- (19) 2001: مسند أحمد [وإِنْ لَمْ يَعْمَلْهَا كُتِبَتْ حَسَنَةٌ]
«And if he did not do it, a good deed is written for him.»
- (20) 1763: صحيح مسلم [فَإِنْ وَجَدْتُ بُكَاءَ بَكَيْتُ وَإِنْ لَمْ أَجِدْ بُكَاءَ تَبَاكَيْتُ لِبُكَائِكُمْا]
«For if I feel like crying I will cry, and if I don't feel like crying, I will compel myself to cry [in sympathy] to your crying.»

The grammarians differed regarding the government of the the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb, when negated with *لَمْ*.¹³ Some grammarians are of the opinion that *لَمْ* directly governs the $\emptyset$ -case mudarīe verb while *إِنْ* governs the verbal sentences which contain the mudarīe verb. This government is depicted in Figure 41.5 for example (1532).

Other grammarians were of the opinion that *إِنْ* would continue to govern the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb directly, and that *لَمْ* has no governing effect in this case. This is depicted in Figure 41.6 for the same example (1532).

¹³ النحو الوافي 4/414–415

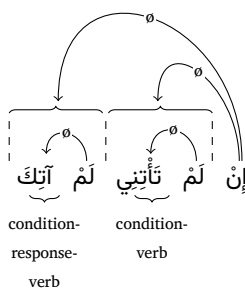


Figure 41.5.

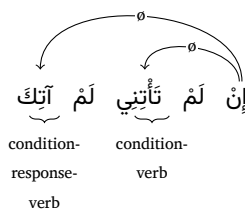


Figure 41.6.

41.2.4. The inverted conditional sentence

Oftentimes, we come across an *inverted* conditional sentence, where what seems to be the condition-response comes before the condition. For example:

- (16) 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي]
«I will come to you if you come to me.»

In example (1538) above, it would seem that *آتِيكَ* is the condition-response and *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي* is the condition.

But actually, the mainstream view amongst the grammarians is that *آتِيكَ* cannot be a condition-response because the condition-response is not allowed to precede the condition.

This view is supported by the fact that the verb in *آتِيكَ* is in the u-case. If it were a condition-response-verb then it would be in the $\emptyset$ -case, thus: *آتِكَ*. But a $\emptyset$ -case *muḍāriʿ* verb in the beginning of sentence, followed by a condition is not a correctly formed sentence. So we cannot say, for example:

- (17) 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [آتِكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي] ×

The way the grammarians solve the analysis of example (1538) is by considering *آتِيكَ* an independent sentence that is structurally complete. *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي* is then considered to be a condition. Its condition-response [*آتِكَ*] is taqdīr after it. The taqdīr condition-response is deleted in surface speech and its meaning is indicated by the preceding independent sentence *آتِيكَ*.

The complete sentence with the taqdīr is:

- (18) *آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي [آتِكَ]*

But how is the conditional sentence [*إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي [آتِكَ]*] connected to the preceding independent sentence *آتِيكَ*? One opinion is that the conditional sentence *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي [آتِكَ]* can be considered to be pertinent to the verb in *آتِيكَ* in much the same way as an adverb of time/place or preposition would be,¹⁴ for example, in:

- (19) 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [آتِيكَ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ]
«I will come to you the day of Friday.»

Having said all the above, there is no problem if we refer to sentences like example (1538) *آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي* loosely speaking and for convenience, as inverted conditional sentences. As long as we understand that the true condition-response is deleted and taqdīr after the condition in sentence word order.

Here are some more examples of inverted conditional sentences:

- (20) 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [أَحْسِنُ إِلَيْكَ إِنْ أَكْرَمْتَنِي]
«I will be good to you if you honor me.»

- (21) 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [أَنْتَ طَالِقٌ إِنْ دَخَلْتَ الدَّارَ]
«You_f are divorced if you enter the house.»

¹⁴ 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

- (22) [5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] أنا ظالمٌ إن فعلتُ
«I [will be] a wrongdoer if I did [some action].»
- (23) لَا يَقُلْ أَحَدُكُمْ اللَّهُمَّ اغْفِرْ لِي إِنْ شِئْتَ اِرْحَمْنِي إِنْ شِئْتَ ارْزُقْنِي إِنْ شِئْتَ وَلْيَعِزِّمْ مَسْأَلَتَهُ
[7477: صحيح البخاري] إِنَّهُ يَفْعَلُ مَا يَشَاءُ لَا مُكْرَهَ لَهُ
«Let not any of you say, “O Allāh, forgive me if You wish, have mercy on me if You wish, provide sustenance me if You wish.” [Rather,] let him be resolved in his asking. Indeed He does what He wills, there is no one to compel Him.»

In examples (1543) and (1544) above, the “inverted” condition-responses are the nounal sentences (أَنَا ظَالِمٌ and أَنْتَ طَالِقٌ), not verbal sentences. We will discuss such condition-responses in Section 41.7.1, if Allāh wills.

Note that all the examples of inverted conditional sentences, that we have given so far have *إِنْ قَتَلَ* in the condition and not *إِنْ يَقْتُلْ*. This is because, as we mentioned in Section 41.2.2 above, when the condition-verb is *يَقْتُلْ* it prefers the presence of another *يَقْتُلْ* after it as the condition-response-verb. So the following example is not preferred:

- (21) [5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل; 3/68 كتاب سيبويه] آتِيكَ إِنْ تَأْتِنِي
«I will come to you, if you come to me.»

This is because *يَقْتُلْ* in the condition (*إِنْ تَأْتِنِي*) prefers that it have another *يَقْتُلْ* in the condition-response, and that its condition-response not be deleted.¹⁵

Having said that, an inverted *إِنْ يَقْتُلْ* condition could very rarely be found.¹⁶ *إِنْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ* in an inverted conditional sentence is, however, fine. This is because it is the negative counterpart to *إِنْ قَتَلَ*. For example,

- (22) [عنترة cited by Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 488] وَأَعْلَمِي أَنِّي أَمْرٌ سَأَمُوتُ إِنْ لَمْ أَقْتَلْ
«Know that I am a person– I will die if I am not killed.»

41.2.5. A u-case *muḍārie* condition-response-verb

Occasionally we see a conditional sentence of the form *إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلْ*. That is, a *muḍārie* condition-response-verb is in the u-case, not the $\emptyset$ -case. For example:

- (23) [3/66 كتاب سيبويه] إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي آتِيكَ
«If you come to me, I come to you.»

This structure again requires *taqdīr* to analyze it. This is because the underlying principle that the grammarians have theorized for the conditional sentence, is that the conditional-device *إِنْ* governs both the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the $\emptyset$ -case.

One way the grammarians work around this problem is by *taqdīring* example (1548) to essentially be an inverted conditional sentence, thus:

¹⁵ 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل; 3/68 كتاب سيبويه

¹⁶ Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 143

(24) آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي [آتِكَ]

«I come to you if you come to me [I come to you].»

Once the original condition-response *آتِكَ* is deleted, then the independent sentence *آتِيكَ* is (optionally) moved to after the condition to take the place of the original condition-response *آتِكَ*.¹⁷

There is also another technique to analyze such conditional sentences, and that is to assume a deleted *فَ* (and also possibly a deleted subject) before the condition-response.¹⁸ With the deleted elements restored, the sentence is:

(25) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَآتِيكَ

or

949 شرح كتاب سيبويه للرماني - جزء منه [composed from]

«If you come to me **then** I will come to you.»

Condition-responses that begin with *فَ* will be treated in Section 41.7 below, if Allāh wills.

Here are some more examples of this kind of conditional sentence:

(26) 3/66 [كتاب سيبويه] وَإِنْ أَتَاهُ خَلِيلٌ يَوْمَ مَسْأَلَةٍ يَقُولُ لَا غَائِبٌ مَالِي وَلَا حَرَمٌ

«And if a friend came to him on a day of asking, he says, “My wealth is neither absent nor denied.”»

Note again, that the condition-verb in these examples has been *قَتَلَ*, not *يَقْتُلُ*. This is again consistent with what we mentioned in Section 41.2.2, that when the condition-verb is *يَقْتُلُ* then it prefers the presence of another *يَقْتُلُ* as the condition-response-verb.

Having said that, a conditional sentence of the form *إِنْ يَقْتُلُ يَقْتُلُ* is found on occasion, often by poetic license.¹⁹ For example:

(27) 3/67 [كتاب سيبويه] يَا أَقْرَعُ بْنَ حَابِسٍ يَا أَقْرَعُ ~ إِنَّكَ إِنْ يَضْرَعُ أَخُوكَ تُضْرَعُ

«O Aqræ son of Ḥābis, O Aqræ! Indeed if your brother would be thrown down, you are being thrown down.»

An alternate analysis is that the condition is parenthetical and *تُضْرَعُ* is the info of *إِنَّكَ*.²⁰

(28) 2217 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17] قَالَتِ اللَّهْمَّ إِنْ يَمُتْ يَقَالُ هِيَ قَتَلَتْهُ

«She said, “O Allāh if he should die, it will be said, ‘She killed him.’”»

41.2.6. إِمَّا

إِمَّا may optionally be suffixed to *إِنْ*. The *ن* is assimilated with the *م*, and it is then written and pronounced as *إِمَّا*. By the way, this *إِمَّا* is distinct from the *إِمَّا*

¹⁷ كتاب سيبويه 4/475–476 (footnotes) citing النحو الوافي

¹⁸ 949 شرح كتاب سيبويه للرماني - جزء منه

¹⁹ 3/67 كتاب سيبويه

²⁰ 246 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

that is used to signify «either ... or».²¹ The addition of مَا to إِنَّ can emphasize the meaning of the condition-response. Example:

- (28) [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/115] **إِذَا تَأْتَيْنِي أَتَيْكَ** (28)
«If you come to me, I will come to you.»

يَقْتُلُ, as a condition-verb, is only used with إِذَا uncommonly or by poetic license.²² Instead, the condition-verb with إِذَا is usually a emphatic verb (يَقْتُلَنَّ). For example:

- (29) [سورة] **فَإِذَا تَرَيَنَّ مِنْ الْبَشَرِ أَحَدًا فَقُولِي إِنَّي نَذَرْتُ لِلرَّحْمَنِ صَوْمًا فَلَنْ أُكَلِّمَ الْيَوْمَ إِنْسِيًّا** (29)
[شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/115] cited by 19:26 مريم
«And if you see from among humanity anyone, say, ‘Indeed, I have vowed to the Most Merciful abstention, so I will not speak today to [any] man.’»
(ف introducing the condition-response is discussed in Section 41.7 below.)

41.3. The إِذَا conditional sentence

41.3.1. The original temporal signification of إِذَا

إِذَا «when» is a noun which originally has a temporal (time) signification rather than a conditional signification.²³ For example,

- (30) [كتاب سيبويه 3/60] **إِذَا أَحْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ أَتَيْكَ** (30)
«I will come to you when the unripe dates redden.»

In example (1556) above, the u-case mudārie verb أَتِي signifies its usual imperfect aspect «I come/will come». This is because example (1556) is technically not a conditional sentence. إِذَا signifies «when», not as a condition which may or may not occur, but as an event which is expected to occur.

إِذَا is in the a-case as a adverb of place. It is governed by the verb أَتِي. إِذَا is also a annexed noun. Its (positional) annexed-to noun is the following verbal sentence أَحْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ. The government of example (1556) above is depicted in Figure 41.7.



Figure 41.7.

A **فَعَلَّ** verbal sentence typically does not hold on to its past tense when it is the positional annexed-to noun of إِذَا. That is why we have translated أَحْمَرَّ in example (1556) as «redden», not «reddened».

²¹ 1/61 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام

²² 4/174 النحو الوافي

²³ Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 24 citing كتاب سيبويه 3/60; المقتضب للمبرد 2/55-56

41.3.2. Conditional signification of إِذَا

Example (1556) above can be transformed into a conditional sentence. This is done by taking إِذَا and its positional annexed-to noun احْمَرَّ البُسْرُ, and putting them in the front of the sentence, thus:

- (31) إِذَا احْمَرَّ البُسْرُ أَتَيْتُكَ
«When the unripe dates redden, I will come to you.»

Note that we have also replaced the يَقْتُلُ verbal sentence آتَيْتُكَ in example (1556) with the قَتَلَ verbal sentence أَتَيْتُ. This is because now that example (1557) is a conditional sentence (with the condition-response following the condition), قَتَلَ as the condition-response-verb also does not hold on to its past tense meaning.

Also unlike إِنْ, even when إِذَا is a conditional-device, it does not (directly) govern either of the verbs in the condition or the condition-response. Rather, إِذَا governs entire verbal sentence in the condition in an annexation. And إِذَا itself is governed by the verb in the condition-response.²⁴ Figure 41.8 depicts the government of example (1557).

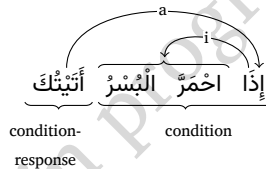


Figure 41.8.

Here are some more examples of conditional sentences with إِذَا:

- (32) [52: صحيح البخاري] إِذَا صَلَحَ الْجَسَدُ كُلُّهُ وَإِذَا فَسَدَتْ فَسَدَ الْجَسَدُ كُلُّهُ
«When it is upright, the whole body is upright. And when it is corrupt, the whole body is corrupt.»
- (33) [مسند أحمد: 14138] كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ إِذَا سَجَدَ جَافَى حَتَّى يُرَى بَيَاضُ إِبْطَيْهِ
«When the Messenger of Allāh would prostrate, he would put his upper arms apart from his sides until the whiteness of his underarms could be seen.»
- (34) [5211: صحيح البخاري] كَانَ إِذَا خَرَجَ أَقْرَعَ بَيْنَ نِسَائِهِ
«When he would go out (on a journey), he would draw lots among his wives.»
- (35) [18935: مسند أحمد] إِذَا دَخَلَ أَهْلُ الْجَنَّةِ الْجَنَّةَ، نُودُوا ...
«When the people of Paradise enter Paradise, it will be called out to them ...»

²⁴Some grammarians disagreed. Give Abu Hayyan's opinion.

41.3.3. Muḍāriʿ verbs in the إِذَا conditional sentence

We learned in Section 41.2.1 above, that the conditional-device *إِنْ* governs the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the *θ*-case.

The conditional-device *إِذَا*, however, does not govern either the condition-verb or condition-response-verb, as we saw in Figure 41.8 above. So *يَقْتُلُ* is not usually used in *إِذَا* conditional sentences. The most common form for *إِذَا* conditional sentences, as we saw in example (1557) above, is *قَتَلَ*.

Having said that, we do often find the *u*-case muḍāriʿ verb *يَقْتُلُ* as either or as both the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb.²⁵ Here are some examples:

- (33) *إِذَا تَتْلَى عَلَيْهِمْ آيَاتُ الرَّحْمَنِ خَرُّوا سُجَّدًا وَبُكِيًّا* [19:58 سورة مريم] cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 648]
« When the verses of the Most Merciful were recited to them, they fell in prostration and weeping. »
- (34) *إِذَا تَكُونُ كَرْيَهُةً أَدْعَى لَهَا* [cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 647]
« When there is an inconvenience, I am called to it. »
- (35) *إِنِّ الْكَرِيمِ إِذَا يَحْرَبُ يَغْضَبُ* [cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 647]
« The noble person – when he is provoked, he becomes angry. »
- (36) *وَإِذَا تَضَخَّكَ تُبْدِي حَبَابًا* [cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 647–648]
« When she laughs, she shows musky bubbles. »

Very rarely, we also find *يَقْتُلُ* used in *إِذَا* conditional sentences. For example:

- (34) *إِذَا أَخَذْتُمَا مَصَاجِعَكُمَا تُكَبِّرَا أَرْبَعًا وَثَلَاثِينَ وَتُسَبِّحَا ثَلَاثًا وَثَلَاثِينَ وَتَحْمَدَا ثَلَاثَةً وَثَلَاثِينَ فَهُوَ خَيْرٌ لَّكُمَا مِنْ حَادِمٍ* [71 شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك cited by صحيح البخاري]
« When you go to bed, you magnify thirty-four times, and glorify thirty-three times, and praise thirty-three times. »
- (35) *إِذَا تُصِيبَكَ خَصَاصَةٌ فَتَجَمَّلْ* [4/18; Wright 2/12B] شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك]
« When poverty befalls you then bear it patiently. »
(تَجَمَّلْ in rhyme for تَجَمَّلْ.)

41.3.4. Negation in the إِذَا conditional sentence

When the negating the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb in *إِذَا* conditional sentences, the form *لَمْ يَقْتُلْ* is used.

The form *لَا يَقْتُلْ* can also be used to negate the condition-response-verb.

Here are some examples:

²⁵ 4/79 معاني النحو

- (35) صحيح البخاري [إِنَّ مِمَّا أَدْرَكَ النَّاسُ مِنْ كَلَامِ النَّبِيِّ الْأُولَى إِذَا لَمْ تَسْتَجِبْ فَأَصْنَعْ مَا شِئْتَ :6120]
 «One of the sayings of the early prophets which the people have got is: If you don't feel ashamed, then do whatever you like.»
- (36) صحيح البخاري [إِذَا لَمْ يَجِدِ الْمَاءَ لَا يُصَلِّي] 345 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 28]
 «If he doesn't find water, he doesn't pray?»
- (37) صحيح البخاري [أَلَيْسَ إِذَا حَاضَتْ لَمْ تُصَلِّ وَلَمْ تَصُمْ] 304]
 «Is it not the case [that] when she mensurates, she does not pray, and she does not fast?»

41.3.5. The inverted conditional sentence with إِذَا

Let's go back to example (1556) above:

- (36) 3/60 كتاب سيبويه [إِذَا أَحْمَرَ الْبُسْرُ] 3/60
 «I will come to you when the unripe dates redden.»

Technically, this is not a conditional sentence. Nor does it technically contain a conditional sentence. This is because a conditional sentence, according to our definition, requires that the condition-response follow the condition in sentence word order. But there is no condition-response, whether surface or taqdīr, after إِذَا أَحْمَرَ الْبُسْرُ. (See the government of this sentence in Figure 41.7.)

Having said that, there is no problem if we refer to such a sentence, loosely speaking and for convenience, as an inverted conditional sentence. if contains the *meaning* of a condition. Here are some more examples:

- (37) صحيح البخاري [وَتَوَفَّنِي إِذَا كَانَتْ الْوَفَاةُ خَيْرًا لِي] 5671]
 «And take my soul if death is better for me.»
- (38) فَأَقْبَلَ رَجُلٌ غَائِرٌ الْعَيْنَيْنِ مُشْرِفٌ الْوَجْنَتَيْنِ نَاتِيٌ الْجَبِينِ كَثُّ اللَّحْيَةِ مَخْلُوقٌ فَقَالَ اتَّقِ اللَّهَ يَا مُحَمَّدٌ فَقَالَ مَنْ يُطِيعُ اللَّهَ إِذَا عَصَيْتُ أَيَأْمُنُنِي اللَّهُ عَلَى أَهْلِ الْأَرْضِ فَلَا تَأْمُنُونِي²⁶
 [صحيح البخاري] 3344 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 142]
 «Then a man with sunken eyes, prominent cheeks, a raised forehead, a thick beard and a shaven head, came in front [of the Prophet ﷺ] and said, "Be afraid of Allāh, O Muḥammad!" The Prophet ﷺ said, "Who would obey Allāh if I disobeyed [Him]? (Is it fair that) Allāh has trusted all the people of the earth to me while you do not trust me?"»
- (39) لِلْمُسْلِمِ عَلَى الْمُسْلِمِ سِتٌّ بِالْمَعْرُوفِ يُسَلِّمُ عَلَيْهِ إِذَا لَقِيَهُ وَيُجِيبُهُ إِذَا دَعَاهُ وَيُسَمِّتُهُ إِذَا جَامَعَ التَّرْمِذِي [عَطَسَ وَيَعُودُهُ إِذَا مَرِضَ وَيَتَّبِعُ جَنَازَتَهُ إِذَا مَاتَ وَيُحِبُّ لَهُ مَا يُحِبُّ لِنَفْسِهِ :2736]
 «There are six courtesies due to a Muslim from another Muslim: he gives the greeting of peace when he sees him, he responds to him when he

²⁶ It is not clear to us why يُطِيع is in the 0-case from this source. Peled's source صحيح الجامع الصحيح, ed. L. Krehl, Leiden: Brill, 1864, II, 337 l:9 has يُطِيع in the u-case.

invites him, he [says الله یرحمك] when he sneezes, he visits him when he is ill, he follows his funeral when he dies, and he loves for him what he loves for himself. »

41.3.6. Certainty of the event indicated by إِذَا

إِذَا is typically used when the condition is certain to occur. The English expression, «It's not a matter of "if" but "when"», also indicates the fundamental difference between «if» and «when» conditional sentences. So, for example, if you say:

- (38) 2/117 الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة للقرظيني [إن تكرمني أكرمك]
«If you will honor me, I will honor you.»

then you are not certain if the other person would honor you or not. But if you say:

- (39) 2/117 الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة للقرظيني [إذا زالت الشمس آتيتك]
«When the sun declines, I will come to you.»

then you are certain that the condition إذا زالت الشمس will, at some point, be valid.²⁷

Having said that, إِذَا may not always indicate the certainness of the event in the condition. For example:

- (40) فَأَقْبَلَ رَجُلٌ غَائِرُ الْعَيْنَيْنِ مُشْرِفُ الْوُجُنَّتَيْنِ نَاتِيُ الْجَبِينِ كَثُّ اللَّحْيَةِ مَخْلُوقٌ فَقَالَ اتَّقِ اللَّهَ يَا مُحَمَّدُ فَقَالَ مَنْ يُطِيعِ اللَّهَ إِذَا عَصَيْتُ أَيَأْمُنُنِي اللَّهُ عَلَى أَهْلِ الْأَرْضِ فَلَا تَأْمَنُونِي [صحيح البخاري: 3344]
«Then a man with sunken eyes, prominent checks, a raised forehead, a thick beard and a shaven head, came in front [of the Prophet ﷺ] and said, "Be afraid of Allāh, O Muḥammad!" The Prophet ﷺ said, "Who would obey Allāh if I disobeyed [Him]? (Is it fair that) Allāh has trusted all the people of the earth to me while you do not trust me?"»

Even though إِذَا is used in the above ḥadīth, it does not indicate a certain event. Far from it. In fact, there is no question that the Prophet ﷺ would never disobey Allāh.

In such cases, إِذَا can retain its temporal signification, but the event in the condition would not be considered certain.

41.3.7. إِذَا مَا

مَا may optionally be suffixed to إِذَا. This مَا is redundant and it can (but does not necessarily have to) imply a vagueness in meaning.²⁸ For example:

- (41) آتيتك إذا ما طلعت الشمس
[composed from الكلبيات للكفوي 4/95 citing معاني النحو]
«I will come to you, [one of the days] when the sun will rise.»

²⁷ 2/117 الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة للقرظيني

²⁸ الكلبيات للكفوي 4/95 citing معاني النحو

Or it can imply an extra emphasis. For example:

- (42) سورة [حَتَّى إِذَا مَا جَاءُوهَا شَهِدَ عَلَيْهِمْ سَمْعُهُمْ وَأَبْصَرُهُمْ وَجُلُودُهُمْ بِمَا كَانُوا يَعْمَلُونَ 41:20 cited by معاني النحو 4/96ff]
 «Until, when they reach it, their hearing and their eyes and their skins will testify against them of what they used to do.»

مَا إِذَا is more common than إِذَا when the condition-verb and/or the condition-response-verb are يَفْتُل instead of قَتَلَ (see examples (1566) and (1567) above).²⁹
 Examples:

- (43) 4/272 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] إِذَا مَا تَأْتِي أَحْسِنُ إِلَيْكَ
 «Whenever you come to me, I will do good to you.»
- (44) 4/19 [شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] وَكَانَ إِذَا مَا يَسْلُلُ السَّيْفَ يَضْرِبُ
 «And he would, when he drew his sword, strike.»

41.3.8. إِذَا before the كَان conditional sentence

TODO:

Fischer 236

- (44) كَانَ إِذَا اشْتَكَيْتَ رَحْمَنِي
 (45) كُنْتُ إِذْ لَقِيتُ قَوْمَ غَزُونِي غَزَوْتَهُمْ
 (46) كَانَتْ الْعَجُوزُ إِذَا كَلِمَهَا تَسْكُتُ عَنْهُ

41.4. Other conditional-devices

In addition to إِنَّ and إِذَا, there are other conditional-devices as well. The main other conditional-device is لَوْ but we will treat it separately in Section 41.9 below. Besides لَوْ, the additional conditional-devices can be split into two categories:

- ∅-case-izing conditional-devices like إِنَّ: these govern a condition-verb and a condition-response-verb in the ∅-case.
- Non-∅-case-izing conditional-devices: these *don't* govern the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the ∅-case.

We will discuss both categories below:

41.4.1. ∅-case-izing conditional-devices

Most of the nouns that constitute the question-devices (like مَنْ «who», مَا «what», أَيْنَ «where», etc.) double as ∅-case-izing conditional-devices.³⁰

In addition to the question-devices, some other adverbs of time/place also double as ∅-case-izing conditional-devices, like حَيْثُ «where», and إِذَا «when».

²⁹ 4/272 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]

³⁰ 148 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

Suffixing مَا

When the above nouns are re-used as conditional-devices, an extra مَا is often suffixed to many of them, signifying and emphasizing an «-ever» meaning. For example: أَيْنَمَا «wherever». The suffixing of مَا to these conditional-devices falls under three categories³¹:

i. Those for whom suffixing a مَا is obligatory:

- إِذْمَا «if». (By the way, according to some grammarians, once مَا is suffixed to إِذْ to make it an conditional-device, it ceases to be a noun and becomes a particle.³²)
- حَيْثُمَا «wherever»

ii. Those for whom suffixing a مَا is optional. These are the majority of the question-devices that are reused as conditional-devices. For example:

- مَا مَا مَهْمَا «what(ever)». (One theory is that the origin of مَهْمَا is مَا مَا.³³)
- أَيْنَمَا/أَيْنَ «where(ever)»
- مَتَى مَا/مَتَى «when(ever)»
- أَيَّانَ مَا/أَيَّانَ «when(ever)»
- أَيُّمَا/أَيَّ «which(ever)»
- كَيْفَمَا/كَيْفَ «however». (كَيْفَمَا/كَيْفَ as conditional-devices are disputed; some grammarians did not allow them.³⁴)

Note that when مَا is suffixed, it is joined, in writing, to some of the question-devices and not to others.

iii. Those that are not suffixed with a مَا, according to the standard view. But some grammarians did allow them to be suffixed with مَا.³⁵:

- مَنْ «who(ever)»
- أَيْنَ «whence» (can mean «from where», «how», «when»³⁶)

Conditional sentences with the Ø-case-izing the conditional-devices

Like إِنْ, these conditional-devices will govern a condition-verb and a condition-response-verb in the Ø-case. Also, like إِنْ, māḍī verbs can be used instead of the Ø-case muḍāriʿ verbs.

The analysis of these conditional-devices governing the condition-verb and condition-response-verb in the Ø-case, while themselves oftentimes being gov-

³¹ 174ff الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

³² 162 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

³³ 175 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

³⁴ 4/18 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك; 177 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

³⁵ 582 شرح الأشموني على ألفية ابن مالك; 4/18 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك

³⁶ 4/16 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك

ernees, becomes complex, and has been the subject of much discussion by the grammarians.³⁷ Here, we treat the subject summarily:

The conditional-devices مَنْ, مَا, and مَهْمَا are, by default, in the u-case as the subject of the sentence. Examples:

- (45) [4/15 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَنْ يُكْرِمْنِي أَكْرِمُهُ
«Whoever honors me, I will honor him.»
- (46) [4/27 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4:123 سورة النساء] مَنْ يَعْمَلُ سُوءًا يُجْزَ بِهِ
«Whoever does a wrong will be recompensed for it»
- (47) [4880: سنن أبي داود] مَنْ اتَّبَعَ عَوْرَاتِهِمْ يَتَّبِعِ اللَّهُ عَوْرَتَهُ
«Whoever trails [them for] their faults, Allāh will trail [him for] his fault.»
- (48) [35: صحيح البخاري] مَنْ يَقُمْ لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ إِيمَانًا وَاحْتِسَابًا غُفِرَ لَهُ مَا تَقَدَّمَ مِنْ ذَنْبِهِ
«Whoever stands [in prayer] on the Night of Decree, in faith, and hoping for reward, then his previous sins will be forgiven.»
(This is a rare example of قَتَلَ يَقْتُلُ قَتْلًا.)
- (49) [4/15 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَا يُعْجِبُكَ يُعْجِبُنِي
«Whatever pleases you, it will please me.»
- (50) [4/27 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2:197 سورة البقرة] وَمَا تَفْعَلُوا مِنْ خَيْرٍ يَعْلَمُهُ اللَّهُ
«And whatever good you do - Allāh knows it.»
- (51) [4/15 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَهْمَا حَصَلَ كَفَى
«Whatever is achieved, it is sufficient.»
- (52) [4/267 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] أَعَزَّكَ مِنِّي أَنَّ حُبَّكَ قَاتِلِي وَأَنَّكَ مَهْمَا تَأْمُرِي الْقَلْبَ يَفْعَلُ
«That your love is killing me has emboldened you against me. And that you: whatever you order the heart, it will do [it].»

If they refer to the direct doer of the condition-verb, then they are analyzed in the a-case as a direct doer.

- (47) [4/15 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَنْ تَضْرِبُ أَضْرِبُ
«Whomever you beat, I will beat.»
- (48) [4/15 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَا تَفْعَلُ أَفْعَلُ
«Whatever you do, I will do.»
- (49) [4/15 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَهْمَا تَفْعَلُ أَفْعَلُ
«Whatever you do, I will do.»
- (50) [3/70 كتاب سيبويه] آتِي مَنْ آتَانِي
«I will come to who will come to me.»
(This is an inverted conditional sentence with a deleted condition-response. See Section 41.2.4 above and also example (1626) below.)

³⁷See for example: 2/566; همع الهوامع للسيوطي; 165ff; الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسار; 5/434; اللبيب لابن هشام

In such cases, the condition-core and/or the condition-response-core may include a pronoun that refers back to the conditional-device. Examples:

- (48) 2/566 همع الهوامع للسيوطي] من تضرب أضربه
« Whomever you beat, I will beat him. »
- (49) 2/566 همع الهوامع للسيوطي] من يضربه زيد أضربه
« Whoever Zayd beats [him], I will beat him. »
- (50) 2/566 همع الهوامع للسيوطي] من تضربه أضربه
« Whomever you beat [him], I will beat him. »

If the conditional-device is preceded by a preposition, or a annexed noun, it they will be in the i-case. Example:

- (49) 3/82 كتاب سيبويه] بِمَنْ تَمُرُّ أَمُرُّ بِهِ
« By whom you pass, I will pass. »
- (50) 2/451 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] غُلَامٌ مَنْ تَضْرِبُ أَضْرِبُ
« Whoever's slave-boy you beat, I will beat. »

The conditional-devices *أَيَّانَ*, *مَتَى*, *حَيْثُمَا*, *أَيْنَمَا*, and *أَنَّى* are analyzed in the a-case as adverbs of time/place. For example:

- (50) 4/16 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَتَى تَخْرُجُ أَخْرُجُ
« When you will exit, I will exit. »
- (51) 86 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى] مَتَى أَضْعُ الْعِمَامَةَ تَعْرِفُونِي
« When I take off the turban, you will recognize me. »
- (51) 4/17 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] مَتَى مَا تَلْقَانِي فَرْدَيْنِ تَرْجِفُ
« Whenever you meet me individually, you shall quake. »
- (52) 4/16 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] أَيَّانَ تَذْهَبُ أَذْهَبُ
« When you will go, I will go. »
- (53) 88 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] فَأَيَّانَ مَا تَعْدِلُ بِهَا الرِّيحُ تَنْزِلُ
« So whenever the wind inclines it, it comes down. »
- (54) 4/16 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] أَيْنَ تَجْلِسُ أَجْلِسُ
« Where you will sit, I will sit. »
- (55) 4:78 سورة النساء] أَيْنَمَا تَكُونُوا يُدْرِكُكُمُ الْمَوْتُ
« Wherever you may be, death will overtake you »
- (56) 4/16 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] أَنَّى تَذْهَبُ تُصِيبُ حَيْرًا
« Wherever you will go, you will strike goodness. »
- (57) 4/16 شرح الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك] حَيْثُمَا تَسْتَقِمُ تُفْلِحُ
« Wherever you stand firm, you will succeed. »

The conditional-device *كَيْفَمَا* is analyzed as a *ḥāl*. For example:

- (52) 6/108 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي] كَيْفَمَا تَكُنْ أَكُنْ
« However you will be, I will be. »

The conditional-device أَيَّ

The conditional-device أَيَّ behaves like the others above. Except, it displays its case. Examples:

As a subject:

- (53) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيُّ يُكْرِمُنِي أَكْرِمُهُ]
« Whichever [man] honors me, I will honor him. »
- (54) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيُّ تُكْرِمُنِي أَكْرِمُهَا]
« Whichever [woman] honors me, I will honor her. »

As a direct doee:

- (54) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيُّهُمْ تَضْرِبُ أَضْرِبُ]
« Whichever of them you beat, I will beat. »
- (55) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيَّا تَضْرِبُ أَضْرِبُ]
« Whichever you beat, I will beat. »
- (56) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيَّا مَا تَدْعُو فَلَهُ الْأَسْمَاءُ الْحُسْنَى]
« Whichever [name] you call - to Him belong the best names. »
(ف introducing the condition-response is discussed in Section 41.7 below.)

مَا can be added between أَيَّ and its annexed-to noun. For example:

- (55) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيُّمَا الْأَجَلَيْنِ قَضَيْتُ فَلَا عُدْوَانَ عَلَيَّ]
« Whichever of the two terms I complete - there is no injustice to me »

As a adverb of time/place:

- (56) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيَّ وَقْتٍ تَقُمْ أَقُمْ]
« Whichever time you stand, I will stand. »
- (57) 4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك [أَيَّ مَكَانٍ تَجْلِسُ أَجْلِسُ]
« Whichever time you stand, I will stand. »

The conditional-device إِذَا

إِذَا, according to the standard view, is a particle like إِنَّ. And like إِنَّ it will then mean « if », not « when ».³⁸

- (57) 2/398 شرح التصريح على التوضيح [إِذَا تَقُمْ أَقُمْ]
« If you stand, I will stand. »

³⁸ 4/79 معاني النحو; 2/398 شرح التصريح على التوضيح

41.4.2. Non- $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices

The main non- $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices are إِذَا (which we treated in Section 41.3 above), and لَوْ (which we treat in Section 41.9 below.)

For some background regarding non- $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices, for the earlier grammarians, conditionality was strongly associated with the syntax of a $\emptyset$ -case condition-verb. So much so that even إِذَا and لَوْ may not have been treated under the heading of conditional sentences. As grammar developed, semantic considerations allowed them to be discussed with إِنْ as conditional-devices.³⁹

Even so, unlike $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices, non- $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices, are a loosely defined set, with some $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices imparting only a whiff of, or only partial conditionality.

There are some indicators, such that if one or more are present, they can allow a sentence to have a conditional meaning, in varying degrees. These are:

- There are two clauses where the execution of the event in one (condition-response) clause is dependent on the fulfilment of the execution of an event in the other (condition) clause.
- The condition clause occurs before the condition-response clause in sentence word order.
- The condition clause has a verb which can be considered (loosely) the condition-verb. Same goes for the condition-response clause.
- The tense of the condition-verb and/or condition-response-verb (if *māḍī*) is shifted to the future.

We discuss some of these non- $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices below:

Connected nouns and adverbs of time/place

The same connected nouns the adverbs of time/place which we discussed as $\emptyset$ -case-izing conditional-devices can also impart a conditional meaning when used with their original functions as connected nouns and adverbs of time/place.

As discussed above, when used as such, they may technically not be considered “conditional sentences” because of the lack of an (either overt or positional) $\emptyset$ -case condition-verb.

We list some examples below. Note that the verbs in the condition and condition-response are not in the $\emptyset$ -case. Technically, they won’t be called the “condition-verb” and “condition-response-verb”. Furthermore, the structure of the “condition-core” and “condition-response-core” could technically not have to be a verbal sentence.

(58) مَا تَقُولُ أَقُولُ [3/69 كتاب سيبويه]
«What you say, I will say.»

(59) أَقُولُ مَا تَقُولُ [3/70 كتاب سيبويه]
«I will say what you say.»

³⁹Giolfo and Hodges, “Conditionality: Syntax and meaning in al-Sirāfi and Ibn Sinā”; Giolfo, “Real and irreal conditionals in Arabic grammar: From al-ʿAstarābādī to Sibawayhi”

This sentence (and similar examples below) has little conditional meaning, if any, but we have included it as the inverse of example (1621) above.

- (60) [3/69 كتاب سيويه] الَّذِي تَقُولُ أَقُولُ
«The one that you say, I will say.»
- (61) [3/69 كتاب سيويه] ⁴⁰مَنْ يَأْتِينِي آتِيهِ
«Who comes to me, I will come to him.»
- (62) [3/70 كتاب سيويه] آتِي مَنْ يَأْتِينِي
«I will come to the one who comes to me.»
- (63) [3/70 كتاب سيويه] آتِي مَنْ أَتَانِي
«I will come to who came to me.»
(Note that in this particular sentence, مَنْ may also be considered to be a ϕ -case-izing conditional-device, like in example (1596) above. In which case أَتَانِي is a true condition-verb in place of يَأْتِينِي, and there is a deleted condition-response after it. And the meaning will be «I will come to who will come to me».⁴¹)
- (64) [3/70 كتاب سيويه] وَمَنْ يَمِيلُ أَمَالَ السَّيْفِ ذِرْوَتَهُ ~ حَيْثُ التَّقَى مِنْ حَفَا فِي رَأْسِهِ الشَّعْرُ
- (65) [3/80 كتاب سيويه] بِمَنْ تَمُرُّ بِهِ أَمُرُّ
«By whom you pass, I pass.»
- (66) [3/69 كتاب سيويه] أَيُّهَا تَشَاءُ أُعْطِيكَ
«Whichever of them you wish, I will give you.»
- (67) [3/70 كتاب سيويه] أَيُّهَا تَشَاءُ أُعْطِيكَ
«I will give you whichever of them you wish.»
- (68) [3/58 كتاب سيويه] حَيْثُ تَكُونُ أَكُونُ
«Where you will be, I will be.»
- (69) cited 833: سنن النسائي] إِنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ رَجُلٌ أَسِيفٌ وَإِنَّهُ مَتَى يَقُومُ فِي مَقَامِكَ لَا يَسْمَعُ النَّاسُ
[72] ⁴²شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك by
«Abū Bakr is a tender-hearted man, and when he stands in your place he will not be able to make the people hear.»

Connected nouns exhibit a conditional meaning particularly when the “condition-response” begins with ف. ⁴³ For example:

- (59) [كتاب سيويه 4/127ff citing معاني النحو] الَّذِي يَأْتِينِي فَلَهُ دِرْهَمَانِ
«The one who will come to me, he will have two dirhams.»

⁴⁰This is يَأْتِينِي in the source, but the context seems to indicate that it is a typographical error and that it should be يَأْتِينِي. The commentary 3/266 for this section has يَأْتِينِي.

⁴¹3/70 كتاب سيويه

⁴²متى يقم but it has صحيح البخاري 72 actually cites شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك

⁴³1/165 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام; 4/127ff; معاني النحو

Also, because of the connected noun's having a conditional meaning, a māḍī verb after it may signify the future tense. For example:

- (60) [1/268 شرح الرضي على الكافية] الَّذِي أَتَانِي فَلَهُ دِرْهَمٌ
«The one who **will** come to me, he will have a dirham.»

كُلَّمَا

The adverb of time كُلَّمَا «every time» is considered to be able to have a conditional meaning. So much so, that it can cause tense-shifting. So if a māḍī verb is after then it can (but doesn't have to) have a future meaning.⁴⁴

Example:

- (61) [198 شرح الرضي على الكافية] كُلَّمَا أَصْبَحْتَ فَسَبِّحِ اللَّهَ
«Every time you enter the morning, then glorify Allāh»

أَمَّا

The particle أَمَّا, meaning «as for», is considered by some to sometimes have a conditional meaning.⁴⁵ Usually, it is followed by a noun, and the condition-response is introduced with فَ. For example:

- (62) [57 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام] أَمَّا زَيْدٌ فَذَا هِبُ
«As for Zayd, then [he is] going.»

In example (1636) above, the conditional meaning is apparent if we paraphrase it as «Whatever happens, Zayd is going.»⁴⁶

Sometimes the فَ may be omitted in the condition-response. For example:

- (63) [4/53 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] فَأَمَّا الْقِتَالُ لَا قِتَالَ لَدَيْكُمْ
«As for fighting, [then] there is no fight with you.»

إِذَا

According to some reseachers, the adverb of time إِذَا «when» can sometimes have a conditional meaning. For example:

- (64) [46:11 سورة الأحقاف] وَإِذَا لَمْ يَهْتَدُوا بِهِ ۖ فَسَيَقُولُونَ هَذَا إِفْكٌ قَدِيمٌ
[Conditional structure in Classical Arabic 173]
«And when they are not guided by it, they will say, “This is an ancient falsehood.”»

⁴⁴ شرح الرضي على الكافية 197

⁴⁵ Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 136; ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/52

⁴⁶ 57 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام

لَمَّا

لَمَّا has a meaning similar to إِذْ, and can also be considered to have a conditional meaning for the past tense.⁴⁷

- (65) [2/481 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] لَمَّا نَزَلَ الْمَطَرُ رَبَا الزَّرْعُ
«When the rain came down, the crop grew.»

General two-clause sentences with فَ as a condition-response-link

Two-clause sentences with generality in their meaning, when the second clause begins with فَ, may have some conditionality in their meaning.⁴⁸ Examples:

- (66) [4/130 معاني النحو] كل رجل يأتيني فله دينار
«Every man that comes to me, he will get a dirham.»
- (67) [4/130 معاني النحو] كل رجل في الدار فله درهم
«Every man in the house, he will get a dirham.»
- (68) [4/130 معاني النحو] رجل يسألني فله أجر
«A man who asks me, he will get a reward.»
- (69) [4/130 معاني النحو] رجل في المسجد فله بر
«A man in the mosque, he will achieve piety.»

41.5. Using يَقْتُلْ vs قَتَلَ

Regarding the distinction in meaning between using يَقْتُلْ vs. قَتَلَ for a future meaning, the māḍī verb signifies certainty and the completion of an action. Whereas, the muḍāriʿ verb in general signifies an imperfect (i.e. progressive, continual, habitual, or future) action. And a ʔ-case muḍāriʿ verb, in particular, signifies the potentiality of an action.⁴⁹

Here are some possible circumstances where choosing a māḍī vs muḍāriʿ verb in a conditional sentence may affect nuances in the meaning:

The muḍāriʿ verb can be used to signify a continual action

In some contexts, the muḍāriʿ verb can be used to signify a continual action. Whereas قَتَلَ can be used to signify a single action.⁵⁰ For example:

- (67) [31:12 سورة لقمان] وَمَنْ يَشْكُرْ فَإِنَّمَا يَشْكُرُ لِنَفْسِهِ وَمَنْ كَفَرَ فَإِنَّ اللَّهَ غَنِيٌّ حَمِيدٌ
«And whoever is grateful is grateful for [the benefit of] himself. And whoever denies [His favor] - then indeed, Allāh is Free of need and Praise-worthy.»

⁴⁷ 3/230 شرح الرضي على الكافية

⁴⁸ etc., شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك، كتاب سيبويه 4/130 معاني النحو

⁴⁹ see 49 التأويل الزمني للجملة الشرطية في اللغة العربية لعارف الدين

⁵⁰ 4/58 معاني النحو

In example (1644) above, يَشْكُرُ uses the يَقْتُلُ form, whereas كَفَرَ uses the قَتَلَ form. One interpretation is that gratitude is a continual action whereas even only one action of disbelief requires that one stop doing it.⁵¹

By the way, شَكَرَ in the قَتَلَ form is also found as a condition-verb:

- (68) وَمَنْ شَكَرَ فَإِنَّمَا يَشْكُرُ لِنَفْسِهِ وَمَنْ كَفَرَ فَإِنَّ رَبِّي غَنِيٌّ كَرِيمٌ [سورة النمل 27:40]
 «And whoever is grateful - his gratitude is only for [the benefit of] himself.
 And whoever is ungrateful - then indeed, my Lord is Free of need and Generous. »

قَتَلَ can be used to signify a generic action

قَتَلَ can be used to signify a generic action.⁵² The implication is that it is proven through past experience.⁵³ For example:

- (69) مَنْ صَبَرَ ظَفَرَ [4/63 معاني النحو]
 «Whoever is patient, overcomes. »

Whereas, يَقْتُلُ may signify potentiality. For example:

- (70) مَنْ يَعْمَلْ يَأْكُلْ [4/63 معاني النحو]
 «Whoever should work, he may eat. »

قَتَلَ can be used to signify certainty in an event

In some contexts, قَتَلَ could be used when an event is deemed or hoped to be more certain.⁵⁴ For example:

- (71) إِنْ دَخَلَ الْجَنَّةَ ... [Jamil, "Arabic rhetoric made simple" Conditionals, part 2]
 «If he enters Paradise (and we hope it will be so) ... »

Consider also the following āyah:

- (72) فَإِذَا جَاءَتْهُمْ الْحَسَنَةُ قَالُوا لَنَا هَذِهِ وَإِنْ تُصِبْهُمْ سَيِّئَةٌ يَطَّيَّرُوا بِمُوسَى وَمَنْ مَعَهُ [89 مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني cited by سورة الأعراف 7:131]
 «But when good [i.e., provision] came to them, they said, "This is ours [by right]." And if a bad [condition] struck them, they saw an evil omen in Moses and those with him. »

Note that the condition with الْحَسَنَةُ «good» is expressed with the قَتَلَ form إِذَا and with سَيِّئَةٌ «evil» is expressed with the يَقْتُلُ form إِنْ. This contrast has been explained by stating that إِذَا and the māḍī verb indicate a higher probability of occurrence, and إِنْ and the ḥāl verb indicate a lower probability.⁵⁵

⁵¹ 4/58 معاني النحو for سورة لقمان 31:12 cited by الرازي

⁵² Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17–18

⁵³ 4/63 معاني النحو

⁵⁴ Jamil, "Arabic rhetoric made simple" Conditionals, part 2

⁵⁵ 7:131 سورة الأعراف for تفسير ابن عاشور 89; مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني

فَتَلْ can be used to impart more force to the statement

In some contexts, فَتَلْ could be used to impart more force to the conditional sentence, without necessarily implying the condition is likely to take place. For example:

(73) وَلَقَدْ أُوحِيَ إِلَيْكَ وَإِلَى الَّذِينَ مِنْ قَبْلِكَ لَئِنْ أَشْرَكْتَ لَيَحْبَطَنَّ عَمَلُكَ وَلَتَكُونَنَّ مِنَ الْخَاسِرِينَ

[93 مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني cited by سورة الزمر 39:65] الْخَاسِرِينَ

«And it was already revealed to you and to those before you that if you should associate [anything] with Allāh, your work would surely become worthless, and you would surely be among the losers.»

Regarding the condition لَئِنْ أَشْرَكْتَ in this āyah, the Prophet ﷺ would never associate anyone with Allāh. And so it is actually his nation, to whom this threat is directed.⁵⁶ The usage of the فَتَلْ form أَشْرَكَ has been analyzed to lend more force to this indirect use of the condition.⁵⁷

41.6. The tense of the conditional sentence

41.6.1. The tense of the simple conditional sentence

In a simple conditional sentence, i.e. one where the condition-core and the condition-response-core are simple verbal sentences, the tense of both the condition and the condition-response is typically shifted to the future due to the influence of the conditional-device. regardless of whether the فَتَلْ or يَقْتُلْ form is used as the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb. So, for example, all of the following conditional sentences will typically have a future meaning:

(74) a. إِنْ تَأْتِيَنِي أَكْرَمُكَ

b. إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

c. إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمَكَ

d. إِنْ تَأْتِيَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

e. إِذَا أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

«If you come to me, I will honor you.»

Having said this, a conditional sentence will not necessarily always signify a future event. Instead, the tense of a conditional sentence should really be determined from context. In order to prove this, we show that the simple conditional sentence can occasionally admit a past tense meaning. Examples:

⁵⁶ سورة الزمر 39:65 تفسير ابن عثيمين

⁵⁷ 93 مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني

- (75) قَالُوا إِنْ يَسْرِقْ فَقَدْ سَرَقَ أَخٌ لَهُ مِنْ قَبْلُ⁵⁸
[231 شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك cited by سورة يوسف 12:77]
«They said, “If he steals - a brother of his has stolen before.”»
- (76) وَإِذَا رَأَوْا تِجَارَةً أَوْ لَهْزًا انْفَضُّوا إِلَيْهَا وَتَرَكُوكَ قَائِمًا
[معاني النحو سورة الجمعة 62:11 cited by 4/66]
«But [on one occasion] when they saw a transaction or a diversion, [O Muhammad], they rushed to it and left you standing.»
- (77) قُلْ إِنْ أَفْتَرَيْتُهُو فَعَلَىٰ إِجْرَامِي وَأَنَا بَرِيءٌ مِّمَّا تُجْرِمُونَ
[معاني النحو سورة هود 11:35 cited by 4/66]
«Say, “If I have invented it, then upon me is [the consequence of] my crime; but I am innocent of what [crimes] you commit.”»
- (78) أَنْ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ كَانَ إِذَا أُتِيَ بِطَعَامٍ سَأَلَ عَنْهُ فَإِنْ قِيلَ هَدِيَّةٌ أَكَلَ مِنْهَا وَإِنْ قِيلَ صَدَقَةٌ لَمْ يَأْكُلْ مِنْهَا
[1077: صحيح مسلم]
«that the Prophet ﷺ would, when he was brought some food, ask about it. If it was said [that it was] a gift, he ate from it, and if it was said [that it was] charity, he did not eat from it.»
- (79) مَا غَابَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ طَعَامًا قَطُّ إِنْ اشْتَهَاهُ أَكَلَهُ وَإِنْ كَرِهَهُ تَرَكَهُ
[صحيح البخاري 5409]
«The Prophet ﷺ never criticized any food whatsoever. If he liked it, he ate it. And if he disliked it, he left it.»

41.6.2. With فَ as the condition-response-link

In Section 41.7 below we will learn that فَ is sometimes used as a condition-response-link. And we will learn the rules of when فَ is required to introduce the condition-response. In this section, we will only note that when فَ is used as a condition-response-link then the tense of condition-response-core is free from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device. The tense of the condition-response-core is then determined from evaluating it independently. Here are some examples:

- (76) وَإِنْ كَانَ قَمِيصُهُ قُدٌّ مِنْ دُبُرٍ فَكَذَبَتْ وَهُوَ مِنَ الصَّادِقِينَ
[سورة يوسف 12:27]
«But if his shirt is torn from the back, then she has lied, and he is of the truthful.»
- (77) فَإِنْ كُنْتَ بَرِيئَةً فَسَيُبْرِّئُكَ اللَّهُ وَإِنْ كُنْتَ أَلَمَمْتَ بِذَنْبٍ فَاسْتَغْفِرِي اللَّهَ وَتُوبِي إِلَيْهِ
[صحيح مسلم 2770]
«If you are innocent, then Allāh will acquit you, and if you have lapsed into a sin then seek forgiveness from Allāh and turn to Him in repentance.»

⁵⁸See also سورة يوسف 12:77 and Gätje, “Zur Struktur gestörter Konditionalgefüge im Arabischen” 175.

(78) [صحيح البخاري: 4072] إِنَّ قَتَلْتَ حَمَزَةَ بَعْمِي فَأَنْتَ حُرٌّ

«If you kill Ḥamzah [in revenge] for my uncle, **then you are free.**»

41.6.3. With كَانَ as the condition-verb

We saw above that when **فَ** is used to introduce the condition-response then its tense is free from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device. The verb **كَانَ** can similarly be used to introduce the condition, and it makes the tense of the condition free from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device. In such sentences, the condition-core beginning with **كَانَ** will still be considered a verbal sentence.

Let's say that we wish to expressly indicate a past tense for the condition, as in the example:

(77) «If he studied, then he will succeed.»

If we express the condition as **إِنْ دَرَسَ**, then it will typically take a future tense meaning. In order to explicitly specify a past tense, we begin the condition-core with **كَانَ**, thus:

(78) **إِنْ كَانَ قَدْ دَرَسَ فَسَيَنْجَحُ**

«If he studied, then he will succeed.»

In example (1661) above, the **قَدْ** is optional, and may be removed for the same meaning.

Similarly, let's say that we expressly indicate a present tense meaning for the condition as in the example:

(79) «If he is eating, then let him.»

«He is eating» can be translated as **يَأْكُلُ** which is a u-case *muḍāriʿ* verb. We cannot use this verb directly as the condition-verb with **إِنْ** and would have to modify it to the $\emptyset$ -case verb thus: **يَأْكُلُ**. But then this would typically have the tense meaning «if he will eat».

In order to specify a present tense, we begin the condition-core with **كَانَ**, thus:

(80) **إِنْ كَانَ يَأْكُلُ فَدَعُّهُ**

«If he is eating, then let him.»

كَانَ now can lose its past-tense meaning of “was”. But **إِنْ كَانَ يَأْكُلُ** could also signify the past-continuous tense «if he **was** eating». Context will tell us which of two is intended.

كَانَ can also be used to allow arbitrary sentences in the condition. Let's say that we wish to express:

(81) «If you are sitting, then come to me.»

«You are sitting» may be translated as **أَنْتَ جَالِسٌ**. In order to use this as the condition, we transform it using **كَانَ** thus:

- (82) **إِنْ كُنْتَ جَالِسًا فَأْتِنِي**
«If you are sitting, then come to me.»

By the way **إِنْ كُنْتَ جَالِسًا** could also signify the past-continuous tense «if you were sitting». It could even signify a future tense, for example:

- (83) **إِنْ كُنْتَ غَدًا جَالِسًا فَاتْنِنِي** [4/115 شرح الرضي على الكافية]
«If you are tomorrow sitting then come to me.»

Here is another example of conditions with **كَانَ** signifying a future meaning:

- (84) **إِنْ كَانَ لَهُ عَمَلٌ صَالِحٌ أُخِذَ مِنْهُ بِقَدْرِ مَظْلَمَتِهِ، وَإِنْ لَمْ تَكُنْ لَهُ حَسَنَاتٌ أُخِذَ مِنْ سَيِّئَاتٍ**
[2449: صحيح البخاري] **صَاحِبِهِ فَحُمِلَ عَلَيْهِ**
«If he will have a good deed, it will be taken from according to his oppression, and if he will not have good deeds, his companion's bad deeds will be taken from and put on him.»

Context will help disambiguate which meaning is intended.

Here are some more examples of conditional sentences with **كَانَ** as the condition-verb:

- (85) **إِنْ كُنْتُ قُلْتُهُو فَقَدْ عَلِمْتُهُو** [4/64 معاني النحو 5:116, cited by النحو]
«If I had said it, You would have known it.»
- (86) **إِنْ كَانَ قَمِيصُهُ قُدَّ مِنْ قُبُلٍ فَصَدَقَتْ وَهُوَ مِنَ الْكَاذِبِينَ** [12:26 سورة يوسف, cited by معاني النحو 4/64]
«If his shirt is torn from the front, then she has told the truth, and he is of the liars.»
- (87) **قَالَ فَمَا لِي لَا أَعْتَدُ بِهَا وَإِنْ كُنْتُ قَدْ عَجَزْتُ وَاسْتَحَمَقْتُ**
[304: مسند أحمد] «He said, “Why wouldn't I count it? Even if I wasn't able to and acted foolishly.”»
- (88) **قَالَ لَهَا وَإِنْ كَانَ لَمْ يُؤْذَنْ لِي فِي تَقْفِيٍّ يَا خُوَيْلَةُ**
[3/85 تاريخ الطبري] cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 33
«He (ﷺ) said to her, “And if Thaqif has not been permitted for me, O Khuwaylah?”»
- (89) **إِنْ كَانَ لَا يَضُرُّكَ وَلَا يَضِيقُ عَلَيْكَ فَإِنِّي أُجِبُّ أَنْ أُدْفَنَ مَعَ صَاحِبَيَّ**
[4519: مستدرک الحاکم] «If it does not harm you or make it difficult for you then I would like that I be buried with my two companions.»
- (90) **مَنْ قَالَ أَسْتَغْفِرُ اللَّهَ الَّذِي لَا إِلَهَ إِلَّا هُوَ الْحَيُّ الْقَيُّومُ وَأَتُوبُ إِلَيْهِ غُفِرَ لَهُ وَإِنْ كَانَ قَرَّرَ مَنْ**
[1517: سنن أبي داود] **الرَّحِيفُ**
«Whoever says, “I seek forgiveness from Allāh, the one whom there is no deity except He, the Ever-Living, the Self-Sustaining, and I turn to Him in repentance,” he is forgiven even if he had fled from battle.»

- (91) [صحيح البخاري: 1663] **إِنْ كُنْتَ تُرِيدُ أَنْ تُصِيبَ السُّنَّةَ الْيَوْمَ فَأَقْصِرِ الْخُطْبَةَ وَعَجِّلِ الْوُفُوفَ**
 «If you want to follow the Sunnah today then shorten the sermon and make earlier the stay [at ʿarafah].»
- (92) [صحيح] **فَإِنْ كُنْتَ بَرِيئَةً فَسَيُبْرِئُكَ اللَّهُ وَإِنْ كُنْتَ أَلَمَمْتَ بِذَنْبٍ فَاسْتَغْفِرِي اللَّهَ وَتُوبِي إِلَيْهِ**
 [مسلم 4/65 cited by معاني النحو 2770] «If you are innocent, Allāh will acquit you, and if you have lapsed into a sin then seek forgiveness from Allāh and turn to Him in repentance.»
- (93) **وَإِنْ كُنْتُمْ فِي رَيْبٍ مِمَّا نَزَّلْنَا عَلَىٰ عَبْدِنَا فَأْتُوا بِسُورَةٍ مِثْلِهِ ۚ وَادْعُوا شُهَدَاءَكُمْ مِمَّنْ دُونِ اللَّهِ إِنْ كُنْتُمْ صَادِقِينَ** [سورة البقرة 2:233]
 «And if you are in doubt about what We have sent down [i.e., the Qurʾān] upon Our Servant [i.e., Prophet Muḥammad (ﷺ)], then produce a sūrah the like thereof and call upon your witnesses [i.e., supporters] other than Allāh, if you should be truthful.»
- (94) [سنن النسائي: 52] **إِذَا كَانَ الْمَاءُ قُلَّتَيْنِ لَمْ يَحْمِلِ الْخَبَثَ**
 «When the water is two qullahs then it will not carry filth.»
- (95) [1/68 مغازي الواقدي] **فَإِنْ كُنْتُمْ أَكْفَاءَ فَأَتِلْنَاكُمْ**
 «If you are a match for us we will fight you.»

If the condition's sentence already has **كَانَ** to indicate the past tense, then another **كَانَ** is not added. For example:

- (86) **كَانَ يَنَامُ أَوَّلَ اللَّيْلِ ثُمَّ يَقُومُ فَإِذَا كَانَ مِنَ السَّحَرِ أَوْتَرَ ثُمَّ أَتَى فِرَاشَهُ فَإِذَا كَانَ لَهُ حَاجَةٌ أَلَمَ بِأَهْلِيهِ فَإِذَا سَمِعَ الْأَذَانَ وَتَبَّ فَإِنْ كَانَ جُنُبًا أَفَاضَ عَلَيْهِ مِنَ الْمَاءِ وَإِلَّا تَوَضَّأَ ثُمَّ خَرَجَ إِلَى الصَّلَاةِ** [سنن النسائي: 1680]
 «He would sleep in the first part of the night. Then he would stand (for prayer). Then when it was the last part of the night, he would pray the witr. Then he would come to his bed. Then if he had a need he would go to his wife. Then when he heard the adhān, he would get up. If we was in a state of sexual impurity he poured water over himself. And if not he would perform wudūʾ. Then he would go out to the prayer.»

The $\emptyset$ -case mudāriʿ verb **يَكُنْ** can also be used in this manner. It may indicate potentiality or possibility. For example:

- (87) [جمهرة الأمثال للعسكري] **فَإِنْ يَكُنْ قَدْ عَلَا رَأْسِي وَغَيْرُهُ ~** صرف الزَّمان وتغيير من الشَّعر [1/263]
 «So if it be that my head has become dignified and the elapsing of time and a changing of hair has changed it ...»
- (88) [cited by Gätje, "Zur Struktur gestörter Konditionalgefüge im Arabischen" 175] **فَإِنْ تَكُنِ الدُّنْيَا بِلْبَنَى تَغَيَّرَتْ فَلِلدَّهْرِ وَالدُّنْيَا بَطُونٌ وَأَظْهَرُ**
 «And if the world has changed by Lubnā, then the world has innards and outwards.»

(89) إِنَّ يَكُ هَذَا مِنْ عِنْدِ اللَّهِ يُمُضِيهِ [صحیح البخاری: 3895 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 21]

«If this **be** from Allāh, He will make it happen.»

(90) فَإِنْ يَكُ صَوَابًا فَمِنْ اللَّهِ وَإِنْ يَكُنْ خَطَأً فَمِنِّي وَمِنْ الشَّيْطَانِ وَاللَّهُ وَرَسُولُهُ بَرِيئَانِ [2116: أبي داود]

«If this **be** correct then [it is] from Allāh, and if it **be** erroneous then [it is] from me and from Satan. And Allāh and His Messenger are free [from it].»

Remember from Section 33.3 that the doer participle can be used to indicate an intention to do a future action. This use of the doer participle can carry over to its use in a condition. For example:

(88) إِنْ كُنْتَ فَاعِلًا فَوَاحِدَةً [1207: صحیح البخاری]

«If you are going to do it, then (only) once.»

41.6.4. With a static verb as the condition-verb

In the discussion above, we have seen that, if the condition is to signify the present tense, then we will usually have كَانَ as the condition-verb. In this section, we add that when the condition-verb is a *static* verb, then كَانَ is not required to signify the present tense.⁵⁹ We define a static verb, in the context of conditional sentences to be one of the following⁶⁰:

1. An intransitive verb that has an adjectival meaning. For example: كَثُرَ «to be many», صَحَّ «to be correct», كَبُرَ «to be big», etc.
2. A *modal* verb that takes a أَنْ clause as a direct doer. For example: شَاءَ «to wish», اسْتَطَاعَ «can», etc.
3. A verb of perception. For example: عَلِمَ «to know», ظَنَّ «to think», حَسِبَ «to consider», etc.

Here are some examples of conditional sentences with a static verb as the condition-verb:

(89) الرَّبَا وَإِنْ كَثُرَ فَإِنْ غَاقِبَتْهُ تَصِيرُ إِلَى قُلٍّ [3754: مسند أحمد]

«Interest, even if it **is** much, its outcome becomes less.»

(90) فَإِنْ طَلَّقَهَا فَلَا جُنَاحَ عَلَيْهِمَا أَنْ يَتَرَاجَعَا إِنْ ظَنَّا أَنْ يُقِيمَا حُدُودَ اللَّهِ [2:230 سورة البقرة]

«And if he [i.e., the latter husband] divorces her [or dies], there is no blame upon them [i.e., the woman and her former husband] for returning to each other if **they think** that they can keep [within] the limits of Allāh.»

For modal verbs like شَاءَ «to wish, want», اسْتَطَاعَ «can», etc., if the أَنْ clause that is the direct doer of the modal verb is in the condition then it need not be repeated in the condition-response. The condition-response can then have an empty verb like فَعَلَ.⁶¹ Example:

⁵⁹ كَانَ can still be used with a static verb. See for example سورة الأنعام 6:35, سورة يونس 10:71

⁶⁰ from Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 13

⁶¹ Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 22

- (90) إِنَّ أَحَبَّ أَهْلِكَ أَنْ أَصِبَ لَهُمْ ثَمَنَكَ صَبَّةً وَاحِدَةً فَأُعْطِيكَ فَعَلْتُ [صحیح البخاری: 2564 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 22]

«If your people like that I pay them your price in a lump sum and so manumit you, I will do so.»

- (91) إِنَّكُمْ سَتَرَوْنَ رَبَّكُمْ كَمَا تَرَوْنَ هَذَا الْقَمَرَ لَا تَصَامُونَ فِي رُؤُوسِهِ، فَإِنْ اسْتَطَعْتُمْ أَنْ لَا تَعْلَمُوا عَلَى صَلَاةٍ قَبْلَ طُلُوعِ الشَّمْسِ وَقَبْلَ غُرُوبِهَا فَافْعَلُوا [صحیح البخاری: 554]

«Certainly you will see your Lord as you see this moon and you will have no trouble in seeing Him. So if you can avoid missing a prayer before the sunrise and a prayer before sunset then do so.»

Or the *أَنْ* clause direct doer of the modal verb can be omitted from the condition when its meaning is given in the condition-response. For example:

- (91) إِنْ شِئْتَ دَفَعْتُهَا إِلَيْكَ [صحیح البخاری: 3828 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 22]

«If you wish, I will give her to you»

41.7. *فَ* as a condition-response-link

In the simple conditional sentence, i.e. one where the condition-core and the condition-response-core are simple verbal sentences, the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb can take, what we will call, the following *basic forms*:

- لَا يَقْتُلُ, negated using يَقْتُلُ.
- لَمْ يَقْتُلْ, negated using يَقْتُلْ.

Also, as we know, the conditional-device generally has a future-shifting influence on these basic forms.

When the condition-response falls outside the above basic forms, then it will typically be introduced by *فَ*. For example:

- (92) إِنْ يَأْتِكَ فَأَكْرِمُهُ

«If he comes to you, then honor him.»

The condition-response in example (1690) above is a verb of command verbal sentence. Since it is not one of the basic forms of the condition-response we use a *فَ* to introduce it.

The main reason that a *فَ* is needed in such cases, is to indicate that the condition-response is linked to the condition.⁶² That is, the condition-response is a consequence of the condition being fulfilled. *فَ* is not needed when the condition-response is one of the basic forms because in those cases, the condition-response is directly linked to the conditional-device, either by the conditional-device's future-shifting the tense of the condition-response-verb (in most cases), or by the conditional-device's directly governing the condition-response-verb, if applicable.

⁶² 4/110 شرح الرضي على الكافية، 5/111 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

Once the *فَ* is added, the condition-response is freed from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device and its direct government (if applicable). So, as we learned in Section 41.6.2 above, the tense of the condition-response introduced by *فَ* is evaluated independently.

41.7.1. Situations where *فَ* is used as a condition-response-link

Here is a (non-exhaustive) list of cases where *فَ* is used to introduce the condition-response:

Direct commands

- (93) *وَلَا تُكَلِّفُوهُمْ مَا يَغْلِبُهُمْ، فَإِنْ كَلَّفْتُمُوهُمْ فَأَعِيْنُوهُمْ* [30: صحيح البخاري]
«Do not task them with what is too much for them but if you task them, then help them.»
- (94) *فَإِنْ غَمَّ عَلَيْكُمْ فَأَقْدِرُوا لَهُ* [1906: صحيح البخاري]
«If it is overcast then estimate for it.»
- (95) *إِذَا لَمْ تَسْتَجِبِ فَأَفْعَلْ مَا شِئْتِ* [3483: صحيح البخاري]
«If you do not feel ashamed then do whatever you wish.»
- (96) *فَإِذَا لَقِيتُمُوهُمْ فَاصْبِرُوا* [2965: صحيح البخاري]
«If you meet them then be patient.»
- (97) *إِنْ لَمْ تَجِدْنِي فَأْتِي أَبَا بَكْرٍ* [7220: صحيح البخاري]
«If you_{if} don't find me then come to Abū Bakr.»
- (95) *اللَّهُمَّ إِنْ كُنْتَ تَعْلَمُ فِيَّ خَيْرًا فَأَرِنِي رُؤْيَا* [7028: صحيح البخاري]
«O Allāh, if you are knowing good in me then show me a dream.»

Prohibitions

The form of the condition-response in prohibitions is *لَا تَفْعَلْ*, which appears to be a basic form. But because the meaning that is intended by *لَا تَفْعَلْ* is a prohibition, and not a simple future tense, a *فَ* is added before it.

- (96) *فَإِنْ وَجَدْتُمْ غَيْرَ آتِيَّتِهِمْ فَلَا تَأْكُلُوا فِيهَا* [5488: صحيح البخاري]
«If you find other than their utensils then don't eat in them»
- (97) *وَإِنْ خَالَطَهَا كِلَابٌ مِنْ غَيْرِهَا فَلَا تَأْكُلْ* [5483: صحيح البخاري]
«And if other hounds join in it then don't eat [it]»
- (98) *فَإِذَا سَمِعْتُمْ بِهِ بِأَرْضٍ فَلَا تَقْدَمُوا عَلَيْهِ وَإِذَا وَقَعَ بِأَرْضٍ وَأَنْتُمْ بِهَا فَلَا تَخْرُجُوا فِرَارًا مِنْهُ* [3473: صحيح البخاري]
«So if you hear of it in a land then don't approach it, and if occurs in a land where you are present, then don't leave [that land] in order to flee from it.»

- (99) صحيح البخاري [1963] إِنَّ رَأَيْتُمُونَا ظَهَرْنَا عَلَيْهِمْ فَلَا تَبْرَحُوا وَإِنْ رَأَيْتُمُوهُمْ ظَهَرُوا عَلَيْنَا فَلَا تُعِينُونَا
:4043
«If you see us having overcome them then don't leave [this place], and if you see them having overcome us then don't help us.»

Indirect commands

- (97) صحيح البخاري [1963] فَأَيُّكُمْ إِذَا أَرَادَ أَنْ يَوَاصِلَ فَلْيَوَاصِلْ حَتَّى السَّحَرِ
«So whichever of you – if he wants to continue on, then let him continue on until the last part of the night.»
- (98) إِذَا أَتَى أَحَدَكُمْ خَادِمُهُ بِطَعَامِهِ فَإِنْ لَمْ يُجْلِسْهُ مَعَهُ فَلْيُنَاوِلْهُ أَكْلَةً أَوْ أَكْلَتَيْنِ أَوْ لُقْمَةً أَوْ لُقْمَتَيْنِ
صحيح البخاري [5460]
«If the servant of one of you brings him his food, then if he doesn't make him sit with him, then let him hand him a bite or two, or a morsel or two.»

Indirect prohibitions

- (98) إِذَا شَرِبَ أَحَدُكُمْ فَلَا يَتَنَفَّسْ فِي الْإِنَاءِ
صحيح البخاري [5630 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 79]
«When one of you drinks then let him not breathe in the vessel.»
- (99) إِذَا كَانَ أَحَدُكُمْ يُصَلِّي، فَلَا يَبْصُقْ قَبْلَ وَجْهِهِ
صحيح البخاري [406 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 79]
«When one of you is praying then let him not spit in front of him.»

Statements of hope

- (99) إِنَّ كُنْتُ كَاذِبًا فَصَبِّرْكَ اللَّهُ إِلَى مَا كُنْتُ
صحيح البخاري [3464]
«If you are a liar then may Allah make you to what you used to be.»
(The condition-response begins with a *فَتَلْ* form but it is used as a wish and is not linked directly to the conditional-device.)

The condition-response-core begins with a fixed verb

- (100) إِنَّ يَعْشُ هَذَا الْعِلَامُ فَعَسَى أَنْ لَا يَدْرِكُهُ الْهَرَمُ حَتَّى تَقُومَ السَّاعَةُ
صحيح مسلم [2953a]
«If this boy should live then maybe old age will not hit him until the hour is established.»
- (101) فَإِنْ صَدَقَا وَبَيَّنَّا بُورِكَ لَهُمَا فِي بَيْعِهِمَا وَإِنْ كَذَبَا وَكَتَمَا فَعَسَى أَنْ يَرْبَحَا رِبْحًا وَيُمْحَقَا بَرَكَةً
صحيح البخاري [2114]
«If they speak the truth and mention the defects, then their bargain will be blessed, and if they tell lies and conceal the defects, they might gain some financial gain but they will be deprived of the blessing of their sale.»

- (102) صحيح البخاري [فَإِذَا كَانَتْ سَائِمَةُ الرَّجُلِ نَاقِصَةً مِنْ أَرْبَعِينَ شَاةً وَاحِدَةً فَلَيْسَ فِيهَا صَدَقَةٌ :1454]
 «If the man's livestock is less than forty sheep then there is no zakāh on it.»
- (103) سورة آل عمران cited 3:28 [وَمَنْ يَفْعَلْ ذَلِكَ فَلَيْسَ مِنَ اللَّهِ فِي شَيْءٍ إِلَّا أَنْ تَتَّقُوا مِنْهُمْ تُقْلَهُ] 2/466 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان
 «And whoever [of you] does that has nothing [i.e., no association] with Allāh, except when taking precaution against them in prudence.»

The condition-response-core is a nounal sentence

- (101) صحيح البخاري [4072] إِنَّ قَتَلْتَ حَمْرَةَ بَعْمِي فَأَنْتَ حُرٌّ
 «If you kill Ḥamzah [in revenge] for my uncle, then you are free.»
- (102) صحيح البخاري [4547] فَإِذَا رَأَيْتَ الَّذِينَ يَتَّبِعُونَ مَا تَشَابَهَ مِنْهُ فَأُولَئِكَ الَّذِينَ سَمَى اللَّهُ، فَاحْذَرُوهُمْ
 «If you see the people who follow what is open to different interpretations, then they are ones whom Allāh named, so beware of them.»

The nounal sentence may begin with a particle, in which case as well *فَ* is used. For example:

- (102) 4/110 شرح الرضي على الكافية [سورة الأعراف 7:186 cited by مَنْ يُضِلِلِ اللَّهُ فَلَا هَادِيَ لَهُ] 4/110
 «Whoever Allāh sends astray - there is no guide for him.»
- (103) 4/110 شرح الرضي على الكافية [سورة المائدة 5:118 cited by إِنْ تُعَذِّبْهُمْ فَإِنَّهُمْ عِبَادُكَ] 4/105
 «If You should punish them - indeed they are Your servants;»

The condition-response-core is a *قَتَلَ* verbal sentence but it signifies the past tense

When the condition-response is a *قَتَلَ* verbal sentence but the verb signifies the past tense then *فَ* is added to it.⁶³

- (103) سورة يوسف 12:27 cited by وَإِنْ كَانَ قَمِيصُهُ قُدَّ مِنْ دُبُرٍ فَكَذَبَتْ وَهُوَ مِنَ الصَّادِقِينَ 4/105 معاني النحو
 «But if his shirt is torn from the back, then she has lied, and he is of the truthful.»

قَدْ may also optionally be added. For example:

- (104) صحيح البخاري [4250] إِنْ تَطَعْنَا فِي إِمَارَتِهِ فَقَدْ طَعْنْتُمْ فِي إِمَارَةِ أَبِيهِ مِنْ قَبْلِهِ
 «If you speak ill of his leadership, you have already spoken ill of his father's leadership before.»

⁶³See also Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 80

The condition-response-verb is preceded by a particle other than **لَمْ**

When the condition-response-verb is preceded by **لَمْ** then it typically occurs directly in the condition-response without being introduced by **فَ**. But when the verb in the condition-response is preceded by another particle like **سَوْفَ**, **يَسْ**, **لَنْ** or **مَا**, then a **فَ** is required. For example:

- (105) [صحيح] **إِنْ كُنْتَ بِرَبِّكَ فَاسْتَغْفِرِي اللَّهَ وَتُوبِي إِلَيْهِ** (4690: البخاري)

- (106) [9:80: سورة التوبة] **إِنْ تَسْتَغْفِرْ لَهُمْ سَبْعِينَ مَرَّةً فَلَنْ يَغْفِرَ اللَّهُ لَهُمْ**
 «If you should ask forgiveness for them seventy times - never will Allāh forgive them.»

By the way, once **فَ** is used as a condition-response-link, then **مَا** may freely be used to negate a verb directly after it in the condition-response. Remember from Section 41.2.3 above, that **مَا** may not be used to negate the condition-response-verb (when there is no **فَ**). Here is an example of **مَا** negating a verb in the condition-response that is introduced by **فَ**:

- (106) [4:80: سورة النساء] **وَمَنْ تَوَلَّى فَمَا أَرْسَلْنَاكَ عَلَيْهِمْ حَفِيظًا**
 «but those who turn away - We have not sent you over them as a guardian.»

In example (1718) above, **فَ** is analyzed as a condition-response-link and **مَا** after it negates the māḍī verb **أَرْسَلْنَا**.⁶⁴

فَ is typically not used to introduce condition-responses that begin with **لَمْ**. However, some grammarians disagreed and allowed it.⁶⁵

41.7.2. Flexibility of allowing or dropping **فَ**

In Section 41.7.1 above, we listed the main scenarios where **فَ** is used as a condition-response-link. In this section, we will give some examples where **فَ** would seem to be required but is dropped, and conversely, where **فَ** would seem to be disallowed but is added. Grammarians have analyzed these and similar examples either by taqdīring or by relaxing the rules to allow flexibility in having **فَ** as a condition-response-link.⁶⁶

The condition-response is a nounal sentence

- (107) [3/65: كتاب سيبويه] **مَنْ يَفْعَلِ الْحَسَنَاتِ اللَّهُ يَشْكُرُهَا**
 «Whoever does good deeds, Allāh will thank them.»

⁶⁴4:80: سورة النساء for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي

⁶⁵لَمْ تَقُولُواهُمْ 8:17 سورة الأنفال for الكشاف للزمخشري

⁶⁶See اقتران الفاء في جواب الشرط وعدمها في التعبير القراني for a survey of the different opinions held by the grammarians.

In example (1719) above, the condition-response *اللَّهُ يَشْكُرُهَا* is a nounal sentence but it does not begin with a *فَ*. Some allow this by poetic license only⁶⁷ while others allow it generally.⁶⁸

- (108) [سورة الأنعام 6:121] وَإِنْ أَطَعْتُمُوهُمْ إِنَّكُمْ لَمُشْرِكُونَ
«And if you were to obey them, indeed, you would be associators [of others with Him].»

In example (1720) above, there is no *فَ* before *لِمُشْرِكُونَ*. In order to reconcile this, some have taqdir'd a deleted oath (see Section 41.14 below), such that *لِمُشْرِكُونَ* is not the condition-response but a oath-response.⁶⁹

- (109) [صحيح البخاري] إِنَّكَ إِنْ تَرَكْتَ وَلَدَكَ أَغْنِيَاءَ خَيْرٌ مِنْ أَنْ تَتْرَكَهُمْ عَالَةً
شواهد cited by 6733: صحيح البخاري
192 see footnote 918] التوضيح لابن مالك
«Indeed if you leave your offspring wealthy, [then it] is better than that you leave them poor.»

In example (1721) above a deleted *فَهُوَ* is taqdir'd in the condition-response,⁷⁰ thus: *إِنَّكَ إِنْ تَرَكْتَ وَلَدَكَ أَغْنِيَاءَ فَهُوَ خَيْرٌ*.

The condition-response is a command

- (110) فَإِنْ جَاءَ صَاحِبُهَا وَإِلَّا اسْتَغْنَى بِهَا
[شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك cited by 2437: صحيح البخاري] 4/466 footnote
«Then if its owner comes [then give it to him], and if not [then] utilize it»

In example (1722) above the condition-response is a verb of command but it is not preceded by a *فَ*. The above ḥadīth has also been narrated with a *فَ* before the verb of command:

- (111) فَإِنْ جَاءَ صَاحِبُهَا، وَإِلَّا فَاسْتَغْنَى بِهَا
[شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك cited by 2426: صحيح البخاري] 192 footnote 919
«Then if its owner comes [then give it to him], and if not then utilize it»

The condition-response begins with a u-case *muḍāriʿ* verb

When the condition-response is a u-case *muḍāriʿ* verb, then it is common for it to be preceded by *فَ*. For example:

- (112) [3/69 كتاب سيبويه] إِنْ تَأْتَنِي فَأَكْرِمَكَ
«If you come to me then I will honor you.»

⁶⁷See النحو الوافي 4/465

⁶⁸See شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 192

⁶⁹سورة الأنعام for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان 6:121

⁷⁰شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 192

- (113) 3/69 كتاب سيويه [5:95 سورة المائدة] وَمَنْ عَادَ فَيَنْتَقِمُ اللَّهُ مِنْهُ
«but whoever returns [to violation], then Allāh will take retribution from him.»
- (114) 3/69 كتاب سيويه [72:13 سورة الجن] فَمَنْ يُؤْمِنُ بِرَبِّهِ فَلَا يَخَافُ بَخْسًا وَلَا رَهَقًا
«And whoever believes in his Lord will not fear deprivation or burden.»

In such cases, some grammarians have treated *فَ* as being allowed because of a deleted subject such that the *taqdīr* of *فَأَكْرَمَكَ* in example (1724) above is *فَأَنَا أَكْرَمَكَ*.⁷¹ Others did not see the need for such *taqdīr*.⁷²

فَ may also be omitted in such sentences. We have already seen some examples where the u-case *muḍāriʿ* verb in the condition-response does not begin with *فَ* in Section 41.2.5 above. For convenience, we repeat here the examples we had given there:

- (113) 3/66 كتاب سيويه [إن أتيتني آتيك]
«If you come to me, I come to you.»
- (114) 3/66 كتاب سيويه [وإن أتاه خليل يوم مسألة يقول لا غائب مالي ولا حرم]
«And if a friend came to him on a day of asking, he says, “My wealth is neither absent nor denied.”»
- (115) 3/67 كتاب سيويه [يا أقرع بن حابس يا أقرع ~ إنك إن بضرع أخوك تضرع]
«O Aqraʿ son of Hābis, O Aqraʿ! Indeed if your brother would be thrown down, you are being thrown down.»
- (116) 2217 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17 [قالت اللهم إن يموت يقال هي قتلت]
«She said, “O Allāh if he should die, it will be said, ‘She killed him.’”»

41.7.2.1. The condition-response is a question

When the condition-response is a question, then *فَ* is often omitted. This is usual when the question-device is *أ* but other question-devices may also occur in this manner.⁷³ Here are some examples:

- (114) 37:16 سورة الصافات [أعدا ميتنا وكنا ترابا وعظاما أعنا لمبعوثون]
«When we have died and become dust and bones, are we indeed to be resurrected?»
- (115) 4/113 شرح الرضي على الكافية [6:47 سورة الأنعام] قُلْ أَرَأَيْتُمْ إِنْ أَتَاكُمْ عَذَابُ اللَّهِ بَغْتَةً أَوْ جَهْرَةً هَلْ يُهْلِكُ إِلَّا الْقَوْمَ الظَّالِمُونَ
«Say, “Have you considered: if the punishment of Allāh should come to you unexpectedly or manifestly, will any be destroyed but the wrongdoing people?”»

⁷¹ 3/69 كتاب سيويه

⁷² 4/109 معاني النحو See also المبرد; 4/112 شرح الرضي على الكافية

⁷³ 4/113 شرح الرضي على الكافية

- (116) قُلْ أَرَأَيْتُمْ إِنْ أَخَذَ اللَّهُ سَمْعَكُمْ وَأَبْصَرَكُمْ وَخَتَمَ عَلَى قُلُوبِكُمْ مِّنْ إِلَهِ غَيْرِ اللَّهِ يَأْتِيَكُمْ
 شرح الرضي على سورة الأنعام 6:46 cited by [4/113] الكافية
 « Say, "Have you considered: if Allāh should take away your hearing and your sight and set a seal upon your hearts, which deity other than Allāh could bring them [back] to you?" »

But فَ may also be admitted when the the condition-response is a question. For example:

- (115) قَالَ يَقَوْمِ أَرَأَيْتُمْ إِنْ كُنْتُ عَلَى بَيِّنَةٍ مِّن رَّبِّي وَأَتْلَيْتُ مِنْهُ رَحْمَةً فَهَلْ يَنْصُرُنِي مِنَ اللَّهِ
 [4/113] شرح الرضي على الكافية cited by سورة هود 11:63
 « He said, "O my people, have you considered: if I should be upon clear evidence from my Lord and He has given me mercy from Himself, who would protect me from Allāh if I disobeyed Him?" »

41.8. Alternate condition-response-links

41.8.1. Sudden-إِذَا

When the condition-response begins with فَ, then it can be replaced with a sudden-إِذَا, when the meaning of suddenness is appropriate, and when the following conditions are satisfied⁷⁴:

1. The condition-response must be a nounal sentence, not a verbal sentence.
2. The condition-response must be affirmative, not negative.
3. The condition-response must be truth-evaluable.
4. The condition-response must not begin with إِنَّ.

Here is an example of a conditional sentence that satisfies these conditions:

- (116) وَإِذَا ذُكِرَ الَّذِينَ مِنْ دُونِهِ إِذَا هُمْ يَسْتَبْشِرُونَ [4/115] معاني النحو cited by سورة الزمر 39:45
 « but when those [worshipped] other than Him are mentioned, immediately they rejoice. »

41.8.2. إِذَنْ

The particle إِذَنْ «in that case» can be inserted between a condition and a condition-response. So it can be considered a condition-response-link. But it will have no affect on the condition-response-verb, which can continue to be in the Ø-case.⁷⁵

⁷⁴4/115 معاني النحو

⁷⁵See also 1/20 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام

It does not take the place of *فَ* like sudden-*إِذَا*, so it can be used in conditional sentences which don't allow *فَ* as a condition-response-link.

For example:

- (117) 4/1652 ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب [إِنْ تَزُرَّنِي إِذَنْ أَكْرَمَكَ]
«If you visit me, in that case I will honor you.»

41.9. The *لَوْ* conditional sentence

The third main conditional-device used, after *إِنْ* and *إِذَا*, is *لَوْ*. In terms of its classification as a word, *لَوْ* is a particle, like *إِنْ*, and unlike *إِذَا*, which is a noun. In terms of its meaning, *لَوْ* typically forms a different sort of conditional sentence than *إِنْ* and *إِذَا*, and therefore it is generally treated separately.

لَوْ is most commonly used to form past and present *counterfactual* conditional sentences. Less commonly, it is also used to form future *hypothetical* conditional sentences.⁷⁶ Here are examples of such conditional sentences in English:

- (118) «If you had been awake, you would have heard the coyote.» [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40]
This is a past counterfactual. The implication is that the addressed person was not awake. So his being awake is counter to fact.
- (119) «If I were a boy, I would have curls.» [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40]
This is a present counterfactual. The implication is that the speaker is not a boy. So her being a boy is counter to fact.
- (120) «If he ate all those doughnuts, he would be ill.» [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40]
This is a future hypothetical. This is similar to the kind of conditional sentence where *إِنْ* is used but it is more *imaginative*.

We will cover the use of *لَوْ* in such conditional sentences in the following subsections.

41.9.1. The basic structure of a *لَوْ* conditional sentence

The archetypal *لَوْ* conditional sentence typically has the form

- (119) *لَوْ قَتَلَ لَقَتَلَ*

where *لَ* is the (optional) condition-response-link. Here is an example of a *لَوْ* conditional sentence:

- (120) 5/105 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [لَوْ جِئْتَنِي لَأَكْرِمَنَّكَ]
«If you had come to me, I would have honored you.»

⁷⁶Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40

As you can see, the meaning of the *لَوْ* conditional sentence is, by default, a past counterfactual. In example (1741) above, the implication is that you had not come to me. So the condition never occurred.

Out of context, and sometimes even in context, both a counterfactual and a hypothetical meaning can be understood.⁷⁷ For example:

- (121) *لَوْ كَانَ عِنْدَنَا مَالٌ لَأَعْطَيْتُكَ* [cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 45]
 «If we had (or were to have) money, we would have (or would) give you.»

Here are some more examples of basic *لَوْ* conditional sentences:

- (122) *لَوْ جِئْتَ بِهَا بِالْأَمْسِ لَقَبِلْتُهَا فَأَمَّا الْيَوْمَ فَلَا حَاجَةَ لِي بِهَا* [1411 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 43]
 «Had you brought it to me yesterday I would have accepted it. But as for today, then I have no need for it.»
- (123) *لَوْ أُوتِيتُ مِثْلَ مَا أُوتِيَ هَذَا لَفَعَلْتُ كَمَا يَفْعَلُ* [7232: صحيح البخاري]
 «If I had been given similar to what this [person] has been given, I would do similar to what he does.»
- (124) *لَوْ دُعِيتُ إِلَى كُرَاعٍ لَأَجِبْتُ وَلَوْ أُهْدِيَ إِلَيَّ ذِرَاعٌ لَقَبِلْتُ* [5178: صحيح البخاري]
 «If I were invited to [a meal of] trotters, I would respond. And if forelegs were gifted to me I would accept.»
- (125) *لَوْ لَبِثْتُ فِي السَّجْنِ مَا لَبِثَ يُوسُفُ ثُمَّ أَتَانِي الدَّاعِي لَأَجِبْتُهُ* [6992: صحيح البخاري]
 «If I stayed in prison as long as Yūsuf stayed, then the summoner came to me, I would have responded to him (to leave the prison).»
- (126) *لَوْ أَدْرَكَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مَا أَخَذَتْ النِّسَاءُ لَمَنْعَهُنَّ كَمَا مَنَعَتْ نِسَاءُ بَنِي إِسْرَائِيلَ* [869: صحيح البخاري]
 «Had the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ come across what the women have started doing, he would have forbidden them like the women of the Children of Isrā'īl were forbidden.»

41.9.2. Optionality of *ل* in the condition-response

While *ل* is often used as a condition-response-link it is optional and may be dropped. Here are some examples with and without *ل*:

- (123) *إِنِّي لَأَعْلَمُ كَلِمَةً لَوْ قَالَهَا ذَهَبَ عَنْهُ مَا يَجِدُ* [3282: صحيح البخاري]
 «Indeed I know a phrase, if he were to say it, what he feels will go away from him.»
- (124) *إِنِّي لَأَعْلَمُ كَلِمَةً لَوْ قَالَهَا لَذَهَبَ عَنْهُ مَا يَجِدُ* [6115: صحيح البخاري]
 «Indeed I know a phrase, if he were to say it, what he feels will go away from him.»

⁷⁷Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 44–45

- (125) إِنَّ اللَّهَ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ يَقُولُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ يَا ابْنَ آدَمَ مَرَضْتُ فَلَمْ تَعُدَّنِي قَالَ يَا رَبِّ كَيْفَ أَغُودُكَ وَأَنْتَ رَبُّ الْعَالَمِينَ قَالَ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّ عَبْدِي فَلَانًا مَرَضَ فَلَمْ تَعُدَّهُ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّكَ لَوْ عُدَّتَهُ لَوَجَدْتَنِي عِنْدَهُ يَا ابْنَ آدَمَ اسْتَطَعَمْتُكَ فَلَمْ تُطْعِمْنِي قَالَ يَا رَبِّ وَكَيْفَ أُطْعِمُكَ وَأَنْتَ رَبُّ الْعَالَمِينَ قَالَ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّهُ اسْتَطَعَمَكَ عَبْدِي فَلَانٌ فَلَمْ تُطْعِمْهُ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّكَ لَوْ أَطْعَمْتَهُ لَوَجَدْتَ ذَلِكَ عِنْدِي يَا ابْنَ آدَمَ اسْتَسْقَيْتُكَ فَلَمْ تَسْقِنِي قَالَ يَا رَبِّ كَيْفَ أَشْقِيكَ وَأَنْتَ رَبُّ الْعَالَمِينَ قَالَ اسْتَسْقَاكَ عَبْدِي فَلَانٌ فَلَمْ تَسْقِهِ أَمَا إِنَّكَ لَوْ سَقَيْتَهُ وَجَدْتَ ذَلِكَ عِنْدِي [صحيح مسلم: 2569]

«Verily, Allāh, the Exalted and Glorious, would say on the Day of Resurrection: O son of Adam, I was sick but you did not visit Me. He would say: O my Lord; how could I visit You whereas You are the Lord of the worlds? Thereupon He would say: Didn't you know that such and such servant of Mine was sick but you did not visit him and were you not aware of this that if you had visited him, **you would have found Me** by him? O son of Adam, I asked food from you but you did not feed Me. He would say: My Lord, how could I feed You whereas You are the Lord of the worlds? He said: Didn't you know that such and such servant of Mine asked food from you but you did not feed him, and were you not aware that if you had fed him **you would have found him** by My side? (The Lord would again say:) O son of Adam, I asked drink from you but you did not provide Me. He would say: My Lord, how could I provide You whereas You are the Lord of the worlds? Thereupon He would say: Such and such of servant of Mine asked you for a drink but you did not provide him, and had you provided him drink **you would have found him** near Me.»

- (126) 2760: صحيح البخاري] أُمِّي افْتُلِيَتْ نَفْسَهَا، وَأَرَاهَا لَوْ تَكَلَّمْتَ تَصَدَّقْتَ
«My mother died suddenly and I think that if she had spoken she would have given in charity.»

41.9.3. قَدْ before the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb

As shown in example (1741) above, the basic form of the *لَوْ* conditional sentence is *لَوْ قَتَلَ لَقَتَلَ*. Rarely, a *قَدْ* may be inserted before the condition-verb and/or the condition-response-verb.⁷⁸ For example:

- (124) 4383: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ قَدْ جَاءَ مَالُ الْبَحْرَيْنِ لَقَدْ أُعْطِيْتُكَ هَكَذَا وَهَكَذَا ثَلَاثًا
«If the money of al-Baḥrayn should come, I will give you such-and-such [repeating such-and-such] thrice).»

قَدْ may even be used in the condition-response without *لَ*. For example:

- (125) 2296: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ قَدْ جَاءَ مَالُ الْبَحْرَيْنِ قَدْ أُعْطِيْتُكَ هَكَذَا وَهَكَذَا وَهَكَذَا
«If the money of al-Baḥrayn should come, I will give you such-and-such.»

⁷⁸ 4/64 شرح الفارضي على الفية ابن مالك

Furthermore, the context of examples (1752) and (1753) above, indicates a future hypothetical tense. So *قَدْ*, used in this way, does not necessarily restrict the tense to the past.

41.9.4. Negating the condition-verb

For negating the condition-verb, *لَمْ* is used thus:

(126) *لَوْ لَمْ يَفْعَلْ ...*

لَوْ and *لَوْ مَا* are also used in negative conditional sentences but we will treat them separately in Section 41.9.8 below.

Here are some examples of the condition-verb being negated with *لَمْ*:

(127) صحيح [4991: سنن أبي داود] *لَوْ لَمْ تُذْنِبُوا لَذَهَبَ اللَّهُ بِكُمْ وَلَجَاءَ بِقَوْمٍ يُذْنِبُونَ فَيَسْتَغْفِرُونَ اللَّهَ فَيَغْفِرُ لَهُمْ*
[2749: مسلم]

«If you were not to sin Allāh would do away with you and He would bring a people who would sin and seek forgiveness from Allāh, and He would forgive them.»

(128) [4991: سنن أبي داود] *أَمَّا إِنَّكَ لَوْ لَمْ تُعْطِيهِ شَيْئًا كُتِبَتْ عَلَيْكَ كَذِبَةٌ*
«If you were not to give him anything, a lie would be recorded against you.»

(129) [5159: سنن أبي داود] *أَمَّا إِنَّكَ لَوْ لَمْ تَفْعَلْ لَلْفَعْعُوكَ النَّارُ أَوْ لَمَسْتُكَ النَّارُ*
«If you hadn't done [so], the fire would have enveloped you or the fire would have touched you.»

(130) [1415: سنن ابن ماجه] *لَوْ لَمْ أَحْتَضِنُهُ لَحَنَ إِلَى يَوْمِ الْقِيَامَةِ*
«Had I not embraced it, it would have cried yearning until the Day of Resurrection.»

41.9.5. Negating the condition-response-verb

When the condition-response-verb is to be negated, then either *لَمْ* or *مَا* can be used. For the case of *لَمْ*, the particle *لَ* is not used as a condition-response-link. For the case of *مَا*, the particle *لَ* is optional but it is almost always dropped. Here are some examples:

(128) [6720: صحيح البخاري] *لَوْ قَالَ إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ لَمْ يَخْشُ*
«If he had said, "If Allāh wills," he would not have been unsuccessful.»

(129) [1074: صحيح البخاري] *لَوْ لَمْ أَرِ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَسْجُدُ لَمْ أَسْجُدْ*
«Had I not seen the Prophet ﷺ prostrating I would not have prostrated.»

(130) صحيح [7229: البخاري] *لَوْ اسْتَقْبَلْتُ مِنْ أَمْرِي مَا اسْتَدْبَرْتُ مَا سَفَتُ الْهَدْيَ، وَلَخَلَلْتُ مَعَ النَّاسِ حِينَ خَلُّوا*
«Had I known earlier of my affair what I knew later, I would not have driven my sacrificial animal and I would have exited Ihṛām with the people when they exited Ihṛām.»

- (131) [1277a: صحيح مسلم] إِنِّي لَأَظُنُّ رَجُلًا لَوْ لَمْ يَطْفُ بَيْنَ الصَّفَا وَالْمَرْوَةِ مَا ضَرَّهُ
 « Indeed I think that if a man were not to go between al-Ṣafā and al-Marwah it would not harm him. »

Finally, here is a rare example of لَمَّا in the condition-response:

- (129) [سيرة ابن هشام 2/56 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 51] لَوْ وَجَدَنِي نَائِمًا لَمَّا أُيقِظَنِي
 « If he had found me sleeping, he would not have woken me. »

A different version of the same sentence without لَ is also found:

- (130) [مغازي الواقدي 1/189 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 51] وَاللَّهِ لَوْ وَجَدَنِي نَائِمًا مَا أُيقِظَنِي
 « By Allāh if he had found me sleeping, he would not have woken me. »

41.9.6. كَانَ in the condition or the condition-response

The verb كَانَ can be used as the condition-verb. This can be for a few purposes
 كَانَ can be used to transform nounal sentences so that they can be used in the condition. Here are some examples:

- (131) [3139: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ كَانَ الْمُطْعَمُ بْنُ عَدِيٍّ حَيًّا، ثُمَّ كَلَّمَنِي فِي هَؤُلَاءِ النَّتَنِ، لَتَرَكْتُهُمْ لَهُ
 « If al-Muṭʿim ibn ʿAdiyy were alive and he spoke to me regarding these mean people, I would have left them to him. »
- (132) [6436: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ كَانَ لِإِبْنِ آدَمَ وَادِيَانِ مِنْ مَالٍ لَابْتَغَى ثَالِثًا
 « If the son of Adam had two valleys of wealth, he would want a third. »

Here are some examples of لَوْ كَانَ قَتَلَ to signify a past counterfactual:

- (132) [6122: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ كُنْتُ قُلْتُهَا لَكَانَ أَحَبَّ إِلَيَّ مِنْ كَذَا وَكَذَا
 « If you had said it, it would have been more beloved to me than such-and-such. »
- (133) [1333i: صحيح مسلم] لَوْ كُنْتُ سَمِعْتُهُ قَبْلَ أَنْ أَهْدِمَهُ لَتَرَكْتُهُ عَلَى مَا بَنَى ابْنُ الزُّبَيْرِ
 « If I had heard it before demolishing it, I would have left it [in the state] that Ibn al-Zubayr built [it]. »
- (134) [1690: سنن أبي داود] لَوْ كُنْتُ أُعْطِيتُهَا أَثْوَالَكَ كَانَ أَكْبَرَ لَأُخْرِكَ
 « If you had given her to your maternal uncles, it would have been greater for your reward. »

Here are some examples of لَوْ كَانَ يَقْتُلُ to signify a progressive counterfactual:

- (133) [67:10 سورة الملك] وَقَالُوا لَوْ كُنَّا نَسْمَعُ أَوْ نَعْقِلُ مَا كُنَّا فِي أَصْحَابِ السَّعِيرِ
 « And they will say, “If only we had been listening or reasoning, we would not be among the companions of the Blaze.” »

- (134) [1856e: صحيح مسلم] **لَوْ كُنْتُ أَبْصِرُ لَأَرِيْتُكُمْ مَوْضِعَ الشَّجَرَةِ**
 «If I were seeing (i.e. had sight) I would show you the place of the tree.»

The combination of *كَانَ* and a doer participle is very commonly used to indicate a hypothetical situation. Here are some examples:

- (134) [3657: صحيح البخاري] **لَوْ كُنْتُ مُتَّخِذًا خَلِيلًا لَاتَّخَذْتُهُ خَلِيلًا وَلَكِنْ أُحُوَّةُ الْإِسْلَامِ أَفْضَلُ**
 «Were I to take a close friend, I would have taken [Abū Bakr] as a close friend. But the brotherhood of Islām is better.»
- (135) [1497c: صحيح مسلم] **لَوْ كُنْتُ رَاجِمًا أَحَدًا بِغَيْرِ بَيِّنَةٍ لَرَجَمْتُهَا**
 «If I were to stone anyone without evidence, I would have stoned her.»

Oftentimes, different expressions, with and without *كَانَ*, can be used for the same meaning. For example:

- (135) [1159: جامع الترمذي] **لَوْ كُنْتُ أَمْرًا أَحَدًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لِأَحَدٍ لَأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا**
 «If I were to order anyone that they prostrate to another, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse.»
- (136) [19403: مسند أحمد] **لَوْ كُنْتُ أَمْرًا أَحَدًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لِأَحَدٍ لَأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا**
 «If I were ordering anyone that they prostrate to another, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse.»
- (137) [4171: صحيح ابن حبان] **لَوْ أَمَرْتُ شَيْئًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لَشَيْءٍ لَأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا**
 «If I were to order anything that they prostrate to [another] thing, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse.»

كَانَ can also be used with *لَوْ* for an impersonal condition:

- (136) [3017: صحيح البخاري] **لَوْ كُنْتُ أَنَا لَمْ أُحْرِقْهُمْ**
 «If it were I, I would not have burned them.»

كَانَ is also used as the condition-response-verb. Here are some examples of *كَانَ* as the condition-response-verb, allowing a nounal sentence in the condition-response:

- (137) [6408: صحيح البخاري] **لَوْ رَأَوْكَ كَانُوا أَشَدَّ لَكَ عِبَادَةً**
 «If they were to see you they would be more devout to you in worship.»
- (138) [2368: صحيح البخاري] **قَالَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَرْحَمُ اللَّهُ أُمَّ إِسْمَاعِيلَ لَوْ تَرَكَتْ زَمْزَمَ أَوْ قَالَ لَوْ لَمْ تَعْرِفْ مِنَ الْمَاءِ لَكَانَتْ عَيْنًا مَجِيئًا**
 «The Prophet ﷺ said, “May Allāh have mercy on the mother of Ismāʿīl. Had she left Zamzam”—or he said, “Had she not scooped from the water”—“it would have been a flowing spring.”»

41.9.7. لَوْ أَنَّ

لَوْ is frequently followed, not by a verb, but by an أَنَّ clause. For example:

- (138) 4/528 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] لَوْ أَنَّ زَيْدًا جَاءَ لَأَكْرَمْتُهُ
«If Zayd had come to me, I would have honored him.»

The grammarians analyze this kind of لَوْ conditional sentence in two ways⁷⁹:

- a. That the أَنَّ clause is the doer of a taqdir condition-verb that signifies occurrence, like ثُبَّتَ «to be ascertained» or وَقَعَ «to occur». So the taqdir of the above example is:

- (139) 4/528 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] لَوْ وَقَعَ مَجِيءُ زَيْدٍ لَأَكْرَمْتُهُ
«If Zayd's coming had occurred, I would have honored him.»

- b. That لَوْ in this case does not need a condition-verb, and that the أَنَّ clause is a subject to a taqdir info which is a noun like ثَابِتٌ «ascertained». So the taqdir of the above example is:

- (140) لَوْ مَجِيءُ زَيْدٍ ثَابِتٌ لَأَكْرَمْتُهُ
«If Zayd's coming [was] ascertained, I would have honored him.»

According to some grammarians, the info of أَنَّ should, in such cases, be a verb.⁸⁰ So the folloing would be disallowed:

- (141) 5/120 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] لَوْ أَنَّ زَيْدًا حَاضِرِي ... X
«If Zayd were present with me ...»

Here are some more examples of لَوْ أَنَّ:

- (142) النحو العربي: سورة الحجرات 49:5 cited by وَلَوْ أَنَّهُمْ صَبَرُوا حَتَّى تَخْرُجَ إِلَيْهِمْ لَكَانَ خَيْرًا لَهُمْ
[2/478 أحكام ومعان]

«And if they had been patient until you [could] come out to them, it would have been better for them.»

- (143) وَلَوْ أَنَّهُمْ إِذْ ظَلَمُوا أَنْفُسَهُمْ جَاءُوكَ فَاسْتَغْفَرُوا اللَّهَ وَاسْتَغْفَرَ لَهُمُ الرَّسُولُ لَوَجَدُوا اللَّهَ
[4:64 سورة النساء] تَوَّابًا رَحِيمًا

«And if, when they wronged themselves, they had come to you, [O Muḥammad], and asked forgiveness of Allāh and the Messenger had asked forgiveness for them, they would have found Allāh Accepting of Repentance and Merciful.»

- (144) 4663: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ أَنَّ أَحَدَهُمْ رَفَعَ قَدَمَهُ رَأَى
«If one of them should lift his foot, he would see us.»

⁷⁹ 2/478 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان: 4/528 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

⁸⁰ 5/120 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

- (145) [6439: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ أَنَّ لِابْنِ آدَمَ وَادِيًا مِنْ ذَهَبٍ أَحَبَّ أَنْ يَكُونَ لَهُ وَادِيَانِ
«If the son of Adam had a valley of gold, he would like that he have two valleys.»
- (146) [3779: صحيح البخاري] لَوْ أَنَّ الْأَنْصَارَ سَلَكُوا وَادِيًا أَوْ شِعْبًا، لَسَلَكْتُ فِي وَادِي الْأَنْصَارِ
«If the Anṣār should take their way through a valley or a ravine, I would take my way in the valley of the Anṣār.»
- (147) [2540: صحيح مسلم] لَوْ أَنَّ أَحَدَكُمْ أَنْفَقَ مِثْلَ أُحُدٍ ذَهَبًا مَا أَدْرَكَ مُدًّا أَحَدِهِمْ وَلَا نَصِيفُهُ
«If one of you should spend [the measure of] Uḥud in gold, it would not reach [the measure of] one of them's [spending] one *mudd*, nor [would it reach] its half.»

41.9.8. *لَوْ* and *لَوْ مَا*

لَوْ is a special conditional-device that almost always⁸¹ precedes a noun in the condition-core. The noun is treated as a subject and its info is usually deleted. For example:

- (143) [19/3: شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين] لَوْ لَا زَيْدٌ لَعَرِقْتُ
«Were it not for Zayd, I would have drowned.»

In example (1790) above, *زَيْدٌ* is a subject. Its info is a deleted noun, whose taqdir is *حَاضِرٌ* or *مَوْجُودٌ* «present» (meaning *there*). So a possible taqdir of the condition is:

- (144) [19/3: شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين] لَوْ لَا زَيْدٌ مَوْجُودٌ
«If Zayd were not present ...»

لَوْ is frequently also followed by an *أَنَّ* (or *أَنْ*) clause. In which case the *أَنَّ* clause is treated as the subject. For example:

- (145) [3/336: شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي] لَوْ لَا أَنَّ زَيْدًا عِنْدِي لَأَتَيْتُكَ
«Were it not that Zayd is with me, I would have come to you.»

The info of the noun after is usually but not always deleted.⁸² Here is an example with a info:

- (146) [شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك] فَلَوْ لَا بَنُوهَا حَوْلَهَا لَخَبَطْتُهَا
«Were it not for her sons around her I would have struck her»
(*حَوْلَ* is technically not the info but an adverb of place governed by a taqdired info.)

There is a difference in meaning between *لَوْ* and *لَوْ* with a negated verb. Consider the following two examples:

- (147) [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61] لَوْ لَمْ تُضْرِبْنِي لَأَعْطَيْتُكَ الْمَالَ
«Had you not beaten me, I would have given you the money.»

⁸¹Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61 cites exceptions in poetry

⁸²19/3: شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين

- (148) لَوْلَا أَنَّكَ ضَرَبْتَنِي لَأَعْطَيْتُكَ الْمَالَ [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61]
 « Were it not that you had beaten me, I would have given you the money. »

Example (1794) above only presupposes the condition, whereas example (1795) asserts it.⁸³

لَوْمَا is less used than لَوْلَا but is similar in usage and meaning. Here are some more examples of لَوْلَا and لَوْمَا

- (148) لَوْلَا بَنُو إِسْرَائِيلَ لَمْ يَخْنَزِ اللَّحْمُ، وَلَوْلَا حَوَاءُ لَمْ تَخُنْ أَنْتِ زَوْجَهَا [صحيح البخاري: 3330]
 « Were it not for the Children of Isrā'il, meat would not decay. And were it not for Hawwā', a female would not betray her spouse. »
- (149) لَوْلَا آخِرُ الْمُسْلِمِينَ مَا فُتِحَتْ عَلَيْهِمْ قَرْيَةٌ إِلَّا قَسَمْتُهَا، كَمَا قَسَمَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ حَبِيبَ [صحيح البخاري: 4236]
 « Were it not for the latter Muslims, never would a town be conquered except that I would have divided it like the Prophet ﷺ divided Khaybar »
- (150) لَوْلَا أَنِّي رَأَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ قَبْلَكَ مَا قَبَّلْتُكَ [صحيح البخاري: 1610]
 « Were it not that I saw the Messenger of Allāh had kissed you, I would not have kissed you. »
- (151) لَوْلَا أَنْ كَتَبَ اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِمُ الْجَلَاءَ لَعَذَّبَهُمْ فِي الدُّنْيَا [سورة الحشر: 59:3]
 « And if not that Allāh had decreed for them evacuation, He would have punished them in [this] world »
- (152) لَوْلَا أَنْ تَكُونَ صَدَقَةً لَأَكَلْتُهَا [صحيح مسلم: 1071c]
 « Were it not that it may be charity, I would have eaten it. »
- (153) لَوْلَا أَنْ أَشَقَّ عَلَى أُمَّتِي لَأَمَرْتُهُمُ بِالسَّوَاكِ [صحيح البخاري: 7240]
 « Were it not that I may make it hard on my nation, I would have ordered them to use the siwāk. »
- (154) لَوْلَا أَنَّ النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ نَهَانَا أَنْ نَدْعُو بِالْمَوْتِ لَدَعَوْتُ بِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 6350]
 « Were it not that the Prophet ﷺ had forbidden us to invoke [Allāh] for death, I would have invoked [Allāh] for it. »

Here is an example with لَوْمَا:

- (149) لَوْمَا أَنْ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ نَهَانَا أَنْ نَدْعُو بِالْمَوْتِ لَدَعَوْتُ بِهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2681a]
 « Were it not that the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ had forbidden us to invoke [Allāh] for death, I would have invoked [Allāh] for it. »

⁸³Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61

لَوْ as a question-device

لَوْ is also used as a question-device to me «why not». For example:

- (150) [6331: صحيح البخاري] *لَوْ لَا مَتَّعْتَنَا بِهِ*
«Why didn't you let us enjoy him?»

In this case we won't consider it a conditional-device.

41.9.9. A u-case *muḍāriʿ* condition-verb

The condition-verb in *لَوْ* conditional sentences is typically of the form *فَعَلْتُ*. Sometimes, however, the *يَفْعُلُ* form is also found, particularly (but not exclusively) when the condition-verb is *يَعْلَمُ*.⁸⁴ Here are some examples:

- (151) [49:7 سورة الحجرات] *لَوْ يُطِيعُكُمْ فِي كَثِيرٍ مِّنَ الْأَمْرِ لَعَنِتُمْ*
«If he were to obey you in much of the matter, you would be in difficulty»
- (152) [3:167 سورة آل عمران] *قَالُوا لَوْ نَعْلَمُ قِتَالًا لَّاتَّبَعْنَاكَ*
«They said, "If we had known [there would be] battle, we would have followed you."»
- (153) [6486: صحيح البخاري] *لَوْ تَعْلَمُونَ مَا أَعْلَمُ لَضَحِكْتُمْ قَلِيلًا وَلَبْكَيْتُمْ كَثِيرًا*
«If you knew what I know you would laugh little and you would cry much.»
- (154) [966 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 57] *فَقَالَ الْحَجَّاجُ لَوْ نَعْلَمُ مَنْ أَصَابَكَ فَقَالَ ابْنُ عُمَرَ أَنْتَ أَصَبْتَنِي*
«al-Hajjāj said, "If we could only know who hit you." Ibn ʿUmar said, "You hit me."»
- (155) [صحیح] *رَأَيْتُنِي يَوْمَ أَبِي جَنْدَلٍ وَلَوْ أَسْتَطِيعُ أَنْ أَرُدَّ أَمْرَ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ لَرَدَدْتُهُ*
[3181 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 57]
«I found myself on the day of Abū Jandal [where] if I could have reversed the order of the Prophet ﷺ, I would have reversed it.»

41.9.10. A *ø*-case *muḍāriʿ* condition-verb

A *ø*-case *muḍāriʿ* condition-verb is exceedingly rare with *لَوْ* but it is occasionally found. For example:

- (152) [72 شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك] *لَوْ تَعَذَّ حِينَ فَرَّ قَوْمُكَ بِي كُنْتُ مِنَ الْأَمْنِ فِي أَعَزِّ مَكَانٍ*
«Had you taken refuge, when your people fled, with me, you would have been, with regards to security, in the mightiest place.»

41.9.11. *لَوْ* expressing a wish or hope

A special use of *لَوْ* is for expressing a wish or hope. These are of two types⁸⁵:

⁸⁴Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 57

⁸⁵Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 53

The first is a *لَوْ* clause by itself. For example:

- (153) صحيح] يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ إِنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ رَجُلٌ أَسِيفٌ مَتَى يَقُمْ مَقَامَكَ لَا يُسْمِعُ النَّاسَ لَوْ أَمَرْتَ عُمَرَ
[ابن حبان: 6873]
«O Messenger of Allāh Indeed Abū is a tender-hearted man. When he stands in your place, he will not be able to make the people hear. Would that you ordered ʿUmar.»

The second is the *لَوْ*-clause followed by a *فَ* introducing a cause/purpose clause. For example:

- (154) لَوْ تَأْتِينِي فَتُخَدِّتْنِي
لَوْ تَأْتِينِي فَتُخَدِّتْنِي
[5/124] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل
«Would that you could come to me so that you could talk to me.»

One way of analyzing these types of sentences is that the true condition-response of *لَوْ* is deleted⁸⁶ (see Section 41.10 below). And the clause beginning with *فَ* takes the place of the true condition-response.

Occasionally the true condition-response is not deleted. For example:

- (155) فَلَوْ نُبِشَ الْمَقَابِرُ عَنْ كُلِّبٍ فَيُخْبِرَ بِالذَّنَائِبِ أَيُّ زَبِيرٍ
[سورة البحر المحيط لأبي حيان] بيوم الشعشعين لَقَرَّ عَيْنًا وَكَيْفَ لِقَاءُ مَنْ تَحْتَ الْقُبُورِ
[32:12] السجدة
«And if the graves were exhumed from Kulayb ... it would have been a coolness of the eyes ...»

Here are some more examples of *لَوْ* used to express a wish or hope:

- (156) 1/265] مغني اللبيب لابن هشام [سورة القلم] 68:9 cited by هشام
«They wish that you would soften [in your position], so they would soften [toward you].»
- (157) 694e] صحيح مسلم [لَوْ صَلَّيْتَ بَعْدَهَا رَكْعَتَيْنِ
«Would that you prayed after it two rakaʿahs.»
- (158) 5297] صحيح البخاري [يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ لَوْ أَمْسَيْتَ إِنَّ عَلَيْكَ نَهَارًا
«O Messenger of Allāh, would that you entered the evening. Indeed daytime is (still) upon you.»
- (159) 402] صحيح البخاري [وَالْفَاجِرُ فَنَزَلَتْ آيَةُ الْجَجَابِ
«I said, “O Messenger of Allāh, would that we took the standing place of Abraham as a place of prayer.” So [the āyah] came down: And take, [O believers], from the standing place of Abraham a place of prayer. And [as regards] the āyah of the veil, I said, “O Messenger of Allāh, would that you ordered your wives to cover themselves, for indeed the good and bad ones talk to them.” So the āyah of the veil came down.»

⁸⁶ 1/267 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام; 2/574 همع الهوامع للسيوطي

41.9.12. A nounal sentence in the condition-response

Very rarely, a nounal sentence has been found to directly occur in the condition-response:

- (157) [سورة البقرة 2:103] وَلَوْ أَنَّهُمْ ءَامَنُوا وَاتَّقَوْا لَمَثُوبَةٌ مِّنْ عِنْدِ اللَّهِ خَيْرٌ
«And if they had believed and feared Allāh, then the reward from Allāh would have been [far] better»

Some grammarians have analyzed لَمَثُوبَةٌ مِّنَ اللَّهِ خَيْرٌ to directly be the condition-response. Whereas others have used taqdir.⁸⁷

41.10. Deletion in the conditional sentence

For reasons of economy, emphasis, or style, part of the conditional sentence may be omitted (i.e. deleted) in speech. From context, the listener is able to restore the deleted part when understanding the conditional sentence.⁸⁸ In this section, we will give examples of deletion in the conditional sentence.⁸⁹

41.10.1. Part of the condition or the condition-response is deleted

Consider the following examples:

- (158) [كتاب سيبويه 1/258] النَّاسُ مَجْزِيُونَ بِأَعْمَالِهِمْ إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرٌ وَإِنْ شَرًّا فَشَرٌّ
«The people are rewarded according to their deeds: if good then good and if bad then bad.»
- (159) [كتاب سيبويه 1/258] المرء مقتولٌ بما قَتَلَ بِهِ إِنْ خُنْجَرًا فَخُنْجَرٌ وَإِنْ سِيفًا فَسِيفٌ
«[A] person is killed by what he killed with: if a dagger then a dagger, and if a sword then a sword.»

Examples (1819) and (1820) above have parts of both the condition and the condition-response deleted. Consider the single conditional sentence from example (1819) above:

- (159) إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرٌ [cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 208]

The sentence, with the deleted parts restored is:

- (160) [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/254] إِنْ كَانَ عَمَلُهُمْ خَيْرًا فَجَزَاؤُهُمْ خَيْرٌ
«If their deed was good, then their reward is good.»

⁸⁷جملة اسمية؟ (لو) هل يقع جواب (لو) جملة اسمية؟ jamharah.net

⁸⁸Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 198 quoting Crystal, *A dictionary of linguistics and phonetics*.

⁸⁹The discussion follows Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* Chapter V, and re-uses many of the same examples.

More combinations with deletion are permissible. Let's use example (1819) again. We can have the following combinations:

- (161) a. *إِنْ خَيْرٌ فَخَيْرٌ*
 b. *إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرًا*
 c. *إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرٌ*
 d. *إِنْ خَيْرٌ فَخَيْرًا*
 [2/156 شرح كتاب سيوييه للسيرافي]

In example (1823) above, when the condition has the a-case *خَيْرًا*, then its restoration, as we have seen, is *إِنْ كَانَ عَمَلُهُمْ خَيْرًا*. And when the condition has the u-case *خَيْرٌ*, then its restoration, as we have seen, is *إِنْ كَانَ فِي عَمَلِهِمْ خَيْرٌ*.

Similarly when the condition-response has the u-case *خَيْرٌ*, then its restoration, as we have seen, is *فَجَزَاؤُهُمْ خَيْرٌ*. And when the condition has the a-case *خَيْرًا*, then its restoration, as we have seen, is *فَيُجْزَوْنَ خَيْرًا*.⁹⁰

Here is another example:

- (162) [1116: صحيح البخاري] *صَلَّ قَائِمًا فَإِنْ لَمْ تَسْتَطِعْ فَقَاعِدًا*
 «Pray standing. But if you are not able then sitting.»

41.10.2. The entire condition-core is deleted

The entire condition-core may be deleted when it is understood from context. For example:

- (163) [4/42: شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] *فَطَلَّقَهَا فَلَسْتُ لَهَا بِكُفٍّ وَإِلَّا يَغُلَّ مَفْرَقُكَ الْحُسَامُ*
 Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 212
 «So divorce her; for you are not adequate for her. And if not, the sword will hit your hair-parting (on your head)»

The conditional sentence with the deleted condition-core restored is:

- (164) [4/43: شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] *وَإِلَّا تُطَلِّقَهَا يَغُلَّ مَفْرَقُكَ الْحُسَامُ*
 «And if you don't divorce her, the sword will hit your hair-parting (on your head)»

41.10.3. The condition-response is deleted

We have already seen some cases of the condition-response being deleted. For example:

In an inverted conditional sentence (see Section 41.2.4 above). Example:

- (165) [2/647: مغني اللبيب لابن هشام] *هُوَ ظَالِمٌ إِنْ فَعَلَ*
 Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 213
 «He is a wrong-doer if he does it.»

⁹⁰ 1/254 أَوْضَحَ الْمَسَالِكَ لَابْنِ هِشَامٍ

In the case of *لَوْ* expressing a wish or a hope (see Section 41.9.11 above).
Example:

- (166) [5/124 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] *لو أعطاني ووَهَبَني*
«Would that you gave me and granted me.»

The above can be considered cases of obligatory and regular deletion respectively.

The condition-response is also obligatorily deleted for parenthetical conditions. For example:

- (167) [2/647 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام] *هُوَ إِنْ فَعَلَ ظَالِمٌ*
«He, if he does it, is a wrong-doer.»
- (168) [2/647; Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 213] *وَإِنَّا إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ لَمُهْتَدُونَ*
«And indeed we, if Allāh wills, will be guided.»

We will consider an additional case of obligatory deleted condition-response in Section 41.14 below.

In addition to obligatory or regular deletion, the condition-response may also be optionally deleted for stylistic reasons. For example:

- (169) *وَلَوْ أَنَّ قُرْءَانًا سُيِّرَتْ بِهِ الْجِبَالُ أَوْ قُطِعَتْ بِهِ الْأَرْضُ أَوْ كَلِمَ بِهِ الْمَوْتَى بَل لَّهِ الْأَمْرُ*
[2/647; Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 218] *جَمِيعًا*
«And if there was any Qur'ān [i.e., recitation] by which the mountains would be removed or the earth would be broken apart or the dead would be made to speak, [it would be this Qur'ān], but to Allāh belongs the affair entirely.»

41.10.4. «Even if»

A special case of a deleted condition-response is when the condition imparts the meaning «even if». This occurs when conditional-device is preceded by *وَ* and is not followed by a condition-response. Examples:

- (170) [4800: سنن أبي داود] *أَنَا زَعِيمٌ بِبَيْتٍ فِي رِبْضِ الْجَنَّةِ لِمَنْ تَرَكَ الْمِرَاءَ وَإِنْ كَانَ مُحِقًّا*
«I guarantee a house in the surroundings of Paradise for a man who avoids arguing even if he were in the right.»
- (171) [94b: صحيح مسلم] *قُلْتُ وَإِنْ زَنَى وَإِنْ سَرَقَ قَالَ وَإِنْ زَنَى وَإِنْ سَرَقَ*
«I said, “Even if he fornicated and even if he stole?”. He said, “Even if he fornicated and even if he stole.”»

Here is «even if» as a parenthetical clause:

- (171) [Wright 2/40] *زَيْدٌ وَإِنْ كَثُرَ مَالُهُ زَعِيمٌ*
«Zayd, even if his wealth be much, is stingy.»

Frequently, the condition in an «even if» may contain only a noun. For example:

- (172) بَلِّغُوا عَنِّي وَلَوْ آيَةً [صحیح البخاری: 3461]
 «Convey from me (my teachings) even if one āyah.»

In such cases, as in Section 41.10.1 above, there may be multiple ways to analyze the condition. Consider the following sentence:

- (173) 1/269 كتاب سيبويه وَأَتْنِي بِدَابَّةٍ وَلَوْ جِمَارًا
 «And bring me a beast of burden, even if a donkey.»

The a-case of جِمَار is justified using the taqdir:

- (174) وَلَوْ [كَانَ] جِمَارًا
 «even if [it were] a donkey.»

Instead of the a-case for جِمَار, the i-case may also be used:

- (175) 1/269 كتاب سيبويه وَأَتْنِي بِدَابَّةٍ وَلَوْ جِمَارٍ [composed from]
 «And bring me a beast of burden, even if a donkey.»

In this case the taqdir is:

- (176) وَلَوْ [أَتَيْتَنِي بِهِ] جِمَارٍ
 «even if [you brought me] a donkey.»

The u-case is also possible, though not as preferred:

- (177) 1/269 كتاب سيبويه وَأَتْنِي بِدَابَّةٍ وَلَوْ جِمَارٌ [composed from]
 «And bring me a beast of burden, even if a donkey.»

In this case, the taqdir would be:

- (178) وَلَوْ [يَكُونُ مِمَّا تَأْتِينِي بِهِ] جِمَارٌ [composed from 1/269 كتاب سيبويه]
 «even if a donkey [is what you bring me].»

41.10.5. Both the condition-core and the condition-response are deleted

Stylistically, both the condition-core and the condition-response may be deleted. For example:

- (179) قَالَتْ بَنَاتُ الْعَمِّ يَا سَلْمَى وَإِنْ كَانَ فَقِيرًا مُعْدَمًا قَالَتْ وَإِنْ [modified from أوضح المسالك لأوضح المسالك 1/42, cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 219]
 «The uncle's daughters (i.e. cousins) said, "O Salmā, even if he is a destitute poor [person]?" She said, "Even if."»

In example (1842) above, there are two conditional sentences. The first conditional sentence is *وَأِنْ كَانَ فَقِيرًا مُّغَدَّمًا* Its condition-response is deleted.

The second conditional sentence is only *وَأِنْ*. Both its condition-core and condition-response are deleted.

Here is another example:

(180) 3/264, cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 219]

« A speaker says, "I shall not come to the commander because he is unjust." »

So it is said (to him), "Come to him, even if." »

That is: « Come to him, even if he is unjust »

41.11. A condition-core beginning with a noun

The basic principle for a condition-core is that it should be a verbal sentence. (We include *كَانَ* sentences in verbal sentences, loosely speaking.) And the verb which begins the condition-core is classified as the condition-verb.

In all the examples we have seen so far, this has been the case. So, in the example: *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ*, the condition-core is the verbal sentence *أَتَيْتَنِي*, and it is begun with the condition-verb *أَتَى*.

Occasionally, however, the condition-core is found to begin with a noun. For example:

(181) *إِنْ أَمْرُؤًا هَلَكَ لَيْسَ لَهُ وَلَدٌ وَلَهُ أُخْتٌ فَلَهَا نِصْفُ مَا تَرَكَ*

[5/120] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل cited by 4:176 سورة النساء]

« If a man dies, leaving no child but [only] a sister, she will have half of what he left. »

In example (1844) above, the conditional-device *إِنْ* is directly followed by the noun *أَمْرُؤًا* and not the verb *هَلَكَ*. The way that this, and similar examples, are made to align with the above stated principle of a condition-core always being a verbal sentence, is by taqdiring a deleted verb *هَلَكَ* directly after the conditional-device *إِنْ* as its condition-verb, thus⁹¹:

(182) *إِنْ [هَلَكَ] أَمْرُؤًا*

Once the original condition-verb *هَلَكَ* is deleted, its doer is left in place. And an explanatory verb is added after it which gives the meaning of the deleted verb. In this, and most cases, the explanatory verb matches the deleted verb. So the resulting condition becomes *إِنْ أَمْرُؤًا هَلَكَ*.

In this way, the basic principle of the condition-core always being a verbal sentence remains intact. And it restricts the transformed condition (after the deletion) to have a verb. Therefore, a condition like the following would be disallowed because it does not have a verb:

⁹¹The following is the standard analysis. Other analyses are described in Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 96–105 and شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/93–94

- (183) شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل [5/120] $\times$ $\text{إِنْ عَمُرُو خَارِجٌ}$
 «If Ėamr is outside ...»

In such conditions where the condition-core begins with a noun, it is preferred that the conditional-device be إِنْ , and that the condition-verb be يَقْتُلُ not قَتَلَ .⁹² Nevertheless, counterexamples do occur. For example:

- (184) [3/112 كتاب سيبويه] $\text{أَيُّنَمَا الرِّيحُ تُمِيلُهَا تَمِيلُ}$
 «Whichever way the wind makes it incline, it inclines.»
- (185) [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] $\text{إِذَا أَنْتَ لَمْ تَنْفَعْ فَضُرُّ}$
 «If you cannot benefit then harm.»

In example (1848) above, the taqdirred original condition is $\text{إِذَا [لَمْ تَنْفَعْ]}$. The verb تَنْفَعُ (and لَمْ) is deleted and its doer is left in place. But because its doer is a latent pronoun (taqdirred as $[\text{أَنْتَ}]$), it is transformed into its detached pronoun equivalent أَنْتَ so that it can appear in surface speech. Then an explanatory verbal expression لَمْ تَنْفَعْ (which matches the deleted verbal expression) is added, and we end up with the resultant $\text{إِذَا أَنْتَ لَمْ تَنْفَعْ}$.

It is also possible for the explanatorily added verb to not exactly match the taqdirred deleted condition-verb. For example:

- (185) $\text{فَإِنْ أَنْتَ لَمْ يَنْفَعَكَ عِلْمُكَ فَانْتَسِبْ ~ لَعَلَّكَ تَهْدِيكَ الْقُرُونُ الْأَوَّلُ}$
 [cited by Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 101; شرح 2/140] التسهيل لابن مالك
 «If your knowledge does not benefit you then affiliate yourself [to your predecessors]. Perhaps the earlier generations can guide you.»

In example (1849) above, the additional complication is that the doer أَنْتَ that begins the condition-core, does not match the doer عِلْمُكَ of the explanatory verbal sentence $\text{لَمْ يَنْفَعَكَ عِلْمُكَ}$.⁹³ But we can still mold this to fit in with our basic principle and the transformational steps that we gave above. Here's how:

The taqdir for the condition can be taqdirred as:

- (186) $\text{فَإِنْ [لَمْ تَنْتَفِعْ بِعِلْمِكَ]}$

The taqdirred verbal sentence $\text{[لَمْ تَنْتَفِعْ بِعِلْمِكَ]}$ is deleted except for the condition-verb تَنْتَفِعْ 's doer, the latent pronoun $[\text{أَنْتَ}]$. This latent doer pronoun is transformed for surface speech into the detached pronoun أَنْتَ . An explanatory verbal sentence $\text{لَمْ يَنْفَعَكَ عِلْمُكَ}$ is added after the doer أَنْتَ to give the meaning of a taqdirred verbal sentence. In this case, the explanatory verbal sentence does not exactly match the taqdirred original condition-core in wording, but has a similar meaning.⁹⁴

The noun which follows the conditional-device may also be in the a-case as the direct doer of the deleted verb. For example:

⁹² 5/121 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

⁹³ Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 101–102

⁹⁴ 6/313 التذليل والتكميل لأبي حيان; see also 2/140; شرح التسهيل لابن مالك

- (187) 1/428 شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك] إِنْ زَيْدًا لَقِيتَهُ فَأَكْرَمَهُ
«If it is Zayd you meet then honor him.»
- (188) 1/428 شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك] حَيْثُمَا عَمَرًا لَقِيتَهُ فَأَهْنُهُ
«If it is Eamr you meet then insult him.»
- (189) 2/141; شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] لا تجزعي إِنْ مُنِفِسًا أَهْلَكْتُهُ وَإِذَا هَلَكْتُ فَعِنْدَ ذَلِكَ فَاجْزِعِي
see also 6/313 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان
«Do not grieve if I have destroyed a rival; but if I should perish, then at that time grieve.»

Here are some more examples of conditional sentences whose condition-core begins with a noun:

- (188) وَإِنْ أَحَدٌ مِّنَ الْمُشْرِكِينَ اسْتَجَارَكَ فَأَجِرْهُ حَتَّى يَسْمَعَ كَلِمَ اللَّهِ ثُمَّ ابْلِغْهُ مَا مَنَعَهُ
[9:6 سورة التوبة]
«And if any one of the polytheists seeks your protection, then grant him protection so that he may hear the words of Allāh [i.e., the Qur'ān].»
- (189) فَإِنْ أَحَدٌ تَرَخَّصَ لِقِتَالِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فِيهَا فَقُولُوا إِنَّ اللَّهَ قَدْ أَدَنَ
[104 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 20]
«So if anyone allows himself license because of the fighting of the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ then say to him, “Allāh permitted His Messenger and did not permit you.”»
- (190) وَإِنْ هُمْ أَبَوْا فَوَالَّذِي نَفْسِي بِيَدِهِ، لَأُقَاتِلَنَّهُمْ عَلَى أَمْرِي هَذَا حَتَّى تَنْفِرَ سَالِفَتِي، وَلَيُفِذَنَّ
[2731 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 19]
«But if they refuse, then by Him in whose Hand my soul is, I will definitely fight them on this cause of mine until [I die], but Allāh will [make His cause victorious].»

Here is an example with إِذَا as the conditional-device:

- (189) إِذَا هُوَ لَمْ يُعْطَ فِيهَا حَقَّهَا تَطَوُّهُ بِأَحْفَافِهَا
[1402 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 27]
«If he had not given their due [zakāt] for them, then they would tread him with their hooves»

Here is an example with لَوْ as the conditional-device:

- (190) قَالَ أَبُو عُبَيْدَةَ بْنُ الْجَرَّاحِ أَفَرَارًا مِّنْ قَدَرِ اللَّهِ فَقَالَ عُمَرُ لَوْ غَيْرُكَ قَالَهَا يَا أَبَا عُبَيْدَةَ، نَعَمْ
[5729] صحيح البخاري]
«Abū Eubaydah ibn al-Jarrāḥ said, “Are you fleeing what Allāh has ordained?” Eumar said, “Would that someone else had said [such a thing], O Abū Eubaydah! Yes, we are fleeing from what Allah has ordained to what Allah has ordained.”»

41.12. The request-response

There is a special kind of sentence where a statement that can be classified as a *request*, is followed by *request-response*. For example:

- (191) ائْتِنِي آتَكَ [3/93 كتاب سيويه]
«Come to me, I will come to you.»

In example (1859) above, the sentence ائْتِنِي is the request. And the sentence آتَكَ is the request-response.

Note that the verb آتَ in the request-response is in the $\emptyset$ -case, as the direct consequence of fulfilling the request ائْتِنِي. In order to justify the $\emptyset$ -case of the verb in the request-response, the grammarians taqdir a deleted condition before it that matches the the request. It is this deleted condition that causes the verb in the request-response to be in the $\emptyset$ -case.⁹⁵ Here are a couple of possible taqdīrs of example (1859) above:

- (192) ائْتِنِي [إِنْ تَأْتِنِي] آتَكَ
«Come to me. [If you come to me], I will come to you.»
- (193) ائْتِنِي [إِنْ يَكُنْ مِنْكَ إِتْيَانٌ] آتَكَ
[from 3/94 كتاب سيويه]
«Come to me. [If there is a coming from you], I will come to you.»

41.12.1. Different types of requests

Requests that take a request-response may be of different types:

A command

Example (1859) above is an example of a command request. Here is another example:

- (193) أَسْلِمُ [صَحِيحٌ مُسْلِمٌ] 1773a
«Submit, you will be in peace.»

A possible taqdir is:

- (194) أَسْلِمُ [إِنْ أَسْلَمْتَ] 1773a
«Submit. [If you submit] you will be in peace.»

A prohibition

- (195) لَا تَفْعَلْ [يَكُنْ خَيْرًا لَكَ] 3/93 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 205
«Don't do it, it will be better for you.»

The taqdir for the example above is:

- (196) لَا تَفْعَلْ [إِنْ لَمْ تَفْعَلْ] 3/94 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 205
«Don't do it. [If you don't do it] it will be better for you.»

⁹⁵ الخليل 3/94 كتاب سيويه

A question

Example:

- (197) أَيْنَ بَيْتُكَ أَزْرَكَ [أَيْنَ بَيْتُكَ أَزْرَكَ 3/94 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 206]

«Where is your house? I will visit you.»

The taqdir for the example above is:

- (198) أَيْنَ بَيْتُكَ [إِنْ أَعْلَمَ مَكَانَ بَيْتِكَ] أَزْرَكَ [3/94 كتاب سيبويه]
«Where is your house? [If I know the location of your house] I will visit you.»

Here is another example:

- (199) يَا أَيُّهَا الَّذِينَ ءَامَنُوا هَلْ أَذِلُّكُمْ عَلَىٰ تَجَرَّةٍ تُنَجِّيْكُمْ مِّنْ عَذَابِ آلِيمٍ ﴿٦١﴾ تُوْمِنُونَ بِاللَّهِ وَرَسُولِهِ ۚ وَتُجَاهِدُونَ فِي سَبِيلِ اللَّهِ بِأَمْوَالِكُمْ وَأَنفُسِكُمْ ذَٰلِكُمْ خَيْرٌ لَّكُمْ إِن كُنتُمْ تَعْلَمُونَ ﴿٦٢﴾ يَغْفِرْ لَكُمْ ذُنُوبَكُمْ وَيُدْخِلْكُمْ جَنَّاتٍ تَجْرَىٰ مِنْ تَحْتِهَا الْأَنْهَارُ وَمَسَلِكِينَ طَيِّبَةً فِي جَنَّاتٍ عِدْنٍ ذَٰلِكَ الْفَوْزُ الْعَظِيمُ ﴿٦٣﴾ [3/94 كتاب سيبويه cited by 61:10–12 سورة الصف]

«O you who have believed, shall I guide you to a transaction that will save you from a painful punishment? [It is that] you believe in Allāh and His Messenger and strive in the cause of Allāh with your wealth and your lives. That is best for you, if you only knew. He will forgive for you your sins and admit you to gardens beneath which rivers flow and pleasant dwellings in gardens of perpetual residence. That is the great attainment.»

In example (1868) above, the request-response *يَغْفِرْ* is analyzed to be in the *ø*-case following the question request *هَلْ أَذِلُّكُمْ*.⁹⁶

A wish

Example:

- (200) أَلَا مَاءٌ أَشْرَبُهُ [أَلَا مَاءٌ أَشْرَبُهُ 3/93 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 206]
«Is there no water I would drink?»

Taqdir:

- (201) أَلَا مَاءٌ [إِنْ يَكُنْ مَاءٌ] أَشْرَبُهُ [3/94 كتاب سيبويه]
«Is there no water? [If there were water] I would drink it.»

Example:

- (202) لَيِّتَهُ عِنْدَنَا بِحَدَّثْنَا [3/93 كتاب سيبويه]
«Would that he were with us, he would talk to us.»

Taqdir:

- (203) لَيِّتَهُ عِنْدَنَا [إِنْ يَكُنْ عِنْدَنَا] بِحَدَّثْنَا [3/94 كتاب سيبويه]
«Would that he were with us. [If he were with us] he would talk to us.»

⁹⁶ 3/94 كتاب سيبويه

An offer

Example:

- (204) [3/93 كتاب سيبويه] أَلَا تَنْزِلُ تُصِيبُ خَيْرًا
« Won't you come settle? You will obtain benefit. »

Taqdir:

- (205) أَلَا تَنْزِلُ [إِنْ تَنْزِلُ] تُصِيبُ خَيْرًا
« Won't you come settle? [If you will come settle] you will obtain benefit. »

41.12.2. The verb following the request may optionally be in the u-case

In the examples above, the verb following the request may optionally be in the u-case.⁹⁷ So for example, we can say:

- (206) ائْتِنِي آتِيكَ
« Come to me. I will come to you. »

In such cases, any taqdired condition would not govern the u-case verb. Here are some more examples:

- (207) خُذْ مِنْ أَمْوَالِهِمْ صَدَقَةً تُطَهِّرُهُمْ وَتُزَكِّيهِمْ بِهَا [9:103 سورة التوبة cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 207]
« Take, [O Muḥammad], from their wealth a charity by which you purify them and cause them increase, and invoke [Allāh's blessings] upon them. »
- (208) فَهَبْ لِي مِنْ لَدُنْكَ وَلِيًّا يَرِثُنِي وَيَرِثُ مِنْ عَالِ يَعْقُوبَ [19:5-6 سورة مريم cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 207]
« so give me from Yourself an heir Who will inherit me and inherit from the family of Jacob. »

41.12.3. The taqdired condition should match the request

The grammarians specify that the request-response should be the direct consequence of satisfying a taqdired condition that matches the request. Let's explain what we mean by taking a look at the following (non-complying) example:

- (208) × لَا تَذُنْ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ يَأْكُلْكَ [3/97 كتاب سيبويه]
« Don't go near the lion, it will eat you. »

In example (1878) above, a taqdired condition that matches the request is *إِنْ لَا تَدْنِ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ*. If we insert this condition into the original sentence we get:

- (209) × لَا تَدْنِ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ [إِنْ لَمْ تَذُنْ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ] يَأْكُلْكَ
« Don't go near the lion. [If you don't go near the lion] it will eat you. »

⁹⁷ 3/95 كتاب سيبويه

As you can see, the sentence does not now make logical sense. In such cases, it is better that the verb following the request be in the u-case.⁹⁸ So we should say

- (210) لَا تَذُنْ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ يَا كُتْلَكَ ✓
«Don't go near the lion. It will eat you.»

A فَ may also be prefixed to the u-case verb with no problem:

- (211) لَا تَذُنْ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ فَيَأْكُلَكَ ✓
«Don't go near the lion. For it will eat you.»

By the way, example (1873) أَلَا تَنْزِلُ تُصَبِّحُ خَيْرًا is not a problem because the offer أَنْزِلْ is equivalent to the command أَنْزِلْ.⁹⁹

Similarly, example (1869) أَلَا مَاءَ أَشْرَبُهُ is not a problem because the wish أَلَا مَاءَ is equivalent to hoping for water أَتَمَنَّيَ مَاءً. So the taqdīred condition إِنْ يَكُنْ مَاءً is valid.

41.13. The conditional sentence within a larger sentence

The conditional sentence can occur as an element within a larger compound sentence.¹⁰⁰ It may occur in different capacities. We will discuss some of them below.

41.13.1. The conditional sentence as a info

The conditional sentence may occur as a info of a larger sentence. For example:

- (212) [الإيضاح للفارسي 430 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] زَيْدٌ إِنْ تُكْرِمَهُ يُكْرِمَكَ
«Zayd: if you honor him, he will honor you.»

In example above, the conditional sentence إِنْ تُكْرِمَهُ يُكْرِمَكَ is analyzed as the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.

Here is another example:

- (213) [سورة الطلاق] وَالَّتِي يَسْنَنَ مِنَ الْمَحِيضِ مِنْ نِسَائِكُمْ إِنْ أَرَبْتُمْ فَعِدَّتُهُنَّ ثَلَاثَةُ أَشْهُرٍ
[الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 430] cited by
«And those who no longer expect menstruation among your women - if you doubt, then their period is three months»

In example (1883) above, the conditional sentence ... إِنْ أَرَبْتُمْ has been analyzed as a info of اللَّائِي.¹⁰¹

⁹⁸ 3/97 كتاب سيبويه

⁹⁹ 3/94 كتاب سيبويه

¹⁰⁰ Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* chapter 6; الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 430-440, 455ff

¹⁰¹ القيسي 430 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

41.13.2. The conditional sentence as a attribute

The conditional sentence may occur as a attribute of a attributee. For example:

- (214) لَا تَسْأَلُوا عَنْ أَشْيَاءٍ إِنْ تُبَدَّ لَكُمْ تَسْؤُكُمْ [سورة المائدة 5:101 cited by الجملۃ الشرطية عند 430 النحاة العرب للشمسان
«do not ask about things which, if they are shown to you, will distress you»

In example (1884) above, the conditional sentence *إِنْ تُبَدَّ لَكُمْ تَسْؤُكُمْ* is analyzed to be a attribute of أَشْيَاءٍ.¹⁰²

41.13.3. The conditional sentence as a ḥāl

Some grammarians have said that a conditional sentence can occur as a ḥāl. One example given is:

- (215) 2/43 [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] أَفْعَلُ هَذَا إِنْ جَاءَ زَيْدٌ
«I will do this if Zayd comes.»

In example (1885) above, the inverted conditional sentence (with a deleted condition-response) *إِنْ جَاءَ زَيْدٌ* is analyzed as a ḥāl.¹⁰³

In Section 41.2.4 above for example (1539), we saw that some grammarians may treat such a conditional sentence as something akin to a adverb of time/place.¹⁰⁴ For example:

- (216) 5/118 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي
«I will come to you if you come to me.»

41.13.4. The conditional sentence as a connecting sentence

The conditional sentence may occur as a connecting sentence of a connected noun. For example:

- (217) الْجَمَلَةُ الشرطية عند النحاة [سورة الحج 22:41 cited by الجملۃ الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 430]
«[And they are] those who, if We give them authority in the land, establish prayer»

In example (1887) above, the conditional sentence *إِنْ مَكَّنَّاكُمْ فِي الْأَرْضِ أَقَامُوا الصَّلَاةَ* is analyzed to be a connecting sentence of الَّذِينَ.¹⁰⁵

¹⁰² الأنباري 430 الجملۃ الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

¹⁰³ 2/43 [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل]

¹⁰⁴ 5/118 [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]

¹⁰⁵ الأنباري 430 الجملۃ الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

41.13.5. The conditional sentence within a question

The main category here is a *أ* preceding a conditional sentence. The *أ* simply asks a question and has no effect on the syntax on the following conditional sentence.¹⁰⁶ Examples:

- (218) [3/82 كتاب سيبويه] *أإن تأتيني آتاك*
« Is it that if you come to me, I come to you? »
- (219) [3/82 كتاب سيبويه] *أمتي تشتمني أشتمك*
« Is it that when you revile me, I revile you? »
- (220) [3/82 كتاب سيبويه] *أمن يفعل ذاك أزره*
« Is it that whoever does that, I should visit him? »

41.13.6. The conditional sentence within foundational government sentences

إن, *كان*, and *ليس* are foundational government-devices and they have subjects and infos. It is possible for their subjects to be *من*, *ما*, and *أي*, which, as we know from Section 41.4 above, can also be conditional-devices.

But when these nouns are the subjects of one of these foundational government-devices, then they cannot also be conditional-devices at the same time. These nouns then revert back to connected nouns. For example:

- (219) [3/71 كتاب سيبويه] *إن من يأتيني آتيه*
« Indeed who comes to us is whom we come to. »
- (220) [3/71 كتاب سيبويه] *كان من يأتيني آتيه*
« Who comes to us was whom we come to. »
- (221) [3/71 كتاب سيبويه] *ليس من يأتيني آتيه*
« Who comes to us is not whom we come to. »

In examples (1891) through (1893) above, *من* is the subject and a connected noun, *يأتيني* (in the u-case) is its connecting sentence, and *آتيه* (in the u-case) is the info.

Conditional-devices that are not connected nouns may not occur as the subjects of these foundational government devices. So we cannot say:

- (220) × [3/72 كتاب سيبويه] *إن ...*
- (221) × [3/72 كتاب سيبويه] *إن متي ...*

If these foundational government devices have other subjects, then a conditional sentence may freely be info. Examples:

¹⁰⁶See also الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسار 432–440

- (221) إِنَّهُ مَنْ يَأْتِنَا نَأْتِيهِ [3/72 كتاب سيبويه]
«Indeed [the state-of affairs] is: who will come to us, we will come to him.»
- (222) كُنْتُ مَنْ يَأْتِنِي آتِيهِ [3/72 كتاب سيبويه]
«I was: who will come to me, I will come to him.»
- (223) كَانَ مَنْ يَأْتِيهِ يُعْطِيهِ [3/72 كتاب سيبويه]
«He was: who will come to him, he will give to him.»
- (224) لَيْسَ مَنْ يَأْتِيهِ يُحِبُّهُ [3/72 كتاب سيبويه]
«He is not: who will come to him, he will love him.»
- (225) إِنَّهُ مَنْ يَأْتِ رَبَّهُ مُجْرِمًا فَإِنَّ لَهُ جَهَنَّمَ لَا يَمُوتُ فِيهَا وَلَا يَحْيَى [3/72 كتاب سيبويه]
«Indeed, whoever comes to his Lord as a criminal - indeed, for him is Hell; he will neither die therein nor live.»

In such sentences, the state-of-affairs pronoun can be deleted. For example:

- (222) إِنَّ مَنْ لَامَ فِي بَنِي بَنَتِ حَسَّانَ أَلَمَهُ وَأَعَصَاهُ فِي الْخُطُوبِ [3/73 كتاب سيبويه]
«Indeed [the state-of-affairs] is: whoever blames [me] regarding the sons of the daughter of Ḥassān, I will blame him and I will disobey him in the affairs.»
(إِنَّ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun thus: إِنَّهُ.)
- (223) قَدْ عَلِمْتَ أَنْ مَنْ يَأْتِنِي آتِيهِ [3/73 كتاب سيبويه 20:74 سورة طه cited by]
«You have known that [the state-of-affairs] is: whoever comes to me, I come to him.»
(أَنْ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun thus: أَنَّهُ.)

41.13.7. The conditional sentence after non-foundational government introductory devices

There are words that introduce sentences, but don't govern an subject and info directly. For example: إِذْ «when», أَمَّا «as for», إِذَا «when», لَكِنْ «but», لَا «not», مَا «not».

مَا، أَمَّا، and إِذْ

For most such introductory devices will again be followed by connected nouns, and not, typically, conditional-devices. Examples:

- (223) أَتَذْكُرُ إِذْ مَنْ يَأْتِنَا نَأْتِيهِ [3/75 كتاب سيبويه]
«Do you remember when who [was] coming to us, we [were] coming to him?»

- (224) ما من يأتينا نأتيه
[3/75 كتاب سيبويه]
«It is not that who comes to us, we come to him.»

- (225) أما من يأتينا فنحن نأتيه
[3/75 كتاب سيبويه]
«As for who comes to us, then we come to him.»

Note that again يأتيني and آتیه are in the u-case. And again, the conditional-device إِنْ would typically not follow these introductory devices.

Having said that, by poetic license, we can find a conditional sentence after these introductory devices. In that case, sentences like the following examples would be permissible:

- (224) أتذكر إذ من يأتنا نأته [3/75 كتاب سيبويه]
«Do you remember when: whoever would come to us, we would come to him?»
- (225) أتذكر إذ إن تأتنا تأتك [3/76 كتاب سيبويه]
«Do you remember when: if you would come to us, we would come to you?»

When إِنْ is separated from the conditional sentence by a noun, then there is no problem in having the conditional sentence. For example:

- (225) أتذكر إذ نحن من يأتنا نأته [3/76 كتاب سيبويه]
«Do you remember when we: whoever would come to us, we would come to him?»

إِذَا-سudden

The same goes for the sudden-إِذَا. For example:

- (226) مررت به فإذا من يأتیه يعطیه [3/76 كتاب سيبويه]
«I passed by him, then, suddenly, whoever [was] coming to him, he [was] giving him.»

A conditional sentence can also be used, if we there is a noun after إِذَا:

- (227) مررت به فإذا هو من يأتیه يعطیه [modified from 3/76 كتاب سيبويه]
«I passed by him, then, suddenly, he: whoever would come to him, he would give to him.»
(The هو may be optionally deleted, so we can also say: فإذا من يأتیه يعطیه.)

لَئِنْ

لَئِنْ is similar to إِذَا, so we can say (with a deleted pronoun after لَئِنْ):

- (228) ما أنا ببخيل ولكن إن تأتني أعطك [3/77 كتاب سيبويه]
«I am not a miser. Rather if you come to me, I will give to you.»
(There is a deleted pronoun after لَئِنْ.)

لَا

لَا is different from the other introductory devices above. A conditional sentence may freely occur after it. For example:

(229) [3/76 كتاب سيبويه] لَا مَنْ يَأْتِكَ تَعْطُهُ

«It is not that whoever will come to you, you will give to him.»

41.14. The condition combined with an oath

We know from chapter () that the oath-sentence, like the conditional sentence, has two parts:

- i. The oath
- ii. The oath-response

For example,

(230) [3/104 كتاب سيبويه] وَاللَّهِ لَأَفْعَلَنَّ

«By Allāh, I will do it.»

In example (1913) above, وَاللَّهِ is the oath, and لَأَفْعَلَنَّ is the oath-response. The oath-response is prefixed by the oath-response-ن.

The oath-sentence is often combined with the conditional sentence. This can occur in a few different ways:

- a. The oath occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the condition.
- b. The condition occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the oath.
- c. The oath and condition are in the info of a compound sentence.

Let's discuss each of these in turn.

41.14.1. The oath occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the condition

The general principle, when analyzing such sentences, is that there will be only one response, either a oath-response, or a condition-response. And, typically, the response will be for whichever of the oath or the condition occurred first in sentence word order.

Consider the following example:

(231) [5/141 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] وَاللَّهِ لَئِنْ أَكْرَمْتَنِي لَأَكْرِمَنَّكَ

«By Allāh, if you honor me, I will honor you.»

In example (1914) above, the oath وَاللَّهِ occurs before the condition لَئِنْ أَكْرَمْتَنِي in sentence word order. Therefore, the response لَأَكْرِمَنَّكَ is here the oath-response. This is evinced by the the usage of emphatic verb and the َ before it, which are hallmarks of the oath-response. The condition-response is obligatorily deleted.

Note also, the usage of another لَئِنْ that prefixes the conditional-device: لَئِنْ . This is a special لَئِنْ that is only used when an oath precedes the conditional-device إِنْ . It indicates that any response which follows is an oath-response.¹⁰⁷

Here is another example of an oath preceding a condition:

- (232) [5/141 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] $\text{وَاللّٰهُ لَئِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَأَتِيَنَّكَ}$

«By Allāh, if you came to me, I will come to you.»

In example (1915) above, لَأَتِيَنَّكَ is again the oath-response. In this case, it uses a māḍī verb, even though it has a future meaning.

Often times, the actual oath may optionally be deleted. For example:

- (233) [59:12 سورة الحشر] $\text{لَئِنْ أَخْرِجُوا لَا يَخْرُجُونَ مَعَهُمْ وَلَٰكِنْ قُوتِلُوا لَا يَصْرُفُوهُمْ}$
[5/142 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]

«If they are expelled, they will not leave with them, and if they are fought, they will not aid them.»

In example (1916) above, an oath is assumed to be deleted. The response لَا يَخْرُجُونَ is still analyzed to be an oath-response.¹⁰⁸ This is again indicated by the لَئِنْ preceding the conditional-device (لَئِنْ), and also by the use of the u-case of the muḍāriʿ verb in the response (يَخْرُجُونَ) instead of the ṣ -case.

Occasionally, both the oath and the لَئِنْ before the conditional-device إِنْ may optionally be deleted. But the oath is implied, and so the response matches the syntax of the condition-response, not the condition-response. For example:

- (234) [3/66 كتاب سيبويه] $\text{إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لِأَكْرِمَنَّكَ}$

«If you came to me, I will honor you»

In example (1917) above, the taqdīr , with the optionally deleted elements restored, is:

- (235) [3/66 كتاب سيبويه] $\text{وَاللّٰهُ لَئِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لِأَكْرِمَنَّكَ}$

«By Allāh, if you came to me, I will honor you»

When the oath precedes the condition, and thus the response is an oath-response and not a condition-response, it is preferred that the condition-verb be of the form فَعَلَّ (or its equivalent لَمْ يَفْعَلْ) and not يَفْعَلْ . This is because (as we also mentioned in Section 41.2.2 above) when the condition-verb is يَفْعَلْ , then it strongly prefers that a condition-response, with a symmetrical يَفْعَلْ as the condition-response-verb, be actually uttered in surface speech. So it is preferred not to say:

- (236) [3/66 كتاب سيبويه] $\text{لَئِنْ تَفَعَّلَ لِأَفْعَلَنَّ} \times$

«[By Allāh,] if you do, I will do.»

This preference can be seen in the following āyahs:

¹⁰⁷ 28 معجم المسائل النحوية والصرفية الواردة في القرآن الكريم

¹⁰⁸ 5/142 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

- (237) كتاب سيويه 7:23 سورة الأعراف cited by [3/66]
 «and if You do not forgive us and have mercy upon us, we will surely be among the losers»
 لَنَكُونَنَّ is analyzed as an oath-response to a deleted oath.¹⁰⁹
- (238) 3/66 كتاب سيويه 11:47 سورة هود cited by [3/66]
 «And unless You forgive me and have mercy upon me, I will be among the losers»
 أُنْ is analyzed as a condition-response.¹¹⁰

Here are some more examples of a oath in the beginning of a sentence, preceding a condition:

- (238) 11:34b صحيح مسلم [11:34b]
 «If I live to the coming year, I will definitely fast the ninth.»
- (239) قَالَ أَبُو جَهْلٍ لِّإِن رَأَيْتُ مُحَمَّدًا يُصَلِّي لَأَطَأَنَّ عَلَى عُنُقِهِ فَقَالَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ [3348] جامع الترمذي
 «Abū Jahl said, "If I see Muhammad praying, I shall certainly stomp on his neck." So the Prophet ﷺ said, "If he did that, the angels would seize him visibly."»
- (240) 3388 صحيح البخاري [3388]
 «By Allāh, if I were to take an oath, you would not believe me. And if I were to offer an excuse, you would not excuse me.»

What we have said regarding the response being a oath-response when the oath precedes the condition is true generally. However, rarely, the response in such cases can be the condition-response, not the oath-response. For example:

- (239) النحو العربي: أحكام ومعارف [أحكام ومعارف] لَيْنَ كَانَ حَدَّثْتَهُ الْيَوْمَ صَادِقًا أَصُمْ فِي نَهَارِ الْفَيْظِ لِلشَّمْسِ بَادِيًا [2/476]
 «If what I have been told today is true, I will fast in the heat of the day out in the sun.»
 أَصُمْ in the Ø-case indicates that it is the condition-response not the oath-response.

The above discussion has dealt with only the conditional-device لِن. Other conditional-devices that govern two Ø-case verbs, like مَن, مَا, etc., will behave the same way. For example:

- (240) 7:18 سورة الأعراف [7:18]
 «Whoever follows you among them - I will surely fill Hell with you, all together»

¹⁰⁹ 7:23 سورة الأعراف for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

¹¹⁰ 11:47 سورة هود for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي

In example (1926) above, the *لَمْ* in *لَمْ يَنْ* has been analyzed as following a deleted oath. *لَمْ يَنْ* is then the oath-response. Other analyses are also possible.¹¹¹

41.14.2. The condition occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the oath

When the condition (or any portion thereof) occurs before the oath, then the response is considered to be the condition-response, and the oath-response is obligatorily deleted.

(241) [شرح الرضي على الكافية 451 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي وَاللَّهِ أَتَيْتَكَ*
« If you came to me, by Allāh, I will come to you. »

(242) [4/44 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية] *إِنْ قَامَ زَيْدٌ وَاللَّهِ يَقُمُ عَمْرُو*
« If Zayd stands, by Allāh, ʿAmr will stand. »

(243) [3/216 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك] *إِنْ وَاللَّهِ جِئْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ*
« If, by Allāh, you come to me, I will honor you. »

There is also another possibility, which is that the sentence can have both a oath-response and a condition-response. And the entire oath-sentence is the condition-response. A *فَ* will be needed as the condition-response-link. Examples:

(242) [شرح الرضي على 451 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] *إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَوَاللَّهِ لَا تَيْتَنِكَ*
[الكافية]
« If you came to me, then by Allāh, I will come to you. »

41.14.3. The oath and condition are in the info of a compound sentence

When the oath and condition sentence occur in the info of a compound sentence, then the standard position of the grammarians is that the response shall be the condition-response, and that the oath-response be obligatorily deleted, regardless of whether the condition preceded the oath, or vice-versa.¹¹²

(243) [3/177 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] *زَيْدٌ وَاللَّهِ إِنْ يَقُمُ عَمْرُو يَأْتِ*
« Zayd, by Allāh, if ʿAmr stands, will come. »

(244) [3/177 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل] *زَيْدٌ إِنْ يَقُمُ عَمْرُو وَاللَّهِ يَأْتِ*
« Zayd, if ʿAmr stands, by Allāh, will come. »

(244) [كتاب سيبويه 448 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] *أَنَا وَاللَّهِ إِنْ تَأْتَنِي لَا أَتَيْتَكَ*
« I, by Allāh, if you come to me, I will not come to you. »

¹¹¹ 7:18 سورة الأعراف for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

¹¹² 3/177 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل

- (245) شرح الرضي على 450 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] **أَنَا إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي وَاللَّهِ أَتَيْكَ** [الكافية]
«I, if you came to me, by Allāh, I will come to you.»

The above is the most common opinion of the grammarians. However, some grammarians have allowed that when the oath precedes the condition, then the response can be the oath-response and the condition-response is deleted.¹¹³ For example:

- (245) شرح الرضي على 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] **أَنَا وَاللَّهِ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَا تَيْتَكَ** [الكافية]
«I, by Allāh, if you came to me, I will come to you.»

Another opinion found amongst the grammarians is that both the condition-response and the oath-response can be deleted. And so the following verbal sentence is directly the info.¹¹⁴ For example:

- (246) ارتشاف الضرب citing 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] **زَيْدٌ وَاللَّهِ إِنْ أَكْرَمْتَهُ يُكْرِمُكَ** [من لسان العرب]
«Zayd: by Allāh, if you honor him, he will honor you.»
زَيْدٌ, in the u-case is the info of يُكْرِمُكَ.

Lastly, there is also the possibility that the sentence can have both a oath-response and a condition-response. And the entire oath-sentence is the condition-response.¹¹⁵ A **فَ** will be needed as the condition-response-link. For example:

- (247) شرح الرضي على 450 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان] **أَنَا إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَوَاللَّهِ لَا تَيْتَكَ** [الكافية]
«I, if you came to me, then by Allāh, I will come to you.»

41.14.4. **لَوْ** combined with a oath

When the conditional-devices **لَوْ** or **لَوْلَا** are combined with a oath, then firstly, no additional **لِ** is prefixed to them, like it was in the case of **لِئِنْ**. Secondly, the standard position of the grammarians is that the response shall be the condition-response, and that the oath-response be obligatorily deleted, regardless of whether the condition preceded the oath, or vice-versa.¹¹⁶ Examples:

- (248) [2/894 شرح الكافية الشافعية لابن مالك] **وَاللَّهِ لَوْلَا اللَّهُ مَا أَهْدَيْنَا وَلَا تَصَدَّقْنَا وَلَا صَلَّيْنَا**
«By Allāh, were it not for Allāh we would not have been guided, nor would we have given charity, nor would we have prayed.»

- (249) [2/893 شرح الكافية الشافعية لابن مالك] **فَأَقْسِمُ لَوْ أَبْدَى النَّدَى سَوَادَهُ لَمَا مَسَحَتْ تِلْكَ الْمُسَالَاتِ غَامِرٌ**

¹¹³ ارتشاف الضرب من لسان and شرح الرضي على الكافية 449 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

¹¹⁴ ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب 449 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

¹¹⁵ ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب 449 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

¹¹⁶ 3/179 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل

«So I swear, if the gathering [was attended by] his personage, [the tribe of] Eāmīr would not be able to wipe those sideburns [of his] (out of respect and fear of him).»

However, some grammarians have allowed additional possibilities.¹¹⁷

41.15. Multiple verbs in the condition or condition-response

41.15.1. A condition-verb or condition-response-verb with a verbal sentence as a ḥāl

The condition-verb or condition-response-verb may be followed by a verbal sentence which is a ḥāl to it. For example:

- (249) الجملة الشرطية عند النجاة العرب للشمسان [3/85 cited by سيوييه] **إِنْ تَأْتِيَنِي تَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ** [390]

«If you come to me—asking me—, I will give to you.»

The verbal sentence **تَسْأَلْنِي** is a ḥāl. And that is why its verb is in the u-case. Here is another example:

- (250) **وَإِنْ أَتَانِي يَمْشِي أَتَيْتُهُ هَرْوَلَةً** [2675a: صحيح مسلم]

«And if he comes to Me walking, I come to him rushing.»

41.15.2. A condition-verb or condition-response-verb with a re-specifier

The condition-verb or condition-response-verb may be followed by a verbal sentence which is an re-specifier to it. Examples:

- (251) **إِنْ تَأْتِنَا تَسْأَلْنَا نُعْطِكَ** [396] الجملة الشرطية عند النجاة العرب للشمسان [3/87 cited by سيوييه]

«If you come to us, you ask us, we will give to you.»

تَأْتِنَا is a re-specifier of **تَسْأَلْنَا**.

- (252) **إِنْ تَأْتِنَا نُحْسِنُ إِلَيْكَ نُعْطِكَ وَنُحْمِيكَ** [3/87: كتاب سيوييه]

«If you come to use, we will be good to you, we will give to you and we will protect you.»

نُحْسِنُ إِلَيْكَ is a re-specifier of **نُعْطِكَ**.

- (253) **وَمَنْ يَفْعَلْ ذَلِكَ يَلْقَ أَثَامًا يُضَاعَفْ لَهُ الْعَذَابُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَمَةِ وَيَخْلُدْ فِيهِ مُهَانًا** [سورة الفرقان 25:68-69 cited by سيوييه]

«And whoever should do that will meet a penalty. Multiplied for him is the punishment on the Day of Resurrection, and he will abide therein humiliated»

يَلْقَ, in the $\emptyset$ -case, is analyzed as a re-specifier of **يُضَاعَفْ**.¹¹⁸

¹¹⁷see 6/3121ff تمهيد القواعد بشرح تسهيل الفوائد لناظر الجيش

¹¹⁸سورة الفرقان 25:69 for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي

41.15.3. A condition-verb followed by a conjunction

If the condition-verb is followed by a conjunction and then the second verb, then the second is, by default, in the $\emptyset$ -case to match the condition-verb. Examples:

- (252) [3/87 كتاب سيبويه] **إِنْ تَأْتِنِي ثُمَّ تَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ**
«If you come to me, then you ask me, I will give to you.»
- (253) [3/87 كتاب سيبويه] **إِنْ تَأْتِنِي فَتَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ**
«If you come to me, then you ask me, I will give to you.»
- (254) [3/87 كتاب سيبويه] **إِنْ تَأْتِنِي وَتَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ**
«If you come to me, and you ask me, I will give to you.»

According to one view,¹¹⁹ the u-case is also permissible for the second verb when the conjunction is with **وَ**. And this is because its verbal sentence is considered a *ḥāl* with a preceding **وَ** of *ḥāl* and a following detached pronoun is deleted. For example:

- (253) [الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمامان 2/66 cited by للمبرد] **إِنْ تَأْتِنَا وَتَسْأَلُنَا نُعْطِكَ**
«If you come to us, while you are asking us, I will give to you.»
The *taqdīr* is **إِنْ تَأْتِنَا وَأَنْتَ تَسْأَلُنَا نُعْطِكَ**.

When the conjunction is with **وَ** or **فَ**, then the a-case is also permissible for the second verb. A *taqdīr* is implied before the second verb.¹²⁰ Examples:

- (254) [3/88 كتاب سيبويه] **إِنْ تَأْتِنِي فَتُحَدِّثْنِي أُحَدِّثُكَ**
«If you come to me, so [that] you talk to me, I will talk to you.»
- (255) [3/88 كتاب سيبويه] **إِنْ تَأْتِنِي وَتُحَدِّثْنِي أُحَدِّثُكَ**
«If you come to me, and [that] you talk to me, I will talk to you.»

41.15.4. A condition-response-verb followed by a conjunction

If the condition-response-verb is followed by a conjunction and then the second verb, then the second is, by default, in the $\emptyset$ -case to match the condition-response-verb. For example:

- (255) [2/469 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] **مَنْ يَأْكُلْ كَثِيرًا يَتَخَمُ وَيَمْرُضُ**
«Whoever eats a lot, he will suffer from indigestion and be sick.»

When the conjunction is with **وَ** or **فَ**, then the u-case is also permissible for the second verb, with the analysis that a new sentence is beginning. For example:

- (256) [2/470 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان] **مَنْ يَأْكُلْ كَثِيرًا يَتَخَمُ فَيَمْرُضُ**
«Whoever eats a lot, he will suffer from indigestion. Then he will be sick.»

¹¹⁹ الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمامان 2/66 cited by للمبرد

¹²⁰ النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/468

When the conjunction is with **وَ** or **فَ**, then the a-case is also permissible for the second verb, with the analysis that a taqdiir **أَنَّ** is implied before the second verb.¹²¹

- (257) **مَنْ يَأْكُلُ كَثِيرًا يَتَخَمَّ فَيَمْرَضُ** [أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي: 2/469]
«Whoever eats a lot, he will suffer from indigestion causing him to be sick.»

- (258) **إِنْ تُكْرِمَ سَالِمًا أَكْرَمَكَ وَأَسَاعِدَكَ** [أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي: 2/469]
«If you honor Sālim, I will honor you and [at the same time] I will help you.»

When the condition-response itself begins with a **فَ**, and the verb in the condition-response is followed by a conjunction and a second verb, then we have two possibilities¹²²:

1. The second verb is in the u-case. This is the default.
2. The second verb is in the $\emptyset$ -case, as a condition-response-verb to the original condition.

For example:

- (258) **مَنْ يُضِلِّ اللَّهُ فَلَا هَادِيَ لَهُ وَيَذَرُهُمْ فِي طُغْيَانِهِمْ يَعْمَهُونَ** [سورة الأعراف 7:186 cited by ابن كثير 3/90]
«Whoever Allāh sends astray - there is no guide for him. And He leaves them in their transgression, wandering blindly.»
Some readings have **وَيَذَرُهُمْ** in the $\emptyset$ -case.¹²³

41.16. A conditional sentence interrupted by another conditional sentence

It is possible for a new conditional sentence to begin before an existing conditional sentence has completed.

- (259) **إِنْ رَكَبْتَ إِنْ لَبِستَ فَأَنْتَ طَالِقٌ** [Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 227 quoting ابن هشام]
«If you ride, if you wear your clothes, you are divorced.»

If only one of the conditions is fulfilled then the divorce does not occur. But the question is, would the divorce occur if she wore and then rode, or if she rode and then wore? The grammarians have discussed such conditional sentences at length and the view of the majority is that if the wife wore her clothes and then rode, then in this case she will be divorced.¹²⁴

¹²¹ أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي: 2/469

¹²² الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 410 cited by ابن كثير 3/90

¹²³ سورة الأعراف for القراءات العشر من الشاطبية والدرة --- دار الصحابة

¹²⁴ Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 230

41.17. Further reading

1. الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان
2. التأويل الزمني للجملة الشرطية في اللغة العربية لعارف الدين
3. الدلالة الزمنية للجملة الشرطية في النحو العربي لنور الدين قفي
4. آراء وأفكار حول الجملة الشرطية في العربية عبد العليم بوفاتح
5. Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic*
6. Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic*
7. Alfraidi, *Conditional sentences in Modern Written Arabic*
8. Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition*
9. Peled, On the obligatoriness of *fa-* in Classical Arabic 'in conditional sentences
10. Versteegh, "Two conceptions of irrealis in Arabic grammar: Ibn Hišām and Ibn al-Hāḡib on the particle *law*"
11. Gätje, "Zur Struktur gestörter Konditionalgefüge im Arabischen"

Work in progress

Part III.

Backmatter

Work in progress

Work in progress

Glossary of terms

Term used in this book	Term used in native Arabic grammar	Term used by Western grammars
absolute doee	المَفْعُولُ الْمُطْلَقُ	absolute accusative
ø-case	حَالَةُ الْجَزْمِ / الْمَجْرُومُ	jussive mood
condition	الشَّرْطُ	protasis
condition-response	جَوَابُ الشَّرْطِ	apodosis
adjectival noun	الصِّفَةُ	epithet
adverb of time	ظَرْفُ الزَّمَانِ / المَفْعُولُ فِيهِ	??
adverb of place	ظَرْفُ الْمَكَانِ / المَفْعُولُ فِيهِ	??
annexation	الإِضَافَةُ	??
annexed noun	المُضَافُ	construct noun
annexed-to noun	المُضَافُ إِلَيْهِ	??
[verb of] command	الأَمْرُ	imperative
info	الخَبَرُ	predicate / comment
connected noun	الاسْمُ الْمُوَصُولُ	relative pronoun
connecting sentence	الصَّلَاةُ	??
deputy –	نَائِبٌ عَنْ -- / نَائِبٌ --	??
direct doee	المَفْعُولُ بِهِ	object
doer	الْفَاعِلُ	subject
i-case	حَالَةُ الْجَرِّ / الْمَجْرُورُ	genitive case
particle	الْحَرْفُ	particle
pointing noun	اسْمُ الْإِشَارَةِ	demonstrative pronoun
preposition	حَرْفُ الْجَرِّ	preposition
prohibition	النَّهْيُ	??
pronoun	الصَّمِيرُ	pronoun
proper noun	الْعَلَمُ	??
a-case	حَالَةُ / الْمَنْصُوبُ النَّصْبِ	accusative case (nouns) / subjunctive mood (verbs)
questioning	الاسْتِفْهَامُ	interrogative
u-case	حَالَةُ الرَّفْعِ / الْمَرْفُوعُ	nominative case (nouns) / indicative mood (verbs)
refer-back pronoun	الرَّابِطُ / الْعَائِدُ	??
inflexible	الْمَبْنِي	??

Term used in this book	Term used in native Arabic grammar	Term used by Western grammars
semi-flexible state	الْمَمْنُوعُ مِنَ الصَّرْفِ الإِعْرَابِ	diptote inflection / case (nouns) / mood (verbs)
subject (of إِنَّ, كَانَ, etc.)	اسْمٌ --	??
subject (of sentence) tanwīn	الْمُبْتَدَأُ، الْمُبْتَدَأُ بِهِ التَّنْوِين	subject / topic nunation

Work in progress

References

The list of references (below) is alphabetized. Arabic works are alphabetized according to the cited term. Western works are alphabetized according to author last name and occur after the Arabic works.

Corpora

1. القرآن، <https://quran.com>
2. الأدب المفرد، <https://sunnah.com/adab>
3. السنن الكبير للبيهقي، <https://hadithunlocked.com/bayhaqi>
4. المعجم الكبير للطبراني، <https://hadithunlocked.com/tabarani>
5. الكتاب: تاريخ الطبري = تاريخ الرسل والملوك
المؤلف: أبو جعفر، محمد بن جرير الطبري (٢٢٤ - ٣١٠ هـ)
ويليه بالجزء ١١: «صلة تاريخ الطبري» لعريب بن سعد القرطبي [ت ٣٦٩ هـ]
ويليه: «تكملة تاريخ الطبري» لمحمد بن عبد الملك الهمذاني [ت ٥٢١ هـ]
ويليه: «المنتخب من كتاب ذيل المذيل من تاريخ الصحابة والتابعين لمحمد بن جرير الطبري» لأحد العلماء
المحقق: محمد أبو الفضل إبراهيم [ت ١٤٠١ هـ]
الناشر: دار المعارف بمصر
الطبعة: الثانية ١٣٨٧ هـ - ١٩٦٧ م
عدد الأجزاء: ١١
<https://shamela.ws/book/9783>
6. جامع الترمذي، <https://sunnah.com/tirmidhi>
7. جمع الجوامع للسيوطي، <https://hadithunlocked.com/suyuti>
8. رياض الصالحين، <https://sunnah.com/riyadussalihin>
9. سنن ابن ماجه، <https://sunnah.com/ibnmajah>
10. سنن أبي داود، <https://sunnah.com/abudawud>

11. سنن الدارمي، <https://hadithunlocked.com/darimi>
12. سنن النسائي، <https://sunnah.com/nasai>
13. الكتاب: السيرة النبوية لابن هشام
المؤلف: عبد الملك بن هشام بن أيوب الحميري المعافري، أبو محمد، جمال الدين (ت ٢١٣ هـ)
تحقيق: مصطفى السقا [ت ١٣٨٩ هـ] - إبراهيم الأبياري [ت ١٤١٤ هـ] - عبد الحفيظ شلبي
الناشر: شركة مكتبة ومطبعة مصطفى البابي الحلبي وأولاده بمصر
الطبعة: الثانية، ١٣٧٥ هـ - ١٩٥٥ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٢
<https://shamela.ws/book/23833>
14. الشمائيل المحمدية، <https://sunnah.com/shamail>
15. صحيح ابن حبان، <https://hadithunlocked.com/ibnhibban>
16. صحيح البخاري، <https://sunnah.com/bukhari>
17. صحيح مسلم، <https://sunnah.com/muslim>
18. الكبرى للنسائي، <https://hadithunlocked.com/nasai-kubra>
19. مستدرک الحاكم، <https://hadithunlocked.com/hakim>
20. مسند أحمد، <https://hadithunlocked.com/ahmad>
21. مسند أحمد، تحقيق: شعيب الأرنؤوط، مؤسسة الرسالة
<https://shamela.ws/book/25794>
22. مشكاة المصابيح، <https://sunnah.com/mishkat>
23. مصنف ابن أبي شيبة، تقديم وضبط: الحوت <https://shamela.ws/book/9944>
24. الكتاب: المغازي
المؤلف: محمد بن عمر بن واقد [الواقدي] (ت ٢٠٧ هـ)
تحقيق: د مارسدن جونس
الناشر: جامعة أكسفورد - لندن، ١٩٦٦ م
(وصورته دور نشر مثل دار الأعلمي، وعالم الكتب)
عدد الأجزاء: ٣ (متسلسلة الترقيم)
<https://shamela.ws/book/23680>
25. موطأ مالك، <https://sunnah.com/malik>

Arabic works

1. اجتماع الجيوش الإسلامية لابن القيم
<https://shamela.ws/book/18632/80>
2. الكتاب: ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب
 المؤلف: أبو حيان محمد بن يوسف بن علي بن يوسف بن حيان أثير الدين الأندلسي
 (ت ٧٤٥ هـ)
 تحقيق وشرح ودراسة: رجب عثمان محمد
 مراجعة: رمضان عبد التواب
 الناشر: مكتبة الخانجي بالقاهرة
 الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤١٨ هـ - ١٩٩٨ م
 عدد الأجزاء: ٥ (متسلسلة الترقيم)
<https://shamela.ws/book/16595>
3. الفصل: لاستشهاد بالحديث في اللغة لمحمد الخضر الحسين
 الكتاب: موسوعة الأعمال الكاملة للإمام محمد الخضر حسين
 المؤلف: الإمام محمد الخضر حسين (ت ١٣٧٧ هـ)
 جمعها وضبطها: المحامي علي الرضا الحسيني
 الناشر: دار النوادر، سوريا
 الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٣١ هـ - ٢٠١٠ م
 عدد الأجزاء: ١٥
<https://shamela.ws/book/14579>
4. استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني
5. أسرار العربية للأنباري
<https://shamela.ws/book/7502>
6. الكتاب: الأشباه والنظائر في في النحو المؤلف: جلال الدين عبد الرحمن السيوطي (ت ٩١١ هـ)
 الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية
<https://lib.eshia.ir/71585/1/2>
7. الأصول في النحو لابن السراج
<https://shamela.ws/book/7365>
8. إعراب القرآن للدرويش،
<https://tafsir.app>
9. إعراب القرآن للدعاس،
<https://tafsir.app>

10. الكتاب: الانتصار لسيبويه على المبرد
المؤلف: أبو العباس، أحمد بن محمد بن ولاد التميمي النحوي (ت ٣٣٢ هـ)
دراسة وتحقيق: د. زهير عبد المحسن سلطان
الناشر: مؤسسة الرسالة
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤١٦ هـ - ١٩٩٦ م
عدد الصفحات: ٢٧١
<https://shamela.ws/book/29555>
11. البسيط في شرح جُمَل الزجاجة ابن أبي الربيع
https://archive.org/details/0969/pdf_201912/
12. الكتاب: الجملة العربية تأليفها وأقسامها المؤلف: فاضل السامرائي
13. الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي، <https://tafsir.app>
14. الكتاب: القياس النحوي
المؤلف: لخالد حسين أبو عمشة
<https://ketabonline.com/ar/books/97698>
15. الكتاب: القياس في اللغة العربية
المؤلف: محمد الخضر حسين
الناشر: المطبعة السلفية، القاهرة
الطبعة: ١٣٥٣ هـ - ١٩٣٥ م
16. الكتاب: الإنصاف في مسائل الخلاف بين النحويين البصريين والكوفيين
المؤلف: كمال الدين، أبو البركات، عبد الرحمن بن محمد بن أبي سعيد الأنباري النحوي
(٥١٣ - ٥٧٧ هـ)
وبحاشيته: «الانتصاف من الإنصاف» لمحمد محيي الدين عبد الحميد [ت ١٣٩٢ هـ]
الناشر: المكتبة العصرية
الطبعة: الأولى ١٤٢٤ هـ - ٢٠٠٣ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٢
<https://shamela.ws/book/7362>
17. أوضح المسالك إلى ألفية ابن مالك لابن هشام
<https://shamela.ws/book/11825>
18. الكتاب: الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة
المؤلف: محمد بن عبد الرحمن بن عمر، أبو المعالي، جلال الدين القزويني الشافعي،
المعروف بخطيب دمشق (ت ٧٣٩ هـ)
المحقق: محمد عبد المنعم خفاجي
الناشر: دار الجيل - بيروت
الطبعة: الثالثة
عدد الأجزاء: ٣
<https://shamela.ws/book/7380>

19. الكتاب: الإيضاح العضدي
المؤلف: أبو علي الفارسي (٢٨٨ - ٣٧٧ هـ)
المحقق: د. حسن شاذلي فرهود (كلية الآداب - جامعة الرياض)
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٣٨٩ هـ - ١٩٦٩ م.
<https://shamela.ws/book/20961>
20. البحر المحيط، تأليف: أبو حيان، <https://tafsir.app>
21. المقالة: التأويل الزمني للجملة الشرطية في اللغة العربية
المؤلفون: عارف الدين عارف الدين، شمس الهادي، سوهاندانو سوهاندانو
الناشر: مجلة دراسات: العلوم الإنسانية والاجتماعية، الجامعة الأردنية، ٢٠٢٢
<https://doi.org/10.35516/hum.v49i3.1333>
22. التبيان في إعراب القرآن للعكبري
<https://shamela.ws/book/22928>
23. الكتاب: تحرير اسم الفاعل من مزاعم المجارة
المؤلف: د. حامد علي أبو صعييليك
الناشر: مجلة مجمع اللغة العربية الأردني، (ص 119 - 158)
<https://ketabonline.com/ar/books/105878>
24. الكتاب: تحقيق الكلام في المسائل الثلاث
[آثار عبد الرحمن بن يحيى المعلمي اليماني (٤)]
المؤلف: عبد الرحمن بن يحيى المعلمي اليماني (١٣١٣ - ١٣٨٦ هـ)
المحقق: علي بن محمد العمران - محمد عزيز شمس
راجعته: عبد الرحمن بن صالح السديس - سليمان بن عبد الله الغمير
الناشر: دار عالم الفوائد للنشر والتوزيع
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٣٤ هـ
<https://shamela.ws/book/328>
25. التذييل والتكميل في شرح كتاب التسهيل لأبي حيان الأندلسي
<https://shamela.ws/book/17116>
26. الكتاب: التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه
المؤلف: الحسن بن أحمد بن عبد الغفار الفارسي الأصل، أبو علي (ت ٣٧٧ هـ)
المحقق: د. عوض بن حمد القوزي (الأستاذ المشارك بكلية الآداب)
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤١٠ هـ - ١٩٩٠ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٦
<https://shamela.ws/book/13245>
27. تفسير ابن القيم، <https://tafsir.app>

28. تفسير ابن عثيمين، <https://tafsir.app>
29. تفسير التحرير والتنوير، تأليف: ابن عاشور، <https://tafsir.app>
30. تفسير الرازي، <https://tafsir.app>
31. تفسير الطبري، <https://tafsir.app>
32. الكتاب: شرح التسهيل المسمى «تمهيد القواعد بشرح تسهيل الفوائد»
المؤلف: محمد بن يوسف بن أحمد، محب الدين الحلبي ثم المصري، المعروف بناظر الجيش (ت ٧٧٨ هـ)
دراسة وتحقيق: أ. د. علي محمد فاخر وآخرون
الناشر: دار السلام للطباعة والنشر والتوزيع والترجمة، القاهرة - جمهورية مصر العربية
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٢٨ هـ
عدد الأجزاء: ١١ (متسلسلة الترتيم) (١٠ ومجلد للفهارس)
<https://shamela.ws/book/16826>
33. جامع الدروس العربية لمصطفى الغلاييني
<https://shamela.ws/book/6972>
34. الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي، <https://tafsir.app>
35. المقالة: جمع المصدر وأحكامه
المؤلف: عبد الله محمد عبد الله حيايني
الناشر: مجلة العلوم العربية، العدد ٧٥، ١٤٤٦ هـ، الجزء الثاني
<https://imamjournals.org/index.php/jas/article/view/3160>
36. الكتاب: الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب
المؤلف: أبو أوس إبراهيم الشمسان
الناشر: مطابع الدجوى عابدين
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٠١ هـ - ١٩٨١ م
<https://archive.org/details/aljomla-ashrtia.g>
37. الكتاب: الجنى الداني في حروف المعاني
المؤلف: أبو محمد بدر الدين حسن بن قاسم بن عبد الله بن علي المرادي المصري
المالكي (ت ٧٤٩ هـ)
المحقق: د فخر الدين قباوة - الأستاذ محمد نديم فاضل
الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية، بيروت - لبنان
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤١٣ هـ - ١٩٩٢ م
<https://shamela.ws/book/26099>
38. حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشموني لألفية ابن مالك
<https://shamela.ws/book/11539>

39. حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان
https://www.alukah.net/literature_language/0/173759
40. الخصائص لابن جني
<https://shamela.ws/book/9986>
41. دراسات في النحو، تأليف: صلاح الدين الزعبلوي،
<https://shamela.ws/book/2120>
42. الكتاب: دلالة سياق اسم الفاعل في الحديث النبوي الشريف صحيح مسلم أنموذجاً
 المؤلف: شادي محمد جميل عايش
 رسالة درجة الماجستير
 جامعة الشرق الأوسط
43. دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني
<https://shamela.ws/book/12055>
44. الغامدي، أحمد حسن. الرصائف: خزانة تراجم الإنجليز لكتب العرب. خزانة على الشبكة،
 ١٤٤٧هـ / ٢٠٢٦م. <https://ahmedhsalghamdi.github.io/arabic-english-rasaif-corpus/>
45. الكتاب: شرح ابن الناظم على ألفية ابن مالك
 المؤلف: بدر الدين محمد ابن الإمام جمال الدين محمد بن مالك (ت ٦٨٦ هـ)
 المحقق: محمد باسل عيون السود
 الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية
 الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٢٠ هـ - ٢٠٠٠ م
 عدد الصفحات: ٦٢١
<https://shamela.ws/book/18115>
46. شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية،
<https://shamela.ws/book/9904>
47. شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل،
<https://shamela.ws/book/13301>
48. الكتاب: شرح الأشموني على ألفية ابن مالك
 المؤلف: علي بن محمد بن عيسى، أبو الحسن، نور الدين الأشموني الشافعي (ت ٩٠٠ هـ)
 الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية بيروت- لبنان
 الطبعة: الأولى ١٤١٩ هـ - ١٩٩٨ م
 عدد الأجزاء: ٤
<https://shamela.ws/book/11742>

49. الكتاب: شرح تسهيل الفوائد
المؤلف: محمد بن عبد الله، ابن مالك الطائي الجياني، أبو عبد الله، جمال الدين (ت ٦٧٢ هـ)
المحقق: د. عبد الرحمن السيد - د. محمد بدوي المختون
الناشر: هجر للطباعة والنشر والتوزيع والإعلان
الطبعة: الأولى (١٤١٠ هـ - ١٩٩٠ م)
عدد الأجزاء: ٤
<https://shamela.ws/book/13257>
50. الكتاب: شرح التصريح على التوضيح أو التصريح بمضمون التوضيح في النحو
المؤلف: خالد بن عبد الله بن أبي بكر بن محمد الجرجاوي الأزهرى، زين الدين المصري، وكان يعرف بالوفاد (ت ٩٠٥ هـ)
الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية - بيروت - لبنان
الطبعة: الأولى ١٤٢١ هـ - ٢٠٠٠ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٢
<https://shamela.ws/book/9985>
51. شرح التصريح وحاشية ياسين
<https://archive.org/details/hmmt00291/>
52. شرح الرضي على الكافية، تأليف: الرضي الأستراباذي، تحقيق يوسف حسن عمر، جامعة قار يونس، ليبيا، 1395 هـ/1975 م
<https://ketabonline.com/ar/books/23090>
53. الكتاب: شرح الإمام الفارسي على ألفية ابن مالك
المؤلف: العلامة شمس الدين محمد الفارسي الحنبلي (ت ٩٨١ هـ)
المحقق: أبو الكميث، محمد مصطفى الخطيب
الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية، لبنان - بيروت
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٣٩ هـ - ٢٠١٨ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٤
<https://shamela.ws/book/174>
54. الكتاب: شرح ألفية ابن مالك
المؤلف: أبو عبد الله، أحمد بن عمر بن مساعد الحازمي
<https://shamela.ws/book/36130>
55. الكتاب: المقاصد الشافية في شرح الخلاصة الكافية (شرح ألفية ابن مالك)
المؤلف: أبو إسحق إبراهيم بن موسى الشاطبي (المتوفى ٧٩٠ هـ)
الناشر: معهد البحوث العلمية وإحياء التراث الإسلامي بجامعة أم القرى - مكة المكرمة
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٢٨ هـ - ٢٠٠٧ م.
عدد الأجزاء: ١٠ (الأخير فهارس)
<https://shamela.ws/book/20562>

56. الكتاب: شرح ألفية ابن مالك
المؤلف: محمد بن صالح بن محمد العثيمين (ت ١٤٢١هـ)
مصدر الكتاب: دروس صوتية قام بتفريغها موقع الشبكة الإسلامية
<http://www.islamweb.net>
<https://shamela.ws/book/36954>
57. الكتاب: شرح الكافية الشافية
المؤلف: جمال الدين أبو عبد الله محمد بن عبد الله بن مالك الطائي الجبائي
حقيقه وقدم له: عبد المنعم أحمد هريدي
الناشر: جامعة أم القرى مركز البحث العلمي وإحياء التراث الإسلامي كلية الشريعة
والدراسات الإسلامية مكة المكرمة
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٠٢ هـ - ١٩٨٢ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٥ (متسلسلة الترقيم) (الأخير فهارس)
<https://shamela.ws/book/12024>
58. الكتاب: شرح المقدمة المحسبة
المؤلف: طاهر بن أحمد بن بابشاذ (ت ٤٦٩ هـ)
المحقق: خالد عبد الكريم
الناشر: المطبعة العصرية - الكويت
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٩٧٧ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٢ (متسلسلة الترقيم)
<https://shamela.ws/book/18278>
59. الكتاب : شرح جمل الزجاجة تأليف : ابن عصفور الإشبيلي
60. الكتاب: شرح شذور الذهب في معرفة كلام العرب
المؤلف: شمس الدين محمد بن عبد المنعم بن محمد الجَوَّجَرِي القاهري الشافعي
(ت ٨٨٩ هـ)
المحقق: نواف بن جزاء الحارثي
أصل التحقيق: رسالة ماجستير للمحقق
الناشر: عمادة البحث العلمي بالجامعة الإسلامية، المدينة المنورة، المملكة العربية
السعودية
الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٢٣ هـ/ ٢٠٠٤ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٢
<https://shamela.ws/book/9134>
61. شرح قواعد الإعراب، تأليف: محمد بن مصطفى القُوجُوي المعروف بشيخ زاده
<https://shamela.ws/book/19236>
62. الكتاب: شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى
المؤلف: أبو محمد، عبد الله، جمال الدين بن هشام الأنصاري (ت ٧٦١ هـ)
المحقق: محمد محيي الدين عبد الحميد [ت ١٣٩٢ هـ]
الطبعة: الحادية عشرة للمحقق ١٣٨٣ هـ - ١٩٦٣ م ممتاز بدقة الضبط والزيادة في
الشروح والتحقيقات

- الناشر: المكتبة التجارية الكبرى بمصر
 طبع: مطبعة السعادة بمصر
 عدد الصفحات: ٣٣٥
<https://shamela.ws/book/6970>
63. الكتاب: شرح كتاب سيبويه [جزء من الكتاب (من باب الندبة إلى نهاية باب الأفعال) حَقَّق كرسالة دكتوراه]
 المؤلف: أبو الحسن علي بن عيسى الرمانى (٢٩٦ - ٣٨٤ هـ)
 أطروحة دكتوراة لـ: سيف بن عبد الرحمن بن ناصر العريفي
 إشراف: د تركي بن سهو العتيبي، الأستاذ المشارك في قسم النحو والصرف وفقه اللغة،
 كلية اللغة العربية، جامعة الإمام
 جامعة: الإمام محمد بن سعود الإسلامية - الرياض - المملكة العربية السعودية
 عام: ١٤١٨ هـ - ١٩٩٨ م
 عدد الصفحات: ١٠٧٣
<https://shamela.ws/book/18282>
64. الكتاب: شرح كتاب سيبويه
 المؤلف: أبو سعيد السيرافي الحسن بن عبد الله بن المرزبان (ت ٣٦٨ هـ)
 المحقق: أحمد حسن مهدي، علي سيد علي
 الناشر: دار الكتب العلمية، بيروت - لبنان
 الطبعة: الأولى، ٢٠٠٨ م
 عدد الأجزاء: ٥
<https://shamela.ws/book/17726>
65. الكتاب: شَوَاهِد التَّوْضِيحِ وَالتَّصْحِيحِ لمشكلات الجامع الصحيح
 المؤلف: محمد بن عبد الله، ابن مالك الطائي الجياني، أبو عبد الله، جمال الدين (ت ٦٧٢ هـ)
 المحقق: الدكتور طه مَحْسِن
 الناشر: مكتبة ابن تيمية
 الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٠٥ هـ
 عدد الصفحات: ٢٨٣
<https://shamela.ws/book/98123>
66. الكتاب: الضمير المستتر في الدرس النحوي
 المؤلف: سعود بن عبيد الله بن عابد الصاعدي
 رسالة دكتوراة
 جامعة أم القرى
 ١٤٣٠ هـ - ٢٠٠٩ م
67. الكتاب: العرنجية بلسان عربي هجين
 المؤلف: أحمد الغامدي الناشر: مؤسسة التكوين الطبعة: الأولى، ١٤٤٣ هـ - ٢٠٢١ م
https://archive.org/details/0_20240122_20240122_1346/page/n1/mode/2up

68. الكتاب: معجم المسائل النحوية والصرفية الواردة في القرآن الكريم
المؤلف: الدكتور ف. عبد الرحيم [فانيامبادي عبد الرحيم]
الناشر: مجمع الملك فهد لطباعة المصحف الشريف بالمدينة المنورة
الطبعة: الأولى
عدد الصفحات: ٣٥
<https://shamela.ws/book/11928>
69. المقالة: اقتران الفاء في جواب الشرط وعدمها في التعبير القراني المؤلفان: عناد مخلف
مهيش الهيتي، قصي جدوع رضا الهيتي publica
https://www.researchgate.net/publication/333642765_aqtran_alfa_fy_jwab_alshrt_wdmha_fy_altbyr_alqrany
70. القراءات العشر من الشاطبية والدرة --- دار الصحابة، <https://tafsir.app>
71. الكتاب: الكتاب
المؤلف: عمرو بن عثمان بن قنبر الحارثي بالولاء، أبو بشر، الملقب سيبويه (ت ١٨٠هـ)
المحقق: عبد السلام محمد هارون
الناشر: مكتبة الخانجي، القاهرة
الطبعة: الثالثة، ١٤٠٨ هـ - ١٩٨٨ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٤
<https://shamela.ws/book/23018>
72. الكشف للزمخشري، <https://tafsir.app>
73. الكليات، تأليف: أبو البقاء الكفوي <https://shamela.ws/book/7037>
74. مجموع مقالات الدكتور فيصل بن علي المنصور في علوم العربية، النسخة الأولى، ١٤٤٢ هـ.
<https://archive.org/details/riga2>
75. الكتاب: مختصر المعاني (مختصر لشرح تلخيص المفتاح)
المؤلف: سعد الدين مسعود بن عمر بن عبد الله التفتازاني الشافعي (المتوفى: 793 هـ)
الناشر: دار الفكر - قم
الطبعة: الأولى، 1411 هـ
<https://ketabonline.com/ar/books/16360>
76. الكتاب: المذكر والمؤنث
المؤلف: أبو بكر، محمد بن القاسم بن محمد بن بشار بن الحسن بن بيان بن سماعة
بن قروة بن قطن بن دعامة الأنباري (ت ٣٢٨ هـ)
المحقق: محمد عبد الخالق عزيمة
مراجعة: د. رمضان عبد التواب
الناشر: جمهورية مصر العربية - وزارة الأوقاف - المجلس الأعلى للشؤون الإسلامية -
لجنة إحياء التراث
سنة النشر: ١٤٠١ هـ - ١٩٨١ م
عدد الأجزاء: ٢
<https://shamela.ws/book/17819>

77. الكتاب: المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد
المؤلف: بهاء الدين بن عقيل
المحقق: د. محمد كامل بركات
الناشر: جامعة أم القرى (دار الفكر، دمشق - دار المدني، جدة)
الطبعة: الأولى، (١٤٠٠ - ١٤٠٥ هـ)
عدد الأجزاء: ٤
<https://shamela.ws/book/133358>
78. معاني القرآن للفراء، <https://tafsir.app>
79. معاني القرآن وإعرابه للزجاج <https://shamela.ws/book/922>
80. معاني النحو، تأليف: فاضل صالح السامرائي. الطبعة الثالثة، دار ابن كثير، 2022 م.
81. الكتاب: مغني اللبيب عن كتب الأعاريب
المؤلف: عبد الله بن يوسف بن أحمد بن عبد الله ابن يوسف، أبو محمد، جمال الدين، ابن هشام (المتوفى: 761 هـ)
المحقق: محمد محيي الدين عبد الحميد
الناشر: منشورات مكتبة الصادق للمطبوعات
عدد الأجزاء: ٢
<https://ketabonline.com/ar/books/57084>
82. مغني اللبيب عن كتب الأعاريب لابن هشام
<https://shamela.ws/book/6972>
83. المقتصد في شرح الإيضاح للجرجاني
https://archive.org/details/2271pdf_201912
84. المقتضب للمبرد، <https://shamela.ws/book/6965>
85. من الفرق بين بعد ومن بعد في اللفظ القرآني لعلي هاني
86. الكتاب: من تاريخ النحو العربي
المؤلف: سعيد بن محمد بن أحمد الأفغاني (ت ١٤١٧ هـ)
الناشر: مكتبة الفلاح
عدد الصفحات: ٢١٤
<https://shamela.ws/book/9937>
87. النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان، تأليف: فاضل صالح السامرائي. الطبعة الأولى، دار ابن كثير، 2014 م.

88. النحو الوافي، تأليف: عباس حسن، دار المعارف.
<https://shamela.ws/book/10641>
89. الكتاب: همع الهوامع في شرح جمع الجوامع
 المؤلف: عبد الرحمن بن أبي بكر، جلال الدين السيوطي (ت ٩١١هـ)
 المحقق: عبد الحميد هندأوي
 الناشر: المكتبة التوفيقية - مصر
 عدد الأجزاء: ٣
<https://shamela.ws/book/6975>
90. وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار فتحى زيدان
https://www.alukah.net/literature_language/0/173870
91. الكتاب: من تاريخ النحو العربي
 المؤلف: سعيد بن محمد بن أحمد الأفغاني (ت ١٤١٧هـ)
 الناشر: مكتبة الفلاح
<https://shamela.ws/book/9937>

Western works

1. Abdel-Ghani, A. A., *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition*, University of Leeds, PhD thesis, 1981. <https://etheses.whiterose.ac.uk/id/eprint/910/>
2. Alfraidi, T. R. K., *Conditional sentences in Modern Written Arabic*, University of Exeter, PhD thesis, 2017. <https://hdl.handle.net/10871/29279>
3. Aliane, H., "Contribution to a modern reading of Sibawayhi," in *The foundations of Arabic linguistics IV: The evolution of theory*, Brill 2019. <https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004389694>
4. Baalbaki, R., "Bāb al-fā' [fā' + subjunctive] in Arabic grammatical sources." Article XVII in *Grammarians and grammatical theory in the medieval Arabic tradition*, Routledge, 2004.
5. Baalbaki, R., "The book in the grammatical tradition: Development in content and methods." Article I in *Grammarians and grammatical theory in the medieval Arabic tradition*, Routledge, 2004.
6. Baalbaki, R., Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition*, Routledge, 2016.
7. Baalbaki, R., "Some aspects of harmony and hierarchy in Sibawayhi's grammatical analysis." Article II in *Grammarians and grammatical theory in the medieval Arabic tradition*, Routledge, 2004.
8. Baalbaki, R., "Teaching Arabic at university level: Problems of grammatical tradition." Article XVIII in *Grammarians and grammatical theory in the medieval Arabic tradition*, Routledge, 2004.
9. Brockelmann, C., *Grundriss der vergleichenden Grammatik der semitischen Sprachen*, Verlag von Reuther & Reichard, 1908–1913.

10. Cantarino, V., *Syntax of modern Arabic prose*, Indiana University Press, 1974–1975.
11. Carter, M. G., “Arabic grammar”. In: Young et al (eds.) *Religion, Learning and Science in the ‘Abbasid Period*. Cambridge University Press; 1990.
12. Carter, M. G., *Sibawayhi’s principles: Arabic grammar and law in early Islamic thought*. Lockwood Press, 2016.
13. Al-Dobaian, A. S. “A syntactic analysis of Arabic tense and aspect,” *Advances in language and literary studies*, 2018.
14. Fischer, W., *A grammar of Classical Arabic*, 3rd rev. ed., translated by J. Rodgers, Yale University Press, 2001.
15. Gätje, H., “Zur Struktur gestörter Konditionalgefüge im Arabischen,” in *Oriens*, vol. 25/26 (1976), pp. 148–186, <https://doi.org/10.2307/1580661>
16. Giolfo, M. E. B., “Real and unreal conditionals in Arabic grammar: From al-ʿAstarābādī to Sibawayhi”, in *The foundations of Arabic linguistics II*, Brill, 2015. https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004302662_007
17. Giolfo, M. E. B. and W. Hodges, “Conditionality: Syntax and meaning in al-Sīrāfi and Ibn Sīnā,” in *The foundations of Arabic linguistics IV: The evolution of theory*, Brill 2019. <https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004389694>
18. Hallberg, A., *Case endings in Spoken Standard Arabic*. Doctoral thesis, Lund University, 2016. <https://lup.lub.lu.se/record/8524489>
19. Haspelmath, M., “What do we mean by existential clause?” *Diversity Linguistics Comment*, 2021. <https://doi.org/10.58079/nswb>
20. Al-Jallad, A., “One wāw to rule them all: The origins and fate of wawation in Arabic and its orthography,” in: *Scripts and scripture: Writing and religion in Arabia circa 500–700 CE*, pp. 87–104. The Oriental Institute of the University of Chicago, 2022. <https://www.academia.edu/33017695>
21. Jamil, M., “Arabic rhetoric made simple” *Learn Arabic Online*. <https://www.learnarabiconline.com/arabic-rhetoric/ilm-ul-maani/>
22. Kasher, A., “The term *al-fiʿl al-mutaʿaddi bi-ḥarf jarr* (lit. “the verb which ‘passes over’ through a preposition”) in medieval Arabic grammatical tradition”, in *Journal of Arabic and Islamic Studies*, 13, pp. 115–145, 2013. <https://doi.org/10.5617/jais.4630>
23. Kinberg, N., “Semi-imperfectives and imperfectives: A case study of aspect and tense in Arabic participial clauses,” *Lingua* 86 (1992) pp. 301–330
24. Lane, E. W., *An Arabic-English Lexicon*, <https://ejtaal.net/aa>
25. Levin, A., “The theory of al-taqdir and its terminology.” In *Jerusalem Studies in Arabic and Islam*,. 21 (1997), p. 142-166.
26. Al-Liheibi, F. M. M., *Aspects of sentence analysis in the Arabic linguistic tradition, with particular reference to ellipsis*, Doctoral dissertation, Durham University, 1999. <https://etheses.dur.ac.uk/1494/>
27. Marmorstein, M., *Tense and text in Classical Arabic*, Brill, 2016. <https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004310483>
28. Al-Mubarakpuri, *Tafsir ibn Kathir* (abridged, English translation), Darus-salam, 2nd edition, 2003
29. Odilavadze, N., “Western scholars’ opinions on rendering the tense by means of the participle in Arabic”, *IBSU Scientific Journal* 2010, 4(1), 63-80.

- <https://journal.ibsu.edu.ge/index.php/ibsusj/article/download/143/120/0>
30. Owens, J. "Structure, class and dependency: Modern linguistic theory and the Arabic grammatical tradition," in *Lingua*, Volume 64, Issue 1, 1984, pp. 25–62, [https://doi.org/10.1016/0024-3841\(84\)90047-0](https://doi.org/10.1016/0024-3841(84)90047-0).
 31. Owens, J., *The foundations of grammar: An introduction to medieval Arabic grammatical theory*, John Benjamins Publishing, 1988.
 32. Owens, J., and M. Yavrumyan, "The participle" in *Encyclopedia of Arabic language and linguistics*, (2007) pp. 541-46, Brill.
 33. Pat-El, N., "Digging up archaic features: 'Neo-Arabic' and Comparative Semitic in the quest for Proto Arabic." In *Arabic in context*, pp. 441–475. Brill, Leiden, 2017
 34. Peled, Y., "On the obligatoriness of *fa-* in Classical Arabic 'in conditional sentences", *Journal of Semitic Studies*, Volume XXX, Issue 2, Autumn 1985, Pages 213–225. <https://doi.org/10.1093/jss/XXX.2.213>
 35. Peled, Y., *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic*, Otto Harrassowitz, 1992.
 36. Peled, Y., *Sentence types and word-order patterns in written Arabic: Medieval and modern perspectives*, Brill, 2008. <https://doi.org/10.1163/ej.9789004170629.i-250>
 37. van Putten, M., "The morphosyntax of objects to participles in the Qur'ān," *Journal of Semitic Studies* LXIX/1 Spring 2024 <https://doi.org/10.1093/jss/fgad029>
 38. van Putten, M., "When did *faṣiḥ* become *qabiḥ*? Rehabilitating classical phonological and morphological features", *Journal of Semitic Studies*, Volume 71, Issue 1, Spring 2026, pp. 201–242, <https://doi.org/10.1093/jss/fgaf033>
 39. Reckendorf, H., *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen*, Brill, 1898.
 40. Reckendorf, H., *Arabische syntax*, Heidelberg, 1921.
 41. Al-Saad, S., *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic: A general descriptive study*, PhD thesis, SOAS University of London, 2010. <https://doi.org/10.25501/SOAS.00028736>
 42. Sadan, A., *The subjunctive mood in Arabic grammatical thought*, Brill, 2012. <https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004234239>
 43. Sadan, A., "Sībawayhi's and later grammarians' usage of *ḥadīṭ*s as a grammatical tool," in *The foundations of Arabic linguistics II*, Brill, 2015. https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004302662_011
 44. Sadan, A., "Which verbal nouns can function as adverbial accusatives of state or condition (*ḥāl*) according to Sībawayhi and later grammarians?" in *The foundations of Arabic linguistics IV: The evolution of theory*, Brill 2019. <https://doi.org/10.1163/9789004389694>
 45. Al-Sharkawi, M., *History and development of the Arabic language: From pre-Islamic times to the age of conquests*, Routledge, 2017
 46. Suleiman, Y., *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'līl*. Edinburgh University Press, 1999.
 47. Talmon, R., "Musnad, musnad ilayhi and the early history of Arabic grammar: A reconsideration," *The Journal of the Royal Asiatic Society of Great*

- Britain and Ireland*, no. 2, 1987, pp. 208–22. <http://www.jstor.org/stable/25212149>
48. Versteegh, K., “Two conceptions of irreality in Arabic grammar: Ibn Hišām and Ibn al-Hāğib on the particle *law*,” *Bulletin d’études Orientales*, vol. 43, 1991, pp. 77–92. <http://www.jstor.org/stable/41608970>
 49. Versteegh, K., “The notion of ‘underlying levels’ in the Arabic grammatical tradition.” In *Historiographia Linguistica* 21, 1994, p. 271–296.
 50. Versteegh, K., *The Arabic language*, 2nd. ed., Edinburgh University Press, 2014.
 51. Waltisberg, M., *Satzkomplex und funktion: Syndese und asyndese im Althocharabischen*, Harrassowitz Verlag, 2009. <https://doi.org/10.2307/j.ctvbnm2b2>
 52. Weigelt, F., “The particle *la-* in Classical Arabic,” *Quaderni di studi Arabi*, 15(1-2), 67-108, 2020. <https://doi.org/10.1163/2667016X-15010202>
 53. Wilmsen, D., “Another Croft cycle in Arabic: The *laysa* negative existential cycle,” *Folia Orientalia*, 2016. <https://www.academia.edu/32873897>
 54. Wright, W., *A grammar of the Arabic language*, 3rd ed., Cambridge University Press, 1896–1898. <https://archive.org/details/AGrammarOfTheArabicLanguageV1>
 55. Youssef, Z., *Das partizip im Arabischen*, Ph.D. diss., University Erlangen-Nürnberg, 1990.
 56. Zarabozo, J. M., *How to approach and understand the Quran*, Al-Basheer Company, 1999.

Acknowledgements

We would like to thank:

- The forum members at <https://forum.wordreference.com/>
- Sh. Abo Malek Alawady for helpful clarification on some points of grammar.
- Dr Christopher Lucas for his helpful explanation and reference.
- Mufti Yusuf Mullan for his helpful reply and reference.
- Dr Ahmed Hasan al-Ghamdi for some much appreciated explanation.

Work in progress

Work in progress

Appendix A.

Rules for writing hamzah

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

A.1. Seats of hamzah

Hamzah is traditionally not considered a full letter in the 28-letter Arabic alphabet. Instead, it is written as a *diacritic* on top of the basic alphabetical script. As a diacritic, it is written in four different ways:

1. Seated on an alif: أ or إ
2. Seated on an wāw: و
3. Seated on an yā': ي
4. Unseated: ء

Here are some rules and examples of writing hamzah in the above four ways:

- When unseated hamzah comes between two letters that are joined, then it is written above the line that joins them, for example: خَطِيئَةٌ *khaṭi'ah*. In this word, the yā' ي joins to the tā' *marbūṭah* ة.

As a special case, when unseated hamza comes between joined lām and alif (لا), then it is positioned between them thus: لا. (In most cases, this is replaced with لآ as we will explain in the next point below.) And this is different from hamzah on the alif following the lām: لآ.

- When unseated hamzah is followed by an alif: ء, the combination of hamzah and alif is usually written as آ as a convention. Examples: آمَنَ *āmana*, ظَمَّانَ *ḡham'ān*, شَنَّانَ *shana'ān*. However, when the alif is a suffix or part of a suffix, or the hamzah is doubled, or there is an alif before the hamzah then we will write ء, not آ. Examples: شَيَّانٍ *shay'āni*, سَأَلَ *sa'al*, قَرَأَاتٍ *qirā'āt*.

- When hamzah is seated on alif, if it has an kasrah, it is written below the alif: اِ. Otherwise, it is written above the alif: اَ, اُ. See also Section A.2.3 for additional details when hamzah seated on alif occurs at the end of a word.
- When hamzah is seated on yā' يَ the dots of the yā' are no longer written.¹ Here's how it will appear in different positions:

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
ء	ئ	أ	أ

Note that hamzah is seated on yā' in the middle position أ is different from unseated hamzah between two joining letters أ.

So how do we know when to write hamzah unseated and when seated? And how do we choose between its three different seats? There are a set of rules that we need to follow in order to correctly write hamzah.

A.2. Rules for determining the seat of hamzah

We will first learn how to determine the seat of hamzah for a word without any prefix or suffix.

Hamzah can occur in three positions in a word:

1. At the beginning of the word
2. In the middle of the word
3. At the end of the word

We will treat each of these positions below.

A.2.1. Hamzah in the beginning of the word

When hamzah occurs in the beginning of a word, then:

- a. If the hamzah carries a long-ā vowel, it is written unseated followed by an alif and written as آ, for example آمَنَ āmana.
- b. If the hamzah carries any other vowel, it is written seated on an alif, and is marked with the appropriated vowel mark, for example أَسْلَمَ aslama, أُرِيدُ uridu, إِسْلَامَ islām, إِيمَانٍ imān, أَوْحَدَ ūkhiḍha.

¹But see also van Putten, "When did faṣiḥ become qabiḥ? Rehabilitating classical phonological and morphological features" 8–9 footnote 6

A.2.2. Hamzah in the middle of the word

Arabic has three short vowels, three long vowels, two semi-vowels, and a zero-vowel indicated by a sukūn ْ. Each of these has an order of precedence and a preferred spelling for hamzah. We have shown them in the table below:

Precedence	Vowel	Preferred hamzah
1.	ī/ay	ء
2.	i	ئ
3.	ū/aw	ء
4.	u	ؤ
5.	ā	ء
6.	a	أ
7.	– (◌ْ)	ء

Main rule: Disregard any shaddah ّ. Consider the vowel on the consonant before the hamzah and the vowel on the hamzah itself. Determine which of the two vowels wins by being higher in precedence in the above table. The winning vowel's seat will be the seat of the hamzah.

Exception: If the vowel ā wins, but it is written not as an alif but as a ئ, then the hamzah will be seated on an alif.

Examples:

Word	Vowel before hamzah	Vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
هَيْئَة hay'ah	ay	a	ay	ء
خَطِيئَة khaṭi'ah	i	a	i	ئ
اِسْتِيْآس isti'ās	ī	ā	ī	ء (Exception: آ is not written as ا when the preceding vowel is i.)
تَوَّءَم taw'am	aw	a	aw	ء
سَوَّءَة saw'ah	aw	a	aw	ء
مَوَّئِل maw'il	aw	i	i	ئ
سَآئِل sā'il	ā	i	i	ئ
تَسَآؤُل tasā'ul	ā	u	u	ؤ
تَسَآءَل tasā'ala	ā	a	ā	ء
قِرَآءَات qirā'āt	ā	ā	ā	ء
نَوَّآن nū'ānun	ū	ā	ū	ء

Word	Vowel before hamzah	Vowel on hamzah	Win- ning vowel	Seated hamzah
مَسْئُولٌ <i>mas'ul</i>	—	<i>ū</i>	<i>ū</i>	ء
تَرْيَسٌ <i>tar'is</i>	—	<i>ī</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
مِرْأَةٌ <i>mir'ah</i>	—	<i>ā</i>	<i>ā</i>	ء
ظَمَانٌ <i>ḡham'ān</i>	—	<i>ā</i>	<i>ā</i>	ء
مَسْأَلَةٌ <i>mas'alah</i>	—	<i>a</i>	<i>a</i>	أ
الْمِرْأَةُ <i>almar'ah</i>	—	<i>a</i>	<i>a</i>	أ
أَسْئَلَةٌ <i>as'ilah</i>	—	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
أَفْئِدَةٌ <i>af'idah</i>	—	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
بَيْسٌ <i>bi'sa</i>	<i>i</i>	—	<i>i</i>	ئ
أَبْوُسٌ <i>ab'us</i>	—	<i>u</i>	<i>u</i>	و
سُؤْلٌ <i>su'l</i>	<i>u</i>	—	<i>u</i>	و
كَأْسٌ <i>ka's</i>	<i>a</i>	—	<i>a</i>	أ
سُئِلَ <i>su'ila</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
يَأْسٌ <i>ya'isa</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
مُطْمَئِنَّ <i>mutma'inn</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
سُؤَالٌ <i>su'āl</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>u</i>	و
رَيْسٌ <i>ra'is</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
رُؤُوسٌ <i>ru'ūs</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>ū</i>	ء
شُؤْنٌ <i>shu'ūn</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>ū</i>	ء
رُؤُوفٌ <i>ra'ūf</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>ū</i>	ء
لُؤْيٍ <i>lu'ayy</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>u</i>	و
شَنَانٌ <i>shana'an</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>ā</i>	ء
سَأَلَ <i>sa'ala</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>a</i>	أ
رَأْسٌ <i>ra'asa</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>a</i>	أ
سَيِّئَةٌ <i>sayyi'ah</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
يُرَاسُ <i>yura'isu</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
رُؤْسٌ <i>ru'isa</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
تَفْؤُلٌ <i>tafa'ul</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>u</i>	و
سَأَلَ <i>sa'āl</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>ā</i>	ء

Word	Vowel before hamzah	Vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
لَّال <i>laʿāl</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>ā</i>	ء
رَائٍ <i>raʿā</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>ā</i>	أ (using exception)

A.2.3. Hamzah in the end of the word

When hamzah occurs at the end of a word, disregard the vowel on hamzah itself, and consider only the vowel on preceding consonant. Plug it into the precedence table as above to determine the seat of hamzah.

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Seated hamzah
دُعَاءُ <i>dueʿāʾu</i>	<i>ā</i>	ء
سُوءٌ <i>sūʾu</i>	<i>ū</i>	ء
جِيءَ <i>jīʾa</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
دَاوَا <i>dawʾa</i>	<i>aw</i>	ء
شَايَا <i>shayʾa</i>	<i>ay</i>	ء
بَطَأُ <i>buṭʾu</i>	—	ء
عَبَّ <i>ʿibʾu</i>	—	ء
شَطَأُ <i>shaṭʾu</i>	—	ء
يُهَدَّى <i>yuhaddiʾu</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
مُتَكَيِّ <i>muttakiʾa</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
سَيَّي <i>sayyiʾu</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
بَطَأُ <i>baṭuʾa</i>	<i>u</i>	ؤ
يَهْدَأُ <i>yahdaʾu</i>	<i>a</i>	أ
مُبْتَدَأٌ <i>mubtadaʾi</i>	<i>a</i>	إ

The exception to this rule is when the previous letter is a doubled wāw with an ḍammah. In this case the hamzah will again be unseated. Example تَبَوَّءُ *tabawwuʾu*.

Note also that *mubtada'i* مُبتدأ can be written with the hamzah below the alif because of the kasrah on the hamzah. But it is also common to write it as مُبتدأ *mubtada'*, especially when the hamzah is unvoveled.

A.3. With prefixes and suffixes

A.3.1. Prefixes

If hamzah is in the beginning of a word, adding a prefix to the word will not alter the writing of the hamzah. Hamzah will continue to be seated on an alif. Here are some examples of words with beginning hamzahs and prefixes.

Word without prefix	Prefix	Word with prefix
أُسْتَاذُ	ل	لأُسْتَاذُ
آخِرَةٌ	الْ	الْآخِرَةُ

A.3.2. Suffixes

If hamzah is at the end of a word, adding a suffix to the word can, in general, alter the writing of the hamzah. Hamzah is now, generally, treated as if it is in the middle of the word, and the rules for hamzah in the middle of a word apply. Examples:

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Shortened vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
بَرِيْثُونُ <i>bari'ūna</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
بَرِيْثَانُ <i>bari'āni</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
بَرِيْثِيْنَ <i>bari'īna</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
بَرِيْثِيْنَ <i>bari'ayni</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>ay</i>	<i>ī/ay</i>	ء
سَيِّتُ <i>sī'at</i>	<i>ī</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ī</i>	ء
شَيْهَ <i>shay'uhu</i>	<i>ay</i>	<i>u</i>	<i>ay</i>	ء
شَيْهَ <i>shay'ahu</i>	<i>ay</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>ay</i>	ء
شَيْهَ <i>shay'ihī</i>	<i>ay</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>ay</i>	ء
شَيْهَانُ <i>shay'āni</i>	<i>ay</i>	<i>ā</i>	<i>ay</i>	ء

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Shortened vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
شَيْئِينَ <i>shay'ayni</i>	ay	ay	ay	ء
مَجِيْهُ <i>majī'uhu</i>	ī	u	ī	ء
مَجِيْأَهُ <i>majī'ahu</i>	ī	a	ī	ء
مَجِيْإِيْهِ <i>majī'ihī</i>	ī	i	ī	ء
سُوْءِئِهِ <i>sū'ihī</i>	ū	i	i	ئ
دَوْءِئِهِ <i>ḍaw'ihī</i>	aw	i	i	ئ
يَسُوْءُوْنَ <i>yasū'ūna</i>	ū	ū	ū	ء
سُوْءُهُ <i>sū'uhu</i>	ū	u	ū	ء
سُوْءَاهُ <i>sū'ahu</i>	ū	a	ū	ء
سُوْءَانِ <i>sū'āni</i>	ū	ā	ū	ء
دَوْءَاهُ <i>ḍaw'ahu</i>	aw	a	aw	ء
دَوْءَانِ <i>ḍaw'āni</i>	aw	ā	aw	ء
مُرْجَاتٍ <i>murja'āt</i>	a	ā	ā	ء
كَخَاتِيْنَ <i>kḥātī'n</i>	i	ī	ī	ء
كَخَاسِيْنَ <i>kḥāsī'n</i>	i	ī	ī	ء
مُتَّكِيْنَ <i>muttaki'n</i>	i	ī	ī	ء
مُتَّكِيُوْنَ <i>muttaki'ūna</i>	i	ū	i	ئ
يُبَرِّئُوْنَ <i>yubarri'ūna</i>	i	ū	i	ئ
يُبَرِّرُوْنَ <i>yubarra'ūna</i>	a	ū	ū	ء
اقْرَءُوا <i>iqra'ū</i>	a	ū	ū	ء
سَيِّئَاتٍ <i>sayyi'āt</i>	i	ā	i	ئ
فَيَّاتٍ <i>fī'āt</i>	i	ā	i	ئ
فَيُّوْنَ <i>fī'ūn</i>	i	ū	i	ئ
مَيَّاتٍ <i>mī'āt</i>	i	ā	i	ئ
مَيُّوْنَ <i>mī'ūn</i>	i	ū	i	ئ
يُطْفِئُوا <i>yutfī'ū</i>	i	ū	i	ئ

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Shortened vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
مُسْتَهْزِئُونَ <i>mustahzi'ūn</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
مُنْشِئُونَ <i>munshi'ūn</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
يُضَاهِئُونَ <i>yudāhi'ūna</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ
مُرْجِئُونَ <i>murji'ūn</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>ū</i>	<i>i</i>	ئ

There are some exceptions:

- If the letter before the hamzah has a sukūn and is not wāw or yā', then the hamzah will be written unseated. Examples:

– جُزْءَانِ *juz'āni*

– عِبْأَانِ *ib'āni*

– عِبْأَيْنِ *ib'ayni*

– بَطْأُهُ *buṭ'ahu*

– بَطْأُهُ *buṭ'uhu*

– بَطْأِيهِ *buṭ'ihī*

(جُزْءَانِ, عِبْأَانِ, and عِبْأَيْنِ are suffixes.) Note that the combination لاء is not written as لآ when the alif is part of the suffix.

A.4. Tanwīn on final hamzah

Tanwīn on final hamzah only affects the writing of the hamzah in the case of a tanwīned fatḥah َ. When writing a tanwīned fatḥah َ on a hamzah at the end of a word:

1. If there is an alif before a unseated hamzah ا, then we don't add a silent alif when writing the tanwīned fatḥah َ. For example دَاءَ becomes دَاءً *dā'an*, not دَاءِ.
2. Otherwise, we add the silent alif after the hamzah so that the hamzah is now in the middle of the word with a suffix alif after it. We now pretend

that the hamzah has an fat-ḥah and that the alif after it is a long-ā vowel. Then we go through the rules for writing hamzah in the middle of a word (given above) to determine how hamzah will be written. We then write the tanwined fat-ḥah َ on the hamzah. Examples:

- مبتدأ becomes مَبْتَدَأْ، مَبْتَدِئًا، مَبْتَدِئاً
- ملجأ becomes مَلْجَأْ، مَلْجِئًا، مَلْجِئاً
- جزء becomes جُزْءْ، جُزْئًا، جُزْئاً
- شيء becomes شَيْءْ، شَيْئًا، شَيْئاً
- سيئ becomes سَيِّئْ، سَيِّئًا، سَيِّئاً

A.5. Variants

There are some historical and regional variants to the above rules. The main one is when the letter before hamzah has a sukūn, the hamzah is generally written unseated. So with this variant, we write:

- مَسْأَلَةٌ instead of مَسْأَلَةٌ
- أَفْتَدَةٌ instead of أَفْتَدَةٌ

However, this rule appears to be not consistently followed. For example, *nash'ah* is generally always written نَشَاءَةٌ never نَشْأَةٌ.

Another variant is that when an unsuffixed word has final hamzah and is followed by a suffix starting with long vowel, then the hamzah is written unseated. Examples:

- مُتَكَيِّفٌ *muttaki'ūn* instead of مُتَكَيِّفٌ
- يُطْفِئُوا *yutfi'ū* instead of يُطْفِئُوا
- مُسْتَهْزِئُونَ *mustahzi'ūn* instead of مُسْتَهْزِئُونَ
- مُنْشِئُونَ *munshi'ūn* instead of مُنْشِئُونَ
- يَضَاهِئُونَ *yudāhi'ūna* instead of يَضَاهِئُونَ
- مُرْجِئُونَ *murji'ūn* instead of مُرْجِئُونَ
- سَيِّئَاتٌ *sayyi'āt* instead of سَيِّئَاتٌ

Excepted from this variant are deficient words like:

- فِتْنٌ *fi'ūn*

- مِثُونٌ *miṭūn*

Another, more modern, variant is to modify the precedence rule of vowels. According to this modern variant, the vowel before hamzah is compared with the *shortened* vowel on the hamzah. This can result in some changes in the hamzah seat. For example:

- مَسْئُولٌ *mas'ul* instead of مَسْئُولٌ
- رُؤُوسٌ *ru'ūs* instead of رُؤُوسٌ
- رَأِيسٌ *ra'īs* instead of رَأِيسٌ
- أَقْرَأُوا *iqra'ū* instead of أَقْرَأُوا

Excepted from this variant is the combination *a'ā* which will continue to be written as أَ or آ. For example: مَرْجَأَاتٌ, شَنَاانٌ.

A.6. Why so complicated?

Hamzah was not always pronounced in some Classical Arabic dialects. For speakers of these dialects, when hamzah would occur in the middle of a word, they would usually replace it with a و, ي, or another vowel, depending on the surrounding vowels. So they would adjust their pronunciation as follows:

Pronunciation with hamzah	Pronunciation without hamzah
هَيْئَةٌ <i>hay'ah</i>	هَيَّةٌ <i>hayyah</i>
خَطِيئَةٌ <i>khaṭi'ah</i>	خَطِيَّاهُ <i>khaṭiyyah</i>
تَوَّءَمَ <i>taw'am</i>	تَوَّم <i>tawwam</i>
تَسَاوُلَ <i>tasā'ul</i>	تَسَاوُلَ <i>tasāwul</i>
بَيْسٌ <i>bi'sa</i>	بَيَسَ <i>bīsa</i>
سَوَّالَ <i>su'āl</i>	سَوَّالَ <i>suwāl</i>
سَوَّلَ <i>su'l</i>	سَوَّلَ <i>sūl</i>
كَاسٌ <i>ka's</i>	كَاسَ <i>kās</i>

When the Classical Standard Arabic variety emerged, then, for reasons that are beyond the scope of this text, the pronunciation *with* hamzah and the consonantal spelling *without* hamzah became standardized. So ء is now added as a diacritic on top of the various *seats* that would instead have been dialectally pronounced without hamzah.

A.7. Typographical limitations

Unfortunately, most digital fonts do not currently allow for correctly typing an unseated hamzah between two joined letters (ـَ), as in *ḵḥaṭīʿah*. In most fonts, the hamzah character (Unicode `u+0621`) will break the joining between the two letters surrounding it, and the output will be rendered incorrectly: *ḵḥaṭīʿah*.

Two fonts which allow for the correct typesetting are

- Amiri from Alif Type (amirifont.org)
- Naskh™ from DecoType (decotype.com)

We have used the Amiri font for typesetting this appendix chapter.

For most other fonts, an unseated hamzah between two joined letters would have to be approximated in one of two ways:

1. Hamzah seated on yāʾ: *ي*. Example: *ḵḥaṭīʿa*. This is a reprehensible, yet more prevalent, and better supported, approximation.

Beware, though, that this approximation would not allow for the correct rendering of a complex (but thankfully rare) word like *laʾāl* “pearl seller”, where the hamzah is not allowed to disturb the lām-alif ligature *لا*.

2. Hamzah superscript on a TATWEEL character: *ء*. Example: *ḵḥaṭīʿa*. The Unicode input sequence is:

```
u+0640 ARABIC TATWEEL
u+0654 ARABIC HAMZA ABOVE
```

This is a more accurate approximation, but some fonts may not position the hamzah correctly on the taṭwīl, or position vowel marks on the superscript hamzah correctly.

Kitab (github.com/nuqayah/kitab-font) is one font that uses this technique to correctly position the hamzah, for example: *ḵḥaṭīʿa*.

Unfortunately, with either of these techniques, the digital representation of the word will have extra Unicode characters (the *ي* and the TATWEEL) that are not technically part of the spelling of the word.

Work in progress

Appendix B.

Usage and style

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

MSA today is considerably influenced by poor translations from English into Arabic. This has resulted in a usage and style that is often far removed from SCA. This appendix aims to highlight some poor usages and styles that the learner would be advised to guard against. For more detailed works on this topic see the list of works in Section B.12 below.

B.1. Existential sentences

In English the plain existence of an indefinite subject is expressed using the word «there». For example:

- «There is a gloom in the house.»
- «There is a type of jealousy which is liked and [there is] a type of jealousy which is disliked.»
- «There are reasons.»
- «There is a god.»
- «Is there food?»

The word «there» in these examples does not indicate a specific place. Rather it signifies the existence of the subject of the sentence. This use of «there» is called the *existential* «there».¹

Expressing such sentences in Arabic can sometimes be tricky. There is a modern tendency to use the adverb of place هُنَاكَ and the passive verb يُوجَدُ. So one might find:

- (1) هُنَاكَ حَزَنٌ فِي الْبَيْتِ or
يُوجَدُ حَزَنٌ فِي الْبَيْتِ
«There is a gloom in the house.»

¹See also Haspelmath, “What do we mean by existential clause?”

- (2) هناك غيرة تستحب وهناك غيرة تكره or
توجد غيرة تستحب وتوجد غيرة تكره
«There is a type of jealousy which is liked and there is a type of jealousy which is disliked.»
- (3) هُناك أسباب or
تُوجد أسباب
«There are reasons.»
- (4) هناك إله or
يوجد إله
«There is a god.»
- (5) هل هناك طعام or
هل يوجد طعام
«Is there food?»

Sometimes in place of هُناك, its synonyms تَمَّ or ثَمَّة is used.

This usage of هُناك and يُوجد is not preferred for SCA. Instead, there here are various strategies for expressing such sentences. We will discuss them below.

B.1.1. Using or manufacturing scope

If, for example, there is a prepositional or adverbial phrase then it can readily be used as a info that precedes the subject. For example:

- (2) فِي الْبَيْتِ حَزَنٌ.
«In the house is gloom.»

Sometimes, a prepositional or adverbial phrase is not original, but can readily be manufactured. For example, in the sentence, «There are reasons» the reasons must be for something, and that something can be used as a info:

- (3) لِلْأَمْرِ أَسْبَابٌ.
«There are reasons for the situation.»

B.1.2. Using or manufacturing an introductory sentence

Similarly, a introductory sentence, prepositional or adverbial phrase can be manufactured to pave the way for the main sentence. For example:

- (4) [1996: سنن ابن ماجه] مِنَ الْغَيْرَةِ مَا يُحِبُّ اللَّهُ وَمِنْهَا مَا يَكْرَهُ اللَّهُ
«There is a kind of jealousy what Allāh loves, and a kind that Allāh dislikes.»
- (5) الْفَجْرُ فَجْرَانِ فَجْرٌ يَحْرُمُ فِيهِ الطَّعَامُ وَتَحِلُّ فِيهِ الصَّلَاةُ وَفَجْرٌ تَحْرُمُ فِيهِ الصَّلَاةُ وَيَحِلُّ فِيهِ الطَّعَامُ [687: مستدرك الحاكم]
«There are two dawns: a dawn in which food is forbidden while prayer becomes permissible, and a dawn in which prayer is forbidden while food becomes permissible.»

B.1.3. Using a pointing noun

A pointing noun, like هَذَا, can sometimes be used when English would use « there is » to offer an option. For example:

- (5) فقال: أرى أن تنزل القرية، قَالَ: أكرهها، قَالَ: فهذا الهزيم. قَالَ: أكره اسمه، قَالَ: فهذا
[خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن 7/244 accessed via تاريخ الطبري] البخراء، قصر النعمان بن بشير
[الغامدي]
«So he said, "I think that you should stop at a settlement." He said, "I dislike [doing so]." He said, "Then there is al-Hazīm." He said, "I dislike its name." He said, "Then there is al-Bakhrā', the palace of al-Nu'mān ibn Bāshīr. »

B.1.4. Using a suitable verbal expression

For example:

- (6) وَأُخْتَلِفَ فِيمَنْ حَجَّ بِالنَّاسِ فِي هَذِهِ السَّنَةِ [خزانة الرصائف 4/249 accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
[لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
« There is a disagreement regarding who led the Hajj in this year. »
- (7) فَإِنْ فَضِّلَ فَضْلٌ نَقَلْتَهُ إِلَى الْبَلَدِ الَّذِي يَلِيهِ، مِمَّنْ هُوَ أَحْوَجُ إِلَيْهِ [7/269 accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
[خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
« If there is any surplus, I will transfer it to the country next to it that is in more need of it. »

B.1.5. Using an interjection

Sometimes it hard to come up with any of the above solutions, as in the sentence: « There is a god. » Such sentences, if they are able to be converted to an interjection, may be expressed with the subject itself as a one word sentence²:

- (7) إِلَهٌ
« [There is] a god! »
- (8) أَمِيرَانِ هَلَكَ الْقَوْمُ [cited by Brockelmann, *Grundriss der vergleichenden Grammatik der semitischen Sprachen* 2/6]
« [There are] two commanders?! The people are destroyed! »

Consider also this example:

- (8) [178: صحيح مسلم] سَأَلْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ هَلْ رَأَيْتَ رَبَّكَ قَالَ نُوْرٌ أَنَّى أَرَاهُ

The statement نُوْرٌ أَنَّى أَرَاهُ has been explained by Ibn Taymiyyah with the following wording³:

²Cantarino, *Syntax of modern Arabic prose* 1/5 citing Brockelmann, *Grundriss der vergleichenden Grammatik der semitischen Sprachen* 2/35

³21 اجتماع الجيوش الإسلامية لابن القيم

كَانَ نَمَّ نُورٌ ، أَوْ خَالَ دُونَ رُؤْيَيْهِ نُورٌ فَأَتَى أَرَاهُ.

«There was light, or light came between [my] seeing Him, so how could I see Him?»

This solution should only be considered if the sentence makes sense as an interjection, and can not be used as a blanket solution. For example, the question:

«Is there food?»

can be expressed in Arabic, not as an interjection, but as:

(9) هَلْ مِنْ غَدَاءٍ [صحيح مسلم: 2052d]

«Is there any food?»

Similarly:

(10) هَلْ مِنْ مُسْتَغْفِرٍ هَلْ مِنْ تَائِبٍ هَلْ مِنْ سَائِلٍ هَلْ مِنْ دَاعٍ [صحيح مسلم: 758e]

«Is there one seeking forgiveness? Is there a penitent? Is there an asker? Is there a caller?»

B.1.6. Negative existential sentences

For a negative existential sentence, we can conveniently use *لَيْسَ* and *مَا*, *لَا*. For example:

(11) لَا أَمَلٌ

«There is no hope.»

(12) 171 العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي] مَا فِي الْمَحْفَظَةِ رِيَالٌ

«There are no riyāls in the wallet.»

(13) 171 العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي] فَلَانِ مَا بِقَلْبِهِ رَحْمَةٌ

«There is no mercy in so-and-so's heart.»

(14) يَا أُمَّ سَلَمَةَ إِنَّهُ لَيْسَ آدَمِيٌّ إِلَّا وَقَلْبُهُ بَيْنَ أَصْبُعَيْنِ مِنْ أَصَابِعِ اللَّهِ فَمَنْ شَاءَ أَقَامَ وَمَنْ شَاءَ أَزَاغَ

[جامع الترمذي: 3522]

«O Umm Salamah, indeed **there is no human** except that his heart is between two fingers from the fingers of Allāh. Whomsoever He wills He makes steadfast. And whomsoever he wills, he causes to deviate.»

B.1.7. Using *كَانَ* to express the existential

As we know, *يَكُونُ* is not normally used as the equivalent of the English «is». But *كَانَ* is used for «was» with no problem. This helps us solve the problem of expressing the existential for the past tense. For example:

(12) كَانَ مَلِكٌ

«There was a king.»

This uses the sufficient *كَانَ*. (See Section 31.14).

كَانَ and يَكُنْ can also be used to express the existential in conditional sentences and similar sentences, where the tense is determined from context. For example:

- (13) خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن [3/269 تاريخ الطبري] وإن كَانَ ملك فالملك ملككم [الغامدي]
«And if **there is** [to be] any sovereignty it shall be yours.»
- (14) خزانة الرصائف [3/107 تاريخ الطبري] دَعُوهُ، فَإِنْ يَكُ فِيهِ خَيْرٌ فَسَيُلْحِقْهُ اللَّهُ بِكُمْ [لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
«Leave him be, for if **there is** any good in him, then Allāh will join him to you.»
- (15) صحيح [فَوَاللَّهِ لَقَلَّمَا كَانَتْ امْرَأَةٌ قَطُّ وَضِيئَةٌ عِنْدَ رَجُلٍ يُحِبُّهَا وَلَهَا صَرَائِرٌ إِلَّا كَثُرْنَ عَلَيْهَا 2770a] مسلم
«Rarely **is there** a woman at all, fair to a man who loves her, and she has co-wives, except that they say much against her.»

B.1.8. Legitimate use of هُنَاكَ, ثُمَّ and بُوجَدُ

If, of course, a place is intended by «there» then there is no problem using هُنَاكَ or its synonyms. We show below some examples that use هُنَاكَ and ثُمَّ. It would appear that they are still locatives, though there may sometimes be a suggestion of the existential.

One technique you can use to determine whether هُنَاكَ or ثُمَّ are appropriate, is to substitute الْمَكَانِ فِي هَذَا/ذَلِكَ in place of it and see if the sentence is still valid.

Here are the examples:

- (14) كُنَّا نَادِينَ بِالصَّبَاحِ وَهُنَاكَ عَبْدُ اللَّهِ بْنُ عَمْرٍو وَكَانَ هُنَاكَ امْرَأَةٌ مِنْ بَنِي الْمُغِيرَةِ يُقَالُ لَهَا [8461: مستدرک الحاكم] فَاطِمَةُ فَسَمِعْتُ عَبْدَ اللَّهِ بْنَ عَمْرٍو يَقُولُ «ذَلِكَ يَزِيدُ بْنُ مُعَاوِيَةَ»
«We used to meet socially in the morning and Eabd Allāh ibn ʿAmr would be there. And there was a woman there from Banū al-Mughīrah called Fāṭimah. And she heard Eabd Allāh ibn ʿAmr saying, “That is Yazīd ibn Muʿāwiyah.”»
- (15) خَرَجَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فِي طَائِفَةِ النَّهَارِ لَا يُكَلِّمُنِي وَلَا أَكَلِمُهُ حَتَّى أَتَى سُوقَ بَنِي قَيْنُقَاعَ، فَجَلَسَ بِفَنَاءِ بَيْتِ فَاطِمَةَ فَقَالَ أَلَمْ لَكُغْ أَنْتُمْ لَكُغْ [2122: صحيح البخاري]
«The Prophet ﷺ went out during the day, neither he talking to me nor I talking to him, until he came to the market of Banū Qaynuqāʿ. He then sat in the courtyard of Fāṭimah’s house and said, “Is the little chap there? Is the little chap there?”»
- (16) جَلَبْتُ أَنَا وَمَخْرَمَةُ الْعَبْدِيِّ بَرًّا مِنْ هَجَرَ فَأَتَيْنَا بِهِ مَكَّةَ فَجَاءَنَا رَسُولُ اللَّهِ ﷺ يَمْشِي فَسَاوَمَنَا [3336: سنن أبي داود] بِسَرَائِيلَ فَبِعْنَاهُ وَثَمَّ رَجُلٌ يَزِنُ بِالْأَجْرِ فَقَالَ لَهُ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ ﷺ زِنْ وَأَرْجِ
«I and Makhramah al-ʿAbdī imported some garments from Hajar, and brought them to Mecca. The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ came to us walking,

and after he had bargained with us for some trousers, we sold them to him. **There** was a man who was weighing for payment. The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ said to him, “Weigh out and give overweight.”»

- (17) [مسند أحمد: 26809] كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ إِذَا سَجَدَ وَتَمَّ بِهِمَّةً أَرَادَتْ أَنْ تَمُرَّ بَيْنَ يَدَيْهِ تَجَافَى
«When the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ used to prostrate, and **there** was a lamb that wanted to pass in front of him, he would have his arms to the side.»
- (18) رَأَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ يَزِمِي الْجِمَارَ عَلَى نَاقَةٍ صَهْبَاءَ لَيْسَ تَمَّ ضَرْبٌ وَلَا طَرْدٌ وَلَا إِلَيْكَ إِلَيْكَ
[سنن الدارمي: 1942]
«I saw the Prophet ﷺ stone the Pillar, on the Day of Sacrifice, from atop a reddish-brown camel of his; and **there** wasn't any beating or driving them off or [telling them to] go away.»
- (19) أَنْ رَكَبَا وَقَفُوا عَلَى عُثْمَانَ بْنِ عَفَّانَ فَمَدَّحُوهُ وَأَتْنُوهُ عَلَيْهِ وَتَمَّ الْمِقْدَادُ بْنُ الْأَسْوَدِ فَأَخَذَ
[مسند أحمد: 23826] قَبْضَةً مِنَ الْأَرْضِ فَحَنَّاها فِي وُجُوهِ الرُّكَبِ
«... that a group of riders stopped by Euthmān ibn ʿAffān and praised him. And al-Miqdād ibn al-ʿAswad **was there**. So he took a handful [of dirt] from the ground and threw it in the faces of the riders.»

Similarly, يُوجَدُ may be used with no problem if the meaning «is (to be) found» is intended. For example:

- (15) صَحِيحٌ مَنْ قَتَلَ مُعَاهِدًا لَمْ يَرَحْ رَائِحَةَ الْجَنَّةِ، وَإِنْ رِيحَهَا تُوْجَدُ مِنْ مَسِيرَةِ أَرْبَعِينَ عَامًا
[البخاري: 3166]
«Whoever killed a person having a treaty with the Muslims, shall not smell the smell of Paradise though its smell is **perceived** from a distance of forty years.»

B.1.9. Use of existential هُنَاكَ

Some researchers have found هُنَاكَ rarely being used existentially in older works not influenced by European languages. For example:

- (16) وَقَالَ الْكُوفِيُّونَ مِنْ أَصْحَابِ الرَّأْيِ الْوُضُوءُ وَالْعُسْلُ جَائِزَانِ وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْ هُنَاكَ بَيَّةٌ
[170] العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي (d. 224 AH) p. 200 cited by الطهور (ت مشهور) لأبي عبيد القاسم بن سلام
- (17) **وهناك** خيانات في صلب الملك، أو في بعض الحرم، فلا يستطيع الملك أن يكشف
للعامّة موضع العورة في الملك
[170] العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي (d. 255 AH) p. 3/246 cited by البيان والتبيين للجاحظ

Further research would be required to establish whether this usage is original, or a later addition by a copyist.

B.1.10. Technical and scientific use of يَوْجَدُ

Our above directive to avoid the use of يَوْجَدُ to mean «there is» holds for normal sentences. Sometimes, however, a more technical meaning of «exists» is intended, especially in the language of science. In this case, يَوْجَدُ and its doer participle موجود may be used when needing to discuss the existence of something in a scientific text. But such usage should be restricted to its domain, and should not, ideally, spill over to normal sentences, where a simple «there is» is intended.

By the way, the disused verb أَيْسَ «to be», (theorized, along with لَا, to be the origin of the verb لَيْسَ⁴) is also used to express the existence of an object in philosophical works.

B.2. Pronoun of separation after question nouns

In later writing we find the following forms:

(17) مَنْ هِيَ زَيْنَبُ؟
«Who is Zaynab?»

(18) مَا هُوَ الْإِسْلَامُ؟
«What is Islām?»

(19) لِمَاذَا هُوَ حَزِينٌ؟
«Why is he sad?»

The insertion of the pronoun of separation (هُوَ, هِيَ, etc.) after question nouns is best avoided. So it is better to say:

(18) مَنْ زَيْنَبُ؟
«Who is Zaynab?»

(19) مَا الْإِسْلَامُ؟
«What is Islām?»

As for «why» sentences, Arabic has a native expression using مَا لِ followed by a noun or pronoun in the i-case and then an adjective in the a-case. For example:

(19) مَا لَهُ حَزِينًا؟
«Why is he sad?»

Another option, that is sometimes possible, is to convert the «why» question into a «what» question, thus:

(20) مَا أَحْزَنَتْهُ
«Why is he sad?» (literally: What has made him sad?)

⁴Wilmsen, „Another Croft cycle in Arabic: The *laysa* negative existential cycle,” 329–331; Wright 1/96C

B.3. « What happened to ... »

When asking the question, « What happened to a person/thing? » the verbs **فَعَلَ** and **صَنَعَ** are used and the person or thing asked about is made the doer. For example:

- (21) **يَا أَبَا عُمَيْرٍ مَا فَعَلَ النَّعِيرُ**
[6129: صحيح البخاري]
« What happened to the sparrow? »
- (22) **ما فعل أصحابك**
[30: رياض الصالحين]
« What happened to your companions? »
- (23) **مَا فَعَلَتِ الرِّيطَةُ**
[3603: سنن ابن ماجه]
« What happened to the thin cloak? »
- (24) **فَيَسْأَلُونَهُ مَاذَا فَعَلَ فُلَانٌ مَاذَا فَعَلَ فُلَانٌ**
[1833: سنن النسائي]
« So they ask him: What happened to so-and-so? What happened to so-and-so? »

B.4. « About »

The word « about » is often indiscriminately translated as **عَنْ**. **عَنْ** can be used as such. But more care is required.

عَنْ is normally with the verb **سَأَلَ**. For example:

- (22) **سَأَلَهُ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.**
« He asked him about a matter. »

عَنْ can also sometimes be used generically. For example:

- (23) **مَا هَذَا الَّذِي يَذْكُرُونَ عَنْ الْحَسَنِ**
[4621: سنن أبي داود]
« What is this that they are mentioning **about** al-Ḥasan? »
- (24) **خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via [فأخبره عنهم]**
« So he informed him **about** them. »
- (25) **خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via [بلغني أشياء عن الحرشي]**
« Certain things have reached me **about** al-Ḥarashī. »

Usually, though, the preposition depends on the verb used. For example:

- (24) **خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via [فسأله عن دينه فأخبره به]**
« He asked him **about** his religion and he told him **about** it. »

- (25) [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via الطبري] وَكَانَ عَالِمًا بِأَمْرِ طَلِيحَةَ
«He was knowledgeable about the affairs of Tulayḥah.»
- (26) [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via الطبري] فَاكْتُبْ إِلَيَّ بِالْأَمْرِ عَلَى وَجْهِهِ لِأَخْبِرَ بِهِ أَمِيرَ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ
[لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
«So write to me **about the matter** properly, so that I may inform the Commander of the Faithful **about it**.»
- (27) [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via الطبري] قَدْ قِيلَ فِي ذَلِكَ أَقْوَالٌ
«[Sundry] statements have been given **about that**.»
- (28) [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via الطبري] وَاخْتَلَفُوا فِي أَمْرِهِ
«[Authorities] have differed **about his affair**.»

B.5. «What about ...»

Avoid مَاذَا عَنْ when asking «What about someone/something?»

Instead use مَا بَالُ.

For example:

- (25) حَتَّى إِذَا فَرَغَ مَشَيْتُ، فَقُلْتُ مَا بَالُ الْعَظَمِ وَالرَّوْتَةِ
[3860: صحيح البخاري]
- (26) إِذَا تَوَاجَهَ الْمُسْلِمَانِ بِسَيْفَيْهِمَا فَكِلَاهُمَا مِنْ أَهْلِ النَّارِ . قِيلَ فَهَذَا الْقَاتِلُ، فَمَا بَالُ الْمَقْتُولِ
[7083: صحيح البخاري]
- (27) عَنْ عَائِشَةَ، أَنَّهَا قَالَتْ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ مَا الشَّيْءُ الَّذِي لَا يَجِلُّ مَنْعُهُ قَالَ الْمَاءُ وَالْمِلْحُ وَالنَّارُ
" . قَالَتْ قُلْتُ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ هَذَا الْمَاءُ قَدْ عَرَفْنَاهُ فَمَا بَالُ الْمِلْحِ وَالنَّارِ
[2474: سنن ابن ماجه]

When the question «What about ...?» is asked as a follow-up to a previous statement then the asked about person/thing can be asked by itself in a single word. For example:

- (26) عَنْ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ أَنَّهُ نَهَى أَنْ يَشْرَبَ الرَّجُلُ قَائِمًا . فَتَادَهُ فَقُلْنَا فَاَلْأَكْلُ فَقَالَ
[2024b: صحيح مسلم] ذَلِكَ أَشْرُّ أَوْ أَحَبُّتُهُ
«“What about eating?”»
- (27) قَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ لِلْمُتَلَاعِنَيْنِ جَسَائِكُمَا عَلَى اللَّهِ أَحَدُكُمَا كَاذِبٌ لَا سَبِيلَ لَكَ عَلَيْهَا قَالَ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ مَالِي
[2257: سنن أبي داود]
«“What about my wealth?”»

B.6. To make someone do something

In order to express the meaning: to make someone do something, we have a few options:

1. To use a causative verb, like form 4, if one is available with this meaning⁵. For example:

(27) [2/104] المقتضب للمبرد] أَدَخَلْتُهُ الدَّارَ

2. To use the expression حَمَلَهُ عَلَى أَنْ يَفْعَلَ or حَمَلَهُ عَلَى الْفَعْلِ. For example

(28) [1/37] التبيان في إعراب القرآن للعكبري] وَقَالُوا شَيْئًا ; أَيِ حَمَلْتُهُ عَلَى أَنْ يَشَاءَ

(29) [عجل root المصباح المنير للفيومي] وَأَعْجَلْتُهُ بِالْأَلْفِ حَمَلْتُهُ عَلَى أَنْ يَعْجَلَ

This expressions is especially common in questions like «What made you ...?» For example:

(29) [2221: سنن أبي داود] مَا حَمَلَكَ عَلَى مَا صَنَعْتَ

3. To use the verb جَعَلَ. This isn't as preferred as the other options above. For example:

(30) [2/104] المقتضب للمبرد] جَعَلْتُهُ يَدْخُلُهَا

B.7. To leave a place

In English, the verb «to leave» is used to mean «to depart». In Arabic, the verb تَرَكَ should not be used with this meaning unless the intended meaning is to abandon the place. Nor should the verb غَادَرَ be used with this meaning, because it means «to leave (s.th.) out». Instead Arabic has a variety of verbs that can be used, sometimes interchangeably and sometimes depending on the exact meaning required. Some (out of many) of these verbs are:

- خَرَجَ «to exit»

(31) كَانَ إِذَا خَرَجَ مِنْ بَيْتِهِ قَالَ بِسْمِ اللَّهِ، التَّكْلَانُ عَلَى اللَّهِ، لَا حَوْلَ وَلَا قُوَّةَ إِلَّا بِاللَّهِ [1197: الأدب المفرد]

«When he would leave his house, he would say, “In the name of Allāh. Reliance is on Allāh. There is no power or strength except by Allāh.”»

- انْصَرَفَ «to turn around»

(32) [1462: صحيح البخاري] ثُمَّ انْصَرَفَ

«Then he left.»

- بَرِحَ «to depart»

⁵ 65 العرنجبة لأحمد الغامدي

- (33) فَقَالَ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ فَكَيْفَ فِيَّ وَأَنَا أَعْمَى قَالَ فَمَا بَرِحَ حَتَّى نَزَلَتْ غَيْرُ أُولَى الصَّرِيرِ [3102: سنن النسائي]
 «He said, “O Messenger of Allāh, how about me whereas I am blind?”
 And so he did not leave until [the āyah] “other than the disabled”
 [4:95 سورة النساء] was revealed. »

• انْحَرَفَ «to turn away»

- (34) ثُمَّ انْحَرَفَ فَأَنْحَرَفْتُ [3964: سنن النسائي]
 «Then he left and I left. »

B.8. To bring something

Arabic has no commonly used verb which is the direct equivalent of «to bring». Avoid using verbs أَحْضَرَ and جَلَبَ as common equivalents of the simple verb «to bring». These are legitimate verbs but they have their own specific meanings and are nowhere near as common as أتى بـ and جاء بـ when the simple meaning of «to bring» is intended.

Instead, one may use the verbs أتى and جاء «to come» with the preposition بـ. For example:

- (35) صحيح البخاري [5468: صحيح البخاري] أُتِيَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ بِصَبِيٍّ
 «A baby was brought to the Prophet ﷺ.»
- (36) 224: صحيح البخاري] ثُمَّ دَعَا بِمَاءٍ، فَجِئْتُهُ بِمَاءٍ فَتَوَضَّأَ
 «Then he called for water. So I brought him some water and he performed ablution. »

When bringing something in a particular direction, other, more specific, verbs may be used similarly. For example:

- (36) ثُمَّ مَسَحَ رَأْسَهُ بِيَدَيْهِ، فَأَقْبَلَ بِهِمَا وَأَذْبَرَ، بَدَأَ بِمُقَدِّمِ رَأْسِهِ، حَتَّى ذَهَبَ بِهِمَا إِلَى قَفَاهُ، ثُمَّ رَدَّهُمَا إِلَى الْمَكَانِ الَّذِي بَدَأَ مِنْهُ [185: صحيح البخاري]
 «Then he wiped his head with his hands, so he brought them forwards and backwards. He started with the front part of he head until he took them to the nape of his neck, then he brought them back to the place that he had started from. »

When bringing something out, the verb أَخْرَجَ or خَرَجَ are used. For example:

- (37) صحيح البخاري] أَتَى رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فَأَخْرَجْنَا لَهُ مَاءً فِي تَوْرٍ مِنْ صُفْرِ فَتَوَضَّأَ [197]
 «Once Allāh's Messenger ﷺ came to us and we brought out water for him in a brass pot. He performed ablution. »
- (38) 5858: صحيح البخاري] خَرَجَ إِلَيْنَا أَنْسُ بْنُ مَالِكٍ بِنَعْلَيْنِ لُهُمَا قَبَالَانِ
 «Anas ibn Mālik brought out for us, two sandals having two straps. »

B.9. To take someone/something somewhere

Arabic has the verb أَخَذَ which means «to take». But this verb is not typically used when the meaning of «to take someone/something somewhere» is intended. Instead, the verb/preposition combination بِ دَهَبَ is used. For example:

- (38) [3541: صحيح البخاري] دَهَبَتْ بِي خَالَتِي إِلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ
 «My aunt took me to Messenger of Allāh ﷺ.»

Other verbs besides دَهَبَ may similarly be used. For example:

- (39) [6911: صحيح البخاري] أَخَذَ أَبُو طَلْحَةَ بِيَدِي فَأَنْطَلَقَ بِي إِلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ
 «Abū Ṭalḥah took my hand and took me to the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ.»

The doer need not actually be *going* anywhere when using this verb. For example:

- (40) ثُمَّ مَسَحَ رَأْسَهُ بِيَدَيْهِ، فَأَقْبَلَ بِهِمَا وَأَدْبَرَ، بَدَأَ بِمَقْدَمِ رَأْسِهِ، حَتَّى دَهَبَ بِهِمَا إِلَى قَفَاهُ، ثُمَّ رَدَّهُمَا إِلَى الْمَكَانِ الَّذِي بَدَأَ مِنْهُ [185: صحيح البخاري]
 «Then he wiped his head with his hands, so he brought them forwards and backwards. He started with the front part of he head until he took them to the nape of his neck, then he brought them back to the place that he had started from.»

B.10. «I was going to do something»

In English we may say:

- (41) «I was going to eat but then the bell rang and I went to answer the door.»

When expressing such a meaning in Arabic, don't use the incorrect:

- (42) كُنْتُ سَأَفْعَلُ ×

Instead you may use the verb دَهَبَ before the actual verb as a *verb of beginning*. It will give the meaning «I started to ...». Examples:

- (43) [3113: صحيح البخاري] فَأَتَانَا وَقَدْ دَخَلْنَا مَضَاجِعَنَا، فَدَهَبْنَا لِنَقُومَ فَقَالَ عَلَى مَكَائِكُمَا
 «He came to us, when we had already gone to bed. We were going to get up but he said, “Stay at your places.”»

<https://forum.wordreference.com/threads/i-was-doing-i-was-going-to-do.2774908/>

B.11. To try to do something

<https://forum.wordreference.com/threads/try-to.2900995/post-20068282>

B.12. Further reading

1. العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي
2. معجم أخطاء الكتاب لصلاح الدين الزعبلوي
3. معجم الأخطاء الشائعة لمحمد العدناني
4. معجم الأغلاط اللغوية المعاصرة لمحمد العدناني
5. أخطاء لغوية شائعة لخالد بن هلال بن ناصر العبري

Work in progress

Work in progress

Appendix C.

Vocabulary and reading

C.1. Reading practice

<https://www.arabook.org/>

C.2. Vocabulary retention

<https://apps.ankiweb.net/>

Work in progress

Work in progress

Appendix D.

Narrations, quotes and humor

D.1. Narrations

عَنْ عَبْدِ الرَّحْمَنِ بْنِ عَوْفٍ، قَالَ سَمِعْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ يَقُولُ قَالَ اللَّهُ أَنَا الرَّحْمَنُ وَهِيَ الرَّحْمُ شَقَقْتُ لَهَا اسْمًا مِنْ اسْمِي مَنْ وَصَلَهَا وَصَلْتَهُ وَمَنْ قَطَعَهَا بَتَّهْ

[1694: سنن أبي داود]

قَالَ ابْنُ عَبَّاسٍ قَالَ النَّبِيُّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فَأَلْفَى ذَلِكَ أُمَّ إِسْمَاعِيلَ وَهِيَ تُحِبُّ الْإِنْسَ فَنَزَلُوا وَأَرْسَلُوا إِلَى أَهْلِهِمْ فَنَزَلُوا مَعَهُمْ حَتَّى إِذَا كَانَ بِهَا أَهْلُ آيَاتٍ مِنْهُمْ وَشَبَّ الْغُلَامُ وَتَعَلَّمَ الْعَرَبِيَّةَ مِنْهُمْ وَأَنْفَسَهُمْ وَأَعْجَبَهُمْ حِينَ شَبَّ

[3364: صحيح البخاري]

عَنْ عَبْدِ اللَّهِ بْنِ مَسْعُودٍ:
قَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ مَنْ قَرَأَ حَرْفًا مِنْ كِتَابِ اللَّهِ فَلَهُ بِهِ حَسَنَةٌ وَالْحَسَنَةُ بِعَشْرِ أَمْثَلِهَا لَا أَقُولُ الْم حَرْفٌ وَلَكِنْ أَلِفٌ حَرْفٌ وَلَا م حَرْفٌ وَمِيمٌ حَرْفٌ

[2910: جامع الترمذي]

عَنْ عَدِيِّ بْنِ حَاتِمٍ أَنَّ رَجُلًا خَطَبَ عِنْدَ النَّبِيِّ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ فَقَالَ مَنْ يُطِيعِ اللَّهَ وَرَسُولَهُ فَقَدْ رَشِدَ وَمَنْ يَعْصِيهِمَا فَقَدْ غَوَى فَقَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ بَشَسِ اخْطِيبُ أَنْتَ قُلْ وَمَنْ يَعِصِ اللَّهَ وَرَسُولَهُ قَالَ ابْنُ ثُمَيْرٍ فَقَدْ غَوَى

[870: صحيح مسلم]

حَدَّثَنَا يَحْيَى عَنْ أَجْلَحَ قَالَ حَدَّثَنَا يَزِيدُ بْنُ الْأَصَمِّ عَنْ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ قَالَ جَاءَ رَجُلٌ إِلَى النَّبِيِّ ﷺ يَرَاغِبُهُ الْكَلَامَ فَقَالَ مَا شَاءَ اللَّهُ وَشِئْتُ فَقَالَ جَعَلْتَنِي لِلَّهِ عَدَلًا مَا شَاءَ اللَّهُ وَحْدَهُ

[3247: مسند أحمد]

عَنْ ابْنِ شَهَابٍ أَنَّ أَنَسَ بْنَ مَالِكٍ رَضِيَ اللَّهُ عَنْهُ أَخْبَرَهُ أَنَّهُ سَمِعَ عُمَرَ بْنَ الْخَطَّابِ رَضِيَ اللَّهُ عَنْهُ يَقُولُ { فَأَنْتَبَتْنَا فِيهَا حَبًّا وَعَبًّا وَقَضْبًا وَزَيْتُونًا وَخَلًّا وَحَدَاتٍ غُلْبًا وَفَاكِهَةً وَأَبًّا } [عبس: ٢٨] قَالَ فَكُلُّ هَذَا قَدْ عَرَفْنَاهُ فَمَا الْأَبُّ ثُمَّ نَقَضَ عَصًا كَانَتْ فِي يَدِهِ فَقَالَ هَذَا لَعَمْرُ اللَّهِ التَّكَلُّفُ اتَّبِعُوا مَا تَيَّنَ لَكُمْ مِنْ هَذَا الْكِتَابِ هَذَا حَدِيثٌ صَحِيحٌ عَلَى شَرْطِ الشَّيْخَيْنِ وَلَمْ يُخْرِجَاهُ [التعليق - من تلخيص الذهبي] ٣٨٩٧ - على شرط البخاري ومسلم

[3897: مستدرک الحاكم]

عن سعيد بن جبير عن ابن عباس قال بعث رب العزة ملك الموت فأخذ من أديم الأرض من عذبتها ومالحها فنلق منه آدم ومن ثم سمي آدم لأنه خُلق من أديم الأرض

[31: سورة البقرة for تفسير الطبري]

وعن أبي عبيد حدثني يحيى بن سعيد عن سفيان عن إبراهيم بن المهاجر عن مجاهد عن ابن عباس قال كنت لا أدري ما «فاطر السموات» (١) حتى أتاني أعرابيان يختصمان في بئر فقال أحدهما: أنا فطرتها أي ابتدأتها

[212/3 شعب الإيمان للبيهقي (ط الرشد)]

الْحَمْدُ لِلَّهِ فَاطِرِ السَّمَوَاتِ وَالْأَرْضِ جَاعِلِ الْمَلَكِةَ رُسُلًا أُولَى أَجْنَحَةٍ مَّتَنَى وَتَلَّتْ (□)
[35:1 سورة فاطر] وَرُبِعَ يَزِيدُ فِي الْخَلْقِ مَا يَشَاءُ إِنَّ اللَّهَ عَلَى كُلِّ شَيْءٍ قَدِيرٌ

قال الأصمعي: قرأت هذه الآية (١)، وإلى جنبي أعرابي، فقلت: والله غفور رحيم، سهواً، فقال الأعرابي: كلام من هذا؟ قلت: كلام الله. قال: أعد فأعدت: والله غفور رحيم، فقال: ليس هذا كلام الله، فتنبهت، فقلت: والله عزيز حكيم. فقال: أصبت، هذا كلام الله. فقلت له: أتقرأ القرآن؟ قال: لا. قلت: فن أين علمت أني أخطأت؟ فقال: يا هذا عزّ فحك فقطع، ولو غفر ورحم لما قطع.

[1/546 زاد المسير في علم التفسير لابن الجوزي]

وَالسَّارِقُ وَالسَّارِقَةُ فَاقْطَعُوا أَيْدِيَهُمَا جَزَاءً بِمَا كَسَبَا نَكَالًا مِنَ اللَّهِ وَاللَّهُ عَزِيزٌ حَكِيمٌ (□)
[38: سورة المائدة]

فقال أبو حاتم: لا تعجبون من هذا، أخبرني الأصمعي أن معتوها جاء إلى أبي عمرو بن العلاء فقال: يا أبا عمرو، لم سميت الخليل خيلاً؟ فبقي أبو عمرو ليس عنده فيه جواب. فقال: لا أدري. فقال: لكني أدري. فقال: علمنا نعلم. قال: لا اختياها في المشي. فقال أبو عمرو لأصحابه بعد ما ولى المجنون: اكتبوا الحكمة وارووها ولو عن معتوه.

[187 مجالس العلماء للزجاجي]

وَأَخْبَرَنَا أَبُو حَاتِمٍ عَنْ الْأَصْمَعِيِّ قَالَ: قَالَ أَبُو عَمْرٍو بْنُ الْعَلَاءِ: سَمِعْتُ أَعْرَابِيًّا يَمَانِيًّا يَقُولُ: فَلَانَ لَغُوبَ جَاءَتْهُ كُتَابِي فَاحْتَقَرَهَا. فَقُلْتُ: يَقُولُ: جَاءَتْهُ كُتَابِي فَقَالَ: أَلَيْسَ بِصَحِيفَةٍ؟

[1/370 جمهرة اللغة لابن دريد]

قال ابن سلام فقلت أنا ليونس هل سمعت من ابن أبي إسحاق شيئاً قال نعم قلت له هل يقول أحدُ الصَّوِيْقِ يعني السويق قال نعم عمرو بن تميم تقولها وما تريد إلى هذا عليك بباب من النحو يطُرد وينقاس

[32 طبقات النحويين واللغويين للزبيدي]

حدثنا أبو بكر بن دريد قال رأيت رجلاً في الوراقين بالبصرة يفضل كتاب المنطق ليعقوب بن السكيت ويقدم الكوفيين فقيل للرياشي وكان قاعداً في الوراقين قال فقال إنما أخذنا اللغة عن حرشة الضباب وأكلة اليرابيع وهؤلاء أخذوا اللغة عن أهل السواد أصحاب الكواميخ وأكلة الشوايز أو كلام يشبه هذا

[69 أخبار النحويين البصريين للسيرافي]

D.2. Quotes

وكان المازني يقول:

من أراد أن يعمل كبيراً في النحو بعد كتاب سيبويه فليستحي

[40 أخبار النحويين البصريين للسيرافي]

وذكر بعض شيوخنا أن الخليل بن أحمد رحمه الله، سئل عن العلل التي يعتل بها في النحو، فقليل له: عن العرب أخذتها أم اخترعتها من نفسك؟ فقال:

إن العرب نطقت على ببيتها وطباعها. وعرفت مواقع كلامها، وقام في عقولها الله، وإن لم يُنقل ذلك عنها، واعتلت أنا بما عندي أنه علة لما علته منه. فإن أكن أصبت العلة فهو الذي التمس. وإن تكن هناك علة له فثلي في ذلك مثل رجل حكيم دخل داراً محكمة البناء، عجبية النظم والأقسام؛ وقد صحت عنده حكمة بانها، بالخبر الصادق أو بالبراهين الواضحة والمجيج اللائحة، فكلمها وقف هذا الرجل في الدار على شيء منها قال: إنما فعل هذا هكذا لعله كذا وكذا، ولسبب كذا وكذا. سنحت له وخطرت بباله محتملة لذلك، بجائز أن يكون الحكيم الباني للدار فعل ذلك للعلة التي ذكرها هذا الذي دخل الدار، وجائز أن يكون فعله لغير تلك العلة، إلا أن ذلك مما ذكره هذا الرجل محتمل أن يكون علة لذلك. فإن سنح لغيري علة لما علته من النحو هو أليق مما ذكرته بالمحاول فليأت بها.

[65] الإيضاح في علل النحو للزجاجي

وقال الفراء أموت وفي نفسي شيء من حتى

[6/180] وفيات الأعيان لابن خلكان

ويقال ما زال النحو مجنونا حتى عقله ابن السراج بأصوله

[6/2535] معجم الأدباء للحمودي

Without exaggeration one could say that the entire linguistic tradition in Arabic is nothing but a huge commentary on the *Kitāb Sibawayhi*.

[Kees Versteegh, *Landmarks in linguistic thought III: The Arabic linguistic tradition* 39]

النحو والله جاف، لكن هذا «التقدير» والله روح النحو، وقلبه النابض.

[محاضرة «التقدير النحوي بين الواقع والتفعيد» ل. أ. د. رياض الخوأم]

D.3. Humor

لَمْ ضَرْبَ زَيْدَ عَمْرًا؟
لأنه سرق واو داود.

ترنو بطرف فاتر فاتن ... أضعف من حجة نحوي

[3/469 يتيمة الدهر للثعالبي]

اضرب أيهم أفضل

[2/399 كتاب سيبويه]

يعجبني أيهم ضربته في داره

[1/168 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

ومثله ما حكى أن بعض الفقراء وقف على باب نحوي فقرعه فقال النحوي من الباب
فقال سائل فقال ينصرف فقال اسمي أحمد فقال النحوي لغلامه أعط سيبويه كسرة.
[1/40 ثمرات الأوراق في المحاضرات لابن حجة الحموي]

وكان لبعضهم ولد نحوي يتتعر في كلامه، فاعتل أبوه علة شديدة أشرف منها على الموت،
فاجتمع عليه أولاده، وقالوا له: ندعوك فلانا أخانا، قال: لا إن جاءني قتلني، فقالوا: نحن
نوصيه أن لا يتكلم، فدعوه، فلما دخل عليه قال له يا أبت: قل لا إله إلا الله تدخل بها
الجنة وتفوز من النار، يا أبت: والله ما أشغلني عنك إلا فلان، فإنه دعاني بالأمس، فأهرس
وأعدس واستبذج وسكبيج وطهيج وأفرج ودجج وأبصل وأمضر ولوزج وافلوزج فصاح أبوه
غمضوني، فقد سبق [أخوك] ملك الموت إلى قبض روحي.

[475 المستطرف في كل فن مستظرف للأبشيبي]

ووقع نحوي في كنيف، فجاء كئاس ليخرجه، فصاح به الكئاس ليعلم أهو حي أم لا، فقال
له النحوي: أطلب لي حبلا دقيقا وشدني شدا وثيقا واجذبني جذبا رفيقا، فقال الكئاس:
[مرأتي] طالق إن أخرجتك منه، ثم تركه وانصرف.

[475 المستظرف في كل فن مستظرف للأبشيبي]

حدثنا أبو طاهر، قال: حدثنا وكيع، قال: حدثني محمد بن خلاد، قال: ثنا الوليد بن هشام القحذمي، قال:

دخل خالد بن صفوان الحمام وفيه رجلٌ مع ابنه، فأراد أن يعرف خالدًا ما عنده من البيان فقال: يا بُني، ابدأ بيداك ورجلاك، ثم التفت إلى خالد فقال: يا أبا صفوان، هذا كلامٌ قد ذهبَ أهله. قال: هذا كلامٌ ما خلق الله له أهلًا قط.

[49 أخبار في النحو لأبي طاهر بن أبي هاشم]

ركب نحويّ سفينة فقال للملاح: أتعرف النحر؟ قال: لا، قال: ذهب نصف عمرك. فهاجت الريح واضطربت السفينة فقال له الملاح: أتعرف السباحة؟ قال لا، قال: ذهب كل عمرك.

[392 روض الأخيّار المنتخب من ربيع الأبرار للأماسي]

Appendix E.

Modifying SCA to sound like a vernacular dialect

Warning

THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

SCA is not typically used in informal settings. Rather Arabs use their native modern vernacular dialects in everyday settings. For the student of Arabic, in order to fit in, and not seem overly formal in these settings, it's not a bad idea to learn a vernacular dialect. Which vernacular dialect you should learn can depend on where you think you would be using your spoken Arabic. The Egyptian, Levantine, and Urban Hijāzi dialects cover a wide strata of the Arab population and, in our opinion, learning any one of these would be useful.

But if you don't find yourself having enough time to learn both SCA and a dialect, you can water down your spoken SCA to sound more like a vernacular. Here are some tips to do this:

1. Soften the semi-vowels. Examples:

Word	pronunciation in exact SCA	pronunciation in watered down SCA
بَيْت	<i>bayt</i>	<i>beyt</i>

2. Replace middle and end hamzahs by their seat letters. Examples:

3. Drop the case endings. Example:

The **ون** of the u-case plural masculine muḍāriʿ verb is also a case ending so it too is dropped.

Drop also the final fathah of the singular masculine māḍī verb.

4. Use only **ين** *īn* instead of *ūna/ina* for the sound masculine plural.
5. For muḍāriʿ verbs where the second letter has a sukoon, convert yafʿal to yifʿal and tafʿal to tifʿal.

6. Use only ما and لا for negation, never لم or ليس.
7. Use the plural masculine verb instead of the dual verbs and the feminine plural verb.
8. Drop اَنْ before the a-case muḍāriʿ verb.
9. Learn the vernacular words for:
 - The verb «to go»
 - The verb «to want»
 - The verb «to bring»
 - The question nouns:

TODO: add examples

Work in progress